

SANSKRIT GRAMMAR

Including both the Classical Language, and
the older Dialects, of Veda and Brahmana

BY

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PREFACE

to the First Edition.

It was in June, 1875, as I chanced to be for a day or two in Leipzig, that I was unexpectedly invited to prepare the Sanskrit grammar for the Indo-European series projected by Messrs. Breitkopf and Härtel. After some consideration, and consultation with friends, I accepted the task, and have since devoted to it what time could be spared from regular duties, after the satisfaction of engagements earlier formed. If the delay seems a long one, it was nevertheless unavoidable; and I would gladly, in the interest of the work itself, have made it still longer. In every such case, it is necessary to make a compromise between measurably satisfying a present pressing need, and doing the subject fuller justice at the cost of more time; and it seemed as if the call for a Sanskrit grammar on a somewhat different plan from those already in use — excellent as some of these in many respects are — was urgent enough to recommend a speedy completion of the work begun.

The objects had especially in view of the preparation of this grammar have been the following:

1. To make a presentation of the facts of the language primarily as they show themselves in use in the literature, and only secondarily as they are laid down by the native grammarians. The earliest European grammars were by the necessity of the case chiefly founded on their native prede-

cessors; and a traditional method was thus established which has been perhaps somewhat too closely adhered to, at the expense of clearness and of proportion, as well as of scientific truth. Accordingly, my attention has not been directed toward a profounder study of the grammatical science of the Hindu schools: their teachings I have been contented to take as already reported to Western learners in the existing Western grammars.

2. To include also in the presentation the forms and constructions of the older language, as exhibited in the Veda and the Brāhmaṇa. Grassmann's excellent Index-Vocabulary to the Rig-Veda, and my own manuscript one to the Atharva-Veda (which I hope soon to be able to make public^[1]), gave me in full detail the great mass of Vedic material; and this, with some assistance from pupils and friends, I have sought to complete, as far as the circumstances permitted, from the other Vedic texts and from the various works of the Brāhmaṇa period, both printed and manuscript.

3. To treat the language throughout as an accented one, omitting nothing of what is known respecting the nature of the Sanskrit accent, its changes in combination and inflection, and the tone of individual words — being, in all this, necessarily dependent especially upon the material presented by the older accentuated texts.

4. To cast all statements, classifications, and so on, into a form consistent with the teachings of linguistic science. In doing this, it has been necessary to discard a few of the long-used and familiar divisions and terms of Sanskrit grammar — for example, the classification and nomenclature of „special tenses” and “general tenses” (which is so indefensible that one can only wonder at its having maintained itself so long), the order and terminology of the conjugation-classes, the separation in treatment of the facts of internal and ex-

1. [↑] It was published, as vol. XII. of the Journal of the American Oriental Society, in 1861.

ternal euphonic combination, and the like. But care has been taken to facilitate the transition from the old to the new; and the changes, it is believed, will commend themselves to unqualified acceptance. It has been sought also to help an appreciation of the character of the language by putting its facts as far as possible into a statistical form. In this respect the native grammar is especially deficient and misleading.

Regard has been constantly had to the practical needs of the learner of the language, and it has been attempted, by due arrangement and by the use of different sizes of type, to make the work as usable by one whose object it is to acquire a knowledge of the classical Sanskrit alone as those are in which the earlier forms are not included. The custom of transliterating all Sanskrit words into European characters, which has become usual in European Sanskrit grammars, is, as a matter of course, retained throughout; and, because of the difficulty of setting even a small Sanskrit type with anything but a large European, it is practiced alone in the smaller sizes.

While the treatment of the facts of the language has thus been made a historical one, within the limits of the language itself, I have not ventured to make it comparative, by bringing in the analogous forms and processes of other related languages. To do this, in addition to all that was attempted beside, would have extended the work, both in content and in time of preparation, far beyond the limits assigned to it. And, having decided to leave out this element, I have done so consistently throughout. Explanations of the origin of forms have been avoided, for the same reason and for others, which hardly call for statement.

A grammar is necessarily in great part founded on its predecessors, and it would be vain to attempt an acknowledgement in detail of all the aid received from other scholars. I have had at hand always especially the very scholarly and reliable brief summary of Kielhorn, the full and

excellent work of Monier Williams, the smaller grammar of Bopp (a wonder of learning and method for the time when it was prepared), and the volumes of Benfey and Müller. As regards to the material of the language, no other aid, of course, has been at all comparable with the great Petersburg lexicon of Böhtlingk and Roth, the existence of which gives by itself a new character to all investigations of the Sanskrit language. What I have not found there or in the special collections made by myself or by others for me, I have called below “not quotable” — a provisional designation, necessarily liable to correction in detail by the results of further researches. For what concerns the verb, its forms and of their classification and uses, I have had, as every one must have, by far the most aid from Delbrück, in his *Altindisches Verbum* and his various syntactical contributions. Former pupils of my own, Professors Avery and Edgren, have also helped me, in connection with this subject and with others, in a way and measure that calls for public acknowledgment. In respect to the important matter of the declension in the earliest language, I have made great use of the elaborate paper in the *Journ. Am. Or. Soc.* (printed contemporaneously with this work, and used by me almost, but not quite, to the end of the subject) by my former pupil Prof. Lanman; my treatment of it is founded on his. My manifold obligations to my own teacher, Prof. Weber of Berlin, also require to be mentioned: among other things, I owe to him the use of his copies of certain unpublished texts of the Brāhmaṇa period, not otherwise accessible to me; and he was kind enough to look through with me my work in its inchoate condition, favoring me with valuable suggestions. For this last favor I have likewise to thank Prof. Delbrück — who, moreover, has taken the trouble to glance over for a like purpose the greater part of the proof-sheets of the grammar, as they came from the press. To Dr. L. von Schröder is due whatever use I have been

able to make (unfortunately a very imperfect one) of the important Māitrāyaṇī-Saṁhitā.^[1]

Of the deficiencies of my work I am, I think, not less fully aware than any critic of it, even the severest, is likely to be. Should it be found to answer its intended purpose well enough to come to another edition, my endeavor will be to improve and complete it; and I shall be grateful for any corrections or suggestions which may aid me in making it a more efficient help to the study of the Sanskrit language and literature.

Gotha, July 1879.

W.D.W.

PREFACE to the Second Edition.

In preparing a new edition of this grammar, I have made use of the new material gathered by myself during the intervening years,^[2] and also of that gathered by others, so far as it was accessible to me and fitted into my plan;^[3] and I have had the benefit of kind suggestions from various quarters — for all of which I desire to return a grateful acknowledgment. By such help, I have been able not only to correct and repair certain errors in omissions of the first edition, but also to speak with more definiteness upon

1. ↑ Since published in full by him, 1881–6.
2. ↑ A part of this new material was published by myself in 1885, as a Supplement to the grammar, under the title “Roots, Verb-Forms, and Primary Derivatives of the Sanskrit Language”.
3. ↑ Especially deserving of mention is Holtzmann’s collection of material from the Mahābhārata, also published (1884) in the form of a Supplement to this work; also Böhtlingk’s similar collection from the larger half of the Rāmāyaṇa.

very many points relating to the material and usages of the language.

In order not to impair the applicability of the references already made to the work by various authors, its paragraphing has been retained unchanged throughout; for increased convenience of further reference, the subdivisions of paragraphs have been more thoroughly marked, by letters (now and then changing a former lettering); and the paragraph-numbers have been set at the outer instead of the inner edge of the upper margin.

My remoteness from the place of publication has forbidden me the reading of more than one proof; but the kindness of Professor Lanman in adding his revision (accompanied by other timely suggestions) to mine, and the care of the printers, will be found, I trust, to have aided in securing a text disfigured by few errors of the press.

Circumstances beyond my control have delayed for a year or two the completion of this revision, and have made it in some parts less complete than I should have desired.

New-Haven, Sept. 1888.

W.D.W.

INTRODUCTION.

Brief Account of the Indian Literature.

It seems desirable to give here such a sketch of the history of Indian literature as shall show the relation to one another of the different periods and forms of the language treated in the following grammar, and the position of the works there quoted.

The name “Sanskrit” (saṁskṛta, 1087 d, *adorned, elaborated, perfected*), which is popularly applied to the whole ancient and sacred language of India, belongs more properly only to that dialect which, regulated and established by the labors of the native grammarians, has led for the last two thousand years or more an artificial life, like that of Latin during most of the same period in Europe, as the written and spoken means of communication of the learned and priestly caste; and which even at the present day fills that office. It is thus distinguished, on the one hand, from the later and derived dialects — as the Prākṛit, forms of language which have datable monuments from as early as the third century before Christ, and which are represented by inscriptions and coins, by the speech of the uneducated characters in the Sanskrit dramas (see below), and by a limited literature; the Pāli, a Prakritic dialect which became the sacred language of Buddhism in Farther India, and is

still in service there as such; and yet later and more altered tongues forming the transition to the languages of modern India. And, on the other hand, it is distinguished, but very much less sharply and widely, from the older dialects or forms of speech presented in the canonical literature, the Veda and Brāhmaṇa.

This fact, of the fixation by learned treatment of an authorized mode of expression, which should thenceforth be used according to rule in the intercourse of the educated, is the cardinal one in Indian linguistic history; and as the native grammatical literature has determined the form of the language, so it has also to a large extent determined the grammatical treatment of the language by European scholars.

Much in the history of the learned movement is still obscure, and opinions are at variance even as to points of prime consequence. Only the concluding works in the development of the grammatical science has been preserved to us; and though they are evidently the perfected fruits of a long series of learned labors, the records of the latter are lost beyond recovery. The time and the place of the creation of Sanskrit are unknown; and as to its occasion, we have only our inferences and conjectures to rely upon. It seems, however, altogether likely that the grammatical sense of the ancient Hindus was awakened in great measure by their study of the traditional sacred texts, and by their comparison of its different language with that of contemporary use. It is certain that the grammatical study of those texts (çākhās, lit'ly *branches*), phonetic and other, was zealously and effectively followed in the Brahmanic schools; this is attested by our possession of a number of phonetico-grammatical treatises, prātiçākhyas (prati çākhām *belonging to each several text*), each having for subject one principal Vedic text, and noting all its peculiarities of form; these, both by the depth and exactness of their own researches and by the number of authorities which they quote, speak plainly of a lively scientific activity continued during a long time. What part, on the other hand, the notice of differ-

ences between the correct speech of the learned and the altered dialects of the vulgar may have borne in the same movement is not easy to determine; but it is not customary that a language has its proper usages fixed by rule until the danger is distinctly felt of its undergoing corruption.

The labors of the general school of Sanskrit grammar reached a climax in the grammarian Pāṇini, whose text-book, containing the facts of the language cast into the highly artful and difficult form of about four thousand algebraic-formula-like rules (in the statement and arrangement of which brevity alone is had in view, at the cost of distinctness and unambiguousness), became for all after time the authoritative, almost sacred, norm of correct speech. Respecting his period, nothing really definite and trustworthy is known; but he is with much probability held to have lived some time (two to four centuries) before the Christian era. He has had commentators in abundance, and has undergone at their hands some measure of amendment and completion; but he has not been overthrown or superseded. The chief and most authoritative commentary on his work is that called the *Mahābhāṣya great comment*, by Patanjali.

A language, even if not a vernacular one, which is in tolerably wide and constant use for writing and speaking, is, of course, kept in life principally by direct tradition, by communication from teacher to scholar and the study and imitation of existing texts, and not by the learning of grammatical rules; yet the existence of grammatical authority, and especially of a single one, deemed infallible and of prescriptive value, could not fail to exert a strong regulative influence, leading to the avoidance of more and more of what was, even if lingering in use, inconsistent with his teachings, and also, in the constant reproduction of texts, to the gradual effacement of whatever they might contain that was unapproved. Thus the whole more modern literature of India has been Paninized, so to speak, pressed into the mould prepared by him and his school. What are the limits of the artificiality of this process is not yet known.

The attention of special students of the Hindu grammar (and the subject is so intricate and difficult that the number is exceedingly small of those who have mastered it sufficiently to have a competent opinion on such general matters) has been hitherto mainly directed toward determining what the Sanskrit according to Pāṇini really is, toward explaining the language from the grammar. And, naturally enough, in India, or wherever else the leading object is to learn to speak and write the language correctly — that is, as authorized by the grammarians — that is the proper course to pursue. This, however, is not the way really to understand the language. The time must soon come, or it has come already, when the endeavor shall be instead to explain the grammar from the language: to test in all details, so far as shall be found possible, the reason of Pāṇini's rules (which contain not a little that seems problematic, or even sometimes perverse); to determine what and how much genuine usage he had everywhere as foundation, and what traces may be left in the literature of usages possessing an inherently authorized character, though unratiſied by him.

By the term "classical" or "later" language, then, as constantly used below in the grammar, is meant the language of those literary monuments which are written in conformity with the rules of the native grammar: virtually, the whole proper Sanskrit literature. For although parts of this are doubtless earlier than Pāṇini, it is impossible to tell just what parts, or how far they have escaped in their style the leveling influence of the grammar. The whole, too, may be called so far an artificial literature as it is written in a phonetic form (see grammar, 101 a) which never can have been a truly vernacular and living one. Nearly all of it is metrical: not poetic works only, but narratives, histories (so far as anything deserving that name can be said to exist), and scientific treatises of every variety, are done into verse; a prose and prose literature hardly has an existence (the principle exceptions, aside from the voluminous commentaries, are a few stories, as the *Daṣakumāracarita* and the *Vāsavadattā*). Of linguistic history there is next to nothing

in it all; but only a history of style, and this for the most part showing a gradual depravation, and increase of artificiality and an intensification of certain more undesirable features of the language — such as the use of passive constructions and of participles instead of verbs, and the substitution of compounds for sentences.

This being the condition of the later literature, it is of so much the higher consequence that there is an earlier literature, to which the suspicion of artificiality does not attach, or attaches at least only in a minimal degree, which has a truly vernacular character, and abounds in prose as well as verse.

The results of the very earliest literary productiveness of the Indian people are the hymns with which, when they had only crossed the threshold of the country, and when their geographic horizon was still limited to the river-basin of the Indus with its tributaries, they praised their gods, the deified powers of nature, and accompanied the rites of their comparatively simple worship. At what period these were made and sung cannot be determined with any approach to accuracy: it may have been as early as 2000 B.C. They were long handed down by oral tradition, preserved by the care, and increased by the additions and imitations, of succeeding generations; the mass was ever growing, and, with the change of habits and beliefs and religious practices, was being variously applied — sung in chosen extracts, mixed with other material into liturgies, adapted with more or less of distortion to help the needs of a ceremonial which was coming to be of immense elaboration and intricacy. And, at some time in the course of this history, there was made for preservation a great collection of the hymn-material, mainly its oldest and most genuine part, to the extent of over a thousand hymns and ten thousand verses, arranged according to traditional authorship and to subject and length and metre of hymn: this collection is the Rig-Veda *Veda of verses* (ṛc) or of *hymns*. Other collections were made also out of the same general mass of traditional material: doubtless later, although the inter-

relations of this period are as yet too unclear to allow of our speaking with entire confidence as to anything concerning them. Thus, the Sāma-Veda *Veda of chants* (sāman), containing only about a sixth as much, its verses nearly all found in the Rig-Veda also, but appearing here with numerous differences of reading: these were passages put together for chanting at the soma-sacrifices. Again, collections called by the comprehensive name of Yajur-Veda *Veda of sacrificial formulas* (yajus): these contained not verses alone, but also numerous prose utterances, mingled with the former, in the order in which they are practically employed in the ceremonies; they were strictly liturgical collections. Of these, there are in existence several texts, which have their mutual differences: the Vājasaneyi-Saṁhitā (in two slightly discordant versions, Mādhyandina and Kāṇva), sometimes also called the White Yajur-Veda; and the various and considerably differing texts of the Black Yajur-Veda, namely the Tāittirīya-Saṁhitā, the Māitrāyaṇī-Saṁhitā, the Kapiṣṭhala-Saṁhitā, and the Kāṭhaka (the two last not yet published). Finally, another historical collection, like the Rig-Veda, but made up mainly of later and less accepted material, and called (among other less current names) the Atharva-Veda *Veda of the Atharvans* (a legendary priestly family); it is somewhat more than half as bulky as the Rig-Veda, and contains a certain amount of material corresponding to that of the latter, and also a number of very brief prose passages. To this last collection is very generally refused in the orthodox literature the name of Veda; but for us it is the most interesting of all, after the Rig-Veda, because it contains the largest amount of hymn-material (or mantra, as it is called, in distinction from the prose brāhmaṇa), and in a language which, though distinctly less antique than that of the other, is nevertheless truly Vedic. Two versions of it are extant, one of them in only a single known manuscript.

A not insignificant body of like material, and of various period (although doubtless in the main belonging to the latest time of the Vedic productiveness, and in part perhaps

the imitative work of a yet more modern time), is scattered through the texts to be later described, the Brāhmaṇas and the Sūtras. To assemble and sift and compare it is now one of the pressing needs of Vedic study.

The fundamental divisions of the Vedic literature here mentioned have all had their various schools of sectaries, each of these with a text of its own, showing some differences from those of the other schools: but those mentioned above are all that are now known to be in existence; and the chance of the discovery of others grows every year smaller.

The labor of the schools in the conservation of their sacred texts was extraordinary, and has been crowned with such success that the text of each school, whatever may be its differences from the other schools, is virtually without various readings, preserved with all its peculiarities of dialect, and its smallest and most exceptional traits of phonetic form, pure and unobscured. It is not the place here to describe the means by which, in addition to the religious care of the sectaries, this accuracy was secured: forms of text, lists of peculiarities and treatises upon them, and so on. When this kind of care began in the case of each text, and what of original character may have been effaced before it, or lost in spite of it, cannot be told. But it is certain that the Vedic records furnish, on the whole, a wonderfully accurate and trustworthy picture of a form of ancient Indian language (as well as ancient Indian beliefs and institutions) which was a natural and undisturbed one, and which goes back a good way behind the classical Sanskrit. Its differences from the latter the following treatise endeavors to show in detail.

Along with the verses and sacrificial formulas and phrases in the text of the Black Yajur-Veda are given long prose sections, in which the ceremonies are described, their meaning and the reason of the details and the accompanying utterances are discussed and explained, illustrative legends are reported or fabricated, and various speculations, etymological and other, are indulged in. Such matter comes

to be called *brāhmaṇa* (apparently *relating to the brahman* or *worship*). In the White Yajur-Veda, it is separated into a work by itself, beside the *saṁhitā* or text of verse and formulas, and is called the *Çatapatha-Brāhmaṇa Brāhmaṇa of a hundred ways*. Other similar collections are found, belonging to various other schools of Vedic study, and they bear the common name of *Brāhmaṇa*, with the name of the school, or some other distinctive title, prefixed. Thus, the *Āitareya* and *Kāuṣītaki-Brāhmaṇas*, belonging to the schools of the Rig-Veda, the *Pañcaviṅça* and *Ṣaḍviṅça-Brāhmaṇas* and other minor works, to the Sāma-Veda; the *Gopatha-Brāhmaṇa*, to the Atharva-Veda; and a *Jāiminiya-* or *Talavakāra-Brāhmaṇa*, to the Sāma-Veda, has recently (Burnell) been discovered in India; the *Tāittirīya-Brāhmaṇa* is a collection of mingled mantra and *brāhmaṇa*, like the *saṁhitā* of the same name, but supplementary and later. These works are likewise regarded as canonical by the schools, and are learned by their sectaries with the same extreme care which is devoted to the *saṁhitās*, and their condition of textual preservation is of a kindred excellence. To a certain extent, there is among them the possession of common material: a fact the bearings of which are not yet fully understood.

Notwithstanding the inanity of no small part of their contents, the *Brāhmaṇas* are of a high order of interest in their bearings on the history of Indian institutions; and philologically they are not less important, since they represent a form of language in most respects intermediate between the classical and that of the Vedas, and offer specimens on a large scale of a prose style, and of one which is in the main a natural and freely developed one — the oldest and most primitive Indo-European prose.

Beside the *Brāhmaṇas* are sometimes found later appendices, of a similar character, called *Āraṇyakas* (*forest-sections*): as the *Āitareya-Āraṇyaka*, *Tāittirīya-Āraṇyaka*, *Bṛhad-Āraṇyakas*, and so on. And from some of these, or even from the *Brāhmaṇas*, are extracted the earliest *Upaniṣads* (*sittings, lectures on sacred subjects*) — which,

however, are continued and added to down to a comparatively modern time. The Upanishads are one of the lines by which the Brāhmaṇa literature passes over into the later theological literature.

Another line of transition is shown in the Sūtras (*lines, rules*). The works thus named are analogous with the Brāhmaṇas in that they belong to the schools of Vedic study and are named from them, and that they deal with the religious ceremonies: treating them, however, in the way of prescription, not of dogmatic explanation. They, too, contain some mantra or hymn-material, not found to occur elsewhere. In part (ṣrāuta or kalpa-sūtras), they take up the great sacrificial ceremonies, with which the Brāhmaṇas have to do; in part (gṛhya-sūtras), they teach the minor duties of a pious householder; in some cases (sā-mayācārika-sūtras) they lay down the general obligations of one whose life is in accordance with prescribed duty. And out of the last two, or especially the last, come by natural development the law-books (dharma-śāstras), which make a conspicuous figure in later literature: the oldest and most noted of them being that called by the name of Manu (an outgrowth, it is believed by many, of the Mānava Vedic school); to which are added that of Yājñavalkya, and many others.

Respecting the chronology of this development, or the date of any class of writings, still more of any individual work, the less that is said the better. All dates given in Indian literary history are pins set up to be bowled down again. Every important work has undergone so many more or less transforming changes before reaching the form in which it comes to us, that the question of original construction is complicated with that of final redaction. It is so with the law-book of Manu, just mentioned, which has well-founded claims to being regarded as one of the very oldest works of the proper Sanskrit literature, if not the the oldest (it has variously been assigned, to periods from six centuries before Christ to four after Christ). It is so, again, in a still more striking degree, with the great legendary

epic of the Mahābhārata. The ground-work of this is doubtless of very early date; but it has served as a text into which materials of various character and period have been inwoven, until it has become a heterogeneous mass, a kind of cyclopedia for the warrior-caste, hard to separate into its constituent parts. The story of Nala, and the philosophical poem Bhagavad-Gītā, are two of the most noted of its episodes. The Rāmāyaṇa, the other most famous epic, is a work of another kind: though also worked over and more or less altered in its transmission to our time, it is the production, in the main, of a single author (Vālmīki); and it is generally believed to be in part allegorical, representing the introduction of Aryan culture and dominion into Southern India. By its side stand a number of minor epics, of various authorship and period, as the Raghuvamśa (ascribed to the dramatist Kālidāsa), the Māghakāvya, the Bhaṭṭikāvya (the last, written chiefly with the grammatical intent of illustrating by use as many as possible of the numerous formations which, though taught by the grammarians, find no place in the literature).

The Purāṇas, a large class of works mostly of immense extent, are best mentioned in connection with the epics. They are pseudo-historical and prophetic in character, of modern date, and of inferior value. Real history finds no place in Sanskrit literature, nor is there any conscious historical element in any of the works composing it.

Lyric poetry is represented by many works, some of which, as the Meghadūta and Gītogovinda, are of no mean order of merit.

The drama is a still more noteworthy and important branch. The first indications of dramatical inclination and capacity on the part of the Hindus are seen in certain hymns of the Veda, where a mythological or legendary situation is conceived dramatically, and set forth in the form of a dialogue — well-known examples are the dialogue of Saramā and the Paṇis, that of Yama and his sister Yamī, that of Vasishtha and the rivers, that of Agni and the other gods — but there are no extant intermediaries between these

and the standard drama. The beginnings of the latter date from a period when in actual life the higher and educated characters used Sanskrit, and the lower and uneducated used the popular dialects derived from it, the Prākritis; and their dialogue reflects this condition of things. Then, however learning (not to call it pedantry) intervened, and stereotyped the new element; a Prākrit grammar grew up beside the Sanskrit grammar, according to the rules of which Prākrit could be made indefinitely on a substrate of Sanskrit; and none of the existing dramas need to date from the time of the vernacular use of Prākrit, while most or all of them are undoubtedly much later. Among the dramatic authors, Kālidāsa is incomparably the chief, and his *Çakuntalā* is distinctly his masterpiece. His date has been a matter of much inquiry and controversy; it is doubtless some centuries later than our era. The only other worked deserving to be mentioned along with Kālidāsa's is the *Mṛcchakaṭī* of Çūdraka, also of questionable period, but believed to be the oldest of the extant dramas.

A partly dramatic character belongs also to the fable, in which animals are represented as acting and speaking. The most noted works in this department are the *Pañcatantra*, which through Persian and Semitic versions has made its way all over the world, and contributes a considerable quota to the fable-literature of every European language, and, partly founded on it, the comparatively recent and popular *Hitopadeça* (*salutary instruction*).

Two of the leading departments of Sanskrit scientific literature, the legal and the grammatical, have already been sufficiently noticed; of those remaining, the most important is by far the philosophical. The beginnings of philosophical speculation are seen already in some of the later hymns of the Veda, more abundantly in the *Brāhmaṇas* and *Āraṇyakas*, and then especially in the *Upanishads*. The evolution and historical relation of the systems of philosophy, and the age of their text-books, are matters on which much obscurity still rests. There are six systems of primary rank, and reckoned as orthodox, although really standing in no

accordance with approved religious doctrines. All of them seek the same end, the emancipation of the soul from the necessity of continuing its existence in a succession of bodies, and its unification with the All-soul; but they differ in regard to the means by which they seek to attain this end.

The astronomical science of the Hindus is a reflection of that of Greece, and its literature is of recent date; but as mathematicians, in arithmetic and geometry, they have shown more independence. Their medical science, although its beginnings go back even to the Veda, in the use of medicinal plants with accompanying incantations, is of little account, and its proper literature by no means ancient.

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ABBREVIATIONS.

- AA. Āitareya-Āraṇyaka
 AB. Āitareya-Brāhmaṇa.
 AÇS. Āçvalāyana-Çrāuta-Sūtra.
 AGS. Āçvalāyana-Gṛhya-Sūtra.
 Āpast. Āpastamba-Sūtra.
 APr. Atharva-Prātiçākhyā.
 AV. Atharva-Veda.
 B. or Br. Brāhmaṇas.
 BAU. Bṛhad-Āraṇyaka-Upaniṣad.
 BhG. Bhagavad-Gītā.
 BhP. Bhāgavata-Purāṇa.
 BR. Bōhtlingk and Roth (Petersburg Lexicon).
 C. Classical Sanskrit.
 Ç. Çakuntalā.
 Çatr. Çatrumjaya-Māhātmyam.
 ÇB. Çatapatha-Brāhmaṇa.
 ÇÇS. Çāṅkhāyana-Çrāuta-Sūtra.
 ÇGS. Çāṅkhāyana-Gṛhya-Sūtra.
 ChU. Chāndogya-Upaniṣad.
 ÇvU. Çvetāçvatara-Upaniṣad.
 DKC. Daça-Kumāra-Carita.
 E. Epos (MBh. and R.).
 GB. Gopatha-Brāhmaṇa.
 GGS. Gobhiliya-Gṛhya-Sūtra.
 H. Hitopadeça.
 Har. Harivaṇça.
 JB. Jāiminīya (or Talavakāra) Brāhmaṇa.
 JUB. Jāiminīya-Upaniṣad-Brāhmaṇa.
 K. Kāṭhaka.
 Kap. Kapiṣṭhala-Saṁhitā.
 KB. Kāuṣṭiki- (or Çāṅkhāyana-) Brāhmaṇa.
 KBU. Kāuṣṭiki-Brāhmaṇa-Upaniṣad.
 KÇS. Kātyāyana-Çrāuta-Sūtra.
 KS. Kāuçika-Sūtra.
 KSS. Kathā-Sarit-Sāgara.
 KṭhU. Kaṭha Upaniṣad.
 KU. Kena-Upaniṣad.
 LÇS. Lātyāyana-Çrāuta-Sūtra.
 M. Manu.
 MāiU. Māitri-Upaniṣad.

MBh. Mahābhārata.
MḍU. Muṇḍaka-Upaniṣad.
Megh. Meghadūta.
MS. Māitrāyaṇī-Saṁhitā.
Nāiṣ. Nāiṣadhīya.
Nir. Nirukta.
Pañc. Pañcatantra.
PB. Pañcaviṅṣa- (or Tāṇḍya-) Brāhmaṇa.
PGS. Pāraskara-Gṛhya-Sūtra.
PU. Praçna Upaniṣad.
R. Rāmāyaṇa.
Ragh. Raghuvaṅṣa.
RPr. Rigveda-Prātiçākhyā.
RT. Rājā-Taraṅginī.
RV. Rig-Veda.
S. Sūtras.
ŞB. Şaḍviṅṣa-Brāhmaṇa.
Spr. Indische Sprüche (Böhtlingk).
SV. Sāma-Veda.
TA. Tāittirīya-Āraṇyaka.
TB. Tāittirīya-Brāhmaṇa.
TPr. Tāittirīya-Prātiçākhyā.
Tribh. Tribhāṣyaratna (comm. to TPr).
TS. Tāittirīya-Saṁhitā.
U. Upaniṣads.
V. Vedas (RV., AV., SV.).
Vas. Vasiṣṭha.
VBS. Varāha-Bṛhat-Saṁhitā.
Vet. Vetālapañcaviṅṣatī.
Vikr. Vikramorvaçi.
VPr. Vājasaneyi-Prātiçākhyā.
VS. Vājasaneyi-Saṁhitā.
VS. Kāṇ. do. Kāṇva-text.
Y. Yājñavalkya.

CHAPTER I.

ALPHABET.

1. The natives of India write their ancient and sacred language in a variety of alphabets — generally, in each part of the country, in the same alphabet which they use for their own vernacular. The mode of writing, however, which is employed throughout the heart of Aryan India, or in Hindustan proper, is alone adopted by European scholars: it is called the devanāgarī.

a. This name is of doubtful origin and value. A more comprehensive name is nāgarī (perhaps, *of the city*); and deva-nāgarī is *nāgarī of the gods*, or *of the Brahmans*.

2. Much that relates to the history of the Indian alphabets is still obscure. The earliest written monuments of known date in the country are the inscriptions containing the edicts of Aṣoka or Piyadasi, of about the middle of the third century B.C. They are in two different systems of characters, of which one shows distinct signs of derivation from a Semitic source, while the other is also probably, though much less evidently, of the same origin. From the latter, the Laṭh, or Southern Aṣoka character (of Girnar), come the later Indian alphabets, both those of the northern Aryan languages and those of the southern Dravidian languages. The nāgarī, devanāgarī, Bengālī, Guzerātī, and others, are varieties of its northern derivatives; and with them are related some of the alphabets of peoples outside of India — as in Tibet and Farther India — who have adopted Hindu culture or religion.

a. There is reason to believe that writing was first employed in India for practical purposes — for correspondence and business and the like — and only by degrees came to be applied to literary use. The literature, to a great extent, and the most fully in proportion to its claimed sanctity and authority, ignores all written record, and assumes to be kept in existence by oral tradition alone.

3. Of the devanāgarī itself there are minor varieties, depending on differences of locality or of period, as also of individual hand (see examples in Weber's catalogue of the Berlin Sanskrit MSS., in Rājendralāla Mitra's notices of MSS. in Indian libraries, in the published fac-similes of inscriptions, and so on); and these are in some measure reflected in the type prepared for printing, both in India and in Europe. But a student who makes himself familiar with the one style of printed characters will have little difficulty with the others, and will soon learn, by practice, to read the manuscripts. A few specimens of types other than those used in this work are given in Appendix A.

a. On account of the difficulty of combining them with the smaller sizes of our Roman and Italic type, the devanāgarī characters are used below only in connection with the first or largest size. And, in accordance with the laudable usage of recent grammars, they are, wherever given, also transliterated, in Clarendon letters; while the latter alone are used in the other sizes.

4. The student may be advised to try to familiarize himself from the start with the devanāgarī mode of writing. At the same time, it is not indispensable that he should do so until, having learned the principal paradigms, he comes to begin reading and analysing the parsing; and many will find the latter the more practical, and in the end equally or more effective, way.

5. The characters of the devanāgarī alphabet, and the European letters which will be used in transliterating them, are as follows:

Vowels				short		long	
		simple		1	अ a	2	आ ā
				3	इ i	4	ई ī
				5	उ u	6	ऊ ū
				7	ऋ ṛ	8	ॠ ṝ
				9	ऌ ḷ	10	ॡ ḹ
		diphthongs		11	ए e	12	ऐ āi
13	ओ o			14	औ āu		
Visarga		15 अः ḥ					
Anusvāra		16 अं, अँ ṁ or ṁ̄ (see 73 c).					
Mutes	guttural	17 क k	18 ख kh	19 ग g	20 घ gh	21 ङ ṅ	
	palatal	22 च c	23 छ ch	24 ज j	25 झ jh	26 ञ ñ	
	lingual	27 ट ṭ	28 ठ ṭh	29 ड ḍ	30 ढ ḍh	31 ण ṇ	
	dental	32 त t	33 थ th	34 द d	35 ध dh	36 न n	
	labial	37 प p	38 फ ph	39 ब b	40 भ bh	41 म m	

Semivowels	palatal	⁴² य y
	lingual	⁴³ र r
	dental	⁴⁴ ल l
	labial	⁴⁵ व v
Sibilants	palatal	⁴⁶ श ष
	lingual	⁴⁷ ष ण
	dental	⁴⁸ स s
Aspiration		⁴⁹ ह h

a. To these may be added a lingual **ḷ** ऌ, which in some of the Vedic texts takes the place of **ḍ** ढ when occurring between two vowels ([54](#)).

6. A few other sounds, recognized by the theories of the Hindu grammarians, but either having no separate characters to represent them or only very rarely and exceptionally written, will be noticed below (71 b, c, 230). Such are the guttural and labial breathings, the nasal semivowels, and others.

7. The order of arrangement given above is that in which the sounds are catalogued and described by the native grammarians; and it has been adopted by the European scholars as the alphabetic order, for indexes, dictionaries, etc.: to the Hindus, the idea of an alphabetic arrangement for such practical uses is wanting.

a. In some works (as the Petersburg lexicon), a visarga which is regarded as equivalent to and exchangeable with a sibilant (172) is, though written as a visarga, given the alphabetic place of the sibilant.

8. The theory of the devanāgarī, as of the other Indian modes of writing, is syllabic and consonantal. That is to say, it regards as the written unit, not the simple sound, but the syllable (akṣara); and further, as the substantial part of the syllable, the consonant or the consonants which precede the vowel — this latter being merely implied, or, if written, being written by a subordinate sign attached to the consonant.

9. Hence follow these two principles:

A. The forms of the vowel-characters given in the alphabetical scheme above are used only when the vowel

forms a syllable by itself, or is not combined with a preceding consonant; that is, when it is either initial or preceded by another vowel. In combinations with a consonant, other modes of representation are used.

B. If more consonants than one precede the vowel, forming with it a single syllable, their characters must be combined into a single compound character.

a. Native Hindu usage, in manuscripts and inscriptions, treats the whole material of a sentence alike, not separating its words from one another, any more than the syllables of the same word: a final consonant is combined into one written syllable with the initial vowel or consonant or consonants of the following word. It never occurred to the Hindus to space their words in any way, even where the mode of writing admitted such treatment; nor to begin a paragraph on a new line; nor to write one line of verse under another: everything, without exception, is written solid by them, filling the whole page.

b. Thus, the sentence and verse-line *aham rudrebhir vasubhiḥ carāmy aham ādityāir uta viṣvadevāiḥ* (Rig-Veda X, 125. 1: see Appendix B) *I wander with the Vasus, the Rudras, I with the Ādityas and the All-Gods* is thus syllabized: a haṁ ru dre bhi rva su bhi ṣca rā mya ha mā di tyāi ru ta vi ṣva de vāiḥ, with each syllable ending with a vowel (or a vowel modified by the nasal-sign anusvāra, or having the sign of a final breathing, visarga, added: these being the only elements that can follow a vowel in the same syllable); and it is (together with the next line) written in the manuscripts after this fashion:

अहँरुद्रेभिर्वसुभिश्चराम्यहमादित्यै
रुतविश्वदेवैः।अहंमित्रावरुणोभा
विभर्म्यहमिन्द्राग्नीहमश्विनीमा॥

Each syllable is written separately, and by many scribes the successive syllables are parted a little from one another: thus,

अ हँ र उ द्रे भि र्व सु भि श्च रा म्य ह मा दि त्यै

and so on.

c. In Western practice, however, it is almost universally customary to divide paragraphs, to make the lines of verse follow one another, and also to separate the words so far as this can be done without changing the mode of writing them. See Appendix B, where the verse here given so treated.

d. Further, in works prepared for beginners in the language, it is not uncommon to make a more complete separation of words by a

free use of the virāma-sign (11) under final consonants: thus, for example,

अहं रुद्रेभिर् वसुभिश्च चराम्य अहम् आदित्यैर् उत विश्वदेवैः।

or even by indicating also the combinations of initial and final vowels (126, 127): for example,

अहं मित्रावरुणो भा विभर्म्य अहम् इन्द्राग्नी अहम् अश्विनो भा॥

e. In transliterating, Western methods of separation of words are of course to be followed; to do otherwise would be simple pedantry.

10. Under A, it is to be noticed that the modes of indicating a vowel combined with a preceding consonant are as follows:

a. The short अ a has no written sign at all; the consonant-sign itself implies a following अ a, unless some other vowel-sign is attached to it (or else the virāma: 11). Thus, the consonant-signs as given above in the alphabetic scheme are really the signs of the syllables ka, kha, etc. etc. (to ha).

b. The long आ ā is written by a perpendicular stroke after the consonant: thus, का kā, दा dā, हा hā.

c. Short इ i and long ई ī are written by a similar stroke, which for short i is placed before the consonant and for long ī is placed after it, and in either case is connected with the consonant by a hook above the upper line: thus, कि ki, की kī; भि bhi, भी bhī; नि ni, नी nī.

The hook above, turning to the left or to the right, is historically the essential part of the character, having been originally the whole of it; the hooks were only later prolonged, so as to reach all the way down beside the consonant. In the MSS., they almost never have the horizontal stroke drawn across them above, though this is added in the printed characters: thus, originally के ki, की kī; in the MSS. कि, की; in print कि, की.

d. The u-sounds, short and long, are written by hooks attached to the lower end of the consonant-sign: thus कु ku, कू kū; दु du, दू dū. On account of the necessities of combination, du and dū are somewhat disguised: thus, ड , ढ; and the forms with र r and ह h are still more irregular: thus, रु ru, रू rū; हु hu, हू hū.

e. The ṛ-vowels, short and long, are written by a subjoined hook, single or double, opening toward the right: thus, कृ kr, कृ kṛ; दृ dr, दृ dṛ. In the h-sign, the hooks are usually attached to the middle, thus: ह hr, ह hṛ.

As to the combination of ṛ with preceding r, see below, 14 d.

f. The ḷ-vowel is written with a reduced form of its full initial character: thus, कृ kḷ; the corresponding long has no real occurrence (23 a), but would be written with a similar reduced sign.

g. The diphthongs are written by strokes, single or double, above the upper line, combined, for औ o and औ āu, with the ā-sign after the consonant: thus, कै ke, कै kâi; को ko, को kâu.

h. In some devanāgarī manuscripts (as the Bengālī alphabet), the single stroke above, or one of the double ones, is replaced by a sign like the ā-sign before the consonant, thus: कै ke, कै kâi; को ko, को kâu.

11. A consonant-sign, however, is capable of being made to signify the consonant-sound alone, without an added vowel, by having written beneath it a stroke called the virāma (*rest, stop*): thus, क k, द d, ह h.

a. Since, as was pointed out above, the Hindus write the words of a sentence continuously like one word (9 a, 9 b), the virāma is in general called for only when a final consonant occurs before a pause. But it is also occasionally resorted to by scribes, or in print, in order to avoid an awkward or difficult combination of consonant-signs: thus,

लिङ्गभिः liṅgbhiḥ, लिङ्गसु liṅgsu, अङ्गस्वः aṅkṣva;

and it is used to make a separation of words in texts prepared for beginners (9 d).

12. Under B, it is to be noticed that the consonant combinations are for the most part not at all difficult to make or to recognize for one who is familiar with the simple signs. The characteristic part of a consonant-sign that is to be added to another is taken (to the exclusion of the horizontal or of the perpendicular framing-line, or of both), and they are put together according to convenience,

either side by side, or one above the other; in a few combinations either arrangement is allowed. The consonant that is to be pronounced first is set before the other in the one order, and above it in the other order.

a. Examples of side-by-side arrangement are: गग gga, ज्ञ ज्ञा, प्य pya, न्मा nma, त्था ttha, भ्या bhya, स्का ska, ण्णा ãña, त्का tka.

b. Examples of the above-and-below arrangement are: क्का kka, क्वा kva, च्चा cca, ज्ञा ãña, द्दा dda, प्ता pta, त्ना tna, त्वा tva.

13. In some cases, however, there is more or less abbreviation or disguise of the independent form of a consonant-sign in combination. Thus,

a. Of क k in क्ता kta, क्ला kla; and in क्णा kña etc.

b. Of त t in त्ता tta;

c. Of द d in द्ता dga, द्ना dna, etc;

d. Of म m and य y, when following other consonants: thus, क्य kya, क्मा kma, ण्या ãña, द्मा dma, द्या dya, ह्या hma, ह्या hya, च्या chya, ढ्या ðhya.

e. Of श ष, which generally becomes श् when followed by a consonant: thus, च्छा cca, म्मा cna, च्छा cva, म्मा cya. The same change is usual when a vowel-sign is added below: thus शु cū, श्रु cr.

f. Other combinations, of not quite obvious value, are ण्णा ãña, ल्ला lla, द्दहा ddha, द्दभा dbha, ष्टा şta, ष्टा ştha; and the compounds of ह h: as ह्णा hña, ह्ना hna.

g. In a case or two, no trace of the constituent letters in recognizable: thus, क्क्षा kṣa, ज्ञा ãña.

14. The semivowel र r, in making combinations with other consonants, is treated in a wholly peculiar manner, analogous with that in which the vowels are treated.

a. If pronounced before another consonant or combination of consonants, it is written above the latter, with a

hook opening to the right (much like the sign of the vowel *ṛ*, as written under a consonant: 10 e): thus, कै rka, रै rṣa, र्वै rtva, र्यै rmya, र्तै rtsna.

b. Then, if a consonant-group thus containing *r* as first member is followed by a vowel that has its sign, or a part of its sign, or its sign of nasality (*anusvāra*: 70, 71), written above the line, the *r*-sign is placed furthest to the right: thus, कै rke, कै rkaṅ, किं rki, कीं rkī, कौं rko, कीं rkīṅ, कौं rkoṅ.

c. If *r* is pronounced after another consonant, whether before a vowel or before yet another consonant, it is written with a straight stroke below, slanting to the left: thus, प्र pra, ध dhra, य gra, स sra, द्ध ddhra, न् ntra, ग् grya, स् srva, न्त्र ntrya; and, with modifications of a preceding consonant-sign like those noticed above (13), त tra, द dra, ञ gra, ह hra.

d. When र *r* is to be combined with a following ऋ *ṛ*, it is the vowel which is written in full, with its initial character, and the consonant in subordination to it: thus, र्ऋ ṛṛ.

15. Further combinations, of three, four, or even five consonant-signs, are made according to the same rules. Examples are:

of three consonants, त्त्वा ttva, द्ध्वा ddhya, द्व्वा dvya, द्र्य drya, ध्य dhrya, प्स्वा psva, ष्य ṣṭhya, ह्य hvya;

of four consonants, क्त्र्य ktrya, इक्ष्य űkṣya, ष्ट्र्य ṣṭrya, त्म्य tsmya;

of five consonants, र्त्य र्त्स्य rtsnyā.

a. The manuscripts, and the type-fonts as well, differ from one another more in their management of consonant combinations than in any other respect, often having peculiarities which one needs a little practice to understand. It is quite useless to give in a grammar the whole series of possible combinations (some of them excessively rare) which are provided for in any given type-font, or even in all. There is nothing which due familiarity

with the simple signs and with the above rules of combination will not enable the student readily to analyse and explain.

16. a. A sign called the avagraha (*separator*) — namely ऽ — is occasionally used in the manuscripts, sometimes in the manner of a hyphen, sometimes as a mark of hiatus, sometimes to mark the elision of initial अ a after final ए e or ओ o (135). In printed texts, especially European, it is ordinarily applied to use the last mentioned, and to that alone: thus, ते ऽब्रुवन् te 'bruvan, सो ऽब्रवीत् so 'bravīt, for te abruvan, so abravīt.

b. If the elided initial-vowel is nasal, and has the anusvāra-sign (70, 71) written above, this is usually and more properly transferred to the eliding vowel; but sometimes it is written instead over the avagraha-sign: thus, for so 'ṇṇumān, from so aṇṇumān, either सो ऽण्णुमान् or सो ऽण्णुमान्.

c. The sign ° is used in place of something that is omitted, and to be understood from the connection: thus, वीरसेनसुतस् °तम् °तेन vīrasenasutas -tam -tena.

d. Signs of punctuation are । and ॥.

At the end of a verse, a paragraph, or the like, the latter of them is ordinarily written twice, with the figure of enumeration between: thus, ॥२०॥

17. The numeral figures are

१ 1, २ 2, ३ 3, ४ 4, ५ 5, ६ 6, ७ 7, ८ 8, ९ 9, ० 0

In combination, to express larger numbers, they are used in precisely the same way as European digits: thus, २५ 25, ६३० 630, ७००० 7000, १८९६ 1896.

18. The Hindu grammarians call the different sounds, and the characters representing them, by a kārā (*maker*) added to the sound of the letter, if a vowel, or to the letter followed by a, if consonant. Thus, the sound or character a is called akārā; k is kakārā; and so on. But the kārā is also omitted, and a, ka, etc. are used alone. The r, however, is not called rakārā, but only ra, or repha *snarl*: the sole example of a specific name for an alphabetic element of its class. The anusvāra and visarga are also known by those names alone.

CHAPTER II.

SYSTEM OF SOUNDS; PRONUNCIATION.

I. Vowels.

19. The a, i, and u-vowels. The Sanskrit has these three earliest and most universal vowels of Indo-European language, in both short and long form — अ a and आ ā, इ i and ई ī, उ u and ऊ ū. They are to be pronounced in the “Continental” or “Italian” manner — as in *far* or *farther*, *pin* and *pique*, *pull* and *rule*.

20. The a is the openest vowel, an utterance from the expanded throat, stands in no relation of kindred with any of the classes of consonantal sounds, and has no corresponding semivowel. Of the close vowels i and u, on the other hand, i is palatal, and shades through its semivowel y into the palatal and guttural consonant-classes; u is similarly related, through its semivowel v, to the labial class, as involving in its utterance a narrowing and rounding of the lips.

a. The Paninean scheme (commentary to Pāṇini’s grammar i. 1. 9) classes a as guttural, but apparently only to give that series as well as the rest a vowel; no one of the Prātiçākhyas puts a into one class with k etc. All of these authorities concur in calling the i- and u-vowels respectively palatal and labial.

21. The short a is not pronounced in India with the full openness of ā, as its corresponding short, but usually as the “neutral vowel” (English so-called “short u”, of *but*, *son*, *blood*, etc.). This peculiarity appears very early, being acknowledged by Pāṇini and by two of the Prātiçākhyas (APr. i. 36; VPr. i. 72), which call the utterance saṁvṛta, *covered up*, *dimmed*. It is wont to be ignored by Western scholars, except those who have studied in India.

22. The a-vowels are the prevailing vowel-sounds of the language, being about twice as frequent as all the others (including diphthongs) taken together. The i-vowels, again, are about twice as numerous as the u-vowels. And, in each pair, the short vowel is more than twice (2½ to 3 times) as common as the long.

a. For more precise estimates of frequency, of these and of the other

alphabetic elements, and for the way in which they were obtained, see below, 75.

23. The ɾ- and ɭ-vowels. To the three simple vowels already mentioned the Sanskrit adds two others, the ɾ-vowel and the ɭ-vowel, plainly generated by the abbreviation of syllables containing respectively a र r or ल l along with another vowel: the ऋ ɾ coming almost always (see 237, 241–3) from अर ar or रा ra, the ॡ ɭ from अल al.

a. Some of the Hindu grammarians add to the alphabet also a long ɿ: but this is only for the sake of an artificial symmetry, since the sound does not occur in a single genuine word in the language.

24. The vowel ऋ ɾ is simply a smooth or untrilled r-sound, assuming a vocalic office in syllable-making — as, by a like abbreviation, it has done also in certain Slavonic languages. The vowel ॡ ɭ is an l-sound similarly uttered — like the English l-vowel in such words as *able*, *angle*, *addle*.

a. The modern Hindus pronounce these vowels as *ri*, *rī*, *li* (or even *lri*), having long lost the habit and the facility of giving a vowel value to the pure r- and l-sounds. Their example is widely followed by European scholars; and hence also the (distorting and altogether objectionable) transliterations ɾi, ɾī, ɭi. There is no real difficulty in the way of acquiring and practising the true utterance.

b. Some of the grammarians (see APr. i. 37, note) attempt to define more nearly the way in which, in these vowels, a real r- or l-element is combined with something else.

25. Like their corresponding semivowels, r and l, these vowels belong respectively in the general lingual and dental classes; the euphonic influence of ɾ and ɿ (189) shows this clearly. They are so ranked in the Paninean scheme; but the Prātiçākhyas in general strangely class them with the jihvāmūliya sounds, our “gutturals” (39).

26. The short ɾ is found in every variety of word and of position, and is not rare, being just about as frequent as long ū. Long ɿ is very much more unusual, occurring only in certain plural cases of noun-stems in ɾ (371 b, d, 375). The ɿ is met with only in some of the forms and derivatives of a single not very common verbal root (k|p).

27. The diphthongs. Of the four diphthongs, two, the ए e and the ओ o, are in great part original Indo-European

sounds. In the Sanskrit, they wear the aspect of being products of the increment or strengthening of इ i and उ u respectively; and they are called the corresponding guṇa-vowels to the latter (see below, 235 ff.). The other two, ऐ āi and औ āu, are held to be of peculiar Sanskrit growth; they are also in general results of another and higher increment of इ i and उ u, to which they are called the corresponding vṛddhi-vowels (below, 235 ff.). But all are likewise sometimes generated by euphonic combination (127); and औ o, especially, is common as a result of the alteration of a final अस् as (175).

28. The ए e and औ o are, both in India and Europe, usually pronounced as they are transliterated — that is, as a long e- (English “long a”, or e in *they*) and o-sounds, without diphthongal character.

a. Such they apparently already were to the authors of the Prāṭiçākhyas, which, while ranking them as diphthongs (sandhyakṣara), give rules respecting their pronunciation in a manner implying them to be virtually unitary sounds. But their euphonic treatment (131–4) clearly shows them to have been still at the period when the euphonic laws established themselves, as they of course were at their origin, real diphthongs, *ai* (*a + i*) and *au* (*a + u*). From them, on the same evidence, the heavier or vṛddhi diphthongs were distinguished by the length of their *a*-element, as *āi* (*ā + i*) and *āu* (*ā + u*).

b. The recognizable distinctness of the two elements in the vṛddhi-diphthongs is noticed by the Prāṭiçākhyas (see APr. i. 40, note); but the relation of those elements is either defined as equal, or the *a* is made of less quantity than the *i* and *u*.

29. The lighter or guṇa-diphthongs are much more frequent (6 or 7 times) than the heavier or vṛddhi-diphthongs, and the e and āi than the o and āu (a half more). Both pairs are somewhat more than half as common as the simple i- and u-vowels.

30. The general name given by the Hindu grammarians to the vowels is *svara tone*; the simple vowels are called samānākṣara *homogeneous syllable*, and the diphthongs are called sandhyakṣara *combination-syllable*. The position of the organs in their utterance is defined to be one of openness, or of non-closure.

a. As to quantity and accent, see below 76 ff., 80 ff.

II. Consonants

31. The Hindu name for 'consonant' is vyañjana *manifest*. The consonants are divided by the grammarians into sparṇa *contact* or mute, antaḥsthā, *intermediate* or semivowel, and ūṣman *spirant*. They will here be taken up and described in this order.

32. Mutes. The mutes, sparṇa, are so called as involving a complete closure or contact (sparṇa), and not an approximation only, of the mouth-organs by which they are produced. They are divided into five classes or series (varga), according to the organs and parts of organs by which the contact is made; and each series is composed of five members, differing according to the accompaniments of the contact.

33. The five mute-series are called respectively guttural, palatal, lingual (or cerebral), dental, and labial; and they are arranged in the order as just mentioned, beginning with the contact made furthest back in the mouth, coming forward from point to point, and ending with the frontmost contact.

34. In each series there are two surd members, two sonant, and one nasal (which is also a sonant): for example, in the labial series प p and फ ph, ब b and भ bh, and म m.

a. The members are by the Hindu grammarians called respectively *first*, *second*, *third*, *fourth*, and *last* or *fifth*.

b. The surd consonants are known as aghoṣa *toneless*, and the sonants as ghoṣavant *having tone*; and the descriptions of the grammarians are in accordance with these terms. All alike recognize a difference of tone, and not in any manner a difference of force, whether of contact or of expulsion, as separating the two great classes in question. That the difference depends on vivāra *opening* or saṁvāra *closure* (of the glottis), is also recognized by them.

35. The first and third members of each series are the ordinary corresponding surd and sonant mutes of European languages: thus, क k and ग g, त t and द d, प p and ब b.

36. Nor is the character of the nasal any more doubtful. What म m is to प p and ब b, or न n to त t and द d, that is also each other nasal to its own series of mutes: a sonant expulsion into and through the nose, while the mouth-organs are in the mute-contact.

a. The Hindu grammarians give distinctly this definition. The nasal (anunāsika *passing through the nose*) sounds are declared to be formed by mouth and nose together; or their nasality (ānunāsikya) to be given them by unclosure of the nose.

37. The second and fourth of each series are aspirates: thus, beside the surd mute क k we have the corresponding surd aspirate क् kh, and beside the sonant ग g, the corresponding sonant aspirate ग् gh. Of these, the precise character is more obscure and difficult to determine.

a. That the aspirates, all of them, are real mutes or contact sounds, and not fricative (like European *th* and *ph* and *ch*, etc.), is beyond question.

b. It is also not doubtful in what way the surd *th*, for example, differs from the unaspirated *t*: such aspirates are found in many Asiatic languages, and even in some European; they involve the slipping-out of an audible bit of *flatus* or aspiration between the breach of mute-closure and the following sound, whatever it may be. They are accurately enough represented by the *th* etc., with which, in imitation of the Latin treatment of the similar ancient Greek aspirates, we are accustomed to write them.

c. The sonant aspirates are generally understood and described as made in a similar way, with a perceptible *h*-sound after the breach of sonant mute-closure. But there are great theoretical difficulties in the way of accepting this explanation; and some of the best phonetic observers deny that the modern Hindu pronunciation is of such a character, and define the element following the mute as a “glottal buzz”, rather, or as an emphasized utterance of the beginning of the succeeding sound. The question is one of great difficulty, and upon it the opinions of the highest authorities are much at variance. Sonant aspirates are still in use in India, in the pronunciation of the vernacular as well as of the learned language.

d. By the Prātiçākhyas, the aspirates of both classes are called soṣman: which might mean either *accompanied by a rush of breath* (taking ūṣman in its more etymological sense), or *accompanied by a spirant* (below, 59). And some native authorities define the surd aspirate as made by the combination of each surd non-aspirate with its own corresponding surd spirant, the *h*-sound (below, 65). But this would make the two classes of aspirates of quite diverse character, and would also make *th* the same as *ts*, *ṭh* as *ṭṣ*, *ch* as *cç* — which is in any measure plausible only of the last. Pāṇini has no name for aspirates; the scheme given in his comment (to i. 1. 9) attributes to them mahāprāṇa *great expiration*, and to the non-aspirates alpapraṇa *small expiration*.

e. It is usual among European scholars to pronounce both classes of aspirates as the corresponding non-aspirates

with a following h: for example थ th nearly as in English *boathook*, फ ph as in *haphazard*, ध dh as in *madhouse*, भ bh as in *abhor*, and so on. This is (as we have seen above) strictly accurate only as regards the surd aspirates.

38. The sonant aspirates are (in the opinion of most), or at least represent, original Indo-European sounds, while the surd aspirates are a special Indian development. The former are more than twice as common as the latter. The unaspirated (non-nasal) mutes are very much more frequent (5 times) than the aspirates (for the special frequency of bh and the original gh, see 50 and 66); and among them the surds are more numerous (2½ times) than the sonants. The nasals (chiefly n and m) are nearly as frequent as the surd non-aspirates.

We take up now the several mute series.

39. Guttural series: क k, ख kh, ग g, घ gh, ङ ṅ. These are the ordinary European *k* and *g*-sounds, with their corresponding aspirates and nasal (the last, like English *ng* in *singing*).

a. The gutturals are defined by the Prātiçākhyas as made by contact of the base of the tongue with the base of the jaw, and they are called, from the former organ, jihvāmūliya *tongue-root sounds*. The Paninean scheme describes them simply as made in the throat (काण्ठा). From the euphonic influence of a k on a following s (below, 180), we may perhaps infer that in their utterance the tongue was well drawn back in the mouth.

40. The k is by far the commonest of the guttural series, occurring considerably more often than all the other four taken together. The nasal, except as standing before one of the others of the same series, is found only as final (after the loss of a following k: 386, 407) in a very small number of words, and as product of the assimilation of final k to a following nasal (161).

41. The Sanskrit guttural series represents only a minority of Indo-European gutturals; these last have suffered more and more general corruption than any other class of consonants. By processes of alteration which began in the Indo-European period, the palatal mutes, the palatal sibilant ç, and the aspiration h, have come from gutturals. See these various sounds below.

42. Palatal series: च c, छ ch, ज j, झ jh, ञ ṇ.

The whole palatal series is derivative, being generated by the corruption of original gutturals. The c comes from an original k — as does also, by another degree of alteration, the palatal sibilant ç (see below, 64). The j, in like manner, comes from a g; but the

Sanskrit *j* includes in itself two degrees of alteration, one corresponding to the alteration of *k* to *c*, the other to that of *k* to *ç* (see below, 219). The *c* is somewhat more common than the *j* (almost as four to three). The aspirate *ch* is very much less frequent (a tenth of *c*), and comes from the original group *sk*. The sonant aspirate *jh* is excessively rare (occurring but once in RV., not once in AV., and hardly half-a-dozen times in the whole other language); where found, it is either onomatopoeic or of anomalous or not Indo-European origin. The nasal, *ñ*, never occurs except immediately before — or, in a small number of words, also after (201) — one of the others of the same series.

43. Hence, in the euphonic processes of the language, the treatment of the palatals is in many respects peculiar. In some situations, the original unaltered guttural shows itself — or, as it appears from the point of view of the Sanskrit, the palatal reverts to its original guttural. No palatal ever occurs as a final. The *j* is differently treated, according as it represents the one or the other degree of alteration. And *c* and *j* (except artificially, in the algebraic rules of the grammarians) do not interchange, as corresponding surd and sonant.

44. The palatal mutes are by European scholars, as by the modern Hindus also, pronounced with the compound sounds of English *ch* and *j* (in *church* and *judge*).

a. Their description by the old Hindu grammarians, however, gives them a not less absolutely simple character than belongs to the other mutes. They are called *tālavya palatal*, and declared to be formed against the palate by the middle of the tongue. They seem to have been, then, brought forward in the mouth from the guttural point, and made against the hard palate at a point not far from the lingual one (below, 45), but with the upper flat surface of the tongue instead of its point. Such sounds, in all languages, pass easily into the (English) *ch*- and *j*- sounds. The value of the *ch* as making the preceding vowel “long by position” (227), and its frequent origination from *t* + *ç* (203), lead to the suspicion that it, at least, may have had this character from the beginning: compare 37 *d*, above.

45. Lingual series: *ṛ ṭ*, *ṛ ṭh*, *ṛ ḍ*, *ṛ ḍh*, *ṛ ṇ*. The lingual mutes are by all the native authorities defined as uttered with the tip of the tongue turned up and drawn back into the dome of the palate (somewhat as the usual English smooth *r* is pronounced). They are called by the grammarians *mūrdhanya*, literally *head-sounds*, *capitals*, *cephalics*; which term is in many European grammars

rendered by 'cerebrals'. In practice, among European Sanskritists, no attempt is made to distinguish them from the dentals: त्र ṭ is pronounced like त्र t, ड ḍ like ड d, and so on with the rest.

46. The linguals are another non-original series of sounds, coming mainly from the phonetic alteration of the next series, the dentals, but also in part occurring in words that have no traceable Indo-European connection, and are perhaps derived from the aboriginal languages of India. The tendency to lingualization is a positive one in the history of the language: dentals easily pass into linguals under the influence of contiguous or neighboring lingual sounds, but not the contrary; and all the sounds of the class become markedly more frequent in the later literature. The conditions of their ordinary occurrence are briefly these: 1. ण comes from स, much more rarely from च, ज, क, in euphonic circumstances stated below (180, 218 ff.); 2. a dental mute following ण is assimilated into it, becoming lingual (त, थ, न: 197); 3. न is often changed to ण after a lingual vowel or semivowel or sibilant in the same word (189 ff.); 4. ध, which is of very rare occurrence, comes from assimilation of a dental after ण (198 a) or ह (222); 5. त and द come occasionally by substitution for some other sound which is not allowed to stand as final (142, 145-7). When originated in these ways, the lingual letters may be regarded as normal; in any other cases of their occurrence, they are either products of abnormal corruption, or signs of the non-Indo-European character of the words in which they appear.

a. In a certain number of passages numerically examined (below, 75), the abnormal occurrences of lingual mutes were less than half of the whole number (74 out of 159), and most of them (43) were of न: all were found more frequent in the later passages. In the Rig-Veda, only 15 words have an abnormal त; only 6, such a थ; only 1, such a ध; about 20 (including 9 roots, nearly all of which have derivatives) show an abnormal द, besides 9 that have नद; and 30 (including 1 root) show an न.

b. Taken all together, the linguals are by far the rarest class of mutes (about 1½ per cent. of the alphabet) — hardly half as frequent even as the palatals.

47. Dental series: त्र t, थ th, ड d, ध dh, न n. These are called by the Hindus also *dantya dental*, and are described as formed at the teeth (or at the roots of the teeth), by the tip of the tongue. They are practically the equivalents of our European *t, d, n*.

a. But the modern Hindus are said to pronounce their dentals with the

tip of the tongue thrust well forward against the upper teeth, so that these sounds get a slight tinge of the quality belonging to the English and Modern Greek *th*-sounds. The absence of that quality in the European (especially the English) dentals is doubtless the reason why to the ear of a Hindu the latter appear more analogous with his linguals, and he is apt to use the linguals in writing European words.

48. The dentals are one of the Indo-European original mute-classes. In their occurrence in Sanskrit they are just about as frequent as all the other four classes taken together.

49. Labial series: प p, फ ph, ब b, भ bh, म m. These sounds are called oṣṭhya *labial* by the Hindu grammarians also. They are, of course, the equivalents of our *p, b, m*.

50. The numerical relation of the labials are a little peculiar. Owing to the absence (or almost entire absence) of *b* in Indo-European, the Sanskrit *b* also is greatly exceeded in frequency by *bh*, which is the most common of all the sonant aspirates, as *ph* is the least common of the surd. The nasal *m* (notwithstanding its frequent euphonic mutations when final: 212 ff.) occurs just about as often as all the other four members of the series together.

a. From an early period in the history of the language, but increasingly later, *b* and *v* exchange with one another, or fail to be distinguished in the manuscripts. Thus, the double root-forms *bṛh* and *vṛh*, *bādh* and *vadh*, and so on. In the Bengal manuscripts, *v* is widely written instead of more original *b*.

51. Semivowels: य y, र r, ल l, व v.

a. The name given to this class of sounds by the Hindu grammarians is *antaḥsthā standing between* — either from their character as utterances intermediate between vowel and consonant, or (more probably) from the circumstance of their being placed between the mutes and spirants in the arrangement of the consonants.

b. The semivowels are clearly akin with the several mute series in their physical character, and they are classified along with those series — though not without some discordances of view — by the Hindu grammarians. They are said to be produced with the organs slightly in contact (*iṣatsprṣṭa*), or in imperfect contact (*duḥsprṣṭa*).

52. The र r is clearly shown by its influence in the euphonic processes of the language to be a lingual sound, or one made with the tip of the tongue turned up into the dome of the palate. It thus resembles the English smooth *r*; and, like this, seems to have been untrilled.

a. The Paninean scheme reckons *r* as a lingual. None of the Prātiçākhyas, however, does so; nor are they entirely consistent with one another in its description. For the most part, they define it as made at “the roots of the teeth”. This would give it a position like that of the vibrated *r*; but no authority hints at a vibration as belonging to it.

b. In point of frequency, *r* stands very high on the list of consonants; it is nearly equal with *v*, *n*, *m*, and *y*, and only exceeded by *t*.

53. The ऌ *l* is a sound of dental position, and is so defined and classed by all the native authorities.

a. The peculiar character of an *l*-sound, as involving expulsion at the side of the tongue along with contact at its tip, is not noticed by any Hindu phonetist.

b. The semivowels *r* and *l* are very widely interchangeable in Sanskrit, both in roots and in suffixes, and even in prefixes: there are few roots containing a *l* which do not show also forms with *r*; words written with the one letter are found in other texts, or in other parts of the same text, written with the other. In the later period of the language they are more separated, and the *l* becomes decidedly more frequent, though always much rarer than the *r* (only as 1 to 7 or 8 or 10).

{anchor|54}54. Some of the Vedic texts have another *l*-sound, written with a slightly different character (it is given at the end of the alphabet, 5), which is substituted for a lingual *ḍ* (as also the same followed by *h* for a *ḍh*) when occurring between two vowels. It is, then, doubtless a lingual *l*, one made by breach (at the side of the tongue) of the lingual instead of the dental mute-closure.

a. Examples are ईळे *īle*, for ईडे *īde*, but ईड्य *īḍya*; मीळङ्गणे *mīlhuṣe*, for मीढुणे *mīḍhuṣe*, but मीढ्वान् *mīḍhvān*. It is especially in the Rig-Veda and its auxiliary literature that this substitution is usual.

55. The य *y* in Sanskrit, as in other languages generally, stands at the closest relationship with the vowel इ *i* (short or long); the two exchange with one another in cases innumerable.

a. And in the Veda (as the metre shows) an *i* is very often to be read where, in conformity with the rules of the later Sanskrit euphony, a *y* is written. Thus the final *i*-vowel of a word remains *i* before an initial vowel; that of a stem maintains itself unchanged before an ending; and an ending of derivation — as *ya*, *tya* — has *i* instead of *y*. Such cases will be noticed in more detail later. The constancy of the phenomenon in certain words and classes of words shows that this was no merely optional interchange. Very probably, the Sanskrit *y* had everywhere more of an *i*-character than belongs to the corresponding European sound.

56. The *y* is by its physical character a palatal utterance; and it is classed as a palatal semivowel by the Hindu phonetists. It is one of the most common of Sanskrit sounds.

57. The *ṽ* is pronounced as English or French *v* (German *w*) by the modern Hindus — except when preceded by a consonant in the same syllable, in which case it has rather the sound of English *w*; and European scholars follow the same practice (with or without the same exception).

a. By its whole treatment in the euphony of the language, however, the *v* stands related to an *u*-vowel precisely as *y* to an *i*-vowel. It is, then, a *v* only according the original Roman value of that letter — that is to say, a *w*-sound in the English sense; though (as was stated above for the *y*) it may well have been less markedly separated from *u* than English *w*, or more like French *ou* in *oui* etc. But, as the original *w* has in most European languages been changed to *v* (English), so also in India, and that from a very early time: the Paninian scheme and two of the Prātiçākhyas (VPr. and TPr.) distinctly define the sound as made between the upper teeth and the lower lip — which, of course, identifies it with the ordinarily modern *v*-sound. As a matter of practice, the usual pronunciation need not be seriously objected to; yet the student should not fail to note that the rules of Sanskrit euphony and the name of “semivowel” have no application except to a *w*-sound in the English sense: a *v*-sound (German *w*) is no semivowel, but a spirant, standing on the same articulate stage with the English *th*-sounds and the *f*.

58. The *v* is classed as a labial semivowel by the Hindu phonetical authorities. It has a somewhat greater frequency than the *y*.

a. In the Veda, under the same circumstances as the *y* (above, 55 a), *v* is to be read as a vowel, *u*.

b. As to the interchange of *v* and *b*, see above, 50 a.

59. Spirants. Under the name *ūṣman* (literally *heat, steam, flatus*), which is usually and well represented by *spirant*, some of the Hindu authorities include all remaining sounds of the alphabet; others apply the term only to the three sibilants and the aspiration — to which it will here also be restricted.

a. The term is not found in the Paninian scheme; by different treatises the guttural and labial breathings, these and the visarga, or all these and anusvāra, are also (in addition to the sibilants and *h*) called *ūṣman*

(see APr. i., 31 note). The organs of utterance are described as being in the position of the mute-series to which each spirant belongs respectively, but unclosed, or unclosed in the middle.

60. The ऌ s. Of the three sibilants, or surd spirants, this is the one of plainest and least questioned character: it is the ordinary European *s* — a hiss expelled between the tongue and the roof of the mouth directly behind the upper front teeth.

a. It is, then, dental, as it is classed by all the Hindu authorities. Notwithstanding the great losses which it suffers in Sanskrit euphony; by conversion to the other sibilants, to *r*, to visarga, etc., it is still very high among the consonants in the order of frequency, or considerably more common than both the other two sibilants together.

61. The ऌ ष. As to the character of this sibilant, also, there is no ground for real question: it is the one produced in the lingual position, or with the tip of the tongue reverted into the dome of the palate. It is, then, a kind of *sh*-sound; and by European Sanskritists it is pronounced as an ordinary *sh* (French *ch*, German *sch*), no attempt being made (any more than in the case of the other lingual sounds: 45) to give it its proper lingual quality.

a. Its lingual character is shown by its whole euphonic influence, and it is described and classed as lingual by all the Hindu authorities (the APr. adds, i. 23, that the tongue in its utterance is trough-shaped). In its audible quality, it is a *sh*-sound rather than a *s*-sound; and, in the considerable variety of sibilant-utterance, even in the same community, it may coincide with the *sh* of some among ourselves. Yet the general and normal *sh* is palatal (see below, 63); and therefore the sign ष, marked in accordance with the other lingual letters, is the only unexceptionable transliteration for the Hindu character.

b. In modern pronunciation in India, ष is much confounded with *kh*; and the manuscripts are apt to exchange the characters. Some later grammatical treatises, too, take note of the relationship.

62. This sibilant (as was noticed above, 46, and will be more particularly explained below, 180 ff.) is no original sound, but a product of the lingualization of *s* under certain euphonic conditions. The exceptions are extremely few (9 out of 145 noted occurrences: 75), and of a purely sporadic character. The Rig-Veda has (apart

from √ sah, 182 b) only twelve words which show a ṣ under other conditions.

a. The final ṣ of a root has in some cases attained a more independent value, and does not revert to s when the euphonic conditions are removed, but shows anomalous forms (225–6).

63. The ण ṣ. This sibilant is by all the native authorities classed and described as palatal, nor is there anything in its history or euphonic treatment to cast doubt on its character as such. It is, then, made with the flat of the tongue against the forward part of the palatal arch — that is to say, it is the usual and normal *sh*-sound. By European scholars it is variously pronounced — more often, perhaps, as *s* than as *sh*.

a. The two *sh*-sounds, ṣ and ṣ, are made in the same part of the mouth (the ṣ probably rather further back), but with a different part of the tongue; and they are doubtless not more unlike than, for example, the two *t*-sounds, written ढ and त; and it would be not less proper to pronounce them both as one *sh* than to pronounce the linguals and dentals alike. To neglect the difference of s and ṣ is much less to be approved. The very near relationship of ṣ and ṣ is attested by their euphonic treatment, which is to a considerable extent the same, and by their not infrequent confusion by the writers of manuscripts.

64. As was mentioned above (41), the ṣ, like c, comes from the corruption of an original *k*-sound, by loss of mute-contact as well as forward shift of the point of production. In virtue of this derivation, it sometimes (though less often than c) “reverts” to k — that is, the original k appears instead of it (43); while, on the other hand, as a *sh*-sound, it is to a certain extent convertible to ṣ. In point of frequency, it slightly exceeds the latter.

65. The remaining spirant, ह h, is ordinarily pronounced like the usual European surd aspiration h.

a. This is not, however, its real character. It is defined by all the native authorities as not a surd element, but a sonant (or else an utterance intermediate between the two); and its whole value in the euphony of the language is that of a sonant: but what is its precise value is very hard to say. The Paninean scheme ranks it as guttural, as it does also a: this means nothing. The Prāṭiçākhya bring it into no relation with the guttural class; one of them quotes the opinion of some authorities that “it has the same position with the beginning of the following vowel” (TPr. ii. 47) — which so far identifies it with our h. There is nothing in its euphonic influence to mark it as retaining any trace of gutturally articulated character.

By some of the native phonetists it is identified with the aspiration of the sonant aspirates — with the element by which, for example, *gh* differs from *g*. This view is supported by the derivation of *h* from the aspirates (next paragraph), by that of *ḥ* + *h* from *ḍh* (54), and by the treatment of initial *h* after a final mute (163).

66. The *h*, as already noticed, is not an original sound, but comes in nearly all cases from an older *gh* (for the few instances of its derivation from *dh* and *bh*, see below, 223 g). It is a vastly more frequent sound than the unchanged *gh* (namely, as 7 to 1): more frequent, indeed, than any of the guttural mutes except *k*. It appears, like *j* (219), to include in itself two stages of corruption of *gh*: one corresponding with that of *k* to *c*, the other with that of *k* to *ç*; see below, 223, for the roots belonging to the two classes respectively. Like the other sounds of guttural derivation, it sometimes exhibits “reversion” (43) to its original.

67. The *ḥ*, or visarga (*visarjanīya*, as it is uniformly called by the *Prāṭiçākhyas* and by *Pāṇini*, probably as *belonging to the end of a syllable*), appears to be merely a surd breathing, a final *h*-sound (in the European sense of *h*), uttered in the articulating position of the preceding vowel.

a. One *Prāṭiçākhyā* (TPr. ii. 48) gives just this last description of it. It is by various authorities classed with *h*, or with *h* and *a*: all of them are alike sounds in whose utterance the mouth-organs have no definite shaping action.

68. The visarga is not original, but always only a substitute for final *s* or *r*, neither of which is allowed to maintain itself unchanged (170 ff.). It is a comparatively recent member of the alphabetic system; the other euphonic changes of final *s* and *r* have not passed through visarga as an intermediate stage. And the Hindu authorities are considerably discordant with one another as to how far *ḥ* is a necessary substitute, and how far a permitted one, alternative with a sibilant, before a following initial surd.

69. Before a surd guttural or labial, respectively, some of the native authorities permit, while others require, conversion of final *s* or *r* into the so-called *jihvāmūliya* and *upadhmānīya* spirants. It may be fairly questioned, perhaps, whether these two sounds are not pure grammatical abstractions, devised (like the long *ṛ*-vowel: 23 a) in order to round out the alphabet to greater symmetry. At any rate, both manuscripts and printed texts in general make no account of them. Whatever individual character they may have must be, it would seem, in the direction of the (German) *ch*- and *f*-sounds. When written at all, they are wont to be transliterated by *χ* and *φ*.

70. The $\dot{\text{a}}$ anusvāra, $\dot{\text{n}}$ or $\dot{\text{m}}$, is a nasal sound lacking that closure of the organs which is required to make a nasal mute or contact-sound (36); in its utterance there is nasal resonance along with some degree of openness of the mouth.

71. There is discordance of opinion among both the Hindu phonetists and their modern European successors respecting the real character of this element; hence a little detail is necessary here with regard to its occurrence and their views of it.

a. Certain nasals in Sanskrit are of servile character, always to be assimilated to a following consonant, of whatever character that may be. Such are final m in sentence-combination (213), the penultimate nasal of a root, and a nasal of increment (255) in general. If one of these nasals stands before a contact-letter or mute, it becomes a nasal mute corresponding the the latter — that is, a nasal utterance in the same position of the mouth-organs which gives the succeeding mute. If, on the other hand, the following consonant does not involve a contact (being a semivowel or spirant), the nasal element is also without contact: it is a nasal utterance with unclosed mouth-organs. The question is, now, whether this nasal utterance becomes merely a nasal infection of the preceding vowel, turning it into a nasal vowel (as in French *on*, *en*, *un*, etc., by reason of a similar loss of a nasal mute); or whether it is an element of more individual character, having place between the vowel and the consonant; or, once more, whether it is sometimes the one thing and sometimes the other. The opinions of the Prātiçākhyas and Pāṇini are briefly as follows:

b. The Atharva-Prātiçākhyā holds that the result is everywhere a nasalized vowel, except when n or m is assimilated to a following l ; in that case, the n or m becomes a nasal l : that is, the nasal utterance is made in the l -position, and has a perceptible l -character.

c. The other Prātiçākhyas teach a similar conversion into a nasal counterpart to the semivowel, or a nasal semivowel, before y and l and v (not before r also). In most of the other cases where the Atharva-Prātiçākhyā acknowledges a nasal vowel — namely, before r and the spirants — the others teach the intervention after the vowel of a distinct nasal element, called the anusvāra *after-tone*.

d. Of the nature of this nasal afterpiece to the vowel no intelligibly clear account is given. It is said (RPr.) to be either vowel or consonant; it is declared (RPr., VPr.) to be made with the nose alone, or (TPr.) to be nasal like the nasal mutes; it is held by some (RPr.) to be the sonant tone of the nasal mutes; in its formation, as in that of the vowel and spirant, there is (RPr.) no contact. As to its quantity, see further on.

e. There are, however, certain cases and classes of cases where these other authorities also acknowledge a nasal vowel. So, especially, wherever

a final *n* is treated (208–9) as if it were *ns* (its historically older form); and also in a small number of specified words. They also mention the doctrine of nasal vowel instead of *anusvāra* as held by some (and TPr. is uncertain and inconsistent in its choice between the one and the other).

f. In Pāṇini, finally, the prevailing doctrine is that of *anusvāra* everywhere, and it is even allowed in many cases where the Prātiçākhyas prescribe only a nasal mute. But a nasal semivowel is also allowed instead before a semivowel, and a nasal vowel is allowed in the cases (mentioned above) where some of the Prātiçākhyas require it by exception.

g. It is evidently a fair question whether this discordance and uncertainty of the Hindu phonetists is owing to a real difference of utterance in different classes of cases and in different localities, or whether to a different scholastic analysis of what is really everywhere the same utterance. If *anusvāra* is a nasal element following the vowel, it cannot well be any thing but either a prolongation of the same vowel-sound with nasality added, or a nasalized bit of neutral-vowel sound (in the latter case, however, the altering influence of an *i* or *u*-vowel on a following *s* ought to be prevented, which is not the case: see 183).

72. The assimilated nasal element, whether viewed as nasalized vowel, nasal semivowel, or independent *anusvāra*, has the value of something added, in making a heavy syllable, or length by position (79).

a. The Prātiçākhyas (VPr., RPr.) give determinations of the quantity of the *anusvāra* combining with a short and with a long vowel respectively to make a long syllable.

73. a. Two different signs, $\dot{\text{c}}$ and c^v , are found in the manuscripts, indicating the nasal sound here treated of. Usually they are written above the syllable, and there they seem most naturally to imply a nasal affection of the vowel of the syllable, a nasal (*anunāsika*) vowel. Hence some texts (*Sāma*- and *Yajur-Vedas*), when they mean a real *anusvāra*, bring one of the signs down into the ordinary consonant-place; but the usage is not general. As between the two signs, some manuscripts employ, or tend to employ, the c^v where a nasalized (*anunāsika*) vowel is to be recognized, and elsewhere the $\dot{\text{c}}$; and this distinction is consistently observed in many European printed texts; and the former is called the *anunāsika* sign: but the two are doubtless originally and properly equivalent.

b. It is a very common custom of the manuscripts to write an *anusvāra*-sign for any nasal following the vowel of a syllable, either before another consonant or as final (not before a vowel), without any reference to whether it is to be pronounced as nasal mute, nasal semivowel, or *anusvāra*. Some printed texts follow this slovenly and undesirable habit; but most write a nasal mute whenever it is to be pronounced — excepting where it is an assimilated *m* (213).

c. It is convenient also in transliteration to distinguish the assimilated m by a special sign, ṁ, from the anusvāra of more independent origin, ṇ; and this method will be followed in the present work.

74. This is the whole system of sounds recognized by the written character; for certain other transitional sounds, more or less widely recognized in the theories of the Hindu phonetists, see below, 230.

75. The whole spoken alphabet, then, may be arranged in the following manner, in order to show, so far as is possible in a single scheme, the relations and important classifications of its various members:

		$\begin{matrix} \text{ā, ē} \\ 10-18 \quad 9-19 \end{matrix}$							
		$\begin{matrix} \text{ai, o} \\ 4-11 \quad 2-14 \end{matrix}$							
		$\begin{matrix} \text{ī, ī} & \text{ṛ, ṛ} & \text{ṛ, ṛ} & \text{ṛ, ṛ} & \text{ṛ, ṛ} \\ 4-10 \quad 1-19 & 7-11 \quad 4-11 & 4-11 \quad 2-14 & 2-14 & 2-14 \end{matrix}$					Vowels		
Son.	{	$\begin{matrix} \text{y} & \text{r} & \text{l} & \text{v} \\ 1-23 & 1-45 & 4-11 & 4-11 \end{matrix}$					Semivowels		
		$\begin{matrix} \text{ṇ} & \text{ṇ} & \text{ṇ} & \text{ṇ} & \text{ṇ} \\ 1-27 & 1-33 & 1-45 & 4-11 & 4-11 \end{matrix}$					Nasals		
							Anusvāra		
							Aspiration		
							Visarga		
Surd	{						Sibilants		
		$\begin{matrix} \text{ṣ} & \text{ṣ} & \text{ṣ} & \text{ṣ} & \text{ṣ} \\ 1-17 & 1-17 & 1-17 & 1-17 & 1-17 \end{matrix}$							
Son.	{	$\begin{matrix} \text{gh} & \text{gh} & \text{ḍh} & \text{dh} & \text{bh} \\ 1-17 & 1-17 & 1-17 & 1-17 & 1-17 \end{matrix}$					asp.		
		$\begin{matrix} \text{g} & \text{j} & \text{ḍ} & \text{d} & \text{b} \\ 1-17 & 1-17 & 1-17 & 1-17 & 1-17 \end{matrix}$					unasap.		
Surd	{	$\begin{matrix} \text{kh} & \text{ch} & \text{ṭh} & \text{th} & \text{ph} \\ 1-17 & 1-17 & 1-17 & 1-17 & 1-17 \end{matrix}$					asp.		
		$\begin{matrix} \text{k} & \text{c} & \text{ṭ} & \text{t} & \text{p} \\ 1-17 & 1-17 & 1-17 & 1-17 & 1-17 \end{matrix}$					unasap.		
		Gutt.	Pal.	Ling.	Dent.	Lab.			

a. The figures set under the characters give the average percentage of frequency of each sound, found by counting the number of times in which it occurred in an aggregate of 10,000 sounds of continuous text, in ten different passages, of 1,000 sounds each, selected from different epochs of the literature: namely, two from the Rig-Veda, one from the Atharva-Veda, two from different Brāhmaṇas, and one each from the Manu, Bhagavad-Gītā, Çakuntalā, Hitopadeça, and Vāsa-vadattā (J.A.O.S., vol. X. p. c1).

III. Quantity of sounds and syllables.

76. The Hindu grammarians take the pains to define the quantity of a consonant (without distinction among consonants of different classes) as half that of a short vowel.

77. They also define the quantity of a long (dīrgha) vowel or diphthong as twice that of a short (hrasva) vowel — making no distinction in this respect between the guṇa- and the vṛddhi-diphthongs.

78. Besides these two vowel-quantities, the Hindus acknowledge a third, called *pluta* (literally swimming), or protracted, and having three *moras* or three times the quantity of a short vowel. A protracted vowel is marked by a following figure 3: thus, आ३ ā3.

a. The protracted vowels are practically of rare occurrence (in RV., three cases; in AV., fifteen; in the Brāhmaṇa literature, decidedly more frequent). They are used in cases of questioning, especially of a balancing between two alternatives, and also of calling to a distance or urgently. The protraction is of the last syllable in a word, or in a whole phrase; and the protracted syllable has usually the acute tone, in addition to any other accent the word may have; sometimes it takes also anusvāra, or is made nasal.

b. Examples are: adhāḥ svid āśí3d upári svid āsī3t (RV.) *was it, forsooth, below? was it, forsooth, above?* idám bhúyá3 idá3m íti (AV.) *saying, is this more, or is that?* ágnā3i pátnīvá3ḥ sómam piba (TS.) *O Agni! thou with thy spouse! drink the soma.*

c. A diphthong is protracted by prolongation of its first or a-element: thus, e to ā3i, o to ā3u.

d. The sign of protraction is also sometimes written as the result of accentual combination, when so-called kampa occurs: see below, 87 d.

79. For metrical purposes, syllables (not vowels) are distinguished by the grammarians as heavy (guru) or light (laghu). A syllable is heavy if its vowel is long, or short and followed by more than one consonant (“long by position”). Anusvāra and visarga count as full consonants in

making heavy syllable. The last syllable of a pāda (primary division of a verse) is reckoned as either heavy or light.

a. The distinction in terms between the difference of long and short in vowel-sound and that of heavy and light in syllable-construction is valuable and should be observed.

IV. Accent.

80. The phenomena of accent are, by the Hindu grammarians of all ages alike, described and treated as depending on a variation of tone or pitch; of any difference of stress involved, they make no account.

81. The primary tones (svara) or accent-pitches are two: a higher (udātta *raised*), or acute; and a lower (anudātta *not raised*), or grave. A third (called svarita: a term of doubtful meaning) is always of secondary origin, being (when not enclitic: see below, 85) the result of actual combination of an acute vowel and a following grave vowel into one syllable. It is also uniformly defined as compound in pitch, a union of higher and lower tone within the limits of a single syllable. It is thus identical in physical character with the Greek and Latin circumflex, and fully entitled to be called by the same name.

82. Strictly, therefore, there is but one distinction of tone in the Sanskrit accentual system, as described by the native grammarians and marked in the written texts: the accented syllable is raised in tone above the unaccented; while then further, in certain cases of the fusion of an accented and an unaccented element into one syllable, that syllable retains the compounded tone of both elements.

83. The svarita or circumflex is only rarely found on a pure long vowel or diphthong, but almost always on a syllable in which a vowel, short or long, is preceded by a y or v representing an originally acute i- or u-vowel.

a. In transliteration, in this work, the udātta or acute will be marked with the ordinary sign of the acute, and the svarita or circumflex (as being a downward slide of the voice forward) with what is usually called the grave accent: thus, á, acute, yà or v à, circumflex.

84. The Prātiçākhyas distinguish and name separately the circumflexed tones arising by different processes of combination: thus, the circumflex is called

a. Kṣāipra (*quick*), when an acute i- or u-vowel (short or long) is converted into y or v before a dissimilar vowel of grave tone: thus, vyāpta from ví-āpta, apsvàntár from apsú antár.

b. Jātya (*native*) or nitya (*own*), when the same combination lies further back, in the make-up of a stem or form, and so is constant, or belongs to the word in all circumstances of its occurrence: thus, kvà (from kúa), svàr (súar), nyàk (níak), budhnyà (budhníā), kanyà (kaníā), nadyàs (nadí-as), tanvā (tanú-ā).

c. The words of both the above classes are in the Veda, in the great majority of cases, to be read with restoration of the acute vowel as a separate syllable; thus, apsú antár, súar, nadíās, etc. In some texts, part of them are written correspondingly, thus, súvar, tanúvā, budhníya.

d. Praçliṣṭa, when the acute and grave vowels are of such character that they are fused into a long vowel or diphthong (128 c): thus, divì 'va (RV. AV. etc.), from diví iva; sùdgātā (TS.), from sú-udgātā; nāì 'vā 'çñīyāt (ÇB.), from ná evá açñīyāt.

e. Abhinihita, when an initial grave a is absorbed by a final acute é or ó (135 a): thus, tè 'bruvan, from té abruvan; sò 'bravīt, from só abravīt.

85. But further, the Hindu grammarians agree in declaring the (naturally grave) syllable following an acute, whether in the same or in another word, to be svarita or circumflex — unless, indeed, it be itself followed by an acute or circumflex; in which case it retains its grave tone. This is called by European scholars the enclitic or dependent circumflex.

a. Thus, in téna and té ca, the syllable na and word ca are regarded and marked as circumflex; but in téna té and té ca svàr they are grave.

b. This seems to mean that the voice, which is borne up at the higher pitch to the end of the acute syllable, does not ordinarily drop to grave pitch by an instantaneous movement, but descends by a more or less perceptible slide in the course of the following syllable. No Hindu authority suggests the theory of a middle or intermediate tone for the enclitic, any more than for the independent circumflex. For the most part, the two are identified with one another, in treatment and designation. The enclitic circumflex is likewise divided into a number of sub-varieties, with different names: they are of too little consequence to be worth reporting.

86. The essential difference of the two kinds of circumflex is shown clearly enough by these facts: 1. the independent circumflex takes the place of the acute as the proper accent of a word, while the enclitic is the mere shadow following an acute, and following it in another word precisely as in the same word; 2. the independent circumflex maintains its character in all situations, while the enclitic before a following circumflex or acute loses its circumflex character, and becomes grave; moreover, 3. in many of the systems of marking accent (below, 88), the two are quite differently indicated.

87. The accentuation is marked in manuscripts only of the older literature: namely, in the primary Vedic texts, or saṁhitās, in two of the Brāhmaṇas (Tāittirīya and Çatapatha), in the Tāittirīya-Āraṇyaka, in certain passages of the Āitareya-Āraṇyaka, and in the Suparṇādhyaṃya. There are a number of methods of writing accent, more or less different from one another; the one found in manuscripts of the Rig-Veda, which is most widely known, and of which most of the others are only slight modifications, is as follows.

a. The acute syllable is left unmarked; the circumflex, whether independent or enclitic, has a short perpendicular stroke above; and the grave next preceding an acute or (independent) circumflex has a short horizontal stroke below. Thus,

अग्निम् agnīm; जुहोति juhóti; तन्वा tanvā; क्व kvà.

b. But the introductory grave stroke below cannot be given if an acute syllable is initial; hence an unmarked syllable at the beginning of a word is to be understood as acute; and hence also, if several grave syllables precede an acute at the beginning of a sentence, they must all alike have the grave sign. Thus,

इन्द्रः índrah; ते té; क॒रिष्यसि kariṣyási; तुवि॒जाता tuvijātá.

c. All the grave syllables, however, which follow a marked circumflex are left unmarked, until the occurrence of another accented syllable causes the one which precedes it to take the preparatory stroke below. Thus,

सुदृशीकसँदृक् sudṛṣīkasam̐dṛk;

but

सुदृशीकसँदृग्गवाम् sudṛṣīkasam̐dṛg gávām.

d. If an independent circumflex be followed by an acute (or by another independent circumflex), a figure 1 is set after the former circumflexed vowel if it be short, or a figure 3 if it be long, and signs of accent are applied as in the following examples:

अ॒प्स्व॒॑न्तः apsv à1ntáh (from apsú antáh); रा॒यो॒३॒वनिः rāyò3 vániḥ (from rāyó avániḥ).

The rationale of this mode of designation is not well understood; the Prātiçākhyas give no account of it. In the scholastic utterance of the syllable so designated is made a peculiar quaver or *roulade* of the voice, called kampa or vikampana.

e. The accent-marks are written with red ink in the manuscripts, being added after the text is written, and perhaps often by another hand.

88. a. Nearly accordant with this, the Rig-Veda method of designating accent, are the methods employed in the manuscripts of the Atharva-Veda, of the Vājasaneyi-Saṁhitā, and of the Tāittiriya-Saṁhitā, Brāhmaṇa, and Āraṇyaka. Their differences from it are of trifling importance, consisting mainly in peculiar ways of marking the circumflex that precedes an acute (87 d). In some manuscripts of the Atharva-Veda, the accent-marks are dots instead of strokes, and that for the circumflex is made within the syllable instead of above it.

b. In most manuscripts of the Māitrāyaṇī-Saṁhitā, the acute syllable itself, besides its surroundings, is marked — namely, by a perpendicular stroke above the syllable (like that of the ordinary circumflex in the RV. method). The independent circumflex has a hook beneath the syllable, and the circumflex before an acute (87 d) is denoted simply by a figure 3, standing before instead of after the circumflexed syllable.

c. The Çatapatha-Brāhmaṇa uses only a single accent-sign, the horizontal stroke beneath the syllable (like the mark for grave in RV.). This is put under an acute, or, if two or more acutes immediately follow one another, only under the preceding syllable. To mark an independent circumflex, it is put under the preceding syllable. The method is an imperfect one, allowing many ambiguities.

d. The Sāma-Veda method is the most intricate of all. It has a dozen different signs, consisting of figures, or of figures and letters combined, all placed above the syllables, and varying according to both the accentual character of the syllable and to its surroundings. Its origin is obscure; if anything more is indicated by it than by the other simpler systems, the fact has not been demonstrated.

89. In this work, as everything given in the devanāgarī characters is also given in transliteration, it will generally be unnecessary to mark the accent except in the transliterated form; where, however, the case is otherwise, there will be adopted the method of marking only the really accented syllables, the acute and the independent circumflex: the latter by the usually svarita-sign, the former by a small u (for udātta) above the syllable: thus,

इन्द्र indra, अग्ने ágne, स्वर svàr, नद्यः nadyàs.

a. These being given, everything else which the Hindu theory recognizes as dependent on and accompanying them can readily be understood as implied.

90. The theory of the Sanskrit accent, as here given (a consistent and intelligible body of phenomena), has been overlaid by the Hindu theorists, especially of the Prātiçākhyas, with a number of added features, of a much more questionable character. Thus:

a. The unmarked grave syllables following a circumflex (either at the end of a sentence, or till the near approach of another acute) are declared to have the same high tone with the (also unmarked) acute. They are called *pracaya* or *pracita* (*accumulated*: because liable to occur in an indefinite series of successive syllables).

b. The circumflex, whether independent or enclitic, is declared to begin on a higher pitch than acute, and to descend to acute pitch in ordinary cases: the concluding instant of it being brought down to grave pitch, however, in the case of an independent circumflex which is immediately followed by another ascent of the voice to higher pitch, in acute or independent circumflex (a *kampa* syllable: 87 d).

c. Pāṇini gives the ambiguous name of *ekaçruti* (*monotone*) to the *pracita* syllables, and says nothing of the uplifting of the circumflex to a higher plane; he teaches, however, a depression below the grave pitch for the marked grave syllable before acute or circumflex, calling it *sannatara* (otherwise *anudāttatara*).

91. The system of accentuation as marked in the Vedic texts appears to have assumed in the traditional recitation of the Brahmanic schools a peculiar and artificial form, in which the designated syllables, grave and circumflex (equally the enclitic and the independent circumflex), have acquired a conspicuous value, while the undesignated, the acute, has sunk into insignificance.

92. The Sanskrit accent taught in the native grammars and represented by the accentuated texts is essentially a system of word-accent only. No general attempt is made (any more than in the Greek system) to define or mark a sentence-accent, the effect of the emphasis and modulation of the sentence in modifying the independent accent of individual words. The only approach to it is seen in the treatment of vocatives and personal verb-forms.

a. A vocative is usually without accent except at the beginning of a sentence: for further details, see 314.

b. A personal verb-form is usually accentless in an independent-clause, except when standing at the beginning of the clause: for further details, see 591 ff.

93. Certain other words also are, usually or always, without accent.

a. The particles *ca*, *vā*, *u*, *sma*, *iva*, *cid*, *svid*, *ha*, and the Vedic *kam* (or *kám*), *gha*, *bhala*, *samaha*, *īm*, *sīm*, are always without accent; also *yathā* in RV. (sometimes also elsewhere) in the sense of *iva*, at the end of a *pāda* or verse-division.

b. The same is true of certain pronouns and pronominal stems: mā, me, nāu, nas, tvā, te, vām, vas (491 b), ena (500), tva (503 b), sama (513 c).

c. The cases of the pronominal stem a are sometimes accented and sometimes accentless (502).

d. An accentless word is not allowed to stand at the beginning of a sentence; also not of a pāda or primary division of a verse; a pāda is, in all matters relating to accentuation, treated like an independent sentence.

94. Some words have more than a single accented syllable. Such are:

a. Certain dual copulative compounds in the Veda (see 1255), as mitráváruṇā, dyāvāpṛthiví. Also, a few other Vedic compounds (see 1267 d), as bṛhaspáti, tánūnápāt.

b. In a few cases, the further compounds and derivatives of such compounds, as dyāvāpṛthivívant, bṛhaspátipraṇutta.

c. Infinitive datives in tavāí (see 972 a), as étavāí, ápabhartavāí.

d. A word naturally barytone, but having its final syllable protracted (see 78 a).

e. The particle vāvá (in the Brāhmaṇas).

95. On the place of the accented syllable in a Sanskrit word there is no restriction whatever depending upon either the number or the quantity of the preceding or following syllables. The accent rests where the rules of inflection or derivation or composition place it, without regard to any thing else.

a. Thus, índre, agnāú, índreṇa, agnínā, agninām, bāhúcyuta, ánapacyuta, parjányajinvita, abhimātiṣāhá, ánabhimlātavarṇa, abhiçasticátana, híraṇyavāçīmattama, cátuçcatvāriṇçadakṣara.

96. Since the accent is marked only in the older literature, and the statements of the grammarians, with the deduced rules of accentuation, are far from being sufficient to settle in all cases, the place of the stress of voice for a considerable part of the vocabulary is undetermined. Hence it is a general habit with European scholars to pronounce Sanskrit words according to the rules of the Latin accent.

97. In this work, the accent of each word and form will in general be marked, so far as there is authority determining its place and character. Where specific words and forms are quoted, they will only be so far accentuated as they are found with accent in accentuated texts.

CHAPTER III.

RULES OF EUPHONIC COMBINATION.

Introductory.

98. The words in Sanskrit, as in the other languages related with it, are in great part analysable into roots, suffixes of derivation, and endings of inflection, these last being added mostly to stems containing suffixes, but also sometimes directly to roots.

a. There are, of course, a certain number of uninflected words—indeclinables, particles; and also not a few that are incapable of analysis.

99. The Sanskrit, indeed, possesses an exceptionally analysable character; its formative processes are more regular and transparent than those of any other Indo-European tongue. Hence the prevailing method of the Hindu native science of grammar, which sets up a certain body of roots, and prescribes the processes by which these may be made stems and words, giving the various added elements, and laying down the rules by which their combination is effected. And the same general method is, for like reasons, followed also by European grammarians.

100. The euphonic-laws, accordingly, which govern the combination of suffix or of ending with root or stem, possess a high practical importance, and require to be laid down in preparation for topics of declension and conjugation.

101. Moreover, the formation of compounds, by joining two or more simple stems, is extremely frequent in Sanskrit; and this kind of combination has its own peculiar euphonic rules. And once more, in the form of the language as handed down to us by its literature, the words composing a sentence or paragraph are adapted to and combined with one another by nearly the same rules which govern the making of compounds; so that it is impossible to take apart and understand a Sanskrit sentence without knowing those rules. Hence

an increased degree of practical importance belonging to the subject of euphonic combination.

a. This euphonic interdependence of the words of a sentence is unknown to any other language in anything like the same degree; and it cannot but be suspected of being at least in part artificial, implying an erection into necessary and invariable rules of what in the living language were only optional practices. This is strongly indicated, indeed, by the evidence of the older dialect of the Vedas and of the derived Prakritic dialects, in both of which some of the rules (especially that as to the hiatus: see 113) are often violated.

102. The roots which are authenticated by their occurrence in the literary monuments of the language, earlier and later, number between eight and nine hundred. About half of these belong fully to the language throughout its whole history; some (about a hundred and fifty) are limited to the earlier or pre-classical period; some, again (over a hundred and twenty), make their first appearance in the later language.

a. There are in this number roots of very diverse character. Those occurring only later are, at least in great part, presumably of secondary origin; and a certain number are even doubtless artificial, used once or twice because found in the root-lists of the Hindu grammarians (103). But also of the rest, some are plainly secondary, while others are questionable; and not a few are variations or differentiated forms of one another. Thus, there are roots showing respectively *r* and *l*, as *rabh* and *labh*, *mruc* and *mluc*, *kṣar* and *kṣal*; roots with and without a strengthening nasal, as *vand* and *vad*, *mand* and *mad*; roots in *ā* and in *a* nasal, as *khā* and *khan*, *gā* and *gam*, *jā* and *jan*; roots made by an added *ā*, as *trā* from *tr*, *mnā* from *man*, *psā* from *bhas*, *yā* from *i*; roots the product of reduplication, as *jakṣ* from *ghas*, *dudh* from *dhū*; roots with a final sibilant of formative origin, as *bhakṣ* and *bhikṣ* from *bhaj*, *nakṣ* from *naç*, *çruṣ* from *çru*, *hās* from *hā*; root-forms held apart by a well-established discordance of inflection and meaning, which yet are probably different sides of one root, as *kṛṣ drag* and *kṛṣ plough*, *vid know* and *vid find*, *ṛ enclose* and *ṛ choose*; and so on. *In many such cases it is doubtful whether we ought to acknowledge two roots or only one; and no absolute rule of distinction can be laid down and maintained.*

103. The list of roots given by the Hindu grammarians contains about two thousand roots, without including all those which students of the language are compelled to recognize. Considerably more than half of this number, then, are unauthenticated by use; and although some of these may yet come to light, or may have existed without finding their way into any of the preserved literary documents, it is certain that most are fictitious; made in part for the explanation of words falsely described as their derivatives, but in the main for unknown and perhaps undiscoverable reasons.

a. The roots unauthenticated by traceable use will be made no account of in this grammar—or, if noticed, will be specified as of that character.

104. The forms of the roots as here used will be found to differ in certain respects from those given by the native grammarians and adopted by some European works. Thus:

a. Those roots of which the initial *n* and *s* are regularly converted to *ṇ* and *ṣ* after certain prefixes are by the Hindu grammarians given as beginning with *ṇ* and *ṣ*; no western authority follows this example.

b. The Hindus classify as simple roots a number of derived stems: reduplicated ones, as *dīdhī*, *jāgr*, *daridrā*; present-stems, as *ūrṇu*; and denominative stems, as *avadhīr*, *kumār*, *sabhāg*, *mantr*, *sāntv*, *arth*, and the like. These are in European works generally reduced to their true value.

c. A number of roots ending in an *ā* which is irregularly treated in the present-system are written in the Hindu lists with diphthongs — *e* or *āi* or *o*; here they will be regarded as *ā*-roots (see 251). The *o* of such root-forms, especially, is purely arbitrary; no forms or derivatives made from the roots justify it.

d. The roots showing interchangeably *ṛ* and *ir* and *īr* or *ur* and *ūr* (242) are written by the Hindus with *ṛ* or with *īr*, or with both. The *īr* here also is only formal, intended to mark the roots as liable to certain modifications, since it nowhere shows itself in any form or derivative. Such roots will in this work be written with *ṛ*.

e. The roots, on the other hand, showing a variation between *ṛ* and *ar* (rarely *ra*) as weak and strong forms will be here written with *ṛ*, as by the native grammarians, although many European authorities prefer the other or strong form. So long as we write the unstrengthened vowel in *vid* and *ṇī*, in *mud* and *bhū*, and their like, consistency seems to require that we write it in *sṛj* and *kṛ* also—in all cases alike, without reference to what may have been the more original Indo-European form.

105. In many cases of roots showing more than one form, the selection of a representative form is a matter of comparative indifference. To deal with such cases according to their historical character is the part rather of an Indo-European comparative grammar than of a Sanskrit grammar. We must be content to accept as roots what elements seem to have on the whole that value in the existing condition of the language.

106. Stems as well as roots have their variations of form (311). The Hindu grammarians usually give the weaker form as the normal one, and derive the other from it by a strengthening change; some European authorities do the same, while others prefer the contrary method; the choice is of unessential consequence, and may be determined in any case by motives of convenience.

107. We shall accordingly consider first of all, in the present chapter, the euphonic principles and laws which govern the combi-

nation of the elements of words and of words as elements of the sentence; then will be taken up the subject of inflection, under the two heads of declension and conjugation; and an account of the classes of uninflected words will follow.

a. The formation of conjugational stems (tense and mode-stems; also participles and infinitive) will be taught, as is usual, in connection with the processes of conjugational inflection; that of uninflected words, in connection with the various classes of those words. But the general subject of derivation, or the formation of declinable stems, will be taken up by itself later (chap. XVII.); and it will be followed by an account of the formation of compound stems (chap. XVIII.).

108. It is by no means to be expected of beginners in the language that they will attempt to master the rules of euphonic combination in a body, before going on to learn the paradigms of inflection. On the contrary, the leading paradigms of declension may best be learned outright, without attention, or with only a minimum of attention, to euphonic rule. In taking up conjugation, however, it is practically, as well as theoretically, better to learn the forms as combinations of stem and ending, with attention to such laws of combination as apply in the particular cases concerned. The rules of external combination, governing the make-up of the sentence out of words, should be grappled with only when the student is prepared to begin the reading or the formation of sentences.

Principles of Euphonic Combination.

109. The rules of combination (saṁdhi 'putting together') *are in some respects different, according as they apply—*

a. to the internal make-up of a word, by the addition of derivative and inflectional endings to roots and stems;

b. to the more external putting together of stems to make compound stems, and the yet looser and more accidental collocation of words in the sentence;

c. Hence they are usually divided into rules of internal combination, and rules of external combination.

110. In both classes of cases, however, the general principles of combination are the same—and likewise, to a great extent, the specific rules. The differences depend in part on the occurrence or non-occurrence of certain combinations in the one class or the other; in part, on the difference of treatment of the same sound as final of a root or of an ending, the former being more persistent than the latter; in part, on the occurrence in external combination of certain changes which are apparently phonetic but really historical; and, most frequent and conspicuous of all, on the fact that (157) vowels and semivowels and nasals exercise a sonantizing influence in external combination, but not in internal. Hence, to avoid unnecessary repetition as well as the separation of what really belongs together, the rules for both kinds of combination are given below in connection with one another.

111. a. Moreover, before case-endings beginning with *bh* and *s* (namely *bhyām*, *bhis*, *bhyas*, *su*), the treatment of the finals of stems is in general the same as in the combinations of words (*pada*) with one another—whence those endings are sometimes called *pada*-endings, and the cases they form are known as *pada*-cases.

b. The importance of this distinction is somewhat exaggerated by the ordinary statement of it. In fact, *dh* is the only sonant mute initial of an ending occurring in conjugation, as *bh* in declension; and the difference of their treatment is in part owing to the one coming into collision usually with the final of a root and the other of an ending, and in part to the fact that *dh*, as a dental, is more assimilable to palatals and linguals than *bh*. A more marked and problematic distinction is made between *su* and the verbal endings *si*, *sva*, etc., especially after palatal sounds and *ṣ*.

c. Further, before certain of the suffixes of derivation the final of a stem is sometimes treated in the same manner as that of a word in composition.

d. This is especially the case before secondary suffixes having a markedly distinct office, like the possessive *mant* and *vant*, the abstract-making *tva*, the suffix of material *maya*, and so on; and it is much more frequent in the later language than in the earlier. The examples are sporadic in character, and no rule can be given to cover them: for details, see the various suffixes, in chap. XVII. In the RV. (as may be mentioned here) the only examples are *vidyūnmant* (beside *garūtmant*, *kakūdmant*, etc.), *pṛṣadvant* (beside *datvānt*, *marūtvant*, etc.), *dhṛṣadvín* (beside *namasvín* etc.), and *aham̐yú*, *kim̐yú*, *ṣam̐yú*, and *aṅhoyú*, *duvoyú*, *áskṛdhoyu* (beside *namasyú*, *vacasyú*, etc.); and the AV. adds only *sáhovan* (RV. *savāvan*).

112. The leading rules of internal combination (as already stated: 108) are those which are of most immediate importance to a beginner in the language, since his first task is to master the principle paradigms of

inflection; the rules of external combination may better be left untouched until he comes to dealing with words in sentences, or to translating. Then, however, they are indispensable, since the proper form of the words that compose the sentence is not to be determined without them.

a. The general principles of combination underlying the euphonic rules, and determining their classification, may be stated as follows:

113. Hiatus. In general, hiatus is forbidden; every syllable except the initial one of a sentence, or of a word or phrase not forming part of a sentence, must begin with a consonant (or with more than one).

a. For details, and for exceptions, see 125 ff.

b. In the earlier language, however, hiatus in every position was abundantly admitted. This appears plainly from the *mantras*, or metrical parts of the Veda, where in innumerable instances y and v are to be read as i and u, and, less often, a long vowel is to be resolved into two vowels, in order to make good the metre; e.g. vāryāṇām has to be read as vā-ri-ā-ṇa-ām, svaçvyam as su-aç-vi-am, and so on. In the Brāhmaṇas, also, we find tvac, svar, dyāus described as dissyllables, vyāna and satyam as trisyllables, rājanya as of four syllables, and the like. See further 129 e.

114. Deaspiration. An aspirate mute is liable to lose its aspiration, being allowed to stand unchanged only before a vowel or semivowel or nasal.

115. Assimilation. The great body of euphonic changes in Sanskrit, as elsewhere, falls under the general head of assimilation—which takes place both between sounds which are so nearly alike that the difference between them is too insignificant to be worth preserving, and between those which are so diverse as to be practically incompatible.

116. In part, assimilation involves the conversion of one sound to another of the same series, without change of articulating position; in part, it involves a change of position, or transfer to another series.

117. Of changes within the series, the most frequent and important occur in the adaptation of surd and sonant sounds to one

another; but the nasals and l have also in certain cases their special assimilative influence. Thus:

a. In the two classes of non-nasal mutes and spirants, surd and sonant are wholly incompatible; no surd of either class can either precede or follow a sonant of either.

b. A mute, surd or sonant, is assimilated by being changed to its correspondent of the other kind; of the spirants, the surd s is the only one having a sonant correspondent, namely r, to which it is convertible in external combination (164 ff.).

c. The nasals are more freely combinable: a nasal may either precede or follow a mute of either kind, or the sonant spirant h; it may also follow a surd aspirant (sibilant); no nasal, however, ever precedes a sibilant in the interior of a word (it is changed instead to anusvāra); and in external combination their concurrence is usually avoided by insertion of a surd mute.

d. A semivowel has still less sonantizing influence; and a vowel least of all: both are freely preceded and followed by sounds of every other class, in the interior of a word.

e. Before a sibilant, however, is found, of the semivowels, only r and very rarely l. Moreover, in external combination, r is often changed to its surd correspondent s.

But

f. In composition and sentence-collocation, initial vowels and semivowels and nasals also require the preceding final to be sonant. And

g. Before a nasal and l, the assimilative process is sometimes carried further, by the conversion of a final mute to a nasal or l respectively.

118. Of conversions involving a change of articulate position, the most important are those of dental sounds to lingual, and, less often, to palatal. Thus:

a. The dental s and n are very frequently converted to ś and ṇ by the assimilating influence of contiguous or neighboring lingual sounds: the s, even by sounds—namely, i- and u-vowels and k—which have themselves no lingual character.

b. A non-nasal dental mute is (with a few exceptions in external combination) made lingual when it comes into collision with a lingual sound.

c. The dental mutes and sibilant are made palatal by a contiguous palatal.

But also:

d. A m (not radical) is assimilated to a following consonant, of whatever kind.

e. For certain anomalous cases, see 151.

119. The euphonic combinations of the palatal mutes, the palatal sibilant, and the aspiration, as being sounds derived by phonetic alteration from more original gutturals (42 ff.), are made peculiar

and complicated by two circumstances: their reversion to a guttural form (or the appearance of the unaltered guttural instead of them: 43); and the different treatment of j and h according as they represent one or another degree of alteration—the one tending, like c, more to the guttural reversion, the other showing, like ç, a more sibilant and lingual character.

120. The lingual sibilant ş, also of derivative character (from dental s), shows as radical final peculiar and problematic phenomena of combination.

121. Extension and abbreviation of consonant-groups. The native grammarians allow or require certain extensions, by duplication or insertion, of groups of consonants. And, on the other hand, abbreviation of certain other groups is allowed, and found often practised in the manuscripts.

122. Permitted Finals. The permitted occurrence of consonants at the end of a word is quite narrowly restricted. In general, only one consonant is allowed after the last vowel; and that must be neither the aspiration, nor a sibilant, nor a semivowel (save rarely ڤ l), nor an aspirate mute, nor a sonant mute if not nasal, nor a palatal.

123. Increment and Decrement. Besides these more or less regular changes accompanying the combination of the parts that make up words, there is another class of a different character, not consisting in the mutual adaptations of the parts, but in strengthening or weakening changes of the parts themselves.

124. It is impossible to carry through a perfectly systematic arrangement of the detailed rules of euphonic combination, because the different varieties of euphonic change more or less overlap and intersect one another. The order observed below will be as follows:

1. Rules of vowel combination, for the avoidance of hiatus.
2. Rules as to permitted finals (since these underlie the further treatment of final consonants in external combination).
3. Rules for loss of aspiration of an aspirate mute.
4. Rules of surd and sonant assimilation, including those for final s and r.

5. Rules for the conversion of dental sounds to lingual and palatal.

6. Rules for the changes of final nasals, including those in which a former final following the nasal re-appears in combination.

7. Rules regarding the special changes of the derivation sounds—the palatal mutes and sibilant, the aspiration, and the lingual sibilant.

8. Rules as to extension and abbreviation of consonant groups.

9. Rules for strengthening and weakening processes.

Everywhere, rules for more sporadic and less classifiable cases will be given in the most practically convenient connection; and the Index will render what help is needed toward finding them.

Rules of Vowel Combination.

125. The concurrence of two vowels, or of vowel and diphthong, without intervening consonant, is forbidden by the euphony of the later or classical language. It is avoided, according to the circumstances of the case, either by fusion of the two concurrent sounds into one, by the reduction of one of them to a semivowel, or by development of a semivowel between them.

a. For the not infrequent cases of composition and sentence-combination in which the recent loss of a *s* or *y* or *v* between vowels leave a permanent hiatus, see below, 132 ff., 175–7; for certain final vowels which are maintained unchanged in sentence-combination before an initial vowel, see 138.

b. A very few words in their admitted written form show interior hiatus; such are *tītaū sieve* (perhaps for *titasu*, BR.), *prāūga wagon-pole* (for *prayuga*); and, in RV., *suūtī*.

c. The texts of the older dialect are written according to the euphonic rules of the later language, although in them (see 113 b) the hiatus is really of frequent occurrence. Hence they are not to be read as written, but with constantly recurring reversal of the processes of vowel-combination which they have been made artificially to undergo. See further 129 e.

d. Also in the later language, hiatus between the two *pādas* or primary divisions of a metrical line is tolerably frequent, and it is not unknown in sporadic cases even in the interior of a *pāda*.

e. The rules of vowel combination, as regards both the resulting sound and its accent, are nearly the same in internal and in extreme *saṁdhi*.

126. Two similar simple vowels, short or long, coalesce and form the corresponding long vowel: thus, two a-vowels (either or both of them short or long) form आ ā; two i-vowels, ई ī; two u-vowels, ऊ ū; and theoretically, two ɾ-vowels form ऋ ṛ, but it is questionable whether the case ever practically occurs. Examples are:

स चाप्रजः sa cā 'prajāḥ (ca + aprajāḥ);

अतीव atī 'va (ati + iva);

सूक्तम् sūktam (su-uktam);

राजासीत् rājā 'sīt (rājā + āsīt);

अधीश्वरः adhīṣvaraḥ (adhi-īṣvaraḥ);

जुहूपभृत् juhūpabhṛt (juhū—upabhṛt).

a. As the above examples indicate, it will be the practice everywhere in this work, in transliteration (not in the devanāgarī text), to separate independent words; and if an initial vowel of a following word has coalesced with a final of the preceding, this will be indicated by an apostrophe—single if the initial vowel be the shorter, double if it be the longer, of the two different initials which in every case of combination yield the same result.

127. An a-vowel combines with a following i-vowel to ए e; with an u-vowel, to ओ o; with ऋ ṛ, to अर् ar; with लृ ḷ (theoretically), to अल् al; with ए e or ऐ āi, to ऐ āi; with ओ o or औ āu, to औ āu. Examples are:

राजेन्द्र rājendra (rāja-indra);

हितोपदेशः hitopadeśaḥ (hita-upadeśaḥ);

महर्षिः maharṣiḥ (mahā-ṛṣiḥ);

सैव sāi 'va (sā + eva);

राजैश्वर्यम् rājāiṣvaryaṁ (rājā-āiṣvaryaṁ);

दिवौकसः divāukasaḥ (divā-okasaḥ);

ज्वरौषधम् jvarāuśadham (jvara-āuśadham).

a. In the Vedic texts, the vowel ɾ is ordinarily written unchanged after the a-vowel, which, if long, is shortened: thus, maharṣiḥ instead of maharṣiḥ. The two vowels, however, are usually pronounced as one syllable.

b. When successive words like indra ā ihi are to be combined, the first combination, to indrā, is made first, and the result is indre" 'hi (not indrāi" 'hi, from indra e 'hi).

128. As regards the accent of these vowel combinations, it is to be noticed that, 1. as a matter of course, the union of acute with acute yields acute, and that of grave with grave yields grave; that of circumflex with circumflex cannot occur; 2. a circumflex with following acute yields acute, the final grave element of the former being raised to acute pitch; a grave with following acute does the same, as no upward slide of the voice on a syllable is acknowledged in the language; but, 3. when the former of the fused elements is acute and the latter grave, we might expect the resulting syllable to be in general circumflex, to represent both the original tones. Pāṇini in fact allows this accent in every such case; and in a single accented Brāhmaṇa text (ÇB.), the circumflex is regularly written. But the language shows, on the whole, an indisposition to allow the circumflex to rest on either long vowel or diphthong as its sole basis, and the acute element is suffered to raise the other to its own level of pitch, making the whole syllable acute. The only exception to this, in most of the texts, is the combination of í and i, which becomes ì: thus, divì 'va, from diví iva; in the Tāittirīya texts alone such a case follows the general rule, while ú and u, instead, make ù: thus, sùdgātā from sú-udgātā.

129. The i-vowels, the u-vowels, and ऋ r, before a dissimilar vowel or diphthong, are regularly converted each into its own corresponding semivowel, य y or व v or र r. Examples are:

इत्याह ity āha (iti + āha);

मध्विव madhv iva (madhu + iva);

दुहितरथे duhitrarthe (duhitṛ-arthe);

स्यस्य stry asya (strī + asya);

वध्वै vadhvāi (vadhū-āi).

a. But in internal combination the i and u-vowels are not seldom changed instead to iy and uv—and this especially in monosyllables, or after two constants, where otherwise a group of consonants difficult of pronunciation would be the result. The cases will be noticed below, in explaining inflected forms.

b. A radical i-vowel is converted into y even before i in perfect tense-inflection, so ninyima (ninī + ima).

c. In a few sporadic cases, i and u become iy and uv even in word-composition: e.g., triyavi (tri + avi), viyaṅga (vi + aṅga), suvita (su + ita): compare 1204 b, c.

d. Not very seldom, the same word (especially as found in different texts of the older language) has more than one form, showing various treat-

ment of an i or u-vowel: e.g. svàr or súvar, tanvè or tanúve, budhnyà or budhniya, rátryāi or rátriyaī. For the most part, doubtless, these are only two ways of writing the same pronunciation, sú-ar, budhniá, and so on; and the discordance has no other importance, historical or phonetic. There is more or less of this difference of treatment of an i- or u-element after a consonant in all periods of the language.

e. In the elder language, there is a marked difference, in respect to the frequency of vowel-combination for avoiding hiatus as compared with that of non-combination and consequent hiatus, between the class of cases where two vowel-sounds, similar or dissimilar, would coalesce into one (126, 127) and that where an i- or u-vowel would be converted into a semivowel. Thus, in word-composition, the ratio of the cases of coalesced vowels to those of hiatus are in RV. as five to one, in AV. as nineteen to one, while in the cases of semivowel-conversion are in RV. only one in twelve, in AV. only one in five; in sentence-combination, the cases of coalescence are in both RV. and AV. about as seven to one, while those of semivowel-conversion are in RV. only one in fifty, in AV. one in five.

f. For certain cases of the loss or assimilation of i and u before y and v respectively, see 233 a.

130. As regards the accent—here, as in the preceding case (128), the only combination requiring notice is that of an acute i- or u- vowel with a following grave: the result is circumflex; and such cases of circumflex are many times more frequent than any and all others. Examples are:

व्युष्टि vyùṣṭi (ví-uṣṭi); अभ्यर्चति abhyàrcati;

नदी nadyāu (nadí-āu);

स्विष्ट svìṣṭa (sú-iṣṭa); तन्वस् tanvàs (tanú-as).

a. Of a similar combination of acute í with following grave, only a single case has been noted in accented texts: namely, vijñātr ètát (i.e. vijñātí etát: ÇB. xiv. 6. 8¹¹); the accentuation is in accordance with the rules for i and u.

131. Of a diphthong, the final i- or u-element is changed to its corresponding semivowel, य y and व v, before any vowel or diphthong: thus, ए e (really ai: 28 a) becomes अय ay, and ओ o (that is, au: 28 a) becomes अव av; ऐ ai becomes आय āy, and औ au becomes आव āv.

a. No change of accent, of course, occurs here; each original syllable retains its syllabic identity, and hence also its own tone.

b. Examples can be given only for internal combination, since in external combination there are further changes: see the next paragraph. Thus,

नय naya (ne-a); नाय nāya (nāi-a);

भव bhava (bho-a); भाव bhāva (bhāu-a).

132. In external combination, we have the important additional rule that the semivowel resulting from the conversion of the final element of a diphthong is in general dropped; and the resulting hiatus is left without further change.

133. That is to say, a final ए e (the most frequent case) becomes simply अ a before an initial vowel (except आ a: see 135, below), and both then remain unchanged; and a final ऐ āi, in like manner, becomes (everywhere) आ ā. Thus,

त आगताः ta āgatāḥ (te + āgatāḥ);

नगर इह nagara iha (nagare + iha);

तस्मा अददात् tasmā adadāt (tasmāi + adadāt);

स्त्रिया उक्तम् striyā uktam (striyāi + uktam).

a. The latter grammarians allow the y in such combinations to be either retained or dropped; but the uniform practice of the manuscripts, of every age, in accordance with the strict requirement of the Vedic grammars (Prātiçākhyas), is to omit the semivowel and leave the hiatus.

b. The persistence of the hiatus caused by this omission is a plain indication of the comparatively recent loss of the intervening consonantal sound.

c. Instances, however, of the avoidance of hiatus by combination of the remaining final vowel with the following initial according to the usual rules are met with in every period of the language, from the RV. down; but they are rare and of sporadic character. Compare the similar treatments of the hiatus after a lost final s, 176–7.

d. For the peculiar treatment of this combination in certain cases caused by the MS., see below, 176d.

134. a. The diphthong o (except as phonetic alteration of final as: see 175 a) is an unusual final, appearing only in the stem go (361 c), in the voc. sing. of u-stems (341), in words of which the final a is combined with the particle u, as atho, and in a few interjections. In the last two classes it is uncombinable (below, 138 c,f); the vocatives sometimes retain the v and sometimes lose it (the practices of different texts are too different to be briefly stated); go (in composition only) does not ordinarily lose its final element, but remains gav or go. A final as becomes a, with following hiatus, before any vowel save a (for which, see the next paragraph).

b. The व् v of आव् āv from औ āu is usually retained: thus,

तावेव tāv eva (tāu + eva);

उभाविन्द्राग्नी ubhāv indrāgnī (ubhāu + indrāgnī).

c. In the older language, however, it is in some texts dropped before an u-vowel: thus, tá ubhāú; in other texts it is treated like āi, or loses its u-element before every initial vowel: thus, tá evá, ubhā indrāgnī.

135. After final ए e or औ o, an initial अ a disappears.

a. The resulting accent is as if the a were not dropped, but rather absorbed into the preceding diphthong, having its tone duly represented in the combination. If, namely, the e or o is grave or circumflex and the a acute, the former becomes acute; if the e or o is acute and the a grave, the former becomes circumflex, as usually in the fusion of an acute a and a grave element. If both are acute or both grave, no change, of course, is seen in the result. Examples are:

ते ऽब्रुवन् tè 'bruvan (té abruvan);

सो ऽब्रवीत् sò 'bravīt (sáh abravīt);

हिंसितव्यो ऽग्निः hiṁsitavyò 'gníḥ (hiṁsitavyàḥ agníḥ);

यदिन्द्रो ऽब्रवीत् yád índró 'bravīt (yád índraḥ ábravīt);

यद्रान्यो ऽब्रवीत् yád rājanyó 'bravīt (yád rājanàḥ ábravīt).

b. As to the use of the avagraha sign in the case of such an elision, see above, 16. In transliteration, the reversed apostrophe, or rough breathing, will be used in this work to represent it.

c. This elision or absorption of initial a after final e or o, which in the later language is the invariable rule, is in the Veda only an occasional occurrence. Thus, in the RV., out of nearly 4500 instances of such an initial a, it is, as the metre shows, to be really omitted only about seventy times; in the AV., less than 300 times out of about 1600. In neither work is there any accordance in respect to the combination in question between the written and the spoken form of the text: in RV., the a is (as written) elided in more than three quarters of the cases; in the AV., in about two thirds; and in both it is written in a number of instances where the metre requires its omission.

d. In a few cases, an initial ā is thus elided, especially that of ātman.

e. To the rules of vowel combination, as above stated, there are certain exceptions. Some of the more isolated of these will be

noticed where they come up in the processes of inflection etc.; a few require mention here.

13. In internal combination:

a. The augment *a* makes with the initial vowel of a root the combinations *āi*, *āu*, *ār* (vṛddhi-vowels: 235), instead of *e*, *o*, *ar* (guṇa-vowels), as required by 127; thus, *āita* (*a* + *ita*), *āubhnāt* (*a* + *ubhnāt*), *ārdhnot* (*a* + *rdhnot*).

b. The final *o* of a stem (1203a) becomes *av* before the suffix *ya* (original *ia*: 1210a).

c. The final vowel of a stem is often dropped when a secondary suffix is added (1203a).

d. For the weakening and loss of radical vowels, and for certain insertions, see below, 249 ff., 257–8.

137. In external combination:

a. The final *a* or *ā* of a preposition, with initial *ṛ* of a root, makes *ār* instead of *ar*: Thus, *ārchatī* (*ā* + *ṛchatī*), *avārchatī* (*ava* + *ṛchatī*), *upārṣatī* (ÇB.: *upa* + *ṛṣatī*; but A.V. *uparṣanti*).

b. Instances are occasionally met with a final *a* or *ā* being lost entirely before initial *e* or *o*: thus, in verb-forms, *av' eṣyāmas* AB., *up' eṣatu* etc. AV.; in derivatives, as *upetavya*, *upetr*; in compounds, as *daṇi*, *yathetam*, and (permissibly) compounds with *oṣṭha* (not rare), *otu* (not quotable), *odana*, as *adharoṣṭha* or *adharāuṣṭha*, *tilodana* or *tilāudana*; and even in sentence-combination, as *iv' etayas*, *aṣvin' eva*, *yath' ociṣe* (all RV.), *tv' odman* B.; and always with the exclamation *om* or *omkāra*.

c. The form *ūh* from *√vah* sometimes makes the heavier or vṛddhi (235) diphthongal combination with a preceding *a*-vowel; thus, *prāuḍhi*, *akṣāuhiṇī* (from *pra* + *ūḍhi*, etc.).

138. Certain final vowels, moreover, are uncombinable (*pragṛhya*), or maintain themselves unchanged before any following vowel. Thus,

a. The vowels *ī*, *ū*, and *e* are dual endings, both of declensional and of conjugational forms. Thus, *bandhū āsāte imāu*; *girī ārohatam*.

b. The pronoun *amī* (nom. pl.: 501); and the Vedic pronominal forms *asmé*, *yuṣmé*, *tvé* (492 a).

c. A final *o* made by combination of a final *a*-vowel with the particle *u* (1122b); thus, *atho*, *mo*, *no*.

d. A final *ī* of a Vedic locative case from an *i*-stem (336f).

e. A protracted final vowel (78).

f. The final, or only, vowel of an interjection, as *aho*, *he*, *ā*, *i*, *u*.

g. The older language shows occasional exceptions to these rules: thus, a dual *ī* combined with a following *i*, as *nṛpātī 'va*; an *a* elided after *o*, as *átho 'si*; a locative *ī* turned into a semivowel, as *védy asyám*.

Permitted Finals.

139. The sounds allowed to occur as finals in Sanskrit words standing by themselves (not in euphonic combination with something following) are closely limited, and those which would etymologically come to occupy such a position are often variously altered, in general accordance with their treatment in other circumstances, or are sometimes omitted altogether.

a. The variety of consonants that would ever come at the end of either an inflected form or a derivation stem in the language is very small: namely, in forms, only t (or d), n, m, s; in derivative stems, only t, d, n, r, s (and, in a few rare words, j). But almost all consonants occur as finals of roots; and every root is liable to be found, alone or as last member of a compound, in the character of a declined stem.

140. All the vowel sounds, both simple and diphthongal, may be sounded at the end of a word.

a. But neither $\bar{r}$ nor $\bar{l}$ ever actually occurs; and $\bar{r}$ is rare (only as neuter sing. of a stem in $\bar{r}$ or ar, or as final of such a stem in composition).

Thus, $\acute{ind}ra$, $\acute{c}iváyā$, $\acute{á}kāri$, $nad\acute{í}$, $dātu$, $camú$, $janayit\acute{í}$, $\acute{á}gne$, $\acute{c}iváyāi$, $váyo$, $agnāú$.

141. Of the non-nasal mutes, only the first in each series, the non-aspirate surd, is allowed; the others — surd aspirate, and both sonants — whenever they would etymologically occur, are converted into this.

Thus, $agnimát$ for $agnimáth$, $suh\acute{t}$ for $suh\acute{d}$, $v\acute{í}rút$ for $v\acute{í}rúdh$, $triṣṭúp$ for $triṣṭúbh$.

a. In a few roots, when their final (sonant aspirate) thus loses its aspiration, the original sonant aspiration of the initial reappears; compare हृ h, below, 147.

Thus, dagh becomes dhak, budh becomes bhut, and so on.

The roots exhibiting this change are stated below, 155.

b. There was some question among the Hindu grammarians as whether the final mute is to be estimated as of surd or of sonant quality; but the great weight of authority, and the invariable practice of the manuscripts, favor the surd.

142. The palatals, however, form here (as often elsewhere) an exception to the rules for the other mutes. No palatal is allowed as final. The च् c reverts (43) to its original क् k: thus, वाक् vák, अंहोमुक् aṅhomúk. The च् ch (only quotable in the root प्रच् prach) becomes ट् ṭ: thus प्राट् prāṭ. The ज् j either reverts to its original guttural or becomes ट् ṭ, in accordance with its treatment in other combinations (219): thus, भिषक् bhiṣák, विराट् virāṭ. The ज्ञ् jh does not occur, but it is by the native grammarians declared convertible to ट् ṭ.

143. Of the nasals, the म् m and न् n are extremely common, especially the former (म् m and स् s are of all final consonants the most frequent); the ण् ṇ is allowed, but is quite rare; ङ् ṅ is found (remaining after the loss of a following क् k) in a very small number of words (386 b, c, 407 a); ञ् ñ never occurs.

a. But the final m of a root is changed to n (compare 212 a, below): thus, akran from kram, ágan, ajagan, aganāgan from gam, ánān from nam, ayān from yam, praçān from çam; no other cases are quotable.

144. Of the semivowels, the ल् l alone is an admitted final, and it is very rare. र् r is (like its nearest surd correspondent, स् s: 145) changed as final to visarga. Of य् y and व् v there is no occurrence.

145. Of the sibilants, none may stand unaltered at the end of a word. The स् s (which of all final consonants would otherwise be the commonest) is, like र् r, changed to a breathing, the visarga. The ण् ṇ either reverts (43) to its original क् k, or, in some roots, is changed to ट् ṭ (in accordance with its changes in inflection and derivation: see below, 218): thus, दिक् dik, but विट् viṭ. The ण् ṣ is likewise changed to ट् ṭ: thus, प्रावृट् prāvṛṭ.

a. The change of ण् ṣ to ट् ṭ is of rare occurrence: see below, 226 d.

b. Final radical s is said by the grammarians to be changed to t; but no sure example of this conversion is quotable; see 168; and compare 555 a.

146. The compound क्श is prescribed to be treated as simple क्ष (not becoming क् by 150, below). But the case is a rare one, and its actual treatment in the older language irregular.

a. In the only RV. cases where the क्श has a quasi-radical character—namely *anák* from *anákṣ*, and *ámyak* from *√myakṣ*—the conversion is to k. Also, of forms of the s-aorist (see 890), we have *adhāk*, *asrāk*, *arāik*, etc. (for *adhākṣ-t* etc.); but also *aprāt*, *ayāt*, *avāt*, *asrāt* (for *aprākṣ-t* etc.). And RV. has twice *ayās* from *√yaj*, and AV. twice *srās* from *√srj* (wrongly referred by BR. to *√srañs*), both 2d sing., where the personal ending has perhaps crowded out the root-final and tense-sign.

b. The numeral *ṣaṣ* six is perhaps better to be regarded as *ṣakṣ*, with its क्श treated as क्ष, according to the accepted rule.

147. The aspiration ह् is not allowed to maintain itself, but (like ज् and ञ्) either reverts to its original guttural form, appearing as क्, or is changed to ट्—both in accordance with its treatment in inflection: see below, 222. And, also as in inflection, the original sonant aspiration of a few roots (given at 155b) reappears when their final thus becomes deaspirated. Where the ह् is from original ध् (223e), it becomes त्.

148. The visarga and anusvāra are nowhere etymologically finals; the former is only the substitute for an original final स् or र्; the latter occurs as final only so far as it is a substitute for म् (213h).

149. Apart from the vowels, then, the usual finals, nearly in the order of their frequency, are: ह्, म्, न्, त्, क्, प्, ट्; those of only sporadic occurrence are ण्, ल्, ण्; and, by substitution, ण्.

150. In general, only one consonant, of whatever kind, is allowed to stand at the end of a word; if two or more would etymologically occur there, the last is dropped, and again the last, and so on, till only one remains.

a. Thus, tudants becomes tudant, and this tudan; udañc-s becomes udañk (142), and this udañ; and achāntst (s-aor., 3d sing., of √chand [890b]) is in like manner reduced to achān.

b. But a non-nasal mute, if radical and not suffixal, is retained after r: thus, ūrk from ūrj, várk from √vrj, avart from √vrt, ámārt from √mrj, suhárt from suhārd. The case is not a common one.

c. For relics of former double finals, preserved by the later language under the disguise of apparent euphonic combinations, see below, 207 ff.

151. Anomalous conversions of a final mute to one of another class are occasionally met with. Examples are:

a. Of final t to k; thus, 1. in a few words that have assumed a special value as particles, as jyók, tāják (beside tāját), řdhak (beside řdhat), přthak, drāk; and of kindred character is khādagdánt (TA.); 2. in here and there a verbal form, as sāviřak (AV. and VS. Kāñ.), dambhiřak (Āpast.), ariřak (Pārask.), āhalak (VS. MS.; = āharat); 3. in root-finals or the t added to root-stems (383 e), as -dhřk for -dhřt (Sūtras and later) at the end of compounds, suçrúk (TB.), přkřú (SV.); and 4. we may further note here the anomalous eñkřva (AB.; for intřva, řidh) and avāksam (AB.), and the feminines in knī from masculines in ta (1176 d).

b. Of final d or t to a lingual: thus, pad in Vedic pađbhís, páđgrbhi, páđbīça; upānádđbhyām (ÇB.); vy avāt (MS. iii. 4. 9; √vas *shine*), and perhaps ápā 'rāt (MS.; or √raj?).

c. Of k or j to t, in an isolated example or two, as samyát, ásřt, viçvasřt (TS. K.), and prayátsu (VS. TS.; AV. -křu).

d. In Tāittirīya texts, of the final of anuřtúbh and triřtúbh to a guttural: as, anuřtúk ca, triřtúgbhis, anuřtúgbhyas.

e. Of a labial to a dental: in kakúd for and beside kakúbh; in sařsřdbhis (TS.) from √sřp; and in adbhis, adbhyás, from ap or āp (393). Excepting the first, these look like cases of dissimilation; yet examples of the combination bbh are not very rare in the older language: thus, kakúbbhyām, triřtúbbhis, kakúbbhañdá, anuřtúb bhí.

f. The forms pratidhúřas, -řā (Tāittirīya texts) from pratidúh are isolated anomalies.

152. For all the processes of external combination—that is to say, in composition and sentence-collocation—a stem-final or word-final is in general to be regarded as having, not its etymological form, but that given by the rules as to permitted finals. From this, however, are to be excepted the s and r: the various transformations of these sounds have nothing to do with the visarga to which as

finals before a pause they have—doubtless at a comparatively recent period of phonetic history—come to be reduced. Words will everywhere in this work be written with final *s* or *r* instead of *ḥ*; and the rules of combination will be stated as for the two more original sounds, and not for the visarga.

Deaspiration.

153. An aspirate mute is changed to a non-aspirate before another non-nasal mute or before a sibilant; it stands unaltered only before a vowel or semivowel or nasal.

a. Such a case can only arise in internal combination, since the processes of external combination presuppose the reduction of the aspirate to a non-aspirate surd (152).

b. Practically, also, the rules as to changes of aspirates concern almost only the sonant aspirates, since the surd, being of later development and rarer occurrence, are hardly ever found in situations that call for their application.

154. Hence, if such a mute is to be doubled, it is doubled by prefixing its own corresponding non-aspirate.

a. But in the manuscripts, both Vedic and later, an aspirate mute is not seldom found written double—especially, if it be one of rare occurrence: for example (RV.), *akḥkhalī*, *jáḥjhatī*.

155. In a few roots, when a final sonant aspirate (घ *gh*, ध *dh*, भ *bh*; also ह *h*, as representing an original घ *gh*) thus loses its aspiration, the initial sonant consonant (ग *g* or द *d* or ब *b*) becomes aspirate.

a. That is to say, the original initial aspirate of such roots is restored, when its presence does not interfere with the euphonic law, of comparatively recent origin, which (in Sanskrit and Greek) forbids a root to both begin and end with an aspirate.

b. The roots which allow this peculiar change are:

in *gh*—*dagh*;

in *h* (for original *gh*)—*dah*, *dih*, *duh*, *druh*, *dr̥ḥ*, *guh*; and also *grah* (in the later desiderative *jighṛkṣa*);

in *dh*—*bandh*, *bādh*, *budh*;

in *bh*—*dabh* (but only in the later desiderative *dhipsa*, for which the older language has *dipsa*).

c. The same change appears when the law as to finals causes the loss of the aspiration at the end of the root: see above, 141.

d. But from dah, duh, druh, and guh are found in the Veda also forms without the restored initial aspirate: thus, dakṣat; adukṣat; ddukṣa etc.; jugukṣa; mitradrúk.

e. The same analogy is followed by dadh, the abbreviated substitute of the present-stems dadhā, from √dhā (667), in some of the forms of conjugation: thus, dhatthas from dadh + thas, adhatta from adadh + ta, adhaddhvam from adadh + dhvam, etc.

f. No case is met with of the throwing back of an aspiration upon combination with the 2d sing. impv. act. ending dhi: thus, dugdhi, daddhi (RV.), but dhugdhvam, dhaddhvam.

Surd and Sonant Assimilation.

156. Under this head, there is especially one very marked and important difference between the internal combinations of a root or stem with suffixes and endings, and the external combinations of stem with stem in composition and of word with word in sentence-making: namely—

157. a. In internal combination, the initial vowel or semivowel or nasal of an ending of inflection or derivation exercises no altering influence upon a final consonant of the root or stem to which it is added.

b. To this rule there are some exceptions: thus, some of the derivatives noted at 111 d; final d of a root before the participial suffix na (957 d); and the forms noted below, 161 b.

c. In external combination, on the other hand, an initial sonant of whatever class, even a vowel or semivowel or nasal, requires the conversion of a final surd to sonant.

d. It has been pointed out above (152) that in the rules of external combination only admitted finals, along with s and r, need to be taken account of, all others being regarded as reduced to these before combining with initials.

158. Final vowels, nasals, and ऌ l are nowhere liable to change in the processes of surd and sonant assimilation.

a. The r, however, has a corresponding surd in s, to which it is sometimes changed in external combination, under circumstances that favor a surd utterance (178).

159. With the exceptions above stated, the collision of surd and sonant sounds is avoided in combinations—and, regularly and usually, by assimilating the final to the following initial, or by regressive assimilation.

Thus, in internal combination: átsi, átti, atthás, attá (√ad + si etc.); çagdhí, çagdhvám (√çak + dhi etc.);—in external combination, ábhūd ayám, jyóg jīva, śáḍ aṣṭáyah, triṣṭúb ápi, dig-gaja, śaḍ-ahá, arcád-dhūma, bṛhád-bhānu, ab-já.

160. If, however, a final sonant aspirate of a root is followed by त् t or थ् th of an ending, the assimilation is in the other direction, or progressive: the combination is made sonant, and the aspiration of the final (lost according to 153, above) is transferred to the initial of the ending.

Thus, gh with t or th becomes gdh; dh with the same becomes ddh, as buddhá (√budh + ta), runddhás (√rundh + thas or tas); bh with the same becomes bdh, as labdhá (√labh + ta), labdhvā (√labh + tvā).

a. Moreover, h, as representing original gh, is treated in the same manner: thus, dugdhá, dógdhum from duh—and compare rūḍhá and līḍhá from ruh and lih, etc., 222 b.

b. In this combination, as the sonant aspiration is not lost but transferred, the restoration of the initial aspiration (155) does not take place.

c. In dadh from √dhā (155 e), the more normal method is followed; the dh is made surd, and the initial aspirated: thus, dhatthas, dhattas. And RV. has dhaktam instead of dagdham from √dagh; and TA. has inttām instead of inddhām from √idh.

161. Before a nasal in external combination, a final mute may be simply made sonant, or it may be still further assimilated, being changed to the nasal of its own class.

Thus, either tát námas or tán námas, vág me or vāñ me, báḍ mahán or bán mahán, triṣṭúb nūnám or triṣṭúm nūnám.

a. In practice, the conversion into a nasal is almost invariably made in the manuscripts, as, indeed, it is by the Prātiçākhyas required and not permitted merely. Even by the general grammarians it is required in the compound śaṇṇavati, and before mātrā, and the suffix maya (1225): thus, vāñmāya, mṛnmāya.

b. Even in internal combination, the same assimilation is made in some of the derivatives noted in 111 d, and in the na-participles (957 d). And a few sporadic instances are met with even in verb-inflection: thus,

stiñnoti, stiñnuyāt (MS.; for stighn-), mṛnnīta (LÇS.; for mṛdn-), jāñmayana (KS.; for jāgm-); these, however (like the double aspirates, 154a), are doubtless to be rejected as false readings.

162. Before l, a final t is not merely made sonant, but fully assimilated, becoming l: thus, tál labhate, úlluptam.

163. Before ह h (the case occurs only in external combination), a final mute is made sonant; and then the ह h may either remain unchanged or be converted into the sonant aspirate corresponding with the former: thus, either तद्दिह tád hí or तद्धि tád dhí.

a. In practice, the latter method is almost invariably followed; and the grammarians of the Prātiçākhyā period are nearly unanimous in requiring it. The phonetic difference between the two is very slight.

Examples are: vāg ghutáh, śaḍḍhotā (ṣaṭ + hotā), taddhita (tat + hita), anuṣṭúb bhí.

Combinations of final स s and र r.

164. The euphonic changes of स s and र r are best considered together, because of the practical relation of the two sounds, in composition and sentence-collocation, as corresponding surd and sonant: in a host of cases स s becomes र r in situations requiring or favoring the occurrence of a sonant; and, much less often, र r becomes स s where a surd is required.

a. In internal combination, the two are far less exchangeable with one another: and this class of cases may best be taken up first.

165. Final r radical or quasi-radical (that is, not belonging to an ending of derivation) remains unchanged before both surd and sonant sounds, and even before su in declension: thus, píparṣi, caturthá, catúrṣu, pūrśú.

166. Final radical s remains before a surd in general, and usually before s, as in çássi, çāssva, āsse, āçíṣṣu (the last is also written āçíḥṣu: 172): but it is lost in ási (√as + si: 636). Before a sonant (that is, bh) in declension, it is treated as in external combination: thus, āçírbhis. Before a sonant (that is, dh) in conjugation, it appears to be dropped, at least after long ā: thus, çādhi, çaçādhi, cakādhi (the only quotable cases); in edhí (√as + dhi: 636) the root syllable is irregularly altered; but in 2d perss. pl., made with dhvam, as ādhvam, çādhvam, arādhvam (881 a), vadhvam (√vas

Final S and T.

[-169

clothe), it is, on account of the equivalence and interchangeability of dhv and ddvh (232), impossible to say whether the s is omitted or converted into d.

a. Final radical s is very rare; RV. (twice, both 2d pers. sing.) treats ághas from √ghas in the same manner as any ordinary word ending in as.

b. For certain cases of irregular loss of the s of a root or tense-stem, see 233 b–e.

167. In a few very rare cases, final radical s before s is changed to t (perhaps by dissimilation): they are, from √vas *dwell* (also sporadically from vas *shine*, ÇB., and vas *clothe*, Har.), the future vatsyāmi and aorist ávātsam; from √ghas, the desiderative stem jīghatsa.

a. For t as apparent ending of the 3d sing. in s-verbs, see 555 a.

168. According to the grammarians, the final s of certain other roots, used as noun-stems, becomes t at the end of the word, and before bh and su: thus, dhvat, dhvadbhis, sradbhyas, sratsu. But genuine examples of such change are not quotable.

a. Sporadic cases of a like convention are found in the Veda: namely, mādbhís and mādbhyás from mās: uśádbhis from uśás; svátavadbhyas from svátavas; svávadbhis etc. (not quotable) from svávas. But the actuality of the conversion here is open to grave doubt; it rather seems the substitution of a t-stem for an s-stem. The same is true of the change of vāñs to vat in the declension of perfect participles (458). The stem anaḍvah (404), from anas-vah, is anomalous and isolated.

b. In the compound ducchúnā (dus-ṇunā) and páruccheṇa (parus-ṇeṇa), the final s of the first member is treated as if a t (203).

169. As the final consonant of derivative stems and of inflected forms, both of declension and of conjugation, s is extremely frequent; and its changes form a subject of first-rate importance in Sanskrit euphony. The r, on the other hand, is quite rare.

a. The r is found as original final in certain case-forms of stems in ṛ or ar (369 ff.); in root-stems in ir and ur from roots in ṛ (383 b); in a small number of other stems, as svār, áhar and údhar (beside áhan and údhan: 430), dvār or dur, and the Vedic vādhar, uṣarvasar-, vanar-, ṇutar-, sapaṇ-, sapaṇ-, athar- (cf. 176 c); in a few particles, as antár, prātár, púnar; and in the numeral catúr (482 g).

b. The euphonic treatment of s and r yielding precisely the same result after all vowels except a and ā, there are certain forms with regard to which it is uncertain whether they end in s or r, and opinions differ respecting them. Such are ur (or us) of the gen.-abl. sing. of ṛ-stems (371 c), and us (or ur) of the 3d plur. of verbs (550 c).

170. a. The स् s, as already noticed (145), becomes visarga before a pause.

b. It is retained unchanged only when followed by त् t or थ् th, the surd mutes of its own class.

c. Before the palatal and lingual surd mutes—च् c and छ् ch, ढ् ढ and ढ् ढ—it is assimilated, becoming the sibilant of either class respectively, namely ण् ण or ष् ष.

d. Before the guttural and labial surd mutes—क् k and ख् kh, प् p and फ् ph—it is also theoretically assimilated, becoming respectively the jihvāmūliya and upadhmāniya spirants (69); but in practice these breathings are unknown and the conversion is to visarga.

Examples are: to b. tatas te, cakṣus te; to c. tataç ca, tasyāç chāyā; pādaṣ ṭalati; to d. nalaḥ kāmam, puruṣaḥ khanati; yaçaḥ prāpa, vṛkṣaḥ phalavān.

171. The first three of these rules are almost universal; to the last one there are numerous exceptions, the sibilant being retained (or, by 180, converted into ष), especially in compounds; but also, in the Veda, even in sentence combination.

a. In the Veda, the retention of the sibilant in compounds is the general rule, the exceptions to which are detailed in the Vedic grammars.

b. In the later language, the retention is mainly determined by the intimacy or the antiquity and frequency of the combination. Thus, the final sibilant of a preposition or a word fitting the office of a preposition before a verbal root is wont to be preserved; and that of a stem before a derivative of √kr̥, before pati, before kalpa and kāma, and so on. Examples are namaskāra, vācaspati, āyuskāma, payaskalpa.

c. The Vedic retention of the sibilant in sentence-collocation is detailed in full in the Prātiçākhyas. The chief classes of cases are: 1. the final of a preposition or its like before a verbal form; 2. of a genitive before a governing noun: as divás putráḥ, iḍás padé; 3. of an ablative before pári: as himávatas pári; 4. of other less classifiable cases: as dyāús pitá, tris̥ pūtvá, yás pátiḥ, paridhís pátāti, etc.

172. Before an initial sibilant—ण् ण, ष् ष, स् s—स् s is either assimilated, becoming the same sibilant, or it is changed into visarga.

a. The native grammarians are in some measure at variance (see APr. ii. 40, note) as to which of these changes should be made, and in

part they allow either at pleasure. The usage of the manuscripts is also discordant; the conversion to visarga is the prevalent practice, though the sibilant is also not infrequently found written, especially in South-Indian manuscripts. European editors generally write visarga; but the later dictionaries and glossaries generally make the alphabetic place of a word the same as if the sibilant were read instead.

Examples are: manuḥ svayam or manus svayam; indraḥ çūraḥ or indraç çūraḥ; táḥ ṣaṭ or tāṣ ṣaṭ.

173. There are one or two exceptions to these rules:

a. If the initial sibilant has a surd mute after it, the final s may be dropped altogether—and by some authorities is required to be so dropped. Thus, vāyava stha or vāyavaḥ stha; catustanām or catuḥstanām. With regard to this point the usage of the different manuscripts and editions is greatly at variance.

b. Before ts, the s is allowed to become visarga, instead of being retained.

174. Before a sonant, either vowel or consonant (except र r: see 179), स s is changed to the sonant र r—unless, indeed, it be preceded by अ a or आ ā.

Examples are: devapatir iva, çrīr iva; manur gacchati, tanūr apsu; svasṛr ajanayat; tayor adrṣṭakāmaḥ; sarvāir guṇāiḥ; agner manve.

a. For a few cases like dūḍāça, dūṇāça, see below, 199d.

b. The exclamation bhos (456) loses its s before vowels and sonant consonants: thus, bho nāiṣadha (and the s is sometimes found omitted also before surds).

c. The endings अस as and आस ās (both of which are extremely common) follow rules of their own, namely:

175. a. Final अस as, before any sonant consonant and before short अ a, is changed to ओ o—and the अ a after it is lost.

b. The resulting accentuation, and the fact that the loss of a is only occasional in the older language of the Veda, have been pointed out above, 135a, c.

Examples are: nalo nāma, brahmaṇyo vedavit; manobhava; hantavyo 'smi; anyonya (anyas + anya), yaçortham (yaças + artham).

c. Final अस as before any other vowel than अ a loses its स s, becoming simple अ a; and the hiatus thus occasioned remains.

d. That is to say, the o from as is treated as an original e is treated in same situation: see 132–3.

Examples are: bṛhadaçva uvāca, āditya iva, námaükṭi, vásyaīṣṭi.

176. Exceptions to the rules as to final as are:

a. The nominative masculine pronouns sás and eṣás and (Vedic) syás (495 a, 499 a, b) lose their s before any consonant: thus, sa dadarça *he saw*, eṣa puruṣaḥ *this man*; but so 'bravīt *he said*, puruṣaḥ eṣaḥ.

b. Instances are met with, both in the earlier and in the later language, of effacement of the hiatus after alteration of as, by combination of the remaining final a with the following initial vowel: thus, tato 'vāca (tatas + uvāca), payoṣṇī (payas + uṣṇī), adhāsana (adhas + āsana): compare 133 c, 177 b. In the Veda, such a combination is sometimes shown by the metre to be required, though the written text has the hiatus. But sa in RV. is in the great majority of cases combined with the following vowel: e.g. sé 'd for sá id, sá 'smāi for sá asmāi, sāu 'ṣadhīḥ for sá óṣadhīḥ; and similar examples are found also in the other Vedic texts.

c. Other sporadic irregularities in the treatment of final as occur. Thus, it is changed to ar instead of o once in RV. in avás, once in SV. in ávas (RV. ávo), once in MS. in dambhiṣas; in bhuvas (second of the trio of sacred utterances bhūs, bhuvas, svar), except in its earliest occurrences; in a series of words in a Brāhmaṇa passage (TS. K.), viz. jinvár, ugrár, bhīmár, tveṣár, çrutár, bhūtár, and (K. only) pūtár; in janar and mahar; and some of the ar-stems noted at 169 a are perhaps of kindred character. On the other hand, as is several times changed to o in RV. before a surd consonant; and sás twice, and yás once, retains its final sibilant in a like position.

d. In MS., the final a left before hiatus by alteration of either as (o) or e (133) is made long if itself unaccented and if the following initial vowel is accented: thus, sūrā éti (from sūras + éti), nirupyátā índrāya (from -yáte + índ-), and also kāryā éka- (from kāryàs, because virtually kārías); but ādityá índraḥ (from ādityás + índraḥ), etá ítare (from eté + ítare).

177. Final आस् ās before any sonant, whether vowel or consonant, loses its स् s, becoming simple आ ā; and a hiatus thus occasioned remains.

a. The maintenance of the hiatus in these cases, as in that of o and e and āi (above, 133–4), seems to indicate a recent loss of the intermediate sound. Opinions are divided as to what this should have been. Some of the native grammarians assimilate the case of ās to that of āi,

assuming the conversion of āy in both alike—but probably only as a matter of formal convenience in rule-making.

b. Here, too (as in the similar cases of e and āi and o: 133 c, 176b), there are examples to be found, both earlier and later, of effacement of the hiatus.

178. Final र r, in general, shows the same form which स s would show under the same conditions.

a. Thus, it becomes visarga when final, and a sibilant or visarga before an initial surd mute or sibilant (170): thus, rudatī punaḥ, dvās tat, svàç ca, catúçcatvāriṇçat; and (111c, d) prāstána, antastya, catuṣṭaya, dhūstva; prātaḥ karoti, antaḥpāta.

b. But original final r preceded by a or ā maintains itself unchanged before a sonant: thus, punar eti, prātarjit, ákar jyótiḥ, áhār dāmnā, vārdhi.

c. The r is preserved unchanged even before a surd in a number of Vedic compounds: thus, aharpāti; svārcanas, svārcakṣas, svārpati, svarṣā, svārṣāti; dhūrṣád, dhūrṣah; púrpati, vārkāryá, āçr̥pada, punartta; and in some of these the r is optionally retained in the later language. The RV. also has āvar támaḥ once in sentence-combination.

d. On the other hand, final ar of the verb-form āvar is changed to o before a sonant in several cases in RV. And r is lost, like s, in one or two cases in the same text: thus, akṣā índuḥ, áha evá.

179. A double r is nowhere admitted: if such would occur, either by retention of an original r or by conversion of s to r, one r is omitted, and the preceding vowel, if short, is made long by compensation.

Thus, punā ramate, nṛpatī rājati, mātú rihán, jyotīratha, dūrohaṇá.

a. In some Vedic texts, however, there are instances of ar changed to o before initial r: thus, svò rohāva.

Conversion of स s to श ष.

180. The dental sibilant स s is changed to the lingual श ष, if immediately preceded by any vowel save अ a and आ ā, or by क k or र r—unless the स s be final, or followed by र r.

a. The assimilating influence of the preceding lingual vowels and semivowel is obvious enough; that of k and the other vowels appears to be due to a somewhat retracted position of the tongue in the mouth during

their utterance, causing its tip to reach the roof of the mouth more easily at a point further back than the dental one.

b. The general Hindu grammar prescribes the same change after a *l* also; but the *Prātiçākhyas* give no such rule, and phonetic considerations, the *l* being a dental sound, are absolutely against it. Actual cases of the combination do not occur in the older language, nor have any been pointed out in the later.

c. The vowels that cause the alteration of *s* to *ṣ* may be called for brevity's sake "alterant" vowels.

181. Hence, in the interior of a Sanskrit word, the dental *s* is not usually found after any vowel save *a* and *ā*, but, instead of it the lingual *ṣ*. But—

a. A following *r* prevents the conversion: thus, *usra*, *tiaras*, *tamisra*. And it is but seldom made in the forms and derivatives of a root containing an *r*-element (whether *r* or *ṛ*), whatever the position of that element: thus, *sisarti*, *sisṛtam*, *sarīsrpá*, *tistire*, *parisrút*. To this rule there are a few exceptions, as *viṣṭír*, *viṣṭārā*, *nīṣṭṛta*, *viṣpardhas*, *gáviṣṭhira*, etc. In *ajuṣran* the final *ṣ* of a root is preserved even immediately before *r*.

b. This dissimilating influence of a following *r*, as compared with the invariable assimilating influence of a preceding *r*, is peculiar and problematic.

c. The recurrence of *ṣ* in successive syllables is sometimes avoided by leaving the former *s* unchanged: thus, *sisakṣi*, but *siṣakti*; *yāsisīṣṭās*, but *yāsiṣīmahi*. Similarly, in certain desiderative formations: see below, 184e.

d. Other cases are sporadic: RV. has the forms *sisice* and *sisicus* (but *siṣicatus*), and the stems *ṛb́isa*, *kīstá*, *b́isa*, *busá*, *b́isaya*; a single root *pis*, with its derivative *pesuka*, is found once in ÇB.; MS. has *mṛsmṛṣṣā*; *músala* begins to be found in AV.; and such cases grow more numerous; for *puṛns* and the roots *niṛns* and *hiṛns*, see below, 183a.

182. On the other hand (as was pointed out above, 62), the occurrence of *ṣ* in Sanskrit words is nearly limited to cases falling under this rule: others are rather sporadic anomalies—except where *ṣ* is the product of *ç* or *kṣ* before a dental, as in *draṣṭum*, *caṣṭe*, *tvaṣṭar*: see 218, 221. Thus, we find—

a. Four roots, *kaṣ*, *laṣ*, *bhaṣ*, *bhāṣ*, of which the last is common and is found as early as the *Brāhmaṇas*.

b. Further, in RV., *áṣa*, *kaváṣa*, *caṣála*, *cáṣa*, *jálāṣa*, *pāṣyà*, *baṣkáyā*, *váṣaṭ* (for *vakṣat*?), *káṣṭhā*; and, by anomalous alteration of original *s*, *-ṣāh* (*turāṣāh* etc.), *áṣāḍha*, *upaṣṭút*, and probably *apāṣṭhá* and *aṣṭhívánt*. Such cases grow more common later.

c. The numeral *ṣaṣ*, as already noted (149 b), is more probably *ṣakṣ*.

183. The nasalization of the alterant vowel—or, in other words, its being followed by anusvāra—does not prevent its altering effect upon the sibilant: thus, havīṇṣi, parūṇṣi. And the alteration takes place in the initial s of an ending after the final s of a stem, whether the latter be regarded as also changed to ṣ or as converted into visarga: thus, haviṣṣu or haviḥṣu, paruṣṣu or paruḥṣu.

a. But the s of puṁs (394) remains unchanged, apparently on account of the retained sense of its value as pums; also that of √hiṁs, because of its value as hins (hinasti etc.); √niṁs (RV. only) is more questionable.

184. The principle cases of alteration of s in internal combination are these:

a. In endings, inflectional or derivative, beginning with s—thus, su; si, se, sva; s of sibilant-aorist, future, and desiderative; suffixes sna, snu, sya, etc.—after a final alterant vowel or consonant of root or stem, or a union-vowel: thus, juhoṣi, çeşe, anāiṣam, bhaviṣyāmi, çuçrūşe, deṣṇa, jiṣṇu, vikṣu, akārṣam.

b. The final s of a stem before an ending or suffix: thus: haviṣā, haviṣas, etc., from havis; çakṣuṣmant, çociṣka, mānuṣa, manuṣya, jyotiṣṭva.

c. Roots having a final sibilant (except ç) after an alterant vowel are—with the exception of fictitious ones and pis, niṁs, hiṁs—regarded as ending in ṣ, not s; and concerning the treatment of this ṣ in combination, see below, 225–6.

d. The initial s of a root after a reduplication: thus, siṣyade, suṣvāpa, siṣāsati, coṣkūyate, saniṣvaṇat.

e. Excepted is in general an initial radical s in a desiderative stem, when the desiderative-sign becomes ṣ: thus, sisīrṣati from √sr, sisaṅkṣati from √sañj. And there are other scattering cases, as tresus (perf. from √tras), etc.

185. But the same change occurs also, on a considerable scale, in external combination, especially in composition. Thus:

a. Both in verbal forms and in derivatives, the final i or u of a preposition or other like prefix ordinarily lingualizes the initial s of the root to which it is prefixed; since such combinations are both of great frequency and of peculiar intimacy, analogous with those of root or stem and affix: thus, abhiṣāc, pratiṣṭhā, níṣikta, víṣita; anuṣvadhām, suṣéka; the cases are numberless.

b. The principle exceptions are in accordance with the principles already laid down: namely, when the root contains an r-element, and when a recurrence of the sibilant would take place. But there are also others, of a more irregular character; and the complete account of the treatment of initial radical s after a prefix would be matter of great detail, and not worth giving here.

c. Not infrequently, the initial *s*, usually altered after a certain prefix, retains the altered sibilant even after an interposed *a* of augment or reduplication: thus, *aty aṣṭhāt*, *abhy aṣṭhām*, *pary aṣasvajāt*, *vy aṣahanta*, *ny aṣadāma*, *nir aṣṭhāpayan*, *abhy aṣiñcan*, *vy aṣṭabhñāt*; *vi taṣṭhe*, *vi taṣṭhire*.

d. Much more anomalous is the occasional alteration of initial radical *s* after an *a*-element of a prefix. Such cases are *ava ṣṭambh* (against *ni stambh* and *prati stambh*) and (according to the grammarians) *ava ṣvan*.

186. In other compounds, the final alterant vowel of the first member not infrequently (especially in the Veda) lingualizes the initial *s* of the second: for example, *yudhiṣṭhira*, *pitṛṣvasṛ*, *goṣṭhā*, *agniṣṭomā*, *anuṣṭúbh*, *trīṣaṁdhi*, *diviṣád*, *parameṣṭhín*, *abhiṣenā*, *pitṛṣád*, *puruṣṭutá*.

a. A very few cases occur of the same alteration after an *a*-element: thus, *saṣṭúbh*, *avaṣṭambha*, *savyaṣṭhā*, *apāṣṭhā*, *upaṣṭút*; also *√sah*, when its final, by 147, becomes *ṭ*: thus, *satrāṣṭáṭ* (but *satrāṣāham*).

187. The final *s* of the first member of a compound often becomes *ṣ* after an alterant vowel: thus, the *s* of a prepositional prefix, as *niṣṣídhvan*, *duṣṭára* (for *duṣṭára*), *āviṣkṛta*; and, regularly, a *s* retained instead of being converted to visarga before a labial or guttural mute (171 a), as *haviṣpá*, *jyotiṣkṛt*; *tapuṣpá*.

188. Once more, in the Veda, the same alteration, both of an initial and of a final *s*, is not infrequent even between the words composing a sentence. The cases are detailed in the *Prātiçākhyā* belonging to each text, and are of very various character. Thus:

a. The initial *s*, especially of particles; as *ū śu*, *hí śma*, *kám u śvít*;—also of pronouns: as *hí śáh*;—of verb-forms, especially from *√as*: as *hí ṣṭhā*, *diví ṣṭha*;—and in other scattering cases: as *u ṣṭuhi*, *nú ṣṭhirám*, *trí ṣadhásthā*, *ádhi ṣṇóḥ*, *nákiḥ śáh*, *yájuḥ ṣkannám*, *agníḥ ṣṭave*.

b. A final *s*, oftenest before pronouns (especially toneless ones): as *agníṣ ṭvā*, *níṣ ṭe*, *īyúṣ ṭe*, *çúciṣ ṭvám*, *sádhiṣ ṭáva*;—but also in other cases, and wherever a final *s* is preserved, instead of being turned into visarga, before a guttural or labial (171): as *tríṣ pūtvá*, *áyuṣ kṛṇotu*, *vástoṣ pátiḥ*, *dyāúṣ pitá*, *víbhiṣ pátāt*.

Conversion of ऋ n to ॠ ṇ.

189. The dental nasal ऋ *n*, when immediately followed by a vowel or by ऋ *n* or ॠ *m* or ॡ *y* or ॢ *v*, is turned into the lingual ॠ ṇ if preceded in the same word by the

lingual sibilant or semivowels or vowels—that is to say, by ण ण, र r, or ञ ञ or ञ ञ—: and this, not only if the altering letter stands immediately before the nasal, but at whatever distance from the latter it may be found: unless, indeed, there intervene (a consonant moving the front of the tongue: namely) a palatal (except ण y), a lingual, or a dental.

a. We may thus figure to ourselves the *rationale* of the process: in the marked proclivity of the language toward lingual utterance, especially of the nasal, the tip of the tongue, when once reverted into the loose lingual position by the utterance of a non-contact lingual element, tends to hang there and make its next nasal contact in that position; and does so, unless the proclivity is satisfied by the utterance of a lingual mute, or the organ is thrown out of adjustment by the utterance of an element which causes it to assume a different posture. This is not the case with the gutturals or labials, which do not move the front part of the tongue (and, as the influence of k on following s shows, the guttural position favors the succession of a lingual): and the y is too weakly palatal to interfere with the alteration (as its next relative, the i-vowel, itself lingualizes a s).

b. This is a rule of constant application; and (as was pointed out above, 46) the great majority of occurrences of ṇ in the language are a result of it.

190. The rule has force especially—

a. When suffixes, of influence or derivation, are added to roots or stems containing one of the altering sounds; thus, rudréṇa, rudráṇām, váriṇe, váriṇī, váriṇi, dātṛṇi, hárāṇi, dvésāṇi, krīṇāmi, ṣṛṇóti, kṣubhāṇá, ghrṇá, kárṇa, vṛkṇá, rugṇá, dráviṇa, iṣāṇi, purāṇá, rékṇas, cákṣaṇa, cīkīrṣamāṇa, kṛpamāṇa.

b. When the final n of a root or stem comes to be followed, in inflection or derivation, by such sounds as allow it to feel the effect of a preceding altering cause: thus, from √ran, ráṇanti, ráṇyati, rāraṇa, arāṇiṣus; from brahman, bráhmaṇā, bráhmāṇi, brāhmaṇá, brahmaṇyā, bráhmaṇvant.

c. The form piṇak (RV.: 2d and 3d sing. impf.), from √piṣ, is wholly anomalous.

191. This rule (like that for the change of s to ṣ) applies strictly and especially when the nasal and the cause of its alteration both lie within the limits of the same integral word; but (also like the other) it is extended, within certain limits, to compound words—and even, in the Veda, to contiguous words in the sentence.

192. Especially, a preposition or similar prefix to a root, if it contain r or end in euphonic r for s (174), very often lingualizes the n of a root or of its derived stems and forms. Thus:

a. The initial n of a root is usually and regularly so altered, in all forms and derivatives, after parā, pari, pra, nir (for nis), antar, dur (for dus): thus, pārā ṇaya, pári ṇīyate, prá ṇudasva; parāṇutti, pariṇāma, praṇavá, nirṇíj, durṇáça. Roots suffering this change are written with initial ṇ in the native root-lists. The only exceptions of importance are nṛt, nabh, nand, and naç when its ç becomes ş (as in pránaşta).

b. The final n of a root is lingualized in some of the forms of an and han: thus, prá 'ṇiti, prāṇá, prá haṇyate, prahāṇana.

c. The class-signs nu and nā are altered after the roots hi and mí: thus, pári hiṇomi, prá miṇanti (but the latter not in the Veda).

d. The 1st sing. impv. ending āni is sometimes altered: thus, prá bhavāṇi.

e. Derivatives by suffixes containing n sometimes have ṇ by influence of a preposition: thus, prayāṇa.

f. The n of the preposition ni is sometimes altered, like the initial of a root, after another preposition: thus, praṇipāta, praṇidhi.

193. In compound words, an altering cause in one member sometimes lingualizes a n of the next following member—either its initial or final n, or n in its inflectional or derivative ending. The exercise of the altering influence can be seen to depend in part upon the closeness or frequency of the compound, or its integration by being made the base of a derivative. Examples are: grāmaṇí, triṇāman, urūṇasá; vṛtrahāṇam etc. (but vṛtraghná etc.: 195 a), nṛmāṇas, drughaṇá; pravāhaṇa, nṛpāṇa, pūryāṇa, pitṛyāṇa; svargéṇa, durgāṇi, usráyāmṇe, tryaṅgāṇām.

194. Finally, in the Veda, a n (usually initial) is occasionally lingualized even by an altering sound in another word. The toneless pronouns nas and ena- are oftenest thus affected: thus, pári ṇas, prāi 'ṇān, índra eṇam; but also of the particle ná *like*: thus, vār ṇá; and a few other cases, as vār ṇāma, púnar ṇayāmasi, agnér áveṇa. More anomalous, and perhaps to be rejected as false readings, are such as tríṇ imān and akṣāṇ áva and suhārṇ ṇaḥ (MS.), and vyṛṣaṇ vā (Āpast.).

195. a. The immediate combination of a n with a preceding guttural or labial seems in some cases to hinder the conversion to ṇ: thus, vṛtraghná etc., kṣubhnāti, tṛpnoti (but in Veda tṛpṇu), kṣepnú, suṣumná.

b. The RV. has the exceptions úṣṭrānām and rāṣṭrānām.

Conversion of dental mutes to linguals and palatals.

196. When a dental mute comes in contact with a lingual or palatal mute or sibilant, the dental is usually assimilated, becoming lingual or palatal respectively.

The cases are the following:

197. A dental surd mute or nasal, or the dental sibilant, when immediately preceded by a *ṣ*, is everywhere converted into the corresponding lingual.

a. Under this rule, the combinations *ṣṭ*, *ṣṭh*, and *ṣṇ* are very common; *ṣṣ* is rarely so written, the visarga being put instead of the former sibilant (172): thus, *jyótiṣṣu* instead of *jyótiṣṣu*.

b. Much less often, *dh* is changed to *ḍh* after final *ṣ* of a root or tense-stem, with loss of the *ṣ* or its conversion to *ḍ*: see 226 c.

c. Those cases in which the final *ṣ* becomes *ṭ* before *su* (e.g. *dviṭṣú*: 226 b) do not, of course, fall under this rule.

198. In the other (comparatively infrequent) cases where a dental is preceded by a lingual in internal combination, the dental (except of *su* loc. pl.) becomes lingual. Thus:

a. A *n* following immediately a *ṇ* made such by the rule given at 189, above—or, as it may be expressed, a double as well as a single *n*—is subject to the lingualization: thus, the participles *arṇṇá*, *kṣuṇṇa*, *kṣviṇṇa*, *chrṇṇá*, *ṭṛṇṇá*; and, after prefixes (185 a), *niṣaṇṇa*, *pariviṇṇa*, *viṣaṇṇa*, *váṣyaṇṇa*. But TS. has *ádhiṣkanna*, and RV. *yájuḥ ṣkannám*.

b. Only a very few other instances occur: *ítte* and *áitta* from *√iṭ*; *ṣaḍḍhá* (also *ṣaḍdhá* and *ṣoḍhá*), and *ṣaṇṇám* (*ṣaṣ* + *nām*: anomalous gen. pl. of *ṣaṣ*: 483). A small number of words follow the same rule in external combination: see below, 199.

c. But *tāḍhi* (Vedic: *√taḍ* + *dhi*) shows loss of the final lingual after assimilation of the dental, and compensatory lengthening.

d. Some of the cases of abnormal occurrence of *ḍ* are explained in a similar way, as results of a lingualized and afterwards omitted sibilant before *d*: thus *nīḍá* from *nisda*, *√pīḍ* from *pisd*, *√mṛḍ* from *mṛsd*. For words exhibiting a like change in composition, see below, 199 c.

199. In external combination—

a. A final *t* is directed to be assimilated to an initial lingual mute: thus, *taṭ-ṭīkā*, *taḍ ḍayate*, *taṭ-ṭhālinī*, *taḍ ḍhāukate*: but the case never occurs in the older language, and very rarely in the later. For final *n* before a lingual, see 205 b.

b. An initial dental after a final lingual usually remains unchanged; and *su* of the loc. pl. follows the same rule: thus, *ṣāṭtriṇṇat*, *ānaḍ diváh*, *ekarāt tvám*; *ṣaṭṣú*, *rāṭṣú*.

c. Exceptions are: a few compounds with *ṣaṣ* *six* showing double *ṇ* (198 b): namely, *ṣaṇṇavati*, *ṣaṇṇābhi* (and one or two others not quotable): IB. has *ṣaṇ ṇiramimīta*.

d. In a few compounds, moreover, there appears a lingualized dental, with compensatory lengthening, after a lost lingual sibilant or its represen-

tative: namely, in certain Vedic compounds with dus: dūḍābha, dūḍāḥ, dūḍhī, dūḥāḥ, dūḥāḥ (compare the anomalous puroḍāḥ and -ḍāḥ: puras + √dāḥ); and, in the language of every period, certain compounds of ṣaṣ, with change of its vowel to an alterant quality (as in voḍhum and soḍhum: 224 b): ṣóḍaḥ, ṣoḍhā (also ṣaḍḍhā and ṣaḍdhā), ṣoḍant.

e. Between final ṭ and initial s, the insertion of a t is permitted—or, according to some authorities, required: thus, ṣáṭ saḥásrāḥ or ṣáṭt saḥásrāḥ.

200. The cases of assimilation of a dental to a contiguous palatal occur almost only in external combination, and before an initial palatal. There is but one case of internal combination, namely:

201. A ऋ n coming to follow a palatal mute in internal combination is itself made palatal.

Thus, yācñā (the only instance after c), yajñā, jajñé, ajñata, rájñā, rájñī.

202. a. A final ऋ t before an initial palatal mute is assimilated to it, becoming च c before च c or छ ch, and ऋ j before ऋ j (ञ jh does not occur).

Thus, uc carati, etac chattram, vidyuj jāyate; yātayājjana, vidyujjihva, bṛhacchandas, saccarita.

b. A final ऋ n is assimilated before ऋ j, becoming ऋ ñ.

c. All the grammarians, of every period, require this assimilation of n to j; but it is more often neglected, or only occasionally made, in the manuscripts.

d. For n before a surd palatal, see below, 208.

203. Before the palatal sibilant ऋ ṣ, both ऋ t and ऋ n are assimilated, becoming respectively च c and च ñ; and then the following ऋ ṣ may be, and in practice almost always is, converted to छ ch.

Thus, vedavic chūrah (-vit cū-), tac chrutvā, hṛcchaya (hṛt + ṣaya); bṛhañ cheṣah or ṣeṣah, svapañ chete or ṣete.

a. Some authorities regard the conversion of ṣ to ch after t or n as everywhere obligatory, others as only optional; some except, peremptorily or optionally, a ṣ followed by a mute. And some require the same conversion after every mute save m, reading also vípāṭ chutudrī, ānaṭ chūci, anuṣṭup chāradī, ṣuk chuci. The manuscripts generally write ch, instead of cch, as result of the combination of t and ṣ.

b. In the MS., t and ṣ are anomalously combined into ñ ṣ: e.g. táñ ṣatām, etāvañṣás.

Combinations of final न् n.

204. Final radical n is assimilated in internal combination to a following sibilant, becoming anusvāra.

Thus, váṅsi, váṅsya, váṅsat, maṅsyáte, jígḥāṅsati.

a. According to the grammarians, it is treated before bh and su in declension as in external combination. But the cases are, at best, excessively rare, and RV. has ráṅsu and váṅsu (the only Vedic examples).

b. Final n of a derivative suffix is regularly and usually dropped before a consonant in inflection and composition—in composition, even before a vowel; and a radical n occasionally follows the same rule: see 421 a, 439, 1203 c, 637.

c. For assimilation of n to a preceding palatal, see 201.

The remaining cases are those of external combination.

205. a. The assimilation of n in external combination to a following sonant palatal and the palatal sibilant ç have been already treated (202 b, 203).

b. The n is also declared to be assimilated (becoming ṇ) before a sonant lingual (ḍ, ḍh, ṇ), but the case rarely if ever occurs.

206. A n is also assimilated to a following initial l, becoming (like m: 213 d) a nasal l.

a. The manuscripts to a great extent disregard this rule, leaving n unchanged; but also they in part attempt to follow it—and that, either by writing the assimilated n (as the assimilated m, 213 f, and just as reasonably) with the anusvāra-sign, or else by doubling the l and putting a sign of nasality above; the latter, however, is inexact, and a better way would be to represent the two l's, writing the first with virāma and a nasal sign above. Thus (from trīn lokān):

manuscripts त्रीँलोकान् or त्रीँल्लोकान्; better त्रील्ँ लोकान्.

The second of these methods is the one oftenest followed in printed texts.

207. Before the lingual and dental sibilants, ś and s, final n remains unchanged; but a t may also be inserted between the nasal and the sibilant: thus, táṇ śát or tánt śát; mahān sán or mahánt sán.

a. According to most of the grammarians of the Prātiçākhyas (not RPr.), the insertion of the t in such cases is a necessary one. In the manuscripts it is very frequently made, but not uniformly. It is probably a purely phonetic phenomenon, a transition-sound to ease the double change of sonant to surd and nasal to non-nasal utterance—although the not infrequent cases in which final n stands for original nt (as bharan, abharan, agnimān) may have aided to establish it as a rule. Its analogy with the conversion of n ç into ñch (203) is palpable.

208. Before the surd palatal, lingual, and dental mutes, there is inserted after final *n* a sibilant of each of those classes respectively, before which the *n* becomes anusvāra: thus, devāṅḥ ca, bhavāṅḥ chidyate, kumārāṅḥ trīn, abharaṅḥ tataḥ, dadhaṅḥ (425 c) carum.

a. This rule, which in the classical language has established itself in the form here given, as a phonetic rule of unvarying application, really involves a historic survival. The large majority of cases of final *n* in the language (not far from three quarters) are for original *ns*; and the retention of the sibilant in such cases, when once its historic ground had been forgotten, was extended by analogy to all others.

b. Practically, the rule applies only to *n* before *c* and *t*, since cases involving the other initials occur either not at all, or only with extreme rarity (the Veda does not present an example of any of them). In the Veda, the insertion is not always made, and the different texts have with regard to its different usages, which are fully explained in the Prātiçākhyas; in general, it is less frequent in the older texts. When the *ç* does not appear between *n* and *c*, the *n* is of course assimilated, becoming *ñ* (203).

209. The same retention of original final *s* after a nasal, and consequent treatment of (apparent) final *ān*, *īn*, *ūn*, *ṛn* as if they were *āṅḥ*, *īṅḥ*, *ūṅḥ*, *ṛṅḥ* (long nasalized vowel with final *s*), shows itself also in other Vedic forms of combination, which, for the sake of unity, may be briefly stated here together:

a. Final *ān* becomes *āṅ* (nasalized *ā*) before a following vowel: that is to say, *āṅḥ*, with a nasal vowel, is treated like *ās*, with pure vowel (177): thus, devāṅ é 'há, úpabaddhāṅ ihá, mahāṅ asi. This is an extremely common case, especially in RV. Once or twice, the *s* appears as *ḥ* before *p*; thus, svátavāṅḥ pāyúḥ.

b. In like manner, *s* is treated after nasal *ī*, *ū*, *ṛ* as it would be after those vowels when pure, becoming *r* before a sonant sound (174), and (much more rarely) *ḥ* before a surd (170): thus, raçmínṛ iva, sūnúnṛ yuvanyúnṛ út, nṛṅṛ abhí; nṛṅḥ pátram (and nṛṅḥ *p*-, MS.).

c. RV. has once *-īṅ* before *y*. MS. usually has *aṅ* instead of *āṅ*.

210. The nasals *n*, *ṇ*, *ñ*, occurring as finals after a short vowel, are doubled before any initial vowel: thus, pratyāññ úd eṣi, udyáññ ādityáḥ, āsáññ-iṣu.

a. This is also to be regarded as a historical survival, the second nasal being an assimilation of an original consonant following the first. It is always written in the manuscripts, although the Vedic metre seems to show a duplication was sometimes omitted. The RV. has the compound vṛṣaṇaṇva.

211. The nasals *ñ* and *ṇ* before a sibilant are allowed to insert respectively *k* and *ṭ*—as *n* (207) inserts *t*: thus, pratyāñk sómaḥ.

Combinations of final म् m.

212. Final radical म् m, in internal combination, is assimilated to a following mute or spirant—in the later case, becoming anusvāra; in the former, becoming the nasal of the same class with the mute.

a. Before m or v (as when final: 143 a), it is changed to n: thus, from √gam come áganma, aganmahi, ganvahi, jaganváṅs (which appear to be the only quotable cases). According to the grammarians, the same change is made in the inflection of root-stems before bh and su: thus, praçānbhis, praçānsu (from praçām: pra + √çam). No derived noun-stem ends in m.

b. The ÇB. and KÇS. have kāmavant and çāmavant, and CbU. has kamvara.

213. Final म् m in external combination is a servile sound, being assimilated to any following consonant. Thus:

a. It remains unchanged only before a vowel or labial mute.

b. But also, by an anomalous exception, before r of the root rāj in samrāj and its derivatives samrājñī and sāmrajya.

c. Before a mute of any other class than labial, it becomes a nasal of that class.

d. Before the semivowels y, l, v it becomes, according to the Hindu grammarians, a nasal semivowel, the nasal counterpart of each respectively (see 71).

e. Before r, a sibilant, or h, it becomes anusvāra (see 71).

f. The manuscripts and the editions in general make no attempt to distinguish the nasal tones produced by the assimilation of m before a following semivowel from that before a spirant.

g. But if h be immediately followed by another consonant (which can only be a nasal or semivowel), the m is allowed to be assimilated to that following consonant. This is because the h has no position of the mouth-organs peculiar to itself, but is uttered in the position of the next sound. The Prātiçākhyas do not take any notice of the case.

h. Cases are met with in the Veda where a final m appears to be dropped before a vowel, the final and initial vowels being then combined into one. The pada-text then generally gives a wrong interpretation. Thus, samvánano 'bhayaṁkarám (RV. viii. 1. 2; pada-text: -nanā ubh-; SV. -nanam).

i. It has been pointed out above (73) that the assimilated m is generally represented in texts by the anusvāra-sign, and that in this work it is transliterated by ṁ (instead of a nasal mute or ñ).

The palatal mutes and sibilant, and ह h.

214. These sounds show in some situations a reversion (43) to the original gutturals from which they are derived. The treatment of j and h, also, is different, according as they represent the one or the other of two different degrees of alteration from their originals.

215. The palatals and h are the least stable of alphabetic sounds, undergoing, in virtue of their derivative character, alteration in many cases where other similar sounds are retained.

216. Thus, in derivation, even before vowels, semivowels; and nasals, reversion to guttural form is by no means rare. The cases are the following:

a. Before a of suffix a, final c becomes k in añká, çvañka, arká, pāká, vāká, çúka, parka, marká, v́ka, prátika etc., reka, séka, moka, roká, çóka, toká, mroká, vraská;—final j becomes g in tyāgá, bhága, bhāgá, yāga, aṅga, bhaṅgá, saṅga, svaṅga, ṛṅga, tuṅga, yuṅga, varga, mārga, mṛgá, varga, sarga, nega, vega, bhóga, yugá, yóga, loga, róga;—final h becomes gh in aghá, maghá, arghá, dīrghá (and drághīyas, drághīṣṭa), deggha, meghá, ogha, dógha, drógha, mógha; and in dúghāna and méghamāna. In neka (√nij) we have further an anomalous substitution of a surd for the final sonant of the root.

b. In another series of derivatives with a, the altered sound appears: examples are ajá, yāja, çucá, çoca, vrajá, vevijá, yuja, ūrjá, dóha.

c. Before the suffixes as and ana, the guttural only rarely appears: namely, in áñkas, ókas, rókas, çókas, bhárgas, and in rogana; also in ābhogáya.

d. Before an i-vowel, the altered sound appears (except in ābhogí, ógīyaṅs, tigítá, mokí, sphigí): thus, ājí, tují, rúci, çáci, vívici, rociṣṇú.

e. Before u, the guttural reappears, as a rule (the cases are few): thus, áñku, vañkú, rekú, bh́gu, márguka, raghú (and rághīyaṅs).

f. Before n, the examples of reversion are few, except of j (becoming g) before the participial ending na (957 c): thus, rékṇas, vagnú (with the final also made sonant); and participles bhagná, rugṇá, etc.; and apparently pṛgṇa from √pṛc.

g. Before m (of ma, man, mant, min), the guttural generally appears: thus, rukmá, tigmá, yugma, řgma (with sonant change); takmán, vákman, sákman, yugmán; rúkmant; řgmín and vāgmín (with sonant change):—but ájman, ojmán, bhujmán.

h. Before y, the altered sound is used: thus, pacya, yajya, yajyu, yujya, bhujyu. Such cases as bhogya, yogya, negya, okya are doubtless secondary derivatives from bhoga etc.

i. Before r, the cases are few, and the usage apparently divided: thus, takra, sakra, vakrá, çukrá, vigrá, ugrá, túgra, mṛgra, vāṅkri; but vājra and pajrá (?).

j. Before v (of the suffixes va, van, vin, etc., and participial vāṅs) the guttural is regularly preserved: thus, řkvá, pakvá, vákva; vákvan, řkvan, rikvan, çukvan, mṛgvan, túgvan, yugvan; řkvant, pṛkvant; vāgvín, vagvaná, vagvanú (with further sonant change); vivakvāṅs, ririkvāṅs, vivikvāṅs, rurukvāṅs, çuçukvāṅs; çuçukvaná, çuçukváni: also before the union-vowel i in okivāṅs (RV., once). An exception is yájvan.

k. The reversion of h in derivation is comparatively rare. The final j which is analogous with ç (219) shows much less proclivity to reversion than that which corresponds with c.

l. A like reversion shows itself also to some extent in conjugational stem-formation and inflection. Thus, the initial radical becomes guttural after the reduplication in the present or perfect or desiderative or intensive stems, or in derivatives, of the roots ci, cit, ji, hi, han, and in jáguri (√jr); and han becomes ghn on the elision of a (402, 637). The RV. has vivakmi from √vac and vāvakre from √vañc; and SV. has sasṛgmahe (RV. -sṛj-). And before ran etc. of 3d pl. mid. we have g for radical j in asṛgran, asṛgram, asasṛgram (all in RV.).

217. Final च् c of a root or stem, if followed in internal combination by any other sound than a vowel or semivowel or nasal, reverts (43) to its original guttural value, and shows everywhere the same form which a क् k would show in the same situation.

Thus, vákti, uváktha, vákṣi, vakṣyāmi, vaghdi; vhāgbhís, vākṣú; uktá, ukthá, vaktár.

a. And, as final c becomes k (above 142), the same rule applies also to c in external combination: thus, vák ca, vág ápi, vāñ me.

Examples of c remaining unchanged in inflection are: ucyáte, riricré, vācí, mumucmáhe.

217. Final च् ç reverts to its original क् k, in internal combination, only before the स s of a verbal stem or ending (whence, by 180, क् ks); before त् t and थ् th, it everywhere becomes ष ष (whence, by 197, ष षt and ष षth); before ध् dh, भ् bh, and सु su of the loc. pl., as when final (145), it regularly becomes the lingual mute (ट् t or ढ् d).

Thus, ávikṣata, vekṣyāmi; váṣti, viṣtá, dídeṣḍu; didiḍḍhi, viḍbhís.

a. But a few roots exhibit the reversions of final ç to k before bh and su , and also when final (145): they are diç , dṛç , sprç , and optionally naç ; and viç has in V. always vikṣú , loc. pl., but vít , viḍbhís , etc. Examples are díksaṁçita , dṛgbhís , hṛdispák , nák (or naṭ).

Examples of ç remaining unchanged before vowels etc. are : viçí , viviçyās , aviçran , açnomi , vacmi , uçmási .

b. A ç remains irregularly unchanged before p in the compound viçpáti .

219. Final çj is in one set of words treated like ç c , and in another set like ç ç .

Thus, from yuj : áyukthās , áyukta , yuñkté , yukti , yóktra , yokṣyāmi , yukṣú ; yuṅgdhí , áyugdhvam , yugbhís .

Again, from mrj etc.: ámṛkṣat , sraṁkṣyāmi ; mārṣṭhi , mrṣṭá , sṛṣṭi , rāṣṭrá ; mrḍḍhí , mrḍḍhavám , rāḍbhís , rāṭsú , rāṭ .

a. To the former or yuj -class belong (as shown by their quotable forms) about twenty roots and radical stems: namely, bhaj , saj , tyaj (not V.), raj 'color, *svaj, majj, nij, tij, vij, 1 and 2 bhuj, yuj, ruj, vṛj, añj, bhañj, çinñj; úrj, sráj, bhiṣáj, ásṛj*;—also, stems formed with the suffixes aj and ij (383. IV), as tṛṣṇáj , vaṇíj ; and ṛtvíj , though containing the root yaj .

b. To the latter or mrj -class belong only about one third as many: namely, yaj , bhrajj , vraj , rāj , bhrāj , mrj , srj .

c. A considerable number of j -roots are not placed in circumstances to exhibit the distinction; but such roots are in part assignable to one or the class on the evidence of the related languages. The distinction appears, namely, only when the j occurs as final, or is followed, either in inflection or derivation, by a dental mute (t , th , dh), or, in noun-inflection, by bh or su . In derivation (above, 216) we find a g sometimes from the mrj -class: thus mārga , sárga , etc.; and (2161) before Vedic mid. endings, sasṛgmahe , asṛgran , etc. (beside sasṛjrire)—while from the yuj -class occur only yuyujre , ayujran , bubhujrire , with j . And MS. has viçvasák from (vṣrj).

220. Final ch falls under the rules of combination almost only in the root prach , in which it is treated as if it were ç (praç being, indeed, its more original form): thus, prakṣyāmi , pṛṣṭá , and also the derivative praçná . As final and in noun-inflection (before bh and su), it is changed to the lingual mute: thus, prāḍvivāka .

a. Mūrtá is called the participle of mūrch , and a gerund mūrtvá is given to the same root. They (with mūrti) must doubtless come from a simpler form of the root.

b. Of jh there is no occurrence: the grammarians require it to be treated like c .

221. The compound *kṣ* is not infrequent as final of a root (generally of demonstrably secondary origin), or of a tense-stem (s-aorist: see below, 878 ff.); and, in the not very frequent cases of its internal combination, it is treated as if a single sound, following the rules for *ç*: thus *çákṣe* (*cakṣ* + *se*), *cákṣva*; *cáṣṭe*, *ácaṣṭa*, *ásrāṣṭam*, *ásrṣṭa*, *tváṣṭar*. As to its treatment when final, see 146.

a. Thus, we are taught by the grammarians to make such forms as *gorát*, *gorádbhis*, *gorátṣu* (from *gorákṣ*); and we actually have *śát*, *ṣaḍbhís*, *ṣaṭsú* from *ṣakṣ* or *ṣaṣ* (146 b). For *jagdha* etc. from *√jakṣ*, see 233 f.

b. In the single anomalous root *vraçc*, the compound *çc* is said to follow the rules for simple *ç*. From it are quotable the future *vraçṣyáti*, the gerunds *vṛṣṭvā* (AV.) and *vṛktví* (RV.), and the participle (957 c) *vṛkṇá*. Its *c* reverts to *k* in the derivative *vraska*.

222. The roots in final *ḥ*, like those in *ḡ* *j*, fall into two classes, exhibiting a similar diversity of treatment, appearing in the same kinds of combination.

a. In the one class, as *duh*, we have a reversion of *h* (as of *c*) to a guttural form, and its treatment as if it were still its original *gh*: thus, *ádhuḡṣam*, *dhokṣyámi*; *dugdhám*, *dugdhá*; *ádhuḡ*, *dhúḡ*, *dhugbhís*, *dhukṣú*.

b. In the other cases, as *ruh* and *sah*, we have a guttural reversion (as of *ç*) only before *s* in verb-formations and derivation: thus, *áruḡṣat*, *rokṣyámi*, *sākṣiyá*, *sakṣáni*. As final, in external combination, and in noun-inflection before *bh* and *su*, the *h* (like *ç*) becomes a lingual mute: thus, *turāṣát*, *ṛtanāṣád* *ayodhyáh*, *turāṣádbhis*, *turāṣátṣu*. But before a dental mute (*t*, *th*, *dh*) in verb-inflection and in derivation, its euphonic effect is peculiarly complicated: in turns the dental into a lingual (as would *ç*); but it also makes it sonant and aspirate (as would *çh*: see 160); and further, it disappears itself, and the preceding vowel, if short, is lengthened: thus, from *ruh* with *ta* comes *rūḡhā*, from *leh* with *ti* comes *lēḡhi*, from *guh* with *tar* comes *gūḡhár*, from *meh* with *tum* comes *mēḡhum*, from *lih* with *tas* or *thas* comes *līḡhás*, from *lih* with *dhvam* comes *līḡhvám*, etc.

c. This is as if we had to assume as transition sound a sonant aspirate lingual sibilant *ṣh*, with the euphonic effects of a lingual and of a sonant aspirate (160), itself disappearing under the law of the existing language which admits no sonant sibilant.

223. The roots of the two classes, as shown in their forms found in use, are:

a. of the first or *duh*-class: *dah*, *dih*, *duh*, *druh*, *snuh*, *snih* (and the final of *uṣṇíh* is similarly treated);

b. of the second or ruh-class: vah, sah, mih, rih or lih, guh, ruh, ḍrñh, ṭrñh, bṛh, bañh, sprh (?).

c. But muh forms also (not in RV.) the participle mūḍha and agent-noun mūḍhár, as well as mugdhá and mugdhár; and druḥ and snih are allowed by the grammarians to do likewise: such forms as drūḍha and snīḍha, however, have not been met with in use.

d. From roots of the ruh-class we find also in the Veda the forms gartārúk, nom. sing., and prāṇadhṛk and dadhṛk; and hence puruspṛk (the only occurrence) does not certainly prove √sprh to be of the duh-class.

e. A number of other h-roots are not proved by their occurring forms to belong to either class; they, too, are with more or less confidence assigned to the one or the other by comparison with the related languages.

f. In derivation, before certain suffixes (216), we have gh instead of h from verbs of either class.

g. The root nah comes from original dh instead of gh, and its reversion is accordingly to a dental mute: thus, natsyāmi, naddhá, upānādbhis, upānadyuga, anupānatka. So also the root grah comes from (early Vedic) grabh, and shows labials in many forms and derivatives (though it is assimilated to other h-roots in the desiderative stem jighṛkṣa). In like manner, h is used for dh in some of the forms and derivatives of √dvā *put*; and further analogous facts are the stem kakuhá beside kakubhá, the double imperative ending dhi and hi, and the dative máhyam beside túbhyam (491).

224. Irregularities of combination are:

a. The vowel ṛ is not lengthened after the loss of the h-element: thus, ḍṛḍhá, ṭṛḍhá, bṛḍhá (the only cases; and in the Veda their first syllable has metrical value as heavy or long).

b. The roots vah and sah change their vowel to o instead of lengthening it: thus, voḍhám, voḍhám, voḍhár, sóḍhum. But from sah in the older language forms with ā are more frequent: thus, sāḍhá, áṣāḍha (also later), sáḍhar. The root ṭrñh changes the vowel of its class-sign na into e instead of lengthening it: thus, ṭrñeḍhi, ṭrñeḍhu, atṛnet (the grammarians teach also ṭrñehmi and ṭrñekṣi: but no such forms are quotable, and, if ever actually in use, they must have been made by false analogy with others).

c. These anomalous vowel-changes seem to stand in connection with the fact that the cases showing them are the only ones where other than an alterant vowel (180) comes before the lingualized sibilant representative of the h. Compare śóḍaḍa etc.

d. Apparently by dissimilation, the final of vah in anomalous compound anaḍvah is changed to d instead of ḍ: see 404.

The lingual sibilant श्र ष.

225. Since the lingual sibilant, in its usual and normal occurrences, is (182) the product of lingualization of s after certain alterant sounds, we might expect final radical ष, when (in rare cases) it comes to stand where a श्र cannot maintain itself, to revert to its original, and be treated as a s would be treated under the same circumstances. That, however, is true only in a very few instances.

a. Namely, in the prefix dus (evidently identical with √duṣ); in saśús (adverbially used case-form from √juṣ); in (RV.) vivés and ávives, from √viṣ; in āíyes (RV.), from √īṣ; and in āçís, from çīṣ as secondary form of √çās. All these, except the first two, are more or less open in question.

226. In general, final lingual श्र ष, in internal combination, is treated in the same manner as palatal श्र ष. Thus:

a. Before t and th it remains unchanged, and the latter are assimilated: e.g. dviṣtas, dviṣthas, dvéṣtum.

This is a common and perfectly natural combination.

b. Before dh, bh, and su, as also in external combination (145), it becomes a lingual mute: and dh is made lingual after it: e.g. piṇḍḍhi, viḍḍhi, viviḍḍhi, dviḍḍhvam, dviḍbhís, dviṣú; bhinnaviṭka.

c. So also the dh of dhvam as ending of 2d pl. mid. becomes ḍh after final ष of a tense-stem, whether the ष be regarded as lost or as converted to ḍ before it (the manuscripts write simply ḍhv, not ḍḍhv; but this is ambiguous: see 232). Thus, after ष of s-aorist stems (881 a), astoḍhvam, avṛḍhvam, cyoḍhvam (the only quotable cases), from astoṣ + dhvam etc.; but arādhvam from arās + dhvam. Further, after the ष of iṣ-aorist stems (901 a), āindhiḍhvam, artiḍhvam, ajaniḍhvam, vepiḍhvam (the only quotable cases), from ajaniṣ + dhvam etc. Yet again, in the precative (924), as bhaviṣiḍhvam, if, as is probable (unfortunately, no example of this person is quotable from any part of the literature), the precative-sign s (ṣ) is to be regarded as present in the form. According, however, to the Hindu grammarians, the use of ḍh or of dh in the iṣ-aorist and precative depends on whether the i of iṣ or of iṣī is or is not “preceded by a semivowel or h”—which both in itself appears senseless and is opposed to the evidence of all the quotable forms. Moreover, the same authorities prescribed the change of dh to ḍh under the same restriction as to circumstances, in the perf. mid. ending dhve also: in this case, too, without any conceivable reason; and no example of ḍhve in the 2d pl. perf. has been pointed out in the literature.

d. The conversion of ष to ṭ (or ḍ) as final and before bh and su is parallel with the like conversion of ष, and of j and h in the mṛj and

ruh classes of roots, and perhaps with the occasional change of s to t (167–8). It is a very infrequent case, occurring (save as it may be assumed in the case of *şaş*) only once in the RV. and once in the AV. (-*dviṭ* and -*pruṭ*), although those texts have more than 40 roots with final *ṣ*; in the Brāhmaṇas, moreover, have been noticed further only -*pruṭ* and *vīṭ* (ÇB.), and -*çliṭ* (K.). From *piṇṣ*, RV. has the anomalous form *piṇak* (2d and 3d sing., for *pinaṣ-s* and *pinaṣ-t*).

e. Before *s* in internal combination (except *su* of loc. pl.) it becomes *k*: thus, *dvékṣi*, *dvekṣyāmi*, *ádvikṣam*.

f. This change is of anomalous phonetic character, and difficult of explanation. It is also practically of very rare occurrence. The only RV. examples (apart from *piṇak*, above) are *vivekṣi*, from *√viṣ*, and the desid. stem *ririkṣa* from *√riṣ*; AV. has only *dvikṣat* and *dvikṣata*, and the desid. stem *çiçlikṣa* from *√çiṣ*. Other examples are quotable from *√√kṛṣ* and *piṣ* and *viṣ* (ÇB. etc.), and *çiṣ* (ÇB.); and they are by the Hindu grammarians prescribed to be formed from about half-a-dozen other roots.

Extension and Abbreviation.

227. As a general rule, *ch* is not allowed by the grammarians to stand in that form after a vowel, but is to be doubled, becoming *cch* (which the manuscripts sometimes write *chch*).

a. The various authorities disagree with one another in detail as to this duplication. According to Pāṇini, *ch* is doubled within a word after either a long or a short vowel; and, as initial, necessarily after a short and after the particles *á* and *má*, and optionally everywhere after a long. In RV., initial *ch* is doubled after a long vowel of *á* only, and certain special cases after a short vowel are excepted. For the required usage in the other Vedic texts, see their several Prātiçākhyas. The Kāṭhaka writes for original *ch* (not *ch* from combination of *t* or *n* with *ç*: 203) after a vowel everywhere *çch*. The manuscripts in general write simple *ch*.

b. Opinions are still at variance as to how far this duplication has an etymological ground, and how far it is only an acknowledgment of the fact that *ch* makes a heavy syllable even after a short vowel (makes “position”: 79). As the duplication is accepted and followed by most European scholars, it will be also adopted in this work in words and sentences (not in roots and stems).

228. After *r*, any consonant (save a spirant before a vowel) is by the grammarians either allowed or required to be doubled (an aspirate, by prefixing the corresponding non-aspirate: 154).

Thus:

अर्क *arka*, or अर्क्क *arkka*; कार्य *kārya*, or कार्य्य *kāryya*;

अर्थ *artha*, or अर्थ्य *arttha*; दीर्घ *dīrgha*, or दीर्गघ *dīrggha*.

a. Some of the authorities include, along with *r*, also *h* or *l* or *v*, or more than one of them, in this rule.

b. A doubled consonant after *r* is very common in manuscripts and inscriptions, as also in native text-editions and in the earlier editions prepared by European scholars—in later ones, the duplication is universally omitted.

c. On the other hand, the manuscripts often write a single consonant after *r* where a double one is etymologically required: thus, *kārtikeya*, *vārtika*, for *kaārttikeya*, *vārttika*.

229. The first consonant of a group—whether interior, or initial after a vowel of a preceding word—is by the grammarians either allowed or required to be doubled.

a. This duplication is allowed by Pāṇini and required by the Prātiçākhyas—in both, with mention of authorities who deny it altogether. For certain exceptions, see the Prātiçākhyas; the meaning of the whole matter is too obscure to justify the giving of details here.

230. Other cases of extension of consonant-groups, required by some of the grammatical authorities, are the following:

a. Between a non-nasal and a nasal mute, the insertion of so-called *yamas* (*twins*), or nasal counterparts, is taught by the Prātiçākhyas (and assumed in Pāṇini's commentary): see APr. i. 99, note.

b. Between *h* and a following nasal mute the Prātiçākhyas teach the insertion of a nasal sound called a *nāsikya*: see APr. i. 100, note.

c. Between *r* and a following nasal consonant the Prātiçākhyas teach the insertion of a *svarabhakti* or *vowel-fragment*: see APr. i. 101–2, note.

d. Some authorities assume this insertion only before a spirant; the others regard it as twice as long before a spirant as before any other consonant—namely, a half or a quarter *mora* before the former, a quarter or an eighth before the latter. One (VPr.) admits it after *l* as well as *r*. It is variously described as a fragment of the vowel *a* or of *ṛ* (or *l*).

e. The RPr. puts a *svarabhakti* also between a sonant consonant and a following mute or spirant; and APr. introduces an element called *sphoṭana* (*distinguisher*) between a guttural and a preceding mute of another class.

f. For one or two other cases of yet more doubtful value, see the Prātiçākhyas.

231. After a nasal, the former of two non-nasal mutes may be dropped, whether homogeneous only with the nasal, or with both: thus, *yuṇdhí* for *yuṅgdhí*, *yuṇdhvám* for *yuṅgdhvám*, *āñtám* for *āñktám*, *pañtí* for *pañktí*, *chintám* for *chinttám*, *bhinhá* for *bhintthá*, *indhé* for *inddhé*.

a. The abbreviation, allowed by Pāṇini, is required by APr. (the other Prātiçākhyas take no notice of it). It is the more usual practice of the manuscripts, though the full group is also often written.

232. In general, a double mute (including an aspirate which is doubled by the prefixion of a non-aspirate) in combination with any other consonant is by the manuscripts written as simple.

a. That is to say, the ordinary usage of the manuscripts makes no difference between those groups in which a phonetic duplication is allowed by the rules given above (228, 229) and those in which the duplication is etymological. As every *tv* after a vowel may also be properly written *ttv*, so *dattvá* and *tattvá* may be, and almost invariably are, written as *datvá* and *tatvá*. As *kártana* is also properly *kārttana*, so *kārttika* (from *kṛtti*) is written as *kārtika*. So in inflection, we have always, for example, *majñá* etc., not *majjñá*, from *majján*. Even in composition and sentence-collocation the same abbreviations are made: thus, *hṛdyotá* for *hṛddyotá*; *chináty asya* for *chináty asya*. Hence it is impossible to determine by the evidence of written usage whether we should regard *ādhvam* or *āddhvam* (from *√ās*), *ādvīḍhvam* or *ādvīḍḍhvam* (from *√dviṣ*), as the true form of a second person plural.

233. a. Instances are sometimes met with of apparent loss (perhaps after conversion to a semivowel) of *i* or *u* before *y* or *v* respectively. Thus, in the *Brāhmaṇas*, *tú* and *nú* with following *vāi* etc. often made *tvāi*, *nvāi* (also *tvāvā*, *ánvāi*); and other examples from the older language are *anvart-* (*anu* + *√vart*); *paryan*, *paryanti*, *paryāyāt*, *paryāṇa* (*pari* + *yan*, etc.); *abhyārti* (*abhi* + *iyarti*); *antaryāt* (*antar* + *iyāt*); *cārvāc*, *cārvāka*, *cārvadana* (*cāru* + *vāc*, etc.); *kyànt* for *kíyant*; *dvyoga* (*dvi* + *yoga*); *anvā*, *anvāsana* (*anu* + *vā*, etc.); probably *vyūnoti* for *víyunoti* (RV.), *urvācī* (*uru*-*vaçī*), *çīçvarī* for *çīçu*-*varī* (RV.); *vyāmā* (*vi* + *yāma*); and the late *svaṛṇa* for *suvaṛṇa*. More anomalous abbreviations are the common *ṛcā* (*tri* + *ṛca*); and *dvṛca* (*dvi* + *ṛca*: S.) and *treṇī* (*tri* + *eṇī*: Āpast.).

Further, certain cases of the loss of a sibilant require notice. Thus:

b. According to the Hindu grammarians, the *s* of *s*-aorist stems is lost after a short vowel in the 2d and 3d sing. middle: thus, *adithās* and *adita* (1st sing. *adiṣi*), *akṛthās* and *akṛta* (1st sing. *akṛṣi*). It is, however, probably that such cases are to be explained in a different manner: see 834 a.

c. The *s* between two mutes is lost in all combinations of the roots *sthā* and *stambh* with the prefix *ud*: thus, *út* thus, *útthita*, *út thāpaya*, *úttabdha*, etc.

d. The same omission is now and then made in other similar cases: thus *cit kāmphanena* (for *skāmbh-*: RV.); *tasmāt tute* (for *stute*) and *puroruk tuta* (for *stuta*: K.); the compounds *ṛkthā* (*ṛk* + *sthā*: PB.) and *utphuliṅga*; the derivative *utphāla* (*√sphal*). On the other hand, we may have *vidyút stanáyantī* (RV.), *utsthala*, *kakutstha*, etc.

e. So also the tense-sign of the *s*-aorist is lost after a final consonant of a root before the initial consonant of an ending: thus, *achāntta*

(and for this, by 231, achānta) for achāntsta, çāpta for çāpsta, tāptam for tāpstam, abhākta for abhāksta, amāuktam for amāukstam. These are the only quotable cases: compare 883.

f. A final *s* of root or tense-stem is in a few instances lost after a sonant aspirate, and the combination of mutes is then made as if no sibilant had ever intervened. Thus, from the root *ghas*, with omission of the vowel and then of the final sibilant, we have the form *gdha* (for *ghs-ta*: 3d sing. mid.), the participle *gdha* (in *agdhād*), and the derivative *ghdi* (for *ghs-ti*; in *sá-gdhi*); and further, from the reduplicated form of the same root, or *√jaks*, we have *jagdha*, *jagdhum*, *jagdhvā*, *jagdhi* (from *jaghs-ta* etc.); also, in like manner, from *baps*, reduplication of *bhas*, the form *babdhām* (for *babhs-tām*). According to the Hindu grammarians, the same utter loss of the aorist-sign *s* takes place after a final sonant aspirate of a root before an ending beginning with *t* or *th*: thus, from *√rudh*, *s*-aorist stem *arāuts* act. and *aruts* mid., come the active dual and plural persons *arāuddham* and *arāuddhām* and *arāuddha*, and the middle singular persons *aruddhās* and *aruddha*. None of the active forms, however, have been found quotable from the literature, ancient or modern; and the middle forms admit also of a different explanation: see 834, 883.

Strengthening and Weakening Processes.

234. Under this head, we take up first the changes that affect vowels, and then those that affect consonants—adding for convenience's sake, in each case, a brief notice of the vowel and consonant elements that have come to bear the apparent office of connectives.

Guṇa and Vṛddhi.

255. The so-called *guṇa* and *vṛddhi*-changes are the most regular and frequent of vowel-changes, being of constant occurrence both in inflection and in derivation.

a. A *guṇa*-vowel (*guṇa secondary quality*) differs from the corresponding simple vowel by a prefixed *a*-element which is combined with the other according to the usual rules; a *vṛddhi*-vowel (*vṛddhi growth, increment*), by the further prefixion of *a* to the *guṇa*-vowel. Thus, of *इ i* or *ई ī* the corresponding *guṇa* is (*a+i=*) *ए e*; the corresponding *vṛddhi* is (*a+e=*) *ऐ āi*. But in all gunating processes *अ a* remains unchanged—or, as it is sometimes expressed,

अ a is its own guṇa; आ ā, of course, remains unchanged for both guṇa and vṛddhi.

236. The series of corresponding degrees is then as follows:

simple vowel	a ā	i ī	u ū	ṛ	ḷ
guṇa	a ā	e	o	ar	al
vṛddhi	ā	āi	āu	ār	

a. There is nowhere any occurrence of ṛ in a situation to undergo either guṇa or vṛddhi-change; nor does ḷ (26) ever suffer change to vṛddhi. Theoretically, ṛ would have the same changes as ṛ; and the vṛddhi of ḷ would be āḷ.

b. In secondary derivatives requiring vṛddhi of the first syllable (1204), the o of go (361 c) is strengthened to gāu: thus, gāumata, gāuṣṭhika.

237. The historical relations of the members of each vowel-series are still matters of some difference of opinion. From the special point of view of the Sanskrit, the simple vowels wear the aspect of being in general the original or fundamental ones, and the others of being products of their increment or strengthening, in two several degrees—so that the rules of formation direct a, i, u, ṛ, ḷ to be raised to guṇa or vṛddhi respectively, under specified conditions. But ṛ has long been so clearly seen to come by abbreviation or weakening from an earlier ar (or ra) that many European grammarians have preferred to treat the guṇa-forms as the original and the other as the derivative. Thus, for example: instead of assuming certain roots to be bhṛ and vṛdh, and making from them bharati and vardhati, and bhṛta and vṛddha, by the same rules from which bhū and nī and from budh and cit form bhavati and nayati, bodhati, and cetati, bhūta and nīta, buddha and citta—they assume bhar and vardh to be the roots, and give the rules of formation for them in reverse. In this work, as already stated (104 e), the ṛ-form is preferred.

238. The guṇa-increment is an Indo-European phenomenon, and is in many cases seen to occur in connection with an accent on the increased syllable. It is found—

a. In root-syllables: either in inflection, as dvéṣṭi from √dviṣ, dóhmi from √duh; or in derivation, as dvéṣa, dóhas, dvéṣṭum, dógdhum.

b. In formative elements: either conjugational class-signs, as tanómi from tanu; or suffixes of derivation, in inflection or in further derivation, as matáye from matí, bhānávas from bhānú, pitáram from pitṛ (or pitár), hantavyà from hantu.

239. The vṛddhi-increment is specifically Indian, and its occurrence is less frequent and regular. It is found—

a. In root and suffix-syllables, instead of *guṇa*: thus, *stāūti* from *√stu*, *sákhāyam* from *sákhi*, *ánāiṣam* from *√nī*, *ákārṣam* and *kāráyati* and *kāryà* from *√kṛ* (or *kar*), *dātāram* from *dātṛ* (or *dātár*).

b. Especially often, in initial syllables in secondary derivation: thus, *mānasá* from *mānas*, *vāidyutá* from *vidyút*, *bhāumá* from *bhúmi*, *pārthiva* from *prthiví* (1204).

But—

240. The *guṇa*-increment does not usually take place in a heavy syllable ending with a consonant: that is to say, the rules prescribing *guṇa* in processes of derivation and inflection do not apply to a short vowel which is “long by position”, nor to a long vowel unless it be final: thus, *cétati* from *√cit*, but *níndati* from *√nind*; *náyati* from *√nī*, but *jívati* from *√jīv*.

a. The *vr̥ddhi*-increment is not liable to this restriction.

b. Exceptions to the rule are occasionally met with: thus, *ehá*, *ehas* from *√h*; *heḍáyāmi*, *héḍas*, etc., from *√hīḍ*; *coṣa* etc. from *√cūṣ*; *óhate* etc. from *√uh* *consider*; and especially, from roots in *īv*: *didéva* *deviṣyati*, *dévana*, etc., from *√dīv*; *tiṣṭheva* from *√ṣṭhīv*; *sreváyāmi*, *srévuka*, from *√srīv*—on account of which it is, doubtless, that these roots are written with *iv* (*div* etc.) by the Hindu grammarians, although they nowhere show a short *i*, in either verb-forms or derivatives.

c. A few cases occur of prolongation instead of increment; thus, *dūṣáyati* from *√duṣ*, *gúhati* from *√guh*.

The changes of *ṛ* (more original *ar* or *ra*) are so various as to call for further description.

241. The increments of *ṛ* are sometimes *ra* and *rā*, instead of *ar* and *ār*: namely, especially, where by such reversal a difficult combination of consonants is avoided: thus, from *√dr̥ṣ*, *drakṣyāmi* and *ádrākṣam*; but also *pr̥thú* and *prath*, *pr̥ch* and *prach*, *kr̥pá* and *ákrapīṣṭa*.

242. In a number of roots (about a dozen quotable ones) ending in *ṛ* (for more original *ar*), the *ṛ* changes both with *ar*, and more irregularly, in a part of the forms, with *ir*—or also with *ur* (especially after a labial, in *pr̥*, *m̥ṛ*, *v̥ṛ*, sporadically in others): which *ir* and *ur*, again, are liable to prolongation into *īr* and *ūr*. Thus, for example, from *tṛ* (or *tar*), we have *tarati*, *titarti*, *tatāra*, *atāriṣam*, by regular processes; but also *tirati*, *tīryati*, *tīrtvā*, *-tīrya*, *tīrṇa*, and even (V.) *turyāma*, *tuturyāt*, *tarturāṇa*. The treatment of such roots has to be described in speaking of each formation.

a. For the purpose of artificially indicating this peculiarity of treatment, such roots are by the Hindu grammarians written with long *ṛ*, or with both *r* and *ṛ*: no *ṛ* actually appears anywhere among their forms.

b. The (quotable) $\bar{r}$ -roots are 2 $k\bar{r}$ *strew*, 1 $g\bar{r}$ *sing*, 2 $g\bar{r}$ *swallow*, 1 $j\bar{r}$ *wear out*, $t\bar{r}$, 1 $\check{c}\bar{r}$ *crush*.

c. The (quotable) $\bar{r}$ and $\bar{r}$ -roots are $\bar{r}$, 1 $d\bar{r}$ *pierce*, 1 $p\bar{r}$ *fill*, 1 $m\bar{r}$ *die*, 2 $v\bar{r}$ *choose*, $st\bar{r}$, $h\bar{v}\bar{r}$.

d. Forms analogous with these are sometimes made also from other roots: thus, $c\bar{ir}\bar{n}\bar{a}$, $c\bar{ir}t\bar{v}\bar{a}$, $carc\bar{u}r\bar{y}\bar{a}$, from $\sqrt{car}$; $sp\bar{u}rdh\bar{a}n$ and $sp\bar{u}rdh\bar{a}se$ from $\sqrt{sp\bar{r}dh}$.

243. In a few cases $\bar{r}$ comes from the contraction of other syllables than ar and ra : thus, in $t\bar{r}ta$ and $t\bar{r}t\bar{i}va$, from ri ; in $\check{c}\bar{r}\bar{n}u$, from ru ; in $bh\bar{r}k\bar{u}\bar{t}i$, from $r\bar{u}$.

Vowel-lengthening.

244. Vowel-lengthening concerns especially i and u , since lengthening of a is in part (except where in evident analogy with that of i and u) indistinguishable from its increment, and $\bar{r}$ is made long only in certain plural cases of stems in $\bar{r}$ (or ar : 369 ff.). Lengthening is a much more irregular and sporadic change than increment, and its cases will in general be left to be pointed out in connection with the processes of inflection and derivation: a few only will be mentioned here.

245. a. Final radical i and u are especially liable to prolongation before y : as in passive and gerund and so on.

b. Final radical ir and ur (from variable $\bar{r}$ -roots: 242) are liable to prolongation before all consonants except those of personal endings: namely, before y and $tv\bar{a}$ and na : and in declensions before bh and s (392). Radical is has the same prolongation in declension (392).

246. Compensatory lengthening, or absorption by a vowel of the time of a lost following consonant, is by no means common. Certain instances of it have been pointed out above (179, 198 c, d, 199 d, 222 b). Perhaps such cases as $pit\bar{a}$ for $pitars$ (371 a) and $dhan\bar{i}$ for $dhanins$ (439) are to be classed here.

247. The final vowel of a former member of a compound is often made long, especially in the Veda. Prolongations of final a , and before v , are most frequent; but cases are found of every variety. Examples are: $dev\bar{a}v\bar{i}$, $vayun\bar{a}v\bar{i}d$, $pr\bar{a}v\bar{i}\check{s}$, $\bar{r}t\bar{a}vasu$, $\bar{i}ndr\bar{a}vant$, $sadan\bar{a}s\bar{a}d$, $\check{c}at\bar{a}magha$, $vi\check{c}v\bar{a}nara$, $\acute{e}k\bar{a}da\check{c}a$; $ap\bar{i}j\bar{u}$, $par\bar{i}\check{n}\bar{a}h$, $v\bar{i}r\bar{u}dh$, $tuv\bar{i}magh\bar{a}$, $tv\bar{i}\check{s}\bar{i}mant$, $\check{c}\bar{a}kt\bar{i}vant$; $vas\bar{u}j\bar{u}$, $an\bar{u}r\bar{u}dh$, $s\bar{u}m\bar{a}ya$, $pur\bar{u}v\bar{a}su$.

248. In the Veda, the final vowel of a word—generally a , much less often i and u —is in a large number of cases prolonged. Usually the prolongation takes place where it is favored by the metre, but sometimes even where the metre opposes the change (for details, see the various Pr\bar{a}ti\check{c}\bar{a}khyas).

Words of which the finals are thus treated are:

a. Particles: namely, áthā, ádhā, evā, utā, ghā, hā, ihā, ivā, cā, smā, nā, aṅgā, kīlā, átrā, yātrā, tátrā, kútrā, anyātrā, ubhayātrā, adyā, ácchā, ápā, prā; átī, ní, yādī, nahī, abhī, ví; ū, tú, nú, sū, makṣú.

b. Case-forms: especially instr. sing., as enā, tēnā, yēnā, svēnā, and others; rarely gen. sing., as asyā, hariṇāsyā. Cases besides these are few: so sīmā, vṛṣabhā, hariyojanā (voc.); tanvī (loc.); and urú and (not rarely) purú.

c. Verb-forms ending in a, in great number and variety: thus (nearly in the order of their comparative frequency), 2d sing. impv. act., as pibā, syā, gamayā, dhāráyā;—2d pl. act. in ta and tha, as sthā, attā, bibhṛtā, jayatā, çṛṇutā, anadatā, nayathā, jīvayathā (and one or two in tana: aviṣṭanā, hantanā);—1st pl. act. in ma, as vidmā, riṣāmā, ṛdhyāmā, ruhemā, vanuyāmā, cakrmā, marmṛjmā;—2d sing. impv. mid. in sva, as yukṣvā, iḍiṣvā, dadhiṣvā, vahasvā;—1st and 3d sing. perf. act., as vedā, viveçā, jagrabhā; 2d sing. perf. act., vetthā;—2d pl. perf. act., anajā, cakrā. Of verb-forms ending in i, only the 2d sing. impv. act.: thus, kṛdhī, kṛṇuhī, kṣidhī, çrudhī, çṛṇudhī, çṛṇuhī, dīdihī, jahī.

d. To these may be added the gerund in ya (993 a), as abhigúryā, ácyā.

Vowel-lightening.

249. The alteration of short a to an i- or u-vowel in the formative processes of the language, except in ṛ or ar roots (as explained above), is a sporadic phenomenon only.

250. But the lightening of a long ā especially to an i-vowel (as also its loss), is a frequent process; no other vowel is so unstable.

a. Of the class-sign nā (of the krī-class of verbs: 717 ff.), the ā is in weak forms changed to ī, and before vowel-endings dropped altogether. The final ā of certain roots is treated in the same manner: thus, mā, hā, etc. (662–6). And from some roots, ā- and ī- or i-forms so interchange that it is difficult to classify them or to determine the true character of the root.

b. Radical ā is weakened to the semblance of the union-vowel i in certain verbal forms: as perfect dadima from √dā etc. (794 k); aorist adhithās from √dhā etc. (834 a); present jahimas from √hā etc. (665).

c. Radical ā is shortened to the semblance of stem-a in a number reduplicated forms, as tiṣṭa, piba, dada, etc.: see 671–4; also in a few aorists, as áhvam, ákhyam, etc.: see 847.

d. Radical ā sometimes becomes e, especially before y: as stheyāsam, deya.

251. Certain ā-roots, because of their peculiar exchanges with ī and i-forms, especially in forming the present stem, are given by the Hindu grammarians as roots ending in e or āi or o. Thus, from 2 dhā *suck* (dhe) come the present dháyati and participle and gerund dhītá, dhītvá; the other forms are made from dhā, as dadhus, adhāt, dhāsyati, dhátave, dhāpayati. From 2 gā *sing* (gāi) come the present gáyati, the participle and gerund gītá and gītvá, and passive gīyáte, and the other forms from gā. From 3 dā *cut* (do) come the present dyāti and participle ditá or diná, and the other forms from dā. The irregularities of these roots will be treated below, under the various formations (see especially 761 d ff.).

252. By a process of abbreviation essentially akin with that of ar or ra to ɾ, the va (usually initial) of a number of roots becomes u, and the ya of a much smaller number becomes i, in certain verbal forms and derivatives. Thus, from vac comes uváca, ucyásam, uktvá, uktá, uktí, ukthá, etc.; from yaj come iyája, i jyásam, iṣtvá, iṣtá, iṣṭi, etc. See below, under the various formations.

a. To this change is given by European grammarians the name of samprasāraṇa, by adaptation of a term used in the native grammar.

253. A short a, of root or ending, is not infrequently lost between consonants in a weakened syllable: thus, in verb-forms, ghnánti, ápaptam, jagmús, jajñús, ájñata; in noun-forms, rájñe, rájñī.

254. Union-vowels. All the simple vowels come to assume in certain cases the aspect of union-vowels, or insertions between root or stem and ending of inflection or of derivation.

a. That character belongs oftenest to i, which is very widely used: 1. before the s of aorist and future and desiderative stems, as in ájīviṣam, jīviṣyámi, jījīviṣāmi; 2. in tense-inflection, especially perfect, as jijīvimá; occasionally also present, as ániti, róditi; 3. in derivation, as jīvitá, khánitum, janitṛ, rociṣṇú, etc. etc.

b. Long ī is used sometimes instead of short: thus, ágrahīṣam, grahīṣyámi; bravīti, vāvadīti; tarītṛ, savītṛ; it is also often introduced before s and t of the 2d and 3d sing. of verbs: thus, áśīs, áśīt.

c. For details respecting these, and the more irregular and sporadic occurrences of u- and a-vowels in the same character, see below.

Nasal Increment.

255. Both in roots and in endings, a distinction of stronger and weaker forms is very often made by the presence or absence of a nasal element, a nasal mute or anusvāra, before a following consonant. In general, the stronger form is doubtless the more original; but, in the present condition of the language, the nasal has come in great measure to seem, and to some extent also to be used, as an actually strengthening element, introduced under certain conditions in formative and inflective processes.

a. Examples are, of roots: *ac* and *añc*, *grath* and *granth*, *vid* and *vind*, *daç* and *dañç*, *sras* and *srañs*, *dṛh* and *dṛñh*: of endings, *bhārantam* and *bhāratā*, *mānasī* and *mānāñsi*.

256. A final *n*, whether of stem or of root, is less stable than any other consonant, where a weaker form is called for: thus, from *rājan* we have *rājā* and *rājabhis*, and in composition *rāja*; from *dhanín*, *dhaní* and *dhaníbhis* and *dháni*; from *√han* we have *hathá* and *hatá*, etc. A final radical *m* is sometimes treated in the same way; thus, from *√gam*, *gahí*, *gatám*, *gatá*, *gáti*.

257. Inserted *n*. On the other hand, the nasal *n* has come to be used with great — and, in the later history of the language, with increasing — frequency as a union-consonant, inserted between vowels: thus, from *agní*, *agnínā* and *agnīnām*; from *mádhu*, *mádhunas*, *mádhunī*, *mádhūni*; from *çivá*, *çivéna*, *çīvāni*, *çīvānām*.

258. Inserted *y*. a. After final *ā* of a root, a *y* is often found as apparently a mere union-consonant before another vowel: thus, in inflection, *ádhyāi* etc. (844), *çāyāyati* etc. (1042), *çivāyās* etc. (363 c), *gāyati* etc. (761 e); further, in derivation, *-gāya*, *-yāyam*, *dāyaka* etc.; *-sthāyika*; *pāyāna*, *-gāyana*; *dhāyas*, *-hāyas*; *sthāyin* etc. (many cases); *-hitāyin*, *-tatāyin*; *sthāyuka*.

b. Other more sporadic cases of inserted *y* — such as that in the pronoun-forms *ayam*, *iyam*, *vayam*, *yūyam*, *svayam*; and in optative inflection before an ending beginning with a vowel (565) — will be pointed out below in their connection.

Reduplication.

259. Reduplication of a root (originating doubtless in its complete repetition) has come to be a method of radical increment or strengthening in various formative processes: namely,

a. in present-stem formation (642 ff.): as *dádāmi*, *bibhārmī*;

b. in perfect-stem formation, almost universally (782 ff.): as *tatāna*, *dadhāú*, *cakāra*, *riréca*, *lulópa*;

c. in aorist-stem formation (856 ff.): as *ádīdharam*, *ácucyavam*;

d. in intensive and desiderative-stem formation, throughout (1000 ff., 1026 ff.): as *jāñghanti*, *jóhavīti*, *marmṛjyáte*; *pípāsati*, *jíghāñsati*;

e. in the formation of derivative noun-stems (1143 e): as *pápri*, *cárcara*, *sāsa*^{hí}, *cikitú*, *malimlucá*.

f. Rules for the treatment of reduplication in these several cases will be given in the proper connection below.

260. As, by reason of the strengthening and weakening changes indicated above, the same root or stem not seldom exhibits, in the processes of inflection and derivation, varieties of stronger and weaker form, the distinction and description of these varieties forms an important part of the subjects hereafter to be treated.

CHAPTER IV.

DECLENSION.

261. The general subject of declension includes nouns, adjectives, and pronouns, all of which are inflected in essentially the same manner. But while the correspondence of nouns and adjectives is so close that they cannot well be separated in treatment (chap. V.), the pronouns, which exhibit many peculiarities, will be best dealt with in a separate chapter (VII.); and the words designating number, or numerals, also form a class peculiar enough to require to be presented by themselves (chap. VI.).

262. Declensional forms show primarily case and number; but they also indicate gender — since, though the distinctions of gender are made partly in the stem itself, they also appear, to no inconsiderable extent, in the changes of inflection.

263. Gender. The genders are three, namely masculine, feminine, and neuter, as in the other older Indo-European languages; and they follow in general the same laws of distribution as, for example, in Greek and Latin.

a. The only words which show no sign of gender-distinction are the personal pronouns of the first and second person (491), and the numerals above *four* (483).

264. Number. The numbers are three — singular, dual, and plural.

a. A few words are used only in the plural: as *dārās wife*, *āpas water*; the numeral *dva two*, is dual only; and, as in other languages, many words are, by the nature of their use, found to occur only in the singular.

265. As to the uses of the numerals, it needs only to be remarked that the dual is (with only very rare and sporadic exceptions) used strictly in all cases where two objects are logically indicated, whether directly or by combination of two individuals: thus, *çivé te dyāvāpṛthiví ubhé stām may heaven and earth both be propitious to thee!* *dāivam ca mānuṣam ca hotārāu vṛtvā having chosen both the divine and the human sacrificers*; *pathor devayānasya pitṛyānasya ca of the two paths leading respectively to the gods and to the Fathers.*

a. The dual is used alone (without *dva two*) properly when the duality of the objects indicated is well understood; thus, *açvínāu the two Açvins*; *índrasya hárī Indra's two bays*; but *tasya dvāv açvāu staḥ he has two horses*. But now and then the dual stands alone pregnantly: thus, *vedaṁ vedāu vedān vā one Veda or two or more than two*; *ekaśaṣṭe ṇate two hundred and sixty-one*.

266. Case. The cases are (including the vocative) eight: nominative, accusative, instrumental, dative, ablative, genitive, locative, and vocative.

a. The order in which they are here mentioned is that established for them by the Hindu grammarians, and accepted from these by Western scholars. The Hindu names of the cases are founded on this order: the nominative is called *prathamā first*, the accusative *dvitīyā second*, the genitive *ṣaṣṭhī sixth* (sc. *vibhakti division*, i.e. *case*), etc. The object sought in the arrangement is simply to set next to one another those cases which are to a greater or less extent, in one or another number, identical in form; and, putting the nominative first, as leading case, there is no other order by which that object could be attained. The vocative is not considered and named by the native grammarians as a case like the rest; in this work, it will be given in the singular (where alone it is ever distinguished from the nominative otherwise than by accent) at the end of the series of cases.

A compendious statement of the uses of the cases is given in the following paragraphs:

267. Uses of the Nominative. The nominative is the case of the subject of the sentence, and of any word qualifying the subject, whether attributively, in apposition, or as predicate.

268. One or two peculiar constructions call for notice:

a. A predicate nominative, instead of an objective predicate in the accusative, is used with middle verb-forms that signify regarding or calling one's self: thus, *sómam manyate papivān (RV.) he thinks he has been drinking soma*; *sá manyeta purāṇavít (AV.) he may regard himself as wise in ancient things*; *durgád vá āhartá 'vocathāḥ (MS.) thou hast claimed to be a savior out of trouble*; *índro brāhmaṇó brúvāṇaḥ (TS.) Indra pretending to be a Brahman*; *katthase satyavādī (R.) thou boasted thyself truthful*. Similarly with the phrase *rūpam kṛ*: thus, *kṛṣṇó rūpam kṛtvá (TS.) taking on a black form (i.e. making shape for himself as one that is black)*.

b. A word made by *iti* (1102) logically predicate to an object is ordinarily nominative: thus, *svargó loká iti yám vādanti (AV.) what they call the heavenly world*; *tam agniṣṭoma ity ācakṣate (AB.) it they style agniṣṭoma*; *vidarbharājatanayām damayantī 'ti viddhi mām (MBh.) know me for the Vidarbha-king's daughter, Damayantī by*

name. Both constructions are combined in *ajñam hi bālam ity āhuḥ pite 'ty eva tu mantradam* (M.) *for to an ignorant man they give the name of 'child', but that of 'father' to one who imparts the sacred texts*.

c. A nominative, instead of a second vocative, is sometimes added to a vocative by *ca* and: thus, *indraḥ ca sómam pibatam bṛhaspate* (RV.) *together with Indra, do ye two drink the soma*, *O Bṛhaspati! víçve devā yájamānaḥ ca sīdatā* (TS.) *O ye All-Gods, and the sacrificer, take seats!*

269. Uses of the Accusative. The accusative is especially the case of the direct object of a transitive verb, and of any word qualifying that object, as attribute or appositive or objective predicate. The construction of the verb is shared, of course, by its participles and infinitives; but also, in Sanskrit, by a number of other derivatives, having a more or less participial or infinitival character, and even sometimes by nouns and adjectives. A few prepositions are accompanied by the accusative. As less direct object, or goal of motion or action, the accusative is construed especially with verbs of approach and address. It is found used more adverbially as adjunct of place or time or manner; and a host of adverbs are accusative cases in form. Two accusatives are often found as objects of the same verb.

270. The use of the accusative as direct object of a transitive verb and of its infinitives and participles hardly needs illustration; an example or two are: *agním īde* *I praise Agni*; *námo bhárantaḥ* *bringing homage*; *bhúyo dātum arhasi* *thou shouldst give more*. Of predicate words qualifying the object, an example is *tám ugrám kṛṇomi* *tám bráhmāṇam* (RV.) *him I make formidable, him a priest*.

271. Of verbal derivatives having so far a participial character that they share the construction of the verb, the variety is considerable: thus —

a. Derivatives in *u* from desiderative stems (1038) have wholly the character of present participles: thus, *damayantīm abhīpsavaḥ* (MBh.) *desiring to win Damayantī*; *didṛkṣur janakātmajām* (R.) *desiring to see Janaka's daughter*. Rarely, also, the verbal noun in *ā* from such a root: thus, *svargam abhikāṅkṣayā* (R.) *with desire of paradise*.

b. So-called primary derivatives in *in* have the same character: thus, *mām kāmínī* (AV.) *loving me*; *enam abhibhāṣiṇī* (MBh.) *addressing him*. Even the obviously secondary *garbhín* has in ÇB. the same construction: thus, *sárvāṇi bhūtāni garbhy àbhavat* *he became pregnant with all beings*.

c. Derivations in *aka*, in the later language: *as, bhavantam abhivādakaḥ* (MBh.) *intending to salute you*; *mithilām avarodhakaḥ* (R.) *besieging Mithilā*.

d. Nouns in *tar*, very frequently in the older language, and as periphrastic future forms (942 ff.) in the later: thus, *hántā yó vṛtrám*

sánito 'tá vājāṃ dātā maghāni (RV.) *who slayeth the dragon, winneth booty, bestoweth largesses*; tāu hī 'daṃ sarvaṃ hartārāu (JB.) *for they seize on this universe*; tyaktāraḥ saṃyuge prāṇān (MBh.) *risking life in battle*.

e. The root itself, in the older language, used with the value of a present participle at the end of a compound: thus, yām yajñām paribhūr āsi (RV.) *what offering thou surroundest (protectest)*; āhim apāḥ pariṣṭhām (RV.) *the dragon confining the waters*. Also a superlative of a root-stem (468, 471): thus, tvām vāsu devayaté vāniṣṭhaḥ (RV.) *thou art chief winner of wealth for the pious*; tā sōmaṃ somapātāmā (RV.) *they two are the greatest drinkers of soma*.

f. The derivative in i from the (especially the reduplicated) root, in the older language: thus, babhrír vājram papírī sōmaṃ dadír gāḥ (RV.) *bearing the thunderbolt, drinking the soma, bestowing kine*; yajñāṃ ātāniḥ (RV.) *extending the sacrifice*.

g. Derivatives in uka, very frequently in the Brāhmaṇa language: thus, vatsāṅ ca ghātuko vīkaḥ (AV.) *and the wolf destroys his calves*; véduko vāso bhavati (TS.) *he wins a garment*; kāmukā enaṃ strīyo bhavanti (MS.) *the women fall in love with him*.

h. Other cases are more sporadic: thus, derivatives in a, as índro dṛḍhā cid ārujāḥ (RV.) *Indra breaks up even what is fast*; nāi 'vā 'rhaḥ pāitṛkaṃ riktham (M.) *by no means entitled to his father's estate*; — in atnu, as vīḍú cid ārujatnúbhiḥ (RV.) *with the breakers of whatever is strong*; — in atha, as yajāthāya devān (RV.) *to make offering to the gods*; — in ana, as taṃ nivāraṇe (MBh.) *in restraining him*; svamāṅsam iva bhojane (R.) *as if in eating one's own flesh*; — in ani, as samātsu turvāṇiḥ pṛtanyūn (RV.) *overcoming foes in combats*; — in ti, as ná táṃ dhūrtiḥ (RV.) *there is no injuring him*; — in van, as āpaçcāddaghvā 'nnam bhavati (MS.) *he does not come short of food*; — in snu, as sthirā cin namayiṣṇavaḥ (RV.) *bowing even firm things*.

272. Examples of an accusative with an ordinary noun or adjective are only occasional: such words as ánuvrata *faithful to*, prátirūpa *corresponding to*, abhidhṛṣṇu *daring to cope with*, pratyāñc *opposite to*, may be regarded as taking an accusative in virtue of the preposition they contain; also ánuka, as ánukā devā vāruṇam (MS.) *the gods are inferior to Varuna*. RV. has tám antárvatīḥ *pregnant with him*; and AV. has mām kāmēna *through loving me*.

273. The direct construction of cases with prepositions is comparatively restricted in Sanskrit (1123 ff.). With the accusative are oftenest found prati, *opposite to, in reference to*, etc.; also anu *after, in the course of*; antar or antarā *between*; rarely ati *across*; abhi *against, to*; and others (1129). Case-forms which have assumed a prepositional value are also often used with the accusative: as antareṇa, uttareṇa, dakṣiṇena, avareṇa, ūrdhvam, ṛte.

274. The accusative is very often found also as object of verbs which in the related languages are not transitive.

a. It stands especially as the goal of motion, with verbs of going, bringing, sending, and the like: thus, *vidarbhān agaman* (MBh.) *they went to Vidarbha*; *divaṁ yayuḥ* (MBh.) *they went to heaven*; *vanagulmān dhāvantaḥ* (MBh.) *running to woods and bushes*; *apó dívam úd vahanti* (AV.) *they carry up waters to the sky*; *devān yaje* (AV.) *I make offering to the gods*.

b. With verbs meaning *go*, this is an extremely common construction; and the use of such a verb with an abstract noun makes peculiar phrases of *becoming*: thus, *samatām eti* *he goes to equality* (i.e. *becomes equal*); *sa gacched badhyatām mama* (MBh.) *he shall become liable to be slain by me*; *sa pañcatvam āgataḥ* (H.) *he was resolved into the five elements (underwent dissolution, died)*.

c. Verbs of speaking follow the same rule: thus, *tam abravīt* *he said to him*; *prākroṣad uccāir nāiṣadham* (MBh.) *she cried out loudly to the Nishadhan*; *yás tvo 'váca* (AV.) *who spoke to thee*.

d. The assumption of an accusative object is exceptionally easy in Sanskrit, and such an object is often taken by a verb or phrase in which is strictly of intransitive character: thus, *sáhasā prā 'sy anyān* (RV.) *in might thou excellest* (lit. *art ahead*) *others*, *devā vāi bráhma sám avadanta* (MS.) *the gods were discussing* (lit. *were talking together*) *brahman*; *antár vāi mā yajñād yanti* (MS.) *surely they are cutting me off* (lit. *are going between*) *from the offering*; *tām sám babhūva* (ÇB.) *he had intercourse with her*.

275. Examples of the cognate accusative, or accusative of implied object, are not infrequent: thus, *tápas tapyāmahe* (AV.) *we do penance*; *té hāi 'tām edhatúm edhām cakrire* (ÇB.) *they prospered with that prosperity*; *uṣitvā sukhavāsam* (R.) *abiding happily*.

276. The accusative is often used in more adverbial constructions. Thus:

a. Occasionally, to denote measure of space: thus, *yojanaçataṁ gantum* (MBh.) *to go a hundred leagues*; *ṣaḍ ucchrito yojanāni* (MBh.) *six leagues high*.

b. Much more often, to denote measure or duration of time: thus, *sá saṁvatsarām ūrdhvò 'tiṣṭhat* (AV.) *he stood a year upright*; *tisró rátrīr dīkṣitāḥ syāt* (TS.) *let him be consecrated three nights*; *gatvā trīn ahorātrān* (MBh.) *having traveled three complete days*.

c. Sometimes, to denote the point of space, or, oftener, of time: thus, *yām asya díçaṁ dásyuh syāt* (ÇB.) *whatever region his enemy may be in*; *ténāi 'tām rátrīm sahā* jagāma (ÇB.) *he arrived that night with him*; *imām rajanīm vyuṣṭām* (MBh.) *this current night*.

d. Very often, to denote manner or accompanying circumstance. Thus, the neuter accusative of innumerable adjectives, simple or compound

(1111), is used adverbially, while certain kinds of compounds are thus used to such an extent that the Hindu grammarians have made of them a special adverbial class (1313).

e. Special cases are occasionally met with: thus, brahmacāryam uvāsa (ÇB.) *he kept a term of studentship*; phalām pacyānte (MS.) *they ripen their fruit*; gāṁ dīvyadhvam (MS., S.) *gamble for a cow*.

277. The accusative is, of course, freely used with other cases to limit the same verb, as the sense requires. And whenever it is usable with a verb in two different constructions, the verb may take two accusatives, one in each construction: and such combinations are quite frequent in Sanskrit. Thus, with verbs of appealing, asking, having recourse: as, apó yācāmi bheṣajām (RV.) *I ask the waters for medicine*; tvām ahaṁ satyam icchāmi (R.) *I desire truth from thee*; tvāṁ vayam caraṇam gatāḥ (MBh.) *we have resorted to thee for succor*;—with verbs of bringing, sending, following, imparting, saying: as, gurutvaṁ naraṁ nayanti (H.) *they bring a man to respectability*; sītā cā 'nvetu mām vanam (R.) *and let Sītā accompany me to the forest*; supéçasaṁ mā 'va sñjanty ástam (RV.) *they let me go home well adorned*; tām idam abravīt (MBh.) *this he said to her*;—and in other less common cases: as, vṛkṣāṁ pakvām phalāṁ dhūnuhi (RV.) *shake ripe fruit from the tree*; tām viṣām evā 'dhok (AV.) *poison he milked from her*; jitvā rājyaṁ nalam (MBh.) *having won the kingdom from Nala*; ámuṣṇītaṁ paṇīm gāḥ (RV.) *ye robbed the Paṇi of the kine*; draṣṭum icchāvaḥ putram paçcimadarçanam (R.) *we wish to see our son for the last time*.

a. A causative form of a transitive verb regularly admits two accusative objects: thus, devāṁ uçatāḥ pāyayā haviḥ (RV.) *make the eager gods drink the oblation*; ósadhīr evā phalāṁ grāhayati (MS.) *he makes the plants bear fruit*; vaṇijo dāpayet karān (M.) *he should cause the merchants to pay taxes*. But such a causative sometimes takes an instrumental instead of a second accusative: see 282 b.

278. Uses of the Instrumental. The instrumental is originally the *with*-case: it denotes adjacency, accompaniment, association—passing over into the expression of means and instrument by the same transfer of meaning which appears in the English prepositions *with* and *by*.

a. Nearly all the uses of the case are readily deducible from this fundamental meaning, and show nothing anomalous or difficult.

279. The instrumental is often used to signify accompaniment: thus, agnīr devébhir á gamet (RV.) *may Agni come hither along with the gods*; marúdbhī rudrāṁ huvema (RV.) *we would call Rudra with the Marurts*; dvāpareṇa sahāyena kva yāsyasi (MBh.) *whither wilt thou go, with Dvāpara for companion?* kathayan nāiṣadhena (MBh.) *talking with the Nishadhan*. But the relation of simple accompaniment is more often helped to plainer expression by prepositions (saha etc.: 284).

280. The instrumental of means or instrument or agent is yet more frequent: thus, *bhadráṁ kárṇebhiḥ ṣṛṇuyāma* (RV.) *may we hear with our ears what is propitious*; *ṣastreṇa nidhanam* (MBh.) *death by the sword*; *kecit padbhyāṁ hatā gajāiḥ* (MBh.) *some were slain by the elephants with their feet*; *pṛthak pāṇibhyāṁ darbhataruṇakāir navanītenā 'ṅguṣṭhopakaniṣṭhikābhyām akṣiṇī ājya* (AGS.) *anointing their eyes with fresh butter, by help of the bunches of darbha-grass, with the thumb and ring-finger, using the two hands successively*. And this passes easily over into the expression of occasion or reason (for which the ablative is more frequent): thus, *kṛpayā through pity*; *tena satyena in virtue of that truth*.

281. Of special applications, the following may be noticed:

a. Accordance, equality, likeness, and the like: thus, *samāṁ jyōtiḥ sūryeṇa* (AV.) *a brightness equal with the sun*; *yeṣāṁ ahaṁ na pādarajasā tulyaḥ* (MBh.) *to the dust of whose feet I am not equal*.

b. Price (by which obtained): thus, *daṣābhiḥ krīṇāti dhenúbhiḥ* (RV.) *he buys with ten kine*; *gavāṁ ṣatasahasreṇa dīyatāṁ ṣabalā mama* (R.) *let Ṣabalā be given me for a hundred thousand cows*; *sa te 'kṣaḥṛdayaṁ dātā rājā, 'ṣvahrdayena vāi* (MBh.) *the king will give thee the secret science of dice in return for that of horses*.

c. Medium, and hence also space or distance or road, traversed: thus, *udnā ná nāvam anayanta* (RV.) *they brought [him] as it were a ship by water*; *é 'há yātam pathíbhīr devayānāiḥ* (RV.) *come hither by god-traveled paths*; *jagmur vihāyasā* (MBh.) *they went off through the air*.

d. Time passed through, or by the lapse of which anything is brought about: thus, *vidarbhān yātum icchāmy ekāhnā* (MBh.) *I wish to go to Vidarbha in the course of one day*; *te ca kālena mahatā yāuvanam pratipedire* (R.) *and they in a long time attained adolescence*; *tatra kālena jāyante mānavā dīrghajīvinaḥ* (M.) *'there in time are born men long-lived*. This use of the instrumental borders upon that of the locative and ablative.

e. The part of the body on (or by) which anything is borne is usually expressed by the instrumental: *as, kukkuraḥ skandheno 'hyate* (H.) *a dog is carried on the shoulder*; and this construction is extended to such cases as *tulayā kṛtam* (H.) *put on* (i.e. *so as to be carried by*) *a balance*.

f. Not infrequently used are such phrases as *bahunā kim pralāpena* (R.) *'what is the use of* (i.e. *is gained by*) *much talking?* *ko nu me jīvitenā 'rthaḥ* (MBh.) *what object is life to me?* *nīrujas tu kim āuśadhāiḥ* (H.) *but what has a well man to do with medicines?*

g. An instrumental of accompaniment is occasionally used almost or quite with the value of an instrumental absolute: thus, *na tvayā 'tra mayā 'vasthitena kā 'pi cintā kāryā* (Pañc.) *with me at hand, thou need'st feel no anxiety whatever on this point*.

282. a. The construction of a passive verb (or participle) with an instrumental of the agent is common from the earliest period, and becomes decidedly more so later, the passive participle with instrumental taking to no small extent the place of an active verb with its subject. Thus, *yaména dattāḥ* (RV.) *given by Yama*; *ṛṣibhir ṛḍyaḥ* (RV.) *to be praised by sages*; *vyādhena jālaṁ vistīrṇam* (H.) *by the hunter a net [was] spread*; *tac chrutvā jaradgaveno 'ktam* (H.) *Jaradgava, hearing this, said*; *mayā gantavyam* (H.) *I shall go*. A predicate to the instrumental subject of such a construction is, of course, also in the instrumental: thus, *adhunā tavā 'nucareṇa mayā sarvathā bhavitavyam* (H.) *henceforth I shall always by thy companion*; *avahitāir bhavitavyam bhavadbhiḥ* (Vikr.) *you must be attentive*.

b. A causative verb sometimes takes an instrumental instead of an accusative as second object: thus, *tām ṇvabhiḥ khādayed rājā* (M.) *the king should have her devoured by dogs*; *tā vāruṇē 'grāhayat* (MS.) *he caused Varuṇa to seize them*.

283. Many instrumental constructions are such as call in translation for other prepositions than *with* or *by*; yet the true instrumental relation is usually to be traced, especially if the etymological sense of the words be carefully considered.

a. More anomalously, however, the instrumental is used interchangeably with the ablative with words signifying separation: thus, *vatsāir víyutāḥ* (RV.) *separated from their calves*; *mā 'hām ātmānā ví rādhiṣi* (AV.) *let me not be severed from the breath of life*; *sa tayā vyayujyata* (MBh.) *he was parted from her*; *pāpmānāi 'vāi 'naṁ ví punanti* (MS.) *they cleanse him from evil* (compare English *parted with*). The same meaning may be given to the case even when accompanied by *saha with*: thus, *bhartrā saha viyogaḥ* (MBh.) *separation from her husband*.

284. The prepositions taking the instrumental (1127) are those signifying *with* and the like: thus, *saha*, with the adverbial words containing *sa* as an element, as *sākam*, *sārdham*, *saratham*;—and, in general, a word compounded with *sa*, *sam*, *saha* takes an instrumental as its regular and natural complement. But also the preposition *vinā without* takes sometimes the instrumental (cf. 283 a).

285. Uses of the Dative. The dative is the case of the indirect object—or that toward or in the direction of or in order to or for which anything is or is done (either intransitively or to a direct object).

a. In more physical connections, the uses of the dative approach those of the accusative (the more proper *to*-case), and the two are sometimes interchangeable; but the general value of the dative as the *toward*- or *for*-case is almost everywhere distinctly to be traced.

286. Thus, the dative is used with—

a. Words signifying *give*, *share out*, *assign*, and the like: thus, *yó ná dādāti sákhye* (RV.) *who gives not to a friend*; *yácchā 'smāi čarma* (RV.) *bestow upon him protection*.

b. Words signifying *show, announce, declare*, and the like: thus, dhanur darçaya rāmāya (R.) *show the bow to Rāma*; āvīr ebhyo abhavat sūryaḥ (RV.) *the sun was manifested to them*; rtuparṇam bhīmāya pratyavedayan (MBh.) *they announced Rituparṇa to Bhīma*; tebhyaḥ pratijñāya (MBh.) *having promised to them*.

c. Words signifying *give attention, have a regard or feeling, aspire*, and the like: thus, niveçāya mano dadhuḥ (MBh.) *they set their minds upon encamping*; māté 'va putrēbhyo mṛḍa (AV.) *be gracious as a mother to her sons*; kīm asmābhyam hṛṇīṣe (RV.) *why art thou angry at us?* kāmāya sprhayaty ātmā (Spr.) *the soul longs for love*.

d. Words signifying *please, suit, conduce*, and the like: thus, yadyad rocate viprebhyaḥ (M.) *whatever is pleasing to Brahmans*; tad ānantiyāya kalpate (KU.) *that makes for immortality*

e. Words signifying inclination, 'obedience, and the like: thus, máhyam namantām pradīçaḥ cátasraḥ (RV.) *let the four quarters bow themselves to me*; devebhyo namaskṛtya (MBh.) *having paid homage to the gods*;;.

f. Words signifying *hurling or casting*: as yéna dūḍāçe ásyasi (AV.) *with which thou hurlest at the impious*.

g. In some of these constructions the genitive and locative are also used: see below.

287. In its more distinctive sense, as signifying *for, for the benefit of, with reference to*, and the like, the dative is used freely, and in a great variety of constructions. And this use passes over into that of the dative of end or purpose, which is extremely common. Thus, íṣurṁ kṛṇvāná ásanāya (AV.) *making an arrow for hurling*; grṇāmi te sāubhagatváya hástam (RV.) *I take thy hand in order to happiness*; rāṣṭráya máhyam badhyatām sapátnebhyaḥ parābhúve (AV.) *be it bound on in order to royalty for me, in order to destruction for my enemies* .

a. Such a dative is much used predicatively (and oftenest with the copula omitted), in the sense of *makes for, tends toward*; also *is intended for*, and so *must*; or *is liable to*, and so *can*. Thus, upadeço mūrkhāṇām prakopāya na çāntaye (H.) *good counsel [tends] to the exasperation, not the conciliation, of fools*; sa ca tasyāḥ samtoṣāya nā 'bhavat (H.) *and he was not to her satisfaction*; sugopá asi ná dábhāya (RV.) *thou art a good herdsman, not one for cheating* (i.e. *not to be cheated*).

b. These uses of the dative are in the older language especially illustrated by the dative infinitives, for which see 982.

288. The dative is not to be used with prepositions (1124).

289. Uses of the Ablative. The ablative is the *from*-case, in the various senses of that preposition; it is used to express removal, separation, distinction, issue, and the like.

290. The ablative is used where expulsion, removal, distinction, release, defense, and other kindred relations are expressed: thus, té sedhanti pathó vīkam (AV.) *they drive away the wolf from the path*; má prá

gāma pathāḥ (RV.) *may we not go away from the path*; éti vá eṣá yajñamukhāt (MS.) *he verily goes away from the face of the sacrifice*; āré asmád astu hetíḥ (AV.) *far from us be your missile*; pātām no vṛkāt (RV.) *save us from the wolf*; ástabhnād dyām avasrásaḥ (RV.) *he kept (lit. made firm) the sky from falling*.

291. The ablative is used where procedure or issue from something as from a source or starting-point is signified: thus, çukráḥ kṛṣṇād ajaniṣṭa (RV.) *the bright one has been born from the black one*; lobhāt krodhaḥ prabhavati (MBh.) *passion arises from greed*; vātāt te prāṇām avidam (AV.) *I have won thy life-breath from the wind*; yé prācyā diçó abhidāsanty asmān (AV.) *who attack us from the eastern quarter*; tac chrutvā sakhigaṇāt (MBh.) *having heard that from the troop of friends*; vāyur antarikṣād abhāṣata (MBh.) *the wind spoke from the sky*.

a. Hence also, procedure as from a cause or occasion is signified by the ablative: this is especially frequent in the later language, and in technical phraseology is a standing construction; it borders on instrumental constructions. Thus, vājrasya çuṣṇād dadāra (RV.) *from (by reason of) the fury of the thunderbolt he burst asunder*; yasya daṇḍabhayāt sarve dharmam anurudhyanti (MBh.) *from fear of whose rod all are constant to duty*; akāramiçritatvād ekārasya (Tribh.) *because e contains an element of a*.

b. Very rarely, an ablative has the sense of *after*: thus, agacchann ahorātrāt tīrtham (MBh.) *they went to the shrine after a whole day*; ṭakārāt sakāre takāreṇa (APr.) *after ṭ, before s, is inserted t*

292. One or two special applications of the ablative construction are to be noticed:

a. The ablative with words implying fear (terrified recoil from): thus, tāsya jātāyāḥ sārvaṃ abibhet (AV.) *everything was afraid of her at her birth*; yāsmād réjanta kṛṣṭāyaḥ (RV.) *at whom mortals tremble*; yuṣmād bhiyā (RV.) *through fear of you*; yasmān no 'dvijate lokaḥ (BhG.) *of whom the world is not afraid*.

b. The ablative of comparison (distinction from): thus, prá ririce divá índraḥ pṛthivyāḥ (RV.) *Indra is greater than the heaven and the earth*. With a comparative, or other word used in a kindred way, the ablative is the regular and almost constant construction: thus, svādóḥ svādīyaḥ (RV.) *sweeter than the sweet*; kiṃ tasmād duḥkhataram (MBh.) *what is more painful than that?* ko mitrād anyāḥ (H.) *who else than a friend*; gā avṛṇīthā mat (AB.) *thou hast chosen the kine rather than me*; ajñebhyo granthinaḥ çreṣṭhā granthibhyo dhāriṇo varāḥ (M.) *possessors of texts are better than ignorant men; rememberers are better than possessors*; tād anyātra tván ní dadhmasi (AV.) *we set this down elsewhere (away) from thee*; pūrvā víçvasmād bhúvanāt (RV.) *earlier than all beings*.

c. Occasionally, a probably possessive genitive is used with the comparative; or an instrumental (as in comparison of equality): thus,

nā 'sti dhanyataro mama (R.) *there is no one more fortunate than I* (i.e. *my superior in fortune*); putram mama prāṇāir garīyasam (MBh.) *a son dearer than my life*.

d. Occasionally, an ablative is used instead of a partitive genitive: thus, mithunād ekam jaghāna (R.) *he slew one out of the pair*; tebhya ekam (KSS.) *one of them*.

293. The ablative is used with a variety of prepositions and words sharing a prepositional character (1128); but all these have rather an adverbial value, as strengthening or defining the *from*-relation, than any proper governing force. We may notice here:

a. In the Veda, ádhi and pári are much used as directing and strengthening adjuncts with the ablative: as, jātó himávatas pári (AV.) *born from the Himalaya (forth)*; samudrād ádhi jajñise (AV.) *thou art born from the ocean*; cárantam pári tasthúṣaḥ (RV.) *moving forth from that which stands fast*.

b. Also purá (and purás), in the sense of *forward from*, and hence *before*: as, purá járasaḥ (RV.) *before old age*; and hence also, with words of protection and the like, *from*: as çaçamānáḥ purá nidáḥ (RV.) *securing from ill-will*.

c. Also á, in the sense of *hither from*, *all the way from*: as, á múlād ánu çuṣyatu (AV.) *let it dry completely up from the root*; tásmād á nadyò náma stha (AV.) *since that time ye are called rivers*. But usually, and especially in the later language, the measurement of interval implied in á is reversed in direction, and the construction means *all the way to*, *until*: as, yatí giríbhya á samudrāt (RV.) *going from the mountains to the ocean*; á 'syá yajñásyo 'dṛcaḥ (VS.) *until the end of this sacrifice*; ā ṣoḍaṣāt (M.) *till the sixteenth year*; ā pradānāt (Ç.) *until her marriage*.

294. Uses of the Genitive. a. The proper value of the genitive is adjectival; it belongs to and qualifies a noun, designating something relating to the latter in a manner which the nature of the case, or the connection, defines more nearly. Other genitive constructions, with adjective or verb or preposition, appear to arise out of this, by a more or less distinctly traceable connection.

b. The use of the genitive has become much extended, especially in the later language, by attribution of a noun-character to the adjective, and by pregnant verbal construction, so that it often bears the aspect of being a substitute for other cases—as dative, instrumental, ablative, locative.

295. The genitive in its normal adjective construction with a noun or pronoun is classifiable into the usual varieties: as, genitive of possession or appurtenance, including the complement of implied relation—this is, as elsewhere, the commonest of all; the so-called partitive genitive; the subjective and objective genitives; and so on. Genitives of apposition or

equivalence (*city of Rome*), and of characteristic (*man of honor*), do not occur, and hardly that of material (*house of wood*). Examples are: *índrasya vājraḥ Indra's thunderbolt*; *pitā putrāṇām father of sons*; *putraḥ pituḥ son of the father*; *pituḥ kāmāḥ putrasya the father's love of the son*; *ke naḥ which of us*; *çataṁ dāsīnām a hundred female slaves*.

a. The expression of possession etc. on the part of pronouns is made almost entirely by the genitive case, and not by a derived possessive adjective (516).

b. Exceptional cases like *nagarasya mārگاḥ the road to the city* (cf. *le chemin de Paris*), *yasyā 'haṁ dūta īpsitaḥ (MBh.) as messenger to whom I am wanted*, are occasionally met with.

296. The genitive is dependent on an adjective:

a. A so-called partitive genitive with a superlative, or another word of similar substantival value: thus, *çreṣṭhaṁ vīrāṇām best of heroes*; *vīrúdhāṁ vīryavatī (AV.) of plants the mighty (mightiest) one*.

b. Very often, by a transfer of the possessive genitive from noun to adjective, the adjective being treated as if it had noun-value: thus, *tasya samaḥ or anurūpaḥ or sadṛçaḥ resembling him* (i.e. *his like*); *tasya priyā dear to him (his dear one)*; *tasyā 'viditam unknown to him (his unknown thing)*; *hāvyaç carṣaṇīnām (RV.) to be sacrificed to by mortals (their object of sacrifice)*; *īpsito naranārīṇām (MBh.) desired of men and women (their object of desire)*; *yasya kasya prasūtaḥ (H.) of whomsoever born (his son)*; *hantavyo 'smi na te (MBh.) I am not to be slain of thee*; *kim arthinām vañcayitavyam asti (H.) why should there be a deceiving of supplicants?*

c. In part, by a construction similar to that of verbs which take a genitive object: thus, *abhijñā rājadharmāṇām (R.) understanding the duties of a king*.

297. The genitive as object of a verb is:

a. A possessive genitive of the recipient, by pregnant construction, with verbs signifying *give, impart, communicate*, and the like: thus, *varāṇ pradāyā 'sya (MBh.) having bestowed gifts upon him (made them his by bestowal)*; *rājño niveditam (H.) it was made known to the king (made his by knowledge)*; *yad anyasya pratijñāya punar anyasya dīyate (M.) that after being promised to one she is given to another*. This construction, by which the genitive becomes substitute for a dative or locative, abounds in the later language, and is extended sometimes to problematic and difficult cases.

b. A (in most cases, probably) partitive genitive, as a less complete or less absolute object than an accusative: thus, with verbs meaning *partake (eat, drink, etc.)*, as *pība sutásya (AV.) drink (of) the soma*; *mádhvaḥ pāyaya (RV.) cause to drink the sweet drought*;—with verbs meaning *impart (of the thing imparted) etc.*, as *dadāta no amṛtasya (RV.) bestow upon us immortality*;—with verbs meaning *enjoy, be satisfied or filled*

with: as, mátsy ándhasaḥ (RV.) do thou enjoy the juice; ājyasya pūrayanti (S.) they fill with butter;—with verbs meaning perceive, note, care for, regard with feeling of various kinds: as, vásiṣṭhasya stuvatá índro açrot (RV.) Indra listened to Vasishtha who was praising him; yáthā máma smárāt (AV.) that he may think of me; tasya cukopa (MBh.) he was angry at him.

c. A genitive of more doubtful character, with verbs meaning *rule* or *have authority*: as, tvám iṣiṣe vásūnām (RV.) *thou art lord of good things*; yáthā 'hám eṣám virájāni (AV.) *that I may rule over them*; katham mṛtyuḥ prabhavati vedaçāstravidām (M.) *how has death power over those who know the Vedas and treatises?*

d. A genitive, instead of an ablative, is sometimes found used with a verb of receiving of any kind (hearing included), and with one of fearing: thus, yo rājñāḥ pratigṛhṇāti lubdhasya (M.) *whoever accepts a gift from a greedy king*; çṛṇu me (MBh.) *learn from me*; bibhīmas tava (MBh.) *we are afraid of thee*.

298. A genitive in its usual possessive sense is often found as predicate, and not seldom with the copula omitted: thus, yáthā 'so máma kévalaḥ (AV.) *that thou mayest be wholly mine*; sarvāḥ sampattayas tasya saṁtuṣṭaṁ yasya mānasam<tt? (H.) *all good fortunes are his who has a contented mind*;—as objective predicate, bhartuḥ putraṁ vijānanti (M.) *they recognize a son as the husband's*.

299. a. The prepositional constructions of the genitive (1130) are for the most part with such prepositions as are really noun-cases and have the government of such: thus, agre, arthe, kṛte, and the like; also with other prepositional words which, in the general looseness of use of the genitive, have become assimilated to these. A few more real prepositions take the genitive: either usually, like upári *above*, or occasionally, like adhás, antár, áti.

b. A genitive is occasionally used in the older language with an adverb, either of place or of time: thus, yátra kvà ca kurukṣetrásya (ÇB.) *in whatever part of Kurukshetra*; yátra tú bhúmer jáyeta (MS.) *on what spot of earth he may be born*; idánīm áhnaḥ (RV.) *at this time of the day*; yásyā rátryāḥ prātāḥ (MS.) *on the morn of what night*; dviḥ saṁvatsarasya (K.) *twice a year*. Such expression as the last occur also later.

300. a. The genitive is very little used adverbially; a few genitives of time occur in the older language: as, aktos *by night*, vastos *by day*; and there are found later such cases as kasya cit kālasya (Ç.) *after a certain time*; tataḥ kālasya mahataḥ prayayāu (R.) *then after a long time he went forth*.

b. A genitive, originally of possession, passing over into one of general concernment, comes in the later language (the construction is unknown earlier) to be used absolutely, with an agreeing participle, or quite rarely

an adjective. From such cases as the following—paçyato bakamūrkhasya nakulāir bhakṣitāḥ sutāḥ (H.) *of the foolish heron, while he looked on, the young were eaten by the ichneumons*, or gato 'rdharātraḥ kathāḥ kathayato mama (KSS.) *half my night was passed in telling stories*, or kartavyasya karmaṇaḥ kṣipram akriyamāṇasya kālāḥ pibati tadrasm (H.) *of a work needing to be done but left undone time quickly drinks up its essence*—come into currency, by increasing independence of the genitive, such other cases as: divaṁ jagāma munīnām paçyatām tadā (R.) *he went then to heaven, the ascetics looking on*; evaṁ lālapatas tasya devadūtas tadā 'bhyetya vākyam āha (MBh.) *as he thus lamented, a divine messenger coming addressed him*; iti vādina evā 'sya dhenur āvavṛte vanāt (Ragh.) *while he thus spoke, the cow came from the forest*. The genitive always indicates a living actor, and the participle is usually one of seeing or hearing or uttering, especially the former. The construction is said by the Hindu grammarians to convey an implication of disregard or despite; and such is often to be recognized in it, though not prevailing.

301. Uses of the Locative. a. The locative is properly the *in*-case, the case expressing situation or location; but its sphere of use has been somewhat extended, so as to touch and overlap the boundaries of other cases, for which it seems to be a substitute.

b. Unimportant variations of the sense of *in* are those of *amid* or *among*, *on*, and *at*. Of course, also, situation in time as well as place is indicated by the case; and it is applied to yet less physical relations, to sphere of action and feeling and knowledge, to state of things, to accompanying circumstance; and out of this last grows the frequent use of the locative as the case absolute.

c. Moreover, by a pregnant construction, the locative is used to denote the place of rest or cessation of action or motion (*into* or *on to* instead of *in* or *on*; German *in* with accusative instead of dative: compare English *there* for *thither*).

302. a. The locative of situation in space hardly needs illustration. An example or two are: yé devā divī sthā (AV.) *which of you gods are in heaven*; na deveṣu na yakṣeṣu tādṛk (MBh.) *not among gods or Yakshas is such a one*; pārvatasya pṛsthé (RV.) *on the ridge of the mountain*; vidāthe santu devāḥ (RV.) *may the gods be at the assembly*; daçame pade (MBh.) *at the tenth step*.

b. The locative of time indicates the point of time at which anything takes place: thus, asyā uṣāso vyūṣṭāu (RV.) *at the shining forth of this dawn*; etasminn eva kāle (MBh.) *at just that time*; dvādaçe varṣe (MBh.) *in the twelfth year*. That the accusative is occasionally used in this sense, instead of the locative, was pointed out above (276 c).

c. The person with whom, instead of the place at which, one is or remains is put in the locative: thus, tiṣṭhanty asmin paçāvaḥ (MS.) *animals abide with him*; gurāu vasan (M.) *living at a teacher's*; and, pregnantly, tāvat tvayi bhaviṣyāmi (MBh.) *so long will I cleave to thee*.

303. The locative of sphere or condition or circumstance is of very frequent use: thus, *máde áhim índro jaghāna* (RV.) *in fury Indra slew the dragon*; *mitrásya sumatāú syāma* (RV.) *may we be in the favor of Mitra*; *te vacane ratam* (MBh.) *delighted in thy words*.

a. This construction is, on the one hand, generalized into an expression for *in the matter or case of*; or *with reference to, respecting*, and takes in the later language a very wide range, touching upon genitive and dative constructions: thus *é 'mám bhaja grāme áçveṣu gósu* (AV.) *be generous to him in retainers, in horses, in cattle*; *tám ít sakhitvá imahe* (RV.) *him we beg for friendship*; *upāyo 'yañ mayā dṛṣṭa ānayane tava* (MBh.) *this means was devised by me for (with reference to) bringing thee hither*; *satīve kārāṇaṁ striyāḥ* (H.) *the cause of (in the case of) a woman's chastity*; *na çakto 'bhavan nivāraṇe* (MBh.) *he was not capable of preventing*.

b. On the other hand, the expression by the locative of a condition of things in which anything takes place, or of a conditioning or accompanying circumstance, passes over into a well-marked absolute construction, which is known even in the earliest stage of the language, but becomes more frequent later. Transitional examples are: *háve tvā súra údite háve madhyāmdine divāḥ* (RV.) *I call to thee at the arisen sun (when the sun has risen), I call at midtime of the day*; *aparādhe kṛte 'pi ca na me kopāḥ* (MBh.) *and even in the case of an offence committed, there is no anger on my part*.

c. The normal condition of the absolute construction is with a participle accompanying the noun: thus, *stīrṇé barhīṣi samidhāné agnāú* (RV.) *when the barhis is strewn and the fire kindled*; *kāle çubhe prāpte* (MBh.) *a propitious time having arrived*; *avasannāyāṁ rātrāv astācalacūḍāvalambini candramasi* (H.) *the night having drawn to a close, and the moon resting on the summit of the western mountain*.

d. But the noun may be wanting, or may be replaced by an adverbial substitute (as *evam*, *tathā*, *iti*): thus, *varṣati* *when it rains*; *[sūrye] astamite* *after sunset*; *ādityasya dṛçyamāne* (S.) *while there is seen [some part] of the sun*; *ity ardhokte* (Ç.) *with these words half uttered*; *asmābhiḥ samanujñāte* (MBh.) *it being thus spoken by Kali*; *tathā 'nuṣṭhite* (H.) *it being thus accomplished*. So likewise the participle may be wanting (a copula *sati* or the like having to be supplied): thus, *dūre bhaye* *the cause of fear being remote*; while, on the other hand, the participle *sati* etc. is sometimes redundantly added to the other participle: thus, *tathā kṛte sati* *it being thus done*.

e. The locative is frequently used adverbially or prepositionally (1116): thus, *- arthe* or *-kṛte* *in the manner of, for the sake of*; *agre* *in front of*; *ṛte* *without*; *samīpe* *near*.

304. The pregnant construction by which the locative comes to express the goal or object of motion or action or feeling exercised is not

uncommon from the earliest time. It is by no means to be sharply distinguished from the ordinary construction; the two pass into one another, with a doubtful territory between. It occurs:

a. Especially with verbs, as of arriving, sending, placing, communicating, bestowing, and many others, in situations where an accusative or a dative (or a genitive, 297 a) might be looked for, and exchangeable with them: thus, *sá íd devéṣu gacchati* (RV.) *that, truly, goes to (to be among) the gods*; *imám no yajñám amṛteṣu dhehi* (RV.) *set this offering of ours among the immortals*; *yá āsiñcānti rásam óṣadhīṣu* (AV.) *who pour in the juice into the plants (or, the juice that is in the plants)*; *mā prayacche "çvare dhanam* (H.) *do not offer wealth to a lord*; *papāta medinyām* (MBh.) *he fell to (so as to be upon) the earth*; *skandhe kṛtvā* (H.) *putting on the shoulder*; *saṁçrutya pūrvam asmāsu* (MBh.) *having before promised us*.

b. Often also with nouns and adjectives in similar constructions (the instances not always easy to separate from those of the locative meaning *with reference to*: above, 303 a): thus, *dayā sarvabhūteṣu* *compassion toward all creatures*; *anurāgaṁ nāiṣadhe* (MBh.) *affection for the Nishadhan*; *rājā samyag vṛttaḥ sadā tvayi* (MBh.) *the king has always behaved properly toward thee*.

305. The prepositions construed with the locative (1126) stand to it only in the relation of adverbial elements strengthening and directing its meaning.

306. Declensional forms are made by the addition of endings to the stem, or base of inflection.

a. The stem itself, however, in many words and classes of words, is liable to variation, especially assuming a stronger form in some cases and a weaker in others.

b. And between stem and ending are sometimes inserted connecting elements (or what, in the recorded condition of the language, have the aspect of being such).

c. Respecting all of these points, the details of treatment, as exhibited by each class of words or by single words, will be given in the following chapters. Here, however, it is desirable to present a brief general view of them.

307. Endings: Singular. a. In the nominative, the usual masc. and fem. ending is *s*—which, however, is wanting in derivative *ā* and *ī*-stems; it is also euphonically lost (150) by consonant-stems. Neuters in general have no ending, but show in this case the bare stem; *a*-stems alone add *m* (as in the accus. masc.). Among the pronouns, *am* is a frequent masc. and fem. nom. ending (and is found even in du. and pl.); and neuters show a form in *d*.

b. In the accusative, m or am is the masc. and fem. ending—am being added after a consonant and ṛ, and after ī and ū in the radical division, and m elsewhere after vowels. The neuter accusative is like the nominative.

c. The instrumental ending for all genders alike is ā. With final i- and u-vowels, the ā is variously combined, and in the older language it is sometimes lost by contraction with them. Stems in a make the case end in ena (sometimes enā in V.), and those in ā make it end in ayā; but instances occur, in the early language, of immediate addition of ā to both a and ā.

d. The dative ending is in general e; and with it likewise the modes of combination of i and u final are various (and disappearance by contraction not unknown in the oldest language). The a-stems are quite irregular in this case, making it end in āya—excepted is the pronominal element -sma, which combines (apparently) with e to -smāi. In the personal pronouns is found bhyam (or hyam).

e. A fuller ending āi (like gen.-abl. ās and loc. ām: see below) belongs to feminine stems only. It is taken (with interposed y) by the great class of those in derivative ā; also by those in derivative ī, and (as reckoned in the later language) in derivative ū. And later it is allowed to be taken by feminine stems in radical ī and ū, and even by those in i and u: these last have it in the earliest language in only exceptional instances. For the substitution of āi for abl.-gen. ās, see below, h.

f. The ablative has a special ending, d (or t), only in a-stems, masc. and neut., the a being lengthened before it (except in the personal pronouns of 1st and 2d person, which have the same ending at in the pl., and even, in the old language, in the dual). Everywhere else, the ablative is identical with the genitive.

g. The genitive of a-stems (and of one pronominal u-stem, amu) adds sya. Elsewhere, the usual abl.-gen. ending is as; but its irregularities of treatment in combination with a stem-final are considerable. With i and u, it is either directly added (only in the old language), added with interposed n, or fused to es and os respectively. With ṛ (or ar) it yields ur (or us: 169 b).

h. The fuller ās is taken by feminine stems precisely as āi is taken in the dative: see above. But in the language of the Brāhmaṇas and Sūtras, the dative-ending āi is regularly and commonly used instead of ās, both of ablative and of genitive. See 365 d.

i. The locative ending is i in consonant- and ṛ and a-stems (fusing with a to e in the latter). The i- and u-stems (unless the final vowel is saved by an interposed n) make the case end in āu; but the Veda has some relics or traces of the older forms (ay-i [?] and av-i) out of which this appears to have sprung. Vedic locatives

from i-stems end also in ā and ī. The pronominal element -sma makes the locative -smin. Stems in an in the older language often lose the i, and use the bare stem as locative.

j. The ending ām is the locative corerspondent to dat. āi and abl.-gen. ās, and is taken under the same circumstances: see above.

k. The vocative (unless by accent: 314) is distinguished from the nominative only in the singular, and not quite always there. In a-stems, it is the unaltered stem, and so also in most consonant-stems; but neuters in an and in may drop the n; and the oldest language has sometimes a vocative in s from stems in nt and ñs. Stems in ṛ change this to ar. In masc. and fem. i- and u-stems, the case ends respectively in e and o; in neuters, in the same or in i or u. Stems in ā change ā to e; derivative ī and ū are shortened; radical stems in long vowels use the nominative form.

308. Dual. a. The dual has—except so far as the vocative is sometimes distinguished from nominative and accusative by a difference of accent: 314—only three case-forms: one for nom., accus., and voc.; one for instr., dat. and abl.; and one for gen. and loc.

b. But the pronouns of 1st and 2d person in the older language distinguish five dual cases: see 492 b.

c. The masc. and fem. endings for nom.-accus.-voc. is in the later language usually āu; but instead of this the Veda has prevailingly ā. Stems in ā make the case end in e. Stems in i and u, masc. and fem., lengthen those vowels; and derivative ī in the Veda remains regularly unchanged, though later it adds āu. The neuter ending is only ī; with final a this combines to e.

d. The universal ending for the instr.-dat.-abl. is bhyām, before which final a is made long. In the Veda, it is often to be read as two syllables, bhiām.

e. The universal ending of gen.-loc. is os; before this, a and ā alike become e (ai).

309. Plural. a. In the nominative, the general masculine and feminine ending is as. The old language, however, often makes the case āsas instead of ās from a-stems, and in a few examples also from ā-stems. From derivative ī-stems, īs instead of yas is the regular and usual Vedic form. Pronominal a-stems make the mas. nom. in e.

b. The neuter ending (which is accusative also) is in general i; and before this the final of a stem is apt to be strengthened, by prolongation of a vowel, or by insertion of a nasal, or by both. But in the Veda the hence resulting forms in āni, īni, ūni are frequently abbreviated by loss of the ni, and sometimes by further shortening of the preceding vowel.

c. The accusative ending is also as in consonant-stems and in the radical division of ī- and ū-stems (and in the old language even elsewhere). Stems in short vowels lengthen those vowels and add in the masculine n (for ns, of which abundant traces remain), and in the feminine s. In the neuter, this case is like the nominative.

d. In the instrumental, the case-ending is everywhere bhis except in a-stems, where in the later language the case always ends in āis, but in the earlier either in ais or the more regular ebhis (ābhis in the two personal pronouns; and the pronominal stem a [501] makes ebhis only).

e. The dative and ablative have in the plural the same form, with the ending bhyas (in the Veda often bhias), before which only a is altered, becoming e. But the two personal pronouns distinguish the two cases, having for the ablative the singular ending (as above pointed out), and for the dative the peculiar bhyam (almost never in Veda bhiam), which they extend also into the singular.

f. Of the genitive, the universal ending is ām; which (except optionally after radical ī and ū, and in a few scattering Vedic instances) takes after the final vowels an inserted consonant, s in the pronominal declension, n elsewhere; before n, a short vowel is lengthened; before s, a becomes e. In the Veda, it is frequently to be pronounced in two syllables, as a-am.

g. The locative ending is su, without any exceptions, and the only change before it is that of a to e.

h. The vocative, as in the dual, differs from the nominative only by its accent.

310. The normal scheme of endings, as recognized by the native grammarians (and conveniently to be assumed as the basis of special descriptions), is this:

	Singular.		Dual.		Plural.	
	m. f.	n.	m. f.	n.	m. f.	n.
N.	s	-	āu	ī	as	i
A.	am	-	āu	ī	as	i
I.	ā		bhyām		bhis	
D.	e		bhyām		bhyas	
Ab.	as		bhyām		bhyas	
G.	as		os		ām	
L.	i		os		su	

a. It is taken in bulk by the consonantal stems and by the radical divisions of ī- and ū-stems; by other vowel-stems, with more or less considerable variations and modifications. The endings which have almost or quite unbroken range, through stems of all classes, are bhyām and os of the dual, and bhis, bhyas, ām, and su of the plural.

311. Variations of Stem. a. By far the most important matter under this head is the distinction made in large classes of words (chiefly those ending in consonants) between strong and weak stem-forms—a distinction standing in evident connection with the phenomena of accent. In the nom. and accus. sing. and du. and the nom. pl., (the five cases whose endings are never accented: 316 a), the stem often has a stronger or fuller form than in the rest: thus, for example (424), राजानम् rājān-am, राजानौ rājān-āu, राजानस् rājān-as, against राज्ञा rājñ-ā and राजभिस् rājabhis; or (450 b) महान्तम् mahānt-am and (447) अदन्तम् adánt-am against महता mahat-ā and अदता adat-ā. These five, therefore, are called the cases with strong stem, or, briefly, the strong cases; and the rest are called the cases with weak stem, or the weak cases. And the weak cases, again, are in some classes of words to be distinguished into cases of weakest stem, or weakest cases, and cases of middle stem, or middle cases: the former having endings beginning with a vowel (instr., dat., abl.-gen., and loc. sing.; gen.-loc. du.; gen. pl.); the latter, with a consonant (instr.-dat.-abl. du; instr., dat.-abl., and loc. pl.).

b. The class of strong cases, as above defined, belongs only to masculine and feminine stems. In neuter inflection, the only strong cases are the nom.-acc. pl.; while, in those stems that make a distinction of weakest and middle form, the nom.-acc. du. belongs to the weakest class, and the nom.-acc. sing. to the middle: thus, for example, compare (408) प्रत्यङ्घ्रि pratyāñc-i, nom.-acc. pl. neut., and प्रत्यङ्घ्रस् pratyāñc-as, nom. pl. masc.; प्रतीची pratīcī-ī, nom.-acc. du. neut., and प्रतीचीस् pratīcī-ós, gen.-loc. du.; प्रत्यक् pratyák, nom.-acc. sing. neut., and प्रत्यग्भिस् pratyág-bhis, instr. pl.

312. Other variations concern chiefly the final vowel of a stem, and may be mainly left to be pointed out in detail below. Of consequence

enough to mention here is only the guṇa-strengthening of a final i or u, which in the later language is always made before as of nom. pl. and e of dat. sing. in masc. and fem.; in the Veda, it does not always take place; nor is it forbidden in dat. sing. neut. also; and it is seen sometimes in loc. sing. Final ṛ has guṇa-strengthening in loc. sing.

313. Insertions between Stem and Ending. After vowel-stems, an added n often makes its appearance before an ending. The appendage is of least questionable origin in nom.-acc. pl. neut., where the interchange in the old language of the forms of a- and i-stems with those of an- and in-stems is pretty complete; and the u-stems follow their analogy. Elsewhere, it is most widely and firmly established in the gen. pl., where in the great mass of cases, and from the earliest period, the ending is virtually nām after a vowel. In the i- and u-stems of the later language, the instr. sing. of masc. and neut. is separated by its presence from the fem., and it is in the other weakest cases made a usual distinction of neuter forms from masculine; but the aspect of the matter in the Veda is very different: there the appearance of the n is everywhere sporadic; the neuter shows no special inclination to take it, and it is not excluded even from the feminine. In the ending ena from a-stems (later invariable, earlier predominating) its presence appears to have worked the most considerable transformation of original shape.

a. The place of n before gen. pl. ām is taken by s in pronominal a- and ā-stems.

b. The y after ā before the endings āi, ās, and ām is most probably an insertion, such as is made elsewhere (258).

Accent in Declension.

314. a. As a rule without exception, the vocative, if accented at all, is accented on the first syllable.

b. And in the Veda (the case is a rare one), whenever a syllable written as one is to be pronounced as two by restoration of a semivowel to vowel form, the first element only has the vocative accent, and the syllable as written is circumflex (83–4): thus, dyāùs (i.e. díāus) when dissyllabic, but dyāús when monosyllabic; jyâke when for jíâke.

c. But the vocative is accented only when it stands at the beginning of a sentence—or, in verse, at the beginning also of a metrical division or pāda; elsewhere it is accentless or enclitic: thus, ágne yám yajñám paribhúr ási (RV.) *O Agni! whatever offering thou protectest*; but úpa tvā 'gna é 'masi (RV.) *unto thee, Agni, we come*;;.

d. A word, or more than one word, qualifying a vocative—usually an adjective or appositive noun, but sometimes a dependent noun in the genitive (very rarely in any other case)—constitutes, so far as accent is

concerned, a unity with the vocative: thus, (all the examples from RV.) at the beginning of a pāda, with first syllable of the combination accented, *índra bhrātaḥ O brother Indra! rājan soma O king Soma! yáviṣṭha dūta most youthful messenger! hótar yaviṣṭha sukrato most youthful skilled officer! úrjo napāt sahasvan mighty son of strength!*—in the interior of a pāda, without accent, *sómāsa indra girvaṇaḥ the somas, O song-loving Indra! táv aṇvīnā bhadrahastā supāṇi ye, O Aṇvins of propitious and beautiful hands! á rājānā maha ṛtasya gopā hither, ye two kingly guardians of great order!*

e. On the other hand, two or more independent or coordinate vocatives at the beginning of a pāda are regularly and usually both accented: thus, *pítar mātāḥ O father! O mother! ágna índra váruṇa mītra dévāḥ Agni! Indra! Varuṇa! Mitra! gods! çátamūte çátakrato thou of a hundred aids! of a hundred arts! vásiṣṭha çúkra dídivaḥ pávaka best, bright, shining, cleansing one! úrjo napād bhádraçoce son of strength, propitiously bright one!* But the texts offer occasional irregular exceptions both to this and to the preceding rule.

f. For brevity, the vocative dual and plural will be given in the paradigms below along with the nominative, without taking the trouble to specify in each instance that, if the latter be accented elsewhere than on the first syllable, the accent of the vocative is different.

315. As regards the other cases, rules for change of accent in declension have to do only with monosyllables and with stems of more than one syllable which are accented on the final; for, if a stem be accented on the penult, or any other syllable further back—as is *sárpant*, *vári*, *bhágavant*, *sumánas*, *sahásravāja*—the accent remains upon that syllable through the whole inflection (except in the vocative, as explained in the preceding paragraph).

a. The only exceptions are a few numeral stems: see 483.

316. Stems accented on the final (including monosyllables) are subject to variations of accent in declension chiefly in virtue of the fact that some of the endings have, while others have not, or have in less degree, a tendency themselves to take the accent. Thus:

a. The endings of nominative and accusative singular and dual and of the nominative plural (that is to say, of the strong cases: 311) have no tendency to take the accent away from the stem, and are therefore only accented when a final vowel of the stem and the vowel of the ending are blended together into single vowel or diphthong. Thus, from *dattá* come *dattāú* (= *dattá* + *āu*) and *dattás* (= *dattá* + *as*); but from *nadí* come *nadyāù* (= *nadí* + *āu*) and *nadyàs* (= *nadí* + *as*).

b. All other endings sometimes take the accent; but those beginning with a vowel (i.e. of the weakest cases: 311) do so more readily than those beginning with a consonant (i.e. of the middle cases: 311). Thus, from *nāús* come *nāvá* and *nāubhís*; from *mahánt*, however, come *mahatá* but *mahádbhis*.

The general rules of accent, then, may be thus stated:

317. In the declension of monosyllabic stems, the accent falls upon the ending in all the weak cases (without distinction of middle and weakest): thus, *nāvā́*, *nāubhyā́m*, *nāvā́m*, *nāuṣú́*; *vācí*, *vāgbhís*, *vācā́m*, *vākṣú́*.

a. But some monosyllabic stems retain the accent throughout: thus, *góbhis*, *gāvā́m*, *góṣu*. For such cases, see below, 350, 361 c, d, 372, 390, 427. And in the acc. pl. the stem is even oftener accented than the ending, some words also admitting either accentuation.

318. Of polysyllabic stems ending in consonants, only a few shift the accent to the ending, and that in the weakest (not the middle) cases. Such are:

a. Present participles in *ánt* or *át*: thus, from *tudánt*, *tudatá́* and *tudatós* and *tudatám*; but *tudádbhyā́m* and *tudátsu*.

b. A few adjectives having the form of such participles, as *mahatá́*, *bṛhatás*.

c. Stems of which the accented final loses its syllable character by syncope of the vowel: thus, *majjñá́*, *mūrdhné*, *dāmnás* (from *majján* etc.: 423).

d. Other sporadic cases will be noticed under the different declensions.

e. Case-forms used adverbially sometimes show a changed accent: see 1110 ff.

319. Of polysyllabic stems ending in accented short vowels, the final of the stem retains the accent if it retains its syllabic identity: thus, *datténa* and *dattā́ya* from *dattá*; *agnínā* and *agnā́ye* from *agní*; and also *dattébhyas*, *agníbhyas*, and so on. Otherwise, the accent is on the ending: and that, whether the final and the ending are combined into one, as in *dattā́is*, *dhenā́ú*, *agnín*, *dhenús*, and so on; or whether the final is changed into a semivowel before the ending: thus, *dhenvá́*, *pitrá́*, *jāmyós*, *bāhvós*, etc.

a. But *ām* of the gen. pl. from stems in *í* and *ú* and *ṛ* may, and in the older language always does, take the accent, though separated by *n* from the stem: thus, *agnínā́m*, *dhenūnā́m*, *pitṛṇā́m*. In RV., even derivative *ī*-stems show usually the same shift: thus, *bahvīnā́m*. Of stems in *á*, only numerals (483 a) follow this rule: thus, *saptānā́m*, *daṣṇā́m*.

320. Root-words in *ī* and *ū* as final members of compounds retain the accent throughout, not shifting it to any of the endings. And in the older language there are polysyllable words in long final vowels which follow in this respect as in others the analogy of the root-declension (below, 355 ff.). Apart from these, the treatment of stems in derivative long vowels is, as regards accent, the same as those in short vowels—save that the tone is not thrown forward upon the ending in gen. plural.

CHAPTER V.

NOUNS AND ADJECTIVES.

321. a. The accordance in inflection of substantive and adjective stems is so complete that the two cannot be separated in treatment from one another.

b. They may be classified, for convenience of description, as follows:

I. Stems in अ a;

II. Stems in इ i and उ u;

III. Stems in आ ā, ई ī, and ऊ ū: namely, A. radical-stems (and a few others inflected like them); B. derivative stems;

IV. Stems in ऋ ṛ (or अर् ar);

V. Stems in consonants.

c. There is nothing absolute in this classification and arrangement; it is merely believed to be open to as few objections as any other. No general agreement has been reached among scholars as to the number and order of Sanskrit declensions. The stems in a are here treated first because of the great predominance of the class.

322. The division-line between substantive and adjective, always an uncertain one in early Indo-European language, is even more wavering in Sanskrit than elsewhere. There are, however, in all the declensions as divided above—unless we except the stems in ṛ or ar—words which are distinctly adjectives; and, in general, they are inflected precisely like noun-stems of the same final: only, among consonant-stems, there are certain sub-classes of adjective stems with peculiarities of inflection to which there is among nouns nothing corresponding. But there are also two considerable classes of adjective-compounds, requiring special notice: namely—

323. Compound adjectives having as final member a bare verbal root, with the value of a present participle (383 a ff.): thus, su-dṛ̥ṣ well-looking; pra-búdh foreknowing; a-drúh not hating; veda-vid Veda-knowing; vṛtra-hán Vritra-slaying; upastha-sád sitting in the lap. Every root is liable to be used in this way, and such compounds are not infrequent in all ages of the language: see chapter on Compounds, below (1269).

a. This class is essentially only a special class of compound adjectives, since in the earliest Veda the simple as well as the compounded root was sometimes used adjectively. But the compounded root was from the beginning much more often so used, and the later the more exclusively, so that practically the class is a separate and important one.

324. Compound adjectives having a noun as final member, but obtaining an adjective sense secondarily, by having the idea of *possession* added, and being inflected as adjectives in the three genders (1293 ff.). Thus, *prajākāmā desire of progeny*, whence the adjective *prajākāma*, meaning *desirous* (i.e. *having desire*) *of progeny*; *sabhārya* (sa+bhāryā) *having one's wife along*; and so on.

a. In a few cases, also, the final noun is syntactically object of the preceding member (1309–10): thus, *atimātra immoderate* (ati māttram *beyond measure*); *yāvayāddveṣas driving away enemies*.

325. Hence, under each declension, we have to notice how a root or a noun-stem of that declension is inflected when final member of an adjective compound.

a. As to accent, it needs only to be remarked here that a root-word ending a compound has the accent, but (320) loses the peculiarity of monosyllabic accentuation, and does not throw the tone forward upon the ending (except añc in certain old forms: 410).

Declension I.

Stems (masculine and neuter) in अ a.

326. a. This declension contains the majority of all the declined stems of the language.

b. Its endings deviate more widely than any others from the normal.

327. Endings: Singular. a. The nom. masc. has the normal ending s.

b. The acc. (masc. and neut.) adds m (not am); and this form has the office also of nom. neuter.

c. The instr. changes a to ena uniformly in the later language; and even in the oldest Vedic this is the predominant ending (in RV., eight ninths of all cases). Its final is in Vedic verse frequently made long (enā). But the normal ending ā — thus, *yajñā*, *suhāvā*, *mahitvā* (for *yajñéna* etc.) — is also not rare in the Veda.

d. The dat. has āya (as if by adding aya to a), alike in all ages of the language.

e. The abl. has t (or doubtless d: it is impossible from the evidence of the Sanskrit to tell which is the original form of the ending),

before which *ā* is made long: this ending is found in no other noun-declension, and elsewhere only in the personal pronouns (of all numbers).

f. The gen. has *syā* added to the final *a*; and this ending is also limited to *a*-stems (with the single exception of the pronoun *amúṣya*: 501). Its final *a* is in only three cases made long in the Veda; and its *y* is vocalized (*asia*) almost as rarely.

g. The loc. ends in *e* (as if by combining the normal ending *i* with the final of the stem), without exception.

h. The voc. is the bare stem.

328. Dual. a. The dual endings in general are the normal ones.

b. The nom., acc., and voc. masc. end in the later language always in *āu*. In the Veda, however, the usual ending is simple *ā* (in RV., in seven eighths of the occurrences). The same cases in the neut. end in *e*, which appears to be the result of fusion of the stem-final with the normal ending *ī*.

c. The instr., dat., and abl. have *bhyām* (in only one or two Vedic instances resolved into *bhiām*), with the stem-final lengthened to *ā* before it.

d. The gen. and loc. have a *y* inserted after the stem-final before *os* (or as if the *a* had been changed to *e*). In one or two (doubtful) Vedic instances (as also in the pronominal forms *enos* and *yos*), *os* is substituted for the final *a*.

329. Plural. a. The nom. masc. has in the later language the normal ending *as* combined with the final *a* to *ās*. But in the Veda the ending *āsas* instead is frequent (one third of the occurrences in RV., but only one twenty-fifth in the peculiar parts of AV.).

b. The acc. masc. ends in *ān* (for earlier *āns*, of which abundant traces are left in the Veda, and, under the disguise of apparent euphonic combination, even in the later language: see above, 208 ff.).

c. The nom. and acc. neut. have in the later language always the ending *āni* (like the *an*-stems: see 421; or else with *n*, as in the gen. pl., before normal *i*). But in the Veda this ending alternates with simple *ā* (which in RV. is to *āni* as three to two, in point of frequency; in AV., as three to four).

d. The instr. ends later always in *āis*; but in the Veda is found abundantly the more normal form *ebhis* (in RV., nearly as frequently as *āis*; in AV., only one fifth as frequent).

e. The dat. and abl. have *bhyas* as ending, with *e* instead of the final *a* before it (as in the Vedic instr. *ebhis*, the loc. pl., the gen. loc. du. [?], and the instr. sing.). The resolution into *ebhias* is not infrequent in the Veda.

f. The gen. ends in *ānām*, the final *a* being lengthened and having *n* inserted before the normal ending. The *ā* of the ending is not seldom (in less than half the instances) to be read as two syllables, *aam*: opinions are divided as to whether the resolution is historical or metric only. A

very small number (half-a-dozen) of examples of simple ām as ending instead of ānām occur in RV.

g. The loc. ends in eṣu—that is to say, with the normal ending, before which the stem-final is changed to e (with consequent change of s to ṣ: 180).

h. Of accent, in this declension, nothing requires to be said; the syllable accented in the stem retains its own accent throughout.

330. Examples of declension. As examples of the inflection of a-stems may be taken काम kāma m. *love*; देव devá m. *god*; आस्य āsyà n. *mouth*.

Singular:			
N.	कामस् kāmas	देवस् devás	आस्यम् āsyām
A.	कामम् kāmam	देवम् devám	आस्यम् āsyām
I.	कामेन kāmena	देवेन devéna	आस्येन āsyèna
D.	कामाय kā māya	देवाय devāya	आस्याय āsyāya
Ab.	कामात् kā māt	देवात् devāt	आस्यात् āsyāt
G.	कामस्य kā masya	देवस्य devāsya	आस्यस्य āsyāsya
L.	कामे kā me	देवे devé	आस्ये āsyè
V.	काम kā ma	देव dé va	आस्य ā sya
Dual:			
N. A. V.	कामौ kā māu	देवौ devāú	आस्ये āsyè
I. D. Ab.	कामाभ्याम् kā mābhyām	देवाभ्याम् devābhyām	आस्याभ्याम् āsyābhyām
G. L.	कामयोस् kā mayos	देवयोस् devāyos	आस्ययोस् āsyāyos
Plural:			
N. V.	कामास् kā mās	देवास् devās	आस्यानि āsyāni

A.	कामान् kāmān	देवान् devān	आस्यानि āsyāni
I.	कामैस् kāmāis	देवैस् devāis	आस्यैस् āsyāis
D. Ab.	कामेभ्यस् kāmebhyas	देवेभ्यस् devēbhyas	आस्येभ्यस् āsyēbhyas
G.	कामानाम् kāmānām	देवानाम् devānām	आस्यानाम् āsyānām
L.	कामेषु kāmeṣu	देवेषु devēṣu	आस्येषु āsyēṣu

Examples of the peculiar Vedic forms are:

- Sing.: instr. raváthenā, yajñā (such genitive forms as áçvasiā are purely sporadic).
- Du.: nom. etc. masc. devā́; gen.-loc. pastyòs (stem pastyà).
- Pl.: nom.-voc. masc. devā́sas; neut. yugá; instr. devébhis; gen. caráthām, devánaam.

331. Among nouns, there are no irregularities in this declension. For irregular numeral bases in a (or an), see 483-4. For the irregularities of pronominal stems in a, which are more or less fully shared also by a few adjectives of pronominal kindred, see the chapter on Pronouns (495 ff.).

Adjectives.

332. Original adjectives in a are an exceedingly large class, the great majority of all adjectives. There is, however, no such thing as a feminine stem in a; for the feminine, the a is changed to ā—or often, though far less often, to ī; and its declension is then like that of senā or devī (364). An example of the complete declension of an adjective a-stem in the three genders will be given below (368).

a. Whether a masc.-neut. stem in a shall form its feminine in ā or in ī is a question to be determined in great part only by actual usage, and not by grammatical rule. Certain important classes of words, however, can be pointed out which take the less common ending ī of the feminine: thus, 1. the (very numerous) secondary derivatives in a with vṛddhi of the first syllable (1204): e.g. āmitrá -trī́, mánuṣa -ṣī́, pāvamāná -nī́, pāurnamāsá -sī́; 2. primary derivatives in ana with accent on the radical syllable (1150): e.g. códana -nī́, saṁgráhaṇa -ṇī́, subhāgaṁkáraṇa -nī́; 3. primary derivatives in a, with strengthening of the radical syllable, having a quasi-participial meaning: e.g. divākará -rī́, avakrāmá -mī́,

rathavāhá -hí (but there are many exceptions); 4. secondary derivatives in *maya* (1225) and *tana* (1245 e): e.g. *ayasmáya* -yī; *adyatana* -nī; 5. most ordinal numbers (487 h): e.g. *pañcamá* -mí, *navadaśá* -čí, *triṇṇattamá* -mí. Not a few words make the feminine in either *ā* or *ī*: e.g. *kévalā* or -lī, *ugrá* or -rí, *pāpā* or -pí, *rāmā* or -mí; but ordinarily only one of these is accepted as regular.

333. There are no verbal roots ending in *a*. But *a* is sometimes substituted for the final *ā* of a root (and, rarely, for a final *an*), and it is then inflected like an ordinary adjective in *a* (see below, 354).

334. a. A noun ending in *a*, when occurring as final member of an adjective compound, is inflected like an original adjective in *a*, making its feminine likewise in *ā* or *ī* (367).

b. For the most part, an adjective compound having a noun in *a* as final member makes its feminine in *ā*. But there are numerous exceptions, certain nouns taking, usually or always, *ī* instead. Some of the commonest of these are as follows: *akṣa* *eye* (e.g. *lohitākṣī*, *dvyakṣī*, *gavākṣī*), *parṇa* *leaf* (e.g. *tilaparnī*, *saptaparnī*; but *ekaparnā*), *mukha* *face* (e.g. *kṛṣṇamukhī*, *dur mukhī*; but *trimukhā* etc.), *aṅga* *limb, body* (e.g. *anavadyāṅgī*, *sarvāṅgī*; but *caturaṅgā* etc.), *keśa* *hair* (e.g. *sukeṣī*, *muktakeṣī* or -ṣā, etc.), *karṇa* *ear* (e.g. *mahākarṇī*; but *gokarṇā* etc.), *udara* *belly* (e.g. *lambodarī*), *mūla* *root* (e.g. *pañcamūlī*; but oftener *ṣatāmūlā* etc.). The very great majority of such nouns (as the examples indicate) signify parts of the body.

c. On the other hand, a feminine noun ending in derivative *ā* shortens its final to *a* to form a masculine and neuter base: see 367 c.

d. In frequent cases, nouns of consonant ending are, as finals of compounds, transferred to the *a*-declension by adding suffix *a* (1209 a) or *ka* (1222).

Declension II.

Stems (of all genders) in इ i and उ u.

335. The stems in इ i and उ u are inflected in so close accordance with one another that they cannot be divided into two separate declensions. They are of all the three genders, and tolerably numerous—those in इ i more numerous than those in उ u, especially in the feminine (there are more neuters in उ u than in इ i).

a. The endings of this declension also differ frequently and widely from the normal, and the irregularities in the older language are numerous.

336. Endings: Singular. a. The nom. masc. and fem. adds to the stem the normal ending *s*. The nom. and acc. neut. is the bare stem, without ending. In the Veda, the final *u* of a few neuters is lengthened (248 b): thus, *urú*, *purú*.

b. The acc. masc. and fem. adds *m* to the stem. Vedic forms in *iam* and *uam*, and, with *n*, *inam* and *unam*, are excessively rare, and doubtful.

c. The instr. fem. in the later language takes the normal ending *ā* simply, while the masc. and neut. insert *n* before it, making *inā* and *unā*. But in the Veda, forms in *yā* and *vā* (or *iā* and *uā*) are not infrequent in masc. and neut. also; while *inā* is found, very rarely, as a fem. ending. Moreover, fem. *yā* is often (in two thirds of the occurrences) contracted to *ī*; and this is even sometimes shortened to *i*. An adverbial instr. in *uyā* from half-a-dozen stems in *u* occurs.

d. The dat. masc. and fem. gunates the final of the stem before the ending *e*, making *aye* and *ave*. These are the prevailing endings in the Veda likewise; but the more normal *ye* and *ve* (or *ue*) also occur; and the fem. has in this case, as in the instr., sometimes the form *ī* for *ie*. In the later language, the neuter is required in this, as in all the other weakest cases, to insert *n* before the normal ending: but in the Veda such forms are only sporadic; and the neut. dat. has also the forms *aye*, *ve*, *ave*, like the other genders.

e. The abl. and gen. masc. and fem. have regularly, both earlier and later, the ending *s* with gunated vowel before it: thus, *es*, *os*; and in the Veda, the neut. forms the cases in the same way; although *unas*, required later, is also not infrequent (*inas* does not occur). But the normal forms *yas* (or *ias*) and *vas* (or *uas*) are also frequent in both masc. and neut. As masc. ending, *unas* occurs twice in RV. The anomalous *didyót* (so TS.; in the corresponding passages, *vidyót* VS., *didyāut* K., *didivās* MS.) is of doubtful character.

f. The loc. masc. and fem. has for regular ending in the later language *āu*, replacing both finals, *i* and *u*. And this is in the Veda also the most frequent ending; but, beside it, the *i*-stems form (about half as often in RV.) their loc. in *ā*: thus, *agnā*; and this is found once even in the neuter. The RV. has a number of examples of masc. and neut. locatives in *avi* (the normal ending and the *u* gunated before it) from *u*-stems; and certain doubtful traces of a corresponding *ayi* from *i*-stems. Half-a-dozen locatives in *ī* (regarded by the Vedic grammarians as *pragrhya* or uncombinable: 138 d) are made from *i*-stems. The later language makes the neuter locative in *ini* and *uni*; but the former never occurs in the oldest texts, and the latter only very rarely.

g. The later grammar allows the dat., abl.-gen., and loc. fem. to be formed at will with the fuller fem. terminations of long-vowel stems, namely *āi*, *ās* (for which, in *Brāhmaṇa* etc., *āi* is substituted: 307 h), *ām*. Such forms are quite rare in the oldest language even from *i*-stems (less than 40 occurrences altogether in RV.; three times as many in AV.); and from *u*-stems they are almost unknown (five in RV. and AV.).

h. The voc. gunates the final of the stem, in masc. and fem., alike in the earlier and in the later language. In the neut., it is later allowed to be either of the same form or the unaltered stem; and this was probably the usage in the older time also; not instances enough quotable to determine the question (AV. has u once, and VS. o once).

337. Dual. a. The later and earlier language agree in making the nom.-acc.-voc. masc. and fem. by lengthening the final of the stem. The same cases in the neuter (according to the rules given above) end later in *inī* and *unī*; but these endings are nearly unknown in the Veda (as, indeed, the cases are of only rare occurrence): AV. has *inī* twice (RV. perhaps once); VS. has *unī* once; RV. has *uī* from one u-stem, and *ī*, once shortened to *i*, from one or two i-stems.

b. The unvarying ending of instr.-dat.-abl., in all genders, is *bhyām* added to the unchanged stem.

c. The gen.-loc. of all ages add *os* to the stem in masc. and fem.; in the neut., the later language interposes, as elsewhere in the weakest cases, a *n*; probably in the earlier Vedic the form would be like that of the other genders; but the only occurrence noted is one *unos* in AV.

338. Plural. a. The nom.-voc. masc. and fem. adds the normal ending *as* to the gunated stem-final, making *ayas* and *avas*. The exceptions in the Veda are very few: one word (*ari*) has *ias* in both genders, and a few feminines have *īs* (like *ī*-stems); a very few u-stems have *uas*. The neut. nom.-acc. ends later in *īni* and *ūni* (like *āni* from a: 329 c); but the Veda has *ī* and *i* (about equally frequent) much oftener than *īni*; and *ū* and (more usually) *u*, more than half as often as *ūni*.

b. The accus. masc. ends in *īn* and *ūn*, for older *īns* and *ūs*, of which plain traces remain in the Veda in nearly half the instances of occurrence, and even not infrequently in the later language, in the guise of phonetic combination (208 ff.). The accus. fem. ends in *īs* and *ūs*. But both masc. and fem. forms in *ias* and *uas* are found sparingly in the Veda.

c. The instr. of all genders adds *bhis* to the stem.

d. The dat.-abl. of all genders adds *bhyas* (in V., almost never *bhias*) to the stem.

e. The gen. of all genders is made alike in *īnām* and *ūnām* (of which the *ā* is not seldom, in the Veda, to be resolved into *aam*). Stems with accented final in the later language may, and in the earlier always do, throw forward the accent upon the ending.

f. The loc. of all genders adds *su* (as *ṣu*: 180) to the stem-final.

g. The accent is in accordance with the general rules already laid down, and there are no irregularities calling for special notice.

399. Examples of declension. As models of i-stems may be taken अग्नि *agní* m. *fire*; गति *gáti* f. *gait*; वारि *vāri* n. *water*.

Singular:			
N.	अग्निस् agnís	गतिस् gátis	वारि vāri
A.	अग्निम् agním	गतिम् gátim	वारि vāri
I.	अग्निना agnínā	गत्या gátyā	वारिणा vāriṇā
D.	अग्नये agnáye	गतये, गत्यै gátaye, gátyai	वारिणे vāriṇe
Ab. G.	अग्नेस् agnés	गतेस्, गत्यास् gátes, gátyās	वारिणस् vāriṇas
L.	अग्नौ agnāú	गतौ, गत्याम् gátāu, gátyām	वारिणि vāriṇi
V.	अग्ने ágne	गते gáte	वारि, वारे vāri, vāre
Dual:			
N. A. V.	अग्नी agní	गती gátī	वारिणी vāriṇī
I. D. Ab.	अग्निभ्याम् agnibhyām	गतिभ्याम् gátibhyām	वारिभ्याम् vāribhyām
G. L.	अग्न्योस् agnyós	गत्योस् gátyos	वारिणोस् vāriṇos
Plural:			
N. V.	अग्नयस् agnáyas	गतयस् gátayas	वारीणि vāriṇi
A.	अग्नीन् agnín	गतीस् gátīs	वारीणी vāriṇī
I.	अग्निभिस् agnibhis	गतिभिस् gátibhis	वारिभिस् vāribhis
D. Ab.	अग्निभ्यस् agnibhyas	गतिभ्यस् gátibhyas	वारिभ्यस् vāribhyas
G.	अग्नीनाम् agnínām	गतीनाम् gátinām	वारीणाम् vāriṇām
L.	अग्निषु agnīṣu	गतिषु gātiṣu	वारिषु vāriṣu

340. In order to mark more plainly the absence in Vedic language of some of the forms which are common later, all the forms of Vedic occurrence are added below, and in the order of their frequency.

- a. Singular. Nom. agnís etc., as above.
- b. Acc.: masc. agnīm, yayíam, ūrmīṇam (?); fem. and neut. as above.
- c. Instr.: masc. agnínā, rayyā́ and ūrmīā́; fem. ácittī, ūtiā́, matyā́, suvṛktī, dhāsínā; neut. wanting.
- d. Dat.: masc. agnáye; fem. tujáye, ūtí, turyāí; neut. çúcaye.
- e. Gen.-abl.: masc. agnés, ávyas, ariás; fem. ádites, hetýās and bhúmiās; neut. bhúres.
- f. Loc.: masc. agnāú, agná, ājáyi (?); fem. āgatāu, úditā, dhānasātayi (?), védī, bhúmyām; neut. apratā́, saptáraçmāu.
- g. Voc.: as above (neut wanting).
- h. Dual. Nom.-acc.-voc.: masc. hárī; fem. yuvatí; neut. çúcī, máhi, hárīṇī (?).
- i. Instr.-dat.-abl.: as above.
- j. Gen.-loc.: masc. hários; fem. yuvatyós and jāmiós; neut. wanting.
- k. Plural. Nom.: masc. agnáyas; fem. matáyas, bhúmīs; neut. çúcī, bhúri, bhúrīṇi.
- l. Accus.: masc. agnín; fem. kṣítīs, çúcayas (?).
- m. Instr., dat.-abl, and loc., as above.
- n. Gen.: masc. fem. kavīnām, íṣṇaam etc. (neut. wanting).

341. As models of u-stems may be taken शत्रु çátru m. *enemy*; धेनु dhenú f. *cow*; मधु mádhu n. *honey*.

Singular:			
N.	शत्रुस् çátrus	धेनुस् dhenús	मधु mádhu
A.	शत्रुम् çátrum	धेनुम् dhenúm	मधु mádhu
I.	शत्रुणा çátruṇā	धेन्वा dhenvá	मधुना mádhunā
D.	शत्रवे çátrave	धेनवे, धेन्वै dhenáve, dhenvái	मधुने mádhune
Ab. G.	शत्रोस् çátros	धेनोस्, धेन्वास् dhenós, dhenvās	मधुनस् mádhunas
L.	शत्रौ çátrāu	धेनौ, धेन्वाम् dhenāú, dhenvām	मधुनि mádhuni
	शत्रो	धेनो	मधु, मधो

V.	çátro	dhéno	mádhu, mádho
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Dual:			
N. A. V.	शत्रू çátrū	धेनू dhenú	मधुनी mádhunī
I. D. Ab.	शत्रुभ्याम् çátrubhyām	धेनुभ्याम् dhenúbhyām	मधुभ्याम् mádhubhyām
G. L.	शत्र्वोस् çátrvos	धेन्वोस् dhenvós	मधुनोस् mádhunos
Plural:			
N. V.	शत्रवस् çátravas	धेनवस् dhenávas	मधूनि mádhūni
A.	शत्रून् çátrūn	धेनूस् dhenūs	मधूनि mádhūni
I.	शत्रुभिस् çátrubhis	धेनुभिस् dhenúbhis	मधुभिस् mádhubhis
D. Ab.	शत्रुभ्यस् çátrubhyas	धेनुभ्यस् dhenúbhyas	मधुभ्यस् mádhubhyas
G.	शत्रूणाम् çátrūṇām	धेनूनाम् dhenūnām	मधूनाम् mádhūnām
L.	शत्रुषु çátruṣu	धेनुषु dhenúṣu	मधुषु mádhūṣu

342. The forms of Vedic occurrence are given here for the u-stems in the same manner as for the i-stems above.

a. Singular. Nom.: masc. and fem. as above; neut. urú, urú.

b. Accus.: masc. ketúm, ábhīruam, sucetúnam (?); fem. dhenúm.

c. Instr.: masc. ketúnā, paçvā and krátuā; fem. ádhenuā and panvā, āçuyā; neut. mádhunā, mádhvā.

d. Dat.: masc. ketáve, çīçve; fem. çárove, íšvāi; neut. páçve (?), uráve, mádhune.

e. Abl.-gen.: masc. manyós, pitvás, cāruṇas; fem. síndhos, íšvās; neut. mádhvas and mádhvas, mádhos, mádhunas.

f. Loc.: masc. pūrāú, sūnávi; fem. síndhāu, rájjvām; neut. sánāu, sánavi, sáno, sánuni.

g. Voc.: as above.

h. Dual. Nom.-acc.-voc.: masc. and fem. as above; neut. urví, jánuni.

i. Instr.-dat.-abl.: as above.

j. Gen.-loc.: as above (but vos or uos).

k. Plural. Nom.: masc. řbhávas, mádhvas and mádhvas; fem. dhenávas, çatakratvas; neut. purúṇi, purú, purú.

l. Accus.: masc. ṛtún, paçvās; fem. íṣūs, mádhvas.

m. Instr., dat.-abl., and loc., as above; also gen. (but with the resolution ūnaam in part).

343. Irregular declension. There are no irregular u-stems, and only a very few i-stems.

a. Sákhī m. *friend* has for the five strong cases a peculiarly strengthened base (vriddhied), namely sákhāy, which in the nom. sing. is reduced to sákhā (without ending), and in the other cases takes the normal endings. The instr. and dat. sing. have the normal endings simply, without inserted n or guṇa; the abl.-gen. sing. adds us; and the loc. sing. adds āu: the rest is like agní. Thus:

Sing. sákhā, sákhāyam, sákhyā, sákhye, sákhyus, sákhyāu, sákhe; Du. sákhāyāu, sákhibhyām, sákhyos; Pl. sákhāyas, sákhīn, etc. etc.

b. The Veda has usually sákhāyā du., and often resolves the y to i, in sákhiā, sákhius, etc. The compounds are usually declined like the simple word, unless (1315 b) sakha be substituted.

c. There is a corresponding fem., sakhī (declined like devī: 364); but the forms of sakhi are also sometimes found used with feminine value.

d. Pāti m. is declined regularly in composition, and when it has the meaning *lord, master*; when uncompounded and when meaning *husband*, it is inflected like sákhi in the instr., dat., abl.-gen., and loc. sing., forming pátyā, pátye, pátyus, pátyāu. There are occasional instances of confusion of the two classes of forms.

e. For pati as the final member of a possessive compound is regularly and usually substituted patnī in the fem.: thus, jīvapatnī *having a living husband*; dāsapatnī *having a barbarian for master*.

f. Jāni f. *wife* has the gen. sing. jānyus in the Veda.

g. Arí *eager, greedy, hostile* has in the Veda aryás in pl. nom. and accus., masc. and fem. Its accus. sing. is arím or aryám.

h. Ví *bird* has in RV. the nom. vés (beside vís). In the plural it accents víbhis, víbhyas, but vīnām.

i. The stems ákṣi *eye*, ásthi *bone*, dádhi *curds*, and sákthi *thigh*, are defective, their forms exchanging with and complementing forms from stems in án (akṣán etc.): see the stems in an, below (431).

j. The stem pathí *road* is used to make up part of the inflection of páthan: see below, 433.

k. Króṣṭu m. *jackal* lacks the strong cases, for which the corresponding forms of kroṣṭí are substituted.

Adjectives.

344. Original adjectives stems in i are few; those in u are much more numerous (many

derivative verb-stems forming a participial ad-

jective in u). Their inflection is like that of nouns, and has been included in the rules given above. In those weak cases, however—namely, the dat., abl.-gen., and loc. sing., and the gen.-loc. dual—in which neuter nouns differ from masculines in the later language by an inserted n (we have seen above that this difference does not exist in the Veda), the neuter adjective is allowed to take either form. The stem is the same for masculine and neuter, and generally (and allowably always) for feminine also.

a. There are a few instances of a feminine noun in ī standing (sometimes with changed accent) beside a masculine in i: thus, *krími* m., *krimí* f.; *sákhi* (343 a) m., *sakhí* f.; *dundubhí* m., *dundubhī* f., *dhúni* m., *dhunī* f.; *çakúni* m., *çakunī* or *-ni* f. In the later language, especially, there is a very frequent interchange of i and ī as finals of the same stem. No adjective in i makes a regular feminine in ī.

b. With stems in u the case is quite different. While the feminine may, and in part does, end in u, like the masculine and neuter, a special feminine-stem is often made by lengthening the u to ū, or also by adding ī; and for some stems a feminine is formed in two of these three ways, or even in all the three: thus, *kārū*, *-dipsú*, *çundhyú*, *carīṣṇú*, *vacasyú*; *-aṇvī*, *urvī*, *gurvī*, *pūrvī* (with a prolongation of u before r: compare 245 b), *bahvī*, *prabhvī*, *raghvī*, *sādhvī*, *svādvī*; *-pṛthú* and *pṛthvī*, *vibhú* and *vibhvī*, *mṛdú* and *mṛdvī*, *laghu* and *laghvī*, *vásu* and *vāsvī*; *babhrú* and *babhrū*, *bībhatsú* and *bībhatsú*, *bhīrú* and *bhīrū*;—*tanú* and *tanú* and *tanvī*, *phalgú* and *phalgú* and *phalgvī*, *mādhū* and *madhú* and *mādhvī*. There are also some feminine noun-stems in ū standing (usually with changed accent) beside masculines in u: thus, *ágru* m., *agrú* f.; *kádrū* m., *kadrú* f.; *gúggulu* m., *guggulú* f.; *jatu* m., *jatú* f.; *pṛdāku* m., *pṛdākú* f.

345. Roots ending in i or u (or ṛ: 376 b) regularly add a t when used as root-words or as root-finals of compounds; and hence there are no adjectives of the root-class in this declension.

a. Yet, in the Veda, a few words ending in a short radical u are declined as if this were suffixal: thus, *ásmṛtadhru*, *suṣṭú*; and the AV. has *pṛtanājī* (once). Roots in ū sometimes also shorten ū to u: thus, *prabhú*, *vibhú*, etc. (354); *go* (361 e) becomes *gu* in composition; and *re* perhaps becomes *ri* (361 e); while roots in ā sometimes apparently weaken ā to i (in *-dhi* from *√dhā* etc.: 1155).

346. Compound adjectives having nouns of this declension as final members are inflected in general like original adjectives of the same endings.

a. But in such compounds a final i or u is sometimes lengthened to form a feminine stem: thus, *suçroṇī*, *svayonī* or *-ni*, *-gātrayaṣṭī* or *-ṭi*; *vāmorū* or *-ru*, *durhaṇū* or *-ṇu*, *varatanū*, *māṭṛbandhū*; and RV. has *áciçvī* from *çīçu*.

Declension III.

Stems in long vowels: आ ā, ई ī, ऊ ū.

347. The stems ending in long vowels fall into two well-marked classes or divisions: A. monosyllabic stems—mostly bare roots—and their compounds, with a comparatively small number of others inflected like them; B. derivative feminine stems in आ ā and ई ī, with a small number in ऊ ū which in the later language have come to be inflected like them. The latter division is by far the larger and more important, since most feminine adjectives, and considerable classes of feminine nouns, ending in आ ā or ई ī, belong to it.

A. Root-words, and those inflected like them.

348. The inflection of these stems is by the normal endings throughout, or in the manner of consonant-stems (with अम् am, not म् m, in the accus. sing.); peculiarities like those of the other vowel-declensions are wanting. The simple words are, as nouns, with few exceptions feminine; as adjectives (rarely), and in adjective compounds, they are alike in masculine and feminine forms. They may, for convenience of description, be divided into the following subclasses:

1. Root-words, or monosyllables having the aspect of such. Those in ā are so rare that it is hardly possible to make up a whole scheme of forms in actual use; those in ī and ū are more numerous, but still very few.
2. Compounds having such words, or other roots with long final vowels, as last member.
3. Polysyllabic words, of various origin and character, including in the Veda many which later are transferred to other declensions.
4. As an appendix to this class we may most conveniently describe the half-dozen stems, mostly of regular inflection, ending in diphthongs.

349. Monosyllabic stems. Before the endings beginning with vowels, final *ī* is changed to *iy* and *ū* to *uv*; while final *ā* is dropped altogether, except in the strong cases, and in the acc. pl., which is like the nominative (according to the grammarians, *ā* is lost here also: no instances of the occurrence of such a form appear to be quotable). Stems in *ī* and *ū* are in the later language allowed to take optionally the fuller endings *āi*, *ās*, *ām* in the singular (dat., abl.-gen., loc.); but no such forms are ever met with in the Veda (except *bhiyāi* [?], RV., once). Before *ām* of gen. pl., *n* may or may not be inserted; in the Veda it is regularly inserted, with a single exception (*dhiyām*, once). The vocative is like the nominative in the singular as well as the other numbers; but instances of its occurrence in uncompounded stems are not found in the Veda, and must be extremely rare everywhere. The earlier Vedic dual ending is *ā* instead of *āu*.

350. To the *ī*- and *ū*-stems the rules for monosyllabic accent apply: the accent is thrown forward upon the endings in all the weak cases except the accus. pl., which is like the nom. But the *ā*-stems appear (the instances are extremely few) to keep the accent upon the stem throughout.

351. Examples of declension. As models of monosyllabic inflection we may take जा *jā* f. *progeny*; धी *dhī* f. *thought*; and भू *bhū* f. *earth*.

a. The first of these is rather arbitrarily extended from the four cases which actually occur; of the loc. sing. and gen.-loc. du., no Vedic examples from *ā*-stems are found.

Singular:			
N.	जास् <i>jās</i>	धीस् <i>dhīs</i>	भूस् <i>bhūs</i>
A.	जाम् <i>jām</i>	धियम् <i>dhíyam</i>	भुवम् <i>bhúvam</i>
I.	जा <i>jā</i>	धिया <i>dhiyā</i>	भुवा <i>bhuvā</i>
D.	जे <i>jé</i>	धिये, धियै <i>dhiyé, dhiyāi</i>	भुवे, भुवै <i>bhuvé, bhuvāi</i>
Ab. G.	जस् <i>jās</i>	धियस्, धियास् <i>dhiyās, dhiyās</i>	भुवस्, भुवास् <i>bhuvās, bhuvās</i>
L.	जि <i>jí</i>	धियि, धियाम् <i>dhiyí, dhiyām</i>	भुवि, भुवाम् <i>bhuví, bhuvām</i>
V.	जास् <i>jās</i>	धीस् <i>dhīs</i>	भूस् <i>bhūs</i>

Dual:			
N. A. V.	जौ jāú	धियौ dhíyāu	भुवौ bhúvāu
I. D. Ab.	जाभ्याम् jābhyām	धीभ्याम् dhībhyām	भूभ्याम् bhūbhyām
G. L.	जोस् jós	धियोस् dhiyós	भुवोस् bhuvós
Plural:			
N. V.	जास् jās	धियस् dhíyas	भुवस् bhúvas
A.	जास् (जस्?) jās, jás	धियस् dhíyas	भुवस् bhúvas
I.	जाभिस् jābhis	धीभिस् dhībhis	भूभिस् bhūbhis
D. Ab.	जाभ्यस् jābhyas	धीभ्यस् dhībhyás	भूभ्यस् bhūbhyás
G.	जानाम् (जाम्?) jānām, jām	धियाम्, धीनाम् dhiyām, dhīnām	भुवाम्, भूनाम् bhuvām, bhūnām
L.	जासु jāsu	धीषु dhīṣú	भूषु bhūṣú

352. Monosyllabic stems in composition. When the nouns above described occur as a final member of a compound, or when any root in ā or ī or ū is found in a like position, the inflection of an ā-stem is as above. But ī- and ū-stems follow a divided usage: the final vowel before a vowel-ending is either converted into a short vowel and semivowel (iy or uv, as above) or into a semivowel simply (y or v). The accent is nowhere thrown forward upon the endings; and therefore, when ī and ū become y and v, the resulting syllable is circumflex (83-4). Thus:

Masc. and fem. Singular:				
N. V.	-dhīs		-bhūs	
A.	-dhíyam	-dhyām	-bhúvam	-bhvām
I.	-dhíyā	-dhyā	-bhúvā	-bhvā
D.	-dhíye	-dhyè	-bhúve	-bhvè
Ab. G.	-dhíyas	-dhyàs	-bhúvas	-bhvàs
L.	-dhíyi	-dhyi	-bhúvi	-bhvi

Dual:				
N. A. V.	-dhíyāu	-dhyāu	-bhúvāu	-bhvāu
I. D. Ab.	-dhībhyām		-bhúbhyām	
G. L.	-dhíyos	-dhyòs	-bhúvos	-bhvòs
Plural:				
N. A. V.	-dhíyas	-dhyàs	-bhúvas	-bhvàs
I.	-dhībhis		-bhúbhis	
D. Ab.	-dhībhyas		-bhúbhyas	
G.	-dhíyām	-dhyām	-bhúvām	-bhvām
	-dhínām		-bhúnām	
L.	-dhīṣu		-bhúṣu	

a. As to the admissibility of the fuller endings āi, ās, and ām in the singular (feminine), grammatical authorities are somewhat at variance; but they are never found in the Veda, and have been omitted from the above scheme as probably unreal.

b. If two consonants precede the final ī or ū, the dissyllabic forms, with iy and uv, are regularly written; after one consonant, the usage is varying. The grammarians prescribe iy and uv when the monosyllabic stem has more the character of a noun, and y and v when it is more purely a verbal root with participial value. No such distinction, however, is to be seen in the Veda—where, moreover, the difference of the two forms is only graphic, since the yā- and vā-forms and the rest are always to be read as dissyllabic: iā or iā and uā or ūā, and so on.

c. As to neuter stems for such adjectives, see 367.

353. A few further Vedic irregularities or peculiarities may be briefly noticed.

a. Of the ā-stems, the forms in ās, ām, ā (du.) are sometimes to be read as dissyllables, aas, aam, aa. The dative of the stem used as infinitive is āí (as if á+e): thus, prakhyāí, pratimāí, parādāí.

b. Irregular transfer of the accent to the ending in compopunds is seen in a case or two: thus, avadhyabhiyá (RV.), ādhiá (AV.).

354. But compounds of the class above described are not infrequently transferred to other modes of inflection: the ā shortened to a for a masculine (and neuter) stem, or declined like a stem of the derivative ā-class (below, 364) as feminine; the ī and ū shortened to i and u, and inflected as of the second declension.

a. Thus, compound stems in -ga, -ja, -da, -stha, -bhu, and others, are found even in the Veda, and become frequent later (being made from all, or nearly all, the roots in ā); and sporadic cases from yet others occur: for example, ṛtapán, vayodhāís and ratnadhébbhis, dhanasāís (all RV.); and, from ī and ū compounds, veṣaṛís (TS.), áhrayas (RV.), gaṇaṛíbhis (RV.), karmaṇís (ÇB), and ṛtaníbhyas (RV.) and senāníbhyas (VS.) and grímaṇíbhis (TB.), supúnā (AV.), ṇitíbhṛáve (TS.).

b. Still more numerous are the feminines in ā which have lost

their root-declension: examples are *prajā́* (of which the further compounds in part have root-forms), *svadhā́*, *ṣraddhā́*, *pratimā́*, and others.

c. Thus, in the later language, a few feminines in *ī* are made from the stems in *a* shortened from *ā*: thus, *gopī́*, *goṣṭhī́*, *pannagī́*, *pañkajī́*, *bhujagī́*, *bhujarṅgī́*, *surāpī́*.

355. Polysyllabic Stems. Stems of this division (A) of more than one syllable are very rare indeed in the later language, and by no means common in the earlier. The Rig-Veda, however, presents a not inconsiderable body of them; and as the class nearly dies out later, by the disuse of its stems or their transfer to other modes of declension, it may be best described on a Vedic basis.

a. Of stems in *ā*, masculines, half-a-dozen occur in the Veda: *pānthā́*, *mānthā́*, and *ṛbhukṣā́* are otherwise viewed by the later grammar: see below, 433-4; *uṣā́nā* (nom. pr.) has the anomalous nom. sing. *uṣā́nā* (and loc. as well as dat. *uṣā́ne*); *mahā́* *great* is found only in accus. sing. and abundantly in composition; *ātā́* *frame* has only *ātā́su* not derivable from *āta*.

b. Of stems in *ī*, over seventy are found in the Veda, nearly all feminines, and all accented on the final. Half of the feminines are formed from masculines with change of accent: thus, *kalyāṇī́* (m. *kalyāṇa*), *puruṣī́* (m. *púruṣa*); others show no change of accent: thus, *yamī́* (m. *yamá*); others still have no corresponding masculines: thus, *nadī́*, *lakṣmī́*, *sūrmī́*. The masculines are about ten in number: for example, *rathī́*, *prāví́*, *starī́*, *ahī́*, *āpathī́*.

c. Of stems in *ū*, the number is smaller: these, too, are nearly all feminines, and all accented on the final. The majority of them are the feminine adjectives in *ū́* to masculines in *ú* or *u* (above, 344b): thus, *caranyū́*, *cariṣṇū́*, *jighatsū́*, *madhū́*. A few are nouns in *ū́*, with change of accent: thus, *agrū́* (*ágru*), *pr̥dākū́* (*pr̥dāku*), *ṣvaṣrū́* (*ṣváṣura*); or without change, as *nṛtū́*. And a few have no corresponding masculines: thus, *tanū́*, *vadhū́*, *camū́*. The masculines are only two or three: namely, *prāṇū́*, *kṛkadāṇū́*, *makṣū́* (?); and their forms are of the utmost rarity.

356. The mode of declension of these words may be illustrated by the following examples: *rathī́* m. *charioteer*; *nadī́* f. *stream*; *tanū́* f. *body*.

a. No one of the selected examples occurs in all the forms; forms for which no example at all is quotable are put in brackets. No loc. sing. from any *ī*-stem occurs, to determine what the form would be. The stem *nadī́* is selected as an example partly in order to emphasize the difference between the earlier language and the later in regard to the words of this division: *nadī́* is later the model of derivative inflection.

Singular:			
N.	rathís	nadís	tanús
A.	rathíam	nadíam	tanúam
I.	rathíā	nadíā	tanúā
D.	rathíe	nadíe	tanúe
Ab. G.	rathías	nadías	tanúas
L.			tanúi
V.	ráthi (?)	nádi	tānu
Dual:			
N. A. V.	rathíā	nadíā	tanúā
I. D. Ab.	[rathībhyām]	nadībhyām	[tanúbhyām]
G. L.	[rathíos]	nadíós	tanúós
Plural:			
N. A.	rathías	nadías	tanúas
I.	[rathībhis]	nadībhis	tanúbhis
D. Ab.	[rathībhyas]	nadībhyas	tanúbhyas
G.	rathínām	nadínām	tanúnām
L.	[rathīṣu]	nadīṣu	tanúṣu

b. The cases — nadíam, tanúam, etc — are written above according to their true phonetic form, almost invariably belonging to them in the Veda; in the written text, of course, the stem-final is made a semi-vowel, and the resulting syllable is circumflexed: thus, nadyām, tanvām, etc.; only, as usual, after two consonants the resolved forms iy and uv are written instead; and also where the combination yv would otherwise result: thus, cakríyā, [agrúvāi,] and mitrāyúvas. The RV. really reads staryām etc. twice, and tanvās etc. four times; and such contractions are more often made in the AV. The ending ā of the nom.-acc.-voc. du. is the equivalent of the later āu. The nom. sing. in s from ī-stems is found in the older language about sixty times, from over thirty stems.

357. Irregularities of form, properly so called, are very few in this division: camú as loc. sing. (instead of camvi) occurs a few times; and there is another doubtful case or two of the same kind; the final ú is regarded as pragṛhya or uncombinable (138); tanúi is lengthened to tanvī in a passage or two; -yúvas is once or twice abbreviated to -yús.

358. The process of transfer to the other form of ī- and ū-declension (below, 362 ff.), which has nearly extinguished this category of words in the later language, has its beginnings in the Veda; but in RV. they are excessively scanty: namely, dūtiām, loc. sing., once, and çvaçruām, do., once, and dravitnuā, instr. sing., with two or three other doubtful cases. In the Atharvan, we find the acc. sing. kuhúm, tanúm, vadhúm; the instr. sing. palāliā and one or two others; the dat. sing. vadhvāi, çvaçruāi, agrúvāi; the abl.-gen. sing. punarbhúvās, pṛdākuās, çvaçruās; and the loc. sing. tanúām (with anomalous accent). Accusative plural in īs and ūs are nowhere met with.

359. Adjective compounds from these words are very few; those which occur are declined like the simple stems: thus, *híraṇyavāçīs* and *sahásrastarīs*, *átaptatanūs* and *sárvatanūs*, all nom. sing. masculine.

Stems ending in diphthongs.

360. There are certain monosyllabic stems ending in diphthongs, which are far too few and too diverse in inflection to make a declension of, and which may be most appropriately disposed of here, in connection with the stems in *ī* and *ū*, with which they have most affinity. They are:

- a. stems in *āu*: *nāú* and *glāú*;
- b. stems in *āi*: *rāí*;
- c. stems in *o*: *gó* and *dyó* (or *dyú*, *dív*).

361. a. The stem *nāú* f. *ship* is entirely regular, taking the normal endings throughout, and following the rules for monosyllabic accentuation (317)—except that the accus. pl. is said (it does not appear to occur in accented texts) to be like the nom. Thus: *nāús*, *návam*, *nāvā*, *nāvé*, *nāvás*, *nāví*; *nāvāu*, *nāubhyām*, *nāvós*; *návas*, *návas*, *nāubhís*, *nāubhyás*, *nāvám*, *nāuśú*. The stem *glāú* m. *ball* is apparently inflected in the same way; but few of its forms have been met with in use.

b. The stem *rāí* f. (or m.) *wealth* might be better described as *rā* with a union-consonant *y* (258) interposed before vowel endings, and is regularly inflected as such, with normal endings and monosyllabic accent. Thus: *rás*, *ráyam*, *rāyá*, *rāyé*, *rāyás*, *rāyí*; *ráyāu*, *rābhyām*, *rāyós*; *ráyas*, *rāyás*, *rābhís*, *rābhyás*, *rāyám*, *rāsú*. But in the Veda the accus. pl. is either *rāyás* or *ráyas*; for accus. sing. and pl. are also used the briefer forms *rām* (RV. once: *ráyam* does not occur in V.) and *rás* (SV., once); and the gen.-sing. is sometimes anomalously accented *ráyas*.

c. The stem *gó* m. or f. *bull* or *cow* is much more irregular. In the strong cases, except accus. sing., it is strengthened to *gāú*, forming (like *naú*) *gāús*, *gāvāu*, *gávas*. In accus. sing. and pl. it has (like *rāí*) the brief forms *gám* and *gás*. The abl.-gen. sing. is *gós* (as if from *gu*). The rest is regularly made from *go*, with the normal endings, but with accent always remaining irregularly upon the stem: thus, *gávā*, *gáve*, *gávi*, *gávós*, *gávām*; *góbhyām*, *góbhis*, *góbhyas*, *góśu*. In the Veda, another form of the gen. pl. is *gónam*; the nom. etc. du. is (as in all other such cases) also *gávā*; and *gám*, *gós*, and *gás* are not infrequently to be pronounced as dissyllables. As acc. pl. is found a few times *gāvas*.

d. The stem *dyó* f. (but in V. usually m.) *sky*, *day* is yet more anomalous, having beside it a simpler stem *dyu*, which becomes *div* before a vowel-ending. The native grammarians treat the two as

independent words, but it is more convenient to put them together. The stem *dyó* is inflected precisely like *gó*, as above described. The complete declension is as follows (with forms not actually met with in use bracketed):

	Singular.		Dual.		Plural.	
N.	dyāūs		[dívāu]	dyāāvau	dívas	dyávas
A.	dívam	dyām			divás, dyūn	[dyās]
I.	divá	[dyāvā]	[dyúbhyām]	[dyóbhyām]	dyúbhis	[dyóbbhis]
D.	divé	dyáve			[dyúbhyas]	[dyóbhyas]
Ab.	divás	dyós				
G.	divás	dyós	[divós]	[dyávos]	[divám]	[dyāvām]
L.	diví	dyávi			dyúṣu	[dyóṣu]

e. The dat. sing. *dyáve* is not found in the early language. Both *dívas* and *divás* occur as accus. pl. in V. As nom. etc. du., *dyāvā* is, as usual, the regular Vedic form: once occurs *dyāvī* (du.), as if a neuter form; and *dyāūs* is found once used as ablative. The cases *dyāūs*, *dyām* and *dyūn* (once) are read in V. sometimes as dissyllables; and the first as accented vocative then becomes *dyāūs* (i.e. *díāūs*: see 314).

f. Adjective compounds having a diphthongal stem as final member are not numerous, and tend to shorten the diphthong to a vowel. Thus, from *nāu* we have *bhinnaṇu*; from *go*, several words like *águ*, *saptágu*, *sugu*, *bor hugú* (f. *gú* JB.); and, correspondingly, *rāi* seems to be reduced to *ri* in *bṛhádṛaye* and *ṛdhádrayas* (RV.). In derivation, *go* maintains its full form in *gotra*, *agótā*, *-gava* (f. *-gavī*), etc.; as first member of a compound, it is variously treated: thus, *gávāçir*, *gáviṣṭi* (but *gaāçir*, *gaīṣṭi* K.), etc.; *goaçvá* or *go'çva*, *górjika*, *góopaça*, etc. In certain compounds, also, *dyu* or *dyo* takes an anomalous form: thus, *dyāurdā* (K.), *dyāurloká* (ÇB.), *dyāūsamçita* (AV.). In *revánt* (unless this is for *rayivant*) *rāi* becomes *re*. RV. has *ádhrigāvas* from *ádhrigu* (of questionable import); and AV. has *ghṛtastāvas*, apparently accus. pl. of *ghṛtastú* or *-stó*.

B. Derivative stems in ā, ī, ū.

362. To this division belong all the *ā* and *ī*-stems which have not been specified above as belonging to the other or root-word division; and also, in the later language, most of the *ī* and *ū*-stems of the other division, by transfer to a more predominant mode of inflection. Thus:

1. a. The great mass of derivative feminine *ā*-stems, substantive and adjective.

b. The inflection of these stems has maintained itself with little change through the whole history of the language, being almost precisely the same in the Vedas as later.

2. c. The great mass of derivative feminine ī-stems.

d. This class is without exception in the later language. In the earlier, it suffers the exception pointed out above (355 b): that feminines made with change of accent follow this mode of declension only when the accent is not on the í: thus, táviṣī, páruṣṇī, páliknī, róhiṇī.

e. The ī-stems of this division in general are regarded as made by contraction of an earlier ending in yā. Their inflection has become in the later language somewhat mixed with that of the other division, and so far different from the Vedic inflection: see below, 363 g.

f. Very few derivative stems in ī are recognized by the grammarians as declined like the root-division; the Vedic words of that class are, if retained in use, transferred to this mode of inflection.

g. A very small number of masculine ī-stems (half-a-dozen) are in the Veda declined as of the derivative division: they are a few rare proper names, mātālī etc.; and ráṣṭrī and sirí (only one case each).

3. h. The ū-stems are few in number, and are transfers from the other division, assimilated in inflection to the great class of derivative ī-stems (except that they retain the ending s of the nom. sing.).

363. Endings. The points of distinction between this and the other division are as follows:

a. In nom. sing. the usually s-ending is wanting: except in the ū-stems and a very few ī-stems — namely, lakṣmī, tarī, tantrī, tandrī — which have preserved the ending of the other division.

b. The accus. sing. and pl. add simply m and s respectively.

c. The dat., abl.-gen., and loc. sing. take always the fuller endings āi, ās, ām; and these are separated from the final of the ā-stems by an interposed y. In Brāhmaṇa etc., āi is generally substituted for ās (307 h).

d. Before the endings ā of instr. sing. and os of gen.-loc. du., the final of ā-stems is treated as if changed to e; but in the Veda, the instr. ending ā very often (in nearly half the occurrences) blends with the final to ā. The yā of ī-stems is in a few Vedic examples contracted to ī, and even to i. A loc. sing. in ī occurs a few times.

e. In all the weakest cases above mentioned, the accent of an ī- or ū-stem having acute final is thrown forward upon the ending. In the remaining case of the same class, the gen. pl., a n is always interposed between stems and ending, and the accent remains upon the former (in RV., however, it is usually thrown forward upon the ending, as in i and u-stems).

f. In voc. sing., final ā becomes e; final ī and ū are shortened.

g. In nom.-acc.-voc. du. and nom. pl. appears in ī (and ū)-stems a marked difference between the earlier and later language, the latter borrowing the forms of the other division. The du. ending āu is unknown in RV., and very rare in AV.; the Vedic ending is ī (a

corresponding dual of $\bar{u}$ -stems does not occur). The regular later pl. ending as has only a

doubtful example or two in RV., and a very small number in AV.; the case there (and it is one of very frequent occurrence) adds *s* simply; and though *yas*-forms occur in the Brāhmaṇas, along with *īs*-forms, both are used rather indifferently as nom. and accus. (as, indeed, they sometimes interchange also in the epics). Of *ā*-stems, the du. nom. etc. ends in *e*, both earlier and later; in pl., of course, *s*-forms are indistinguishable from *as*-forms. The RV. has a few examples of *āsas* for *ās*.

h. The remaining cases call for no remark.

364. Examples of declension. As models of the inflection of derivative stems ending in long vowels, we may take *सेना* *sénā* f. *army*; *कन्या* *kanyā* f. *girl*; *देवी* *devī* f. *goddess*; *वधू* *vadhū* f. *woman*.

Singular:				
N.	सेना <i>sénā</i>	कन्या <i>kanyā</i>	देवी <i>devī</i>	वधूस् <i>vadhūs</i>
A.	सेनाम् <i>sénām</i>	कन्याम् <i>kanyām</i>	देवीम् <i>devīm</i>	वधूम् <i>vadhūm</i>
I.	सेनया <i>sénayā</i>	कन्यया <i>kanyāyā</i>	देव्या <i>devyā</i>	वध्वा <i>vadvā</i>
D.	सेनायै <i>sénāyāi</i>	कन्यायै <i>kanyāyāi</i>	देव्यै <i>devyāi</i>	वध्वै <i>vadvāi</i>
Ab. G.	सेनायास् <i>sénāyās</i>	कन्यायास् <i>kanyāyās</i>	देव्यास् <i>devyās</i>	वध्वास् <i>vadvās</i>
L.	सेनायाम् <i>sénāyām</i>	कन्यायाम् <i>kanyāyām</i>	देव्याम् <i>devyām</i>	वध्वाम् <i>vadvām</i>
V.	सेने <i>séne</i>	कन्ये <i>kānye</i>	देवि <i>dēvi</i>	वधु <i>vādhuv</i>
Dual:				
N. A. V.	सेने <i>séne</i>	कन्ये <i>kanyè</i>	देव्यौ <i>devyāú</i>	वध्वौ <i>vadvāù</i>
I. D. Ab.	सेनाभ्याम् <i>sénābhyām</i>	कन्याभ्याम् <i>kanyābhyām</i>	देवीभ्याम् <i>devībhyām</i>	वधूभ्याम् <i>vadhūbhyām</i>
G. L.	सेनयोस् <i>sénayos</i>	कन्ययोस् <i>kanyāyos</i>	देव्योस् <i>devyós</i>	वध्वोस् <i>vadvós</i>

Plural:				
N. V.	सेनास् sénās	कन्यास् kanyās	देव्यास् devyàs	वध्वास् vadhvàs
A.	सेनास् sénās	कन्यास् kanyàs	देवीस् devís	वधूस् vadhúś
I.	सेनाभिस् sénābhis	कन्याभिस् kanyābhis	देवीभिस् devībhis	वधूभिस् vadhúbhis
D. Ab.	सेनाभ्यस् sénābhyas	कन्याभ्यस् kanyābhyas	देवीभ्यस् devībhyas	वधूभ्यस् vadhúbhyas
G.	सेनानाम् sénānām	कन्यानाम् kanyānām	देवीनाम् devīnām	वधूनाम् vadhúnām
L.	सेनासु sénāsu	कन्यासु kanyāsu	देवीषु devīṣu	वधूषु vadhúṣu

a. In the Veda vadhú is a stem belonging to the other division (like tanú, above, 356).

365. Examples of Vedic forms are:

a. ā-stems: instr. sing. manīṣā (this simpler form is especially common from stems in tā and iā); nom. pl. vaçāsas (about twenty examples); accus. pl. araṅgamāsas (a case or two). Half the bhyas-cases are to be read as bhias; the ām of gen. pl. is a few times to be resolved into aam; and the ā and ām of nom. accus. sing. are, very rarely, to be treated in the same manner.

b. ī-stems: instr. sing. çāmī, çāmi; loc. gaurī; nom. etc. du. devī; nom. pl. devís; gen. pl. bahvīnām. The final of the stem is to be read as a vowel (not y) frequently, but not in the majority of instances: thus, deviā, deviās, deviām, ródasios.

c. The sporadic instances of transfer between this division and the preceding have been already sufficiently noticed.

d. Of the regular substitution made in the Brāhmaṇa language (307 g, 336 g, 363 c) of the dat. sing. ending ai for the gen.-abl. ending ās, in all classes of words admitting the latter ending, a few examples may be given here: abhibhūtyāi rūpam (AB.) *a sign of overpowering*; triṣṭubhaç ca jagatyāi ca (AB.) *of the metres triṣṭubh and jagati*; vāco dāivyāi ca mānuṣyāi ca (AA.) *of speech, both divine and human*; striyāi payaḥ (AB.) *woman's milk*; dhenvāi vā etád rétaḥ (TB.) *that, forsooth, is the seed of the cow*; jīrṇāyāi tvacaḥ (KB.) *of dead skin*; jyāyasī yājyāyāi (AB.) *superior to the yājyā*; asyāi divo 'smād antarikṣāt (ÇÇS.) *from this heaven, from this atmosphere*. The same substitution is made once in the AV.: thus, svāpantv asyāi jñātāyaḥ *let her relatives sleep*.

366. The noun *strī* f. *woman* (probably contracted from *sūtrī generatrix*), follows a mixed declension: thus, *strī*, *strīyam* or *strīm*, *striyā́*, *striyā́i*, *striyā́s*, *striyām*, *strī*; *striyāu*, *strībhyām*, *striyós*; *striyas*, *striyas* or *strís*, *strībhis*, *strībhyás*, *strīṇām*, *strīṣú* (but the accusatives *strīm* and *strís* are not found in the older language, and the voc. *stri* is not quotable). The accentuation is that of a root-word; the forms (conspicuously the nom. sing.) are those of the other or derivative division.

Adjectives.

367. a. The occurrence of original adjectives in long final vowels, and of compounds having as final member a stem of the first division, has been sufficiently treated above, so far as masculine and feminine forms are concerned. To form a neuter stem in composition, the rule of the later language is that the final long vowel be shortened; and the stem so made is to be inflected like an adjective in *i* or *u* (339, 341, 344).

b. Such neuter forms are very rare, and in the older language almost unknown. Of neuters from *ī*-stems have been noted in the Veda only *hariṣrīyam*, acc. sing. (a masc. form), and *suādhías*, gen. sing. (same as mac. and fem.); from *ū*-stems, only a few examples, and from stem-forms which might be masc. and fem. also: thus, *vibhú*, *subhú*, etc. (nom.-acc. sing.: compare 354); *supúā* and *mayobhúvā*, instr. sing.; and *mayobhú*, acc. pl. (compare *purú*: 342 k); from *ā*-stems occur only half-a-dozen examples of a nom. sing. in *ās*, like the masc. and fem. form.

c. Compounds having nouns of the second division as final member are common only from derivatives in *ā*; and these shorten the final to *a* in both masculine and neuter: thus, from *a not* and *prajā progeny* come the masc. and neut. stem *apraja*, fem. *aprajā childless*. Such compounds with nouns in *ī* and *ū* are said to be inflected in masc. and fem. like the simple words (only with *īn* and *ūn* in acc. pl. masc.); but the examples given by the grammarians are fictitious.

d. Stems with shortened final are occasionally met with: thus, *ekapatni*, *āttalakṣmi*; and such adverbs (neut. sing. accus.) as *upabhāimi*, *abhyujjayini*. The stem *strī* is directed to be shortened to *stri* for all genders.

368. It is convenient to give a complete paradigm, for all genders, of an adjective stem in *अ* a. We take for the purpose *पाप* *pāpā evil*, of which the feminine is usually made in *आ* *ā* in the later language, but in *ई* *ī* in the older.

Singular:				
	m.	n.	f.	f.
N.	पापस् pāpās	पापम् pāpām	पापा pāpā	पापी pāpī
A.	पापम् pāpām		पापम् pāpām	पापीम् pāpīm
I.	पापेन pāpéna		पापया pāpáyā	पाप्या pāpyā
D.	पापाय pāpāya		पापायै pāpāyāi	पाप्यै pāpyāi
Ab.	पापात् pāpāt		पापायास् pāpāyās	पाप्यास् pāpyās
G.	पापस्य pāpāsya		पापायास् pāpāyās	पाप्यास् pāpyās
L.	पापे pāpé		पापायाम् pāpāyām	पाप्याम् pāpyām
V.	पाप pāpa		पापे pāpe	पापि pāpi
Dual:				
N. A. V.	पापौ pāpāu	पापे pāpé	पापे pāpé	पाप्यौ pāpyāu
I. D. Ab.	पापाभ्याम् pāpābhyām		पापाभ्याम् pāpābhyām	पापीभ्याम् pāpībhyām
G. L.	पापयोस् pāpāyos		पापयोस् pāpāyos	पाप्योस् pāpyós
Plural:				
N.	पापास् pāpās	पापानि pāpāni	पापास् pāpās	पाप्यस् pāpyās
A.	पापान् pāpān	पापानि pāpāni	पापास् pāpās	पापीस् pāpīs
I.	पापैस् pāpāis		पापाभिस् pāpābhis	पापीभिस् pāpībhis
D. Ab.	पापेभ्यस् pāpébhyas		पापाभ्यस् pāpābhyas	पापीभ्यस् pāpībhyas

G.	पापानाम् pāpānām	पापानाम् pāpānām	पापिनीनाम् pāpīnām
L.	पापेषु pāpēṣu	पापासु pāpāsu	पापिणीषु pāpīṣu

Declension IV.

Stems in ऋ ण (or अर् ar).

369. This declension is a comparatively limited one, being almost entirely composed of derivative nouns formed with the suffix तृ त्र (or तर् tar), which makes masculine *nomina agentis* (used also participially), and a few nouns of relationship.

a. But it includes also a few nouns of relationship not made with that suffix: namely देवृ m., स्वर् and नानांदर् f.; and besides these, नृ m., स्तृ (in V.) m., उर् (in V.) f., सव्याश्रृ m., and the feminine numerals तिस्र and काश्र (for which, see 482 e, g). The feminines in त्र are only मातृ, दूहितृ, and यतृ.

b. The inflection of these stems is quite closely analogous with that of stems in i and u (second declension); its peculiarity, as compared with them, consists mainly in the treatment of the stem itself, which has a double form, fuller in the strong cases, briefer in the weak ones.

370. Forms of the Stem. In the weak cases (excepting the loc. sing.) the stem-final is ण, which in the weakest cases, or before a vowel-ending, is changed regularly to र (129). But as regards the strong cases, the stems of this declension fall into two classes: in one of them — which is very much the larger, containing all the *nomina agentis*, and also the nouns of relationship नापृ and स्वर्, and the irregular words स्तृ and सव्याश्रृ — the ण is vriddhied, or becomes ā; in the other, containing most of the nouns of relationship, with नृ and उर्, the ण is gunated, or changed to ar. In both classes, the loc. sing. has ar as stem-final.

371. Endings: These are in general the normal, but with the following exceptions:

a. The nom. sing. (masc. and fem.) ends always in ā (for original ars or ārs). The voc. sing. ends in ar.

b. The accus. sing. adds am to the (strengthened) stem; the accus. pl. has (like i- and u-stems) n as masc. ending and s as fem. ending, with the ण lengthened before them.

c. The abl.-gen. sing. changes *ṛ* to *ur* (or *us*: 169 b).

d. The gen. pl. (as in *i* and *u*-stems) inserts *n* before *ām*, and lengthens the stem-final before it. But the *ṛ* of *nṛ* may also remain short.

e. The above are the rules of the later language. The older presents certain deviations from them. Thus:

f. The ending in nom.-acc.-voc. du. is (as universally in the Veda) regularly *ā* instead of *āu* (only ten *āu*-forms in RV.).

g. The *i* of loc. sing. is lengthened to *ī* in a few words: thus, *kartārī*.

h. In the gen. pl., the RV. has once *svásrām*, without inserted *n*; and *narām* instead of *nṛām* is frequent.

i. Other irregularities of *nṛ* are the sing. dat. *nāre*, gen. *nāras*, and loc. *nāri*. The Veda writes always *nṛām* in gen. pl., but its *ṛ* is in a majority of cases metrically long.

j. The stem *usṛ* f. *dawn* has the voc. sing. *uṣar*, the gen. sing. *usrás*; and the accus. pl. also *usrás*, and loc. sing. *usrām* (which is metrically trisyllable: *usṛām*), as if in analogy with *ī* and *ū*-stems. Once occurs *usrí* in loc. sing., but it is to be read as if the regular trisyllable form, *uṣúri* (for the exchange of *s* and *ṣ*, see 181 a).

k. From *stṛ* come only *tāras* (apparently) and *stṛbhis*.

l. In the gen.-loc. du., the *r* is almost always to be read as a separate syllable, *ṛ*, before the ending *os*: thus, *pitṛós*, etc. On the contrary, *nánāndari* is once to be read *nánāndri*.

m. For neuter forms, see below, 375.

372. Accent. The accentuation follows closely the rules for *i*- and *u*-stems: if on the final of the stem, it continues, as acute, on the corresponding syllable throughout, except in the gen. pl., where it may be (and in the Veda always is) thrown forward upon the ending; where, in the weakest cases, *ṛ* becomes *r*, the ending has the accent. The two monosyllabic stems, *nṛ* and *stṛ*, do not show the monosyllabic accent: thus (besides the forms already given above), *nṛbhis*, *nṛṣu*.

373. Examples of declension. As models of this mode of inflection, we may take from the first case (with *आर्* *ār* in the strong forms) the stems *दातृ* *dātṛ* m. *giver* and *स्वसृ* *svásṛ* f. *sister*; from the second class (with *अर्* *ar* in the strong forms), the stem *पितृ* *pitṛ* m. *father*.

Singular:			
N.	दाता dātā	स्वसा svāsā	पिता pitā
A.	दातारम् dātāram	स्वसारम् svāsāram	पितरम् pitāram

I.	दात्रा dātrā	स्वस्रा svāsrā	पित्रा pitṛā
D.	दात्रे dātré	स्वस्रे svāsre	पित्रे pitṛé
Ab. G.	दातुर् dātúr	स्वसुर् svásur	पितुर् pitúr
L.	दातरि dātári	स्वसरि svásari	पितरि pitári
V.	दातर् dātar	स्वसर् svásar	पितर् pítar
Dual:			
N. A. V.	दातारौ dātārau	स्वसारौ svāsārau	पितारौ pitārau
I. D. Ab.	दातृभ्याम् dātṛbhyām	स्वसृभ्याम् svāsṛbhyām	पितृभ्याम् pitṛbhyām
G. L.	दात्रोस् dātrós	स्वस्रोस् svásros	पित्रोस् pitṛós
Plural:			
N. V.	दातारस् dātāras	स्वसारस् svāsāras	पितारस् pitāras
A.	दातृन् dātṛñ	स्वसृन् svāsṛñ	पितृन् pitṛñ
I.	दातृभिस् dātṛbhis	स्वसृभिस् svāsṛbhis	पितृभिस् pitṛbhis
D. Ab.	दातृभ्यस् dātṛbhyas	स्वसृभ्यस् svāsṛbhyas	पितृभ्यस् pitṛbhyas
G.	दातृणाम् dātṛṇām	स्वसृणाम् svāsṛṇām	पितृणाम् pitṛṇām
L.	दातृषु dātṛṣu	स्वसृषु svāsṛṣu	पितृषु pitṛṣu

a. The feminine stem मातृ *mātr̥*, *mother*, is inflected precisely like पितृ *pitṛ*, excepting that its accusative plural is मातृस् *mātr̥s*.

b. The peculiar Vedic forms have been sufficiently instanced above; the only ones of other than sporadic occurrence being the nom. etc. du. *dātārā*, *svāsārā*, *pitārā*, and the gen. pl. of *nṛ*, *narām*.

c. The nom. pl. forms *pitaras* and *mātaras* etc. are found used also as accus. in the epics.

374. The stem *kroṣṭṛ* m. *jackal* (lit'ly *howler*) substitutes in the middle cases the corresponding forms of *króṣṭu*.

375. Neuter forms. The grammarians prescribe a complete neuter declension also for bases in *ṭṛ*, precisely accordant with that of *vāri* or *mádhu* (above, 339, 341). Thus, for example:

	Sing.	Du.	Plur.
N. A.	dhātṛ	dhātṛñi	dhātṛñi
I.	dhātṛñā	dhātṛbhyām	dhātṛbhis
G.	dhātṛṇas	dhātṛṇos	dhātṛṇām
V.	dhātṛ, dhātar	dhātṛñi	dhātṛñi

a. The weakest cases, however (as of *i*- and *u*-stems used adjectively: 344), are allowed also to be formed like the corresponding masculine cases: thus, *dhātrā* etc.

b. No such neuter forms chance to occur in the Veda, but they begin to appear in the Brāhmaṇas, under influence of the common tendency (compare Germ. *Retter*, *Retterin*; Fr. *menteur*, *menteuse*) to give this *nomen agentis* a more adjective character, making it correspond in gender with the noun which it (appositively) qualifies. Thus, we have in TB. *bhartṛ* and *janayitr̥*, qualifying *antāriṣam*; and *bhartṛñi* and *janayitr̥ñi*, qualifying *nákṣatrāṇi*; as, in M., *grahitr̥ñi*, qualifying *indriyāṇi*.

c. When a feminine noun is to be qualified in like manner, the usual feminine derivative in *ī* is employed: thus, in TB., *bhartryās* and *bhartryāu*, *janayitryās* and *janayitryāu*, qualifying *āpas* and *ahorātré*; and such instances are not uncommon.

d. The RV. shows the same tendency very curiously once in the accus. pl. *mātṛñ*, instead of *mātṛs*, in apposition with masculine nouns (RV. x. 35.2).

e. Other neuter forms in RV. are *sthātúr* gen. sing., *dhmātārī* loc. sing.; and for the nom. sing., instead of *-ṭṛ*, a few more or less doubtful cases, *sthātar*, *sthātúr*, *dhartári*.

Adjectives.

376. a. There are no original adjectives of this declension: for the quasi-adjectival character of the nouns composing it, see above (375 b). The feminine stem is made by the suffix *ī*: thus, *dātrī*, *dhātrī*.

b. Roots ending in *ṛ* (like those in *i* and *u*: 345) add a *t* to make a declinable stem, when occurring as final member of a com-

pound: thus, *armakṛt* (√kr), *vajrabhṛt* (√bhṛ), *balihṛt* (√hṛ). From some ṛ-roots, also, are made stems in *ir* and *ur*: see below, 383 a, b.

c. Nouns in ṛ as finals of adjective compounds are inflected in the same manner as when simple, in the masculine and feminine; in the neuter, they would doubtless have the peculiar neuter endings in nom.-acc.-voc. of all numbers.

d. But TS. has once *tvátpitāras*, nom. pl., *having thee for father*.

Declension V.

Stems ending in Consonants.

377. All stems ending in consonants may properly be classed together, as forming a single comprehensive declension; since, though some of them exhibit peculiarities of inflection, these have to do almost exclusively with the stem itself, and not with the declensional endings.

387. In this declension, masculines and feminines of the same final are inflected alike; and neuters are peculiar (as usually in the other declensions) only in the nom.-acc.-voc. of all numbers.

a. The majority of consonantal stems, however, are not inflected in the feminine, but form a special feminine derivative stem in ई ī (never in आ ā), by adding that ending to the weak form of the masculine.

b. Exceptions are in general the stems of divisions A and B — namely, the radical stems etc., and those in *as* and *is* and *us*. For special cases, see below.

379. Variations, as between stronger and weaker forms, are very general among consonantal stems: either of two degrees (strong and weak), or of three (strong, middle, and weakest): see above, 311.

a. The peculiar neuter forms, according to the usual rule (311 b), are made in the plural from the strong stem, in singular and dual from the weak — or, when the gradation is threefold, in singular from the middle stem, in dual from the weakest.

b. As in the case of stems ending in short vowels (*āsyāni*, *vārīṇi*, *mādhūni*, *dātṛṇi*, etc.), a nasal sometimes appears in the special neuter plural cases which is found nowhere else in inflection. Thus, from the stems in *as*, *is*, *us*, the nom.-acc.-voc. pl. in *-āṇsi*, *-īṇṣi*, *-ūṇṣi* are very common at every period. According to the grammarians, the radical stems etc. (division A) are treated in the same way; but examples of such neuters are of extreme rarity in the language; no Vedic text offers one, and in the *Brāhmaṇas* and *Sūtras* have been noted only *-hanti* (AB. vii. 2. 3), *-vṛnti* (PB. xvi. 2. 7 et al.), *-bhāñji* (KB. xxvii. 7), *-bhṛnti* (ÇB. viii. 1. 31), and *-yuñji* (LÇS. ii. 1. 8); while in the later language is found here and there a case, like *-ṣṛnti* (Ragh.), *-pūṇṣi* (Çiç.); it may be questioned whether they are not later analogical formations.

380. The endings are throughout those given above (310) as the "normal".

a. By the general law as to finals (150), the *s* of the nom. sing. masc. and fem. is always lost; and irregularities of treatment of the final of the stem in this case are not infrequent.

b. The gen. and abl. sing. are never distinguished in form from one another — nor are, by ending, the nom. and accus. pl.: but these sometimes differ in stem-form, or in accent, or in both.

381. Change in the place of the accent is limited to monosyllabic stems and the participles in *ánt* (accented on the final). For details, see below, under divisions A and E.

a. But a few of the compounds of the root *añc* or *ac* show an irregular shift of accent in the oldest language: see below, 410.

382. a. For convenience and clearness of presentation, it will be well to separate from the general mass of consonantal stems certain special classes which show kindred peculiarities of inflection, and may be best described together.

Thus:

B. Derivative stems in *as*, *is*, *us*;

C. Derivative stems in *an* (*an*, *man*, *van*);

D. Derivative stems in *in* (*in*, *min*, *vin*);

E. Derivative stems in *ant* (*ant*, *mant*, *vant*);

F. Perfect active participles in *vāṇs*;

G. Comparatives in *yāṇs* or *yas*.

b. There remain, then, to constitute division A, especially radical stems, or those identical in form with roots,

together with a comparatively small number of others which are inflected like these.

They will be taken up in the order thus indicated.

A. Root-stems, and those inflected like them.

383. The stems of this division may be classified as follows:

I. a. Root-stems, having in them no demonstrable element added to a root: thus, *ṛc verse*, *gír song*, *pád foot*, *díc, direction*, *máh (V.) great*.

b. Such stems, however, are not always precisely identical in form with the root: thus, *vác* from *√vac*, *sráj* from *√srj*, *múṣ* from *√muṣ*, *vriç* from *√vraçc* (?), *úṣ* from *√vas shine*; — from roots in final *ṛ* come stems in *ir* and *ur*: thus, *gír*, *ā-çír*, *stír*; *júr*, *túr*, *dhúr*, *púr*, *múr*, *stúr*, *sphúr*; and *psúr* from *√psar*.

c. With these may be ranked the stems with reduplicated root, as *cikít*, *yavīyúdh*, *vānīvan*, *sasyád*.

d. Words of this division in uncompounded use are tolerably frequent in the older language: thus, in RV. are found more than a hundred of them; in AV., about sixty; but in the classical Sanskrit the power of using any root at will in this way is lost, and the examples are comparatively few. In all periods, however, the adjective use as final of a compound is very common (see below, 401).

e. As to the infinitive use of various cases of the root-noun, see 971.

II. f. Stems made by the addition of *t* to a final short vowel of a root.

g. No proper root-stem ends in a short vowel, although there are (354) examples of transfer of such to short-vowel-declensions; but *i* or *u* or *ṛ* adds a *t* to make a declinable form: thus, *-jít*, *-çrút*, *-kṛt*. Roots in *ṛ*, however, as has just been seen (b), also make stems in *ir* or *ur*.

h. As regards the frequency and use of these words, the same is true as was stated above respecting root-stems. The Veda offers examples of nearly thirty such formations, a few of them (*mít*, *rít*, *stút*, *hrút*, *vṛt*, and *dyút* if this is taken from *dyu*) in independent use. Of roots in *ṛ*, *t* is added by *kṛ*, *dhṛ*, *dhvṛ*, *bhṛ*, *vṛ*, *sṛ*, *spṛ*, *hṛ*, and *hvṛ*. The roots *gā* (or *gam*) and *han* also make *-gát* and *-hát* by addition of the *t* to an abbreviated form in *a* (thus, *adhvagát*, *dyugát*, *dvigát*, *navagát*, and *saṁhát*).

III. i. Monosyllabic (also a few apparently reduplicated) stems not certainly connectible with any verbal root in the language, but having the aspect of root-stems, as containing no traceable suffix:

thus, *tvác skin*, *páth road*, *hřd heart*, *áp* and *văr water*, *dvăr door*, *ăs mouth*, *kakúbh* and *kakúd, summit*.

j. Thirty or forty such words are found in the older language, and some of them continue in later use, while others have been transferred to other modes of declension or have become extinct.

k. Stems more or less clearly derivative, but made with suffixes of rare or even isolated occurrence. Thus:

1. derivatives (V.) from prepositions with the suffix *vat*: *arvāvát, āvát, udvát, nivát, parāvát, pravát, saṁvát*; — 2. derivatives (V.) in *tāt* (perhaps abbreviated from *tāti*), in a few isolated forms: thus, *uparātāt, devātāt, vřkātāt, satyātāt, sarvātāt*; — 3. other derivatives in *t* preceded by various vowels: thus, *dačát, vehát, vahát, sravát, sačcát, vāghát; nāpāt; tađít, divít, yořít, rohít, sarít, harít; marút; yákr̥t, čákr̥t*; and the numerals for 30, 40, 50, *triṇčát* etc. (475); — 4. stems in *ad*: thus, *dřśád, dhřśád, bhasád, vanád, čarád, samád*; — 5. stems in *j* preceded by various vowels: thus, *trřṇáj, dhřśáj, sanáj, bhiřáj; učīj, vaṇīj, bhurīj, niṇīj (?)*; *ásrj*; — 6. a few stems ending in a sibilant apparently formative: thus, *jñās, -dās, bhās, mās, bhís*; — 7. a remnant of unclassifiable cases, such as *viřtáp, vřpāč, kápřth, čurúdh, iřidh, přkřúdh, raghát (?)*, *sarágh, visrúh, uřṇíh, kaváš*.

384. Gender. The root-stems are regularly feminine as *nomen actionis*, and masculine as *nomen agentis* (which is probably only a substantive use of their adjective value: below, 400). But the feminine noun, without changing its gender, is often also used concretely: e.g., *druh* (*√druh be inimical*) means *harming, enmity*, and also *harmer, hater, enemy* — thus bordering on the masculine value. And some of the feminines have a completely concrete meaning. Through the whole division, the masculines are much less numerous than the feminines, and the neuters rarest of all.

a. The independent neuter stems are *hřd* (also *-hārd*), *dám, văr, svār, mās flesh, ăs mouth, bhās, dós* (with which may be mentioned the indeclinables *čām* and *yós*); also the apparent derivatives *yákr̥t, čákr̥t, kápřth, ásrj*.

385. Strong and weak stem-forms. The distinction of these two classes of forms is usually made either by the presence or absence of a nasal, or by a difference in the quantity of the stem-vowel, as long or short; less often, by other methods.

386. A nasal appears in the strong cases of the following words:

1. Compounds having as final member the root *ac* or *añc*: see below. 407 ff.; and RV. has once *uruvyāñcam* from root *vyac*; — 2. The

stem yuj, sometimes, in the older language: thus, nom. sing. yúñ (for yúñk), accus. yúñjam, du. yúñjā (but also yújam and yújā); — 3. The stem -drç, as final of a compound in the older language; but only in the nom. sing, masc., and not always: thus, anyādṛñ, īdṛñ, kīdṛñ, tādṛñ, etādṛñ, sadṛñ and pratisadṛñ: but also īdṛk, tādṛk, swardṛk, etc.; — 4. For path and pums, which substitute more extended stems, and for dant, see below, 394–6.

387. The vowel a is lengthened in strong cases as follows:

1. Of the roots vac, sac, sap, nabt, ças, in a few instances (V.), at the end of compounds; — 2. Of the roots vah and sah, but irregularly; see below, 403–5; — 3. Of ap *water* (see 393); also in its compound rītyàp; — 4. Of pad, *foot*: in the compounds of this word, in the later language, the same lengthening is made in the middle cases also; and in RV. and AV. the nom. sing. neut. is both -pat and -pāt, while RV. has once -pāde, and -pādhbis and -pātsu occur in the Brāhmaṇas; — 5. Of nas *nose* (? nāsā nom. du. fem. RV., once); — 6. Sporadic cases (V.) are: yāj (?), voc. sing.; pāthās and -rāpas, accus. pl.; vānīvānas, nom. pl. The strengthened forms bhāj and rāj are constant, through all classes of cases.

388. Other modes of differentiation, by elision of a or contraction of the syllable containing it, appear in a few stems:

1. In -han: see below, 402; — 2. In kṣam (V.), along with prolongation of a: thus, kṣāmā du., kṣāmās pl.; kṣamā instr. sing., kṣāmi loc. sing., kṣmās abl. sing.; — 3. In dvār, contracted (V.) to dur in weak cases (but with some confusion of the two classes); — 4. In svār, which becomes, in RV., sūr in weak cases; later it is indeclinable.

389. The endings are as stated above (380).

a. Respecting their combination with the final of the stem, as well as the treatment of the latter when it occurs at the end of the word, the rules of euphonic combination (chap. III.) are to be consulted; they require much more constant and various application here than anywhere else in declension.

b. Attention may be called to a few exceptional cases of combination (V.): mādabhís and mādbyás from mās *month*; the wholly anomalous paḍbhís (RV. and VS.: AV. has always padbhís) from pád; and sarát and saráḍbhyas corresponding to a nom. pl. sarághas (instead of saráhas: 222). Dán is apparently for dām, by 143 a.

c. According to the grammarians, neuter stems, unless they end in a nasal or a semivowel, take in nom.-acc.-voc. pl. a strengthening nasal before the final consonant. But no such cases from neuter noun-stems appear ever to have been met with in use; and as regards adjective stems ending in a root, see above, 379 b.

390. Monosyllabic stems have the regular accent of such, throwing the tone forward upon the endings in the weak cases.

a. But the accusative plural has its normal accentuation as a weak case, upon the ending, in only a minority (hardly more than a third) of the stems: namely in datás, pathás, padás, nidás, apás, uşás, jñāsás, puṁsás, māsás, mahás; and sometimes in vācás, srucás, hrutás, sridhás, kṣapás, vipás, durás, iśás, dviśás, druhás (beside vācas etc.).

b. Exceptional instances, in which a weak case has the tone on the stem, occur as follows: sádā, nádbhyas, tánā (also tanā́) and táne, bādhe (infln.), ráṇe and ráṇsu, váṇsu, sváni, vípas, kṣámi, sūrā and sūras (but sūrē), áṇhas, and vānas and bṛhas (in vānaspāti, bṛhaspāti). On the other hand, a strong case is accented on the ending in mahás, nom. pl., and kāsám (AV.: perhaps a false reading). And preṣā́, instr. sing., is accented as if preṣ were a simple stem, instead of pra-íṣ. Vimṛdháḥ is of doubtful character. For the sometimes anomalous accentuation of stems in ac or añc, see 410.

391. Examples of inflection. As an example of normal monosyllabic inflection, we may take the stem वाच् vác f. *voice* (from √वच् vac, with constant prolongation); of inflection with strong and weak stem, पद् pád m. *foot*; of polysyllabic inflection, मरुत् marút, m. *wind* or *wind-god*; of a monosyllabic root-stem in composition, त्रिवृत् trivṛt, *three-fold*, in the neuter. Thus:

Singular:				
N. V.	वाक् vák	पात् pāt	मरुत् marút	त्रिवृत् trivṛt
A.	वाचम् vācam	पादम् pādam	मरुतम् marútam	त्रिवृत् trivṛt
I.	वाचा vācā	पदा padā	मरुता marútā	त्रिवृता trivṛtā
D.	वाचे vācé	पदे padé	मरुते marúte	त्रिवृते trivṛte
Ab. G.	वाचस् vācás	पदस् padás	मरुतस् marútas	त्रिवृतस् trivṛtas
L.	वाचि vācí	पदि padí	मरुति marúti	त्रिवृति trivṛti

Dual:				
N. A. V.	वाचौ vācāu	पादौ pādāu	मरुतौ marūtāu	त्रिवृती trivṛtī
I. D. Ab.	वाग्भ्याम् vāgbhyaām	पद्भ्याम् padbhyām	मरुद्भ्याम् marudbhyām	त्रिवृद्भ्याम् trivṛdbhyaām
G. L.	वाचोस् vācós	पदोस् padós	मरुतोस् marútos	त्रिवृतोस् trivṛtos
Plural:				
N. V.	वाचस् vācas	पादस् pādas	मरुतस् marútas	त्रिवृन्ति trivṛnti
A.	वाचस् vācás, vācas	पदस् pādas	मरुतस् marútas	त्रिवृन्ति trivṛnti
I.	वाग्भिस् vāgbhis	पद्भिस् padbhis	मरुद्भिस् marúdbhis	त्रिवृद्भिस् trivṛdbhis
D. Ab.	वाग्भ्याम् vāgbhyaām	पद्भ्याम् padbhyām	मरुद्भ्याम् marudbhyas	त्रिवृद्भ्याम् trivṛdbhyas
G.	वाचाम् vācām	पदाम् padām	मरुताम् marútām	त्रिवृताम् trivṛtām
L.	वाचु vākṣú	पत्सु patsú	मरुत्सु marútsu	त्रिवृत्सु trivṛtsu

By way of illustration of the leading methods of treatment of a stem-final, at the end of the word and in combination with case-endings, characteristic case-forms of a few more stems are here added. Thus:

a. Stems in j: yuj-class (219 a, 142), bhiṣáj *physician*: bhiṣák, bhiṣájam, bhiṣágbhis, bhiṣákṣu; — mrj-class (219 b, 142), samrāj *universal ruler*: samrāt, samrājam, samrāḍbhis, samrāṭsu.

b. Stems in dh: -vṛdh *increasing*: -vṛt, -vṛdham, -vṛdbhis, -vṛtsu; -búdh (155) *waking*: -bhút, -búdham, -bhúdbhis, -bhútsu.

c. Stems ending in bh: -stúbh *prasing*: -stúp, -stúbham, -stúbhhis, -stúpsu.

d. Stems in ṣ: díṣ (218 a, 145) *direction*: dík, díṣam, digbhis, dikṣú; — víṣ (218, 145) *the people*: víṭ, víṣam, viḍbhis, viṭsú (V. vikṣú: 218 a).

e. Stems in ṣ (226 b, 145): dvíṣ *enemy*: dvít, dvíṣam, dviḍbhis, dviṭsú.

f. Stems in h: duh-class (232-3 a, 155 b, 147), dúh *milki*

yielding: -dhúk, -dúham, -dhúgbhis, -dhúkṣu; — ruh-class (223 b, 147), -lih *licking*: -liṭ, -liham, -liḍbhis, -liṭsu.

g. Stems in m (143 a, 212 a: only praçán, nom. sing., quotable): -çām *quieting*: -çán, -çámam, -çánbhis, -çánsu.

392. The root-stems in ir and ur (383 b) lengthen their vowel when the final r is followed by another consonant (245 b), and also in the nom. sing. (where the case-ending s is lost).

a. Thus, from gír f. *song* come gír (gírḥ), gíram, girá, etc.; gírāu, gírbhyām, girós; gíras, gírbhís, gírbhyás, girám, gírśú (165); and, in like manner, from púr f. *stronghold* come púr (púrḥ), púram, purá, etc.; púrāu, púrbhyām, purós; púras, púrbhís, púrbhyás, purám, púrśú.

b. There are no roots in is (except the excessively rare pis) or in us; but from the root çās with its ā weakened to i (250) comes the noun āçís f. *blessing*, which is inflected like gír: thus, āçís (āçírḥ), āçísam, āçísā, etc.; āçísāu, āçírbhyām, āçíṣos; āçíṣas, āçírbhis, āçírbhyas, āçísām, āçírḥsu. And sajús *together* is apparently a stereotyped nominative of like formation from the root juṣ. The form aṣṭāpruṭ (TS.), from the root-stem pruṣ, is isolated and anomalous.

c. These stems in ir, ur, is show a like prolongation of vowel also in composition and derivation: thus, gírvāṇa, púrbhíd, dhūrgata, dhūstva, āçírdā, āçírvant, etc. (but also gírvan, gírvaṇas).

d. The native grammar sets up a class of quasi-radical stems like jigamis *desiring to go*, made from the desiderative conjugation-stem (1027), and prescribes for it a declension like that of āçís: thus, jigamīs, jigamiśā, jigamīrbhis, jigamīḥsu, etc. Such a class appears to be a mere figment of the grammarians, since no example of it has been found quotable from the literature, either earlier or later, and since there is, in fact, no more a desiderative stem jigamis than a causative stem gamay.

393. The stem áp f. *water* is inflected only in the plural, and with dissimilation of its final before bh to d (151 e): thus, ápas, apás, adbhís, adhbyás, apám, apsú.

a. But RV. has the sing. instr. apá and gen. apás. In the earlier language (especially AV.), and even in the epics, the nom. and accus. pl. forms are occasionally confused in use, ápas being employed as accus., and apás as nominative.

b. Besides the stem ap, case-forms of this word are sometimes used in composition and derivation: thus, for example, abjá, āpodevata, āpomáya, apsumant.

394. The stem púrṁs m. *man* is very irregular, substituting púmāṁs in the strong cases, and losing its s (necessarily) before initial bh of a case-ending, and likewise (by analogy with this, or by an abbreviation akin with that noticed at 231) in the loc. plural. The vocative is (in accordance with that of the somewhat similarly

inflected perfect participles: see 462 a) *púman* in the later language, but *púmas* in the earlier. Thus: *púmān*, *púmāṅsam*, *puṁsā*, *puṁsé*, *puṁsás*, *puṁsí*, *púman*; *púmāṅsāu*, *pumbhyām*, *puṁsós*; *púmāṅsas*, *puṁsás*, *pumbhís*, *pumbhyás*, *puṁsām*, *puṁsú*.

a. The accentuation of the weak forms, it will be noticed, is that of a true monosyllabic stem. The forms with *bh*-endings nowhere occur in the older language, nor do they appear to have been cited from the later. Instances of the confusion of strong and weak forms are occasionally met with. As to the retention of *s* unlingualized in the weakest cases (whence necessarily follows that in the loc. pl.), see 183 a.

b. This stem appears under a considerable variety of forms in composition and derivation: thus, as *puṁs* in *puṁṣcalí*, *puṁstva*, *puṁsvant*, *-puṁska*, etc; as *pum* in *púmvatsa*, *púmrūpa*, *puṁvat*, *pumartha*, etc.; as *puṁsa* in *puṁsavant*; — at the end of a compound, either with its full inflection, as in *strīpuṁs* etc.; or as *puṁsa*, in *strīpuṁsa*, *mahāpuṁsa*; or as *puma* in *strīpuma* (TS. TA.).

395. The stem path *m. road* is defective in declension, forming only the weakest cases, while the strong are made from *pánthā* or *pánthan*, and the middle from *pathí*: see under *an-*stems, below, 433.

396. The stem *dánt m. tooth* is perhaps of participial origin, and has, like a participle, the forms *dánt* and *dát*, strong and weak: thus (V.), *dán*, *dántam*, *datá*, etc.; *datás* acc. pl. etc. But in the middle cases it has the monosyllabic and not the participial accent: thus, *dadbhís*, *dadbhyás*. In nom. pl. occurs also *-datas* instead of *-dantas*. By the grammarians, the strong cases of this word are required to be made from *dánta*.

397. A number of other words of this division are defective, making part of their inflection from stems of a different form.

a. Thus, *hṛd n. heart*, *māṅs* or *mās n. meat*, *mās m. month*, *nás f. nose*, *niç f. night* (not found in the older language), *pṛt f. army*, are said by the grammarians to lack the nom. of all numbers and the accus. sing. and du. (the neuters, of course, the acc. pl. also), making them respectively from *hṛdaya*, *māṅsá*, *māsa*, *násikā*, *niçā*, *pṛtanā*. But the usage in the older language is not entirely in accordance with this requirement: thus, we find *mās flesh* accus. sing.; *mās month* nom. sing.; and *nāsā nostrils* du. From *pṛt* occurs only the loc. pl. *pṛtsú* and (RV., once) the same case with double ending, *pṛtsúṣu*.

398. On the other hand, certain stems of this division, allowed by the grammarians a full inflection, are used to fill up the deficiencies of those of another form.

a. Thus, *ásṛj n. blood*, *çákr̥t n. ordure*, *yákr̥t n. liver*, *dós n. (also m.) fore-arm*, have beside them defective stems in *án*: see below, 432. Of none of them, however, is anything but the nom.-acc. sing. found in the older language, and other cases later are but very scantily represented.

b. Of *ás* n. *mouth*, and *úd* *water*, only a case or two are found, in the older language, beside *āsán* and *āsyà*, and *udán* and *údaka* (432).

399. Some of the alternative stems mentioned above are instances of transition from the consonant to a vowel declension: thus, *dánta*, *māsa*. A number of other similar cases occur, sporadically in the older language, more commonly in the later. Such are *páda*, *-māda*, *-dāça*, *bhrājá*, *viṣṭápa*, *dvāra* and *dura*, *pura*, *dhura*, *-dṛça*, *nāsā*, *nidā*, *kṣípā*, *kṣapā*, *āçā*, and perhaps a few others.

a. A few irregular stems will find a more proper place under the head of Adjectives.

Adjectives.

400. Original adjectives having the root-form are comparatively rare even in the oldest language.

a. About a dozen are quotable from the RV., for the most part only in a few scattering cases. But *mah*, *great*, is common in RV., though it dies out rapidly later. It makes a derivative feminine stem, *mahí*, which continues in use, as meaning *earth* etc.

401. But compound adjectives, having a root as final member, with the value of a present participle, are abundant in every period of the language.

a. Possessive adjective compounds, also, of the same form, are not very rare: examples are *yatásruc* *with offered bowl*; *súryatvac* *sun-skinned*; *cātuṣpad* *four-footed*; *suhárd* *kind-hearted, friendly*; *rītyàp* (i.e. *rīti-ap*) *having streaming waters*; *sahásradvār* *furnished with a thousand doors*.

b. The inflection of such compounds is like that of the simple root-stems, masculine and feminine being throughout the same, and the neuter varying only in the nom.-acc.-voc. of all numbers. But special neuter forms are of rare occurrence, and masc.-fem. are sometimes used instead.

c. Only rarely is a derivative feminine stem in *ī* formed: in the older language, only from the compounds with *ac* or *añc* (407 ff.), those with *han* (402), those with *pad*, as *ékapadī*, *dvipadī*, and with *dant*, as *vīṣadatī*, and *mahī*, *ámucī* (AV.), *úpasadī* (? ÇB).

Irregularities of inflection appear in the following:

402. The root *han* *slay*, as final of a compound, is inflected somewhat like a derivative noun in *an* (below, 420 ff.), becoming *hā* in the nom. sing., and losing its *n* in the middle cases and its *a* in the weakest cases (but only optionally in the loc. sing.). Further, when the vowel is lost, *h* in contact with following *n* reverts to its original *gh*. Thus:

	Singular.	Dual.	Plural.
N.	vṛtrahā	vṛtrahāṇāu	vṛtrahāṇas
A.	vṛtrahāṇam		vṛtraghnās
I.	vṛtraghnā	vṛtrahābhyām	vṛtrahābhis
D.	vṛtraghné		vṛtrahābhyas
Ab.	vṛtraghnās		
G.		vṛtraghnós	vṛtraghnām
L.	vṛtraghní, -hāṇi	vṛtrahāsu	
V.	vṛtrahan	vṛtrahaṇāu	vṛtrahaṇas

a. As to the change of *n* to *ṇ*, see 193, 195.

b. A feminine is made by adding *ī* to, as usual, the stem-form shown in the weakest cases: thus, *vṛtraghní*.

c. An accus. pl. *-hānas* (like the nom.) also occurs. *Vṛtrahābhis* (RV., once) is the only middle case-form quotable from the older language. Transitions to the a-declension begin already in the Veda: thus, to *-há* (RV. AV.), *-ghná* (RV.), *-hana*.

403. The root *vah* *carry* at the end of a compound is said by the grammarians to be lengthened to *vāh* in both the strong and middle cases, and contracted in the weakest cases to *ūh*. which with a preceding a-vowel becomes *āu* (137 c): thus, from *havyavāh* *sacrifice-bearing* (epithet of Agni), *havyavāt*, *havyavāham*, *havyāūhā*, etc.; *havyavāhāu*, *havyavādbhyām*, *havyāūhos*; *havyavāhas*, *havyāūhas*, *havyavādbhis*, etc. And *çvetavāh* (not quotable) is said to be further irregular in making the nom. sing. in *vās* and the vocative in *vas* or *vās*.

a. In the earlier language, only strong forms of compounds with *vah* have been found to occur: namely, *-vāt*, *-vāham*, *-vāhāu* or *-vāhā*, and *-vāhas*. But feminines in *ī*, from the weakest stem — as *turyāuhí*, *dityāuhí*, *paṣṭhāuhí* — are met with in the Brāhmaṇas. TS. has the irregular nom. sing. *paṣṭhavāt*.

404. Of very irregular formation and inflection is one common compound of *vah*, namely *anaḍvāh* (*anas+vah*, *burden-bearing* or *cart-drawing*, i.e. *ox*). Its stem-form in the strong cases is *anaḍvāh*, in the weakest *anaḍúh*, and in the middle *anaḍúd* (perhaps by dissimilation from *anaḍúḍ*). Moreover, its nom. and voc. sing. are made in *vān* and *van* (as if from a *vant*-stem). Thus:

	Singular.	Dual.	Plural.
N.	anaḍvān	anaḍvāhāu	anaḍvāhas
A.	anaḍvāham		anaḍúhas
I.	anaḍúhā	anaḍúdbhyām	anaḍúdbhis
D.	anaḍúhe		anaḍúdbhyas
Ab.	anaḍúhas		anaḍúhos
G.		anaḍútsu	
L.	anaḍúhi		
V.	ánaḍvan	ánaḍvāhāu	ánaḍvāhas

a. Anaḍúdbhyas (AV., once) is the only middle case-form quotable from the older language. But compounds showing the middle stem — as anaḍucchata, anaḍudarha — are met with in Brāhmaṇas etc.

b. The corresponding feminine stem (of very infrequent occurrence) is either anaḍuhī (ÇB.) or anaḍvāhī (K. MS.).

405. The root *sah overcome* has in the Veda a double irregularity: its *s* is changeable to *ṣ* even after an *a*-vowel — as also in its single occurrence as an independent adjective (RV., tvām ṣāt) — while it sometimes remains unchanged after an *i* or *u*-vowel; and its *a* is either prolonged or remains unchanged, in both strong and weak cases. The quotable forms are: -ṣāt, -ṣāham or -sāham or -sāham, -sāhā, -sāhe or -sāhe, -ṣāhas or -ṣāhas or -sāhas; -sāhā (du.); -ṣāhas or -sāhas.

406. The compound *avayāj (vyaj make offering) a certain priest* or (BR.) *a certain sacrifice* is said to form the nom. and voc. sing. *avayās*, and to make its middle cases from *avayās*.

a. Its only quotable form is *avayās* f. (RV. and AV., each once). If the stem is a derivative from *ava+vyaj conciliate*, *avayās* is probably from *ava + vyā*, which has the same meaning. But *sadhamās* (RV., once) and *purodās* (RV., twice) show a similar apparent substitution in nom. sing. of the case-ending *s* after long *ā* for a final root-consonant (*d* and *ṣ* respectively). Compare also the alleged *çvetavās* (above, 403).

407. Compounds with *añc* or *ac*. The root *ac* or *añc* makes, in combination with prepositions and other words, a considerable class of familiarly used adjectives, of quite irregular formation and inflection, in some of which it almost loses its character of root, and becomes an ending of derivation.

a. A part of these adjectives have only two stem-forms: a strong in *añc* (yielding *añ*, from *añks*, in nom. sing. masc.), and a weak in *ac*; others distinguish from the middle in *ac* a weakest stem in *c*, before which the *a* is contracted with a preceding *i* or *u* into *ī* or *ū*.

b. The feminine is made by adding *ī* to the stem-form used in the weakest cases, and is accented like them.

408. As examples of inflection we may take *prāñc forward, east*, *pratyāñc opposite, west*, *viśvañc going apart*.

Singular:			
N. V.	prāñ prāk	pratyāñ pratyák	viśvañ viśvak
A.	prāñcam prāk	pratyāñcam pratyák	viśvañcam viśvak
I.	prācā	praticā	viśūcā
D.	prāce	praticé	viśūce
Ab. G.	prācas	praticás	viśūcas
L.	prāci	praticí	viśūci
Dual:			
N. A. V.	prāñcāu prācī	pratyāñcāu praticī	viśvañcāu viśūcī
I. D. Ab.	prāgbhyām	pratyāgbhyām	viśvāgbhyām

G. L.	prácos	praticós	víşûcos
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Plural			
N. V.	prāñcas prāñci	pratyāñcas pratyāñci	vīṣvañcas vīṣvañci
A.	prācas prāñci	praticās pratyāñci	vīṣūcas vīṣvañci
I.	prāgbhis	pratyāgbhis	vīṣvagbhis
D. Ab.	prāgbhyas	pratyāgbhyas	vīṣvagbhyas
G.	prācām	praticām	vīṣūcām
L.	prākṣu	pratyākṣu	vīṣvakṣu

a. The feminine stems are prācī, practīcī, vīṣūcī, respectively.

b. No example of the middle forms excepting the nom. etc. sing. neut. (and this generally used as adverb) is found either in RV. or AV. In the same texts is lacking the nom. etc. pl. neut. in ñci; but of this a number of examples occur in the Brāhmaṇas: thus, prāñci, pratyāñci, arvāñci, samyāñci, sadhryañci, anvañci.

409. a. Like prāñc are inflected āpāñc, āvāñc, pārāñc, arvāñc, adharāñc, and others of rare occurrence.

b. Like pratyāñc are inflected nyāñc (i.e. nīāñc), samyāñc (sam+añc, with irregularly inserted i), and ūdañc (weakest stem ūdīc: ud+añc, with i inserted in weakest cases only), with a few other rare stems.

c. Like vīṣvañc is inflected anvāñc, also three or four others of which only isolated forms occur.

d. Still more irregular is tiryāñc, of which the weakest stem is tirāc (tirās+ac: the other stems are made from tir+añc or ac, with the inserted i).

410. The accentuation of these words is irregular, as regards both the stems themselves and their inflected forms. Sometimes the one element has the tone and sometimes the other, without any apparent reason for the difference. If the compound is accented on the final syllable, the accent is shifted in RV. to the ending in the weakest cases provided their stem shows the contraction to ī or ū: thus, prācā, arvācā, adharācas, but praticā, anūcās, samīcī. But AV. and later texts usually keep the accent upon the stem: thus, praticī, samīcī, antūcī (RV. has praticīm once). The change of accent to the endings, and even in polysyllabic stems, is against all usual analogy.

B. Derivative stems in as, is, us.

411. The stems of this division are prevailingly neuter; but there are also a few masculines, and one or two feminines.

412. The stems in अस् as are quite numerous, and mostly made with the suffix अस् as (a small number also

with तस् tas and नस् nas, and some are obscure); the others are few, and almost all made with the suffixes इस् is and उस् us.

413. Their inflection is almost entirely regular. But masculine and feminine stems in अस् as lengthen the vowel of the ending in nom. sing.; and the nom.-acc.-voc. pl. neut. make the same prolongation (of अ a or इ i or उ u) before the inserted nasal (anusvāra).

414. Examples of declension. As examples we may take मनस् mānas n. *mind*; अङ्गिरस् āṅgiras m. *Angiras*; हविस् havís n. *oblation*.

Singular:			
N.	मनस् mānas	अङ्गिरास् āṅgirās	हविस् havís
A.	मनस् mānas	अङ्गिरसम् āṅgirasam	हविस् havís
I.	मनसा mānasā	अङ्गिरसा āṅgirasā	हविषा haviṣā
D.	मनसे mānase	अङ्गिरसे āṅgirase	हविषे haviṣe
Ab. G.	मनसस् mānasas	अङ्गिरसस् āṅgirasas	हविषस् haviṣas
L.	मनसि mānasi	अङ्गिरसि āṅgirasi	हविषि haviṣi
V.	मनस् mānas	अङ्गिरस् āṅgiras	हविस् havís
Dual:			
N. A. V.	मनसी mānasī	अङ्गिरसौ āṅgirasāu	हविषी haviṣī
I. D. Ab.	मनोभ्याम् mānobhyām	अङ्गिरोभ्याम् āṅgirobhyām	हविर्भ्याम् haviṛbhyām
G. L.	मनसोस् mānasos	अङ्गिरसोस् āṅgirasos	हविषोस् haviṣos

Plural:			
N. A. V.	मनांसि mānāṅsi	अङ्गिरसस् āṅgirasas	हवींषि havīṅṣi
I.	मनोभिस् mānobhis	अङ्गिरोभिस् āṅgirobhis	हविर्भिस् havirbhis
D. Ab.	मनोभ्यस् mānobhyas	अङ्गिरोभ्यस् āṅgirobhyas	हविर्भ्यस् havirbhyas
G.	मनसाम् mānasām	अङ्गिरसाम् āṅgirasām	हविषाम् haviṣām
L.	मनःसु mānaḥsu	अङ्गिरःसु āṅgiraḥsu	हवीःषु haviḥṣu

In like manner, चक्षुस् cákṣus n. *eye* forms चक्षुषा cákṣuṣā, चक्षुर्म्यम् cákṣurbhyām, चक्षूषि cakṣūṅṣui, and so on.

415. Vedic etc. Irregularities, a. In the older language, the endings -asam (acc. sing.) and -asas (generally nom.-acc. pl.; once or twice gen.-abl. sing.) of stems in as are not infrequently contracted to -ām, -ās — e. g. āçām, vedhām; surādhās, ānāgās — and out of such forms grow, both earlier and later, substitute-stems in ā, as āçā, jarā, medhā. So from other forms grow stems in a and in asa, which exchange more or less with those in as through the whole history of the language.

b. More scattering irregularities may be mentioned, as follows: 1. The usual masc. and fem. du. ending in ā instead of āu; — 2. uṣās f. *dawn* often prolongs its a in the other strong cases, as in the nom. sing.: thus, uṣāsam, uṣāsā, uṣāsas (and once in a weak case, uṣāsas); and in its instr. pl. occurs once (RV.) uṣādbhis instead of uṣóbhis; — 3. from toçās is once (RV.) found a similar dual, toçāsā; — 4. from svāvas and svátavas occur in RV. a nom. sing. masc. in vān, as if from a stem in vant; and in the Brāhmaṇas is found the dat.-abl. pl. of like formation svátavadbhyas.

c. The stems in is and us also show transitions to stems in i and u, and in iṣa and uṣa. From janús is once (RV.) made the nom. sing, janús, after the manner of an as-stem (cf. also janūrvāsas ÇB.).

416. The grammarians regard uçānas m. as regular stem-form of the proper name noticed above (355 a), but give it the irregular nom. uçānā and the voc. uçanas or uçana or uçanan. Forms from the as-stem, even nom., are sometimes met with in the later literature.

a. As to forms from as-stems to áhan or áhar and údhan or úddhar, see below, 430.

Adjectives

417. a. A few neuter nouns in *as* with accent on the radical syllable have corresponding adjectives or appellatives in *ās*, with accent on the ending: thus, for example, *āpas work*, *apās active*; *tāras quickness*, *tarās quick*; *yāças glory*, *yaças glorious*. A few other similar adjectives — as *tavās mighty*, *vedhās pious* — are without corresponding nouns.

b. Original adjectives in *is* do not occur (as to alleged desiderative adjectives in *is*, see 392 d). But in *us* are found as many adjectives as nouns (about ten of each class); and in several instances adjective and noun stand side by side, without difference of accent such as appears in the stems in *as*: e.g. *tāpus heat* and *hot*; *vāpus wonder* and *wonderful*.

418. Adjective compounds having nouns of this division as final member are very common: thus, *sumānas favorably minded*; *dīrghāyus long-lived*; *çukrāçocis having brilliant brightness*. The stem-form is the same for all genders, and each gender is inflected in the usual manner, the stems in *as* making their nom. sing. masc. and fem. in *ās* (like *āṅgiras*, above). Thus, from *sumānas*, the nom. and accus. are as follows:

	Singular.			Dual.			Plural.		
	m.	f.	n.	m.	f.	n.	m.	f.	n.
N.	sumānās		-nas	sumānasāu		-nasī	sumānasas		-nāṅsi
A.	sumānasam		-nas						

and the other cases (save the vocative) are alike in all genders.

a. In *Veda* and *Brāhmaṇa*, the neut. nom. sing. is in a considerable number of instances made in *ās*, like the other genders.

b. From *dīrghāyus*, in like manner:

N.	dīrghāyus		dīrghāyuṣāu	-yuṣī	dīrghāyuṣas	-yūṇṣi
A.	dīrghāyuṣam	-yus				
I.	dīrghāyuṣā		dīrghāyurbhyām		dīrghāyurbhis	
	etc.		etc.		etc.	

419. The stem *anehās unrivalled* (defined as meaning *time* in the later language) forms the nom. sing. masc. and fem, *anehā*.

C. Derivative stems in *an*.

420. The stems of this division are those made by the three suffixes *अन् an*, *मन् man*, and *वन् van*, together with a few of more questionable etymology which are inflected like them. They are almost exclusively masculine and neuter.

421. The stem has a triple form. In the strong cases

of the masculine, the vowel of the ending is prolonged to आ ā; in the weakest cases it is in general struck out altogether; in the middle cases, or before a case-ending beginning with a consonant, the final न् n is dropped. The न् n is also lost in the nom. sing. of both genders (leaving आ ā as final in the masculine, अ a in the neuter).

a. The peculiar cases of the neuter follow the usual analogy (311 b): the nom.-acc.-voc. pl. have the lengthening to आ ā, as strong cases; the nom.-acc.-voc. du., as weakest cases, have the loss of अ a — but this only optionally, not necessarily.

b. In the loc. sing., also, the a may be either rejected or retained (compare the corresponding usage with ण-stems: 373). And after the m or v of man or van, when these are preceded by another consonant, the a is always retained, to avoid a too great accumulation of consonants.

422. The vocative sing. is in masculines the pure stem; in neuters, either this or like the nominative. The rest of the inflection requires no description.

423. As to accent, it needs only to be remarked that when, in the weakest cases, an acute á of the suffix is lost, the tone is thrown forward upon the ending.

424. Examples of declension. As such may be taken राजन् rājan m. *king*; आत्मन् ātmán m. *soul, self*; नामन् nāman n. *name*. Thus:

Singular			
N.	राजा rājā	आत्मा ātmā	नाम nāma
A.	राजानम् rājānam	आत्मानम् ātmānam	नाम nāma
I.	राज्ञा rājñā	आत्मना ātmānā	नाम्ना nāmnā
D.	राज्ञे rājñe	आत्मने ātmāne	नाम्ने nāmne

Ab. G.	राज्ञस् rājñas	आत्मनस् ātmānas	नाम्नस् nāmnas
L.	राज्ञि, राजनि rājñi, rājani	आत्मनि ātmāni	नाम्नि, नामनि nāmnī, nāmani
V.	राजन् rājan	आत्मन् ātman	नामन्, नाम nāman, nāma
Dual:			
N. A. V.	राजानौ rājānāu	आत्मानौ ātmānāu	नाम्नी, नामनी nāmnī, nāmanī
I. D. Ab.	राजभ्याम् rājabyām	आत्मभ्याम् ātmābhyām	नामभ्याम् nāmabhyām
G. L.	राज्ञोस् rājños	आत्मनोस् ātmānos	नाम्नोस् nāmnos
Plural:			
N.	राजानस् rājānas	आत्मानस् ātmānas	नामानि nāmāni
A.	राज्ञस् rājñas	आत्मनस् ātmānas	नामानि nāmāni
I.	राजभिस् rājabhis	आत्मभिस् ātmābhis	नामभिस् nāmabhis
D. Ab.	राजभ्यस् rājabyas	आत्मभ्यस् ātmābhyas	नामभ्यस् nāmabhyas
G.	राज्ञाम् rājñām	आत्मनाम् ātmānām	नाम्नाम् nāmnām
L.	राजसु rājasu	आत्मसु ātmāsu	नामसु nāmasu

a. The weakest cases of mūrdhán m. *head*, would be accented mūrdhná, mūrdhné, mūrdhnós, mūrdhnás (acc. pl.), mūrdhnām, etc.; and so in all similar cases (loc. sing., mūrdhnī or mūrdhāni).

425. Vedic Irregularities. a. Here, as elsewhere, the ending of the nom.-acc.-voc. du. masc. is usually ā instead of āu.

b. The briefer form (with ejected a) of the loc. sing., and of the neut. nom.-acc.-voc. du., is quite unusual in the older language. RV. writes once çatadāvni, but it is to be read çatadāvani; and similar cases occur in AV. (but also several times -mni). In the Brāhmaṇas, too, such forms as dhāmani and sāmanī are very much more common than such as ahni and lomnī.

c. But throughout both Veda and Brāhmaṇa, an abbreviated form of the loc. sing., with the ending *i* omitted, or identical with the stem, is of considerably more frequent occurrence than the regular form: thus, mūrdhán, kárman, ádhvan, beside mūrdháni etc. The *n* has all the usual combinations of a final *n*: e. g. mūrdhann asya, mūrdhant sa, mūrdnaṁs tvā.

d. In the nom.-acc. pl. neut., also, an abbreviated form is common, ending in *ā* or (twice as often) *a*, instead of *āni*: thus, bráhma and bráhmā, beside bráhmāṇi: compare the similar series of endings from *a*-stems, 329 c.

e. From a few stems in *man* is made an abbreviated instr. sing., with loss of *m* as well as of *a*: thus, mahinā, prathinā, variṇā, dānā, preṇā, bhūnā, for mahimnā etc. And drāghmā and raçmā (RV., each once) are perhaps for drāghmāṇā, raçmánā.

f. Other of the weakest cases than the loc. sing. are sometimes found with the *a* of the suffix retained: thus, for example, bhúmanā, dāmāne, yāmanas, ukṣāṇas (accus. pl.), etc. In the infinitive datives (970 d) — trāmaṇe, vidmāne, dāvāne, etc. — the *a* always remains. About as numerous are the instances in which the *a*, omitted in the written form of the text, is, as the metre shows, to be restored in reading.

g. The voc. sing. in *vas*, which is the usual Vedic form from stems in *vant* (below, 454 b), is found also from a few in *van*, perhaps by a transfer to the *vant*-declension: thus, ṛtāvas, evayāvas, khidvas (?), prātaritvas, mātariçvas, vibhāvas.

h. For words of which the *a* is not made long in the strong cases, see the next paragraph.

426. A few stems do not make the regular lengthening of *a* in the strong cases (except the nom. sing.). Thus:

a. The names of divinities, pūṣán, aryamán: thus, pūṣā, pūṣāṇam, pūṣṇā, etc.

b. In the Veda, ukṣán *bull* (but also ukṣāṇam); yóṣan *maiden*; víṣan *virile, bull* (but víṣāṇam and víṣāṇas are also met with); tmán, abbreviation of ātmán; and two or three other scattering forms: anarváṇam, jémanā. And in a number of additional instances, the Vedic metre seems to demand *a* where *ā* is written.

427. The stems çván m. *dog* and yúvan *young* have in the weakest cases the contracted form çún and yún (with retention of the accent); in the strong and middle cases they are regular. Thus, çvā, çvānam, çúnā, çúne, etc., çvábhyām, çvábhis, etc.; yúvā, yúvānam, yúnā, yúvabhis, etc.

a. In dual, RV. has once yúnā for yúvānā.

428. The stem maghāvan *generous* (later, almost exclusively a name of Indra) is contracted in the weakest cases to maghón: thus, maghāvā, maghāvānam, maghónā, maghóne, etc.

a. The RV. has once the weak form *maghónas* in nom. pl.

b. Parallel with this is found the stem *maghávant* (division E); and from the latter alone in the older language are made the middle cases: thus, *maghavadbhis*, *maghavatsu*, etc. (not *maghavabhis* etc.).

429. a. Stems in *a*, *ma*, *va*, parallel with those in *an*, *man*, *van*, and doubtless in many cases derived from those through transitional forms, are frequent in both the earlier and the later language, particularly as final members of compounds.

b. A number of *an*-stems are more or less defective, making a part of their forms from other stems. Thus:

430. a. The stem *áhan* n. *day* is in the later language used only in the strong and weakest cases, the middle (with the nom. sing., which usually follows their analogy) coming from *áhar* or *áhas*: namely, *áhar* nom.-acc. sing., *áhobhyām*, *áhobhis*, etc. (PB. has *aharbhis*); but *áhnā* etc., *áhni* or *áhani* (or *áhan*), *áhnī* or *áhanī*, *áhāni* (and, in V., *áhā*).

b. In the oldest language, the middle cases *áhabis*, *áhabhyas*, *áhasu* also occur.

c. In composition, only *ahar* or *ahas* is used as preceding member; as final member, *ahar*, *ahas*, *ahan*, or the derivatives *aha*, *ahna*.

d. The stem *údhan* n. *udder* exchanges in like manner, in the old language, with *úddhar* and *úddhas*, but has become later an *as*-stem only (except in the fem *ūdhni* of adjective compounds): thus, *úddhar* or *úddhas*, *úddhnas*, *úddhan* or *úddhani*, *úddhabhis*, *úddhaḥsu*. As derivative from it are made both *ūdhanyā* and *ūdhasya*.

431. The neuter stems *akṣán* *eye*, *asthán* *bone*, *dadhán* *curds*, *sakthán* *thigh*, form in the later language only the weakest cases, *akṣṇā*, *asthné*, *dadhnás*, *sakthni* or *saktháni*, and so on; the rest of the inflection is made from stems in *i*, *ákṣi* etc.: see above, 343 i.

a. In the older language, other cases from the *an*-stems occur: thus, *akṣāṇi*, *akṣábhis*, and *akṣasu*; *asthāni*, *asthábhis*, and *asthábhyas*; *sakthāni*.

432. The neuter stems *asán* *blood*, *yakán* *liver*, *çakán* *ordure*, *āsán* *mouth*, *udán* *water*, *doṣán* *fore-arm*, *yūṣán* *broth*, are required to make their nom.-acc.-voc. in all numbers from the parallel stems *ásṛj*, *yákr̥t*, *çákr̥t*, *āsyā*, *údaka* (in older language *udaká*), *dós*, *yūṣá*, which are fully inflected.

a. Earlier occurs also the dual *doṣāṇī*.

433. The stems *pánthan* m. *road* is reckoned in the later language as making the complete set of strong cases, with the irregularity that the nom.-voc. sing. adds a *s*. The corresponding middle cases are made from *pathí*, and the weakest from *path*. Thus:

from pánthan — pánthās, pánthānam; pánthānāu; pánthānas;

from pathí — pathíbhyām; pathíbhis, pathíbhyas, pathíṣu;

from path — pathā́, pathé, pathás, pathí; pathós; pathás or páthas (accus.), pathám.

a. In the oldest language (RV.), however, the strong stem is only pánthā: thus, pánthās, nom. sing.; pánthām, acc. sing.; pánthās, nom. pl.; and even in AV., pánthānam and pánthānas are rare compared with the others. From pathí occur also the nom. pl. patháyas and gen. pl. pathínām. RV. has once pāthás, acc. pl., with long ā.

434. The stems mánthan m. *stirring-stick*, and ṛbhukṣán m., an epithet of Indra, are given by the grammarians the same inflection with pánthan; but only a few cases have been found in use. In V. occur from the former the acc. sing. mánthām, and gen. pl. mathínām (like the corresponding cases from pánthan); from the latter, the nom. sing. ṛbhukṣās and voc. pl. ṛbhukṣās, like the corresponding Vedic forms of pánthan; but also the acc. sing. ṛbhukṣānam and nom. pl. ṛbhukṣāṇas, which are after quite another model.

Adjectives

435. Original adjective stems in an are almost exclusively those made with the suffix van, as yájvan *sacrificing*, sútvan *pressing the soma*, jítvan *conquering*. The stem is masc and neut. only (but sporadic cases of its use as fem. occur in RV.); the corresponding fem. stem is made in varī: thus, yájvarī, jítvarī.

436. Adjective compounds having a noun in an as final member are inflected after the model of noun-stems; and the masculine forms are sometimes used also as feminine; but usually a special feminine is made by adding ī to the weakest form of the masculine stem: thus, sómarājñī, kīlālodhnī, ékamūrdhnī, durṇāmnī.

437. But (as was pointed out above: 429 a) nouns in an occurring as final members of compounds often substitute a stem in a for that in an: thus, -rāja, -janma, -adhva, -aha; their feminine is in ā. Occasional exchanges of stems in van and in vant also occur: thus, vivásvan and vivásvant.

a. The remaining divisions of the consonantal declension are made up of adjective stems only.

D. Derivative stems (adjective) in in.

438. The stems of this division are those formed with the suffixes इन् in, मिन् min, विन् vin. They are mas-

culine and neuter only; the corresponding feminine is made by adding ई ī.

a. The stems in in are very numerous, since almost any noun in a in the language may form a possessive derivative adjective with this suffix: thus, bála *strength*, balín m. n. balínī f. *possessing strength, strong*. Stems in vin (1232), however, are very few, and those in min (1231) still fewer.

439. Their inflection is quite regular, except that they lose their final न् n in the middle cases (before an initial consonant of the ending), and also in the nom. sing., where the masculine lengthens the इ i by way of compensation. The voc. sing. is in the masculine the bare stem; in the neuter, either this or like the nominative.

a. In all these respects, it will be noticed, the in-declension agrees with the an-declension; but it differs from the latter in never losing the vowel of the ending.

440. Examples of inflection. As such may be taken बलिन् balín *strong*. Thus:

	Singular.		Dual.		Plural.	
	m.	n.	m.	n.	m.	n.
N.	बली balī	बलि balí	बलिनौ balínāu	बलिनी balínī	बलिनस् balínas	बलीनि balīni
A.	बलिनम् balínam	बलि balí				
I.	बलिना balínā		बलिभ्याम् balíbhyaṃ		बलिभिस् balíbhis	
D.	बलिने balíne				बलिभ्यस् balíbhyaś	
Ab.	बलिनस् balínas					
G.			बलिनोस् balínos		बलिनाम् balínām	
L.	बलिनि balíni				बलिषु balíṣu	
V.	बलिन bálin	बलिन, बलि bálin, bálí	बलिनौ bálināu	बलिनी bálinī	बलिनस् bálinas	बलीनि bálīni

a. The derived feminine stem in inī is inflected, of course, like any other feminine in derivative ī (364).

441. a. There are no irregularities in the inflection of in-stems, in either the earlier language or the later — except the usual Vedic dual ending in ā instead of āu.

b. Stems in in exchange with stems in i throughout the whole history of the language, those of the one class being developed out of those of the other often through transitional forms. In a much smaller number of cases, stems in in are expanded to stems in ina: e.g. çākiná (RV.), çuṣmīṇa (B.), barhiṇa, bhajina.

E. Derivative stems (adjective) in ant (or at).

442. These stems fall into two sub-divisions: 1. those made by the suffix अन् ant (or अत् at), being, with a very few exceptions, active participles, present and future; 2. those made by the possessive suffixes मन् mant and वन् vant (or मत् mat and वत् vat). They are masculine and neuter only; the corresponding feminine is made by adding ई ī.

1. Participles in ant or at.

443. The stem has in general a double form, a stronger and a weaker, ending respectively in अन् ant and अत् at. The former is taken in the strong cases of the masculine, with, as usual, the nom.-acc.-voc. pl. neuter; the latter is taken by all the remaining cases.

a. But, in accordance with the rule for the formation of the feminine stem (below, 449), the future participles, and the present participles of verbs of the tud-class or accented á-class (752), and of verbs of the ad-class or root-class ending in ā, are by the grammarians allowed to make the nom.-acc.-voc. du. neut. from either the stronger or the weaker stem; and the present participles from all other present-stems ending in a are required to make the same from the strong stem.

444. Those verbs, however, which in the 3d pl. pres. active lose न् n of the usual ending न्ति nti (550 b), lose it also in the present participle, and have no distinction of strong and weak stem.

a. Such are the verbs forming their present-stem by reduplication without adding a: namely, those of the reduplicating or hu-class (655) and the intensives (1012): thus, from √ hu, present-stem juhu, participle-stem júhvat; intensive-stem johu, intensive participle-stem jóhvat. Further, the participles of roots apparently containing a contracted reduplication: namely, cákṣat, dáṣat, dāsat, ṣāsat, sāṣat; the aorist participle dhákṣat, and vāghát (?). Vavṛdhánt (RV., once), which has the n notwithstanding its reduplication, comes, like the desiderative participles (1032), from a stem in a: compare vāvṛdhánta, vāvṛdhásva.

b. Even these verbs are allowed by the grammarians to make the nom.-acc.-voc. pl. neut. in anti.

445. The inflection of these stems is quite regular. The nom. sing. masc. comes to end in अन् an by the regular (150) loss of the two final consonants from the etymological form अन्त्s ants. The vocative of each gender is like the nominative.

446. Stems accented on the final syllable throw the accent forward upon the case-ending in the weakest cases (not in the middle also).

a. In the dual neut. (as in the feminine stem) from such participles, the accent is ántī if the n is retained, atí if it is lost.

447. Examples of declension. As such may serve भवन् bhávant *being*, अदन् adánt *eating*, जुह्व जुह्वत *sacrificing*. Thus:

Singular:						
N.	भवन् bhávan	भवत् bhávat	अदन् adán	अदत् adát	जुह्वत् júhvat	जुह्वत् júhvat
A.	भवन्तम् bhávantam	भवत् bhávat	अदन्तम् adántam	अदत् adát	जुह्वन्तम् júhvatam	जुह्वत् júhvat
I.	भवता bhávatā		अदता adatā		जुह्वता júhvatā	
D.	भवते bhávate		अदते adaté		जुह्वते júhvate	
Ab. G.	भवतस् bhávatas		अदतस् adatás		जुह्वतस् júhvatas	
L.	भवति bhávati		अदति adatí		जुह्वति júhvati	

V.	भवन् bhávan	भवत् bhávat	अदन् ádan	अदत् ádat	जुह्वत् júhvat	
Dual:						
N. A. V.	भवन्तौ bhávantāu	भवन्ती bhávantī	अदन्तौ adántāu	अदती adatī	जुह्वतौ júhvatāu	जुह्वती júhvatī
I. D. Ab.	भवद्भ्याम् bhávadbhyām		अदद्भ्याम् adádbhyām		जुह्वद्भ्याम् júhvadbhyām	
G. L.	भवतोस् bhávatos		अदतोस् adatós		जुह्वतोस् júhvatós	
Plural:						
N. V.	भवन्तस् bhávantas	भवन्ति bhávanti	अदन्तस् adántas	अदन्ति adánti	जुह्वतस् júhvatás	जुह्वति júhvatī
A.	भवतस् bhávatas	भवन्ति bhávanti	अदतस् adatás	अदन्ति adánti	जुह्वतस् júhvatás	जुह्वति júhvatī
I.	भवद्भिस् bhávadbhis		अदद्भिस् adádbhis		जुह्वद्भिस् júhvadbhis	
D. Ab.	भवद्भ्यस् bhávadbhyas		अदद्भ्यस् adádbhyas		जुह्वद्भ्यस् júhvadbhyas	
G.	भवताम् bhávatām		अदताम् adatām		जुह्वताम् júhvatām	
L.	भवत्सु bhávatsu		अदत्सु adátsu		जुह्वत्सु júhvatstu	

a. The future participle bhaviṣyánt may form in nom. etc. dual neuter either bhaviṣyántī or bhaviṣyatī; tudánt, either tudántī or tudatī; yánt (vyā), either yántī or yātī. And júhvat, in nom. etc. plural neuter, may make also júhvanti (beside júhvati, as given in the paradigm above).

b. But these strong forms (as well as bhávanti, du., and its like from present-stems in unaccented a) are quite contrary to general analogy, and of somewhat doubtful character. No example of them is quotable, either from the older or from the later language. The cases concerned, indeed, would be everywhere of rare occurrence.

448. The Vedic derivations from the model as above given are few. The dual ending āu is only one sixth as common as ā. Anomalous accent is seen in a case or two: acodáte, rathirāyátām, and vāghádbhis (if this is a participle). The only instance in V. of nom. etc. pl. neut. is sánti, with lengthened ā (compare the forms in ānti, below, 451 a, 454 c); one or two examples in anti are quotable from B.

449. The feminine participle-stem, as already stated, is made by adding ई ī to either the strong or the weak stem-form of the masc.-neut. The rules as to which of the two forms shall be taken are the same with those given above respecting the nom. etc. dual neuter; namely:

a. Participles from tense-stems ending in unaccented a add ī to the strong stem-form, or make their feminines in antī.

b. Such are the bhū or unaccented a-class and the dīv or ya-class of present-stems (chap. IX.), and the desideratives and causatives (chap. XIV.): thus, from √bhū (stem bháva), bhávantī; from √dīv (stem dívya), dívyantī; from búbhūṣa and bhāváyā (desid. and caus. of √bhū), búbhūṣantī and bhāváyantī.

c. Exceptions to this rule are now and then met with, even from the earliest period. Thus, RV. has járatī, and AV. the desiderative síṣāsatī; in B. occur vadatī, ṣocatī, tṛpyatī, and in S. further tiṣṭhatī, and the causative namayatī; while in the epics and later such cases (including desideratives and causatives) are more numerous (about fifty are quotable), though still only sporadic.

d. Participles from tense-stems in accented á may add the feminine-sign either to the strong or to the weak stem-form, or may make their feminines in ántī or in atī (with accent as here noted).

e. Such are the present-stems of the tud or accented á-class (751 ff.), the s-futures (932 ff.), and the denominatives (1053 ff.): thus, from √tud (stem tudá), tudántī or tudatī; from bhaviṣyá (fut. of √bhū), bhaviṣyántī or bhaviṣyatī; from devayá (denom. of devá), devayántī or devayatī.

f. The forms in ántī from this class are the prevailing ones. No future fem. participle in atī is quotable from the older language. From pres.-stems in á are found there řñjatī and siñcstī (RV.), tudatī and pinvatī (AV.) From denominatives, devayatī (RV.), durasyatī and çatrūyatī (AV.). In BhP. occurs dhakṣyatī.

g. Verbs of the ad or root-class (611 ff.) ending in ā are given by the grammarians the same option as regard the feminine of the present participle: thus, from √yā, yántī or yātī. The older language affords no example of the former, so far as noted.

h. From other tense-stems than those already specified — that is to say, from the remaining classes of present-stems and from the intensives — the feminine is formed in atī (or, if the stem be otherwise accented than on the final, in atī) only.

i. Thus, adatī from √ad; júhvatī from √hu; yuñjatī from √yuj; sunvatī from √su; kurvatī from √kr; krīṇatī from √krī; dédiçatī from dédiç (intens. of √diç).

j. Feminine stems of this class are occasionally (but the case is much less frequent than its opposite: above, c) found with the nasal: thus, yántī (AV., once), undántī (ÇB.; but probably from the secondary á-stem), gr̥h̥antī (S.), and, in the epics and later, such forms as bruvantī, rudantī, cinvantī, kurvantī, jānantī, muṣṇantī.

450. A few words are participial in form and inflection, though not in meaning. Thus:

a. bṛhánt (often written vṛhánt) *great*; it is inflected like a participle (with bṛhatī and bṛhánti in du. and pl. neut.).

b. mahánt *great*; inflected like a participle, but with the irregularity that the a of the ending is lengthened in the strong forms: thus, mahán, mahántam; mahántāu (neut. mahatī); mahántas, mahánti: instr. mahatā etc.

c. pṛśant *speckled*, and (in Veda only) rúçant *shining*.

d. jágat *moveable, lively* (in the later language, as neuter noun, *world*), a reduplicated formation from √gam *go*; its nom. etc. neut. pl. is allowed by the grammarians to be only jáganti.

e. ṛhánt *small* (only once, in RV., ṛhaté).

f. All these form their feminine in atī only: thus, bṛhatī, mahatī, pṛśatī and rúcatī (contrary to the rule for participles), jágatī.

g. For dánt *tooth*, which is perhaps of participial origin, see above, 396.

451. The pronominal adjectives íyant and kíyant are inflected like adjectives in mant and vant, having (452) íyān and kíyān as nom. masc. sing., íyatī and kíyatī as nom. etc. du. neut. and as feminine stems, and íyanti and kíyanti as nom. etc. plur. neut.

a. But the neut. pl. íyanti and the loc. sing. (?) kíyāti are found in RV.

2. Possessives in mant or vant.

452. The adjectives formed by these two suffixes are inflected precisely alike, and very nearly like the participles in अन् ant. From the latter they differ only by lengthening अ a in the nom. sing. masc.

a. The voc. sing. is in an, like that of the participle (in the later language, namely: for that of the oldest, see below, 454 b). The neut. nom. etc. are in the dual only atī (or átī), and in the plural anti (or ánti).

b. The feminine is always made from the weak stem: thus, matī, vatī (or mátī, vátī). One or two cases of nī instead of ī are met with: thus, antárvatnī (B. and later), patívatnī (C.).

c. The accent, however, is never thrown forward (as in the participle) upon the case-ending or the feminine ending.

453. To illustrate the inflection of such stems, it will be sufficient to give a part of the forms of पशुमन् paçumánt *possessing cattle*, and भगवन् bhágavant *fortunate, blessed*. Thus:

Singular:				
	m.	n.	m.	n.
N.	पशुमान् paçumān	पशुमत् paçumát	भगवान् bhágavān	भगवत् bhágavat
A.	पशुमन्तस् paçumántam	पशुमत् paçumát	भगवन्तस् bhágavantam	भगवत् bhágavat
I.	पशुमता paçumátā etc.		भगवता bhágavatā etc.	
V.	पशुमन् páçuman	पशुमत् páçumat	भगवन् bhágavan	भगवत् bhágavat
Dual:				
N. A. V.	पशुमन्तौ paçumántāu etc.	पशुमती paçumátī	भगवन्तौ bhágavantāu etc.	भगवती bhágavatī
Plural:				
N. V.	पशुमन्तस् paçumántas	पशुमन्ति paçumánti	भगवन्तस् bhágavantas	भगवन्ति bhágavanti
A.	पशुमतस् paçumátas	पशुमन्ति paçumánti	भगवतस् bhágavatas	भगवन्ति bhágavanti
I.	पशुमद्भिस् paçumádbhis etc.		भगवद्भिस् bhágavadbhis etc.	

454. Vedic Irregularities. a. In dual masc. nom. etc., ā (for āu) is the greatly prevailing ending.

b. In voc. sing. masc., the ending in the oldest language (RV.) is almost always in as instead of an (as in the perfect participle: below, 462 a): thus, adrivas, harivas, bhānumas, haviṣmas. Such vocatives in RV. occur more than a hundred times, while not a single unquestionable instance of one in an is to be found. In the other Vedic texts, vocatives in as are extremely rare (but bhagavas and its contraction bhagos are met with, even in the later language); and in their reproduction of RV

passages the *as* is usually changed to *an*. It was pointed out above (425 g) that the RV. makes the *voc. in as* also apparently from a few *an*-stems.

C. In RV., the *nom. etc. pl. neut.*, in the only two instances that occur, ends in *ānti* instead of *anti*: thus, *ghṛtāvānti*, *paçumānti*. No such forms have been noted elsewhere in the older language: the SV. reads *anti* in its version of the corresponding passages, and a few examples of the same ending are quotable from the Brāhmaṇas: thus, *tāvanti*, *etāvanti*, *yāvanti*, *ghṛtāvanti*, *pravanti*, *ṛtumanti*, *yugmanti*. Compare 448, 451.

d. In a few (eight or ten) more or less doubtful cases, a confusion of strong and weak forms of stem is made; they are too purely sporadic to require reporting. The same is true of a case or two where a masculine form appears to be used with a feminine noun.

455. The stem *árvant* *running, steed*, has the *nom. sing.* *árvā*, from *árvan*; and in the older language also the *voc. arvan* and *accus. árvāṇam*.

456. Besides the participle *bhávant*, there is another stem *bhávant*, frequently used in respectful address as substitute for the pronoun of the second person (but construed, of course, with a verb in the third person), which is formed with the suffix *vant*, and so declined, having in the *nom. sing.* *bhāvān*; and the contracted form *bhos* of its old-style vocative *bhavas* is a common exclamation of address: *you, sir!* Its origin has been variously explained; but it is doubtless a contraction of *bhágavant*.

457. The pronominal adjectives *távant*, *etávant*, *yávant*, and the Vedic *ívant*, *mávant*, *tvávant*, etc., are inflected like ordinary derivatives from nouns.

F. Perfect Participles in *vāṅs*.

458. The active participles of the perfect tense-system are quite peculiar as regards the modifications of their stem. In the strong cases, including the *nom.-acc.-voc. pl. neut*, the form of their suffix is *वांस्* *vāṅs*, which becomes, by regular process (150), *vān* in the *nom. sing.*, and which is shortened to *वन्* *van* in the *voc. sing.* In the weakest cases, the suffix is contracted into *उश्* *uṣ*. In the middle cases, including the *nom.-acc.-voc. neut. sing.*, it is changed to *वत्* *vat*.

a. A union-vowel *i*, if present in the strong and middle cases, disappears in the weakest, before *uṣ*.

459. The forms as thus described are masculine and neuter only; the corresponding feminine is made by adding ई ī to the weakest form of stem, ending thus in उषी úṣī.

460. The accent is always upon the suffix, whatever be its form.

461. Examples of inflection. To show the inflection of these participles, we may take the stems विद्वांस् vidvāṅs *knowing* (which has irregular loss of the usual reduplication and of the perfect meaning) from √विद् vid, and तस्थिवांस् tasthivāṅs *having stood* from √स्था sthā.

Singular:				
	m.	n.	m.	n.
N.	विद्वान् vidvān	विद्वत् vidvát	तस्थिवान् tasthivān	तस्थिवत् tasthivát
A.	विद्वांसम् vidvāṅsam	विद्वत् vidvát	तस्थिवांसम् tasthivāṅsam	तस्थिवत् tasthivát
I.	विदुषा vidúṣā		तस्थुषा tasthúṣā	
D.	विदुषे vidúṣe		तस्थुषे tasthúṣe	
Ab. G.	विदुषस् vidúṣas		तस्थुषस् tasthúṣas	
L.	विदुषि vidúṣi		तस्थुषि tasthúṣi	
V.	विद्वन् vídvan	विद्वत् vídvat	तस्थिवन् tástthivan	तस्थिवत् tástthivat
Dual:				
N. A. V.	विद्वांसौ vidvāṅsāu	विदुषी vidúṣī	तस्थिवांसौ tasthivāṅsāu	तस्थुषी tasthúṣī
I. D. Ab.	विद्वद्भ्याम् vidvadbhyām		तस्थिवद्भ्याम् tasthivadbhyām	
G. L.	विदुषोस् vidúṣos		तस्थुषोस् tasthúṣos	

Plural:				
N. V.	विद्वांसम् vidvāṅsas	विद्वांसि vidvāṅsi	तस्थिवांसम् tasthivāṅsas	तस्थिवांसि tasthivāṅsi
A.	विदुषम् vidúṣas	विद्वांसि vidvāṅsi	तस्थुषम् tasthúṣas	तस्थिवांसि tasthivāṅsi
I.	विद्वद्भिस् vidvādbhis		तस्थिवद्भिस् tasthivādbhis	
D.	विद्वद्भ्यस् vidvādbhyas		तस्थिवद्भ्यस् tasthivādbhyas	
Ab. G.	विदुषाम् vidúṣām		तस्थुषाम् tasthúṣām	
L.	विद्वत्सु vidvātsu		तस्थिवत्सु tasthivātsu	

a. The feminine stems of these two participles are विदुषी vidúṣī and तस्थुषी tasthúṣī.

b. Other examples of the different stems are:

from √kṛ — cakṛvāṅs, cakṛvát, cakrúṣ, cakrúṣī;

from √nī — ninīvāṅs, ninīvát, ninyúṣ, ninyúṣī;

from √bhū — babhūvāṅs, babhūvát, babhūvúṣ, babhūvúṣī;

from √tan — tenivāṅs, tenivát, tenúṣ, tenúṣī.

462. a. In the oldest language (RV.), the vocative sing. masc. (like that of vant and mant-stems: above, 454 b) has the ending vas instead of van: thus, cikitvas (changed to -van in a parallel passage of AV.), titirvas, dīdivas, mīḍhvas.

b. Forms from the middle stem, in vat, are extremely rare earlier: only three (tatanvát and vavṛtvát, neut. sing., and jāgrvādbhis, instr. pl.), are found in RV., and not one in AV. And in the Veda the weakest stem (not, as later, the middle one) is made the basis of comparison and derivation: thus, vidúṣṭara, ádāṇuṣṭara, mīḍhúṣṭama, mīḍhúṣṭmant.

c. An example or two of the use of the weak stem-form for cases regularly made from the strong are found in RV.: they are cakrúṣam, acc. sing., and ábibhyuṣas, nom. pl.; emuṣám, by its accent (unless an error), is rather from a derivative stem emuṣá; and ÇB. has proṣúṣam. Similar instances, especially from vidvāṅs, are now and then met with later (see BR., under vidvāṅs).

d. The AV. has once bhaktivāṅsas, as if a participial form from a noun; but K. and TB. give in the corresponding passage bhaktivānas; cakhvāṅsam (RV., once) is of doubtful character; okivāṅsā (RV., once) shows a reversion to guttural form of the final of √ uc, elsewhere unknown.

G. Comparatives in yāṅs or yas.

463. The comparative adjectives of primary formation (below, 467) have a double form of stem for masculine and neuter: a stronger, ending in **यांस्** yāṅs (usually **ईयांस्** īyāṅs) in the strong cases, and a weaker, in **यस्** yas (or **ईयस्** īyas), in the weak cases (there being no distinction of middle and weakest). The voc. sing. masc. ends in **यन्** yan (but for the older language see below, 465 a).

a. The feminine is made by adding **ई** ī to the weak masc.-neut. stem.

464. As models of inflection, it will be sufficient to give a part of the forms of **श्रेयस्** ṣréyas *better*, and of **गरीयस्** gārīyas *heavier*. Thus:

Singular.				
N.	श्रेयान् ṣréyān	श्रेयस् ṣréyas	गरीयान् gārīyān	गरीयस् gārīyas
A.	श्रेयांसम् ṣréyāṅsam	श्रेयस् ṣréyas	गरीयांसम् gārīyāṅsam	गरीयस् gārīyas
I.	श्रेयसा ṣréyasā		गरीयसा gārīyasā	
	etc.		etc.	
V.	श्रेयन् ṣréyan	श्रेयस् ṣréyas	गरीयन् gārīyan	गरीयस् gārīyas
Dual:				
N. A. V.	श्रेयांसौ ṣréyāṅsāu	श्रेयसी ṣréyasī	गरीयांसौ gārīyāṅsāu	गरीयसी gārīyasī
	etc.		etc.	
Plural:				
N. V.	श्रेयांसस् ṣréyāṅsas	श्रेयांसि ṣréyāṅsi	गरीयांसस् gārīyāṅsas	गरीयांसि gārīyāṅsi
A.	श्रेयसस् ṣréyasas	श्रेयांसि ṣréyāṅsi	गरीयसस् gārīyasas	गरीयांसि gārīyāṅsi
I.	श्रेयोभिस् ṣréyobhis		गरीयोभिस् gārīyobhis	
	etc.		etc.	

a. The feminine stems of these adjectives are श्रेयसी ṣréyasī and गरीयसी gārīyasī.

485. a. The Vedic voc. masc. (as in the two preceding divisions: 454 b, 462 a) is in yas instead of yan: thus, ojīyas, jyāyas (RV.: no examples elsewhere have been noted).

b. No example of a middle case occurs in RV. or AV.

c. In the later language are found a very few apparent examples of strong cases made from the weaker stem-form: thus, kanīyasam and yavīyasam acc. masc., kanīyasāu du., yavīyasas nom. pl.

Comparison.

466. Derivative adjective stems having a comparative and superlative meaning — or often also (and more originally) a merely intensive value — are made either directly from roots (by primary derivation), or from other derivative or compound stems (by secondary derivation).

a. The subject of comparison belongs more properly to the chapter of derivation; but it stands in such near relation to inflection that it is, in accordance with the usual custom in grammars, conveniently and suitably enough treated briefly here.

467. The suffixes of primary derivation are ईयस् īyas (or ईयांस् īyāñs) for the comparative and इष्ठ isṭha for the superlative. The root before them is accented, and usually strengthened by gunating, if capable of it — or, in some cases, by nasalization or prolongation. They are much more frequently and freely used in the oldest language than later; in the classical Sanskrit, only a limited number of such comparatives and superlatives are accepted in use; and these attach themselves in meaning for the most part to other adjectives from the same root, which seem to be their corresponding positives; but in part also they are artificially connected with other words, unrelated with them in derivation.

a. Thus, from √kṣip *hurl* come kṣépīyas and kṣépiṣṭha, which belong in meaning to kṣiprá *quick*; from √vṛ *encompass* come vārīyas and vāriṣṭha, which belong to urú *broad*; while, for example,

kānīyas and kāniṣṭha are attached by the grammarians to yúvan *young*, or álpa *small*; and várṣīyas and várṣiṣṭha to vṛddhá *old*.

468. From Veda and Brāhmaṇa together, considerably more than a hundred instances of this primary formation in īyas and iṣṭha (in many cases only one of the pair actually occurring) are to be quoted.

a. About half of these (in RV., the decided majority) belong, in meaning as in form, to the bare root in its adjective value, as used especially at the end of compounds, but sometimes also independently: thus, from √tap *burn* comes tápiṣṭha *excessively burning*; from √yaj *offer* come yájīyas and yájiṣṭha *better* and *best* (or *very well*) *sacrificing*; from √yudh *fight* comes yódhīyas *fighting better*; — in a few instances, the simple root is also found used as corresponding positive: thus, jú *hasty, rapid* with jávīyas and jáviṣṭha.

b. In a little class of instances (eight), the root has a preposition prefixed, which then takes the accent: thus, ágamiṣṭha *especially coming hither*; vícayiṣṭha *best clearing away*; — in a couple of cases (áčramiṣṭha, áparāvapiṣṭha, ástheyas), the negative particle is prefixed; — in a single word (čāmbhaviṣṭha), an element of another kind.

c. The words of this formation sometimes take an accusative object (see 271 e).

d. But even in the oldest language appears not infrequently the same attachment in meaning to a derivative adjective which (as pointed out above) is usual in the later speech.

e. Besides the examples that occur also later, others are met with like váriṣṭha *choicest* (vára *choice*), bárhiṣṭha *greatest* (brhánt *great*), óṣiṣṭha *quickest* (óṣam *quickly*), and so on. Probably by analogy with these, like formations are in a few cases made from the apparently radical syllables of words which have no otherwise traceable root in the language: thus, kradhīyas and kradhiṣṭha (K.) from kṛdhú, sthāvīyas and sthāviṣṭha from sthūrā, čáčīyas (RV.) from čáčvant, áñīyas (AV.) and áñiṣṭha (TS.) from aṇú; and so on. And yet again, in a few exceptional cases, the suffixes īyas and iṣṭha are applied to stems which are themselves palpably derivative: thus, áçiṣṭha from āçú (RV.: only case), tíkṣṇīyas (AV.) from tíkṣṇá, bráhmīyas and bráhmiṣṭha (TS. etc.) from bráhman, dhármiṣṭha (TA.) from dhárman, dráḍhiṣṭha (TA.: instead of dárhiṣṭha) from dṛḍhá, rághīyas (TS.) from raghu. These are beginnings, not followed up later, of the extension of the formation to unlimited use.

f. In nāvīyas or návyas and náviṣṭha, from náva *new*, and in sányas from sána *old* (all RV.), we have also formations unconnected with verbal roots.

469. The stems in iṣṭha are inflected like ordinary adjectives in a, and make their feminines in ā; those in īyas have a peculiar declension, which has been described above (463 ff.).

470. Of peculiarities and irregularities of formation, the following may be noticed:

a. The suffix *īyas* has in a few instances the briefer form *yas*, generally as alternative with the other: thus, *tāvīyas* and *távyas*, *nāvīyas* and *návyas*, *vāsīyas* and *vásyas*, *pānīyas* and *pányas*; and so from *rabh* and *sah*; *sányas* occurs alone. From *bhū* come *bhūyas* and *bhūyiṣṭha*, beside which RV. has also *bhāvīyas*.

b. Of roots in *ā*, the final blends with the initial of the suffix to *e*: thus, *sthéyas*, *dhéṣṭha*, *yéṣṭha*; but such forms are in the Veda generally to be resolved, as *dháiṣṭha*, *yáiṣṭha*. The root *gyā* forms *gyéṣṭha*, but *gyāyas* (like *bhūyas*).

c. The two roots in *ī*, *prī* and *ṣrī*, form *préyas* and *préṣṭha* and *ṣréyas* and *ṣréṣṭha*.

d. From the root of *ṛjú* come, without strengthening, *ṛjīyas* and *ṛjīṣṭha*; but in the older language also, more regularly, *rājīyas* and *rājīṣṭha*.

471. The suffixes of secondary derivation are *तर* *tara* and *तम* *tama*. They are of almost unrestricted application, being added to adjectives of every form, simple and compound, ending in vowels or in consonants — and this from the earliest period of the language until the latest. The accent of the primitive remains (with rare exceptions) unchanged; and that form of stem is generally taken which appears before an initial consonant of a case-ending (weak or middle form).

a. Examples (of older as well as later occurrence) are: from vowel-stems, *priyátara*, *váhnitama*, *rathítara* and *rathítama* (RV.), *cárutara*, *potítama*, *saṁraktatara*; — from consonant-stems, *çámtama*, *çáčvattama*, *mṛdayáttama*, *tavástara* and *tavástama*, *tuvíṣṭama*, *vápuṣṭara*, *tapasvítara*, *yaçasvítama*, *bhágavattara*, *hiraṇyavāçīmattama*; — from compounds, *ratnadhātama*, *abhibhútara*, *sukítara*, *pūrbhíttama*, *bhūyiṣṭabháktama*, *bhūridāvattara*, *çúçivratatama*, *strīkāmatama*.

b. But in the Veda the final *n* of a stem is regularly retained; thus, *madíntara* and *madíntama*, *vṛṣántama*; and a few stems even add a nasal: thus, *surabhíntara*, *rayíntama*, *madhúntama*. In a case or two, the strong stem of a present participle is taken: thus, *vrádhantama*, *sáhanntama*; and, of a perfect participle, the weakest stem: thus, *vidúṣṭara*, *mīḍhúṣṭama*. A feminine final *ī* is shortened: thus, *devitamā* (RV.), *tejasvinitamā* (K.).

c. In the older language, the words of this formation are not much more frequent than those of the other: thus, in RV. the stems in tara and tama are to those in īyas and iṣṭha as three to two; in AV., only as six to five: but later the former win a great preponderance.

472. These comparatives and superlatives are inflected like ordinary adjectives in a, forming their feminine in ā.

473. a. That (especially in the Veda) some stems which are nouns rather than adjectives form derivatives of comparison is natural enough, considering the uncertain nature of the division-line between substantive and adjective value. Thus, we have vīrātara, vīrātama, vāhnitama, mātītama, nītama, marūtama, and so on.

b. The suffixes tara and tama also make forms of comparison from some of the pronominal roots, as ka, ya, i (see below, 520); and from certain of the prepositions, as ud; and the adverbially used accusative (older, neuter, -taram; later, feminine, -tarām) of a comparative in tara from a preposition is employed to make a corresponding comparative to the preposition itself (below, 1119); while -tarām and -tamām make degrees of comparison from a few adverbs: thus, natarām, natamām, kathamtarām, kutastarām, addhātamām, nīcāistarām, etc.

c. By a wholly barbarous combination, finding no warrant in the earlier and more genuine usages of the language, the suffixes of comparison in their adverbial feminine form, -tarām and -tamām, are later allowed to be added to personal forms of verbs: thus, sīdatetarām (R.: the only case noted in the epics) *is more despondent*, vyathayatitarām *disturbs more*, alabhatatarām *obtained in a higher degree*, hasiṣyatitarām *will laugh more*. No examples of this use of -tamām are quotable.

d. The suffixes of secondary comparison are not infrequently added to those of primary, forming double comparatives and superlatives: thus, garīyastara, çreṣṭhatara and çreṣṭhatama, pāpīyastara, pāpiṣṭhatara and -tama, bhūyastaram, etc.

a. The use of tama as ordinal suffix is noted below (487); with this value, it is accented on the final, and makes its feminine in ī: thus, çatatamá m. n., çatatamī f., *hundredth*.

474. From a few words, mostly prepositions, degrees of comparison are made by the briefer suffixes ra and ma: thus, ádhara and adhamá, ápara and apamá, ávara and avamá, úpara and upamá, ántara, ántama, paramá, madhyamá, caramá, antima, ādima, paçcima. And ma is also used to make ordinals (below, 487).

CHAPTER VI.

NUMERALS.

475. The simple cardinal numerals for the first ten numbers (which are the foundation of the whole class), with their derivatives, the tens, and with some of the higher members of the decimal series, are as follows:

1	एक éka	10	दश dáça	100	शत çatá
2	द्व dvá	20	विंशति viñcatí	1000	सहस्र sahásra
3	त्रि trí	30	त्रिंशत् triñçát	10,000	अयुत ayúta
4	चतुर् catúr	40	चत्वारिंशत् catvāriñçát	100,000	लक्ष lakṣá
5	पञ्च pañca	50	पञ्चाशत् pañcāçát	1,000,000	प्रयुत prayúta
6	षष्ठ ṣaṣṭ	60	षष्टि ṣaṣṭi	10,000,000	कोटि kóṭi
7	सप्त saptá	70	सप्तति saptatí	10 ⁸	अर्बुद arbudá
8	अष्ट aṣṭá	80	अशीति aṣṭi	10 ⁹	महार्बुद mahārbuda
9	नव náva	90	नवति navatí	10 ¹⁰	खर्व kharvá
10	दश dáça	100	शत çatá	10 ¹¹	निखर्व nikharva

a. The accent saptá and aṣṭá is that belonging to these words in all accentuated texts; according to the grammarians, they are sápta and áṣṭa in the later language. See below, 483.

b. The series of decimal numbers may be carried still further; but there are great differences among the different authorities with

regard to their names; and there is more or less of discordance even from ayúta on.

c. Thus, in the TS. and MS. we find ayúta, niyúta, prayúta, árbuda, nyàrbuda, samudrá, mádhyā, ánta, parārdhá; K. reverses the order of niyúta and prayúta, and inserts badva after nyarbuda (reading nyarbudha): these are probably the oldest recorded series.

d. In modern time, the only numbers in practical use above *thousand* are lakṣa (*lac* or *lakh*) and koṭi (*crore*); and an Indian sum is wont to be pointed thus: 123,45,67,890, to signify *123 crores, 45 lakhs, 67 thousand, eight hundred and ninety*.

e. As to the alleged stem-forms pañcan etc., see below, 484. As to the form ṣakṣ instead of ṣaṣ, see above, 146b. The stem dva appears in composition and derivation also as dvā and dvi; catúr in composition is accented cātúr. The older form of aṣṭa is aṣṭā: see below, 483. Forms in -ṇat and -ṇati for the tens are occasionally interchanged: e. g. viṇṇat (MBh. R.), triṇṇati (AB.), pañcāṇati (RT.).

f. The other numbers are expressed by the various composition and syntactical combination of those given above. Thus :

476. The odd numbers between the even tens are made by prefixing the (accented) unit to the ten to which its value is to be added: but with various irregularities. Thus:

a. eka in 11 becomes ekā, but is elsewhere unchanged;

b. dva becomes everywhere dvā; but in 42–72 and in 92 it is interchangeable with dvi, and in 82 dvi alone is used;

c. for tri is substituted its nom. pl. masc. trāyas; but tri itself is also allowed in 43–73 and in 93, and in 83 tri alone is used;

d. ṣaṣ becomes ṣo in 16, and makes the initial d of daṣa lingual (199d); elsewhere its final undergoes the regular conversion (226 b, 198 b) to ṭ or ḍ or ṇ; and in 96 the n of navati is assimilated to it (199c);

e. aṣṭa becomes aṣṭā (483) in 18–38, and has either form in the succeeding combinations.

f. Thus:

11	ékādaṣa	31	ékatriṇṇat	61	ékaṣaṣṭi	81	ékāṇṇati
12	dvādaṣa	32	dvātriṇṇat	62	dvāṣaṣṭi dviṣaṣṭi	82	dvyāṇṇati
13	trāyodaṣa	33	trāyastriṇṇat	63	trāyaḥṣaṣṭi triṣaṣṭi	83	tryāṇṇati
14	cāturdaṣa	34	cātustriṇṇat	64	cātuḥṣaṣṭi	84	cāturaṇṇati
15	pāñcadaṣa	35	pāñcatriṇṇat	65	pāñcaṣaṣṭi	85	pāñcāṇṇati
16	ṣoḍaṣa	36	ṣaṭtriṇṇat	66	ṣaṭṣaṣṭi	86	ṣāḍaṇṇati
17	saptādaṣa	37	saptātriṇṇat	67	saptaṣaṣṭi	87	saptāṇṇati
18	aṣṭādaṣa	38	aṣṭātriṇṇat	68	aṣṭāṣaṣṭi aṣṭāṣaṣṭi	88	aṣṭāṇṇati
19	nāvadaṣa	39	nāvatriṇṇat	69	nāvaṣaṣṭi	89	nāvāṇṇati

g. The numbers 21–29 are made like those for 31–39; the numbers 41–49, 51–59, 71–79, and 91–99 are made like those for 61–69.

h. The forms made with *dvā* and *trayas* are more usual than those with *dvi* and *tri*, which are hardly to be quoted from the older literature (V. and Br.). The forms made with *aṣṭā* (instead of *aṣṭa*) are alone found in the older literature (483), and are usual in the later.

477. The above are the normal expressions for the odd numbers. But equivalent substitutes for them are also variously made. Thus:

a. By use of the adjectives *ūna* *deficient* and *adhika* *redundant*, in composition with lesser numbers which are to be subtracted or added, and either independently qualifying or (more usually) in composition with larger numbers which are to be increased or diminished by the others: thus, *tryūnaṣaṣṭiḥ* *sixty deficient by three* (i. e. 57); *aṣṭādhikanavatiḥ* *ninety increased by eight* (i. e. 98); *ekādhikaṁ ṣaṭam* *a hundred increased by one* (i. e. 101); *pañconam ṣaṭam* *100 less 5* (i. e. 95). For the nines, especially, such substitutes as *ekonaviṁṣatiḥ* *20 less 1*, or *19*, are not uncommon; and later the *eka* 1 is left off, and *ūnaviṁṣati* etc. have the same value.

b. A case-form of a smaller number, generally *éka* *one* is connected by *ná* *not* with a larger number from which it is to be deducted: thus, *ékayā ná triṁśát* (ÇB. PB. KB.) *not thirty by one* (29); *dvābhyām ná 'ṣītīm* (ÇB.) *not eighty by two* (78); *pañcābhir ná catvāri ṣaṭāni* (ÇB.) *not four hundred by five* (395); *ékasmān ná pañcāṣāt* (in ordinal) *49* (TS.); *ékasyāi* (abl. fem. : 307 h) *ná pañcāṣāt* *49* (TS.); most often, *ékān* (i. e. *ékāt*, irregular abl. for *ékasmāt*) *ná viṁṣatiḥ* *19*; *ékān ná ṣaṭām* *99*. This last form is admitted also in the later language; the others are found in the Brāhmaṇas.

c. Instances of multiplication by a prefixed number are occasionally met with: thus, *triṣaptá* *thrice seven*; *triṇavá* *thrice nine*; *tridaśá* *thrice ten*.

d. Of course, the numbers to be added together may be expressed by independent words, with connecting *and*: thus, *náva ca navatiṣ ca*, or *náva navatiṣ ca* *ninety and nine*; *dvāú ca viṁṣatiṣ ca* *two and twenty*. But the connective is also (at least, in the older language) not seldom omitted: thus, *navatír náva* *99*; *triṁśataṁ trín* *33*; *aṣṭír aṣṭāú* *88*.

478. The same methods are also variously used for forming the odd numbers above 100. Thus:

a. The added number is prefixed to the other, and takes the accent: for example, *ékaṣaṭam* *101*; *aṣṭaṣaṭam* *108*; *triṁśacchaṭam* *130*; *aṣṭāviṁṣatiṣaṭam* *128*; *cātuḥsahasram* (RV.: unless the accent is wrong) *1004*; *aṣṭisahasram* *1080*.

b. Or, the number to be added is compounded with *adhika redundant*, and the compound is either made to qualify the other number or is further compounded with it: thus, *pañcādhikaṃ ṣaṭam* or *pañcādhikaṣaṭam 105*. Of course, *ūna deficient* (as also other words equivalent to *ūna* or *adhika*) may be used in the same way: thus, *pañconam ṣaṭam 95*, *ṣaṣṭiḥ pañcavarjitā 55*; *ṣaṭam abhyadhikaṃ ṣaṣṭiḥ 160*.

c. Syntactical combinations are made at convenience: for example, *dāṣa ṣaṭām ca 110*; *ṣaṭām ékaṃ ca 101*.

479. Another usual method (beginning in the *Brāhmaṇas*) of forming the odd numbers above 100 is to qualify the larger number by an adjective derived from the smaller, and identical with the briefer ordinal (below, 487): thus, *dvādaśām ṣaṭām 112* (lit'ly *a hundred of a 12-sort*, or *characterised by 12*); *catuṣcatvāriṇčām ṣaṭām 144*; *ṣaṣṣaṣṭām ṣaṭām 166*.

480. To multiply one number by another, among the higher or the lower denominations, the simplest and least ambiguous method is to make of the multiplied number a dual or plural, qualified by the other as any ordinary noun would be; and this method is a common one in all ages of the language. For example: *pāṇca pañcāṣṭas five fifties (250)*; *nāva navatāyas nine nineties (810)*; *aṣṭiḥ tisṛbhis with three eighties (240)*; *pāṇca ṣaṭāni five hundreds*; *trīṇi sahasrāṇi three thousands*; *ṣaṣṭiḥ sahasrāṇi 60,000*; *dāṣa ca sahasrāṇy aṣṭau ca ṣaṭāni 10,800*; and, combined with addition, *trīṇi ṣaṭāni trāyastriṇṣaṭam ca 333*; *sahasre dve pañconam ṣaṭam eva ca 2095*.

a. In an exceptional case or two, the ordinal form appears to take the place of the cardinal as multiplicand in a like combination: thus, *ṣaṭtriṇčāṇṣ ca catúraḥ (RV.) 36x4* (lit. *four of the thirty-six kind*); *trīṇr ekādaśān (RV.)* or *traya ekādaśāḥ (ÇÇS. viii. 21. 1) 11x3*.

b. By a peculiar and wholly illogical construction, such a combination as *trīṇi ṣaṣṭiṣaṭāni*, which ought to signify *480 (3x100+60)*, is repeatedly used in the *Brāhmaṇas* to mean *360 (3x100+60)*; so also *dvé catustriṇčé ṣaṭé 234* (not *268*); *dvāṣaṣṭāni trīṇi ṣaṭāni 362*; and other like cases. And even R. has *trayaḥ ṣaṭaṣaṭārdhāḥ 350*.

481. But the two factors, multiplier and multiplied, are also, and in later usage more generally, combined into a compound (accented on the final); and this is then treated as an adjective, qualifying the numbered noun; or else its neuter or feminine (in *ī*) singular is used substantively: thus, *dāṣaṣaṭās 1000*; *ṣaṣṭaṭāiḥ padātibhiḥ (MBh.) with 600 foot-soldiers*; *trāyastriṇṣaṭ triṣaṭāḥ ṣaṣṣahasrāḥ (AV.) 6333*; *dviṣaṭām or dviṣaṭī 200*; *aṣṭādaṣaṣaṭī 1800*.

a. In the usual absence of accentuation, there arises sometimes a question as to how a compound number shall be understood: whether *aṣṭaṣaṭam*, for example, is *aṣṭāṣaṭam 108* or *aṣṭaṣaṭām 800*, and the like.

482. Inflection. The inflection of the cardinal numerals is in many respects irregular. Gender is distinguished only by the first four.

a. Eka *one* is declined after the manner of a pronominal adjective (like *sárva*, below, 524); its plural is used in the sense of *some, certain ones*. Its dual does not occur.

b. Occasional forms of the ordinary declension are met with: thus, *éke* (loc. sing.), *ékāt* (477 b).

c. In the late literature, *eka* is used in the sense of *a certain*, or even sometimes almost of *a*, as an indefinite article. Thus, *eko vyāghraḥ* (H.) *a certain tiger*; *ekasmin dine* *on a certain day*; *haste daṇḍam ekam ādāya* (H.) *taking a stick in his hand*.

d. Dva *two* is dual only, and is entirely regular: thus, N. A. V. *dvāu* (dvā, Veda) m., *dvé* f. n.; I. D. Ab. *dvābhyām*; G. L. *dváyos*.

e. Tri *three* is in masc. and neut. nearly regular, like an ordinary stem in *i*; but the genitive is as if from *trayá* (only in the later language: the regular *trīṇām* occurs once in RV.). For the feminine it has the peculiar stem *tisṛ*, which is inflected in general like an *ṛ*-stem; but the nom. and accus. are alike, and show no strengthening of the *ṛ*; and the *ṛ* is not prolonged in the gen. (excepting in the Veda). Thus:

	m.	n.	f.
N.	tráyas	trīṇi	tisrás
A.	trīn	trīṇi	tisrás
I.	tribhís		tisṛbhis
D. Ab.	tribhyás		tisṛbhya
G.	trayāṇám		tisṛṇám
L.	triśú		tisṛśu

f. The Veda has the abbreviated neut. nom. and accus. *trí*. The accentuation *tisṛbhis*, *tisṛbhyaś*, *tisṛṇám*, and *tisṛśu* is said to be also allowed in the later language. The stem *tisṛ* occurs in composition in *tisṛdhanvá* (B.) *a bow with three arrows*.

g. Catúr *four* has *catvār* (the more original form) in the strong cases; in the fem. it substitutes the stem *cátasṛ*, apparently akin with *tisṛ*, and inflected like it (but with anomalous change of accent, like that in the higher numbers: see below, 483). Thus:

	m.	n.	f.
N.	catváras	catvári	cátasras
A.	catúras	catvári	cátasras
I.	catúrbhis		cátasṛbhis
D. Ab.	catúrbhyas		cátasṛbhyaś
G.	caturṇám		cátasṛṇám
L.	catúrśu		cátasṛśu.

h. The use of *n* before *ām* of the gen. masc. and neut. after a final consonant of the stem is (as in *śaś*: below, 483) a striking irregularity. The more regular gen. fem. *catasṛñām* also sometimes occurs. In the later language, the accentuation of the final syllable instead of the penult is said to be allowed in inst., dat.-abl., and loc.

483. The numbers from 5 to 19 have no distinction of gender, nor any generic character. They are inflected, somewhat irregularly, as plurals, save in the nom.-acc., where they have no proper plural form, but show the bare stem instead. Of *śaś* (as of *catúr*), *nām* is the gen. ending, with mutual assimilation (198 b) of stem-final and initial of the termination. *Aṣṭá* (as accented in the older language) has an alternative fuller form, *aṣṭā́*, which is almost exclusively used in the older literature (V. and B), both in inflection and in composition (but some compounds with *aṣṭa* are found as early as the AV.); its nom.-acc. is *aṣṭá* (usual later: found in RV. once, and in AV.), or *aṣṭā́* (RV.), or *aṣṭā́ú* (most usual in RV.; also in AV., B., and later).

a. The accent is in many respects peculiar. In all the accented texts, the stress of voice lies on the penult before the endings *bhis*, *bhyas*, and *su*, from the stems in *a*, whatever be the accent of the stem: thus, *pañcábhis* from *páñca*, *navábhyas* from *náva*, *daçásu* from *dáça*, *navadaçábhis* from *návadaça*, *ekādaçábhyas* from *ékādaça*, *dvādaçásu* from *dvādaça* (according to the grammarians, either the penult or the final is accented in these forms in the later language). In the gen. pl., the accent is on the ending (as in that of *i-*, *u-*, and *ṛ-*stems): thus, *pañcadaçānām*, *saptadaçānām*. The cases of *śaś*, and those made from the stem-form *aṣṭā́*, have the accent throughout upon the ending.

b. Examples of the inflection of these words are as follows:

N.A.	páñca	śát	aṣṭā́ú	aṣṭá
I.	pañcábhis	ṣaḍbhís	aṣṭā́bhís	aṣṭábhís
D. Ab.	pañcábhyas	ṣaḍbhyás	aṣṭā́bhyás	aṣṭábhyas
G.	pañcānām	ṣaṇṇām	aṣṭā́nām	
L.	pañcásu	ṣaṭsú	aṣṭā́sú	aṣṭásu.

c. *Saptá* (in the later language *sápṭa*, as *áṣṭa* for *aṣṭá*) and *náva* and *dáça*, with the compounds of *dáça* (11–19), are declined like *páñca*, and with the same shift of accent (or with alternative shift to the endings, as pointed out above).

484. The Hindu grammarians give to the stems for 5 and 7–19 a final *n*: thus, *pañcan*, *saptan*, *aṣṭan*, *navan*, *daçan*, and *ekādaçan* etc. This, however, has nothing to do with the demonstrably original final nasal of 7, 9, and 10 (compare *septem*, *novem*, *decem*; *seven*, *nine*, *ten*); it is only owing to the fact that, starting from such a stem-form, their inflection is made to assume a more regular aspect, the nom.-acc. having the form of a neut. sing. in *an*, and the instr., dat.-abl., and loc. that of a neut. or masc. pl. in *an*: compare *nāma*, *nāmabhis*, *nāma-*

bhyas, námasu — the gen. alone being, rather, like that of an a-stem: compare daçānām with índrānām and nāmnām or ātmánām. No trace whatever of a final n is found anywhere in the language, in inflection or derivation or composition, from any of these words (though ÇB. has twice daçarṁdaçín, for the usual daçadaçín).

485. a. The tens, viṇṇatí and triṇṇát etc., with their compounds, are declined regularly, as feminine stems of the same endings, and in all numbers.

b. Çatá and saháśra are declined regularly, as neuter (or, rarely, in the later language, as masculine) stems of the same final, in all numbers.

c. The like is true of the higher numbers — which have, indeed, no proper numeral character, but are ordinary nouns.

486. Construction. As regards their construction with the nouns enumerated by them —

a. The words for 1 to 19 are in the main used adjectively, agreeing in case, and, if they distinguish gender, in gender also, with the nouns: thus, daçábhir vīrāiḥ *with ten heroes*; yé devā divy ékādaça sthá (AV.) *what eleven gods of you are in heaven*; pañcāsu jáneṣu *among the five tribes*; cataśbhir gīrbhīḥ *with four songs*. Rarely occur such combinations as dáça kalāçānām (RV.) *ten pitchers*, ṛtūnām ṣaṭ (R.) *six seasons*.

b. The numerals above 19 are construed usually as nouns, either taking the numbered noun as a dependent genitive, or standing in the singular in apposition with it: thus, çataṁ dāsīḥ or çataṁ dāsīnām *a hundred slaves* or *a hundred of slaves*; viṇṇatyā háribhiḥ *with twenty bays*; ṣaṣṭyāṁ çarátṣu *in 60 autumns*; çatēna páçāiḥ *with a hundred fetters*; çatām saháśram ayútaṁ nyārbudaṁ jaghána çakró dásyūnām (AV.) *the mighty [Indra] slew a hundred, a thousand, a myriad, a hundred million, of demons*. Occasionally they are put in the plural, as if used more adjectively: thus, pañcāçadbhir bāṇāiḥ *with fifty arrows*.

c. In the older language, the numerals for 5 and upward are sometimes used in the nom.-acc. form (or as if indeclinably) with other cases also: thus, páñca kṛṣṭíṣu *among the five races*; sapta rṣīṇām *of seven bards*; saháśram íṣibhiḥ *with a thousand bards*; çatām pūrbhīḥ *with a hundred strongholds*. Sporadic instances of a like kind are also met with later.

487. Ordinals. Of the classes of derivative words coming from the original or cardinal numerals, the ordinals are by far the most important; and the mode of their formation may best be explained here.

Some of the first ordinals are irregularly made: thus,

a. éka 1 forms no ordinal; instead is used prathamá (i. e. *pratama foremost*); ādya (from ādi *beginning*) appears first in the Sūtras, and ādimā much later;

b. from dvá 2, and trí 3, come dvitīya and tṛtīya (secondarily, through dvita and abbreviated trita);

c. catúr 4, śaṣ 6, and saptá 7, take the ending tha: thus, caturthá, śaṣṭhá, saptátha; but for *fourth* are used also turīya and túrya, and saptátha belongs to the older language only; pañcatha, for *fifth*, is excessively rare;

d. the numerals for 5 and 7 usually, and for 8, 9, 10, add ma, forming pañcamá, saptamá, aṣṭamá, navamá, daṣamá;

e. for 11th to 19th, the forms are ekādaśá, dvādaśá, and so on (the same with the cardinals, except change of accent); but ekādaśama etc. occasionally occur also;

f. for the tens and intervening odd numbers from 20 onward, the ordinal has a double form — one made by adding the full (superlative) ending tamá to the cardinal: thus, viṇṇatitamá, triṇṇattamá, aṇṇititamá, etc.; the other, shorter, in a, with abbreviation of the cardinal: thus, viṇṇá 20th; triṇṇá 30th; catvāriṇṇá 40th; pañcāṇṇá 50th; śaṣṭá 60th; saptatá 70th; aṇṇitá 80th; navatá 90th; and so likewise ekaviṇṇá 21st, catustriṇṇá 34th; aṣṭacatvāriṇṇá 48th; dvāpañcāṇṇá 52d; ekaśaṣṭá 61st; and ekānnaviṇṇá and ūnaviṇṇá and ekonaviṇṇá 19th; — and so on. Of these two forms, the latter and briefer is by far the more common, the other being not quotable from the Veda, and extremely rarely from the Brāhmaṇas. From 50th on, the briefer form is allowed by the grammarians only to the odd numbers, made up of tens and units; but it is sometimes met with, even in the later language, from the simple ten.

g. Of the higher numbers, ṇatá and saḥásra form ṇatatamá and sahasratamá; but their compounds have also the simpler form: thus, ekaṇatá or ekaṇatatama 101st.

h. Of the ordinals, prathamá (and ādya), dvitīya, tṛtīya, and turīya (with túrya) form their feminine in ā; all the rest make it in ī.

488. The ordinals, as in other languages, have other than ordinal offices to fill; and in Sanskrit especially they are general adjectives to the cardinals, with a considerable variety of meanings, as fractionals, as signifying *composed of so many parts* or *so-many-fold*, or *containing so many*, or (as was seen above, 479) *having so many added*.

a. In a fractional sense, the grammarians direct that their accent be shifted to the first syllable: thus, dvitīya *half*; tṛtīya *third part*; cātūrtha *quarter*; and so on. But in accented texts only tṛtīya *third*, and cātūrtha (ÇB.) and túrya *quarter*, are found so treated; for *half* occurs

only ardhá; and caturthá (MS. etc.), pañcamá, and so on, are accented as in their ordinal use.

489. There are other numeral derivatives: thus —

a. multiplicative adverbs, as dvís *twice*, trís *thrice*, catús *four times*;

b. adverbs with the suffixes dhā (1104) and ças (1106): for example, ekadhā *in one way*, çatadhā *in a hundred ways*; ekaças *one by one*, çataçás *by hundreds*;

c. collectives, as dvítaya or dvayá *a pair*, dáçjataya or daçát *a decade*;

d. adjectives like dvika *composed of two*, pañcaka *consisting of five* or *fives*;

and so on; but their treatment belongs rather to the dictionary, or to the chapter on derivation.

CHAPTER VII.

PRONOUNS.

490. The pronouns differ from the great mass of nouns and adjectives chiefly in that they come by derivation from another and a very limited set of roots, the so-called pronominal or demonstrative roots. But they have also many and marked peculiarities of inflection — some of which, however, find analogies in a few adjectives; and such adjectives will accordingly be described at the end of this chapter.

Personal Pronouns.

491. The pronouns of the first and second persons are the most irregular and peculiar of all, being made up of fragments coming from various roots and combinations of roots. They have no distinction of gender.

a. Their inflection in the later language is as follows:

Singular :

	1st pers.	2d pers.
N.	अहम् ahám	त्वम् tvám
A.	माम्, मा mám, mā	त्वाम्, त्वा tvám, tvā
I.	मया máyā	त्वया tváyā
D.	मह्यम्, मे máhyam, me	तुभ्यम्, ते túbhyam, te
Ab.	मत् mát	त्वत् tvát
G.	मम, मे máma, me	तव, ते táva, te
L.	मयि máyi	त्वयि tváyī

Dual:

N. A. V.	आवाम् āvām	युवाम् yuvām
I. D. Ab.	आवाभ्याम् āvābhyām	युवाभ्याम् yuvābhyām
G. L.	आवयोस् āváyos	युवयोस् yuváyos
and A. D. G.	नौ nāu	वाम् vām

Plural:

N.	वयम् vayám	यूयम् yūyám
A.	अस्मान्, नस् asmán, nas	युष्मान्, वस् yuṣmán, vas
I.	अस्माभिस् asmābhis	युष्माभिस् yuṣmābhis
D.	अस्मभ्यम्, नस् asmábhyam, nas	युष्मभ्यम्, वस् yuṣmábhyam, vas

Ab.	अस्मत् asmát	युष्मत् yuṣmát
G.	अस्माकम्, नस् asmākam, nas	युष्माकम्, वस् yuṣmākam, vas
L.	अस्मासु asmāsu	युष्मासु yuṣmāsu

b. The briefer second forms for accus., dat., and gen., in all numbers, are accentless; and hence they are not allowed to stand at the beginning of a sentence, or elsewhere where any emphasis is laid.

c. But they may be qualified by accented adjuncts, as adjectives: e. g. *te jáyataḥ of thee when a conqueror*, *vo vṛtābhyaḥ for you that were confined*, *nas tribhyaḥ to us three* (all RV.).

d. The ablative mat is accentless in one or two AV. passages.

492. Forms of the older language. All the forms given above are found also in the older language; which, however, has also others that afterward disappear from use.

a. Thus, we find a few times the instr. sing. tvā (only RV.: like manīṣā for manīṣáyā); further, the loc. or dat. sing. mé (only VS.) and tvé, and the dat. or loc. pl. asmé (which is by far the commonest of these e-forms) and yuṣmé: their final e is uncombinable (or pragṛhya: 138 b). The VS. makes twice the acc. pl. fem. yuṣmās (as if yuṣmán were too distinctively a masculine form). The datives in bhyam are in a number of cases written, and in yet others to be read as if written, with bhya, with loss of the final nasal; and in a rare instance or two we have in like manner asmāka and yuṣmāka in the gen. plural. The usual resolutions of semivowel to vowel are made, and are especially frequent in the forms of the second person (tuám for tvám etc.).

b. But the duals, above all, wear a very different aspect earlier. In Veda and Brāhmaṇa and Sūtra the nominatives are (with occasional exceptions) avam and yuvam, and only the accusatives āvām and yuvām (but in RV. the dual forms of 1st pers. chance not to occur, unless in vām[?], once, for āvām); the instr. in RV. is either yuvābhyām (occurs also once in AÇS.) or yuvābhyām; an abl. yuvát appears once in RV., and āvát twice in TS.; the gen.-loc. is in RV. (only) yuvós instead of yuváyos. Thus we have here a distinction (elsewhere unknown) of five different dual cases, by endings in part accordant with those of the other two numbers.

493. Peculiar endings. The ending am, appearing in the nom. sing. and pl. (and Vedic du.) of these pronouns, will be found often, though only in sing., among the other pronouns. The bhyam (or hyam) of dat. sing. and pl. is met with only here; its relationship with the bhyām, bhyas, bhis of the ordinary declension is palpable. The t (or

d) of the abl., though here preceded by a short vowel, is doubtless the same with that of the a-declension of nouns and adjectives. That the nom., dat., and abl. endings should be the same in sing. and pl. (and in part in the earlier du. also), only the stem to which they are added being different, is unparalleled elsewhere in the language. The element *sma* appearing in the plural forms will be found frequent in the inflection of the singular in other pronominal words: in fact, the compound stem *asma* which underlies the plural of *aham* seems to be the same that furnishes part of the singular forms of *ayam* (501), and its value of *we* to be a specialisation of the meaning *these persons*. The genitives singular, *māma* and *tāva*, have no analogies elsewhere; the derivation from them of the adjectives *māmaka* and *tāvaka* (below, 516 a) suggests the possibility of their being themselves stereotyped stems. The gen. pl., *asmākam* and *yuṣmākam*, are certainly of this character: namely, neuter sing. case-forms of the adjective stems *asmāka* and *yuṣmāka*, other cases of which are found in the Veda.

494. Stem-forms. To the Hindu grammarians, the stems of the personal pronouns are *mad* and *asmad*, and *tvad* and *yuṣmad*, because these are forms used to a certain extent, and allowed to be indefinitely used, in derivation and composition (like *tad*, *kad*, etc.: see below, under the other pronouns). Words are thus formed from them even in the older language — namely, *mātkṛta* and *mātsakhi* and *asmātsakhi* (RV.), *tvādyoni* and *mattās* (AV.), *tvātpitṛ* and *tvādvivācana* (TS.), *tvātprasūta* and *tvaddevatyā* and *yuvaddevatyā* and *yuṣmaddevatyā* (ÇB.), *asmaddevatyā* (PB.); but much more numerous are those that show the proper stem in *a*, or with the *a* lengthened to *ā*: thus, *māvant*; *asmatrā*, *asmadrūh*, etc.; *tvāyata*, *tvāvant*, *tvādatta*, *tvānīd*, *tvāvasu*, *tvāhata*, etc.; *yuṣmādatta*, *yuṣmēṣita*, etc.; *yuvāvant*, *yuvāku*, *yuvādhita*, *yuvādatta*, *yuvānīta*, etc. And the later language also has a few words made in the same way, as *mādr̥ç*.

a. The Vedas have certain more irregular combinations, with complete forms: thus, *tvāmkāma*, *tvāmāhuti*, *māmpaṣyā*, *mamasatyā*, *asméhiti*, *ahampūrvā*, *ahamuttarā*, *ahamnyū*, *ahamsana*.

b. From the stems of the grammarians come also the derivative adjectives *madīya*, *tvadīya*, *asmadīya* *yuṣmadīya*, having a possessive value: see below, 516.

c. For *sva* and *svayām*, see below, 513.

Demonstrative Pronouns.

495. The simplest demonstrative, *ta*, which answers also the purpose of a personal pronoun of the third person, may be taken as model of a mode of declension usual in

so many pronouns and pronominal adjectives that it is fairly to be called the general pronominal declension.

a. But this root has also the special irregularity that in the nom. sing. masc. and fem. it has *sás* (for whose peculiar euphonic treatment see 176 a,b) and *sā*, instead of *tás* and *tá* (compare Gr. *ὁ, ἡ, το*, and Goth. *sa, so, thata*). Thus:

Singular:

	m.	n.	f.
N.	सस् sás	तत् tát	सा sá
A.	तम् tám	तत् tát	ताम् tām
I.	तेन téna		तया táyā
D.	तस्मै tásmāi		तस्यै tásyāi
Ab.	तस्मात् tásmāt		तस्यास् tásyās
G.	तस्य tásya		तस्यास् tásyās
L.	तस्मिन् tásmin		तस्याम् tásyām

Dual:

N.A.V.	तौ tāú	ते té	ते té
I.D.Ab.	ताभ्याम् tābhyām		ताभ्याम् tābhyām
G.L.	तयोस् táyos		तयोस् táyos

Plural:

N.	ते té	तानि tāni	तास् tās
A.	तान् tān	तानि tāni	तास् tās
I.	तेस् tāís		ताभिस् tābhis

D. Ab.	तेभ्यस् tébhyas	ताभ्यस् tābhyas
G.	तेषाम् téṣām	तासाम् tāsām
L.	तेषु téṣu	तासु tāsu

b. The Vedas show no other irregularities of inflection than those which belong to all stems in a and ā: namely, *ténā* sometimes; usually *tā* for *tāú*, du.; often *tā* for *tāni*, pl. neut.; usually *tébhis* for *tāís*, instr. pl.; and the ordinary resolutions. The RV. has one more case-form from the root *sa*, namely *sásmin* (occurring nearly half as often as *tásmin*); and ChU. has once *sasmāt*.

496. The peculiarities of the general pronominal declension, it will be noticed, are these:

a. In the singular, the use of *t* (properly *d*) as ending of nom.-acc. neut.; the combination of another element *sma* with the root in masc. and neut. dat., abl., and loc., and of *sy* in fem. dat., abl.-gen., and loc.; and the masc. and neut. loc. ending in *in*, which is restricted to this declension (except in the anomalous *yādr̥cmin*, RV., once). The substitution in B. of *āi* for *ās* as fem. ending (307 h) was illustrated at 365 d.

b. The dual is precisely that of noun-stems in *a* and *ā*.

c. In the plural, the irregularities are limited to *té* for *tās* in nom. masc., and the insertion of *s* instead of *n* before *ām* of the gen., the stem-final being treated before it in the same manner as before *su* of the loc.

497. The stem of this pronoun is by the grammarians given as *tad*; and from that form come, in fact, the derivative adjective *tadíya*, with *tattvá*, *tadvat*, *tanmaya*; and numerous compounds, such as *tacchīla*, *tajjñā*, *tatkara*, *tadanantara*, *tanmātra*, etc. These compounds are not rare even in the Veda: so *tádanna*, *tadvíd*, *tadvaçá*, etc. But derivatives from the true root *ta* are also many: especially adverbs, as *tátas*, *tātra*, *táthā*, *tadā*; the adjectives *tāvant* and *tāti*; and the compound *tādr̥c* etc.

498. Though the demonstrative root *ta* is prevailingly of the third person, it is also freely used, both in the earlier language and in the later, as qualifying the pronouns of the first and second person, giving emphasis to them: thus, *sò 'hám*, *this I*, or *I here*; *sá* or *sá tvám* *thou there*; *te vayam*, *we here*; *tasya mama* *of me here*, *tasmiñs tvayi* *in thee there*, and so on.

499. Two other demonstrative stems appear to contain *ta* as an element; and both, like the simple *ta*, substitute *sa* in the nom. sing. masc. and fem.

a. The one, *tya*, is tolerably common (although only a third of its possible forms occur) in RV., but rare in AV., and almost unknown later, its nom. sing., in the three genders, is *syás*, *syá*, *tyát*, and it makes the accusatives *tyám*, *tyám*, *tyát*, and goes on through the remaining cases in the same manner as *ta*. It has in RV. the instr. fem. *tyá* (for *tyáyā*). Instead of *syā* as nom. sing. fem. is also found *tyā*.

b. The other is the usual demonstrative of nearer position, *this here*, and is in frequent use through all periods of the language. It prefixes *e* to the simple root, forming the nominatives *eśás*, *eśá*, *etát* — and so on through the whole inflection.

c. The stem *tya* has neither compounds nor derivatives. But from *eta* are formed both, in the same manner as from the simple *ta*, only much less numerous: thus, *etaddá* (ÇB.), *etadartha*, etc., from the so-called stem *etat*; and *etādíc* and *etávant* from *eta*. And *eśa*, like *sa* (498), is used to qualify pronouns of the 1st and 2d persons: e. g. *eśā 'ham*, *ete vayam*.

500. There is a defective pronominal stem, *ena*, which is accentless, and hence used only in situations where no emphasis falls upon it. It does not occur elsewhere than in the accusative of all numbers, the instr. sing., and the gen.-loc. dual: thus,

		m.	n.	f.
Sing.	A.	enam	enat	enām
	I.	enena		enayā
Du.	A.	enāu	ene	ene
	G. L.	enayos		enayos
Pl.	A.	enān	enāni	enās

a. The RV. has *enos* instead of *enayos*, and in one or two instances accents a form: thus, *enām*, *enás* (?). AB. uses *enat* also as nom. neut.

b. As *ena* is always used substantively, it has more nearly than *ta* the value of a third personal pronoun, unemphatic. Apparent examples of its adjectival use here and there met with are doubtless the result of confusion with *eta* (499 b).

c. This stem forms neither derivatives nor compounds.

501. The declension of two other demonstratives is so irregularly made up that they have to be given in full. The one, अयम् *ayám* etc., is used as a more indefinite demonstrative, *this* or *that*; the other, असी *asāú* etc., signifies especially the remoter relation, *yon* or *yonder*.

a. They are as follows:

Singular:

	m.	n.	f.	m.	n.	f.
N.	अयम् ayám	इदम् idám	इयम् iyám	असौ asāú	अदस् adás	असौ asāú
A.	इमम् imám	इदम् idám	इमाम् imām	अमुम् amúm	अदस् adás	अमूम् amúm
I.	अनेन anéna		अनया anáyā	अमुना amúnā		अमुया amúyā
D.	अस्मै asmāi		अस्मै asyāi	अमुष्मै amúṣmāi		अमुष्यै amúṣyāi
Ab.	अस्मात् asmāt		अस्यास् asyās	अमुष्मात् amúṣmāt		अमुष्यास् amúṣyās
G.	अस्य asyá		अस्यास् asyās	अमुष्य amúṣya		अमुष्यास् amúṣyās
L.	अस्मिन् asmín		अस्याम् asyām	अमुस्मिन् amúsmin		अमुस्याम् amúsyām

Dual:

N. A.	इमौ imāú	इमे imé	इमे imé	अमू amú
I. D. Ab.	आभ्याम् ābhyām			अमूभ्याम् amúbhyām
G. L.	अनयोस् anáyos			अमुयोस् amúyos

Plural:

N.	इमे imé	इमानि imāni	इमास् imās	अमी amí	अमूनि amúni	अमूस् amús
A.	इमान् imān	इमानि imāni	इमास् imās	अमून् amún	अमूनि amúni	अमूस् amús
I.	एभिस् ebhís		आभिस् ābhís	अमीभिस् amíibhis		अमूभिस् amúibhis
D. Ab.	एभ्यस् ebhyás		आभ्यस् ābhyás	अमीभ्यस् amíibhyas		अमूभ्यस् amúibhyas
G.	एषाम् eṣām		आसाम् āsām	अमीषाम् amíṣām		अमूषाम् amúṣām
L.	एषु eṣú		आसु āsú	अमीषु amíṣu		अमूषु amúṣu

b. The same forms are used in the older language, without variation, except that (as usual) *imá* occurs for *imāú* and *imáni*, and *amú* for *amúni*; *amuyā* when used adverbially is accented on the final, *amuyá*; *asāu* (with accent, of course, on the first, *ásāu*; or without accent, *asāu*: 314) is used also as vocative; *amī*, too, occurs as vocative.

502. a. The former of these two pronouns, *ayám* etc., plainly shows itself to be pieced together from a number of defective stems. The majority of forms come from the root *a*, with which, as in the ordinary pronominal declension, *sma* (f. *sy*) is combined in the singular. All these forms from *a* have the peculiarity that in their substantive use they are either accented, as in the paradigm, or accentless (like *ena* and the second forms from *ahám* and *tvám*). The remaining forms are always accented. From *aná* come, with entire regularity, *anéna*, *anáyā*, *anáyos*. The strong cases in dual and plural, and in part in singular, come not less regularly from a stem *imá*. And *ayám*, *iyám*, *idám* are evidently to be referred to a simple root *i* (*idám* being apparently a double form: *id*, like *tad* etc., with ending *am*).

b. The Veda has from the root *a* also the instrumental *ená* and *ayá* (used in general adverbially), and the gen. loc. du. *ayós*; from *ima*, *imásya* occurs once in RV., *imasmāi* in AA., and *imāis* and *imeṣu* later. The RV. has in a small number of instances the irregular accentuation *ásmāi*, *ásya*, *ábhis*.

c. In analogy with the other pronouns, *idám* is by the grammarians regarded as representative stem of this pronominal declension; and it is actually found so treated in a very small number of compounds (*idammáya* and *idámnrūpa* are of Brāhmaṇa age). As regards the actual stems, *ana* furnishes nothing further; from *ima* comes only the adverb *imáthā* (RV., once); but *a* and *i* furnish a number of derivatives, mostly adverbial: thus, for example, *átas*, *átra*, *átha*, *ad-dhá*(?); *itás*, *íd* (Vedic particle), *idā*, *ihá*, *ítara*, *īm* (Vedic particle), *īdṛc*, perhaps *evá* and *evám*, and others.

503. The other pronoun, *asāú* etc., has *amú* for its leading stem, which in the singular takes in combination, like the *a*-stems, the element *sma* (f. *sy*), and which shifts to *amī* in part of the masc. and neut. plural. In part, too, like an adjective *u*-stem, it lengthens its final in the feminine. The gen. sing, *amúṣya* is the only example in the language of the ending *sya* added to any other than an *a*-stem. The nom. pl. *amí* is unique in form; its *ī* is (like that of a dual) *pragṛhya*, or exempt from combination with a following vowel (138 b). *Asāú* and *adás* are also without analogies as regards their endings.

a. The grammarians, as usual, treat *adás* as representative stem of the declension, and it is found in this character in an extremely small number of words, as *adomūla*; *adomáya* is of Brāhmaṇa age. The ÇB. has also *asāunáman*. But most of the derivatives, as of

the cases, come from amu: thus, amútas, amútra, amúthā, amudā, amúrhi, amuvát, amuka.

b. In the older language occurs the root tva (accentless), meaning *one, many a one*; it is oftenest found repeated, as *one* and *another*. It follows the ordinary pronominal declension. From it is made the (also accentless) adverb tvadānīm (MS.).

c. Fragments of another demonstrative root or two are met with: thus, ámas *he* occurs in a formula in AV. and in Brāhmaṇas etc.; avós as gen.-loc. dual is found in RV.; the particle u points to a root u.

Interrogative Pronoun.

504. The characteristic part of the interrogative pronominal root is क् k; it has the three forms क ka, कि ki, कु ku; but the whole declensional inflection is from क ka, excepting the nom.-acc. sing. neut., which is from कि ki, and has the anomalous form किम् kím (not elsewhere known in the language from a neuter i-stem). The nom. and accus. sing., then, are as follows:

	m.	n.	f.
N.	कस् kás	किम् kím	का kā
A.	कम् kám	किम् kím	काम् kām

and the rest of the declension is precisely like that of त ta (above, 495).

a. The Veda has its usual variations, ká and kébhis for káni and káis. It also has, along with kím, the pronominally regular neuter kád; and kám (or kam) is a frequent particle. The masc. form kis, corresponding to kim, occurs as a stereotyped case in the combinations nákis and mákis.

505. The grammarians treat kim as representative stem of the interrogative pronoun; and it is in fact so used in a not large number of words, of which a few — kimmáya, kimkará, kimkāmyā, kímdevata, kimçilá, and the peculiar kimyú — go back even to the Veda and Brāhmaṇa. In closer analogy with the other pronouns, the form kad, a couple of times in the Veda (katpayá, kádartha), and not infrequently later, is found as first member of compounds. Then, from the real roots ka, ki, ku are made many derivatives; and from ki and ku, especially the latter, many compounds: thus,

kāti, kathá, kathám, kadá, katará, katamá, kárhi; kíyant, kīdṛç; kútas, kútra, kúha, kvà, kucará, kukarman, kumantrin, etc.

506. Various forms of this pronoun, as kad, kim, and ku (and, rarely, ko), at the beginning of compounds, have passed from an interrogative meaning, through an exclamatory, to the value of prefixes signifying an unusual quality — either something admirable, or, oftener, something contemptible. This use begins in the Veda, but becomes much more common in later time.

507. The interrogative pronoun, as in other languages, turns readily in its independent use also to an exclamatory meaning. Moreover, it is by various added particles converted to an indefinite meaning: thus, by ca, caná, cid, ápi, vā, either alone or with the relative ya (below, 511) prefixed: thus, kác caná *any one*; ná kó 'pi *not any one*; yāni kāni cit *whatsoever*; yatamát katamác ca *whatever one*. Occasionally, the interrogative by itself acquires a similar value.

Relative Pronoun.

508. The root of the relative pronoun is य ya, which from the earliest period of the language has lost all trace of the demonstrative meaning originally (doubtless) belonging to it, and is used as relative only.

509. It is inflected with entire regularity according to the usual pronominal declension: thus,

	Singular.			Dual.			Plural.		
	m.	n.	f.	m.	n.	f.	m.	n.	f.
N.	यस् yás	यत् yát	या yā	यौ yāú	ये yé	ये yé	ये yé	यानि yāni	यास् yās
A.	याम् yām	यत् yát	याम् yām				यान् yān	यानि yāni	यास् yās
I.	येन yéna		यया yáyā	याम्भ्याम् yābhyām			येस् yāís		यामिस् yābhis
D.	यस्मै yásmāi		यस्मै yásyāi				येभ्यस् yébhyaś		याम्यस् yābhyas
	etc.		etc.	etc.			etc.		etc.

a. The Veda shows its usual variations of these forms: yā for yāú and for yāni, and yébhis for yāís; yós for yáyos also occurs once; yénā, with prolonged final, is in RV. twice as common as yéna. Reso-

lutions occur in yābhias, and yéṣaam and yāsaam. The conjunction yāt is an ablative form according to the ordinary declension.

510. The use of yāt as representative stem begins very early: we have yātkāma in the Veda, and yatkārīn, yaddevatyā in the Brāhmaṇa; later it grows more general. From the proper root come also a considerable series of derivatives: yātas, yāti, yātra, yāthā, yādā, yādi, yārhi, yāvant, yatarā, yatamá; and the compound yādṛç.

511. The combination of ya with ka to make an indefinite pronoun has been noticed above (507). Its own repetition — as yād-yat — gives it sometimes a like meaning, won through the distributive.

512. One or two marked peculiarities in the Sanskrit use of the relative may be here briefly noticed:

a. A very decided preference for putting the relative clause before that to which it relates: thus, yāḥ sunvatāḥ sákhā tásmā índrāya gāyata (RV.) *who is the friend of the soma-presser, to that Indra sing ye*; yām yajñām paribhūr ási sá íd devēṣu gacchati (RV.) *what offering thou protectest, that in truth goeth to the gods*; yé triṣaptāḥ pariyānti bálā téṣāṃ dadhātu me (AV.) *what thrice seven go about, their strength may he assign to me*; asāu yó adharād gṛhás tatra santv arāyyāḥ (AV.) *what house is yonder in the depth, there, let the witches be*; sahá yán me ásti téna (TB.) *along with that which is mine*; haṁsānāṃ vacanaṃ yat tu tan mām dahati (MBh.) *but what the words of the swans were, that burns me*; sarvasya locanaṃ cāstraṃ yasya nā 'sty andha eva saḥ (H.) *who does not possess learning, the eye of everything, blind indeed is he*. The other arrangement, though frequent enough, is notably less usual.

b. A frequent conversion of the subject or object of a verb by an added relative into a substantive clause: thus, mé 'mám prā "pat pāúruṣeyo vadhó yāḥ (AV.) *may there not reach him a human deadly weapon* (lit'ly, *what is such a weapon*); pári ṇo pāhi yád dhánam (AV.) *protect of us what wealth [there is]*; apāmārgó 'pa mārṣtu kṣetiriyāṃ çapáthaç ca yāḥ (AV.) *may the cleansing plant cleanse away the disease and the curse*; puṣkareṇa hṛtaṃ rājyaṃ yac cā 'nyad vasu kirncana (MBh.) *by Pushkara was taken away the kingdom and whatever other property [there was]*.

Other Pronouns: Emphatic, Indefinite.

513. a. The isolated and uninflected pronominal word स्वयम् svayam (from the root sva) signifies *self, own self*. By its form it appears to be a nom. sing., and it is often-

est used as nominative, but along with words of all persons and numbers; and not seldom it represents other cases also.

b. Svayam is also used as a stem in composition: thus, svayaṁjā́, svayambhú́. But sva itself (usually adjective: below, 516 e) has the same value in composition; and even its inflected forms are (in the older language very rarely) used as reflexive pronoun.

c. In RV. alone are found a few examples of two indefinite pronouns, sama (accentless) *any, every*, and simá *every, all*.

Nouns used pronominally.

514. a. The noun ātmán *soul* is widely employed, in the singular (extremely rarely in other numbers), as reflexive pronoun of all three persons.

b. The noun tanú́ *body* is employed in the same manner (but in all numbers) in the Veda.

c. The adjective bhavant, f. bhavatī, is used (as already pointed out: 456) in respectful address as substitute for the pronoun of the second person. Its construction with the verb is in accordance with its true character, as a word of the third person.

Pronominal Derivatives.

515. From pronominal roots and stems, as well as from the larger class of roots and from noun-stems, are formed by the ordinary suffixes of adjective derivation certain words and classes of words, which have thus the character of pronominal adjectives.

Some of the more important of these may be briefly noticed here.

516. Possessives. a. From the representative stems mad etc. are formed the adjectives madiya, asmadiya, tvadiya, yuṣmadiya, tadiya, and etadiya, which are used in a possessive sense: *relating to me, mine*, and so on.

b. Other possessives are māmaká (also māmaka, RV.) and tāvaká, from the genitives máma and táva. And RV. has once mākīna.

c. An analogous derivative from the genitive amúṣya is āmuṣyāyaṇá (AV. etc.) *descendant of such and such a one*.

d. It was pointed out above (493) that the "genitives" asmákam and yuṣmákam are really stereotyped cases of possessive adjectives.

e. Corresponding to svayám (513) is the possessive svá, meaning *own*, as relating to all persons and numbers. The RV. has once the corresponding simple possessive of the second person, tvá *thy*.

f. For the use of sva as reflexive pronoun, see above, 513 b.

g. All these words form their feminines in ā.

h. Other derivatives of a like value have no claim to be mentioned here. But (excepting sva) the possessives are so rarely used as to make but a small figure in the language, which prefers generally to indicate the possessive relation by the genitive case of the pronoun itself.

517. By the suffix vant are formed from the pronominal roots, with prolongation of their final vowels, the adjectives māvānt, tvāvānt, yuṣmāvānt, yuvāvānt, távānt, etāvānt, yāvānt, meaning *of my sort, like me*, etc. Of these, however, only the last three are in use in the later language, in the sense of *tantus* and *quantus*. They are inflected like other adjective stems in vant, making their feminines in vatī (452 ff.).

a. Words of similar meaning from the roots i and ki are íyant and kíyant, inflected in the same manner: see above, 451.

518. The pronominal roots show a like prolongation of vowel in combination with the root dṛç *see, look*, and its derivatives -dṛça and (quite rarely) dṛkṣa: thus, mādṛç, -dṛça; tvādṛç, -dṛça; yuṣmādṛç, -dṛça; tādṛç, -dṛta, -dṛkṣa; etādṛç, -dṛça, -dṛkṣa; yādṛç, -dṛça; idṛç, -dṛça, -dṛkṣa; kīdṛç, -dṛça, -dṛkṣa. They mean *of my sort, like* or *resembling me*, and the like, and tādṛç and the following are not uncommon, with the sense of *talīs* and *qualis*. The forms in dṛç are unvaried for gender; those in dṛça (and dṛkṣa?) have feminines in ī.

519. From ta, ka, ya come táti *so many*, káti *how many?* yáti *as many*. They have a quasi-numeral character, and are inflected (like the numerals páñca etc.: above, 483) only in the plural, and with the bare stem as nom. and accus.: thus, N.A. táti; I. etc. tátibhis, tátibhyas, tátīnām, tátiṣu.

520. From ya (in V. and B.) and ka come the comparatives and superlatives yatará and yatamá, and katará and katamá; and from i, the comparative ítara. For their inflection, see below, 523.

521. Derivatives with the suffix ka, sometimes conveying a diminutive or a contemptuous meaning, are made from certain of the pronominal roots and stems (and may, according to the grammarians, be made from them all): thus, from ta, takám, takát, takás; from sa, saká; from ya, yakás, yaká, yaké; from asāú, asakāú; from amu, amuka.

a. For the numerous and frequently used adverbs formed from pronominal roots, see Adverbs (below, 1097 ff.).

Adjectives declined pronominally.

522. A number of adjectives — some of them coming from pronominal roots, others more or less analogous with pronouns in use — are inflected, in part or wholly, according to the pronominal declension (like त ta, 495), with feminine stems in ā. Thus:

523. The comparatives and superlatives from pronominal roots — namely, katará and katamá, yatará and yatamá, and ítara; also anyá *other*, and its comparative anyatará — are declined like ta throughout.

a. But even from these words forms made according to the adjective declension are sporadically met with (e. g. itarāyām K.).

b. Anya takes occasionally the form anyat in composition: thus, anyatkāma, anyatsthāna.

524. Other words are so inflected except in the nom.-acc.-voc. sing, neut., where they have the ordinary adjective form am, instead of the pronominal at (ad). Such are sárva *all*, víçva *all*, *every*, éka *one*.

a. These, also, are not without exception, at least in the earlier language (e. g. víçvāya, víçvāt, víçve RV.; éke loc. sing., AV.).

525. Yet other words follow the same model usually, or in some of their significations, or optionally; but in other senses, or without known rule, lapse into the adjective inflection.

a. Such are the comparatives and superlatives from prepositional stems: ádhara and adhamá, ántara and ántama, ápara and apamá, ávara and avamá, úttara and uttamá, úpara and upamá. Of these, pronominal forms are decidedly more numerous from the comparatives than from the superlatives.

b. Further, the superlatives (without corresponding comparatives) paramá, caramá, madhyamá also anyatama (whose positive and comparative belong to the class first mentioned: 523).

c. Further, the words pára *distant, other*; púrva *prior, east*; dákṣiṇa *right, south*; paçcima *behind, western*; ubháya (f. ubháyī or ubhayí) *of both kinds or parties*; néma *the one, half*; and the possessive svá.

526. Occasional forms of the pronominal declension are met with from numeral adjectives: e. g. prathamásyās, tṛtíasyām; and from other words having an indefinite numeral character: thus, álpa *few*; ardhá *half*; kévala *all*; dvítaya *of the two kinds*; bāhya *outside* — and others. RV. has once samānasmāt.

CHAPTER VIII.

CONJUGATION.

527. The subject of conjugation or verbal inflection involves, as in the other languages of the family, the distinctions of voice, tense, mode, number, and person.

a. Further, besides the simpler or ordinary conjugation of a verbal root, there are certain more or less fully developed secondary or derivative conjugations.

528. Voice. There are (as in Greek) two voices, active and middle, distinguished by a difference in the personal endings. This distinction is a pervading one: there is no active personal form which does not have its corresponding middle, and *vice versa*; and it is extended also in part to the participles (but not to the infinitive).

529. An active form is called by the Hindu grammarians *parasmāi padam* a word for another, and a middle form is called *ātmane padam* a word for one's self: the terms might be best paraphrased by *transitive* and *reflexive*. And the distinction thus expressed is doubtless the original foundation of the difference of active and middle forms; in the recorded condition of the language, however, the antithesis of transitive and reflexive meaning is in no small measure blurred, or even altogether effaced.

a. In the epics there is much effacement of the distinction between active and middle, the choice of voice being very often determined by metrical considerations alone.

530. Some verbs are conjugated in both voices, others in one only; sometimes a part of the tenses are inflected only in one voice, others only in the other or in both; of a verb usually inflected in one voice sporadic forms of the other occur; and sometimes the voice differs according as the verb is compounded with certain prepositions.

531. The middle forms outside the present-system (for which there is a special passive inflection: see below, 768 ff.), and sometimes also within that system, are liable to be used likewise in a passive sense.

532. Tense. The tenses are as follows: 1. a present, with 2. an imperfect, closely related with it in form, having a prefixed augment; 3. a perfect, made with reduplication (to which in the Veda is added, 4. a so-called pluperfect, made from it with prefixed augment); 5. an aorist, of three different formations: a. simple; b. reduplicated; c. sigmatic or sibilant; 6. a future, with 7. a conditional, an augment-tense, standing to it in the relation of an imperfect to a present; and 8. a second, a periphrastic, future (not found in the Veda).

a. The tenses here distinguished (in accordance with prevailing usage) as imperfect, perfect, pluperfect, and aorist receive those names from their correspondence in mode of formation with tenses so called in other languages of the family, especially in Greek, and not at all from differences of time designated by them. In no period of the Sanskrit language is there any expression of imperfect or pluperfect time — nor of perfect time, except in the older language, where the "aorist" has this value; later, imperfect, perfect, and aorist are so many indiscriminated past tenses or preterits: see below, under the different tenses.

533. Mode. In respect to mode, the difference between the classical Sanskrit and the older language of the Veda — and, in a less degree, of the Brāhmaṇas — is especially great.

a. In the Veda, the present tense has, besides its indicative inflection, a subjunctive, of considerable variety of formation, an optative, and an imperative (in 2d and 3d persons). The same three modes are found, though of much less frequent occurrence, as belonging to the perfect; and they are made also from the aorists, being of especial frequency from the simple aorist. The future has no modes (an occasional case or two are purely exceptional).

b. In the classical Sanskrit, the present adds to its indicative an optative and an imperative — of which last,

moreover, the first persons are a remnant of the old subjunctive. And the aorist has also an optative, of somewhat peculiar inflection, usually called the precative (or benedictive).

534. The present, perfect, and future tenses have each of them, alike in the earlier and later language, a pair of participles, active and middle, sharing in the various peculiarities of the tense-formations; and in the Veda are found such participles belonging also to the aorist.

535. Tense-systems. The tenses, then, with their accompanying modes and participles, fall into certain well-marked groups or systems:

I. The present-system, composed of the present tense with its modes, its participle, and its preterit which we have called the imperfect.

II. The perfect-system, composed of the perfect tense (with, in the Veda, its modes and its preterit, the so-called pluperfect) and its participle.

III. The aorist-system, or systems, simple, reduplicated, and sibilant, composed of the aorist tense along with, in the later language, its "precative" optative (but, in the Veda, with its various modes and its participle).

IV. The future-systems: 1. the old or sibilant future, with its accompanying preterit, the conditional, and its participle; and 2. the new periphrastic future.

536. Number and Person. The verb has, of course, the same three numbers with the noun: namely, singular, dual, and plural; and in each number it has the three persons, first, second, and third. All of these are made in every tense and mode — except that the first persons of the imperative numbers are supplied from the subjunctive.

537. Verbal adjectives and nouns: Participles. The participles belonging to the tense-systems have been already spoken of above (534). There is besides, coming directly from the root of the verb, a participle, prevailing of past and passive (or sometimes neuter) meaning. Future passive participles, or gerundives, of several different formations, are also made.

538. Infinitives. In the older language, a very considerable variety of derivative abstract nouns — only in a few sporadic instances having anything to do with the tense-systems — are used in an infinitive or quasi-infinitive sense; most often in the dative case, but sometimes also in the accusative, in the genitive and ablative, and (very rarely) in the locative. In the classical Sanskrit, there remains a single infinitive, of accusative case-form, having nothing to do with the tense-systems.

539. Gerunds. A so-called gerund (or absolute) — being, like the infinitive, a stereotyped case-form of a derivative noun — is a part of the general verb-system in both the earlier and later language, being especially frequent in the later language, where it has only two forms, one for simple verbs, and the other for compound. Its value is that of an indeclinable active participle, of indeterminate but prevailing past tense-character.

a. Another gerund, an adverbially used accusative in form, is found, but only rarely, both earlier and later.

540. Secondary conjugations. The secondary or derivative conjugations are as follows: 1. the passive; 2. the intensive; 3. the desiderative; 4. the causative. In these, a conjugation-stem, instead of the simple root, underlies the whole system of inflection. Yet there is clearly to be seen in them the character of a present-system, expanded into a more or less complete conjugation; and the passive is

so purely a present-system that it will be described in the chapter devoted to that part of the inflection of the verb.

a. Under the same general head belongs the subject of denominative conjugation, or the conversion of noun and adjective-stems into conjugation-stems. Further, that of compound conjugation, whether by the prefixion of prepositions to roots or by the addition of auxiliary verbs to noun and adjective-stems. And finally, that of periphrastic conjugation, or the looser combination of auxiliaries with verbal nouns and adjectives.

541. The characteristic of a proper (finite or personal) verb-form is its personal ending. By this alone is determined its character as regards number and person — and in part also as regards mode and tense. But the distinctions of mode and tense are mainly made by the formation of tense and mode-stems, to which, rather than to the pure root, the personal endings are appended.

a. In this chapter will be given a general account of the personal endings, and also of the formation of mode-stems from tense-stems, and of those elements in the formation of tense-stems — the augment and the reduplication — which are found in more than one tense-system. Then, in the following chapters, each tense-system will be taken up by itself, and the methods of formation of its stems, both tense-stems and mode-stems, and their combination with the endings, will be described and illustrated in detail. And the complete conjugation of a few model verbs will be exhibited in systematic arrangement in Appendix C.

Personal Endings.

542. The endings of verbal inflection are, as was pointed out above, different throughout in the active and middle voices. They are also, as in Greek, usually of two somewhat varying forms for the same person in the same voice: one fuller, called primary; the other briefer, called secondary. There are also less pervading differences, depending upon other conditions.

a. In the epics, exchanges of primary and secondary active endings especially the substitution of *ma*, *va*, *ta*, for *mas*, *vas*, *tha*) are not infrequent.

b. A condensed statement of all the varieties of ending for each person and number here follows.

543. Singular: First person, a. The primary ending in the active is *mi*. The subjunctive, however (later imperative), has *ni* instead; and in the oldest Veda this *ni* is sometimes wanting, and the person ends in *ā* (as if the *ni* of *āni* were dropped). The secondary ending is properly *m*; but to this *m* an *a* has come to be so persistently prefixed, appearing regularly where the tense-stem does not itself end in *a* (*vam* for *varm* or *varam* in RV., once, and *abhūm* MS., *avadhīm* TS. etc., *sanem* TB., are rare anomalies), that it is convenient to reckon *am* as ending, rather than *m*. But the perfect tense has neither *mi* nor *m*; its ending is simply *a* (sometimes *ā*: 248 c); or, from *ā*-roots, *āu*.

b. The primary middle ending, according to the analogy of the other persons, would be regularly *me*. But no tense or mode, at any period of the language, shows any relic whatever of a *m* in this person; the primary ending, present as well as perfect, from *a*-stems and others alike, is *e*; and to it corresponds *i* as secondary ending, which blends with the final of an *a*-stem to *e*. The optative has, however, *a* instead of *i*; and in the subjunctive (later imperative) appears *āi* for *e*.

544. Second person. a. In the active, the primary ending is *si*, which is shortened to *s* as secondary; as to the loss of this *s* after a final radical consonant, see below, 555. But the perfect and the imperative desert here entirely the analogy of the other forms. The perfect ending is invariably *tha* (or *thā*: 248 c). The imperative is far less regular. The fullest form of its ending is *dhi*; which, however, is more often reduced to *hi*; and in the great majority of verbs (including all *a*-stems, at every period of the language) no ending is present, but the bare stem stands as personal form. In a very small class of verbs (722–3), *āna* is the ending. There is also an alternative ending *tāt*; and this is even used sporadically in other persons of the imperative (see below, 570–1).

b. In the middle voice, the primary ending, both present and perfect, is *se*. The secondary stands in no apparent relation to this, being *thās*; and in the imperative is found only *sva* (or *svā*: 248 c), which in the Veda is not seldom to be read as *sua*. In the older language, *se* is sometimes strengthened to *sāi* in the subjunctive.

545. Third person. a. The active primary ending is *ti*; the secondary, *tt>t*; as to the loss of the latter after a final radical consonant, see below, 555. But in the imperative appears instead the peculiar ending *tu*; and in the perfect no characteristic consonant is present, and the third person has the same ending as the first.

b. The primary middle ending is *te*, with *ta* as corresponding secondary. In the older language, *te* is often strengthened to *tāi* in

the subjunctive. In the perfect, the middle third person has, like the active, the same ending with the first, namely *e* simply; and in the older language, the third person present also often loses the distinctive part of its termination, and comes to coincide in form with the first (and MS. has *aduha* for *adugdha*). To this *e* perhaps corresponds, as secondary, the *i* of the aorist 3d pers. passive (842 ff.). The imperative has *tām* (or, in the Veda, rarely *ām*) for its ending.

546. Dual: First person. Both in active and in middle, the dual first person is in all its varieties precisely like the corresponding plural, only with substitution of *v* for the *m* of the latter: thus, *vas* (no *vasi* has been found to occur), *va*, *vahe*, *vahi*, *vahāi*. The person is, of course, of comparatively rare use, and from the Veda no form in *vas*, even, is quotable.

547. Second and Third persons. a. In the active, the primary ending of the second person is *thas*, and that of the third is *tas*; and this relation of *th* to *t* appears also in the perfect, and runs through the whole series of middle endings. The perfect endings are primary, but have *u* instead of *a* as vowel; and an *a* has become so persistently prefixed that their forms have to be reckoned as *athus* and *atus*. The secondary endings exhibit no definable relation to the primary in these two persons; they are *tam* and *tām*; and they are used in the imperative as well.

b. In the middle, a long *ā* — which, however, with the final *a* of *a*-stems becomes *e* — has become prefixed to all dual endings of the second and third persons, so as to form an inseparable part of them (*dīdhīthām* AV., and *jihīthām* ÇB., are isolated anomalies). The primary endings, present and perfect, are *āthe* and *āte*; the secondary (and imperative) are *āthām* and *ātām* (or, with stem-final *a*, *ethe* etc.).

c. The Rig-Veda has a very few forms in *āithe* and *āite*, apparently from *ethe* and *ete* with subjunctive strengthening (they are all detailed below: see 615, 701, 737, 752, 836, 1008, 1043).

548. Plural: First person. a. The earliest form of the active ending is *masi*, which in the oldest language is more frequent than the briefer *mas* (in RV., as five to one; in AV., however, only as three to four). In the classical Sanskrit, *mas* is the exclusive primary ending; but the secondary abbreviated *ma* belongs also to the perfect and the subjunctive (imperative). In the Veda, *ma* often becomes *mā* (248 c), especially in the perfect.

b. The primary middle ending is *mahe*. This is lightened in the secondary form to *mahi*; and, on the other hand, it is regularly (in the Veda, not invariably) strengthened to *mahāi* in the subjunctive (imperative).

549. Second person. a. The active primary ending is *tha*. The secondary, also imperative, ending is *ta* (in the Veda, *tā* only

once in impv.). But in the perfect any characteristic consonant is wanting, and the ending is simply a. In the Veda, the syllable na, of problematic origin, is not infrequently added to both forms of the ending, making thana (rarely thanā) and tana. The forms in which this occurs will be detailed below, under the different formations; the addition is very rarely made excepting to persons of the first general conjugation.

b. The middle primary ending is dhve, which belongs to the perfect as well as the present. In the subjunctive of the older language it is sometimes strengthened to dhvāi. The secondary (and imperative) ending is dhvam (in RV., once dhva); and dhvāt is once met with in the imperative (570). In the Veda, the v of all these endings is sometimes to be resolved into u, and the ending becomes dissyllabic. As to the change of dh of these endings to ḍh, see above, 226 c.

550. Third person. a. The full primary ending is anti in the active, with ante as corresponding middle. The middle secondary ending is anta, to which should correspond an active ant; but of the t only altogether questionable traces are left, in the euphonic treatment of a final n (207); the ending is an. In the imperative, antu and antām take the place of anti and ante. The initial a of all these endings is like that of am in the 1st sing., disappearing after the final a of a tense-stem.

b. Moreover, anti, antu, ante, antām, anta are all liable to be weakened by the loss of their nasal, becoming ati etc. In the active, this weakening takes place only after reduplicated non-a-stems (and after a few roots which are treated as if reduplicated: 639 ff.); in the middle, it occurs after all tense-stems save those ending in a.

c. Further, for the secondary active ending an there is a substitute us (or ur: 169 b; the evidence of the Zend favors the latter form), which is used in the same reduplicating verbs that change anti to ati etc., and which accordingly appears as a weaker correlative of an. The same us is also used universally in the perfect, in the optative (not in the subjunctive), in those forms of the aorist whose stem does not end in a, and in the imperfect of root-stems ending in ā, and a few others (621).

d. The perfect middle has in all periods of the language the peculiar ending re, and the optative has the allied ran, in this person. In the Veda, a variety of other endings containing a r as distinctive consonant are met with: namely, re (and ire) and rate in the present; rata in the optative (both of present and of aorist); rire in the perfect; ranta, ran, and ram in aorists (and in an imperfect or two); rām and ratām in the imperative; ra in the imperfect of duh (MS.). The three rate, ratam, and rata are found even in the later language in one or two verbs (629).

551. Below are given, for convenience, in tabular form, the schemes of endings as accepted in the classical or later language: namely, a. the regular primary endings, used in the present indicative and the future (and the subjunctive in part); and b. the regular secondary endings, used in the imperfect, the conditional, the aorist, the optative (and the subjunctive in part); and further, of special schemes, c. the perfect endings (chiefly primary, especially in the middle); and d. the imperative endings (chiefly secondary). To the so-called imperative endings of the first person is prefixed the *ā* which is practically a part of them, though really containing the mode-sign of the subjunctive from which they are derived.

552. Further, a part of the endings are marked with an accent, and a part are left unaccented. The latter are those which never, under any circumstances, receive the accent; the former are accented in considerable classes of verbs, though by no means in all. It will be noticed that, in general, the unaccented endings are those of the singular active; but the 2d sing. imperative has an accented ending; and, on the other hand, the whole series of 1st persons imperative, active and middle, have unaccented endings (this being a characteristic of the subjunctive formation which they represent).

553. The schemes of normal endings, then, are as follows:

a. Primary Endings.						
	active.			middle.		
	s.	d.	p.	s.	d.	p.
1	mi	vás	más	é	váhe	máhe
2	si	thás	thá	sé	áthe	dhvé
3	ti	tás	ánti, áti	té	áte	ánte, áte
b. Secondary Endings.						
1	am	vá	má	í, á	váhi	máhi
2	s	tám	tá	thás	áthām	dhvám
3	t	tám	án, ús	tá	átām	ánta, áta, rán
c. Perfect Endings.						
1	a	vá	má	é	váhe	máhe
2	tha	áthus	á	sé	áthe	dhvé
3	a	átus	ús	é	áte	ré
d. Imperative Endings.						
1	āni	āva	āma	āi	āvahāi	āmahāi
2	dhí, hí, —	tám	tá	svá	áthām	dhvám
3	tu	tám	ántu, átu	tám	átām	ántām, átām

554. In general, the rule is followed that an accented ending, if dissyllabic, is accented on its first syllable — and the constant union-vowels are regarded, in this respect, as integral parts of the endings. But the

3d pl. ending ate of the pres. indic. middle has in RV. the accent até in a number of verbs (see 613, 685, 699, 719); and an occasional instance is met with in other endings: thus, mahé (see 719, 735).

555. The secondary endings of the second and third persons singular, as consisting of an added consonant without vowel, should regularly (150) be lost whenever the root or stem to which they are to be added itself ends in a consonant. And this rule is in general followed; yet not without exceptions. Thus:

a. A root ending in a dental mute sometimes drops this final mute instead of the added s in the second person; and, on the other hand, a root or stem ending in s sometimes drops this s instead of the added t in the third person – in either case, establishing the ordinary relation of s and t in these persons, instead of s and s, or t and t. The examples noted are: 2d sing. aves (to 3d sing. avet), √vid, AB.; 3d sing. akat, √kr, ÇB. aghat, √ghas, JB. AÇS.; acakāt, √cakās, RT.; açāt, √çās, AB. MBh. R.; asrat, √sras, VS.; ahinat, √hiñs, ÇB. TB. GB. Compare also the s-aorist forms ayās and srās (146 a), in which the same influence is to be seen; and further, ajāit etc. (889 a), and precative yāt for yās (837). A similar loss of any other final consonant is excessively rare; AV. has once abhanas, for -nak, √bhañj. There are also a few cases where a 1st sing. is irregularly modeled after a 3d sing.: thus, atṛṇam (to atṛṇat), √tṛd, KU., acchinam (to acchinat), √chid, MBh.: compare further the 1st sing. in m instead of am, 543 a.

b. Again, a union-vowel is sometimes introduced before the ending, either a or i or ī: see below, 621 b, 631, 819, 880, 1004 a, 1068 a.

c. In a few isolated cases in the older language, this ī is changed to āi: see below, 904 b, 936, 1068 a.

556. The changes of form which roots and stems undergo in their combinations with these endings will be pointed out in detail below, under the various formations. Here may be simply mentioned in advance, as by far the most important among them, a distinction of stronger and weaker form of stem in large classes of verbs, standing in relation with the accent – the stem being of stronger form when the accent falls upon it, or before an accentless ending, and of weaker form when the accent is on the ending.

a. Of the endings marked as accented in the scheme, the ta of 2d pl. is not infrequently in the Veda treated as unaccented, the tone resting on the stem, which is strengthened. Much less often, the tam of 2d du. is treated in the same way; other endings, only sporadically. Details are given under the various formations below.

Subjunctive Mode.

557. Of the subjunctive mode (as was pointed out above) only fragments are left in the later or classical language: namely, in the

so-called first persons imperative, and in the use (579) of the imperfect and aorist persons without augment after *má* prohibitive. In the oldest period, however, it was a very frequent formation, being three or four times as common as the optative in the Rig-Veda, and nearly the same in the Atharvan; but already in the Brāhmaṇas it becomes comparatively rare. Its varieties of form are considerable, and sometimes perplexing.

558. In its normal and regular formation, a special mode-stem is made for the subjunctive by adding to the tense-stem an *a* – which combines with a final *a* of the tense-stem to *ā*. The accent rests upon the tense-stem, which accordingly has the strong form. Thus, from the strong present-stem *doh* (√*duh*) is made the subjunctive-stem *dóha*; from *juhó* (√*hu*), *juháva*; from *yunáj* (√*yuj*), *yunája*; from *sunó* (√*su*), *sunáva*; from *bháva* (√*bhū*), *bhávā*; from *tudá* (√*tud*), *tudā*; from *ucyá* (pass., √*vac*), *ucyā*; and so on.

559. The stem thus formed is inflected in general as an *a*-stem would be inflected in the indicative, with constant accent, and *ā* for *a* before the endings of the first person (733 i) – but with the following peculiarities as to ending etc.:

560. a. In the active, the 1st sing. has *ni* as ending: thus, *dóhāni*, *yunájāni*, *bhávāni*. But in the Rig-Veda sometimes *ā* simply: thus, *áyā*, *brávā*.

b. In 1st du., 1st pl., and 3d pl., the endings are the secondary: thus, *dóhāva*, *dóhāma*, *dóhan*; *bhávāva*, *bhávāma*, *bhávān*.

c. In 2d and 3d du. and 2d pl., the endings are primary: thus, *dóhathas*, *dóhatas*, *dóhatha*; *bhávāthas*, *bhávātas*, *bhávātha*.

d. In 2d and 3d sing., the endings are either primary or secondary: thus, *dóhasi* or *dóhas*, *dóhati* or *dóhat*; *bhávāsi* or *bhávās*, *bhávāti* or *bhávāt*.

e. Occasionally, forms with double mode-sign *ā* (by assimilation to the more numerous subjunctives from tense-stems in *a*) are met with from non-*a*-stems: thus, *ásātha* from *as*; *áyās*, *áyāt*, *áyān* from *e* (√*i*).

561. In the middle, forms with secondary instead of primary endings are very rare, being found only in the 3d pl. (where they are more frequent than the primary), and in a case or two of the 3d sing. (and AB. has once *asyāthās*).

a. The striking peculiarity of subjunctive middle inflection is the frequent strengthening of *e* to *āi* in the endings. This is less general in the very earliest language than later. In 1st sing., *āi* alone is found as ending, even in RV.; and in 1st du. also (of rare occurrence), only *āvahāi* is met with. In 1st pl., *āmahāi* prevails in RV. and AV. (*āmahe* is found a few times), and is alone known later. In 2d sing., *sāi* for *se* does not occur in RV., but is the only form in AV. and the Brāhmaṇas. In 3d sing., *tāi* for *te* occurs once in RV., and is the predominant form

in AV., and the only one later. In 2d pl., dhvāi for dhve is found in one word in RV., and a few times in the Brāhmaṇas. In 3d pl., ntāi for nte is the Brāhmaṇa form (of far from frequent occurrence); it occurs neither in RV. nor AV. No such dual endings as thāi and tāi, for the and te, are anywhere found; but RV. has in a few words (nine: above, 547 c) āithe and āite, which appear to be a like subjunctive strengthening of ethe and ete (although found in one indicative form, kṛṇvāite). Before the āi-endings, the vowel is regularly long ā; but antāi instead of āntāi is two or three times met with, and once or twice (TS. AB.) atāi for ātāi.

562. The subjunctive endings, then, in combination with the subjunctive mode-sign, are as follows:

	active.			middle.		
	s.	d.	p.	s.	d.	p.
1	āni	āva	āma	āi	āvahāi āvahe	āmahāi āmahe
2	asi as	athas	atha	ase āsāi	āithe	adhve ādhvāi
3	ati at	atas	an	ate ātāi	āite	ante, anta āntāi

a. And in further combination with final a of a tense-stem, the initial a of all these endings becomes ā: thus, for example, in 2d pers., āsi or ās, āthas, ātha, āse, ādhve.

563. Besides this proper subjunctive, with mode-sign, In its triple form — with primary, with strengthened primary, and with secondary endings — the name of subjunctive, in the forms "imperfect subjunctive" and "improper subjunctive", has been also given to the indicative forms of imperfect and aorist when used, with the augment omitted, in a modal sense (below, 587): such use being quite common in RV., but rapidly dying out, so that in the Brāhmaṇa language and later it is hardly met with except after mā prohibitive.

a. As to the general uses of the subjunctive, see below, 574 ff.

Optative Mode.

564. a. As has been already pointed out, the optative is of comparatively rare occurrence in the language of the Vedas; but it gains rapidly in frequency, and already in the Brāhmaṇas greatly outnumbers the subjunctive, and still later comes almost entirely to take its place.

b. Its mode of formation is the same in all periods of the language.

565. a. The optative mode-sign is in the active voice a different one, according as it is added to a tense-stem ending in a, or

to one ending in some other final. In the latter case, it is *yā́*, accented; this *yā* is appended to the weaker form of the tense-stem, and takes the regular series of secondary endings, with, in 3d plur., *us* instead of *an*, and loss of the *ā* before it. After an *a*-stem, it is *ī*, unaccented; this *ī* blends with the final *a* to *e* (which then is accented or not according to the accent of the *a*); and the *e* is maintained unchanged before a vowel-ending (*am*, *us*), by means of an interposed euphonic *y*.

b. In the middle voice, the mode-sign is *ī* throughout, and takes the secondary endings, with *a* in 1st sing., and *ran* in 3d pl. After an *a*-stem, the rules as to its combination to *e*, the accent of the latter, and its retention before a vowel-ending with interposition of a *y*, are the same as in the active. After any other final, the weaker form of stem is taken, and the accent is on the ending (except in one class of verbs, where it falls upon the tense-stem: see 645); and the *ī* (as when combined to *e*) takes an inserted *y* before the vowel-endings (*a*, *āthām*, *ātām*).

c. It is, of course, impossible to tell from the form whether *i* or *ī* is combined with the final of an *a*-stem to *e*; but no good reason appears to exist for assuming *i*, rather than the *ī* which shows itself in the other class of stems in the middle voice.

566. The combined mode-sign and endings of the optative, then, are as follows, in their double form, for *a*-stems and for others:

a. for non-*a*-stems.

	active.			middle.		
	s.	d.	p.	s.	d.	p.
1	yām	yāva	yāma	īyá	īváhi	īmáhi
2	yās	yātam	yāta	īthās	īyāthām	īdhvām
3	yāt	yātām	yús	ītá	īyātām	īrán

b. combined with the final of *a*-stems.

1	eyam	eva	ema	eya	evahi	emahi
2	es	etam	eta	ethās	eyāthām	edhvam
3	et	etām	eyus	eta	eyātām	eran

c. The *yā* is in the Veda not seldom resolved into *iā*.

d. The contracted *sanem*, for *saneyam*, is found in TB. and Āpast. Certain Vedic 3d pl. middle forms in *rata* will be mentioned below, under the various formations.

567. Precative. Precative forms are such as have a sibilant inserted between the optative-sign and the ending. They are made almost only from the aorist stems, and, though allowed by the grammarians to be formed from every root — the active precative from the simple aorist, the middle from the sibilant aorist — are

practically of rare occurrence at every period of the language, and especially later.

a. The inserted *s* runs in the active through the whole series of persons; in the middle, it is allowed only in the 2d and 3d persons sing. and du. and the 2d pl., and is quotable only for the 2d and 3d sing. In the 2d sing. act., the precative form, by reason of the necessary loss of the added *s*, is not distinguishable from the simple optative; in the 3d sing. act., the same is the case in the later language, which (compare 555 a) saves the personal ending *t* instead of the precative-sign *s*; but the RV. usually, and the other Vedic texts to some extent, have the proper ending *yās* (for *yāst*). As to *ḡh* in the 2d pl. mid., see 226 c.

b. The accent is as in the simple optative.

568. The precative endings, then, accepted in the later language (including, in brackets, those which are identical with the simple optative), are as follows:

	active.			middle.		
	s.	d.	p.	s.	d.	p.
1	yāsam	yāsva	yāsma	[īyá]	[īváhi]	[īmáhi]
2	[yās]	yāstam	yāsta	īṣṭhās	īyāsthām	īḡhvam
3	[yāt]	yāstām	yāsus	īṣṭá	īyāstām	[īrán]

a. Respecting the precative, see further 921 ff.

b. As to the general uses of the optative, see below, 573 ff.

Imperative Mode.

569. The imperative has no mode-sign; it is made by adding its own endings directly to the tense-stem, just as the other endings are added to form the indicative tenses.

a. Hence, in 2d and 3d du. and 2d pl., its forms are indistinguishable from those of the augment-preterit from the same stem with its augment omitted.

b. The rules as to the use of the different endings — especially in 2d sing., where the variety is considerable — will be given below, in connection with the various tense-systems. The ending *tāt*, however, has so much that is peculiar in its use that it calls for a little explanation here.

570. The Imperative in *tāt*. An imperative form, usually having the value of a 2d pers. sing., but sometimes also of other persons and numbers, is made by adding *tāt* to a present tense-stem — in its weak form, if it have a distinction of strong and weak form.

a. Examples are: *brūtāt*, *hatāt*, *vittāt*; *pipṛtāt*, *jahītāt*, *dhattāt*; *kṛṇutāt*, *kurutāt*; *gr̥hṇītāt*, *jānītāt*; *ávatāt*, *rákṣatāt*, *vasatāt*; *viçatāt*, *sṛjatāt*; *asyatāt*, *naçyatāt*, *chyatāt*; *kriyatāt*;

gamayatāt, cyāvayatāt, vārayatāt; īpsatāt; jāgrtāt. No examples have been found from a nasal-class verb (690), nor any other than those here given from a passive, intensive, or desiderative. The few accented cases indicate that the formation follows the general rule for one made with an accented ending (552).

b. The imperative in tāt is not a very rare formation in the older language, being made (in V., B., and S.) from about fifty roots, and in toward a hundred and fifty occurrences. Later, it is very unusual: thus, only a single example has been noted in MBh., and one in R.; and correspondingly few in yet more modern texts.

571. As regards its meaning, this form appears to have prevailing in the Brāhmaṇas, and traceably but much less distinctly in the Vedic texts, a specific tense-value added to its mode-value — as signifying, namely, an injunction to be carried out at a later time than the present: it is (like the Latin forms in to and tote) a posterior or future imperative.

a. Examples are: ihāi 'vá mā tīṣṭhantam abhyèhí 'ti brūhi tám tú na āgatām pratiprábrūtāt (ÇB.) *say to her "come to me as I stand just here," and [afterward] announce her to us as having come*; yád ūrdhvás tīṣṭhā dráviṇe 'há dhattāt (RV.) *when thou shalt stand upright, [then] bestow riches here* (and similarly in many cases); utkúlam udvahó bhavo 'dúhya prāti dhāvatāt (AV.) *be a carrier up the ascent; after having carried up, run back again*; vānaspátir ádhi tvā sthāsyati tāsya vittāt (TS.) *the tree will ascend thee, [then] take note of it*.

b. Examples of its use as other than 2d sing. are as follows: 1st sing., āvyuṣāṁ jāgrtād ahám (AV.; only case) *let me watch till daybreak*; as 3d sing., púnar mǎ "viçatād rayíḥ (TS.) *let wealth come again to me*, ayám tyásya rájā mūrdhānaṁ ví pātayatāt (ÇB.) *the king here shall make his head fly off*; as 2d du., násatyāv abruvan deváh púnar á vahatād íti (RV.) *the gods said to the two Açvins "bring them back again"*; as 2d pl., āpaḥ ... devéṣu naḥ sukṛto brūtāt (TS.) *ye waters, announce us to the gods as well-doers*. In the later language, the prevailing value appears to be that of a 3d sing.: thus, bhavān prasādaṁ kurutāt (MBh.) *may your worship do the favor*, enam bhavān abhirakṣatāt (DKC.) *let your excellency protect him*.

c. According to the native grammarians, the imperative in tāt is to be used with a benedictive implication. No instance of such use appears to be quotable.

d. In a certain passage repeated several times in different Brāhmaṇas and Sūtras, and containing a number of forms in tāt used as 2d pl., vārayadhvāt is read instead of vārayatāt in some of the texts (K. AB. AÇS. ÇÇS.). No other occurrence of the ending dhvāt has been anywhere noted.

Uses of the Modes.

572. Of the three modes, the imperative is the one most distinct and limited in office, and most unchanged in use throughout the whole history of the language. It signifies a command or injunction — an attempt at the exercise of the speaker's will upon some one or something outside of himself.

a. This, however (in Sanskrit as in other languages), is by no means always of the same force; the command shades off into a demand, an exhortation, an entreaty, an expression of earnest desire. The imperative also sometimes signifies an assumption or concession; and occasionally, by pregnant construction, it becomes the expression of something conditional or contingent; but it does not acquire any regular use in dependent-clause-making.

b. The imperative is now and then used in an interrogative sentence: thus, *bravīhi ko 'dyāi 'va mayā viyuṣyatām (R.) speak! who shall now be separated by me? katham ete guṇavantaḥ kriyantām (H.) how are they to be made virtuous? kasmāi piṇḍaḥ pradīyatām (Vet.) to whom shall the offering be given?*

573. The optative appears to have as its primary office the expression of wish or desire; in the oldest language, its prevailing use in independent clauses is that to which the name "optative" properly belongs.

a. But the expression of desire, on the one hand, passes naturally over into that of request or entreaty, so that the optative becomes a softened imperative; and, on the other hand, it comes to signify what is generally desirable or proper, what should or ought to be, and so becomes the mode of prescription; or, yet again, it is weakened into signifying what may or can be, what is likely or usual, and so becomes at last a softened statement of what is.

b. Further, the optative in dependent clauses, with relative pronouns and conjunctions, becomes a regular means of expression of the conditional and contingent, in a wide and increasing variety of uses.

c. The so-called precative forms (567) are ordinarily used in the proper optative sense. But in the later language they are occasionally met with in the other uses of the optative: thus, *na hi prapaçyāmi mamā 'panudyād yac chokam (Bh G.) for I do not perceive what should dispel my grief; yad bhūyāsur vibhūṭayaḥ (BhP.) that there should be changes. Also rarely with mā: see 579 b.*

574. The subjunctive, as has been pointed out, becomes nearly extinct at an early period in the history of the language; there are left of it in classical usage only two relics: the use of its first persons in an imperative sense, or to signify a necessity or obligation resting on the speaker, or a peremptory intention on his part; and the use of unaugmented forms (579), with the negative particle **न** *mā*, in a prohibitive or negative imperative sense.

a. And the general value of the subjunctive from the beginning was what these relics would seem to indicate; its fundamental meaning is perhaps that of requisition, less peremptory than the imperative, more so than the optative. But this meaning is liable to the same modifications and transitions with that of the optative; and subjunctive and optative run closely parallel with one another in the oldest language in their use in independent clauses, and are hardly distinguishable in dependent. And instead of their being (as in Greek) both maintained in use, and endowed with nicer and more distinctive values, the subjunctive gradually disappears, and the optative assumes alone the offices formerly shared by both.

575. The difference, then, between imperative and subjunctive and optative, in their fundamental and most characteristic uses, is one of degree: command, requisition, wish; and no sharp line of division exists between them; they are more or less exchangeable with one another, and combinable in coördinate clauses.

a. Thus, in AV., we have in impv.: *çatām jīva çarádaḥ do thou live a hundred autumns; ubhāú tāú jīvatām jarádaṣṭī let them both live to attain old age; — in subj., adyá jīvāni let me live this day; çatām jīvāti çarádaḥ he shall live a hundred autumns; — in opt., jīvema çarādām çatāni may we live hundreds of autumns; sárvam áyur jīvyāsam (prec.) I would fain live out my whole term of life.* Here the modes would be interchangeable with a hardly perceptible change of meaning.

b. Examples, again, of different modes in coördinate construction are: *iyám agne nārī pátim videṣṭa ... súvānā putrán máhiṣī bhavāti gatvá pátim subhágā ví rājatu (AV.) may this woman, O Agni! find a spouse; giving birth to sons she shall become a chieftainess; having attained a spouse let her rule in happiness; gopāyá naḥ svastáye prabúdhe naḥ púnar dadaḥ (TS.) watch over us for*

our welfare; grant unto us to wake again; syān naḥ sūnúḥ ... sá te sumatír bhūtv asmé (RV.) may there be to us a son; let that favor of thine be ours. It is not very seldom the case that versions of the same passage in different texts show different modes as various readings.

c. There is, in fact, nothing in the earliest employment of these modes to prove that they might not all be specialized uses of forms originally equivalent — having, for instance, a general future meaning.

576. As examples of the less characteristic use of subjunctive and optative in the older language, in independent clauses, may be quoted the following: á ghā tá gacchān úttarā yugāni (RV.) *those later ages will doubtless come; yád ... na marā iti mánýase (RV.) if thou thinkest "I shall not die"; ná tá naçanti ná dabhāti táskaraḥ (RV.) they do not become lost; no thief can harm them; kásmāi devāya havíṣā vidhema (RV.) to what god shall we offer oblation? agnínā rayím açnavat ... divé-dive (RV.) by Agni one may gain wealth every day; utāi 'nām brahmāṇe dadyāt táthā syonā çivā syāt (AV.) one should give her, however, to a Brahman; in that case she will be propitious and favorable; áhar-ahar dadyāt (ÇB.) one should give every day.*

577. The uses of the optative in the later language are of the utmost variety, covering the whole field occupied jointly by the two modes in earlier time. A few examples from a single text (MBh.) will be enough to illustrate them: ucchiṣṭaṁ nāi 'va bhuñjīyaṁ na kuryām pādadhāvanam *I will not eat of the remnant of the sacrifice, I will not perform the foot-lavation ; jñātīn vrajet let her go to her relatives; nāi 'vaṁ sā karhicit kuryāt she should not act thus at any time; kathaṁ vidyām nalaṁ nṛpam how can I know king Nala? utsarge saṁçayaḥ syāt tu vindetā 'pi sukhaṁ kvacit but in case of her abandonment there may be a chance; she may also find happiness somewhere; kathaṁ vāso vikarteyaṁ na ca budhyeta me priyā how can I cut off the garment and my beloved not wake?*

578. The later use of the first persons subjunctive as so-called imperative involves no change of construction from former time, but only restriction to a single kind of use: thus, dīvyāva *let us two play; kiṁ karavāṇi te what shall I do for thee?*

579. The imperative negative, or prohibitive, is from the earliest period of the language regularly and usually expressed by the particle má with an augmentless past form, prevailing aorist.

a. Thus, prá pata mé 'há raṁsthāḥ (AV.) *fly away, do not stay here; dviṣāṇç ca máhyaṁ radhyatu má cā 'hām dviṣaté radham (AV.) both let my foe be subject to me, and let me not be subject to my foe; urv àçyām ábhayaṁ jyótir indra má no dīrghā abhí naçan tamisráḥ (RV.) I would win broad fearless light, O Indra; let not the long darknesses come upon us; má na áyuh prá moṣīḥ (RV.) do not*

steal away our life; samāçvasihi mā çucaḥ (MBh.) be comforted; do not grieve; mā bhāiṣiḥ or bhāiḥ (MBh. R.) do not be afraid; mā bhūt kālasya paryayaḥ (R.) let not a change of time take place. Examples with the imperfect are: mā bibher ná mariṣyasi (RV.) do not fear; thou wilt not die; mā smāi 'tānt sakhīn kuruthāḥ (AV.) do not make friends of them; mā putram anutapyathāḥ (MBh.) do not sorrow for thy son. The relation of the imperfect to the aorist construction, in point of frequency, is in RV. about as one to five, in AV. still less, or about one to six; and though instances of the imperfect are quotable from all the older texts, they are exceptional and infrequent; while in the epics and later they become extremely rare.

b. A single optative, *bhujema*, is used prohibitively with *mā* in RV.; the older language presents no other example, and the construction is very rare also later. In an example or two, also, the precative (*bhūyāt*, R. Pañc.) follows *mā*.

c. The RV. has once apparently *mā* with an imperative; but the passage is probably corrupt. No other such case is met with in the older language (unless *sṛpa*. TA. i. 14; doubtless a bad reading for *sṛpas*); but in the epics and later the construction begins to appear, and becomes an ordinary form of prohibition: thus, *mā prayacche "çvare dhanam (H.) do not bestow wealth on a lord; sakhi māi 'vaṁ vada (Vet.) friend, do not speak thus.*

d. The ÇB. (xi. 5. 1¹) appears to offer a single example of a true subjunctive with *mā*, *ní padyāsāi*; there is perhaps something wrong about the reading.

e. In the epics and later, an aorist form not deprived of augment is occasionally met with after *mā*: thus, *mā tvāṁ kālo 'tyagāt (MBh.) let not the time pass thee; mā vālipatham anv agāḥ (R.) do not follow Vāli's road. But the same anomaly occurs also two or three times in the older language: thus, vyāpaptat (ÇB.), agās (TA.), anaçat (KS.).*

580. But the use also of the optative with *ná* *not* in a prohibitive sense appears in the Veda, and becomes later a familiar construction: thus, *ná riṣyema kadā caná (RV.) may we suffer no harm at any time; ná cā 'tisṛjén ná juhuyāt (AV.) and if he do not grant permission, let him not sacrifice; tát u táthā ná kuryāt (ÇB.) but he must not do that so; na divā çayīta (ÇGS.) let him not sleep by day; na tvāṁ vidyur janāḥ (MBh.) let not people know thee. This in the later language is the correlative of the prescriptive optative, and both are extremely common; so that in a text of prescriptive character the optative forms may come to outnumber the indicative and imperative together (as is the case, for example, in Manu).*

581. In all dependent constructions, it is still harder even in the oldest language to establish a definite distinction between subjunctive and optative; a method of use of either is scarcely to be found to which the other does not furnish a practical equivalent —

and then, in the later language, such uses are represented by the optative alone. A few examples will be sufficient to illustrate this:

a. After relative pronouns and conjunctions in general: *yá vyūṣúr yāç ca nūnám vyucchān* (RV.) *which have shone forth [hitherto], and which shall hereafter shine forth*; *yó 'to jáyātā asmākaṁ sá éko 'sat* (TS.) *whoever shall be born of her, let him be one of us*; *yó vāi tán vidyāt pratyákṣaṁ sá brahmá véditā syāt* (AV.) *whoever shall know them face to face, he may pass for a knowing priest*; *putráṇāṁ ... jātānāṁ janáyāç ca yān* (AV.) *of sons born and whom thou mayest bear*; *yásya ... átithir grhān āgacchet* (AV.) *to whosoever house he may come as guest*; *yatamāthā kāmáyeta tathā kuryāt* (ÇB.) *in whatever way he may choose, so may he do it*; *yārhi hótā yājamānasya náma grhñiyāt tárhi brūyāt* (TS.) *when the sacrificing priest shall name the name of the offerer, then he may speak*; *svarūpaṁ yadā draṣṭum icchethāḥ* (MBh.) *when thou shalt desire to see thine own form*.

b. In more distinctly conditional constructions: *yājāma devān yádi çaknāvāma* (RV.) *we will offer to the gods if we shall be able*; *yád agne syām ahám tvám tvám vā ghā syā ahám syúṣ ṭe satyā ihā "çīṣaḥ* (RV.) *if I were thou, Agni, or if thou wert I, thy wishes should be realized on the spot*; *yó dyām atisárpāt parástān ná sá mucyātāi váruṇasya rájñāḥ* (AV.) *though one steal far away beyond the sky, he shall not escape king Varuna*; *yád ánāçvān upavāset kṣódhukaḥ syād yád açñiyād rudrò 'sya paçún abhí manyeta* (TS.) *if he should continue without eating, he would starve; if he should eat, Rudra would attack his cattle*; *prārthayed yadi mām kaçcid daṇḍyaḥ sa me pumān bhavet* (MBh.) *if any man soever should desire me, he should suffer punishment*. These and the like constructions, with the optative, are very common in the Brāhmaṇas and later.

c. In final clauses: *yáthā 'hám çatruhá 'sāni* (AV.) *that I may be a slayer of my enemies*; *grñāná yáthā píbātho ándhaḥ* (RV.) *that being praised with song ye may drink the draught*; *urāú yáthā táva çárman mādema* (RV.) *in order that we rejoice in thy wide protection*; *úpa jānīta yáthe 'yám púnar āgacchet* (ÇB.) *contrive that she come back again*; *kṛpāṁ kuryād yathā mayi* (MBh.) *so that he may take pity on me*. This is in the Veda one of the most frequent uses of the subjunctive; and in its correlative negative form, with *néd in order that not* or *lest* (always followed by an accented verb), it continues not rare in the Brāhmaṇas.

d. The indicative is also very commonly used in final clauses after *yathā*: thus, *yáthā 'yám púruṣo 'ntárikṣam anucáрати* (ÇB.) *in order that this man may traverse the atmosphere*; *yathā na vighnaḥ kriyate* (R.) *so that no hindrance may arise*; *yathā 'yaṁ naçyati tathā vidheyam* (H.) *it must be so managed that he perish*.

e. With the conditional use of subjunctive and optative is farther to be compared that of the so-called conditional tense: see below, 950.

f. As is indicated by many of the examples given above, it is usual in a conditional sentence, containing protasis and apodosis, to employ always the same mode, whether subjunctive or optative (or conditional), in each of the two clauses. For the older language, this is a rule well-nigh or quite without exception.

582. No distinction of meaning has been established between the modes of the present-system and those (in the older language) of the perfect and aorist-systems.

Participles.

583. Participles, active and middle, are made from all the tense-stems — except the periphrastic future, and, in the later language, the aorist (and aorist participles are rare from the beginning).

a. The participles unconnected with the tense-systems are treated in chap. XIII. (952 ff.).

584. The general participial endings are अन् ant (weak form अत् at; fem. अन्ती antī or अती atī: see above, 449) for the active, and आन āna (fem. आना ānā) for the middle. But —

a. After a tense-stem ending in a, the active participial suffix is virtually nt, one of the two a's being lost in the combination of stem-final and suffix.

b. After a tense-stem ending in a, the middle participial suffix is māna instead of āna. But there are occasional exceptions to the rule as to the use of māna and āna respectively, which will be pointed out in connection with the various formations below. Such exceptions are especially frequent in the causative: see 1043 f.

c. The perfect has in the active the peculiar suffix vāṅs (weakest form uṣ, middle form vat; fem, uṣī: see, for the inflection of this participle, above, 458 ff.).

d. For details, as to form of stem etc., and for special exceptions, see the following chapters.

Augment.

585. The augment is a short अ a, prefixed to a tense-stem — and, if the latter begin with a vowel, combining with that vowel irregularly into the heavier or vṛddhi diphthong

(136 a). It is always (without any exception) the accented element in the verbal form of which it makes a part.

a. In the Veda, the augment is in a few forms long ā: thus, ānaṭ, āvar, āvṛṇi, āvṛṇak, āvidhyat, āyunak, āyukta, āyukṣātām, āriṇak, ārāik and yās ta āvidhat, RV. ii. 1. 7, 9?).

586. The augment is a sign of past time. And an augment-preterit is made from each of the tense-stems from which the system of conjugation is derived: namely, the imperfect, from the present-stem; the pluperfect (in the Veda only), from the perfect-stem; the conditional, from the future-stem; while in the aorist such a preterit stands without any corresponding present indicative.

587. In the early language, especially in the RV., the occurrence of forms identical with those of augment-tenses save for the lack of an augment is quite frequent. Such forms lose in general, along with the augment, the specific character of the tenses to which they belong; and they are then employed in part non-modally, with either a present or a past sense; and in part modally, with either a subjunctive or an optative sense — especially often and regularly after mā prohibitive (579); and this last mentioned use comes down also into the later language.

a. In RV., the augmentless forms are more than half as common as the augmented (about 2000 and 3300), and are made from the present, perfect, and aorist-systems, but considerably over half from the aorist. Their non-modal and modal uses are of nearly equal frequency. The tense value of the non-modally used forms is more often past than present. Of the modally used forms, nearly a third are construed with mā prohibitive; the rest have twice as often an optative as a proper subjunctive value.

b. In AV., the numerical relations are very different. The augmentless forms are less than a third as many as the augmented (about 475 to 1450), and are prevaillingly (more than four fifths) aoristic. The non-modal uses are only a tenth of the modal. Of the modally used forms, about four fifths are construed with mā prohibitive; the rest are chiefly optative in value. Then, in the language of the Brāhmaṇas (not including the mantra-material which they contain), the loss of augment is, save in occasional sporadic cases, restricted to the prohibitive construction with mā; and the same continues to be the case later.

c. The accentuation of the augmentless forms is throughout in accordance with that of unaugmented tenses of similar formation. Examples will be given below, under the various tenses.

d. Besides the augmentless aorist-forms with mā prohibitive, there are also found occasionally in the later language augmentless imperfect-forms (very rarely aorist-forms), which have the same value as if they were augmented, and are for the most part examples of metrical license. They are especially frequent in the epics (whence some scores of them are quotable).

Reduplication.

588. The derivation of conjugational and declensional stems from roots by reduplication, either alone or along with other formative elements, has been already spoken of (259), and the formations in which reduplication appears have been specified: they are, in primary verb-inflection, the present (of a certain class of verbs), the perfect (of nearly all), and the aorist (of a large number); and the intensive and desiderative secondary conjugations contain in their stems the same element.

589. The general principle of reduplication is the prefixion to a root of a part of itself repeated — if it begin with consonants, the initial consonant and the vowel; if it begin with a vowel, that vowel, either alone or with a following consonant. The varieties of detail, however, are very considerable. Thus, especially, as regards the vowel, which in present and perfect and desiderative is regularly shorter and lighter in the reduplication than in the root-syllable, in aorist is longer, and in intensive is strengthened. The differences as regards an initial consonant are less, and chiefly confined to the intensive; for the others, certain general rules may be here stated, all further details being left to be given in connection with the account of the separate formations.

590. The consonant of the reduplicating syllable is in general the first consonant of the root: thus, पप्रच् paprach from √प्रच् prach; चिचिरी çiri from √चि çri; बुबुध् bubudh from √बुध्. But —

a. A non-aspirate is substituted in reduplication for an aspirate: thus, दधा dadhā from √धा; बिभृ bibhṛ from √भृ bhṛ.

b. A palatal is substituted for a guttural or for ह् h:

thus, चकृ cakṛ from √कृ kṛ ; चिखिद् cikhid from √खिद् khid; जग्रम् jagrabh from √ग्रम् grabh; जह jahṛ from √ह हṛ.

c. The occasional reversion, on the other hand, of a palatal in the radical syllable to guttural form has been noticed above (216 l).

d. Of two initial consonants, the second, if it be a non-nasal mute preceded by a sibilant, is repeated instead of the first: thus, तसृ तासृ from √सृ str; तस्या tasthā from √स्था sthā; चस्कन्द caskand from √स्कन्द skand; चस्खल् caskhal from √स्खल् skhal; चुचुत् cuçcut from √चुत् çcut; पस्पृध् paspr̥dh from √स्पृध् spr̥dh; पुस्पृध् puspr̥dh from √स्पृध् spr̥dh; — but सस्ना sasnā from √स्ना snā; सस्मृ sasmṛ from √स्मृ smr; सुसृ susru from √सृ sru; शिखिष् çikṣiṣ from √खिष् çikṣiṣ.

Accent of the Verb.

591. The statements which have been made above, and those which will be made below, as to the accent of verbal forms, apply to those cases in which the verb is actually accented.

a. But, according to the grammarians, and according to the invariable practice in accented texts, the verb is in the majority of its occurrences unaccented or toneless.

b. That is to say, of course, the verb in its proper forms, its personal or so-called finite forms. The verbal nouns and adjectives, or the infinitives and participles, are subject to precisely the same laws of accent as other nouns and adjectives.

592. The general rule, covering most of the cases, is this: The verb in an independent clause is unaccented, unless it stand at the beginning of the clause — or also, in metrical text, at the beginning of a pāda.

a. For the accent of the verb, as well as for that of the vocative case (above, 314 c), the beginning of a pāda counts as that of a sentence, whatever be the logical connection of the pāda with what precedes it.

b. Examples of the unaccented verb are: agnīm īde puróhitam *Agni I praise, the house-priest*; sá íd devéṣu gacchati *that, truly, goes to the gods*; ágne sūpāyanó bhava *O Agni, be easy of access*; idám indra çṛṇuhi somapa *this, O Indra, soma-drinker, hear*; námas te rudra kṛṇmaḥ *homage to thee, Rudra, we offer*; yájamānasya paçún pāhi *the sacrificer's cattle protect thou*.

c. Hence, there are two principal situations in which the verb retains its accent:

593. First, the verb is accented when it stands at the beginning of a clause — or, in verse, of a pāda.

a. Examples of the verb accented at the head of the sentence are, in prose, *ṣúndhadhvarṁ dāivyāya kármaṇe* *be pure for the divine ceremony*; *āpnóti 'mám lokám* *he wins this world*; in verse, where the head of the sentence is also that of the pāda, *syámé 'd índrasya ṣármaṇi* *may we be in Indra's protection*; *darṣāya mā yātudhānān* *show me the sorcerers*; *gámad vājebhir á sá naḥ* *may he come with good things to us*; — in verse, where the head of the clause is within the pāda, *téṣām pāhi ṣrudhí hávam* *drink of them, hear our call*; *sástu mātá sástu pitá sástu ṣvā sástu viṣpátih* *let the mother sleep, let the father sleep, let the dog sleep, let the master sleep*; *viṣvakarman námas te pāhy àsmān* *Viṣvakarman, homage to thee; protect us!* *yuvām ... rájña ūce duhitá prcché vām narā* *the king's daughter said to you "I pray you, ye men"*; *vayām te váya indra viddhí ṣu ṇaḥ prá bharāmahe* *we offer thee, Indra, strengthening; take note of us*.

b. Examples of the verb accented at the head of the pāda when this is not the head of the sentence are: *áthā te ántamānāṁ vidyāma sumatīnām* *so may we enjoy thy most intimate favors*; *dhātá 'syá agrúvāi pátim dádhātu pratikāmyām* *Dhātar bestow upon this girl a husband according to her wish*; *yātudhānasya somapa jahí prajām* *slay, Soma-drinker, the progeny of the sorcerer*.

594. Certain special cases under this head are as follows:

a. As a vocative forms no syntactical part of the sentence to which it is attached, but is only an external appendage to it, a verb following an initial vocative, or more than one, is accented, as if it were itself initial in the clause or pāda: thus, *áṣrutkarṇa ṣrudhí hávam* *O thou of listening ears, hear our call!* *síte vándāmahe tvā O Sītā,* *we reverence thee*; *víṣve devā vásavo rákṣate 'mám* *all ye gods, ye Vasus, protect this man*; *utá "gaṣ cakrúṣaṁ devā dévā jīváyathā púnaḥ* *likewise him, O gods, who has committed crime, ye gods, ye make to live again*.

b. If more than one verb follow a word or words syntactically connected with them all, only the first loses its accent, the others being treated as if they were initial verbs in separate clauses, with the same adjuncts understood: thus, *tarāṇir íj jayati kṣéti púṣyati* *successful he conquers, rules, thrives*; *amítrān ... párāca indra prá mṛṇā jahí ca* *our foes, Indra, drive far away and slay*; *asmábhyaṁ jeṣi yótsi ca* *for us conquer and fight*; *ágniṣomā haviṣaḥ prásthitasya vītām háryataṁ vṛṣaṇā juṣéthām* *O Agni and Soma, of the oblation set forth partake, enjoy, ye mighty ones, take pleasure*.

c. In like manner (but much less often), an adjunct, as subject or object, standing between two verbs and logically belonging to both, is reckoned to the first alone, and the second has the initial accent: thus, *jahí prajām náyasva ca* *slay the progeny, and bring [it] hither*; *ṣṛṇótu naḥ subhágā bódhatu tmánā* *may the blessed one hear us, [and may she] kindly regard [us]*.

d. It has even come to be a formal rule that a verb immediately following another verb is accented: thus, *sá yá etám evám upáste pūryáte prajáyā paçúbhiḥ* (ÇB.) *whoever worships him thus is filled with offspring and cattle.*

595. Second, the verb is accented, whatever its position, in a dependent clause.

a. The dependency of a clause is in the very great majority of cases conditioned by the relative pronoun *ya*, or one of its derivatives or compounds. Thus: *yám yajñám paribhūr ási* *what offering thou protectest*; *ó té yanti yé aparíṣu pácyān* *they are coming who shall behold her hereafter*; *sahá yán me ásti téna* *along with that which is mine*; *yátra naḥ pūrve pitáraḥ pareyúḥ* *whither our fathers of old departed*; *adyá murīya yádi yātudháno ásmi* *let me die on the spot, if I am a sorcerer*; *yáthá 'hāny anupūrvám bhāvanti* *as days follow one another in order*; *yávad idám bhúvanaṁ víçvam ásti* *how great this whole creation is*; *yátkāmās te juhumás tán no astu* *what desiring we sacrifice to thee, let that become ours*; *yatamás tíṭṭsāt* *whichever one desires to enjoy.*

b. The presence of a relative word in the sentence does not, of course, accent the verb, unless this is really the predicate of a dependent clause: thus, *ápa tyé táyávo yathā yanti* *they make off like thieves (as thieves do)*; *yát sthá jágac ca rejate* *whatever [is] immovable and movable trembles*; *yathākāmaṁ ní padyate* *he lies down at his pleasure.*

c. The particle *ca* when it means *if*, and *céd* (*ca+id*) *if*, give an accent to the verb: thus, *brahmá céd dhástam ágrahīt* *if a Brahman has grasped her hand*; *tvám ca soma no váço jīvātuṁ ná marāmahe* *if thou, Soma, wilt us to live, we shall not die*; *á ca gácchān mitráṁ enā dadhāma* *if he will come here, we will make friends with him.*

d. There are a very few passages in which the logical dependence of a clause containing no subordinating word appears to give the verb its accent: thus, *sám áçvaparṇāç cáranti no náro 'smākam indra rathíno jayantu* *when our men, horse-winged, come into conflict, let the chariot-fighters of our side, O Indra, win the victory.* Rarely, too, an imperative so following another imperative that its action may seem a consequence of the latter's is accented: thus, *túyam á gahi káñveṣu sú sácā píba* *come hither quickly; drink along with the Kanvas* (i. e. *in order to drink*).

e. A few other particles give the verb an accent, in virtue of a slight subordinating force belonging to them: thus, especially *hí* (with its negation *nahí*), which in its fullest value means *for*, but shades off from that into a mere asseverative sense; the verb or verbs connected with it are always accented: thus, *ví té muñcantāṁ vimúco hí sánti* *let them release him, for they are releasers*; *yác cid dhí ... anāçastá iva smási* *if we, forsooth, are as it were unrenowned*; — also *néd* (*ná+íd*), meaning *lest, that not*: thus, *nét tvā tápāti súro arcíṣā* *that the sun may not burn thee with his beam*; *virájaṁ néd vicchinádānī 'ti* *saying to himself*.

"lest I cut off the *virāj*" (such cases are frequent in the Brāhmaṇas); — and the interrogative *kuvid whether?* thus, *ukthébhiḥ kuvid āgamát will he come hither for our praises?*

596. But further, the verb of a prior clause is not infrequently accented in antithetical construction.

a. Sometimes, the relation of the two clauses is readily capable of being regarded as that of protasis and apodosis; but often, also, such a relation is very indistinct; and the cases of antithesis shade off into those of ordinary coördination, the line between them appearing to be rather arbitrarily drawn.

b. In many cases, the antithesis is made distincter by the presence in the two clauses of correlative words, especially *anya—anya, eka—eka, vā—vā, ca—ca*: thus, *prá-prā 'nyé yánti páry anyá āsate some go on and on, others sit about* (as if it were *while some go* etc.); *úd vā siñcádhvam úpa vā pṛṇadhvam either pour out, or fill up*; *sám ce 'dhyásvā 'gne prá ca vardhaye 'mám both do thou thyself become kindled, Agni, and do thou increase this person*. But it is also made without such help: thus, *prá 'jātāḥ prajā janáyati pári prājātā grhṇāti the unborn progeny he generates, the born he embraces*; *ápa yusmád ákramīn ná 'smān upāvartate [though] she has gone away from you, she does not come to us*; *ná 'ndhò 'dhvaryúr bhávati ná yajñām rákṣāṃsi ghnanti the priest does not become blind, the demons do not destroy the sacrifice*; *kéna sómā grhyānte kéna hūyante by whom [on the one hand] are the somas dipped out? by whom [on the other hand] are they offered?*

597. Where the verb would be the same in the two antithetical clauses, it is not infrequently omitted in the second: thus, beside complete expressions like *urví cá 'si vásvī cá 'si both thou art broad and thou art good*, occur, much oftener, incomplete ones like *agnír amúṣmīn loká āsíd yamò 'smín Agni was in yonder world, Yama [was] in this*; *asthná 'nyāḥ prajāḥ pratitiṣṭhanti māṃsénā 'nyāḥ by bone some creatures stand firm, by flesh others*; *dvipác ca sárvaṃ no rákṣa cátuṣpād yác ca naḥ svám both protect everything of ours that is biped, and also whatever that is quadruped belongs to us*.

a. Accentuation of the verb in the former of two antithetical clauses is a rule more strictly followed in the Brāhmaṇas than in the Veda, and least strictly in the RV.: thus, in RV., *abhí dyām mahinā bhuvam* (not *bhúvam*) *abhí 'mām pṛthivīm mahīm I am superior to the sky in greatness, also to this great earth*; and even *índro vidur āṅgirasas ca ghorāḥ Indra knows, and the terrible Angirases*.

598. There are certain more or less doubtful cases in which a verb-form is perhaps accented for emphasis.

a. Thus, sporadically before *caná in any wise*, and in connection with asseverative particles, as *kíla, aṅgá, evá*, and (in ÇB., regularly) *hánta*: thus, *hānte 'mām pṛthivīm vibhájāmahāi come on! let us share up this earth*.

CHAPTER IX.

THE PRESENT-SYSTEM.

599. The present-system, or system of forms coming from the present-stem, is composed (as was pointed out above) of a present indicative tense, together with a subjunctive (mostly lost in the classical language), an optative, an imperative, and a participle, and also a past tense, an augment-preterit, to which we give (by analogy with the Greek) the name of imperfect.

a. These forms often go in Sanskrit grammars by the name of "special tenses", while the other tense-systems are styled "general tenses" — as if the former were made from a special tense-stem or modified root, while the latter came, all alike, from the root itself. There is no reason why such a distinction and nomenclature should be retained; since, on the one hand, the "special tenses" come in one set of verbs directly from the root, and, on the other hand, the other tense-systems are mostly made from stems — and, in the case of the aorist, from stems having a variety of form comparable with that of present-stems.

600. Practically, the present-system is the most prominent and important part of the whole conjugation, since, from the earliest period of the language, its forms are very much more frequent than those of all the other systems together.

a. Thus, in the Veda, the occurrences of personal forms of this system are to those of all others about as three to one; in the Aitareya Brāhmaṇa, as five to one; in the Hitopadeṣa, as six to one; in the Çakuntalā, as eight to one; in Manu, as thirty to one.

601. And, as there is also great variety in the manner in which different roots form their present-stem, this, as being their most conspicuous difference, is made the basis of their principal classification; and a verb is said to be of this or of that conjugation, or class, according to the way in which its present-stem is made and inflected.

602. In a small minority of verbs, the present-stem is identical with the root. Then there are besides (excluding the passive and causative) seven more or less different methods of forming a present-stem from the root, each method being followed by a larger or smaller number of verbs. These are the "classes" or "conjugation-classes", as laid down by the native Hindu grammarians. They are arranged by the latter in a certain wholly artificial and unsystematic order (the ground of which has never been discovered); and they are wont to be designated in European works according to this order, or else, after Hindu example, by the root standing at the head of each class in the Hindu lists. A different arrangement and nomenclature will be followed here, namely as below — the classes being divided (as is usual in European grammars) into two more general classes or conjugations, distinguished from one another by wider differences than those which separate the special classes.

603. The classes of the First or non-a-Conjugation are as follows:

I. The root-class (second class, or ad-class, of the Hindu grammarians); its present-stem is coincident with the root itself: thus, अद् *ad eat*; इ *i go*; आस् *ās sit*; या *yā go*; द्विष् *dviṣ hate*; दुह् *duh milk*.

II. The reduplicating class (third or hu-class); the root is reduplicated to form the present-stem: thus, जुङ्ग *juhu* from √ङ्ग *hu sacrifice*; ददा *dadā* from √दा *dā give*; बिभृ *bibhṛ* from √भृ *bhṛ bear*.

III. The nasal class (seventh or rudh-class); a nasal, extended to the syllable न *na* in strong forms, is inserted before the final consonant of the root: thus, रुन्ध् *rundh* (or रुण्ध् *ruṇadh*) from √रुध् *rudh obstruct*; युञ्ज् *yuñj* (or युनञ् *yunaj*) from √युञ् *yuj join*.

IV. a. The nu-class (fifth or su-class); the syllable नु nu is added to the root: thus, सुनु sunu from √सु su *press out*; आप्नु āpnu from √आप् āp *obtain*.

b. A very small number (only half-a-dozen) of roots ending already in न् n, and also one very common and quite irregularly inflected root not so ending (कृ kṛ *make*), add उ u alone to form the present-stem. This is the eighth or tan-class of the Hindu grammarians; it may be best ranked by us as a sub-class, the u-class: thus, तनु tanu from √तन् tan *stretch*.

V. The nā-class (ninth or krī-class); the syllable ना nā (or, in weak forms, नी nī) is added to the root: thus, क्रीणा krīṇā (or क्रीणी krīṇī) from √क्री krī *buy*; स्तब्धना stabhnā (or स्तब्धनी stabhnī) from √स्तब्ध stabh *establish*.

604. These classes have in common, as their most fundamental characteristic, a shift of accent: the tone being now upon the ending, and now upon the root or the class-sign. Along with this goes a variation in the stem itself, which has a stronger or fuller form when the accent rests upon it, and a weaker or briefer form when the accent is on the ending these: forms are to be distinguished as the strong stem and the weak stem respectively (in part, both have been given above). The classes also form their optative active, their 2d sing. imperative, their 3d pl. middle, and their middle participle, in a different manner from the others.

605. In the classes of the Second or a-Conjugation, the present-stem ends in a, and the accent has a fixed place, remaining always upon the same syllable of the stem, and never shifted to the endings. Also, the optative, the 2d sing. impv., the 3d pl. middle, and the middle par-

ticiples, are (as just stated) unlike those of the other conjugation.

606. The classes of this conjugation are as follows:

VI. The a-class, or unaccented a-class (first or bhū-class); the added class-sign is a simply; and the root, which has the accent, is (if capable of it) strengthened by guṇa throughout: thus, भव bháva from √भू bhū *be*; नय náya from √नी nī *lead*; बोध bódha from √बुध् budh *wake*; वद váda from √वद् vad *speak*.

VII. The á-class, or accented a-class (sixth or tud-class); the added class-sign is a, as in the preceding class; but it has the accent, and the unaccented root remains unstrengthened: thus, तुद् tudá from √तुद् tud *thrust*; स्रज srjá from √स्रज् srj *let loose*; सुव suvá from √सू sū *give birth*.

VIII. The ya-class (fourth or div-class); ya is added to the root, which has the accent: thus, दीव्य dívya from √दिव् div (more properly दीव् dīv: see 765) *play*; नह्य náhya from √नह् nah *bind*; क्रुध्य krúdhya from √क्रुध् krudh *be angry*.

IX. The passive conjugation is also properly a present-system only, having a class-sign which is not extended into the other systems; though it differs markedly from the remaining classes in having a specific meaning, and in being formable in the middle voice from all transitive verbs. Its inflection may therefore best be treated next to that of the ya-class, with which it is most nearly connected, differing from it as the á-class from the a-class. It forms its stem, namely, by adding an accented yá to the root: thus, अद्य adyá from √अद् ad *eat*; रुध्य rudhyá from √रुध् rudh *obstruct*; बुध्य budhyá from √बुध् budh *wake*; तुद्य tudyá from √तुद् tud *thrust*.

607. The Hindu grammarians reckon a tenth class or cur-class, having a class-sign áya added to a strengthened root (thus, coráya from √cur), and an inflection like that of the other a-stems. Since, however, this stem is not limited to the present-system, but extends also into the rest of the conjugation — while it also has to a great extent a causative value, and may be formed in that value from a large number of roots — it will be best treated in full along with the derivative conjugations (chap. XIV., 1041 ff.).

608. A small number of roots add in the present-system a ch, or substitute a ch for their final consonant, and form a stem ending in cha or chá, which is then inflected like any a-stem. This is historically, doubtless, a true class-sign, analogous with the rest; but the verbs showing it are so few, and in formation so irregular, that they are not well to be put together into a class, but may best be treated as special cases falling under the other classes.

a. Roots adding ch are ṛ and yu, which make the stems ṛcchá and yúccha.

b. Roots substituting ch for their final are iṣ, uṣ (or vas *shine*), gam, yam, which make the stems icchá, ucchá, gáccha, yáccha.

c. Of the so-called roots ending in ch, several are more or less clearly stems, whose use has been extended from the present to other systems of tenses.

609. Roots are not wholly limited, even in the later language, to one mode of formation of their present-stem, but are sometimes reckoned as belonging to two or more different conjugation-classes. And such variety of formation is especially frequent in the Veda, being exhibited by a considerable proportion of the roots there occurring; already in the Brāhmaṇas, however, a condition is reached nearly agreeing in this respect with the classical language. The different present-formations sometimes have differences of meaning; yet not more important ones than are often found belonging to the same formation, nor of a kind to show clearly a difference of value as originally belonging to the separate classes of presents. If anything of this kind is to be established, it must be from the derivative conjugations, which are separated by no fixed line from the present-systems.

610. We take up now the different classes, in the order in which they have been arranged above, to describe more in detail, and with illustration, the formation of their present-systems, and to notice the irregularities belonging under each class.

I. Root-class (second, ad-class).

611. In this class there is no class-sign; the root itself is also present-stem, and to it are added directly the per-

sonal endings — but combined in subjunctive and optative with the respective mode-signs; and in the imperfect the augment is prefixed to the root.

a. The accented endings (552) regularly take the accent — except in the imperfect, where it falls on the augment — and before them the root remains unchanged; before the unaccented endings, the root takes the guṇa-strengthening.

b. It is only in the first three classes that the endings come immediately in contact with a final consonant of the root, and that the rules for consonant combination have to be noted and applied. In these classes, then, additional paradigms will be given, to illustrate the modes of combination.

1. Present Indicative.

612. The endings are the primary (with अते áte in 3d pl. mid.), added to the bare root. The root takes the accent, and has guṇa, if capable of it, in the three persons sing. act.

Examples of inflection: a. active, root इ i *go*: strong form of root-stem, ए é; weak form, इ i; middle, root ाs *sīt*, stem ा́s (irregularly accented throughout: 628).

	active.			middle.		
	s.	d.	p.	s.	d.	p.
1	एमि émi	इवस् ivás	इमस् imás	आसे áse	आस्वहे ásvahe	आस्महे ásmāhe
2	एषि éṣi	इथस् ithás	इथ ithá	आस्से ásse	आसाथे ásāthe	आद्ध्वे áddhve
3	एति éti	इतस् itás	यन्ति yánti	आस्ते áste	आसाते ásāte	आसते ásate

b. root dviṣ. *hate*: strong stem-form, dvéṣ; weak, dviṣ. For rules of combination for the final ṣ, see 226.

1	dvéṣmi	dviṣvās	dviṣmās	dviṣé	dviṣváhe	dviṣmāhe
2	dvéṣi	dviṣthás	dviṣthá	dvikṣé	dviṣāthe	dviḍḍhvé
3	dvéṣti	dviṣtás	dviṣánti	dviṣté	dviṣāte	dviṣāte

c. root duh *milk*: strong stem-form, dóh; weak, duh. For rules of combination for the final h, and for the conversion of the initial to dh, see 222 a, 155, 160.

1	dóhmi	duhvás	duhmās	duhé	duhváhe	duhmāhe
2	dhókṣi	dugdhás	dugdhá	dhukṣé	duháthe	dhugdhvé
3	dógdhi	dugdhás	duhánti	dugdhé	duháte	duháte

d. root *lih lick*: strong stem, *léh*; weak, *lih*. For rules of combination of the final *h*, see 222 b.

1	<i>léhmi</i>	<i>lihvás</i>	<i>lihmás</i>	<i>lihé</i>	<i>lihváhe</i>	<i>lihmáhe</i>
2	<i>lékṣi</i>	<i>līḍhás</i>	<i>līḍhá</i>	<i>likṣé</i>	<i>lihátthe</i>	<i>līḍhvé</i>
3	<i>léḍhi</i>	<i>līḍhás</i>	<i>lihánti</i>	<i>līḍhé</i>	<i>liháte</i>	<i>liháte</i>

613. Examples of the 3d sing. mid. coincident in form with the 1st sing. are not rare in the older language (both V. and B.): the most frequent examples are *íce*, *duhé*, *vidé*, *ḥáye*; more sporadic are *cité*, *bruve*, *huvé*. To *tha* of the 2d pl. is added *na* in *sthána*, *pāthánā*, *yāthána*. The irregular accent of the 3d pl. mid. is found in RV. in *rihaté*, *duhaté*. Examples of the same person in *re* and *rate* also occur: thus (besides those mentioned below, 629–30, 635), *vidré*, and, with auxiliary vowel, *arhire* (unless these are to be ranked, rather, as perfect forms without reduplication: 790 b).

2. Present Subjunctive.

614. Subjunctive forms of this class are not uncommon in the older language, and nearly all those which the formation anywhere admits are quotable, from Veda or from Brāhmaṇa. A complete paradigm, accordingly, is given below, with the few forms not actually quotable for this class enclosed in brackets. We may take as models (as above), for the active the root *i go*, and for the middle the root *ās sit*, from both of which numerous forms are met with (although neither for these nor for any others can the whole series be found in actual use).

a. The mode-stems are *áya* (é+a) and *ása* (ás+a) respectively.

	active.			middle.		
	s.	d.	p.	s.	d.	p.
1	<i>áyāni</i> <i>áyā</i>	<i>áyāva</i>	<i>áyāma</i>	<i>ásāi</i>	<i>ásāvahāi</i> [<i>ásávahe</i>]	<i>ásāmahāi</i> [<i>ásāmahe</i>]
2	<i>áyasi</i> <i>áyas</i>	<i>áyathas</i>	<i>áyatha</i>	<i>ásase</i> <i>ásāsāi</i>	[<i>ásāithe</i>]	[<i>ásadhve</i>] <i>ásādhvāi</i>
3	<i>áyati</i> <i>áyat</i>	<i>áyatas</i>	<i>áyan</i>	<i>ásate</i> <i>ásātāi</i>	<i>ásāite</i>	[<i>ásante</i>] -nta <i>ásāntāi</i>

615. The RV. has no middle forms in *āi* except those of the first person. The 1st. sing. act. in *ā* occurs only in RV., in *ayā*, *bravā*, *stāvā*. The 2d and 3d sing. act. with primary endings are very unusual in the Brāhmaṇas. Forms irregularly made with long *ā*, like those from present-stems in *a*, are not rare in AV. and B.: thus, *ayās*, *ayāt*, *áyān*; *ásāt*, *brávāt*; *bravāthas*; *asātha*, *ayātha*, *bravātha*, *hanātha*; *ádān*, *dohān*. Of middle forms with secondary endings are found *hánanta*, 3d pl., and *īḥata*, 3d sing. (after *má* prohibitive), which is an isolated example. The only dual person in *āite* is *brávāite*.

3. Present Optative.

616. The personal endings combined with the mode-signs of this mode (या yā in act., ई ī in mid.) have been given in full above (566). The stem-form is the unaccented and unstrengthened root.

	active.			middle.		
	s.	d.	p.	s.	d.	p.
1	इयाम् iyām	इयाव iyāva	इयाम iyāma	आसीय āsiya	आसीवहि āsivahi	आसीमहि āsimahi
2	इयास् iyās	इयातम् iyātam	इयात iyāta	आसीयास् āsīthās	आसीयाथाम् āsīyāthām	आसीध्वम् āsīdhvam
3	इयात् iyāt	इयाताम् iyātām	इयुस् iyūs	आसीत āsita	आसीयाताम् āsīyātām	आसीरन् āsīran

a. In the same manner, from √dviṣ, dviṣyām and dviṣyā; from √duh, duhyām and duhyā; from √lih, lihyām and lihīyā. The inflection is so regular that the example above given is enough, with the addition of dviṣyā, to show the normal accentuation in the middle: thus, sing. dviṣyā, dviṣīthās, dviṣītā; du. dviṣivāhi, dviṣiyāthām, dviṣiyātām; pl. dviṣimāhi, dviṣīdhvām, dviṣīrān.

b. The RV. has once tana in 2d pl. act. (in syātana).

4. Present Imperative.

617. The imperative adds, in second and third persons, its own endings (with अताम् atām in 3d pl. mid.) directly to the root-stem. The stem is accented and strengthened in 3d sing. act.; elsewhere, the accent is on the ending and the root remains unchanged. The first persons, so called, of the later language are from the old subjunctive, and have its strengthened stem and accent; they are repeated here from where they were given above (614 a). In the 2d sing. act., the ending is regularly (as in the two following classes) धि dhi if the root end with a consonant, and हि hi if it end with a vowel. As examples we take the roots already used for the purpose.

a. Thus, from the roots इ i and आस् ās:

	active.			middle.		
	s.	d.	p.	s.	d.	p.
1	अयानि áyāni	अयाव áyāva	अयाम áyāma	आसै āsāi	आसावहै āsāvahāi	आसामहै āsāmahāi
2	इहि ihí	इतम् itám	इत itá	आस्व āssva	आसाथाम् āsāthām	आद्धम् āddhvam
3	एतु étu	इताम् itām	यन्तु yántu	आस्ताम् āstām	आसाताम् āsātām	आसताम् āsatām

b. From the roots dviṣ and duh and lih:

1	dvéṣāṇi	dvéṣāva	dvéṣāma	dvéṣāi	dvéṣāvahāi	dvéṣāmahāi
2	dviṣḍhí	dviṣtám	dviṣtá	dviṣṣvá	dviṣāthām	dviṣḍhvám
3	dvéṣtu	dviṣtám	dviṣántu	dviṣtám	dviṣātām	dviṣātām
1	dóhāni	dóhāva	dóhāma	dóhāi	dóhāvahāi	dóhāmahāi
2	dugdhí	dugdhám	dugdhá	dhukṣvá	duháthām	dhugdhvám
3	dógdhu	dugdhám	duhántu	dugdhám	duhātām	duhātām
1	léhāni	léhāva	léhāma	léhāi	léhāvahāi	léhāmahāi
2	līḍhí	līḍhám	līḍhá	likṣvá	lihāthām	līḍhvám
3	léḍhu	līḍhám	lihántu	līḍhám	lihātām	lihātām

618. The 2d sing. act. ending tāt is found in the older language in a few verbs of this class: namely, vittāt, vītāt, brūtāt, hatāt, yātāt, stutāt. In 3d sing. mid., two or three verbs have in the older language the ending ām: thus, duhām (only RV. case), vidām, çayām; and in 3d pl. mid. AV. has duhrām and duhratām. The use of tana for ta in 2d pl. act. is quite frequent in the Veda: thus, itana, yātāna, attana, etc. And in stota, éta étana, bravītana, çastāna, hantana, we have examples in the same person of a strong (and accented) stem.

5. Present Participle.

619. a. The active participle has the ending अन्त ant (weak stem-form अत् at) added to the unstrengthened root. Mechanically, it may be formed from the 3d pl. by dropping the final इ i. Thus, for the verbs inflected above, the active participles are यन्त yánt, दुहन्त duhánt, द्विषन्त dviṣánt, लिहन्त lihánt. The feminine stem ends usually in अती atí: thus, यती yatí, दुहती duhatí, द्विषती dviṣatí, लिहती lihatí: but, from roots in ā, in आन्ती ántī or आती ātī (449 g).

b. The middle participle has the ending आन ānā, added to the unstrengthened root: thus, इयान iyānā, दुहान duhānā, द्विषाण dviṣāṇā, लिहान lihānā.

c. The root ās forms the anomalous and isolated āsīna (in RV. also āsānā).

d. But a number of these participles in the older language have a double accent, either on the ending or on the radical syllable: thus, īcānā and Īcāna, ohānā and Óhāna, duhānā and dúhāna (also dúghāna), rihāṇā and rÍhāṇa, vidānā and vídāna, suvānā and súvāna, stuvānā and stavānā and stávāna — the last having in part also a strong form of the root.

6. Imperfect.

620. This tense adds the secondary endings to the root as increased by prefixion of the augment. The root has the guṇa-strengthening (if capable of it) in the three persons of the singular active, although the accent is always upon the augment. Examples of inflection are:

a. From the roots इ i and आस् ās:

	active.			middle.		
	s.	d.	p.	s.	d.	p.
1	आयम् āyam	ऐव āiva	ऐम āima	आसि āsi	आस्वहि āsvahi	आस्महि āsmahi
2	ऐस् āis	ऐतम् āitam	ऐत āita	आस्थास् āsthās	आसाथाम् āsāthām	आद्धम् āddhvam
3	ऐत् āit	ऐताम् āitām	आयन् āyan	आस्त āsta	आसाताम् āsātām	आसत āsata

b. From the roots dviṣ and duh and lih:

1	ádveṣam	ádviṣva	ádviṣma	ádviṣi	ádviṣvahi	ádviṣmahi
2	ádveṭ	ádviṣtam	ádviṣta	ádviṣthās	ádviṣāthām	ádviṣdhvam
3	ádveṭ	ádviṣtām	ádviṣan	ádviṣta	ádviṣātām	ádviṣata
1	ádoham	áduhva	áduhma	áduhi	áduhvahi	áduhmahi
2	ádhoek	ádugdham	ádugdha	ádugdthās	áduhāthām	ádugdhvam
3	ádhoek	ádugdhām	áduhan	ádugdha	áduhātām	áduhata
1	áleham	álihva	álihma	álihi	álihvahi	álihmahi
2	áleṭ	áliḍham	áliḍha	áliḍthās	álihāthām	áliḍhvam
3	áleṭ	áliḍhām	álihan	áliḍha	álihātām	álihata

621. a. Roots ending in ā may in the later language optionally take us instead of an in 3d pl. act. (the ā being lost before it); and

in the older they always do so: thus, áyus from √yā, ápus from √pā *protect*, abhus from √bhā. The same ending is also allowed and met with in the case of a few roots ending in consonants: namely vid *know*, cakṣ, dviṣ, duh, mrj. RV. has atviṣus.

b. The ending tana, 2d pl. act., is found in the Veda in áyātana, áśastana, āítana, ábravītana. A strong stem is seen in the 1st pl. homa, and the 2d pl. abravīta and ábravītana.

c. To save the characteristic endings in 2d and 3d sing. act., the root ad inserts a: thus, ádas, ádat; the root as inserts ī: thus, áśīs, áśīt (see below, 636); compare also 631–4.

622. The use of the persons of this tense, without augment, in the older language, has been noticed above (587). Augmentless imperfects of this class are rather uncommon in the Veda: thus, hán, vés, 2d sing.; han, vet, stāut, dán (?), 3d sing.; bruvan, duhús, cakṣus, 3d pl.; vasta, sūta, 3d sing. mid.

623. The first or root-form of aorist is identical in its formation with this imperfect: see below, 829 ff.

624. In the Veda (but hardly outside of the RV.) are found certain 2d sing. forms, having an imperative value, made by adding the ending si to the (accented and strengthened) root. In part, they are the only root-forms belonging to the roots from which they come: thus, jóṣi (for jóṣṣi, from √juṣ), dhákṣi, páṛṣi (√pṛ *pass*), prási, bhakṣi, ratsi, sátsi, hoṣi; but the majority of them have forms (one or more) of a root-present, or sometimes of a root-aorist, beside them: thus, kṣéṣi (√kṣi *rule*), jéṣi, dárṣi, nakṣi (√naç. *attain*), néṣi, mátsi, māsi (√mā *measure*), yákṣi, yámsi, yāsi, yótsi, rāsi, vákṣi (√vah), véṣi, çróṣi, sakṣi. Their formal character is somewhat disputed; but they are probably indicative persons of the root-class, used imperatively.

625. Forms of this class are made from nearly 150 roots, either in the earlier language, or in the later, or in both: namely, from about 50 through the whole life of the language, from 80 in the older period (of Veda, Brāhmaṇa, and Sūtra) alone, and from a few (about 15) in the later period (epic and classical) only^[1]. Not a few of these roots, however, show only sporadic root-forms, beside a more usual conjugation of some other class; nor is it in all cases possible to separate clearly root-present from root-aorist forms.

a. Many roots of this class, as of the other classes of the first conjugation, show transfers to the second or a-conjugation, forming a conjugation-stem by adding a to their strong or weak stem, or

1. [↑] Such statements of numbers, with regard to the various parts of the system of conjugation, are in all cases taken from the author's Supplement to this grammar, entitled "Roots, Verb-Forms, and Primary Derivatives of the Sanskrit Language", where lists of roots, and details as to forms etc., are also given.

even to both: thus, from $\sqrt{mrj}$, both *mārja* (627) and *mṛja*. Such transfers are met with even in the oldest language; but they usually become more frequent later, often establishing a new mode of present inflection by the side of, or in substitution for, the earlier mode.

b. A number of roots offer irregularities of inflection; these are, in the main, pointed out in the following paragraphs.

Irregularities of the Root-class.

626. The roots of the class ending in *u* have in their strong forms the *ṽddhi* instead of the *guṇa*-strengthening before an ending beginning with a consonant: thus, from $\sqrt{stu}$, *stāúmi*, *ástāut*, and the like: but *ástavam*, *stāvāni*, etc.

a. Roots found to exhibit this peculiarity in actual use are *kṣṇu*, *yu unite*, *su* (or *sū*) *impel*, *sku*, *stu*, *snu* (these in the earlier language), *nu*, *ru*, and *hnu*. RV. has once *stoṣi*, and *anāvan*. Compare also 633.

627. The root *mṛj* also has the *ṽddhi*-vowel in its strong forms: thus, *mārjmi*, *ámārjam*, *ámārṭ* (150 b); and the same strengthening is said to be allowed in weak forms before endings beginning with a vowel: thus, *mārjantu*, *amārjan*; but the only quotable case is *mārjīta* (LÇS.). Forms from *a*-stems begin to appear already in AV.

a In the other tense-systems, also, and in derivation, *mṛj* shows often the *ṽddhi* instead of the *guṇa*-strengthening.

628. A number of roots accent the radical syllable throughout, both in strong and in weak forms: thus, all those beginning with a long vowel, *ās*, *īḍ*, *īr*, *īç*; and also *cakṣ*, *takṣ*, *trā*, *nīḥs*, *vas clothe*, *çiñj*, *çī lie*, and *sū*. All these, except *takṣ* and *trā* (and *trā* also in the Vedic forms), are ordinarily conjugated in middle voice only. Forms with the same irregular accent occur now and then in the Veda from other verbs: thus, *mátsva*, *yákṣva*, *sákṣva*, *sákṣva*, *ídhāt*. Middle participles so accented have been noticed above (619 d).

629. Of the roots mentioned in the last paragraph, *çī lie* has the *guṇa*-strengthening throughout: thus, *çáye*, *çése*, *çáyīya*, *çáyāna*, and so on. Other irregularities in its inflection (in part already noticed) are the 3d pl. persons *çérate* (AV. etc. have also *çére*), *çeratām*, *áçerata* (RV. has also *áçeran*), the 3d sing. pres. *çáye* (R.) and impv. *çáyām*. The isolated active form *áçayat* is common in the older language; other *a*-forms, active and middle, occur later.

630. Of the same roots, *īḍ* and *īç* insert a union-vowel *i* before certain endings: thus, *íçīṣe*, *íçidhve*, *íçīṣva* (these three being the only forms noted in the older language); but RV. has *íkṣe* beside *íçīṣe*; the ÇvU. has once *íçite* for *íṣte*. The 3d pl. *íçire* (on account of its accent) is also apparently present rather than perfect. The MS. has once the 3d sing. impf. *āiça* (like *aduha*: 635).

631. The roots *rud weep*, *svap sleep*, *an breathe*, and *çvas blow* insert a union-vowel *i* before all the endings beginning with a consonant, except the *s* and *t* of 2d and 3d sing. impf., where they insert instead either *a* or *ī*: thus, *svápimi*, *çvásiṣi*, *ániti*, and *ánat* or *ánīt*. And in the other forms, the last three are allowed to accent either root or ending: thus, *svápantu* and *çvásantu* (AV.), or *svapántu* etc. The AV. has *sváptu* instead of *svápitu*.

a. In the older language, *√vam* makes the same insertions: thus, *vamiti*, *avamīt*; and other cases occasionally occur: thus, *jániṣva*, *vasiṣva* (*√vas clothe*), *çnathihi*, *stanihi* (all RV.), *yamiti* (JB.), *çocimi* (MBh.). On the other hand, *√an* early makes forms from an *a*-stem: thus, *ánati* (AV.); *pplē ánant* (ÇB.); opt. *anet* (AB.).

632. The root *brū speak, say* (of very frequent use) takes the union-vowel *ī* after the root when strengthened, before the initial consonant of an ending: thus, *brávīmi*, *brávīṣi*, *brávīti*, *ábravīs*, *ábravīt*; but *brūmās*, *brūyām*, *ábravam*, *ábruvan*, etc. Special occasional irregularities are *brūmi*, *bravīhi*, *abruvam*, *abrūvan*, *bruyāt*, and sporadic forms from an *a*-stem. The subj. dual *brávāite* has been noticed above (616); also the strong forms *abravīta*, *ábravītana* (621 a).

633. Some of the roots in *u* are allowed to be inflected like *brū*: namely, *ku*, *tu*, *ru*, and *stu*; and an occasional instance is met with of a form so made (in the older language, only *tavīti* noted; in the later, only *stavīmi*, once).

634. The root *am* (hardly found in the later language) takes *ī* as union-vowel: thus, *amīṣi* (RV.), *amīti* and *āmīt* and *amīṣva* (TS). From *√çam* occur *çamīṣva* (VS. ; TS. *çamiṣva*) and *çamīdhvam* (TB. etc.).

635. The irregularities of *√duh* in the older language have been already in part noted: the 3d pl. indic. mid. *duhaté*, *duhré*, and *duhráte*; 3d sing. impv. *duhām*, pl. *duhrām* and *duhratām*; impf. act. 3d sing. *áduhat* (which is found also in the later language), 3d pl. *aduhraṇ* (beside *áduhan* and *duhús*); the mid. pple *dúghāna*; and (quite unexampled elsewhere) the opt. forms *duhīyāt* and *duhīyán* (RV. only). The MS. has *aduha* 3d sing. and *aduhra* 3d pl. impf. mid., apparently formed to correspond to the pres. *duhe* (613) and *duhre* as *adugdha* and *aduhata* correspond to *dugdhe* and *duhate*: compare *āiça* (630), related in like manner to the 3d sing. *īçe*.

Some of the roots of this class are abbreviated or otherwise weakened in their weak forms: thus: —

636. The root *अस् as be* loses its vowel in weak forms (except where protected by combination with the augment). Its 2d sing. indic. is *असि ási* (instead of *assi*); its 2d sing. impv. is *एधि edhí* (irregularly from *asdhi*). The insertion of

ई ī in 2d and 3d sing. impf. has been noticed already above.

a. The forms of this extremely common verb are, then, as follows:

	Indicative.			Optative.		
	s.	d.	p.	s.	d.	p.
1	अस्मि ásmi	स्वस् svás	स्मस् smás	स्याम् syám	स्याव syáva	स्याम syáma
2	असि ási	स्थस् sthás	स्थ sthá	स्यास् syás	स्यातम् syátam	स्यात syáta
3	अस्ति ásti	स्तस् stás	सन्ति sánti	स्यात् syāt	स्याताम् syātām	स्युस् syús
	Imperative.			Imperfect.		
	s.	d.	p.	s.	d.	p.
1	असानि ásāni	असाव ásāva	असाम ásāma	आसम् ásam	आस्व ásva	आस्म ásma
2	एधि edhí	स्तम् stám	स्त stá	आसीस् ásīs	आस्तम् ástam	आस्त ásta
3	अस्तु ástu	स्ताम् stām	सन्तु sántu	आसीत् ásīt	आस्ताम् ástām	आसन् ásan

Participle सन् sánt (fem. सती satí).

b. Besides the forms of the present-system, there is made from this root only a perfect, ása etc. (800), of wholly regular inflection.

c. The Vedic subjunctive forms are the usual ones, made upon the stem ása. They are in frequent use, and appear (asat especially) even in late texts where the subjunctive is almost lost. The resolution siám etc. (opt.) is common in Vedic verse. As 2d and 3d sing. impf. is a few times met with the more normal ās (for ās-s, ās-t). Sthána, 2d pl., was noted above (613).

d. Middle forms from √as are also given by the grammarians as allowed with certain prepositions (vi+ati), but they are not quotable; smahe and syāmahe (!) occur in the epics, but are merely instances of the ordinary epic confusion of voices (529 a). Confusions of primary and secondary endings — namely, sva and sma (not rare), and, on the other hand, syāvas and syāmas — are also epic. A middle present indicative is said to be compounded (in 1st and 2d persons) with the *nomen agentis* in tṛ (tar) to form a periphrastic future in the middle voice (but see below, 947). The 1st sing. indic. is he; the rest is in the usual relation of middle to active forms (in 2d pers., se, dhve, sva, dhvam, with total loss of the root itself).

637. The root *han smite, slay* is treated somewhat after the manner of noun-stems in an in declension (421): in weak forms, it loses its *n* before an initial consonant (except *m* and *v*) of a personal ending (not in the optative), and its *a* before an initial vowel — and in the latter case its *h*, in contact with the *n*, is changed to *gh* (compare 402). Thus, for example:

	Present Indicative.			Imperfect.		
	s.	d.	p.	s.	d.	p.
1	hánmi	hanvás	hanmás	áhanam	áhanva	áhanma
2	háñsi	hathás	hathá	áhan	áhatam	áhata
3	hánti	hatás	ghnánti	áhan	áhatām	ághnan

a. Its participle is *ghnánt* (fem. *ghnatí*). Its 2d sing. impv. is *jahí* (by anomalous dissimilation, on the model of reduplicating forms).

b. Middle forms from this root are frequent in the *Brāhmaṇas*, and those that occur are formed in general according to the same rules: thus, *hate*, *hanmahe*, *ghnate*; *ahata*, *aghnātām*, *aghnata* (in AB., also *ahata*); *ghnīta* (but also *hanīta*). Forms from transfer-stems, *hana* and *ghna*, are met with from an early period.

638. The root *vaç be eager* is in the weak forms regularly and usually contracted to *uç* (as in the perfect: 794 b): thus, *uçmási* (V.: once apparently abbreviated in RV. to *çmasi*), *uçánti*; pple *uçánt*, *uçāná*. Middle forms (except the pple) do not occur; nor do the weak forms of the imperfect, which are given as *āuçva*, *āuṣtam*, etc.

a. RV. has in like manner the participle *uṣāṇá* from the root *vas clothe*.

639. The root *çās order* shows some of the peculiarities of a reduplicated verb, lacking (646) the *n* before *t* in all 3d persons pl. and in the active participle. A part of its active forms — namely, the weak forms having endings beginning with consonants (including the optative) — are said to come from a stem with weakened vowel, *çiṣ* (as do the aorist, 854, and some of the derivatives); but, excepting the optative (*çiṣyām* etc., U. S. and later), no such forms are quotable.

a. The 3d sing. impf. is *açāt* (555 a), and the same form is said to be allowed also as 2d sing. The 2d sing. impv. is *çādhí* (with total loss of the *s*); and RV. has the strong 2d pl. *çāstāna* (with anomalous accent); and *a*-forms, from stem (*çāsa*, occasionally occur.

b. The middle inflection is regular, and the accent (apparently) always upon the radical syllable (*çáste*, (*çásate*, *çásāna*).

c. The root *dāç worship* has in like manner (RV.) the pple *dāçat* (not *dāçant*).

640. The double so-called root *jakṣ eat, laugh* is an evident reduplication of *ghas* and has respectively. It has the absence of *n* in act.

3d persons pl. and pple, and the accent on the root before vowel-endings, which belong to reduplicated verbs; and it also takes the union-vowel i in the manner of rud etc. (above, 631). For its forms and derivatives made with utter loss of the final sibilant, see 233 f.

641. Certain other obviously reduplicated verbs are treated by the native grammarians as if simple, and referred to this conjugation: such are the intensively reduplicated jāḡṛ (1020 a), daridrā (1024 a), and vevī (1024 a), dīdhī etc. (676), and cakās (677).

II. Reduplicating Class (third, hu-class).

642. This class forms its present-stem by prefixing a reduplication to the root.

643. a. As regards the consonant of the reduplication, the general rules which have already been given above (590) are followed.

b. A long vowel is shortened in the reduplicating syllable: thus,

ददा dadā from √दा dā; बिभी bibhī from √भी bhī; जुह जुहū from √ह hū. The vowel ऋ ṛ never appears in the reduplication, but is replaced by इ i: thus, बिभृ bibhṛ from √भृ bhṛ; पिपृच् पिपृच् from √पृच् pṛच्.

c. For verbs in which a and ā also are irregularly represented in the reduplication by i, see below, 660. The root वृत् (V. B.) makes vavartti etc.; cakránt (RV.) is very doubtful.

d. The only root of this class with initial vowel is ऋ (or ar); it takes as reduplication i, which is held apart from the root by an interposed y: thus, iyar and iyṛ (the latter has not been found in actual use).

644. The present-stem of this class (as of the other classes belonging to the first or non-a-conjugation) has a double form: a stronger form, with gunated root-vowel; and a weaker form, without guṇa: thus, from √हु hu, the two forms are जुहो juho and जुहु juhu; from √भी bhī, they are बिभे bibhe and बिभी bibhī. And the rule for their use is the same as in the other classes of this conjugation: the strong stem is found before the unaccented endings (552), and the weak stem before the accented.

645. According to all the analogies of the first general conjugation, we should expect to find the accent upon the root-syllable when this is strengthened. That is actually the case, however, only in a small minority of the roots composing the class: namely, in *hu*, *bhī* (no test-forms in the older language), *hrī* (no test-forms found in the older language), *mad* (very rare), *jan* (no forms of this class found to occur), *ci notice* (in V.), *yu separate* (in older language only), and in *bhṛ* in the later language (in V. it goes with the majority: but RV. has *bibhárti* once, and AV. twice; and this, the later accentuation, is found also in the *Brāhmaṇas*); and RV. has once *iyárṣi*. In all the rest — apparently, by a recent transfer — it rests upon the reduplicating instead of upon the radical syllable. And in both classes alike, the accent is anomalously thrown back upon the reduplication in those weak forms of which the ending begins with a vowel; while in the other weak forms it is upon the ending (but compare 666 a).

a. Apparently (the cases with written accent are too few to determine the point satisfactorily) the middle optative endings, *īya* etc. (566), are reckoned throughout as endings with initial vowel, and throw back the accent upon the reduplication.

646. The verbs of this class lose the *न्* in the 3d pl. endings in active as well as middle, and in the imperfect have *उस्* *us* instead of *अन्* *an* — and before this a final radical vowel has *guṇa*.

1. Present Indicative.

647. The combination of stem and endings is as in the preceding class.

Examples of inflection: a. *√जृ hu sacrifice*: strong stem-form, *जृहो juhó*; weak form, *जृहु juhu* (or *júhu*).

	active.			middle.		
	s.	d.	p.	s.	d.	p.
1	जृहोमि juhómi	जृहुवस् juhuvás	जृहुमस् juhumás	जृह्वे júhve	जृहुवहे juhuváhe	जृहुमहे juhumáhe
2	जृहोषि juhóṣi	जृहुथस् juhuthás	जृहुथ juhuthá	जृहुषे juhuṣé	जृहुवथे júhväthe	जृहुध्वे juhudhvé
3	जृहोति juhóti	जृहुतस् juhutás	जृहुति júhvati	जृहुते juhuté	जृहुवते júhvâte	जृहुते júhvate

b. Root भृ *bhṛ* *bear* (given with Vedic accentuation): strong stem-form, बिभर् *bíbhar*; weak, बिभृ *bibhṛ* (or *bíbḥṛ*).

1	बिभर्मि <i>bíbharṃi</i>	बिभृवस् <i>bibhṛvās</i>	बिभृमस् <i>bibhṛmās</i>	बिभ्रे <i>bíbhre</i>	बिभृवहे <i>bibhṛváhe</i>	बिभृमहे <i>bibhṛmáhe</i>
2	बिभर्षि <i>bíbharṣi</i>	बिभृथस् <i>bibhṛthās</i>	बिभृथ <i>bibhṛthá</i>	बिभृषे <i>bibhṛṣé</i>	बिभ्राथे <i>bíbhrāthe</i>	बिभृध्वे <i>bibhṛdhvé</i>
3	बिभर्ति <i>bíbharti</i>	बिभृतस् <i>bibhṛtās</i>	बिभ्रति <i>bíbhrati</i>	बिभृते <i>bibhṛté</i>	बिभ्राते <i>bíbhrāte</i>	बिभ्रते <i>bíbhrate</i>

c. The *u* of *hu* (like that of the class-signs *nu* and *u*: see below, 697 a) is said to be omissible before *v* and *m* of the endings of 1st du. and pl.: thus, *juhvās*, *juhváhe*, etc.; but no such forms are quotable.

2. Present Subjunctive.

648. It is not possible at present to draw a distinct line between those subjunctive forms of the older language which should be reckoned as belonging to the present-system and those which should be assigned to the perfect — or even, in some cases, to the reduplicated aorist and intensive. Here will be noticed only those which most clearly belong to this class; the more doubtful cases will be treated under the perfect-system. Except in first persons (which continue in use as "imperatives" down to the later language), subjunctives from roots having unmistakably a reduplicated present-system are of far from frequent occurrence.

649. The subjunctive mode-stem is formed in the usual manner, with the mode-sign *a* and *guṇa* of the root-vowel, if this is capable of such strengthening. The evidence of the few accented forms met with indicates that the accent is laid in accordance with that of the strong indicative forms: thus, from $\sqrt{hu}$, the stem would be *juháva*; from $\sqrt{bhṛ}$, it would be *bíbhara* (but *bibhára* later). Before the mode-sign, final radical *ā* would be, in accordance with analogies elsewhere, dropped: thus, *dáda* from $\sqrt{dā}$, *dádha* from $\sqrt{dhā}$ (all the forms actually occurring would be derivable from the secondary roots *dad* and *dadh*).

650. Instead of giving a theoretically complete scheme of inflection, it will be better to note all the examples quotable from the older language (accented when found so occurring).

a. Thus, of 1st persons, we have in the active *juhávāni*, *bibharāṇi*, *dadāni*, *dadhāni*, *jahāni*; *juhavāma*, *dádhāma*, *jáhāma*; — in the middle, *dadhāi*, *mimāi*; *dadhāvahāi*; *juhavāmahāi*, *dadāmahe*, *dadāmahāi*, *dadhāmahāi*.

b. Of other persons, we have with primary endings in the active *bibharāsi* (with double mode-sign: 560 e), *dádhatas*, *juhavātha* (do.)

and juhavatha; in the middle, dádhasē; dádhatē, ráratē, dádhatāi, dadātāi; — with secondary endings, dádhas, víveṣas, juhavat, bibharat, yuyávat, dádhat, dadhánat, babhasat; dadhan, yuyavan, juhavan.

3. Present Optative.

651. To form this mode, the optative endings given above (566 a), as made up of mode-sign and personal endings, are added to the unstrengthened stem. The accent is as already stated (645 a). The inflection is so regular that it is unnecessary to give here more than the first persons of a single verb: thus,

	active.			middle.		
	s.	d.	p.	s.	d.	p.
1	जुहयाम् juhuyām	जुहयाव juhuyāva	जुहयाम juhuyāma	जुह्रीय júhviya	जुह्रीयहि júhviyahī	जुह्रीयमहि júhvimahī
	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.

4. Present Imperative.

652. The endings, and the mode of their combination with the root, have been already given. In 2d sing. act., the ending is हि hi after a vowel, but धि dhi after a consonant: ऊ hu, however, forms जुहृधि juhudhí (apparently, in order to avoid the recurrence of ह h in two successive syllables): and other examples of धि dhi after a vowel are found in the Veda.

653. a. Example of inflection:

	active.			middle.		
	s.	d.	p.	s.	d.	p.
1	जुहवामि juhāvāmi	जुहवाव juhāvāva	जुहवाम juhāvāma	जुहवै juhāvāi	जुहवावहै juhāvāvahāi	जुहवामहै juhāvāmahāi
2	जुहृधि juhudhí	जुहृतम् juhutām	जुहृत juhutá	जुहृष्व juhuṣvā	जुहृथायाम् júhvāthām	जुहृध्वम् juhudhvām
3	जुहोतु juhótu	जुहृताम् juhutām	जुहृतु júhvatu	जुहृताम् juhutām	जुहृतायाम् júhvātām	जुहृताम् júhvatām

b. The verbs of the other division differ here, as in the indicative, in the accentuation of their strong forms only: namely, in all the

first persons (borrowed subjunctives), and in the 3d sing. act.: thus, (in the older language) bíbharāṇi etc., bíbhartu, bíbharāi etc.

654. Vedic irregularities of inflection are: 1. the occasional use of strong forms in 2d persons: thus, yuyodhí, çiçādhī (beside çiçīhī); yuyotam (beside yuyutám); íyarta, dádāta and dadātana, dádāhāta and dádāhātana (see below, 668), pipartana, juhóta and juhótana, yuyota and yuyotana; rarāsva (666); 2. the use of dhi instead of hi after a vowel (only in the two instances just quoted); 3. the ending tana in 2d pl. act.: namely, besides those just given, in jigātana, dhattana, mamāttana, vivaktana, didiṣṭana, bibhītana, jujuṣṭana, juhutana, vavṛttana: the cases are proportionally much more numerous in this than in any other class; 4. the ending tāt in 2d sing. act., in dattāt, dhattāt, pipṛtāt, jahītāt.

5. Present Participle.

655. As elsewhere, the active participle-stem may be made mechanically from the 3d pl. indic. by dropping इ i: thus, जुह्वत् júhvat, बिभ्रत् bíbhrat. In inflection, it has no distinction of strong and weak forms (444). The feminine stem ends in अती atī. The middle participles are regularly made: thus, जुह्वान júhvāna, बिभ्राण bíbhrāṇa.

a. RV. shows an irregular accent in pipāná (√pā *drink*).

6. Imperfect.

656. As already pointed out, the 3d pl. act. of this class takes the ending उस् us, and a final radical vowel has guṇa before it. The strong forms are, as in present indicative, the three singular active persons.

657. Examples of inflection:

	active.			middle.		
	s.	d.	p.	s.	d.	p.
1	अजुहवम् ájuhavam	अजुहुव ájuhuva	अजुहुम ájuhuma	अजुह्वि ájuhvi	अजुहुवहि ájuhuvahi	अजुहुमहि ájuhumahi
2	अजुहोस् ájuhos	अजुहुतम् ájuhutam	अजुहुत ájuhuta	अजुहुथास् ájuhuthās	अजुहुथाम् ájuhuvāthām	अजुहुध्वम् ájuhudhvam
3	अजुहोत् ájuhhot	अजुहुताम् ájuhutām	अजुहवुस् ájuhavus	अजुहुत ájuhuta	अजुहुताम् ájuhvatām	अजुहुत ájuhvata

a. From √भृ bhṛ, the 2d and 3d sing. act. are अभिभर् अभिभार (for abibhar-s and abibhar-t) — and so in all other cases where the strong stem ends in a consonant. The 3d pl. act. is अभिभारस् अभिभारुस्; and other like cases are ábibhayus, acikayus, asuṣavus.

b. In MS., once, abibhrus is doubtless a false reading.

658. The usual Vedic irregularities in 2d pl. act. — strong forms, and the ending tana — occur in this tense also: thus, ádadāta, ádadhāta; ádattana, ájahātana. The RV. has also once apiprata for apipṛta in 3d sing. mid., and abibhran for abibharus in 3d pl. act. Examples of augmentless forms are çīçās, vivés, jīgāt; jīhīta, çīçīta, jihata; and, with irregular strengthening, yuyoma (AV.), yuyothās, yuyota.

659. The roots that form their present-stem by reduplication are a very small class, especially in the modern language; they are only 50, all told, and of these only a third (16) are met with later. It is, however, very difficult to determine the precise limits of the class, because of the impossibility (referred to above, under subjunctive: 648) of always distinguishing its forms from those of other reduplicating conjugations and parts of conjugations.

a. Besides the irregularities in tense-inflection already pointed out, others may be noticed as follows.

Irregularities of the Reduplicating Class.

660. Besides the roots in ṛ or ar — namely, ṛ, ghr̥ (usually written ghar), tr̥, pr̥, bhṛ, sṛ, hṛ, pṛc — the following roots having a or ā as radical vowel take i instead of a in the reduplicating syllable: gā *go*, mā *measure*, mā *bellow*, çā, hā *remove* (mid.), vac, sac; vaç. has both i and a; rā has i once in RV.; for sthā, pā *drink* ghrā, han, hi, see below (670–4).

661. Several roots of this class in final ā change the ā in weak forms to ī (occasionally even to i), and then drop it altogether before endings beginning with a vowel.

a. This is in close analogy with the treatment of the vowel of the class-sign of the nā-class: below, 717.

These roots are:

662. çā *sharpen*, act. and mid.: thus, çīçāti, çīçīmasi, çīçīhī (also çīçādhi: above, 654), çīçātu, açīçāt, çīçīte, çīçīta.

663. mā *bellow*, act., and mā *measure*, mid. (rarely also act.): thus, mimāti, mimīyāt; mīmīte, mimate, ámimīta; mimīhi, mīmātu. RV. has once mimanti 3d pl. (for mimati).

664. *hā remove*, mid.: thus, *jīhīte*, *jihīdhve*, *jīhate*; *jihīṣva*, *jihatām*; *ājihīta*, *ajihata*. ÇB. has *jihīthām* (for *jihāthām*).

665. *hā quit*, act. (originally identical with the former), may further shorten the *ī* to *i*: thus, *jahāti*, *jahīta*, *jahītāt* (AV.); *jahimas* (AV.), *jahitas* (TB.), *jahitam* (TA.), *ajahitām* (TS. AB.). In the optative, the radical vowel is lost altogether; thus, *jahyām*, *jahyus* (AV.). The 2d sing. impv., according to the grammarians, is *jahīhi* or *jahihi* or *jahāhi*; only the first appears quotable.

a. Forms from an a-stem, *jaha*, are made for this root, and even derivatives from a quasi-root *jah*.

666. *rā give*, mid.: thus, *rarīdhvam*, *rarīthās* (impf. without augment); and, with *i* in reduplication, *rirīhi*. But AV. has *rarāsva*.

a. In these verbs, the accent is generally constant on the reduplicating syllable.

667. The two roots *dā* and *dhā* (the commonest of the class) lose their radical vowel altogether in the weak forms, being shortened to *dad* and *dadh*. In 2d sing. impv. act., they form respectively *dehī* and *dhehī*. In combination with a following *t* or *th*, the final *dh* of *dadh* does not follow the special rule of combination of a final sonant aspirate (becoming *ddh* with the *t* or *th*: 160), but — as also before *s* and *dhv* — the more general rules of aspirate and of surd and sonant combination; and its lost aspiration is thrown back upon the initial of the root (155).

668. The inflection of *√dhā* is, then, as follows:

Present Indicative						
	active.			middle.		
	s.	d.	p.	s.	d.	p.
1	dādhāmi	dadhvās	dadhmās	dadhé	dādhvahe	dādhmahe
2	dādhāsi	dhattās	dhattā	dhatsé	dadhāthe	dhaddhve
3	dādhāti	dhattās	dādhati	dhatté	dadhāte	dādgate
Present Optative.						
1	dadhyām	dadhyāva	dadhyāma	dādhiya	dādhivahi	dādhimahi
	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.
Present Imperative.						
1	dādhāni	dādhāva	dādhāma	dādhāi	dādhāvahāi	dādhāmahāi
2	dhehī	dhattām	dhattā	dhatsva	dadhāthām	dhaddhvam
3	dādhātu	dhattām	dādhatu	dhattām	dadhātām	dadhatām
Imperfect.						
1	ádadhām	ádadhva	ádadhma	ádadhi	ádadhvahi	ádadmahi
2	ádadhās	ádhattam	ádhatta	ádhattās	ádadhāthām	ádaddhvam
3	ádadhāt	ádhattām	ádadhus	ádhatta	ádadhātām	ádadhata

Participles: act. *dádhat*; mid. *dádhāna*.

a. In the middle (except impf.), only those forms are here accented for which there is authority in the accentuated texts, as there is discordance between the actual accent and that which the analogies of the class would lead us to expect. RV. has once *dhátse*: *dadhé* and *dadháte* might be perfects, so far as the form is concerned. RV. accents *dadhítá* once (*dádhitā* thrice); several other texts have *dádhitā*, *dádhiran*, *dádīta*.

b. The root *dā* is inflected in precisely the same way, with change everywhere of (radical) *dh* to *d*.

669. The older language has irregularities as follows: 1. the usual strong forms in 2d pl., *dádhitā* and *ádadhāta*, *dádāta* and *ádadāta*; 2. the usual *tana* endings in the same person, *dhattana*, *dādātana*, etc. (654, 658); 3. the 3d sing. indic. act. *dadhé* (like 1st sing.); 4. the 2d sing. impv. act. *daddhí* (for both *dehi* and *dhehi*). And R. has *dadmi*.

670. A number of roots have been transferred from this to the *a-* or *bhū-*class (below, 749), their reduplicated root becoming a stereotyped stem inflected after the manner of *a-*stems. These roots are as follows:

671. In all periods of the language, from the roots *sthā* *stand*, *pā* *drink*, and *ghrā* *smell*, are made the presents *tīṣṭhāmi*, *pībāmi* (with irregular sonantizing of the second *p*), and *jíghrāmi* — which then are inflected not like *mímāmi*, but like *bhāvāmi*, as if from the present-stems *tīṣṭha*, *pība*, *jíghra*.

672. In the Veda (especially; also later), the reduplicated roots *dā* and *dhā* are sometimes turned into the *a-*stems *dāda* and *dádha*, or inflected as if roots *dad* and *dadh* of the *a-*class; and single forms of the same character are made from other roots: thus, *mimanti* ($\sqrt{mā}$ *bellow*), *rárate* ($\sqrt{rā}$ *give*: 3d sing. mid.).

673. In the Veda, also, a like secondary stem, *jighna*, is made from $\sqrt{han}$ (with omission of the radical vowel, and conversion, usual in this root, of *h* to *gh* when in contact with *n*: 637); and some of the forms of *saçc*, from $\sqrt{sac}$, show the same conversion to an *a-*stem, *saçca*.

674. In AB. (viii. 28), a similar secondary form, *jighya*, is given to $\sqrt{hi}$ or *hā*: thus, *jighyati*, *jighyatu*.

675. A few so-called roots of the first or root-class are the products of reduplication, more or less obvious: thus, *jakṣ* (640), and probably *çās* (from $\sqrt{ças}$) and *cakṣ* (from $\sqrt{kāç}$ or a lost root *kas* *see*). In the Veda is found also *saçc*, from $\sqrt{sac}$.

676. The grammarians reckon (as already noticed, 641) several roots of the most evidently reduplicate character as simple, and belonging to the root-class. Some of these (*jāgr*, *daridrā*, *vevī*) are regular intensive stems, and will be described below under Intensives (1020 a, 1024 a); *dīdhī* *shine*, together with Vedic *dīdī* *shine* and *pīpī* *swell*, are sometimes also classed as intensives; but they have not the proper reduplication of

such, and may perhaps be best noticed here, as reduplicated present-stems with irregularly long reduplicating vowel.

a. Of pres. indic. occurs in the older language only *dīdyati*, 3d pl., with the pples *dīdyat* and *dīdhyat*, and mid. *dīdye*, *dīdhye*, *dīdhyāthām*, with the pples *dīdyāna*, *dīdhyāna*, *pīpyāna*. The subj. stems are *dīdāya*, *dīdhaya*, *pīpāya*, and from them are made forms with both primary (from *dīdāya*) and secondary endings (and the irregularly accented *dīdayat* and *dīdāyat* and *dīdhayan*). No opt. occurs. In impv. we have *dīdihí* (and *didīhí*) and *pīpihí*, and *pipyatam*, *pipyatām*, *pipyata*. In impf., *adīdes* and *pīpes*, *ádīdet* and *ádīdhet* and *apīpet* (with augmentless forms), *apīpema* (with strong form of root), and *adīdhayus* and (irregular) *apīpyan*.

b. A few forms from all the three show transfer to an *a*-inflection: thus, *dīdhaya* and *pīpaya* (impv.), *ápīpayat*, etc.

c. Similar forms from $\sqrt{mī}$ *bellow* are *amīmet* and *mīmayat*.

677. The stem *cakās shine* (sometimes *cakāç*) is also regarded by the grammarians as a root, and supplied as such with tenses outside the present-system — which, however, hardly occur in genuine use. It is not known in the older language.

678. The root *bhas chew* loses its radical vowel in weak forms, taking the form *baps*: thus, *bābhasti*, but *bāpsati* (3d pl.), *bāpsat* (pple). For *babdhām*, see 233 f.

679. The root *bhī fear* is allowed by the grammarians to shorten its vowel in weak forms: thus, *bibhīmas* or *bibhimas*, *bibhīyām* or *bibhiyām*; and *bibhiyāt* etc. are met with in the later language.

680. Forms of this class from $\sqrt{jan}$ *give birth*, with added *i* — thus, *jajñiše*, *jajñidhve* — are given by the grammarians, but have never been found in use.

681. The roots *ci* and *cit* have in the Veda reversion of *c* to *k* in the root-syllable after the reduplication: thus, *cikéši*, *cikéthe* (anomalous, for *cikyáthe*), *cikitām*, *aciket*, *cíkyat* (pple); *cikiddhi*.

682. The root *vyac* has *i* in the reduplication (from the *y*), and is contracted to *vic* in weak forms: thus, *viviktás*, *áviviktām*. So the root *hvar* (if its forms are to be reckoned here) has *u* in reduplication, and contracts to *hur*: thus, *juhūrthās*.

III. Nasal Class (seventh, *rudh*-class).

683. The roots of this class all end in consonants. And their class-sign is a nasal preceding the final consonant: in the weak forms, a nasal simply, adapted in character to the consonant; but in the strong forms expanded to the syllable ṇ ná , which has the accent.

a. In a few of the verbs of the class, the nasal extends also into other tense-systems: they are añj, bhañj, hiñs: see below, 694.

1. Present Indicative.

684. Examples of inflection: a. the root युञ् yuj *join*: strong stem-form, युनञ् yunáj; weak, युञ्ज yuñj.

For the rules of combination of final j, see 219.

	active.			middle.		
	s.	d.	p.	s.	d.	p.
1	युनञ्मि yunájmi	युञ्ज्वस् yuñjvās	युञ्ज्मस् yuñjmās	युञ्जे yuñjé	युञ्ज्वहे yuñjváhe	युञ्ज्महे yuñjmáhe
2	युनक्षि yunákṣi	युङ्क्थस् yuñkthās	युङ्क्थ yuñkthá	युङ्क्ते yuñkṣé	युञ्जाथे yuñjāthe	युङ्ग्ध्वे yuñgdhvé
3	युनक्ति yunákti	युङ्क्तस् yuñktās	युञ्जन्ति yuñjānti	युङ्क्ते yuñkté	युञ्जाते yuñjāte	युञ्जते yuñjāte

b. the root रुध् rudh *obstruct*; bases रुणध् ruṇadh and रुन्ध् rundh.

For rules of combination of final dh, see 153, 160.

1	रुणध्मि ruṇádhami	रुन्ध्वस् rundhvās	रुन्ध्मस् rundhmās	रुन्धे rundhé	रुन्ध्वहे rundhváhe	रुन्ध्महे rundhmáhe
2	रुणत्सि ruṇátsi	रुन्द्धस् runddhās	रुन्द्ध runddhá	रुन्त्से runtsé	रुन्धाथे rundhāthe	रुन्ध्वे runddhvé
3	रुणद्धि ruṇáddhi	रुन्द्धस् runddhās	रुन्धन्ति rundhānti	रुन्ध्वे runddhé	रुन्धाते rundhāte	रुन्धते rundhāte

c. Instead of yuñkthas, yuñgdhve, and the like (here and in the impv. and impf.), it is allowed and more usual (231) to write yuñthas, yuñdhve, etc.; and, in like manner, rundhas, rundhe, for runddhhas, runddhe; and so in other like cases.

685. Vedic irregularities of inflection are: 1. the ordinary use of a 3d sing. mid. like the 1st sing., as वृंजे; 2. the accent on té of 3d pl. mid. in añjaté, indhaté, bhuñjaté.

a. Yunañkṣi, in BhP., is doubtless a false reading.

2. Present Subjunctive.

686. The stem is made, as usual, by adding a to the strong present-stem: thus, yunája, ruṇádha. Below are given as if made

from √yuj all the forms for which examples have been noted as actually occurring in the older language.

	active.			middle.		
	s.	d.	p.	s.	d.	p.
1	yunájāni	yunájāva	yunájāma	yunajāi		yunájāmahāi
2	yunájas					yunajādhvāi
3	yunájat	yunájatas	yunájan	yunájate		

687. The RV. has once añjatas, which is anomalous as being made from the weak tense-stem. Forms with double mode-sign are met with: thus, ṛṇāhān (AV.), rādhnavāt and yunajān (ÇB.); and the only quotable example of 3d du. act. (besides añjatás) is hinásātas (ÇB.). ÇB. has also hinasāvas as 1st du. act.: an elsewhere unexampled form.

3. Present Optative.

688. The optative is made, as elsewhere, by adding the compounded mode-endings to the weak form of present-stem. Thus:

	active.			middle.		
	s.	d.	p.	s.	d.	p.
1	युञ्ज्याम् yuñjyām	युञ्ज्याव yuñjyāva	युञ्ज्याम yuñjyāma	युञ्जीय yuñjīyā	युञ्जीवहि yuñjīvāhi	युञ्जीमहि yuñjīmāhi
	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.

a. AB. has once the anomalous 1st sing. act. ṛñjīyam. And forms like bhuñjīyām -yāt, yuñjīyāt, are here and there met with in the epics (bhuñjīyātām once in GGS.). MBh., too, has once bhuñjītam.

4. Present Imperative.

689. In this class (as the roots all end in consonants) the ending of the 2d sing. act. is always धि dhi.

	active.			middle.		
	s.	d.	p.	s.	d.	p.
1	युनजानि yunájāni	युनजाव yunájāva	युनजाम yunájāma	युनजै yunájāi	युनजावहै yunájāvahāi	युनजामहै yunájāmahāi
2	युङ्ग्धि yuṅgdhī	युङ्क्तम् yuñktām	युङ्क्ता yuñktā	युङ्क्त्व yuñkṣvā	युञ्जायाम् yuñjāthām	युङ्ग्ध्वम् yuṅgdhvwām
3	युनक्तु yunáktu	युङ्क्तम् yuñktām	युञ्जन्तु yuñjāntu	युङ्क्तम् yuñktām	युञ्जाताम् yuñjātām	युञ्जताम् yuñjātām

690. There is no occurrence, so far as noted, of the ending *tāt* in verbs of this class. The Veda has, as usual, sometimes strong forms, and sometimes the ending *tana*, in the 2d pl. act.: thus, *unátta*, *yunákta*, *anaktana*, *pinaṣṭana*.

5. Present Participle.

691. The participles are made in this class as in the preceding ones: thus, act. युञ्जन् *yuñjant* (fem. युञ्जती *yuñjatī*); mid. युञ्जान *yuñjāna* (but RV. has *indhāna*).

6. Imperfect.

692. The example of the regular inflection of this tense needs no introduction:

	active.			middle.		
	s.	d.	p.	s.	d.	p.
1	अयुनजम् <i>áyunajam</i>	अयुञ्ज <i>áyuñjva</i>	अयुञ्जम् <i>áyuñjma</i>	अयुञ्जि <i>áyuñji</i>	अयुञ्जहि <i>áyuñjvahi</i>	अयुञ्जमहि <i>áyuñjmahi</i>
2	अयुनक् <i>áyunak</i>	अयुङ्क्तम् <i>áyuñktam</i>	अयुङ्क्ता <i>áyuñkta</i>	अयुङ्क्थास् <i>áyuñkthās</i>	अयुञ्जाथाम् <i>áyuñjāthām</i>	अयुङ्ग्ध्वम् <i>áyuñgdhvam</i>
3	अयुनक् <i>áyunak</i>	अयुङ्क्तम् <i>áyuñktām</i>	अयुञ्जन् <i>áyuñjan</i>	अयुङ्क्ता <i>áyuñkta</i>	अयुञ्जाताम् <i>áyuñjātām</i>	अयुञ्जत <i>áyuñjata</i>

a. The endings *s* and *t* are necessarily lost in the nasal class throughout in 2d and 3d sing. act., unless saved at the expense of the final radical consonant: which is a case of very rare occurrence (the only quotable examples were given at 555 a).

693. The Veda shows no irregularities in this tense. Occurrences of augmentless forms are found, especially in 2d and 3d sing. act., showing an accent like that of the present: for example, *bhinát*, *prṇák*, *vṛṇák*, *piṇák*, *riṇák*.

a. The 1st sing. act. *atrṇam* and *acchinam* (for *atrṇadam* and *acchinadam*) were noted above, at 555 a.

694. The roots of this class number about thirty, more than half of them being found only in the earlier language; no new ones make their first appearance later. Three of them, *añj* and *bhañj* and *hiñs*, carry their nasal also into other tense-systems than the present. Two, *rdh* and *ubh*, make present-systems also of other classes having a nasal in the class-sign: thus, *rdhnoti* (nu-class) and *ubhnāti* (nā-class).

a. Many of the roots make forms from secondary a-stems: thus, from añja, unda, umbhá, chinda, ṭṛñhá, piñša, pñćá, bhuñja, rundha, çinśá, etc.

Irregularities of the Nasal Class.

695. The root ṭṛh combines ṭṛnah with ti, tu, etc. into ṭṛneḍhi, ṭṛnéḍhu; and, according to the grammarians, has also such forms as ṭṛnehmi: see above, 224 b.

696. The root hiñs (by origin apparently a desiderative from √han) accents irregularly the root-syllable in the weak forms: thus, híñsanti, híñste, híñsāna (but hinásat etc. and hiñsyāt ÇB.).

IV. Nu- and u-classes (fifth and eighth, su- and tan-classes).

697. A. The present-stem of the nu-class is made by adding to the root the syllable नु nu, which then in the strong forms receives the accent, and is strengthened to नो nó.

B. The few roots of the u-class (about half-a-dozen) end in न् n, with the exception of the later irregular कृ kṛ (or kar) — for which, see below, 714. The two classes, then, are closely correspondent in form; and they are wholly accordant in inflection.

a. The u of either class-sign is allowed to be dropped before v and m of the 1st du. and 1st pl. endings, except when the root (nu-class) ends in a consonant; and the u before a vowel-ending becomes v or uv, according as it is preceded by one or by two consonants (129 a).

1. Present Indicative.

698. Examples of inflection: A. nu-class; root सु su *press out*: strong form of stem, सुनो sunó; weak form, सुनु sunu.

	active.			middle.		
	s.	d.	p.	s.	d.	p.
1	सुनोमि sunómi	सुनुवस् sunuvás	सुनुमस् sunumás	सुन्वे suvé	सुनुवहे sunuváhe	सुनुमहे sunumáhe
2	सुनोषि sunóṣi	सुनुथस् sunuthás	सुनुथ sunuthá	सुनुषे sunuṣé	सुन्वाथे suváthe	सुनुध्वे sunudhvé

3	सुनोति sunóti	सुनुतस् sunutás	सुन्वन्ति sunvánti	सुनुते sunuté	सुन्वाते sunvāte	सुन्वते sunváte
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a. The forms sunvás, sunmás, sunváhe, sunmáhe are alternative with those given here for 1st du. and pl., and in practice are more common. From √āp, however (for example), only the forms with u can occur: thus, āpnuvás, āpnumáhe; and also only āpnuvánti, āpnuvé, āpnuváte.

B. u-class; root तन् tan *stretch*: strong form of stem, तनो tanó; weak, तनु tanu.

1	तनोमि tanómi	तन्वस् tanvás	तन्मस् tanmás	तन्वे tanvé	तन्वहे tanváhe	तन्महे tanmáhe
	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.

b. The inflection is so precisely like that given above that it is not worth writing out in full. The abbreviated forms in 1st du. and pl. are presented here, instead of the fuller, which rarely occur (as no double consonant ever precedes).

699. a. In the older language, no strong 2d persons du. or pl., and no thana-endings, chance to occur (but they are numerous in the impv. and impf.: see below). The RV. has several cases of the irregular accent in 3d pl. mid.: thus, kṛṇvaté, tanvaté, manvaté, vṛṇvaté, sprṇvaté.

b. In RV. occur also several 3d pl. mid. in ire from present-stems of this class: thus, invire, ṛṇvire, pinvire, ṇṇviré, sunviré, hinviré. Of these, pinvire and hinviré might be perfects without reduplication from the secondary roots pinv and hinv (below, 716). The 2d sing. mid. (with passive value) ṇṇviṣé (RV.) is of anomalous and questionable character.

2. Present Subjunctive.

700. The subjunctive mode-stem is made in the usual manner, by adding a to the gunated and accented class-sign: thus, sunáva, tanáva. In the following scheme are given all the forms of which examples have been met with in actual use in the older language from either division of the class; some of them are quite numerous represented there.

	active.			middle.		
	s.	d.	p.	s.	d.	p.
1	sunávāni	sunávāva	sunávāma	sunávāi	sunávāvahāi	sunávāmahāi
2	sunávas		sunávatha	sunávase	sunávāithe	
3	sunávat		sunávan	sunávate sunávātāi		sunávanta

701. Of the briefer 1st sing. act., RV. has *kṛṇavā* and *hinavā*. Forms with double mode-sign occur (not in RV.): thus, *kṛṇāvāt* and *karavāt* (AV.); *aṇavātha* (K.), *kṛṇavātha* (VS.; but -vatha in Kāṇva-text), *karavātha* (ÇB.). On the other hand, *aṇavatāi* is found once (in TS.). Forms like *āpnuvāni*, *ardhnúvat*, *aṇuvat*, met with now and then in the older texts, are doubtless to be regarded as false readings. RV. has in a single passage *kṛṇvāite* (instead of *kṛṇāvāite*); the only form in *āithe* is *aṇāvāithe*.

3. Present Optative.

702. The combined endings (566) are added, as usual, to the weak tense-stem: thus,

	active.			middle.		
	s.	d.	p.	s.	d.	p.
1	सुनुयाम् sunuyām	सुनुयाव sunuyāva	सुनुयाम sunuyāma	सुन्वीय sunvīyá	सुन्वीवहि sunvīvāhi	सुन्वीमहि sunvīmāhi
	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.

a. From *√āp*, the middle optative would be *āpnuvīyá* — and so in other like cases.

4. Present Imperative.

703. The inflection of the imperative is in general like that in the preceding classes. As regards the 2d sing. act., the rule of the later language is that the ending *हि hi* is taken whenever the root itself ends in a consonant; otherwise, the tense- (or mode-) stem stands by itself as 2d person (for the earlier usage, see below, 704). An example of inflection is:

	active.			middle.		
	s.	d.	p.	s.	d.	p.
1	सुनवानि sunávāni	सुनवाव sunávāva	सुनवाम sunávāma	सुनवै sunávāi	सुनवावहै sunávāvahāi	सुनवामहै sunávāmahāi
2	सुनु sunú	सुनुतम् sunutām	सुनुत sunutá	सुनुष्व sunuṣvā	सुन्वाथाम् sunvāthām	सुनुध्वम् sunudhvām
3	सुनोतु sunótu	सुनुताम् sunutām	सुन्वतु sunvāntu	सुनुताम् sunutām	सुन्वाताम् sunvātām	सुन्वताम् sunvātām

a. From $\sqrt{\text{āp}}$, the 2d sing. act. would be āpnuhí ; from $\sqrt{\text{aç}}$ açnuhí ; from $\sqrt{\text{dhṛṣ}}$, dhṛṣṇuhí ; and so on. From $\sqrt{\text{āp}}$, too, would be made āpnuvántu , āpnuvāthām , āpnuvātām , āpnuvātām .

704. In the earliest language, the rule as to the omission of *hi* after a root with final vowel does not hold good: in RV., such forms as *inuhi*, *kṛṇuhi*, *cinuhi*, *dhūnuhi*, *çṛṇuhi*, *spṛṇuhi*, *hinuhi*, and *tanuhi*, *sanuhi*, are nearly thrice as frequent in use as *inú*, *çṛṇu*, *sunú*, *tanu*, and their like; in AV., however, they are only one sixth as frequent; and in the Brāhmaṇas they appear only sporadically: even *çṛṇudhí* (with *dhi*) occurs several times in RV. RV. has the 1st sing. act. *hinavā*. The ending *tāt* is found in *kṛṇutāt* and *hinutāt*, and *kurutāt*. The strong stem-form is found in 2d du. act. in *hinotam* and *kṛṇotam*; and in 2d pl. act. in *kṛṇóta* and *kṛṇótana*, *çṛṇóta* and *çṛṇotana*, *sunóta* and *sunótana*, *hinóta* and *hinotana*, and *tanota*, *karóta*. The ending *tana* occurs only in the forms just quoted.

5. Present Participle.

705. The endings अन्तं *ánt* and आनं *ānā* are added to the weak form of tense stem: thus, from $\sqrt{\text{su}}$ *su* come act. सुन्वन्तं *suvánt* (fem. सुन्वती *sunvatī*), mid. सुन्वानं *suvānā*; from $\sqrt{\text{tan}}$ *tan*, तन्वन्तं *tanvánt* (fem. तन्वती *tanvatī*), तन्वानं *tanvānā*. From $\sqrt{\text{āp}}$ *āp*, they are आप्नुवन्तं *āpnuvánt* and आप्नुवानं *āpnuvānā*.

6. Imperfect.

706. The combination of augmented stem and endings is according to the rules already stated: thus,

	active.			middle.		
	s.	d.	p.	s.	d.	p.
1	असुनवम् <i>ásunavam</i>	असुनुव <i>ásunuva</i>	असुनुम <i>ásunuma</i>	असुन्वि <i>ásunvi</i>	असुनुवहि <i>ásunuvahi</i>	असुनुमहि <i>ásunumahi</i>
2	असुनोस् <i>ásunos</i>	असुनुतम् <i>ásunutam</i>	असुनुत <i>ásunuta</i>	असुनुथास् <i>ásunuthās</i>	असुन्वाथाम् <i>ásunvāthām</i>	असुनुध्वम् <i>ásunudhvam</i>
3	असुनोत् <i>ásunot</i>	असुनुताम् <i>ásunutām</i>	असुन्वन् <i>ásunvan</i>	असुनुत <i>ásunuta</i>	असुन्वाताम् <i>ásunvātām</i>	असुन्वत <i>ásunvata</i>

a. Here, as elsewhere, the briefer forms *ásunva*, *ásunma*, *ásunvahi*, *ásunmahi* are allowed, and more usual, except from roots with final consonant, as *dhṛṣ*: which makes, for example, always *ádhrṣṇuma* etc., and also *ádhrṣṇuvan*, *ádhrṣṇuvi*, *ádhrṣṇuvāthām*, *ádhrṣṇuvātām*, *ádhrṣṇuvata*.

707. Strong stem-forms and tana-ending are found only in RV., In *akṛṇota*, *akṛṇotana*. Augmentless forms with accent are *minván*, *ṛṇutá*.

708. About fifty roots make, either exclusively or in part, their present-forms after the manner of the nu-class: half of them do so only in the older language; three or four, only in the later.

a. As to transfers to the a-conjugation, see below, 716.

709. The roots of the other division, or of the u-class, are extremely few, not exceeding eight, even including *tṛ* on account of *taruté* RV., and *han* on account of the occurrence of *hanomi* once in a Sūtra (PGS. i. 3. 27). BR. refer the stem *inu* to *in* of the u-class instead of *i* of the nu-class.

Irregularities of the nu and u-classes.

710. The root *tṛp* *be pleased* is said by the grammarians to retain the *n* of its class-sign unlingualized in the later language — where, however, forms of conjugation of this class are very rare; while in the Veda the regular change is made: thus, *tṛṇu*.

711. The root *çru* *hear* is contracted to *çṛ* before the class-sign, forming *çṛṇó* and *çṛṇu* as stem. Its forms *çṛṇviṣé* and *çṛṇviré* have been noted above (699 b).

712. The root *dhū* *shake* in the later language (and rarely in B. and S.) shortens its vowel, making the stem-forms *dhunó* and *dhunu* (earlier *dhūnó*, *dhūnu*).

713. The so-called root *ūrṇu*, treated by the native grammarians as dissyllabic and belonging to the root-class (I.), is properly a present-stem of this class, with anomalous contraction, from the root *vṛ* (or *var*). In the Veda, it has no forms which are not regularly made according to the nu-class; but in the Brāhmaṇa language are found sometimes such forms as *ūrṇāuti*, as if from an u-root of the root class (626); and the grammarians make for it a perfect, aorist, future, etc. Its 2d sing. impv. act. is *ūrṇu* or *ūrṇuhi*; its impf., *āúrṇos*, *āurnot*; its opt. mid., *ūrṇuvīta* (K.) or *ūrṇvītá* (TS.).

714. The extremely common root *ṛ* *kṛ* (or *kar*) *make* is in the later language inflected in the present-system exclusively according to the u-class (being the only root of that class not ending in *ṛ* n). It has the irregularity that in the strong form of stem it (as well as the class-sign) has the *guṇa*-strengthening, and that in the weak form it is

changed to kur, so that the two forms of stem are करो karó and कुरु kuru. The class-sign उ u is always dropped before of व् v and म् m of the 1st du. and pl., and also before य् y of the opt. act. Thus:

1. Present Indicative.						
	active.			middle.		
	s.	d.	p.	s.	d.	p.
1	करोमि karómi	कुर्वस् kurvás	कुर्मस् kurmás	कुर्वे kurvé	कुर्वहे kurváhe	कुर्महे kurmáhe
2	करोषि karóṣi	कुरुथस् kuruthás	कुरुथ kuruthá	कुरुषे kuruṣé	कुर्वथि kurvāthe	कुरुध्वे kurudhvé
3	करोति karóti	कुरुतस् kurutás	कुर्वन्ति kurvānti	कुरुते kuruté	कुर्वते kurváte	कुर्वते kurváte
2. Present Optative.						
1	कुर्याम् kuryām	कुर्याव kuryāva	कुर्याम kuryāma	कुर्वीय kurvīyá	कुर्वीवहि kurvīvāhi	कुर्वीमहि kurvīmāhi
	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.
3. Present Imperative.						
1	करवाणि karāvāṇi	करवाव karāvāva	करवाम karāvāma	करवै karāvāi	करवावहै karāvāvahāi	करवामहै karāvāmahāi
2	कुरु kurú	कुरुतम् kurutām	कुरुत kurutá	कुरुष्व kuruṣvā	कुर्वथाम् kurvāthām	कुरुध्वम् kurudhvām
3	करोतु karótu	कुरुताम् kurutām	कुर्वन्तु kurvāntu	कुरुताम् kurutām	कुर्वताम् kurvātām	कुर्वताम् kurvātām
4. Present Participle.						
कुर्वन्त् kurvánt (fem. कुर्वती kurvatī) कुर्वाण् kurvāṇá						
5. Imperfect.						
1	अकरवम् ákaravam	अकुर्व ákurva	अकुर्म ákurma	अकुर्वि ákurvi	अकुर्वहि ákurvahi	अकुर्महि ákurmahī
2	अकरोस् ákaros	अकुरुतम् ákurutam	अकुरुत ákuruta	अकुरुथास् ákuruthās	अकुर्वथाम् ákurvāthām	अकुरुध्वम् ákurudhvām
3	अकरोत् ákarot	अकुरुताम् ákurutām	अकुर्वन् ákurvan	अकुरुत ákuruta	अकुर्वताम् ákurvātām	अकुर्वत ákurvata

715. In RV., this root is regularly inflected in the present-system according to the *nu*-class, making the stem-forms *kṛṇó* and *kṛṇu*; the only exceptions are *kurmas* once and *kuru* twice (all in the tenth book); in AV., the *nu*-forms are still more than six times as frequent as the *u*-forms (nearly half of which, moreover, are in prose passages); but in the Brāhmaṇa language and later, the *u*-forms are used to the exclusion of the others.

a. As 1st sing. pres. act. is found *kurmi* in the epos.

b. What irregular forms from *kṛ* as a verb of the *nu*-class occur in the older language have been already noticed above.

c. The isolated form *taruté*, from *√tr*, shows an apparent analogy with these *u*-forms from *kṛ*.

716. A few verbs belonging originally to these classes have been shifted, in part or altogether, to the *a*-class, their proper class-sign having been stereotyped as a part of the root.

a. Thus, in RV. we find forms both from the stem *inu* (*√i* or *in*), and also from *ínva*, representing a derivative quasi-root *inv* (and these latter alone occur in AV.). So likewise forms from a stem *ṛṇva* beside those from *ṛṇu* (*√ṛ*); and from *hinva* beside those from *hinu* (*√hi*). The so-called roots *jinv* and *pinv* are doubtless of the same origin, although no forms from the stem *pinu* are met with at any period — unless *pinvire* (above, 699 b) be so regarded; and AV. has the participle *pinvánt*, f. *pinvatí*. The grammarians set up a root *dhinv*, but only forms from *dhi* (stem *dhinu*) appear to occur in the present-system (the aorist *adhinvīt* is found in PB.).

b. Occasional *a*-forms are met with also from other roots: thus, *cinvata* etc., *dunvasva*.

V. Nā-class (ninth or *kṛī*-class).

717. The class-sign of this class is in the strong forms the syllable *न* *ná*, accented, which is added to the root; in the weak forms, or where the accent falls upon the ending, it is *नी* *nī*; but before the initial vowel of an ending the *ई* *ī* of *नी* *nī* disappears altogether.

1. Present Indicative.

718. Example of inflection: root *क्री* *kṛī* *buy*: strong form of stem, *क्रीणा* *kṛīṇá*; weak form, *क्रीणी* *kṛīṇī* (before a vowel, *क्रीण* *kṛīṇ*).

	active.			middle.		
	s.	d.	p.	s.	d.	p.
1	क्रीणामि krīṇāmi	क्रीणीवस् krīṇīvās	क्रीणीमस् krīṇīmās	क्रीणे krīṇé	क्रीणीवहे krīṇīvāhe	क्रीणीमहे krīṇīmāhe
2	क्रीणसि krīṇāsi	क्रीणीथस् krīṇīthās	क्रीणीथ krīṇīthá	क्रीणीषे krīṇīṣe	क्रीणाथे krīṇāthe	क्रीणीध्वे krīṇīdhvé
3	क्रीणाति krīṇāti	क्रीणीतस् krīṇītās	क्रीणन्ति krīṇānti	क्रीणीते krīṇīté	क्रीणाते krīṇāte	क्रीणते krīṇāte

719. In the Veda, the 3d sing. mid. has the same form with the 1st in grṇé; the peculiar accent of 3d pl. mid. is seen in punaté and riṇaté; and vṛṇīmahé (beside vṛṇīmāhe) occurs once in RV.

2. Present Subjunctive.

720. The subjunctive forms which have been found exemplified in Veda and Brāhmaṇa are given below. The subjunctive mode-stem is, of course, indistinguishable in form from the strong tense-stem. And the 2d and 3d sing. act. (with secondary endings) are indistinguishable from augmentless imperfects.

	active.			middle.		
	s.	d.	p.	s.	d.	p.
1	krīṇāni		krīṇāma	krīṇāi	krīṇāvahāi	krīṇāmahāi
2	krīṇās		krīṇātha	krīṇāsāi		
3	krīṇāt		krīṇān	krīṇātāi		krīṇāntāi

3. Present Optative.

721. This mode is formed and inflected with entire regularity; owing to the fusion of tense-sign and mode-sign in the middle, some of its persons are indistinguishable from augmentless imperfects. Its first persons are as follows:

	active.			middle.		
	s.	d.	p.	s.	d.	p.
1	क्रीणीयाम् krīṇīyām	क्रीणीयाव krīṇīyāva	क्रीणीयाम krīṇīyāma	क्रीणीय krīṇīyá	क्रीणीवहि krīṇīvāhi	क्रीणीमहि krīṇīmāhi
	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.

4. Present Imperative.

722. The ending in 2d sing. act., as being always preceded by a vowel, is हि hi (never धि dhi); and there are no examples of an omission of it. But this person is forbidden

to be formed in the classical language from roots ending in a consonant; for both class-sign and ending is substituted the peculiar ending आन ānā.

	active.			middle.		
	s.	d.	p.	s.	d.	p.
1	क्रीणानि krīṇāni	क्रीणाव krīṇāva	क्रीणाम krīṇāma	क्रीणै krīṇāi	क्रीणावहै krīṇāvahai	क्रीणामहै krīṇāmahai
2	क्रीणीहि krīṇīhi	क्रीणीतम् krīṇītām	क्रीणीत krīṇītā	क्रीणीष्व krīṇīṣvā	क्रीणाथाम् krīṇāthām	क्रीणीध्वम् krīṇīdhvam
3	क्रीणातु krīṇātu	क्रीणीताम् krīṇītām	क्रीणन्तु krīṇāntu	क्रीणीताम् krīṇītām	क्रीणाताम् krīṇātām	क्रीणताम् krīṇātām

a. Examples of the ending ānā in 2d sing. act. are açāna, grhāṇā, badhānā, stabhānā.

723. The ending āna is known also to the earliest language; of the examples just given, all are found in AV., and the first two in RV.; others are iṣāṇa, muṣāṇa, skabhāna. But AV. has also grbhṇīhi (also AB.), and even grhṇāhi, with strong stem; BhP. has badhnīhi. Strong stems are farther found in grṇāhi and strṇāhi (TS.), prṇāhi (TB.), and ṣrīṇāhi (Āpast.), and, with anomalous accent, punāhī and ṣrṇāhī (SV.); and, in 2d pl. act., in punāta (RV.). The ending tāt of 2d sing. act. occurs in grhṇītāt, jānītāt, punītāt. The ending tana is found in punītāna, prṇītana, ṣrīṇītana.

5. Present Participle.

724. The participles are regularly formed: thus, for example, act. क्रीणन् krīṇānt (fem. क्रीणती krīṇatī); mid. क्रीणान krīṇānā.

6. Imperfect.

725. There is nothing special to be noted as to the inflection of this tense: an example is —

	active.			middle.		
	s.	d.	p.	s.	d.	p.
1	अक्रीणाम् ákrīṇām	अक्रीणीव ákrīṇīva	अक्रीणीम ákrīṇīma	अक्रीणि ákrīṇi	अक्रीणीवहि ákrīṇīvahi	अक्रीणीमहि ákrīṇīmahi
2	अक्रीणाम् ákrīṇās	अक्रीणीतम् ákrīṇītām	अक्रीणीत ákrīṇīta	अक्रीणीथाम् ákrīṇīthās	अक्रीणाथाम् ákrīṇāthām	अक्रीणीध्वम् ákrīṇīdhvam
3	अक्रीणात् ákrīṇāt	अक्रीणीताम् ákrīṇītām	अक्रीणन् ákrīṇan	अक्रीणीत ákrīṇīta	अक्रीणाताम् ákrīṇātām	अक्रीणत ákrīṇata

726. It has been pointed out above that augmentless persons of this tense are in part indistinguishable in form from subjunctive and optative persons. Such as certainly belong here are (in V.) kṣiṇām; açnan, riṇán; gr̥bh̥ata, vṛ̥nata. The AV. has once minīt instead of mināt. MBh. has açnīs after mā.

a. AB. has the false form ajānīmas, and in AA. occurs avṛ̥ṇīta as 3d plural.

727. The roots which form their present-systems, wholly or in part, after the manner of this class, are over fifty in number: but, for about three fifths of them, the forms are quotable only from the older language, and for half-a-dozen they make their first appearance later; for less than twenty are they in use through the whole life of the language, from the Veda down.

a. As to secondary a-stems, see 731.

Irregularities of the na-class.

728. a. The roots ending in ū shorten that vowel before the class-sign: thus, from √ pū, punāti and punité; in like manner also jū, dhū, lū.

b. The root vlī (B.S.) forms either vlīnā or vlinā.

729. The root grabh or grah (the former Vedic) is weakened to gr̥bh or gr̥h.

a. As the perfect also in weak forms has gr̥bh or gr̥h, it is not easy to see why the grammarians should not have written ṛ instead of ra in the root.

730. a. A few of the roots have a more or less persistent nasal in forms outside the present-system; such are without nasal before the class-sign: thus, grath or granth, badh or bandh, math or manth, skabh or skambh, stabh or stambh.

b. The root jñā also loses its nasal before the class-sign: thus, jānāti, jānité.

731. Not rarely, forms showing a transfer to the a-conjugation are met with: thus, even in RV., minati, minat, aminanta, from √mi; in AV., çṛ̥ṇa from √çṛ; later, gr̥h̥na, jāna, prī̥na, mathna, etc. And from roots pṛ and mṛ are formed the stems pṛ̥ṇá and mṛ̥ṇá, which are inflected after the manner of the á-class, as if from roots pṛ̥ṇ and mṛ̥ṇ.

732. In the Veda, an apparently denominative inflection of a stem in āyá is not infrequent beside the conjugation of roots of this class: thus, gr̥bhāyá, mathāyāti, açrathāyas, skabhāyáta, astabhāyat, pruṣāyánte, muṣāyát, and so on. See below, 1066 b.

Second or a-Conjugation.

733. We come now to the classes which compose the Second or a-Conjugation. These are more markedly similar in their mode of inflection than the preceding classes; their common characteristics, already stated, may be here repeated in summary. They are: 1. A final a in the present-stem; 2. a constant accent, not changing between stem and ending; 3. a briefer form of the optative mode-sign in the active, namely ī instead of yā (combining in both voices alike with a to e); 4. the absence of any ending (except when tāt is used) in 2d sing. impv. act.; 5. the conversion of initial ā of the 2d and 3d du. mid. endings to e; 6. the use of the full endings ante, anta, antām in 3d pl. mid. forms; 7. the invariable use of an (not us) in 3d pl. impf. act.; 8. and the use of māna instead of āna as ending of the mid. pple. Moreover, 9. the stem-final a becomes ā before m and v of 1st personal endings — but not before am of 1st sing. impf.: here, as before the 3d pl. endings, the stem-final is lost, and the short a of the ending remains (or the contrary): thus, bhāvanti (bháva+anti), bhávante (bháva+ante), ábhavam (ábhava+am).

a. All these characteristics belong not to the inflection of the a-present-systems alone, but also to that of the a-, reduplicated, and sa-aorists, the s-future, and the desiderative, causative, and denominative present-systems. That is to say, wherever in conjugation an a-stem is found, it is inflected in the same manner.

VI. A-class (first, bhū-class).

734. The present-stem of this class is made by adding अ a to the root, which has the accent, and, when that is possible (235, 240), is strengthened to guṇa. Thus, भव bháva from √भू bhū; जय jáya from √जि ji; बोध bódha from √बुध budh; सर्प sárpa from √रूप srp; — but वद् váda from √वद् vad; क्रीड kríḍa from √क्रीड krīḍ.

1. Present Indicative.

735. The endings and the rules for their combination with the stem have been already fully given, for this and the other parts of the present-system; and it only remains to illustrate them by examples.

a. Example of inflection: root भू bhū *be*; stem भव bháva (bho+a: 131).

	active.			middle.		
	s.	d.	p.	s.	d.	p.
1	भवामि bhávāmi	भावस् bhávāvas	भवामस् bhávāmas	भवे bháve	भावहे bhávāvahe	भवामहे bhávāmahe
2	भवसि bhávasi	भवथस् bhávathas	भवथ bhávatha	भवसे bhávase	भवेथे bhávethe	भवध्वे bhávadhve
3	भवति bhávati	भवतस् bhávatas	भवन्ति bhávanti	भवते bhávate	भवते bhávete	भवन्ते bhávante

b. The V. has but a single example of the thana-ending, namely vādathana (and no other in any class of this conjugation). The 1st pl. mid. manāmahé (RV., once) is probably an error. RV. has çóbhe once as 3d singular.

2. Present Subjunctive.

736. The mode-stem is bhávā (bháva+a). Subjunctive forms of this conjugation are very numerous in the older language; the following scheme instances all that have been found to occur.

	active.			middle.		
	s.	d.	p.	s.	d.	p.
1	bhāvāni	bhāvāva	bhāvāma	bhāvāi	bhāvāvahāi	bhāvāmahāi
2	bhāvāsi bhāvās	bhāvāthas	bhāvātha	bhāvāse bhāvāsāi		bhāvādhvāi
3	bhāvāti bhāvāt	bhāvātas	bhāvān	bhāvāte bhāvātāi	bhāvāite	bhāvānta bhāvāntāi

737. The 2d du. mid. (bhāvāithe) does not chance to occur in this class; and yātāite is the only example of the 3d person. No such pl. mid. forms as bhāvādhve, bhāvānte are made from any class with stem-final a; such as bhāvānta (which are very common) are, of course, properly augmentless imperfects. The Brāhmaṇas (especially ÇB.) prefer the 2d sing. act. in āsi and the 3d in āt. AB. has the 3d sing. mid. haratāi; and a 3d pl. in antāi (vartantāi KB.) has been noted once. RV. has examples, arcā and madā, of the briefer 1st. sing. act.

3. Present Optative.

738. The scheme of optative endings as combined with the final of an a-stem was given in full above (566).

	active.			middle.		
	s.	d.	p.	s.	d.	p.
1	भवेयम् bháveyam	भवेव bháveva	भवेम bhávema	भवेय bháveya	भवेवहि bhávevahi	भवेमहि bhávemahi
2	भवेस् bháves	भवेतम् bhávetam	भवेत bháveta	भवेयास् bhávethās	भवेयाथाम् bháveyāthām	भवेध्वम् bhávedhvam
3	भवेत् bhávet	भवेताम् bhávetām	भवेयुस् bháveyus	भवेत bháveta	भवेयाताम् bháveyātām	भवेरन् bháveran

a. The RV. has once the 3d pl. mid. bharerata (for one other example, see 752 b). AV. has udeyam from √vad.

b. A few instances are met with of middle 3d persons from a-stems in īta and (very rarely) īran, instead of eta and eran. For convenience, they may be put together here (excepting the more numerous causative forms, for which see 1043 c); they are (so far as noted) these: nayīta S. and later, çaṁsīta S., çrayīta S.; dhayīta S., dhyāyīta U., hvayīta AB. S. and hvayīran S., dhmāyīta U. An active form çaṁsīyāt C. is isolated and anomalous.

4. Present Imperative.

739. An example of the imperative inflection is:

	active.			middle.		
	s.	d.	p.	s.	d.	p.
1	भवानि bhávāni	भवाव bhávāva	भवाम bhávāma	भवै bhávāi	भवावहै bhávāvahāi	भवामहै bhávāmahāi
2	भव bháva	भवतम् bhávatam	भवत bhávata	भवस्व bhávasva	भवेथाम् bhávethām	भवध्वम् bhávadhvam
3	भवतु bhávatu	भवताम् bhávatām	भवन्तु bhávantu	भवताम् bhávatām	भवेताम् bhávetām	भवन्ताम् bhávantām

740. The ending tana in 2d pl. act. is as rare in this whole conjugation as is thana in the present: the V. affords only bhajatana in the a-class (and nahyatana in the ya-class: 760 c). The ending tāt of 2d sing. act., on the other hand, is not rare; the RV. has avatāt, oṣatāt, dahatāt, bhavatāt, yacchatāt, yācatāt, rákṣatāt, vahatāt; to which AV. adds jinvatāt, dhāvatāt; and the Brāhmanas bring other examples. MS. has twice svadātu (parallel texts both times svadāti): compare similar cases in the á-class: 752 c.

5. Present Participle

741. The endings अन्त ant and मान māna are added to the present-stem, with loss, before the former, of the final stem-vowel: thus, act. भवन्त bhávant (fem. भवन्ती bhávantī); mid. भवमान bhávamāna.

a. A small number of middle participles appear to be made from stems of this class (as of other a-classes: see 752 e, 1043 f) by the suffix āna instead of māna: thus, namāna, pacāna, çikṣāṇa, svajāna, hvayāna (all epic), majjāna and kaṣāṇa (later); and there are Vedic examples (as cyāvāna, prathāná, yātāna or yatāná, çumbhāna, all RV.) of which the character, whether present or aorist, is doubtful: compare 840, 852.

6. Imperfect.

742. An example of the imperfect inflection is:

active.			middle.		
s.	d.	p.	s.	d.	p.
अभवम् ábhavam	अभवाव ábhavāva	अभवाम ábhavāma	अभवे ábhave	अभवावहि ábhavāvahi	अभवामहि ábhavāmahi
अभवस् ábhavas	अभवतम् ábhavatam	अभवत ábhavata	अभवथास् ábhavathās	अभवेथाम् ábhavethām	अभवध्वम् ábhavadhvam
अभवत् ábhavat	अभवताम् ábhavatām	अभवन् ábhavan	अभवत ábhavata	अभवेताम् ábhavetām	अभवन्त ábhavanta

743. No forms in tana are made in this tense from any a-class. Examples of augmentless forms (which are not uncommon) are: cyāvam, ávas, dáhas, bódhat, bhárat, cáran, náçan; bādhathās, vārdhata, çócanta. The subjunctively used forms of 2d and 3d sing. act. are more frequent than those of either of the proper subjunctive persons.

744. A far larger number of roots form their present-system according to the a-class than according to any of the other classes: in the RV., they are about two hundred and forty (nearly two fifths of the whole body of roots); in the AV., about two hundred (nearly the same proportion); for the whole language, the proportion is still larger, or nearly one half the whole number of present-stems: namely, over two hundred in both earlier and later language, one hundred and seventy-five in the older alone, nearly a hundred and fifty in the later alone. Among these are not a few transfers from the classes of the first conjugation: see those classes above. There are no roots ending in long ā — except a few which make an a-stem in some anomalous way: below, 749 a.

Irregularities of the a-class.

745. A few verbs have irregular vowel-changes in forming the present-stem: thus,

a. ūh *consider* has guṇa-strengthening (against 240): thus, óhate.

b. kṛp (or krap) *lament*, on the contrary, remains unchanged: thus, kṛpate.

c. guh *hide* has prolongation instead of guṇa: thus, gúhati.

d. kram *stride* regularly lengthens its vowel in the active, but not in the middle: thus, krámati, krámate; but the vowel-quantities are somewhat mixed up, even from the oldest language down; — klam *tire* is said to form klāmati etc., but is not quotable; — cam with the preposition ā *rinse the mouth* forms ácāmati.

e. In the later language are found occasional forms of this class from mrj *wipe*; and they show the same vṛddhi (instead of guṇa) which belongs to the root in its more proper inflection (627): thus, mārjasva.

f. The grammarians give a number of roots in urv, which they declare to lengthen the u in the present-stem. Only three are found in (quite limited) use, and they show no forms anywhere with short u. All appear to be of secondary formation from roots in ṛ or ar. The root murch or mūrch *coagulate* has likewise only ū in quotable forms.

g. The onomatopoetic root ṣṭhīv *spew* is written by the grammarians as ṣṭhiv, and declared to lengthen its vowel in the present-system: compare 240 b.

746. The roots dañç *bite*, rañj *color*, sañj *hang*, svañj *embrace*, of which the nasal is in other parts of the conjugation not constant, lose it in the present-system: thus, dáçati etc.; sañj forms both sajati and sajjati (probably for sajayati, or for sasjati from sasajati); math or manth has mathati later. In general, as the present of this class is a strengthening formation, a root that has such a nasal anywhere has it here also.

747. The roots gam *go* and yam *reach* make the present-stems gáccha and yáccha: thus, gácchāmi etc.: see 608.

748. The root sad *sit* forms śída (conjectured to be contracted from sisda for sisada: thus, śídāmi etc.

749. Transfers to this class from other classes are not rare, as has been already pointed out above, both throughout the present-system and in occasional forms. The most important cases are the following:

a. The roots in ā, sthā *stand*, pā *drink*, and ghrā *smell*, form the present-stems tíṣṭha (tíṣṭhāmi etc.), píba (píbāmi etc.), and jíghra (jíghrāmi etc.): for these and other similar cases, see 671–4.

b. Secondary root-forms like inv, jinv, pinv, from simpler roots

of the nu-class, are either found alongside their originals, or have crowded these out of use: see 716.

750. On the other hand, the root *dham* or *dhmā* *blow* forms its present-stem from the more original form of the root: thus, *dhámati* etc.

VII. Accented á-class (sixth, tud-class).

751. The present-stem of this class has the accent on the class-sign अ á, and the root remains unstrengthened. In its whole inflection, it follows so closely the model of the preceding class that to give the paradigm in full will be unnecessary (only for the subjunctive, all the forms found to occur will be instanced).

752. Example of inflection: root विश् *viç enter*; stem विश् *viçá*:

1. Present Indicative.

	active.			middle.		
	s.	d.	p.	s.	d.	p.
1	विशामि <i>viçámi</i>	विशवस् <i>viçávas</i>	विशामस् <i>viçámas</i>	विशे <i>viçé</i>	विशवहे <i>viçávahe</i>	विशामहे <i>viçámahe</i>
	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.

2. Present Subjunctive.

1	विचानि <i>viçáni</i>	विचवा <i>viçáva</i>	विचामा <i>viçáma</i>	विचा <i>viçái</i>	विचवहानि <i>viçávahāi</i>	विचामहानि <i>viçámahāi</i>
2	विचासि <i>viçási</i> <i>viçás</i>		विचाथा <i>viçátha</i>	विचासे <i>viçāse</i> <i>viçāsāi</i>	विचाथे <i>viçāithe</i>	
3	विचाति <i>viçāti</i> <i>viçāt</i>	विचातस <i>viçātas</i>	विचान <i>viçān</i>	विचाते <i>viçāte</i> <i>viçātāi</i>	विचाते <i>viçāite</i>	विचान्तानि <i>viçāntāi</i>

a. A single example of the briefer 1st sing. act. is मृक्षँ. The only forms in *āithe* and *āite* are मृण्āithe and युवāite.

3. Present Optative.

	active.			middle.		
	s.	d.	p.	s.	d.	p.
1	विशेयम् <i>viçéyam</i>	विशेव <i>viçéva</i>	विशेम <i>viçéma</i>	विशेय <i>viçéya</i>	विशेवहि <i>viçévahi</i>	विशेमहि <i>viçémahi</i>
	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.

b. The RV. has the ending *tana* once in *tiretana* 2d pl. act., and *rata* in *juṣerata* 3d pl. mid.

4. Present Imperative.

The first persons having been given above as subjunctives, the second are added here:

2	विश् viçá	विशतम् viçátam	विशत viçáta	विशस्व viçásva	विशेयाम् viçéthām	विशध्वम् viçádhvam
	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.

c. The ending *tāt* is found in RV. and AV. in *mṛdatāt*, *vṛhatāt*, *suvatāt*; other examples are not infrequent in the Brāhmaṇa language: thus, *khidatāt*, *chyatāt*, *ṛcchatāt*, *viçatāt*, *sṛjatāt*; and later, *spṛcatāt*. The 3d sing. act *nudātu* and *muñcātu* occur in Sūtras (cf. 740).

5. Present Participle.

The active participle is *विशन्* *viçánt*; the middle is *विशमान* *viçámāna*.

d. The feminine of the active participle is usually made from the strong stem-form: thus, *viçántī*; but sometimes from the weak: thus, *siñcántī* and *siñcatī* (RV. and AV.), *tudántī* and *tudatī* (AV.): see above, 449 d, e.

e. Middle participles in *āna* instead of *māna* are *dhuvāná*, *dhṛṣṇāná*, *liçāna*, *çyāna*, in the older language; *kṛçāna*, *muñcāna*, *spṛçāna* in the later (cf. 741 a).

6. Imperfect.

1	अविशम् áviçam	अविशाव áviçāva	अविशाम áviçāma	अविशे áviçe	अविशावहि áviçāvahi	अविशामहि áviçāmahi
	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.

f. Examples of augmentless forms accented are *sṛjás*, *sṛjāt*, *tiránta*.

g. The a-aorist (846 ff.) is in general the equivalent, as regards its forms, of an imperfect of this class.

753. Stems of the *á*-class are made from nearly a hundred and fifty roots: for about a third of these, in both the earlier and the later language; for a half, in the earlier only; for the remainder, nearly twenty, only in the later language. Among them are a number of transfers from the classes of the non-a-conjugation.

a. In some of these transfers, as *ṛṇ* and *mṛṇ* (731), there takes place almost a setting-up of independent roots.

b. The stems *icchá*, *ucchá*, and *ṛcchá* are reckoned as belonging respectively to the roots *iṣ* *desire*, *vas* *shine*, and *ṛ* *go*.

c. The roots written by the Hindu grammarians with final *o* — namely, *cho*, *do*, *ço*, and *so* — and forming the present-stems *chyá*,

dyá, çyá, syá, are more properly (as having an accented á in the stem) to be reckoned to this class than to the ya-class, where the native classification puts them (see 761 g). They appear to be analogous with the stems kṣya, sva, hva, noted below (755).

754. The roots from which á-stems are made have certain noticeable peculiarities of form. Hardly any of them have long vowels, and none have long interior vowels; very few have final vowels; and none (save two or three transfers, and √lajj *be ashamed*, which does not occur in any accentuated text, and is perhaps to be referred rather to the a-class) have a as radical vowel, except as this forms a combination with r, which is then reduced with it to ṛ or some of the usual substitutes of ṛ.

Irregularities of the á-class.

755. The roots in i and u and ū change those vowels into iy and uv before the class-sign: thus, kṣiyá, yuvá, ruvá; suvá, etc.; and sva, hva occur, instead of suva and huva, in the older language, while TS. has the participle kṣyánt. K. has dhūva from √dhū.

756. The three roots in ṛ form the present-stems kirá, girá (also gila), tirá, and are sometimes written as kir etc.; and gur, jur, tur are really only varieties of gr, jr, tr; and bhur and sphur are evidently related with other ar or ṛ root-forms.

a. The common root prach *ask* makes the stem prcchá.

757. As to the stems -driyá and -priyá, and mriyá and dhriyá, sometimes reckoned as belonging to this class, see below, 773.

758. Although the present-stem of this class shows in general a weak form of the root, there are nevertheless a number of roots belonging to it which are strengthened by a penultimate nasal. Thus, the stem muñcá is made from √muc *release*; siñcá from √sic *sprinkle*; vindá from √vid *find*; kṛntá from √kṛt *cut*; piñcá from √piç *adorn*; tṛmpá from √tṛp *enjoy*; lumpá from √lup *break*; limpá from √lip *smear*; and occasional forms of the same kind are met with from a few others, as tunda from √tud *thrust*; bṛñhá from √bṛh *strengthen*; dṛñhá (beside dñha) from √dṛh *make firm*; çumbhá (beside çumbha) from √çubh *shine*; TS. has çṛnthati from √çrath (instead of çrathnāti; uñcha, vindhá, sumbha, are of doubtful character.

a. Nasalized á-stems are also in several instances made by transfer from the nasal class: thus, unda, umbha, ṛñjá, piñśá, yuñja, rundha, çinśa.

VIII. Ya-class (fourth, div-class).

759. The present-stem of this class adds य ya to the accented but unstrengthened root. Its inflection is also pre-

cisely like that of the a-class, and may be presented in the same abbreviated form as that of the á-class.

760. Example of inflection: root नह् nah *bind*; stem नह्य náhya.

1. Present Indicative.

1. Present Indicative.						
	active.			middle.		
	s.	d.	p.	s.	d.	p.
1	नह्यामि náhyāmi	नह्यावस् náhyāvas	नह्यामस् náhyāmas	नह्ये náhye	नह्यावहे náhyāvahe	नह्यामहे náhyāmahe
	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.
2. Present Subjunctive.						
1	náhyāni		náhyāma	náhyāi	náhyāvahāi	náhyāmahāi
2	náhyāsi náhyās			náhyāsāi		náhyādhvāi
3	náhyāti náhyāt	náhyātas	náhyān	náhyātāi		náhyāntāi

a. A 3d pl. mid. in antāi (jāyantāi) occurs once in TS.

3. Present Optative.						
1	नह्येयम् náhyeyam	नह्येव náhyeva	नह्येम náhyema	नह्येय náhyeya	नह्येवहि náhyevahi	नह्येमहि náhyemahi
	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.

b. For two or three 3d sing. mid. forms in īta (for eta), see 738 b.

4. Present Imperative.						
2	नह्य náhya	नह्यतम् náhyatam	नह्यत náhyata	नह्यस्व náhyasva	नह्येथाम् náhyethām	नह्यध्वम् náhyadhvam
	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.

c. Of the ending tana, RV. has one example, nahyatana; the ending tāt is found in asyatāt, khyāyatāt, naçyatāt.

5. Present Participle.

The active participle is नह्यन् náhyant (fem. नह्यन्ती náhyantī); the middle is नह्यमान náhyamāna.

6. Imperfect.						
1	अनह्याम् ánahyam	अनह्याव ánahyava	अनह्याम ánahyāma	अनह्ये ánahye	अनह्यावहि ánahyāvahi	अनह्यामहि ánahyāmahi
	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.

d. Examples of augmentless forms showing the accent belonging to the present-system are *gáyat*, *páçyat*, *páçyan*, *jáyathās*.

761. The ya-class stems are more than a hundred and thirty in number, and nearly half of them have forms in use in all periods of the language, about forty occurring only in the earlier, and about thirty only in the modern period.

a. Of the roots making ya-stems, a very considerable part (over fifty) signify a state of feeling, or a condition of mind or body: thus, *kup be angry*, *klam be weary*, *kṣudh be hungry*, *muh be confused*, *lubh be lustful*, *çuṣ be dry*, etc. etc.

b. A further number have a more or less distinctly passive sense, and are in part evident and in part presumable transfers from the passive or yá-class, with change of accent, and sometimes also with assumption of active endings. It is not possible to draw precisely the limits of the division; but there are in the older language a number of clear cases, in which the accent wavers and changes, and the others are to be judged by analogy with them. Thus, $\sqrt{\text{muc}}$ forms *múcyate* once or twice, beside the usual *mucyáte*, in RV. and AV.; and in the Brāhmaṇas the former is the regular accent. Similar changes are found also in ya-forms from other roots: thus, from *kṣi destroy*, *jī* or *jyā injure*, *tap heat*, *dṛh make firm*, *pac cook*, *pr fill*, *mī damage*, *ric leave*, *lup break*, *hā leave*. Active forms are early made from some of these, and they grow more common later. It is worthy of special mention that, from the Veda down, *jáyate is born* etc. is found as altered passive or original ya-formation by the side of $\sqrt{\text{jan}}$ *give birth*.

c. A considerable body of roots (about forty) differ from the above in having an apparently original transitive or neuter meaning: examples are as *throw*, *nah bind*, *paç see*, *pad go*, *çliṣ clasp*.

d. A number of roots, of various meaning, and of somewhat doubtful character and relations, having present-stems ending in ya, are by the native grammarians written with final diphthongs, *āi* or *e* or *o*. Thus:

e. Roots reckoned as ending in *āi* and belonging to the a- (or bhū-) class, as *gāi sing* (*gáyati* etc.). As these show abundantly, and for the most part exclusively, *ā*-forms outside the present-system, there seems to be no good reason why they should not rather be regarded as *ā*-roots of the ya-class. They are *kṣā burn*, *gā sing*, *glā be weary*, *trā save*, *dhyā think*, *pyā fill up*, *mlā relax*, *rā bark*, *vā be blown*, *çyā coagulate*, *çrā boil*, *styā stiffen*. Some of them are evident extensions of simpler roots by the addition of *ā*. The secondary roots *tāy stretch* (beside *tan*), and *cāy observe* (beside *ci*) appear to be of similar character.

f. Roots reckoned as ending in *e* and belonging to the a- (or bhū-) class, as *dhe suck* (*dháyati* etc.). These, too, have *ā*-forms, and sometimes *ī*-forms, outside the present system, and are best regarded as *ā*-roots, either with *ā* weakened to *a* before the class-sign of this class, or with *ā*

weakened to ī or i and inflected according to the a-class. They are dhā *suck*, mā *exchange*, vā *weave*, vyā *envelop*, hvā *call* (secondary, from hū). As of kindred form may be mentioned day *share* and vyay *expend* (probably denominative of vyaya).

g. A few roots artificially written with final o and reckoned to the ya-class, with radical vowel lost before the class-sign: thus, do *cut*, bind, pres. dyāti etc. These, as having an accented á in the sign, have plainly no right to be put in this class; and they are better referred to the á-class (see above, 753 c). Outside the present-system they show ā- and i-forms; and in that system the ya is often resolved into ia in the oldest language.

762. The ya-class is the only one thus far described which shows any tendency toward a restriction to a certain variety of meaning. In this tendency, as well as in the form of its sign, it appears related with the class of distinctly defined meaning which is next to be taken up — the passive, with yá-sign. Though very far from being as widely used as the latter beside other present-systems, it is in some cases an intransitive conjugation by the side of a transitive of some other class.

Irregularities of the ya-class.

763. The roots of this class ending in am lengthen their vowel in forming the present-stem: they are klam, tam, dam, bhram, çam *be quiet*, çram: for example, támyati, çrámyati. From kṣam, however, only kṣamyate occurs; and çam *labor* makes çamyati (B.).

764. The root mad has the same lengthening: thus, mádyati.

765. The roots in īv — namely, dīv, sīv, srīv or çrīv, and ṣṭhīv (from which no forms of this class are quotable) — are written by the grammarians with iv, and a similar lengthening in the present-system is prescribed for them.

a. They appear to be properly dīū etc., since their vocalized final in other forms is always ū; dīv is by this proved to have nothing to do with the assumed root div *shine*, which changes to dyu (361 d): compare 240 b.

766. From the roots jr and tr (also written as jur and tir or tur) come the stems jírya and tírya, and júrya and túrya (the last two only in RV.); from pr comes púrya.

767. The root vyadh is abbreviated to vidh: thus, vídhyati. And any root which in other forms has a penultimate nasal loses it here: thus, d́hya from dṛñh or dṛh; bhraçya from bhrañç or bhraç; rajya from rañj or raj.

IX. Accented yá-class: Passive conjugation.

768. A certain form of present-stem, inflected with middle endings, is used only in a passive sense, and is formed from all roots for which there is occasion to make a passive conjugation. Its sign is an accented य yá added to the root: thus, हन्य hanyá from √ हन् han *slay*, आप्य āpyá from √ आप् āp *obtain*, ग्रह्य grhyá from √ ग्रह् grh (or grah) *seize*; and so on, without any reference to the class according to which the active and middle forms are made.

769. The form of the root to which the passive-sign is added is (since the accent is on the sign) the weak one: thus, a penultimate nasal is dropped, and any abbreviation which is made in the weak forms of the perfect (794), in the aorist optative (922 b), or before ta of the passive participle (954), is made also in the passive present-system: thus, ajyá from √ añj, badhyá from √ bandh, ucyá from √ vac, ijjá from √ yaj.

770. On the other hand, a final vowel of a root is in general liable to the same changes as in other parts of the verbal system where it is followed by y: thus —

a. Final i and u are lengthened: thus, mīyá from √ mi; sūyá from √ su;

b. Final ā is usually changed to ī: thus, dīyá from √ dā; hīyá from √ hā: but jñāyá from √ jñā, and so khyāyá, khāyá, mnāyá, etc.;

c. Final ṛ is in general changed to ri: thus, kriyá from √ kṛ; but if preceded by two consonants (and also, it is claimed, in the root ṛ), it has instead the guṇa-strengthening: thus, smaryá from √ smṛ (the only quotable case); — and in those roots which show a change of ṛ to ir and ur (so-called ṛ-verbs: see 242), that change is made here also, and the vowel is lengthened: thus, cīrya from √ cṛ, pūryá from √ pṛ.

771. The inflection of the passive-stem is precisely like that of the other a-stems; it differs only in accent from that of the class last given. It may be here presented, therefore, in the same abbreviated form:

a. Example of inflection: root kṛ *make*; passive-stem क्रिय kriyá:

1. Present Indicative.

	s.	d.	p.
1	क्रिये kriyé etc.	क्रियावहे kriyāvahe etc.	क्रियामहे kriyāmahe etc.

2. Present Subjunctive.

b. The forms noticed as occurring in the older language are alone here instanced:

	s.	d.	p.
1	kriyāi		kriyāmahāi
2			kriyādhvāi
3	kriyāte kriyātāi		kriyāntāi

c. The 3d pl. ending antāi is found once (ucyantāi K.).

3. Present Optative.

1	क्रियेय kriyéya etc.	क्रियेवहि kriyévaḥi etc.	क्रियेमहि kriyémaḥi etc.
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d. No forms of the passive optative chance to occur in RV. or AV.; they are found, however, in the Brāhmaṇas. ChU. has once dhmayīta.

4. Present Imperative.

2	क्रियस्व kriyāsva etc.	क्रियेथाम् kriyēthām etc.	क्रियध्वम् kriyādhvam etc.
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5. Present Participle.

e. This is made with the suffix मान māna: thus, क्रियमाण kriyāmāṇa.

f. In use, this participle is well distinguished from the other passive participle by its distinctively present meaning: thus, kṛtā *done*, but kriyāmāṇa *in process of doing*, or *being done*.

6. Imperfect.

1	अक्रिये ákriye etc.	अक्रियावहि ákriyāvaḥi etc.	अक्रियामहि ákriyāmaḥi etc.
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g. The passive-sign is never resolved into ia in the Veda.

772. The roots tan and khan usually form their passives from parallel roots in ā: thus, tāyāte, khāyāte (but also tanyate, khan-

yate); and dham, in like manner, makes either dhamyate or dhmāyāte. The corresponding form to √jan, namely jāyate (above, 761 b), is apparently a transfer to the preceding class.

773. By their form, mriyāte *dies*, and dhriyāte *maintains itself, is steadfast*, are passives from the roots mṛ *die* and dhṛ *hold*; although neither is used in a proper passive sense, and mṛ is not transitive except in the derivative form mṛṇ (above, 731). With them are to be compared the stems ā-driyā *heed* and ā-priyā *be busy*, which are perhaps peculiar adaptations of meaning of passives from the roots dṛ *pierce* and pṛ *fill*.

774. Examples of the transfer of stems from the yā- or passive class to the ya- or intransitive class were given above (761 b); and it was also pointed out that active instead of middle endings are occasionally, even in the earlier language, assumed by forms properly passive: examples are á dhmāyati and vy àpruṣyat (ÇB.), bhūyati (MāiU.). In the epics, however (as a part of their general confusion of active and middle forms: 529 a), active endings are by no means infrequently taken by the passive: thus, çakyati, çrūyanti, bhriyantu, ijjant-, etc.

The so-called Tenth or cur-Class.

775. As was noticed above (607), the Hindu grammarians — and, after their example, most European also — recognize yet another conjugation-class, coördinate with those already described; its stems show the class-sign áya, added to a generally strengthened root (for details as to the strengthening, see 1042). Though this is no proper class, but a secondary or derivative conjugation (its stems are partly of causative formation, partly denominative with altered accent), an abbreviated example of its forms may, for the sake of accordance with other grammars, be added here.

a. Example: root cint *think, meditate*; stem cintāya:

		active.	middle.
Pres.	Indic.	cintáyāmi	cintáye
	Subj.	cintáyāni	cintáyāi
	Opt.	cintáyeyam	cintáyeya
	Pple.	cintáyant	cintáyamāna
Impf.		ácintayam	ácintaye

b. The inflection, of course, is the same with that of other forms from a-stems (733 a).

c. The middle participle, in the later language, is more often made with āna instead of māna: thus, cintayāna: see 1043 f.

Uses of the Present and Imperfect.

776. The uses of the mode-forms of the present-system have been already briefly treated in the preceding chapter (572 ff.). The tense-uses of the two indicative tenses, present and imperfect, call here for only a word or two of explanation.

777. The present has, besides its strictly present use, the same subsidiary uses which belong in general to the tense: namely, the expression of habitual action, of future action, and of past action in lively narration.

a. Examples of future meaning are: *imám céd vá imé cinváte táta evá no 'bhíbhavanti* (ÇB.) *verily if these build this up, then they will straightway get the better of us*; *agnir ātmabhavam prādād yatra vāñchati nāīśadhaḥ* (MBh.) *Agni gave his own presence wherever the Nishadhan should desire*; *svāgataṁ te 'stu kiṁ karomi tava* (R.) *welcome to thee; what shall I do for thee?*

b. Examples of past meaning are: *úttarā sūr ádharah putrá āsīd dānuḥ çaye sahávatśā ná dhenúḥ* (RV.) *the mother was over, the son under; there Dānu lies, like a cow with her calf*; *prahasanti ca tām kecid abhyasūyanti cā 'pare akurvata dayāṁ kecit* (MBh.) *some ridicule her, some revile her, some pitied her*; *tato yasya vacanāt tatrā 'valambitās taṁ sarve tiraskurvanti* (H.) *thereupon they all fall to reproaching him by whose advice they had alighted there.*

778. In connection with certain particles, the present has rather more definitely the value of a past tense. Thus:

a. With *purá* formerly: thus, *saptarśín u ha sma vāi purá rkṣā ity ācakṣate* (ÇB.) *the seven sages, namely, are of old called the bears*; *tanmātram api cen mahyaṁ na dadāti purā bhavān* (MBh.) *if you have never before given me even an atom.*

b. With the asseverative particle *sma*: thus, *çrámeṇa ha sma vāi tát devá jayanti yád eṣāṁ jáyyam áśa rṣayaç ca* (ÇB.) *in truth, both gods and sages were wont to win by penance what was to be won*; *āviṣṭaḥ kalinā dyūte jīyate sma nalas tadā* (MBh.) *then Nala, being possessed by Kali, was beaten in play.*

c. No example of this last construction is found in either RV. or AV., or elsewhere in the metrical parts of the Veda. In the Brāhmaṇas, only habitual action is expressed by it. At all periods of the language, the use of *sma* with a verb as pure asseverative particle, with no effect on the tense-meaning, is very common; and the examples later are hardly to be distinguished from the present of lively narration — of which the whole construction is doubtless a form.

779. The imperfect has remained unchanged in value through the whole history of the language; it is the tense of narration; it expresses simple past time, without any other implication.

a. Compare what is said later (end of chap. X. and chap. XI.) as to the value of the older past tenses, the perfect and aorist.

CHAPTER X.

THE PERFECT-SYSTEM.

780. The perfect-system in the later language, as has been seen above (535), consists only of an indicative tense and a participle — both of them in the two voices, active and middle.

a. In the oldest language, the perfect has also its modes and its augment-preterit, or pluperfect, or is not less full in its apparatus of forms than is the present-system (see 808 ff.).

781. The formation of the perfect is essentially alike in all verbs, differences among them being of only subordinate consequence, or having the character of irregularities. The characteristics of the formation are these:

1. a stem made by reduplication of the root;
2. a distinction between stronger and weaker forms of stem, the former being used (as in presents of the First or non-a-conjugation) in the singular active, the latter in all other persons;
3. endings in some respects peculiar, unlike those of the present;
4. the frequent use, especially in the later language, of a union-vowel इ i between stem and endings.

782. Reduplication. In roots beginning with a consonant, the reduplication which forms the perfect-stem is of the same character with that which forms the present-stem of the reduplicating conjugation-class (see 643) — but with this exception, that radical अ a and आ ā and ऋ ॠ (or अर् ar) have only अ a, and never इ i, as vowel of the reduplicating syllable: thus, from √पृ pr *fill* comes the present-stem पिपृ pipṛ, but the perfect-stem पपृ papṛ; from √मा mā

measure comes the present-stem मिमा mimā, but the perfect-stem ममा mamā; and so on.

a. Irregularities of roots with initial consonants will be given below, 784.

783. For roots beginning with a vowel, the rules of reduplication are these:

a. A root with initial अ a before a single final consonant repeats the अ a, which then fuses with the radical vowel to आ ā (throughout the whole inflection): thus, आद् ād from √अद् ad *eat*; and in like manner आज् āj, आन् ān, आस् ās, आह् āh. The root ऋ ṛ forms likewise throughout आर् ār (as if from अर् ar).

b. A root with इ i or उ u before a single final consonant follows the same analogy, except in the strong forms (sing. act.); here the vowel of the radical syllable has guṇa, becoming ए e or ओ o; and before this, the reduplicating vowel maintains its independent form, and is separated from the radical syllable by its own semivowel: thus, from √इष् iṣ comes ईष् īṣ in weak forms, but इयेष् iyeṣ in strong; from √उच् uc, in like manner, come ऊच् ūc and उवोच् uvoc. The root इ i, a single vowel, also falls under this rule, and forms ईय īy (y added before a vowel) and इये iye.

c. Roots which begin with vowels long by nature or by position do not in general make a perfect-system, but use instead a periphrastic formation, in which the perfect tense of an auxiliary verb is added to the accusative of a verbal noun (see below, chap. XV.: 1070 ff.).

d. To this rule, however, √āp (probably originally ap: 1087 f) constitutes an exception, making the constant perfect-stem āp (as if from ap: above, a). Also are met with īḍé (RV.) and īḍire from √īḍ, and īriré (V.) from √īr.

e. For the peculiar reduplication ān, belonging to certain roots with initial vowels, see below, 788.

784. A number of roots beginning with va and ending with a single consonant, which in various of their verbal forms and derivatives abbreviate the va to u, do it also in the perfect, and are treated like roots with initial u (above, 783 b), except that they retain

the full form of root in the strong persons of the singular active. Thus, from √vac *speak* come ūc and uvac; from √vas *dwell* come ūṣ and uvas; and so on.

a. The roots showing this abbreviation are vac, vap, vad, vaç, vas, vah; and vā *weave* is said to follow the same rule.

b. A single root beginning with ya, namely yaj *offer*, has the same contraction, forming the stems iyaj and ij.

c. Occasional exceptions are met with: as, vavāca and vavakṣé (RV.); vavāpa and vavāha and vavāhatus (E. and later); yejé (V.).

785. A number of roots having ya after a first initial consonant take i (from the y) instead of a in the reduplicating syllable: thus, from √vyac comes vivyac; from √pyā comes pipyā.

a. These roots are vyac, vyath, vyadh, vyā, jyā, pyā, syand; and, in the Veda, also tyaj, with cyu and dyu, which have the root-vowel u. Other sporadic cases occur.

b. A single root with va is treated in the same way: namely svap, which forms suṣvap.

c. These roots are for the most part abbreviated in the weak forms: see below, 794.

786. A considerable number of roots have in the Veda a long vowel in their reduplication.

a. Thus, of roots reduplicating with ā: kan, klp, grdh, tṛp, tṛṣ, dṛh, dhṛ, dhṛṣ, nam, mah, mṛj, mṛç, ran, radh, rabh, vañc, van, vaç, vas *clothe*, vāç, vṛj, vṛt, vṛdh, vṛṣ, çad *prevail*, sah, skambh. Some of these occur only in isolated cases; many have also forms with short vowel. Most are Vedic only; but dādhāra is common also in the Brāhmaṇa language, and is even found later. As to jāgr, see 1020 a.

b. Of roots reduplicating with ī: the so-called roots (676) dīdhī and dīdī, which make the perfect from the same stem with the present: thus, dīdétha, dīdāya; dīdhima, dīdhyus (also dīdhiyus, dīdiyus). But pīpī has pipye, pipyus, etc., with short i. In AV. occurs once jīhīḍa, and in AB. (and AA.) bībhāya.

c. Of roots reduplicating with ū: tu, jū, and çū (or çvā).

787. A few roots beginning with the (derivative: 42) palatal mutes and aspiration show a reversion to the more original guttural in the radical syllable after the reduplication: thus, √ci forms ciki; √cit forms cikit; √ji forms jigi; √hi forms jighi; √han forms jaghan (and the same reversions appear in other reduplicated forms of these roots: 2161). A root dā *protect* is said by the grammarians to form digi; but neither root nor perfect is quotable.

788. A small number of roots with initial a or ṛ (ar) show the anomalous reduplication ān in the perfect.

a. Thus (the forms occurring mainly in the older language only):

√añj or aj, which forms the pres. anákti, has the perfect ānañja and ānajé etc. (with anajā and anajyāt);

√aç *attain* (from which comes once in RV. anáčāmahāi), has the weak forms ānaçma etc. (with opt. ānaçām), ānaçé etc. (and LÇS. has ānaçadhve), and the strong forms ānáníça and ānāça — along with the regular āça etc.;

√rdh (from which comes once ṛnádhat) has ānrdhús and ānrdhe;

√rc or arc has ānrcús and ānrcé, and later ānarca and ānarcus;

√arh has (in TS.) ānrhús;

anāha (RV., once) has been referred to a root ah, elsewhere unknown, and explained as of this formation; hut with altogether doubtful propriety.

b. The later grammar, then, sets up the rule that roots beginning with a and ending with more than one consonant have ān as their regular reduplication; and such perfects are taught from roots like akṣ, arj, and añc or ac; but the only other quotable forms appear to be ānarchat (MBh.) and ānarṣat (TA.); which are accordingly reckoned as "pluperfects".

789. One or two individual cases of irregularity are the following:

a. The extremely common root bhū *be* has the anomalous reduplication ba, forming the stem babhū; and, in the Veda, √sū forms in like manner sasū.

b. The root bhr̥ *bear* has in the Veda the anomalous reduplication ja (as also in intensive: 1002); but RV. has once also the regular babhre, and pple babhrāṇá.

c. The root ṣṭhīv *spew* forms either tiṣṭhīv (ÇB. et al.) or ṭiṣṭhīv (not quotable).

d. Vivakvān (RV., once) is doubtless participle of √vac, with irregular reduplication (as in the present, 660).

790. Absence of reduplication is met with in some cases. Thus:

a. The root vid *know* has, from the earliest period to the latest, a perfect without reduplication, but otherwise regularly made and inflected: thus, véda, véttha, etc., pple vidváṅs. It has the meaning of a present. The root vid *find* forms the regular vivéda.

b. A few other apparently perfect forms lacking a reduplication are found in RV.: they are takṣathus and takṣus, yamátus, skambháthus and skambhus, nindima (for ninidima?), dhiṣe and dhire (? √dhā), and vidré and arhire (? see 613). And AV. VS. have cetatus. The participial words dāçvāṅs, mīdhvāṅs, sāhvāṅs are common in the oldest language; and RV. has once jānúṣas (√jñā), and khidvas (voc.), perhaps for cikhidvas.

c. A few sporadic cases also are quotable from the later language, especially from the epics: thus, karṣatus, ceṣṭa and ceṣṭatus, bhrājatus, sarpa, çaṅsus and çaṅsire, dhvaṅsire, sraṅsire, jalpire, edhire; also the pples çaṅsivāṅs and darçivāṅs, the latter being not infrequent.

791. For an anomalous case or two of reduplicated preposition, see below, 1087f.

792. Strong and weak stem-forms. In the three persons of the singular active, the root-syllable is accented, and exhibits usually a stronger form than in the rest of the tense-inflection. The difference is effected partly by strengthening the root in the three persons referred to, partly by weakening it in the others, partly by doing both.

793. As regards the strengthening:

a. A final vowel takes either the guṇa or vṛddhi change in 1st sing. act., guṇa in 2d, and vṛddhi in 3d: thus, from √भी bhī, 1st बिभे bibhé or बिभै bibhāi; 2d बिभे bibhé; 3d बिभै bibhāi; from √कृ kr, 1st चकर् चakár or चकार cakár, 2d चकर् चakár, 3d चकार cakár.

b. But the ū of √bhū remains unchanged, and adds v before a vowel-ending: thus, babhúva etc.

c. Medial अ a before a single final consonant follows the analogy of a final vowel, and is lengthened or vriddhied in the 3d. sing., and optionally in the first: thus, from √तप् tap, 1st ततप् tatáp or तताप् tatápa, 2d ततप् tatáp, 3d तताप् tatápa.

d. In the earlier language, however, the weaker of the two forms allowed by these rules in the first person is almost exclusively in use: thus, 1st only bibháya, tatápa; 3d bibháya, tatápa. Exceptions are cakāra and jagráha (doubtful reading) in AV., cakāra in AÇS. and BAU. (ÇB. cakara), jigāya in AÇS., as first persons.

e. A medial short vowel has in all three persons alike the guṇa-strengthening (where this is possible: 240): thus, from √द्रुह druḥ comes दुद्रोह dudróh; from √विष् viṣ comes विवेष् vivéç; from √कृत् kṛt comes चकर्त् चakárt.

f. An initial short vowel before a single final consonant is to be treated like a medial, but the quotable examples are very few: namely, iyeṣa from √iṣ seek, uvocitha and uvoca from √uc, uvoṣa from √uṣ. As to roots i and ṛ, whose vowels are both initial and final, see above, 783 a, b.

g. These rules are said by the grammarians to apply to the 2d sing. always when it has simple tha as ending; if it has itha (below, 797 d),

the accent is allowed to fall on any one of the syllables of the word, and the root-syllable if unaccented has sometimes the weak form (namely, in contracted stems with e for medial a: below, 794 e; and in certain other verbs, as *vivijitha*). The earlier language, however, affords no example of a 2d sing., whatever its ending, accented on any other than the radical syllable, or failing to conform to the rules of strengthening as given above (in a, c, e).

h. Occasional instances of strengthening in other than the singular persons are met with: thus, *yuyopima* and *viveçus* (RV.), *pasparçus* (KeU.), and, in the epics, *cakartus* and *cakartire*, *cakarçatus*, *jugūhire*, *nanāmire*, *bibhedus*, *vavāhatus*, *viveçatus*, *vavarçus*. The roots *ḍṛ*, *ṇṛ*, and *çṛ*, and optionally *jṛ*, are said by the grammarians to have the strong stem in weak forms; but no examples appear to be quotable. AV., however, has once *jaharus* (probably a false reading); and in the later language occur *caskare* (*√kṛ scatter*) and *tastare*.

i. The root *mṛj* has (as in the present-system: 627) *ṽṛddhi* instead of *guṇa* in strong forms: thus, *mamārja*; and *√guh* (also as in present: 745 c) has *ū* instead of *o* (but also *juguhe* E.).

794. As regards the weakening in weak forms:

a. It has been seen above (783 b) that roots beginning with *i* or *u* fuse reduplicating and radical syllable together to *ī* or *ū* in the weak forms; and (784) that roots contracting *va* and *ya* to *u* or *i* in the reduplication do it also in the root in weak forms, the two elements here also coalescing to *ū* or *ī*.

b. A few roots having *ya* and *va* after a first initial consonant, and reduplicating from the semivowel (785), contract the *ya* and *va* to *i* and *u*: thus, *vivic* from *√vyac*, *vividh* from *√vyadh* (but *vivyadhus* MBh.), *suṣup* from *√svap*. The extended roots *jyā*, *pyā*, *vyā*, *çvā*, *hvā* show a similar apparent contraction, making their weak forms from the simpler roots *jī*, *pī*, *vī*, *çū*, *hū*, while *hvā* must and *çvā* may get their strong forms also from the same (and only *jijyāú* is quotable from the others).

c. The root *grabh* or *grah* (if it be written thus: see 729 a) contracts to *gṛh*, making the three forms of stem *jagrāh* (1st and 2d sing. act.), *jagrāh* (3d), and *jagṛh*; but *prach* (if it be so written: see 756 a) remains unchanged throughout.

d. Some roots omit in weak forms of this tense, or in some of them, a nasal which is found in its strong forms: thus, we have *cakradé* etc. (RV.) from *√krand*; *tatasré* (RV.) from *√tañs*; *dadaçvāñs* (RV.) from *√dañç*; *bedhús*, *bedhé*, etc. (AV.) from *√bandh*; *sejus* (ÇB.) from *√sañj*; *caskabhāná* (AV.) from *√skambh*; *tastabhús* etc. (V.), *tastabhāná* (V.B.), from *√stambh*. Compare also 788 a.

e. A number of roots having medial *a* between single consonants drop that vowel. These are, in the later language, *gam*, *khan*, *jan*,

han, ghas; they form the weak stems jagm, cakhn, jajñ, jaghn (compare 637), jakṣ (compare 640): but RV. has once jajanús.

f. In the old language are found in like manner mamnāthe and mamnāte from √man; vavné from √van; tatne, tatniṣe, tatnire from √tan (beside tatane, and tate, as if from √tā); paptima and paptús and paptivāṅs from √pat (beside pet-forms; below, g); papné from √pan; saṣcima and saṣcus, saṣce and saṣciré, from √sac.

g. Roots in general having medial a before a single final consonant, and beginning also with a single consonant that is repeated unchanged in the reduplication — that is, not an aspirate, a guttural mute, or h — contract their root and reduplication together into one syllable, having e as its vowel: thus, √sad forms the weak stem sed, √pac forms pec, √yam forms yem; and so on.

h. Certain roots not having the form here defined are declared by the grammarians to undergo the same contraction — most of them optionally; and examples of them are in general of very rare occurrence. They are as follows: rāj (E.C.) and rādh (radh?), notwithstanding their long vowel; phaṇ, phal (phelire C.), bhaj (occurs from RV. down), though their initial is changed in reduplication; trap, tras (tresus E.C.), çrath, syarn, svan, though they begin with more than one consonant; dambh (debhús, RV., from the weaker dabh), though it ends with more than one; and bhram (bhremus etc. KSS.), bhrāj, granth, svañj, in spite of more reasons than one to the contrary. And ÇB. has sejus from √sañj, and KB. has çremus from √çram. On the other hand, RV. has once rarabhmá, and R. has papatus, for petus, from √pat.

i. This contraction is allowed also in 2d sing. act. when the ending is itha: thus, tenitha beside tatantha (but no examples are quotable from the older language).

j. The roots çaç and dad (from dā: 672) are said to reject the contraction; but no perfect forms of either appear to have been met with in use.

k. From √tṛ (or tar) occurs terus (R.); and jerus from √jṛ is authorized by the grammarians — both against the general analogy of roots in ṛ.

l. Roots ending in ā lose their ā before all endings beginning with a vowel, including those endings that assume the union-vowel i (796) — unless in the latter case it be preferred to regard the i as a weakened form of the ā.

795. Endings, and their union with the stem. The general scheme of endings of the perfect indicative has been already given (553 c); an dit has also been pointed out (543 a) that roots ending in आ ā have औ āu in 1st and 3d sing. active.

a. The ending *mas* instead of *ma* is found in *çuçrumas* (E.C.). For the alleged occurrence of *ḍhve* instead of *dhve* in 2d pl. mid., see 226 c.

796. Those of the endings which begin with a consonant — namely *थ* *tha*, *व* *va*, *म* *ma* in active; *से* *se*, *वहे* *vahe*, *महे* *mahe*, *धे* *dhve*, *रे* *re* in middle — are very often, and in the later language usually, joined to the base with the help of an interposed union-vowel *इ* *i*.

a. The union-vowel *i* is found widely used also in other parts of the general verbal system: namely, in the sibilant aorist, the futures, and the verbal nouns and adjectives (as also in other classes of derivative stems). In the later language, a certain degree of correspondence is seen among the different parts of the same verb, as regards their use or non-use of the connective; but this correspondence is not so close that general rules respecting it can be given with advantage; and it will be best to treat each formation by itself.

b. The perfect is the tense in which the use of *i* has established itself most widely and firmly in the later language.

797. The most important rules as to the use of *इ* *i* in the later language are as follows:

a. The *रे* *re* of 3d pl. mid. has it always.

b. The other consonant-endings, except *थ* *tha* of 2d sing. act., take it in nearly all verbs.

c. But it is rejected throughout by eight verbs — namely *kr* *make*, *bhr* *bear*, *sṛ* *go*, *vṛ* *choose*, *dru* *run*, *çru* *hear*, *stu* *praise*, *sru* *flow*; and it is allowably (not usually) rejected by some others, in general accordance with their usage in other formations.

d. In 2d sing. act., it is rejected not only by the eight verbs just given, but also by many others, ending in vowels or in consonants, which in other formations have no *इ* *i*; but it is also taken by many verbs which reject it in other formations; — and it is optional in many verbs, including those in *आ* *ā* (of which the *आ* *ā* is lost when the ending is *इथ* *itha*), and most of those in *इ* *i*, *ई* *ī*, and *उ* *u*.

e. The rules of the grammarians, especially as regards the use of *tha* or *itha*, run out into infinite detail, and are not wholly consistent with one another; and, as the forms are very infrequent, it is not possible to criticise the statements made, and to tell how far they are founded on the facts of usage.

f. With this *i*, a final radical *i* or *ī* is not combined, but changed into *y* or *iy*. The *ū* of $\sqrt{\text{bhū}}$ becomes *ūv* throughout before a vowel.

798. In the older language, the usage is in part quite otherwise. Thus.

a. In the RV., the union-vowel *i* is taken by roots ending in consonants provided the last syllable of the stem is a heavy one, but not otherwise: thus, *āsitha*, *uvócitha*, *vivéditha*, but *tatántha* and *vivyáktha*; *ūcimá*, *paptima*, *sedima*, *yuyopimá*, but *jaganma*, *jagr̥bhmá*, *yuyujma*; *ūciśé*, *jajñiśé*, *sasāhiṣe*, but *vivitse* and *dadṛkṣé*; *bubhujmáhe* and *çāçadmahe* etc. (no examples of *ivahe* or *imahe* chance to occur, nor any of either *idhve* or *dhve*); *ījiré*, *jajñiré*, *yetiré*, *tataksiré*, but *cākḷpré*, *vividré*, *duduhré*, *pasṛdhré*, *tatasré* (and so on: twenty-two forms). The only exception in RV. is *véttha* from $\sqrt{\text{vid}}$, without *i* (in Br., also *āttha* from $\sqrt{\text{ah}}$: below, 801 a). The other Vedic texts present nothing inconsistent with this rule, but in the Brāhmaṇas 3d pl. forms in *ire* are made after light syllables also: thus, *sasṛjire*, *bubudhire*, *yuyujire*, *rurudhire*.

b. In roots ending with a vowel, the early usage is more nearly like the later. Thus: for roots in *ā* the rule is the same (except that no 2d sing. in *itha* is met with), as *dadhimá*, *dadhiśé*, *dadhidhvé*, *dadhiré* (the only persons with *i* quotable from RV. and AV.; and RV. has *dadhre* twice); — roots in *ṛ* appear also to follow the later rule: as *cakṛśé*, *papṛṣe*, *vavṛśé*, *vavṛmáhe*, but *dadhriṣe* and *jabhriṣe*, and in 3d pl. mid. both *cakriré* and *dadhrire*; — $\sqrt{\text{bhū}}$ has both *babhútha* (usually) and *babhúvitha*, but only *babhūvimá* (AV.). But there are found, against the later rules, *suṣuma*, *cicyuṣe*, *juhuré*, and *juhūré*, without *i*: the instances are too few to found a rule upon.

799. The ending *riré* of 3d pl. mid. is found in RV. in six forms: namely, *cikitriré*, *jagr̥bhriré*, *dadrire*, *bubhujriré*, *vividrire*, *sasṛjire*; to which SV. adds *duduhrire*, and TB. *dadṛçire*.

800. Examples of inflection. By way of illustration of the rules given above may be given in full the perfect indicative inflection of the following verbs:

a. As example of the normal inflection of a root with final consonant, we take the root बुध *budh* *know*: its strong form of perfect-stem is बुबोध् *bubódh*; weak form, बुबुध् *bubudh*.

	active.			middle.		
	s.	d.	p.	s.	d.	p.
1	बुबोध् bubódha	बुबुधिव bubudhivá	बुबुधिम -dhimá	बुबुधे bubudhé	बुबुधिवहे -dhiváhe	बुबुधिमहे -dhimáhe

2	बुबोधिथ bubódhitha	बुबुधयुस् -dháthus	बुबुध -dhá	बुबुधिषे bubudhiṣé	बुबुधाथे -dháthe	बुबुधिध्वे -dhidhvé
3	बुबोध bubódha	बुबुधतुस् -dhátus	बुबुधुस् -dhús	बुबुधे bubudhé	बुबुधाते -dháte	बुबुधिरे -dhiré

b. The asserted variety of possible accent in 2d sing. act. (above, 793 g) needs to be noted both in this and in the remaining paradigms.

c. As example of the normal inflection of a root with final i or u-vowel, we may take the root नी *nī* *lead*: its forms of stem are निनय् *nináy* or निनाय् *nináy*, and निनी *ninī*.

1	निनय, निनाय nináya, nināya	निन्यिव ninyivá	निन्यिम ninyimá	निन्ये ninyé	निन्यिवहे ninyiváhe	निन्यिमहे ninyimáhe
2	निनेथ, निनयिथ ninétha, nináyitha	निन्यथुस् ninyáthus	निन्य ninyá	निन्यिषे ninyiṣé	निन्याथे ninyáthe	निन्यिध्वे ninyidhvé
3	निनाय nināya	निन्यतुस् ninyátus	निन्युस् ninyús	निन्ये ninyé	निन्याते ninyáte	निन्यिरे ninyiré

d. The root *krī* would make (129 a) in weak forms *cikriyivá*, *cikriyátus*, *cikriyús*, etc.; and *√bhū* is inflected as follows in the active (middle forms not quotable):

1	babhūva	babhūvivá	babhūvimá
2	babhūtha, babhūvitha	babhūváthus	babhūvá
3	babhūva	babhūvátus	babhūvús

Other roots in *ū* or *u* change this to *uv* before the initial vowel of an ending.

e. As example of the inflection of a root ending in आ *ā*, we may take दा *dā* *give*: its forms of stem are ददा *dadā* and दद् *dad* (or ददि *dadi*: see above, 7941).

1	ददौ dadāú	ददिव dadivá	ददिम dadimá	ददे dadé	ददिवहे vdadiváhe	ददिमहे dadimáhe
2	ददाथ, ददिथ dadātha, dadithá	ददथुस् dadáthus	दद dadá	ददिषे dadiṣé	ददाथे dadáthe	ददिध्वे dadidhvé
3	ददौ dadāú	ददतुस् dadátus	ददुस् dadús	ददे dadé	ददाते dadáte	ददिरे dadiré

f. The RV. has once *paprā* for *paprāú* (and *jahā* for *jahāú*?).

g. As example of a root with medial अ a showing fusion of root and reduplication, resulting in medial ए e, in the weak forms (794 g), we may take तन्, tan *stretch*: its forms of stem are ततन् tatán or ततान् tatán, and तेन् ten.

1	ततन्, ततान tatána, tatána	तेनिव tenivá	तेनिम tenimá	तेने tené	तेनिवहे teniváhe	तेनिमहे tenimáhe
2	ततन्थ, तेनिथ tatántha, tenithá	तेनथुस् tenáthus	तेन tená	तेनिषे tenişé	तेनाथे tenáthe	तेनिध्वे tenidhvé
3	ततान tatána	तेनतुस् tenátus	तेनुस् tenús	तेने tené	तेनाते tenáte	तेनिरे teniré

h. The root jan, with the others which expel medial a in weak forms (794 e), makes jajántha or jajñithá, jajñivá, jajñús; jajñé, jajñimáhe, jajñiré; and so on.

i. As example of a root with initial व va contracted to उ u in the reduplication, and contracted with the reduplication to ऊ ū in weak forms (784), we may take वच् vac *speak*: its forms of stem are उवच् uvác or उवाच् uvác, and ऊच् ūc.

1	उवच्, उवाच् uváca, uváca	ऊचिव ūcivá	ऊचिम ūcimá	ऊचे ūcé	ऊचिवहे ūciváhe	ऊचिमहे ūcimáhe
2	उवक्थ, उवचिथे uváktha, uvácitha	ऊचथुस् ūcáthus	ऊच ūcá	ऊचिषे ūcişé	ऊचाथे ūcáthe	ऊचिध्वे ūcidhvé
3	उवाच् uváca	ऊचतुस् ūcátus	ऊचुस् ūcús	ऊचे ūcé	ऊचाते ūcáte	ऊचिरे ūciré

j. In like manner, √yaj forms iyája or iyāja, iyáṣtha or iyájitha; ijé, ijişé, and so on; √uc has uvóca and uvócitha in the strong forms, and all the rest like vac.

k. Of the four roots in च् ण mentioned at 797 c, the inflection is as follows:

1	चकार, चकार cakára, cakára	चक्रव cakṛvá	चक्रम cakṛmá	चक्रे cakré	चक्रवहे cakṛváhe	चक्रमहे cakṛmáhe
2	चकर्थ cakártha	चक्रथुस् cakráthus	चक्र cakrá	चक्रषे cakṛşé	चक्राथे cakráthe	चक्रध्वे cakṛdhvé
3	चकार cakára	चक्रतुस् cakrátus	चक्रुस् cakrús	चक्रे cakré	चक्राते cakráte	चक्रिरे cakriré

1. Of the roots in ऋ ṛ in general, the first persons are made as follows:

1	दधर, दधार dadhára, dadhára	दध्रिव dadhrivá	दध्रिम dadhrimá	दध्रे dadhre	दध्रिवहे dadhriváhe	दध्रिमहे dadhrimáhe
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m. We may further add here, finally, the active inflection (the middle is not in use) of the perfect of *be*, which (like *babhúva* and *cakára*, given above) is frequently employed as an auxiliary.

1	āsa	āsivá	āsimá
2	āsitha	āsáthus	āsá
3	āsa	āsátus	āsús

801. A few miscellaneous irregularities call still for notice:

a. The root *ah speak* occurs only in the perfect indicative, and only in the 3d persons of all numbers and in the 2d sing. and du., in active (and in 2d sing. the *h* is irregularly changed to *t* before the ending): thus, āttha, áha; āhathus, āhatus; āhús (in V., only áha and āhús are met with).

b. From √vā *weave*, the 3d pl. act. ūvus occurs in RV., and no other perfect form appears to have been met with in use. It is allowed by the grammarians to be inflected regularly as vā; and also as vay (the present-stem is váya: 761 f), with contraction of *va* to *u* in weak forms; and further, in the weak forms, as simple *u*.

c. The root *vyā envelop* has in RV. the perfect-forms *vivyathus* and *vivyé*, and no others have been met with in use; the grammarians require the strong forms to be made from *vyay*, and the weak from *vī*.

d. The root *i go* forms in RV. and AV. the 2d sing. act. *iyátha* beside the regular *iyétha*; and beside *īriré* from √īr, RV. has several times *eriré*.

e. RV. has an anomalous accent in *dádṛṣe* and *dádṛṣre* (beside *dadr̥ṣé*) and the pple *dádṛṣāna*. And *cíketa* (once, beside *cikéta*) is perhaps a kindred anomaly.

f. Persons of the perfect from the *ir*-forms of roots in changeable ṛ (242) are *titirus* and *tistire* (both RV.); and they have corresponding participles.

g. The bastard root ūṛṇu (713) is said by the grammarians to make the perfect-stem ūṛṇunu; the roots *majj* and *naç* are said to insert a nasal in the 2d sing. active, when the ending is simple *tha*: thus, *mamañktha*, *nanañṣṭha* (also *mamajjitha* and *neçitha*).

h. Further may be noted *sasajjatus* (MBh.: √sañj, which has in passive the secondary form *sajj*), *rurundhatus* (R.), and *dudūhus* (BhP).

i. The anomalous *ajagrabhāiṣam* (AH. vi. 35) seems a formation on the perfect-stem (but perhaps for *ajigrabhiṣan*, desid.?).

Perfect Participle.

802. The ending of the active participle is वास् $\sqrt{v}$ váñs (that is to say, in the strong forms: it is contracted to उष् úṣ in the weakest, and replaced by वत् vát in the middle forms: see above, 458 ff.). It is added to the weak form of the perfect stem — as shown, for example, in the dual and plural of the active inflection of the given verb; and, mechanically, the weakest participle-stem is identical with the 3d pl. active. Thus, बुबुध्वास् bubudhvāñs, निनीवास् ninīvāñs, चकृवास् cakṛvāñs.

803. If the weak form of the perfect stem is monosyllabic, the ending takes the union-vowel इ i (which, however, disappears in the weakest cases): thus, तेनिवास् tenivāñs, ऊदिवास् ūcivāñs, जज्ञिवास् jajñivāñs, आदिवास् ādivāñs (from $\sqrt{आद्}$ ād: 783 a), and so on; ददिवास् dadivāñs and its like, from roots in आ ā, are to be reckoned in the one class or the other according as we view the इ i as weakened root-vowel or as union-vowel (7941).

a. But participles of which the perfect-stem is monosyllabic by absence of the reduplication do not take the union-vowel: thus, vidvāñs, and in V., dāçvāñs (SV. dāçivāñs), mīḍhvāñs, sāhvāñs, khidvāñs (?); and RV. has also dadvāñs (AV. dadivāñs and once dadāvāñs) from $\sqrt{dā}$ (or dad: 672); and án-āçvāñs ($\sqrt{aç}$ eat) occurs in TS. and TB. But AV. has viçivāñs and varjivāñs (in negative fem. ávarjuṣī).

804. Other Vedic irregularities calling for notice are few. The long vowel of the reduplication (786) appears in the participle as in the indicative: thus, vāvṛdhvāñs, sāsahvāñs, jūjuvāñs. RV. and AV. have sasavāñs from $\sqrt{san}$ or sã. RV. makes the participial forms of $\sqrt{tr}$ or tar from different modifications of the root: thus, titirvāñs, but tatarūṣas. Respecting the occasional exchanges of strong and weak stem in inflection, see above, 462 c.

805. a. From roots gam and ban the Veda makes the strong stems jaganvāñs (as to the n, see 212 a) and jaghanvāñs; the later language allows either these or the more regular jagmivāñs and jaghnivāñs (the weakest stem-forms being everywhere jagmúṣ and jaghnúṣ). RV. has also tatanvāña.

b. From three roots, *vid find*, *viç*, and *dṛç*, the later language allows strong participle-stems to be made with the union-vowel, as well as in the regular manner without it: thus, *viviçivāṅs* or *viviçvāṅs*; *dadṛçivāṅs* occurs in KṭhU. PB. has once *cicchidivāṅs*.

806. The ending of the middle participle is *ānā*. It is added to the weak form of perfect-stem, as this appears in the middle inflection: thus, *बुबुधान* *bubudhānā*, *निन्यान* *ninyānā*, *ददान* *dadānā*, *तेनान* *tenānā*, *जज्ञान* *jajñānā*, *उचान* *ūcānā*.

a. In the Veda, the long reduplicating vowel is shown by many middle participles: thus, *vāvṛdhānā*, *vāvasānā*, *dādṛhānā*, *tūtujānā*, etc. RV. has *çaçayānā* from *√çī* (with irregular *guṇa*, as in the present-system: 629); *tistirāṇā* from *√str*; and once, with *māna*, *saṣṛmāṇā* from *√sṛ*. A few participles with long redupl. vowel have it irregularly accented (as if rather intensive: 1013): thus, *tútujāna* (also *tūtujānā*), *bābadhāna*, *çāçadāna*, *çúçujāna*, *çúçuvāna*.

807. In the later language, the perfect participles have nearly gone out of use; even the active appears but rarely, and is made from very few verbs, and of the middle hardly any examples are quotable, save such as the proper name *yuyudhāna*, the adjective *anūcāna* *learned in scripture*, etc.

Modes of the Perfect.

808. Modes of the perfect belong only to the Vedic language, and even are seldom found outside of the Rig-Veda.

a. To draw the line surely and distinctly between these and the mode-forms from other reduplicated tense-stems — the present-stem of the reduplicating class, the reduplicated aorist, and the intensive — is not possible, since no criterion of form exists which does not in some cases fail, and since the general equivalence of modal forms from all stems (582), and the common use of the perfect as a present in the Veda (823), deprive us of a criterion of meaning. There can be no reasonable doubt, however, that a considerable body of forms are to be reckoned here; optatives like *ānaçyām* and *babhūyās* and *babhūyāt*, imperatives like *babhūtu*, subjunctives like *jabhārat*, show such distinctive characteristics of the perfect formation that by their analogy other similar words are confidently classed as belonging to the perfect.

809. The normal method of making such forms would appear to be as follows: from a reduplicated perfect-stem, as (for example) *mumuc*, an imperative would be made by simply appending, as usual, the imperative endings; the derived subjunctive mode-stem would be *mumóca* (accented after the analogy of the strong forms

of the perfect indicative), and would take either primary or secondary endings; and the optative mode-stems would be *mumucyā́* in the active, and *mumucī* (accent on personal endings) in the middle.

And the great majority of the forms in question (about three quarters) are made in these ways. Thus:

810. Examples of the regular subjunctive formation are:

a. with secondary endings, active: 2d sing., *papráthas*, *cākánas*, *māmáhas*, *pipráyas*, *bubodhas*, *rārāṇas*; 3d sing., *cākánat*, *jabhárat*, *rārāṇat*, *sāsáhat*, *paspárçat*, *pipráyat*; 1st pl., *cākánāma*, *tatánāma*, *çūçávāma*; 3d pl., *tatánan*, *papráthan* (other persons do not occur). This is the largest class of cases.

b. with primary endings, active: here seem to belong only *dadhárṣati* and *vavártati*: compare the formation with different accent below, 811 a.

c. of middle forms occur only the 3d sing., *tatá pate*, *çaçá mate*, *yuyó jate*, *jujó ṣate* (SV.; RV. has *jujó ṣate*); and the 3d pl. *cākánanta*, *tatánanta* (and perhaps two or three others: below, 811 b, end).

811. But not a few subjunctives of other formation occur; thus:

a. With strengthened root-syllable, as above, but with accent on the reduplication (as in the majority of present-forms of the reduplicating class: above, 645). Here the forms with primary endings, active, preponderate, and are not very rare: for example, *jujó ṣasi*, *jujó ṣati*, *jujó ṣathas*, *jujó ṣatha* (other persons do not occur). With secondary endings, *jujó ṣas*, *jujó ṣat*, and *jujó ṣan* are the forms that belong most distinctly here (since *dádāṣas* and *súṣūdas* etc. are perhaps rather aorists). And there is no middle form but *jujó ṣate* (RV.: see above, 810 c).

b. With unstrengthened root-syllable occur a small body of forms, which are apparently also accented on the reduplication (accented examples are found only in 3d pl. mid.): thus, active, for example, *mumucas*; *vavṛtat*, *vividat*, *çūçuvat*; the only middle forms are *dadhṛṣate*, *vāvṛdhate*, 3d sing.; and *cákramanta*, *dádhrṣanta*, *rúrucanta* (with *dadabhanta*, *paprathanta*, *māmahanta*, *juhuranta*, which might also belong elsewhere: 810 c).

c. Accented on the ending are *vāvṛdhánta* and *cakṛpánta* (which are rather to be called augmentless pluperfects).

d. As to forms with double mode-sign, or transfers to an a-conjugation, see below, 815.

812. Examples of the regular optative formation are:

a. In active: 1st sing., *ānaçyām*, *jagamyām*, *papṛcyām*, *riricyām*; 2d sing., *vavṛtyās*, *viviçyās*, *çuçrūyās*, *babhūyās*; 3d sing., *jagamyāt*, *vavṛtyāt*, *tutu jyāt*, *babhūyāt*; 2d du., *jagmyātam*, *çuçrūyātam*; 1st pl., *sāsa hyāma*, *vavṛtyāma*, *çūçuyāma*; 3d pl., *tatanyus*, *vavṛjyús*, *vavṛtyus*. The forms are quite numerous.

b. In middle, the forms are few: namely, 1st sing., *vavṛtīya*; 2d sing., *vāvṛdhīthās*, *cakṣamīthās*; 3d sing., *jagrasīta*, *vavṛtīta*, *māmṛjīta*, *dudhuvīta*, *çuçucīta*; 1st pl., *vavṛtīmahi*. And *sāsaḥīṣṭhās* and *ririṣīṣṭa* appear to furnish examples of precative optative forms.

c. There is no irregular mode of formation of perfect optatives. Individual irregularities are shown by certain forms: thus, *cakriyās*, *papīyāt*, *çuçrūyās* and *çuçrūyātām*, with treatment of the final as before the passive-sign *yá* (770); *anajyāt* with short initial; *çiçrītá* from *√çri*; *jakṣīyāt* is anomalous: *ririṣes* is the only form that shows a union-vowel *a* (unless also *siṣet*, from *√sā*).

813. Of regular imperative forms, only a very small number are to be quoted: namely, active, *cākandhi*, *rārandhī*, *cikiddhi*, *titigdhi*, *mumugdhī*, *çuçugdhī*, and *piprīhī*; *cākantu*, *rārantu*, *mumoktu*, and *babhūtu*; *mumuktam* and *vavṛktam*; *jujuṣṭana* and *vavṛttana* (unless we are to add *mamaddhī*, *mamattu*, *mamáttana*); — middle, *vavṛtsva* and *vavṛddhvam*. AV. has once *dadṛçrām*.

814. As irregular imperatives may be reckoned several which show a union-vowel *a*, or have been transferred to an *a*-conjugation. Such are, in the active, *mumócatam* and *jujoṣatam* (2d du.), and *mumócata* (2d pl.); in the middle, *pipráyasva* (only one found with accent), and *māmahasva*, *vāvṛdhasva*, *vāvṛṣasva* (2d sing.), and *māmahantām* (3d pl.: probably to be accented *-ásva* and *-ántām*).

815. Such imperatives as these, taken in connection with some of the subjunctives given above (and a few of the "pluperfect" forms: below, 820), suggest as plausible the assumption of a double present-stem, with reduplication and added *a* (with which the desiderative stems would be comparable: below, 1026 ff.): for example, *jujoṣa* from *√juṣ*, from which would come *jújoṣasi* etc. and *jújoṣate* (811 a) as indicative, *jújoṣas* etc. as subjunctively used augmentless imperfect, and *jujoṣatam* as imperative. Most of the forms given above as subjunctives with primary ending lack a marked and constant subjunctive character, and would pass fairly well as indicatives. And it appears tolerably certain that from one root at least, *vṛdh*, such a double stem is to be recognized; from *vāvṛdha* come readily *vāvṛdhate*, *vāvṛdhánta*, and from it alone can come regularly *vāvṛdhasva*, *vāvṛdhéte* and *vāvṛdhāti* (once, RV.) — and, yet more, the participle *vavṛdhánt* (RV.; AV. *vāvṛdhánt*: an isolated case): yet even here we have also *vāvṛdhīthās*, not *vāvṛdhéthās*. To assume double present-stems, however, in all the cases would be highly implausible; it is better to recognize the formation as one begun, but not carried out.

a. Only one other subjunctive with double mode-sign — namely, *papṛcāsi* — is found to set beside *vāvṛdhāti*.

816. Forms of different model are not very seldom made from the same root: for example, from *√muc*, the subjunctives *mumócas*, *múmo-*

cati, and mumucas; from $\sqrt{\text{dhṛṣ}}$, dadhárṣati and dadhṛṣate; from $\sqrt{\text{prī}}$, the imperatives piprīhí and pipráyasva.

Pluperfect.

817. Of an augment-preterit from the perfect-stem, to which the name of pluperfect is given on the ground of its formation (though not of its meaning), the Veda presents a few examples; and one or two forms of the later language (mentioned above, 788 b) have also been referred to it.

a. There is much of the same difficulty in distinguishing the pluperfect as the perfect modes from kindred reduplicated formations. Between it and the aorist, however, a difference of meaning helps to make a separation.

818. The normal pluperfect should show a strong stem in the singular active, and a weak one elsewhere — thus, mumoc and mumuc — with augment prefixed and secondary endings added (us in 3d pl. act., ata in 3d pl. mid.).

a. Of forms made according to this model, we have, in the active: 1st sing., ajagrabham and acacakṣam (which, by its form, might be aorist: 860); 2d sing. ájagan; 3d sing., ajagan and aciket; 2d du., amumuktam; 2d pl. ájaganta, and ájagantana and ajabhartana (a strong form, as often in this person: 556 a); 3d pl. (perhaps), amamandus and amamadus. To these may be added the augmentless cākán and rārán, cikétam and cakaram. In the middle, the 3d pl. acakriran and ajagmíran (with iran instead of ata), and the augmentless 2d sing. jugúrthās and suṣupthās, are the most regular forms to be found.

819. Several forms from roots ending in consonants save the endings in 2d and 3d sing. act. by inserting an ī (555 b): thus, ábubhojís, aviveçís; arirecīt, ájagrabhīt (avāvarīt and avāvaçītām are rather intensives); and the augmentless jīhiṁsís (accent?) and dadharṣīt belong with them.

820. A few forms show a stem ending in a: they are, in the active: 3d sing., asasvajat, acikitat, acakrat; in the middle: 3d sing., ápiprata; 2d du., ápasprdhethām; 3d pl., atitviṣanta (which by its form might be aorist), ádadṛhanta; and cakradat, cakrpánta, vāṛdhánta, juhuranta, would perhaps be best classified here as augmentless forms (compare 811, above).

Uses of the Perfect.

821. Perfects are quotable as made from more than half the roots of the language, and they abound in use at every period and in almost all branches of the literature, though not always with the same value.

a. According to the Hindu grammarians, the perfect is used in the

narration of facts not witnessed by the narrator; but there is no evidence of its being either exclusively or distinctively so employed at any period.

b. In the later language, it is simply a preterit or past tense, equivalent with the imperfect, and freely interchangeable or coördinated with it. It is on the whole less common than the imperfect, although the preferences of different authors are diverse, and it sometimes exceeds the imperfect in frequency (compare (927).

c. The perfects *veda* and *āha* are everywhere used with present value. In the *Brāhmaṇas*, also others, especially *dādhāra*, also *dīdāya*, *bibhāya*, etc.

822. In the *Brāhmaṇas*, the distinction of tense-value between perfect and imperfect is almost altogether lost, as in the later language. But in most of the texts the imperfect is the ordinary tense of narration, the perfect being only exceptionally used. Thus in PB., the imperfects are to the perfects as more than a hundred to one; in the *Brāhmaṇa* parts of TS. and TB., as over thirty-four to one; and in those of MS. in about the same proportion; in AB., as more than four to one, the perfect appearing mostly in certain passages, where it takes the place of imperfect. It is only in ÇB. that the perfect is much more commonly used, and even, to a considerable extent, in coördination with the imperfect. Throughout the *Brāhmaṇas*, however, the perfect participles have in general the true "perfect" value, indicating a completed or proximate past.

823. In the *Veda*, the case is very different. The perfect is used as past tense in narration, but only rarely; sometimes also it has a true "perfect" sense, or signifies a completed or proximate past (like the aorist of the older language: 928); but oftenest it has a value hardly or not at all distinguishable in point of time from the present. It is thus the equivalent of imperfect, aorist, and present; and it occurs coördinated with them all.

a. Examples are: of perfect with present, *ná çrāmyanti ná ví muñcanti éte váyo ná paptuḥ* (RV.) *they weary not nor stop, they fly like birds*; *sé 'd u rája kṣayati carṣaṇīnām arān ná nemíḥ pári tá babhūva* (RV.) *he in truth rules king of men; he embraces them all, as the wheel the spokes*; — of perfect with aorist, *úpo ruruce yuvatír ná yóṣā...ābhūd agníḥ samídhe mānuṣāṇām ákar jyótir bádhamānā támāṇsi* (RV.) *she is come beaming like a young maiden; Agni hath appeared for the kindling of mortals; she hath made light, driving away the darkness*; — of perfect with imperfect, *áhann áhim ánv apás tatarda* (RV.) *he slew the dragon, he penetrated to the waters*. Such a coordination as this last is of constant occurrence in the later language: e. g. *mumude 'pūjayac cāi 'nām* (R.) *he was glad, and paid honor to her*; *vastrānte jagrāha skandhadeṣe 'srjat tasya srajam* (MBh.) *she took hold of the end of his garment, and dropped a garland on his shoulders*.

CHAPTER XI.

THE AORIST SYSTEMS.

824. Under the name of aorist are included (as was pointed out above, 532) three quite distinct formations, each of which has its sub-varieties: namely —

I. A simple aorist (equivalent to the Greek "second aorist"), analogous in all respects as to form and inflection with the imperfect. It has two varieties: 1. the root-aorist, with a tense-stem identical with the root (corresponding to an imperfect of the root-class); 2. the a-aorist, with a tense-stem ending in अ á, or with union-vowel अ a before the endings (corresponding to an imperfect of the á-class).

II. 3. A reduplicating aorist, perhaps in origin identical with an imperfect of the reduplicating class, but having come to be separated from it by marked peculiarities of form. It usually has a union-vowel अ a before the endings, or is inflected like an imperfect of one of the a-classes; but a few forms occur in the Veda without such vowel.

III. A sigmatic or sibilant aorist (corresponding to the Greek "first aorist"), having for its tense-sign a स s added to the root, either directly or with a preceding auxiliary इ i; its endings are usually added immediately to the tense-sign, but in a small number of roots with a union-vowel अ a; a very few roots also are increased by स s for its formation; and according to these differences it falls into four varieties: namely, A. without union-vowel अ a before endings; 4. s-aorist, with स s alone added to the root; 5. iṣ-aorist, the same with interposed इ i; 6. siṣ-aorist, the same as the preceding with स s added at the end of the root; B. with union-vowel अ a, 7. sa-aorist.

825. All these varieties are bound together and made into a single complex system by certain correspondences of form and meaning. Thus, in regard to form, they are all alike, in the indicative, augment-preterits to which there does not exist any corresponding present; in regard to meaning, although in the later or classical language they are simply preterits, exchangeable with imperfects and perfects, they all alike have in the older language the general value of a completed past or "perfect", translatable by *have done* and the like.

826. The aorist-system is a formation of infrequent occurrence in much of the classical Sanskrit (its forms are found, for example, only twenty-one times in the Nala, eight in the Hitopadeṣa, seven in Manu, six each in the Bhagavad-Gītā and Çakuntalā, and sixty-six times, from fourteen roots, in the first book, of about 2600 lines, of the Rāmāyaṇa: compare 927 b), and it possesses no participle, nor any modes (excepting in the prohibitive use of its augmentless forms: see 579; and the so-called precative: see 921 ff.); in the older language, on the other hand, it is quite common, and has the whole variety of modes belonging to the present, and sometimes participles. Its description, accordingly, must be given mainly as that of a part of the older language, with due notice of its restriction in later use.

827. a. In the RV., nearly half the roots occurring show aorist forms, of one or another class; in the AV., rather less than one third; and in the other texts of the older language comparatively few aorists occur which are not found in these two.

b. More than fifty roots, in RV. and AV. together, make aorist forms of more than one class (not taking into account the reduplicated or "causative" aorist); but no law appears to underlie this variety; of any relation such as is taught by the grammarians, between active of one class and middle of another as correlative, there is no trace discoverable.

c. Examples are: of classes 1 and 4, adhām and dhāsus from √dhā, ayuji and ayukṣata from √yuj; — of 1 and 5, agrabham and agrabhīṣma from √grabh, mṛṣṭhās and marṣiṣṭhās from √mṛṣ; — of 1 and 2, āṛta and arāt from √ṛ; — of 2 and 4, avidam and avitsi from √vid *find*, anijam and anāikṣīt from √nij; — of 2 and 5, sanéma and asāniṣam from √san; of 2 and 7, aruham and arukṣat from √ruh; — of 4 and 5, amatsus and amādiṣus from √mad; — of 4 and 6, hāsmahi and hāsiṣus from √hā; — of 1 and 2 and 4, atnata and atanat and atān from √tan; — of 1 and 4 and 5, abudhran and ābhutsi and bódhiṣat from √budh, ástar and stṛṣīya and

astarīs from √str. Often the second, or second and third, class is represented by only an isolated form or two.

I. Simple Aorist.

828. This is, of the three principal divisions of aorist, the one least removed from the analogy of forms already explained; it is like an imperfect, of the root-class or of the á-class, without a corresponding present indicative, but with (more or less fragmentarily) all the other parts which go to make up a complete present-system.

1. Root-aorist.

829. a. This formation is in the later language limited to a few roots in आ ā and the root भू bhū, and is allowed to be made in the active only, the middle using instead the s-aorist (4), or the iṣ-aorist (5).

b. The roots in आ ā take उस् us as 3d pl. ending, and, as usual, lose their आ ā before it; भू bhū (as in the perfect: 793 a) retains its vowel unchanged throughout, inserting व् v after it before the endings अम् am and अन् an of 1st sing. and 3d pl. Thus:

	s.	d.	p.	s.	d.	p.
1	अदाम् ádām	अदाव ádāva	अदाम ádāma	अभूवम् ábhūvam	अभूव ábhūva	अभूम् ábhūma
2	अदास् ádās	अदातम् ádātām	अदात ádāta	अभूस् ábhūs	अभूतम् ábhūtām	अभूत ábhūta
3	अदात् ádāt	अदाताम् ádātām	अदुस् ádus	अभूत् ábhūt	अभूताम् ábhūtām	अभूवन् ábhūvan

For the classical Sanskrit, this is the whole story.

830. In the Veda, these same roots are decidedly the most frequent and conspicuous representatives of the formation: especially the roots gā, dā, dhā, pā *drink*, sthā, bhū; while sporadic forms are made from jñā, prā, sā, hā. As to their middle forms, see below, 834 a.

a. Instead of abhūvam, RV. has twice abhuvam. BhP. has agan, 3d pl., instead of agus.

831. But aorists of the same class are also made from a number of roots in र्, and a few in i- and u-vowels (short or long) —

with, as required by the analogy of the tense with an imperfect of the root-class, guṇa-strengthening in the three persons of the singular.

a. Thus (in the active), from √cru, ácravam and ácrot; from √cri, ácres and ácret; from √kṛ *make*, ákaram and ákar (for akars and akart); from vṛ *enclose*, ávar (585 a); and so ástar, aspar. Dual and plural forms are much less frequent than singular; but for the most part they also show an irregular strengthening of the root-vowel: thus (including augmentless forms), ákarma and karma and ákarta, vartam, spartam, áhema and áhetana, bhema, aṇṇavan; regular are only avran, ákran, ahyān, and ácṛiyan.

832. Further, from a few roots with medial (or initial) vowel capable of guṇa-strengthening and having in general that strengthening only in the singular.

a. Thus, ábhedam and abhet from √bhid; ámok from √muc; yojam from √yuj; rok (VS.) from √ruj; arodham and arudhma from √rudh; avart from √vṛt; vārk from √vṛj (AV. has once avṛk); adarṇam from √dṛṇ, árdhma from √rdh; and adṛṇan, avṛjan, aṇṇitan. But chedma, with guṇa, from √chid, and adarṇma (TS.) from √dṛṇ.

833. Again, from a larger number of roots with a as radical vowel:

a. Of these, gam (with n for m when final or followed by m: 143 a, 212 a) is of decidedly most frequent occurrence, and shows the greatest variety of forms: thus, ágamam, ágan (2d and 3d sing.), áganma, aganta (strong form), ágman. The other cases are akran from √kram; átan from √tan; abhrāt from √bhrāj; askan from √skand; asrat from √srañs (? VS.); dhak and daghma from √dagh; ánaṭ (585 a) and anaṣṭām from √naṣ; ághas or aghat, ághastām, aghasta, and ákṣan (for aghsan, like agman) from √ghas; and the 3d pl. in us, ákramus, ayamus, dabhús, nṛtus (pf.), mandús.

834. So far only active forms have been considered. In the middle, a considerable part of the forms are such as are held by the grammarians (881) to belong to the s-aorist, with omission of the s: they doubtless belong, however, mostly or altogether, here. Thus:

a. From roots ending in vowels, we have adhithās, adhita (also ahita), and adhīmahi; adithās, adita, and adimahi (and adīmahi from √dā *cut*); áṇita (?); sīmáhi; ásthithās and ásthita and ásthiran, forms of ā-roots; — of ṛ-roots, akri, ákrthās, ákrta, akrātām, ákrata (and the anomalous kránta); avri, avṛthās, avṛta; ārta, ārata; mṛthās, amṛta; dhṛthās; adṛthās; astṛta; ahṛthās; gūrta; — of i and u roots, the only examples are ahvi (? AV., once), áhūmahi, and ácidhvam. The absence of any analogies whatever for the omission of a s in such forms, and the occurrence of avri and akri and ákrata, show that their reference to the s-aorist is probably without sufficient reason.

b. As regards roots ending in consonants, the case is more questionable, since loss of s after a final consonant before thās and ta (and, of

course, dhvam) would be in many cases required by euphonic rule (233 c ff.). We find, however, such unmistakable middle inflection of the root-aorist as ayuji, áyukthās, áyukta, ayujmahi, áyugdhvam, áyujran; áṣṭa and áṣata; náñci; apadi (1st sing.) and apadmahi and apadran; ámanmahi; gánvahi and áganmahi and ágmata; atnata; ájani (1st sing.) and ajñata (3d pl.); from √gam are made agathās and agata, from √tan, atathās and átata, and from √man, amata, with treatment of the final like that of han in present inflection (637). The ending ran is especially frequent in 3d pl., being taken by a number of verbs which have no other middle person of this aorist: thus, agr̥bhran, ásr̥gran, ad̥ṛṇran, abudhran, áv̥ṛtran, ajuṣran, ak̥ṛpran, as̥ṛḍhran, avasran, áviṇran; and ram is found beside ran in ád̥ṛṇram, ábudhram, ásr̥gram.

c. From roots of which the final would combine with s to kṣ, it seems more probable that aorist-forms showing k (instead of ṣ) before the ending belong to the root-aorist: such are amukthās (and ámugdhvam), ap̥kthās and ap̥kta, ábhakta, av̥kta, asakthās and asakta, rikthās, vikthās and vikta, arukta; apraṣṭa, ayaṣṭa, áspaṣṭa, asr̥ṣṭhās and ásr̥ṣṭa, and m̥r̥ṣṭhās would be the same in either case.

d. There remain, as cases of more doubtful belonging, and probably to be ranked in part with the one formation and in part with the other, according to their period and to the occurrence of other persons: chitthās, nutthās and ánutta and ánuddhvam, patthās, bhitthās, amatta, atapthās, alipta, as̥ṛpta; and finally, árabdha, alabdha, aruddha, abuddha, ayuddha, and drogdhās (MBh.: read drugdhās): see 883.

Modes of the Root-aorist.

835. Subjunctive. In subjunctive use, forms identical with the augmentless indicative of this aorist are much more frequent than the more proper subjunctives. Those to which no corresponding form with augment occurs have been given above; the others it is unnecessary to report in detail.

836. a. Of true subjunctives the forms with primary endings are quite few. In the active, kárāṇi, gāni, gamāni (for bhuvāni, see below, c); kárasī; sthāti, dāti and dhāti (which are almost indicative in value), karati, joṣati, padāti, bhédati, rādhati, varjati; sthāthas, karathas and karatas, darṇathas, ṇravathas and ṇrávatas; and (apparently) karanti, gámanti. In the middle, joṣase; idhaté (?), kárate, bhójate, yojate, várjate; dhéthe and dhāithe; karāmahe, dhāmahe, gāmāmahāi.

b. Forms with secondary endings are, in the active, dárṇam, bhojam, yojam; káras, tárdas, párcas, yámas, rādhās, váras; karat, gámat, garat, jóṣat, daghat, padāt, yamat, yodhat, rādhāt, várat, vártat, ṇrávat, sághat, spárat; kárāma, gamāma, rādhāma; gáman,

garan, dárçan, yaman. No middle forms are classifiable with confidence here.

c. The series bhuvam, bhúvas, bhúvat, bhúvan, and bhuvāni (compare abhuvam: 830 a), and the isolated çrúvat, are of doubtful belongings; with a different accent, they would seem to be of the next class; here, a guṇa-strengthening would be more regular (but note the absence of guṇa in the aorist indicative and the perfect of √ bhū).

837. Optative. The optative active of this aorist constitutes, with a s interposed between mode-sign and personal endings (567), the precative active of the Hindu grammarians, and is allowed by them to be made from every verb, they recognizing no connection between it and the aorist. But in the 2d sing. the interposed s is not distinguishable from the personal ending; and, after the earliest period (see 838), the ending crowds out the sibilant in the 3d sing., which thus comes to end in yāt instead of yās (compare 555 a).

a. In the older language, however, pure optative forms, without the s, are made from this tense. From roots in ā occur (with change of ā to e before the y: 250 d) deyām, dheyām and dheyus, and stheyāma; in u-vowels, bhūyāma; in ṛ, kriyāma; in consonants, aṣyām and aṣyāma and aṣyus, vṛjyām, çakyām, yujyāva and yujyātām, sāhyāma, and tṛdyus.

b. The optative middle of the root-aorist is not recognized by the Hindu grammarians as making a part of the precative formation. The RV. has, however, two precative forms of it, namely padīṣṭā and mucīṣṭa. Much more common in the older language are pure optative forms: namely, aṣīya and aṣīmāhi (this optative is especially common), indhīya, gmīya, murīya, ruciya; arīta, uhīta, vurīta; idhīmahi, naṣīmahi, nasīmahi, pṛcīmahi, mudīmahi, yamīmahi; and probably, from ā-roots, sīmāhi and dhīmahi (which might also be augmentless indicative, since adhīmahi and adhītām also occur). All these forms except the three in 3d sing. might be precative according to the general understanding of that mode, as being of persons which even by the native authorities are not claimed ever to exhibit the inserted sibilant.

838. Precative active forms of this aorist are made from the earliest period of the language. In RV., they do not occur from any root which has not also other aorist forms of the same class to show. The RV. forms are: 1st sing., bhūyāsam; 2d sing., avyās, jñeyās, bhūyās, mṛdhyās, sahyās; 3d sing. (in -yās, for -yāst; RV. has no 3d sing, in yāt, which is later the universal ending), avyās, aṣyās, ṛdhyās, gamyās, daghyās, peyās, bhūyās, yamyās, yūyās, vṛjyās, çrūyās, sahyās; 1st pl., kriyāma (beside kriyāma: 837 a). AV. has six 1st persons sing, in -yāsam, one 2d in -yās, one 3d in -yāt (and one in -yās, in a RV. passage), three 1st pl. in -yāsma (beside one in yāma, in a RV. passage), and the 2d bhūyāstha (doubtless a false reading: TB. has -sta in the corresponding passage). From this time on, the pure optative forms nearly

disappear (the exceptions are given in 837 a). But the precative forms are nowhere common, excepting as made from $\sqrt{\text{bhū}}$; and from no other root is anything like a complete series of persons quotable (only bhūyāsva and bhūyāstām being wanting; and these two persons have no representative from any root). All together, active optative or precative forms are made in the older language from over fifty roots; and the epic and classical texts add them from hardly a dozen more: see further 925.

839. Imperative. Imperative forms of the root-aorist are not rare in the early language. In the middle, indeed, almost only the 2d sing. occurs: it is accented either regularly, on the ending, as kṛṣvā , dhiṣvā , yukṣvā , or on the root, as mātsva , yākṣva , vāṅsva , rāsva , sákṣva ; dīṣva and māsva are not found with accent; the 2d pl. is represented by kṛdhvam , voḍhvam . In the active, all the persons (2d and 3d) are found in use; examples are: 2d sing., kṛdhí , vṛdhi , ṣagdhí , ṣrudhí , gadhi , yaṁdhí , gahi , māhi , sāhi , mogdhi ; 3d sing., gaṁtu , dātu , aṣtu , ṣrótu , sótu ; 2d du., dātam , jitam , ṣaktam , ṣrutám , bhūtám , spṛtám , gatám , riktám , voḍham , sitam , sutám ; 3d du., only gaṁtām , dātām , voḍhām ; 2d pl., gātá , bhūtá , ṣruta , kṛta , gata , dāta , dhātana ; 3d pl., only dhāntu , ṣruvantu . These are the most regular forms; but irregularities as to both accent and strengthening are not infrequent. Thus, strong forms in 2d du. and pl. are yaṁtám , varktám , vartám ; kárta , gámta (once gámtá), yaṁta , vartta , heta , ṣróta , sóta ; and, with tana , kártana , gámtana , yaṁtana , sotana , and the irregular dhetana ($\sqrt{\text{dhā}}$); in 3d du., gāmtām . Much more irregular are yódhi (instead of yuddhí) from $\sqrt{\text{yudh}}$, and bodhí from both $\sqrt{\text{budh}}$ and $\sqrt{\text{bhū}}$ (instead of buddhí and bhūdihí). A single form (3d sing.) in tāt is found, namely ṣastāt . We find kṛdhi also later (MBh. BhP.).

a. As to 2d persons singular in si from the simple root used in an imperative sense, see above, 624.

Participles of the Root-aorist.

840. In the oldest language, of the RV., are found a number of participles which must be reckoned as belonging to this formation.

a. In the active, they are extremely few: namely, kránt , citánt (?), gmánt , sthánt , bhidánt , vṛdhánt , dyutant- (only in composition), and probably ṛdhánt . And BhP. has mṛṣant (but probably by error, for mṛṣyant).

b. In the middle, they are in RV. much more numerous. The accent is usually on the final of the stem: thus, arāṇá , idhāṇá , krāṇá , juṣāṇá , tṛṣāṇá , nidāṇá , piṣāṇá , pṛcāṇá , prathāṇá , budhāṇá , bhiyāṇá , manāṇá , mandāṇá , yujāṇá , rucāṇá , vipāṇá , vrāṇá , urāṇá , ṣubhāṇá , sacāṇá , suvāṇá or svāṇá , sṛjāṇá , spṛdhāṇá , hiyāṇá ; — but sometimes on the root-syllable: thus, cītāna , cyāvāna , rúhāṇa , úhāṇa (pres.?), vásāna , ṣumbhāṇa ; — while a few show both accentuations

(compare 619 d): thus, dṛṣāná and dṛṣāna, dyutāná and dyútāna, yatāná and yátāna; and cetāna and hrayāṇa occur only in composition. A very few of these are found once or twice in other texts, namely citāna, dyutāna, ruhāṇa, vasāna, suvāna; and -kupāna occurs once in Āpast. (xiv. 28. 4).

841. All together, the roots exhibiting in the older language forms which are with fair probability to be reckoned to the root-aorist-system are about a hundred and thirty; over eighty of them make such forms in the RV.

Passive Aorist third person singular.

842. A middle third person singular, of peculiar formation and prevaillingly passive meaning, is made from many verbs in the older language, and has become a regular part of the passive conjugation, being, according to the grammarians, to be substituted always for the proper third person of any aorist middle that is used in a passive sense.

843. This person is formed by adding इ i to the root, which takes also the augment, and is usually strengthened.

a. The ending i belongs elsewhere only to the first person; and this third person apparently stands in the same relation to a first in i as do, in the middle voice, the regular 3d sing. perfect, and also the frequent Vedic 3d sing. present of the root-class (613), which are identical in form with their respective first persons. That a fuller ending has been lost off is extremely improbable; and hence, as an aorist formation from the simple root, this is most properly treated here, in connection with the ordinary root-aorist.

844. Before the ending इ i, a final vowel, and usually also a medial अ a before a single consonant, have the vṛddhi-strengthening; other medial vowels have the guṇa-strengthening if capable of it (240); after final आ ā is added य y.

a. Examples (all of them quotable from the older language) are: from roots ending in ā, ájñāyi, ádhāyi, ápāyi; in other vowels, áçrāyi, ástāvi, áhāvi, ákāri, ástāri; — from roots with medial i, u, ṛ, aceti, ácchedi, açeṣi, ábodhi, ámoci, áyoji, ádarçi, asarji, varhi; from roots with medial a strengthened, agāmi, ápādi, ayāmi, avāci, vāpi, ásādi (these are all the earlier cases); with a unchanged, only ájani (and RV. has once jáni), and, in heavy syllables, ámyakṣi, vandi, çañsi, syandi; with medial ā, ábhrāji, árādhī; — from roots with initial vowel, ārdhi (only case).

b. According to the grammarians, certain roots in am, and √vadh, retain the a unchanged: quotable are ajani (or ajāni), agami (or agāmi),

asvani, avadhi, also araci; and there are noted besides, from roots sometimes showing a nasal, adañçi, arambhi, arandhi, ajambhi, abhañji or abhāji, alambhi (always, with prepositions) or alābhi, astambhi; ÇB. has asañji.

c. Augmentless forms, as in all other like cases, are met with, with either indicative or subjunctive value: examples (besides the two or three already given) are: dhāyi, çrāvi, bhāri, reci, védi, roci, jáni, pádi, sádi, ardhi. The accent, when present, is always on the root-syllable (SV. dhāyí is doubtless a false reading).

845. These forms are made in RV. from forty roots, and all the other earlier texts combined add only about twenty to the number; from the later language are quotable thirty or forty more; in the epics they are nearly unknown. When they come from roots of neuter meaning, as gam, pad, sad, bhrāj, rādh, ruc, sañj, they have (like the so-called passive participle in ta: 952) a value equivalent to that of other middle forms; in a case or two (RV. vii. 73. 3 [?]; VS. xxviii. 15; TB. ii. 6. 102) they appear even to be used transitively.

2. The a-aorist.

846. a. This aorist is in the later language allowed to be made from a large number of roots (near a hundred). It is made in both voices, but is rare in the middle, most of the roots forming their middle according to the s-class (878 ff.) or the iṣ-class (898 ff.).

b. Its closest analogy is with the imperfect of the á-class (751 ff.); its inflection is the same with that in all particulars; and it takes in general a weak form of root — save the roots in ञ् ण् (three or four only), which have the guṇa-strengthening.

c. As example of inflection may be taken the root सिच् sic *pour*. Thus:

	active.			middle.		
	s.	d.	p.	s.	d.	p.
1	असिचम् ásicam	असिचाव ásicāva	असिचाम ásicāma	असिचे ásice	असिचावहि ásicāvahi	असिचामहि ásicāmahi
2	असिचस् ásicas	असिचतम् ásicatam	असिचत ásicata	असिचथाम् ásicathās	असिचेथाम् ásicethām	असिचध्वम् asicadhvam
3	असिचत् ásicat	असिचताम् ásicatām	असिचन् ásican	असिचत ásicata	असिचेताम् ásicetām	असिचन्त ásicanta

847. The a-aorist makes in the RV. a small figure beside the root-aorist, being represented by less than half the latter's number of roots. It becomes, however, more common later (it is the only form of aorist which is made from more verbs in AV. than in RV.); and in Veda and Brāhmaṇa together about eighty roots exhibit the formation more or less fully. Of these a large number (fully half) are of the type of the roots which make their present-system according to the á-class, having a vowel capable of guṇa-strengthening before a final consonant (754): thus, with i, chid, bhid, nij, ric, riṣ, lip, vid, 1 çīṣ (çās), 2 çīṣ, çriṣ, çliṣ, sic, sridh; — with u, krudh, kṣudh, guh, duṣ, dyut, druh, puṣ, budh, bhuj, muc, mruc, yuj, ruc, rud, rudh, muh, ruh, çuc; — with ṛ, ṛdh, kṛt, gr̥dh, gr̥h, tr̥p, tr̥ṣ, tr̥h, dr̥p, dr̥ç, dhṛṣ, nṛt, mṛdh, mṛṣ, vṛt, vṛdh, vṛṣ, sṛp, hṛṣ. A small number end in vowels: thus, ṛ, kṛ, sṛ (which have the guṇa-strengthening throughout), hi (? ahyat once in AV.), and several in ā, apparent transfers from the root-class by the weakening of their ā to a: thus, khyā, hvā, vyā, çvā, and dā and dhā; and āsthat, regarded by the grammarians as aorist to √as *throw*, is doubtless a like formation from √sthā. A few have a penultimate nasal in the present and elsewhere, which in this aorist is lost: thus, bhrañç, tañs, dhvañs, srañs, krand, randh. Of less classifiable character are aç, kram, gam, ghas, tam, çam, çram, tan, san, sad, āp, das, yas, çak, dagh. The roots pat, naç, vac form the tense-stems papta, neça, voca, of which the first is palpably and the other two are probably the result of reduplication; but the language has lost the sense of their being such, and makes other reduplicated aorists from the same roots (see below, 854).

a. Many of these aorists are simply transfers of the root-aorist to an a-inflection. Conspicuous examples are akarāt etc. and agamat etc. (in the earliest period only akar and agan).

848. The inflection of this aorist is in general so regular that it will be sufficient to give only examples of its Vedic forms. We may take as model avidam, from √vid *find*, of which the various persons and modes are more frequent and in fuller variety than those of any other verb. Only the forms actually quotable are instanced; those of which the examples found are from other verbs than vid are bracketed. Thus:

	active.			middle.		
	s.	d.	p.	s.	d.	p.
1	ávidam	ávidāva	ávidāma	ávide	[ávidāvahi]	ávidāmahi
2	ávidas		[ávidata]	[ávidathās]		
3	ávidat		ávidan	[avidata]	[avidetām]	ávidanta

a. The middle forms are rare in the earlier language, as in the later: we have áhve etc., ákhye etc., ávide (?) and avidanta, avocathās and avocāvahi (and avidāmahe GB. and asicāmahe KB. are doubtless to be amended to -mahi).

b. Augmentless forms, with indicative or subjunctive value, are not infrequent. Examples, showing accent on the tense-sign, according to the general analogies of the formation, are: ruhám, sṛpas, bhuját, vidát, aratām, vocata, çakan; vidata and vyáta (3d sing.), arāmahī, çīṣāmahī, vidānta, budhānta, mṛṣanta (for exceptions as regards accent, see below, 853).

Modes of the a-aorist.

840. The subjunctive forms of this aorist are few; those which occur are instanced below, in the method which was followed for the indicative:

1		[vidāva]	vidāma		[vidāmahe]
2	vidāsi vidās	vidāthas	vidātha		
3	vidāt			[vidātāi?]	

a. The ending thana is found once, in riṣāthana. Of middle forms occur only çīṣātāi (AV.: but doubtless misreading for çīṣyātāi) and çīṣāmahe (AV., for RV. çīṣāmahī). The form sādathas seems an indicative, made from a secondary present-stem.

850. The optatives are few in the oldest language, but become more frequent, and in the Brāhmaṇas are not rare. Examples are: in active, bhideyam, vidéyam, sanéyam (TB. once sanem); vidés, games; gamet, vocet; gametam; gaméma, çakéma, sanéma; vareta; in middle, (only) videya; gamemahi, vanemahi: ruhethās etc. in the epics must be viewed rather as present forms of the á-class.

a. A single middle precative form occurs, namely videṣṭa (AV., once); it is so isolated that how much may be inferred from it is very questionable.

851. A complete series of active imperative forms are made from √ sad (including sadatana, 2d pl.), and the middle sadantām. Other imperatives are very rare: namely, sána, sára, ruha, vidá; ruhátam, vidátam; khyáta. TS. has once vṛdhātu (compare 740).

Participles of the a-aorist.

852. a. The active participles tṛpánt, ríṣant or ríṣant, vṛdhánt, çīṣánt, çucánt, sádant, and (in participial compounds, 1309) kṛtant-, guhant-, vidant- (all RV.), are to be assigned with plausibility to this aorist.

b. Likewise the middle participles guhāmāna, dhṛṣāmāna, dásamāna (?), nṛtāmāna, çucāmāna, and perhaps vṛdhāná, sridhāná.

Irregularities of the a-aorist.

853. A few irregularities and peculiarities may be noticed here. The roots in ṛ, which (847) show a strengthening like that of the

present of the unaccented a-class, have likewise the accent upon the radical syllable, like that class: thus, from √ṛ, árantā (augmentless 3d pl.), sárat and sára. The root sad follows the same rule: thus, sádatam; and from √san are found sánas and sánat and sánema and sána, beside sanéyam and sanéma. It is questionable whether these are not true analogues of the bhū-class (unaccented a-class) present-system. On the other hand, rúhat (beside ruhám, ruháva, ruhátam), çíṣat and çíṣātāi (?), and ríṣant or rísant are more isolated cases. In view of such as these, the forms from the stem bhúva and çrúva (836 c) are perhaps to be referred hither. From √vac, the optative is accented vocéyam, vocés, vocéma, vocéyus; elsewhere the accent is on the root-syllable: thus, vóce, vócat, vócati, vócantā.

854. a. The stem voc has in Vedic use well-nigh assumed the value of a root; its forms are very various and of frequent use, in RV. especially far outnumbering in occurrences all other forms from √vac. Besides those already given, we find vocā (1st sing, impv.) and vocāti, vocāvahāi; voces, voceya, vocemahi; vocatāt (2d sing.), vocatu, vocatam, vocata.

b. Of the stem neça from √naç only neçat occurs.

c. The root çās (as in some of its present forms: 639) is weakened to çīṣ, and makes açīṣam.

855. Isolated forms which have more or less completely the aspect of indicative presents are made in the oldest language from some roots beside the aorist-systems of the first two classes. It must be left for maturer research to determine how far they may be relics of original presents, and how far recent productions, made in the way of conversion of the aorist-stem to a root in value.

a. Such forms are the following: from √kṛ *make*, kárṣi, kṛthas, kṛtha, kṛṣe; from √gam, gathá; from √ci *gather*, ceti; from √dā *give*, dāti, dāta; from √dhā *put*, dhāti; from √pā *drink*, pāthás, pānti; from √bhr̥, bharti; from √muc, mucánti; from √rudh, rudhmas (?); from √vṛt, vartti.

II. (3) Reduplicated Aorist.

856. The reduplicated aorist is different from the other forms of aorist in that it has come to be attached in almost all cases to the derivative (causative etc.) conjugation in अय áya, as the aorist of that conjugation, and is therefore liable to be made from all roots which have such a conjugation, beside the aorist or aorists which belong to their primary conjugation. Since, however, the connection of

the two is not a formal one (the aorist being made directly from the root, and not from the causative stem), but rather a matter of established association, owing to kinship of meaning, the formation and inflection of this kind of aorist is best treated here, along with the others.

857. Its characteristic is a reduplication of the radical syllable, by which it is assimilated, on the one hand, to the imperfect of the reduplicating class (656 ff.), and, on the other hand, to the so-called pluperfect (817 ff.). But the aorist reduplication has taken on a quite peculiar character, with few traces left even in the Veda of a different condition which may have preceded this.

858. a. As regards, indeed, the consonant of the reduplication, it follows the general rules already given (590). And the quality of the reduplicated vowel is in general as in the formations already treated: it needs only to be noted that an a-vowel and ʀ (or ar) are usually (for exceptions, see below, 860) repeated by an i-vowel — as they are, to a considerable extent, in the reduplicated present also (660).

b. But in regard to quantity, this aorist aims always at establishing a diversity between the reduplicating and radical syllables, making the one heavy and the other light. And the preference is very markedly for a heavy reduplication and a light root-syllable — which relation is brought about wherever the conditions allow. Thus:

859. If the root is a light syllable (having a short vowel followed by a single consonant), the reduplication is made heavy.

a. And this, usually by lengthening the reduplicating vowel, with ī for radical a or ʀ or !. (in the single root containing that vowel): thus, arīriṣam, adūduṣam, ajījanam, avīvṛdham, acīkīpam. The great majority of reduplicated aorists are of this form.

b. If, however, the root begins with two consonants, so that the reduplicating syllable will be heavy whatever the quantity of its vowel-

el, the vowel remains short: thus, acikṣipam, acukrudham, atitrasam, apispr̥cam.

860. If the root is a heavy syllable (having a long vowel, or a short before two consonants), the vowel of the reduplication is short: and in this case अ a or आ ā, and ऋ ṛ (if it occurs), are reduplicated by अ a.

a. Thus, adidīkṣam, abubhūṣam (not quotable), adadakṣam, adadhāvam, atataṁsam. And, in the cases in which a root should both begin and end with two consonants, both syllables would be necessarily heavy, notwithstanding the short vowel in the former: thus, apapraccham, acaskandam (but no such forms are found in use).

b. A medial ṛ is allowed by the grammarians to retain the strengthening of the causative stem, together with, of course, reduplication by a: thus, acakarṣat, avavartat (beside acīkṣat, avīṛtat); but no such forms have been met with in use.

c. These aorists are not distinguishable in form from the so-called pluperfects (817 ff.).

861. a. In order, however, to bring about the favored relation of heavy reduplication and light radical syllable, a heavy root is sometimes made light: either by shortening its vowel, as in arīradham from √rādh, avīvaçam from √vāç, asiṣadham from √sādh, ajījivam from √jīv, adīdipam (K. and later: BV. has didīpas) from √dīp, abībhiṣam from √bhīṣ, asūsucam from √sūc; or by dropping a penultimate nasal, as in acikradam from √krand, asiṣyadam from √syand.

b. In those cases in which (1047) an aorist is formed directly from a causal stem in āp, the ā is abbreviated to i: thus, atiṣṭhipam etc., ajijñipat (but KSS. ajijñapat), jīhipas, ajījipata (but VS. ajījapata); but from çrap comes açiçrapāma (ÇB.).

862. Examples of this aorist from roots with initial vowel are very rare; the older language has only āmamat (or amamat) from √am, āpipan (ÇB.: BAU. āpipipat) from √āp, and arpipam (augmentless) from the causative stem arp of √ṛ — in which latter the root is excessively abbreviated. The grammarians give other similar formations, as ārcicam from √arc, āubjjiam from √ubj, ārjīham from √arh, ācikṣam from √īkṣ, ārdidham from √ṛdh. Compare the similar reduplication in desiderative stems: 1029 b.

863. Of special irregularities may be mentioned:

a. From √dyut is made (V.B.) the stem didyuta, taking its reduplicating vowel from the radical semivowel. From √gup, instead of jūgupa (B.S.), JB. has jugūpa, and some texts (B.S.) have jugupa; and jīhvara (B.) is met with beside the regular jihvara (V.B.). In caccha-

da (Nir.), and the more or less doubtful *paprātha* and *çaçvacá* and *sasvaja* (RV.) we have a instead of i in the reduplication.

b. In support of their false view of this aorist as made from the causative stem instead of directly from the root, the native grammarians teach that roots ending in an u-vowel may reduplicate with i, as representing the ā of the strengthened stem: thus, *bībhava* from *bhāv-aya*, as well as *būbhuva* from *bhū*. No example of such a formation, however, is met with except *ápiplavam* (ÇB., once); against it we find *dudruva*, *būbhuva*, *rūruva*, *çuçruva*, and others.

c. As to *apaptam*, *avocam*, and *aneçam*, see above, 847.

864. The inflection of the reduplicated aorist is like that of an imperfect of the second general conjugation: that is to say, it has अ a as final stem-vowel, with all the peculiarities which the presence of that vowel conditions (738 a). Thus, from √jan *give birth* (stem *jījana*):

	active.			middle.		
	s.	d.	p.	s.	d.	p.
1	अजीजनम् ájījanam	अजीजनाव ájījanāva	अजीजनाम ájījanāma	अजीजने ájījane	अजीजनावहि ájījanāvahi	अजीजनामहि ájījanāmahi
2	अजीजनस् ájījanas	अजीजनतम् ájījanatam	अजीजनत ájījanata	अजीजनथाम् ájījanathās	अजीजनेथाम् ájījanethām	अजीजनध्वम् ájījanadhvam
3	अजीजनत् ájījanat	अजीजनताम् ájījanatām	अजीजनन् ájījanan	अजीजनत ájījanata	अजीजनेताम् ájījanetām	अजीजनन्त ájījananta

865. The middle forms are rare in the older language (the 3d pl. is decidedly the most common of them, being made from eleven roots; the 3d s. from seven); but all, both active and middle, are quotable except 1st and 2d du. middle and 1st du. active.

a. *Atītape* appears to be once used (RV.) as 3d sing., with passive sense.

866. A final ṛ has the guṇa-strengthening before the endings: thus, *acīkarat*, *apīparam*, *atītaras*, *dīdaras*, *adīdharat*, *amīmarat*, *avīvaran*, *jihvaras*. Of similar strengthened forms from ī and u-roots are found *apiprayan* (TS.), *abībhayanta* (RV.), *apiplavam* (ÇB.), *acucyavat* (K.), *açuçravat* (MS.), *atuṣṭavam* (RV.). Not many roots ending in other vowels than ṛ make this aorist: see below, 868.

867. Forms of the inflection without union-vowel are occasionally met with: namely, from roots ending in consonants, *sīṣvap* (2d sing., augmentless) from √svap, and *açiçnat* from √çnath; from roots in ṛ or ar, *dīdhar* (2d sing.), and *ajīgar* (2d and 3d sing.); for roots in i- and u-vowels, see 868. Of 3d pl. in us are found almost only a form

or two from i- and u-roots, with guṇa before the ending: thus, açiçrayus, ácuçyavus, açuçravus, asuṣavus; but also abībhajus (ÇB.), and nīnaçus (MBh.).

868. In the later language, a few roots are said by the grammarians to make this aorist as a part of their primary conjugation: they are çri and çvi, dru and aru, kam, and dhā *suck* (çvi and dhā optionally).

a. In the older language are found from √çri açiçret and açiçrayus (noticed in the preceding paragraph) and açiçriyat (ÇB.); from √dru, adudrot and adudruvat (TB.: not used as aorist); from √sru, asusrot and (augmentless) susros and susrot; from √kam, acīkametām and -manta (B.S.). Of forms analogous with these occur a number from roots in u or ū: thus, anūnot and nūnot from √nu; yūyot from √yu *separate*; dūdhot from √dhū; apupot from √pū; tūtos and tūtót from √tu; asuṣot from √sū; — and one or two from roots in i or ī: thus, siṣet from √si (or sā) *bind*; amīmet from √mā *bellow*; apipres (with apiprayan, noticed above) from √prī (and the "imperfects" from dīdhī etc., 676, are of corresponding form). And from √cyu are made, with union-vowel ī, acucyavīt and acucyavītana. Few of these forms possess a necessarily causative or a decidedly aoristic value, and it is very doubtful whether they should not be assigned to the perfect-system.

b. From the later language are quotable only açiçriyat etc. (3d pl., -yan or -yus) and adudruvat.

Modes of the Reduplicated Aorist.

869. a. As in other preterit formations, the augmentless indicative persons of this aorist are used subjunctively, and they are very much more frequent than true subjunctives.

b. Of the latter are found only rīradhā (1st sing.); tītapāsi; cīkīpāti and sīṣadhāti, and piṣṛçati (as if corresponding to an indicative apisṛk, like açiçnat); and perhaps the 1st sing. mid. çaçvacāi.

c. The augmentless indicative forms are accented in general on the reduplication: thus, dīdharas, nīnaças; jījanat, pīparat; jījanan; also sīṣvap; but, on the other hand, we have also pīpárat, çīçráthas and çīçnáthat, and dudrávat and tuṣṭávat (which may perhaps belong to the perfect: compare 810). According to the native grammarians, the accent rests either on the radical syllable or on the one that follows it.

870. Optative forms are even rarer. The least questionable case is the middle "precativ" rīriṣīṣṭa (ririṣīṣṭa has been ranked above with sāsahīṣṭa, as a perfect: 812 b). Cucyuvīmahi and cucyavīrata belong either here or to the perfect-system.

871. Of imperatives, we have the indubitable forms pūpurantu and çīçrathantu. And jigṛtām and jigṛtá, and didhṛtam and didhṛtá,

and jajastám (all RV. only), and perhaps suṣūdáta (AV.), are to be referred hither, as corresponding to the indicatives (without union-vowel) ajīgar and adīdhar: their short reduplicating vowel and their accent assimilate them closely to the reduplicated imperfects (656 ff.) with which we are probably to regard this aorist as ultimately related.

872. No participle is found belonging to the reduplicated aorist.

873. The number of roots from which this aorist is met with in the earlier language is about a hundred and twenty. In the later Sanskrit it is unusual; in the series of later texts mentioned above (826) it occurs only twice; and it has been found quotable from hardly fifty roots in the whole epic and classical literature.

III. Sigmatic or Sibilant Aorist.

874. a. The common tense-sign of all the varieties of this aorist is a स् s (convertible to ष ṣ: 180) which is added to the root in forming the tense-stem.

b. This sibilant has no analogues among the class-signs of the present-system; but it is to be compared with that which appears (and likewise with or without the same union-vowel i) in the stems of the future tense-system (932 ff.) and of the desiderative conjugation (1027 ff.).

c. To the root thus increased the augment is prefixed and the secondary endings are added.

875. In the case of a few roots, the sibilant tense-stem (always ending in क् kṣ) is further increased by an अ a, and the inflection is nearly like that of an imperfect of the second or a-conjugation.

876. a. In the vast majority of cases, the sibilant is the final of the tense-stem, and the inflection is like that of an imperfect of the first or non-a-conjugation.

b. And these, again, fall into two nearly equal and strongly marked classes, according as the sibilant is added immediately to the final of the root, or with an auxiliary vowel इ i, making the tense-sign इष् iṣ. Finally, before this इष् iṣ the root is in a very small number of cases increased by a स s, making the whole addition सिष् siṣ.

877. We have, then, the following classification for the varieties of sibilant-aorist:

A. With endings added directly to the sibilant:

4. with स s simply after the root: s-aorist;

5. with इ i before the स s: iṣ-aorist;

6. the same, with स s at end of root: siṣ-aorist.

B. With अ a added to the sibilant before the endings:

7. with sibilant and अ a: sa-aorist.

a. As regards the distinction between the fourth and fifth forms, it may be said in a general way that those roots incline to take the auxiliary i in the aorist which take it also in other formations; but it is impossible to lay down any strict rules as to this accordance. Compare 903.

4. The s-aorist.

878. The tense-stem of this aorist is made by adding स s to the augmented root, of which also the vowel is usually strengthened.

879. The general rules as to the strengthening of the root-vowel are these:

a. A final vowel (including ऋ ṛ) has the vṛddhi-change in the active, and (excepting ऋ ṛ) guṇa in the middle: thus, from √नी *lead*, active stem अनेष् anēṣ, middle stem अनेष् aneṣ; from √श्रु *hear*, अश्रौष् aśrāuṣ and अश्रोष् aśroṣ; from √कृ *make*, अकार्ष akārṣ and अकृष् akṛṣ.

b. A medial vowel has the vṛddhi-change in the active, and remains unaltered in the middle: thus, from √छन्द *seem*, active stem अच्छान्त acchānts, middle stem अच्छन्त acchants; from √रिच् *leave*, अरिच् arīkṣ and अरिच् ariṣ; from √रुध् *obstruct*, अरौत् arāuts and अरुत् aruts; from √सृज् *pour out*, अस्राच् asrākṣ and असृच् asṛṣ.

880. a. The endings are the usual secondary ones, with उस् us (not अन् an) in 3d pl. act., and अत ata (not अन् anta) in 3d pl. mid.

b. But before स् s and त् t of 2d and 3d sing. act. is in the later language always inserted an ई ī, making the endings ईस् īs and ईत् īt.

c. This insertion is unknown in the earliest language (of the BV.): see below, 888.

881. a. Before endings beginning with t or th, the tense-sign s is (233 c–e) omitted after the final consonant of a root — unless this be r, or n or m (converted to anusvāra).

b. The same omission is of course made before dhvam after a consonant; and after a vowel the sibilant is either omitted or assimilated (the equivalence of dhv and ddhv in the theories of the grammarians and the practice of the manuscripts makes it impossible to say which: 232); and then the ending becomes ḍhvam, provided the sibilant, if retained, would have been ṣ (226 c): thus, astoḍhvam and avṛḍhvam (beside astoṣata and avṛṣata); dṛḍhvam (√dṛ *regard*: ÇB., once), which is to dṛthās (2d sing.) as avṛḍhvain and avṛṣata to avri and avṛthās; and kṛḍhvam (M.).

c. According to the grammarians, the omission of s before t and th takes place also after a short vowel (the case can occur only in the 2d and 3d sing. mid.); but we have seen above (834 a) that this is to be viewed rather as a substitution in those persons of the forms of the root-aorist. Neither in the earlier nor in the later language, however, does any example occur of an aorist-form with s retained after a short vowel before these endings.

d. After the final sonant aspirate of a root, the sibilant before the same endings is said by the Hindu grammarians to disappear altogether, the combination of the aspirate with the th or t of the ending being then made according to the ordinary rule for such cases (160): thus, from the stem arāuts, for arāudh-s, is made arāuddha, as if from arāudh+ta directly. No example of such a form is quotable from the literature; but the combination is established by the occurrence of other similar cases (233 f). In the middle, in like manner, aruts+ta becomes aruddha, as if from arudh+ta; but all such forms admit also of being understood as of the root-aorist. Those that have been found to occur were given above (834 d); probably they belong at least in part to this aorist.

e. From the three nasal roots gam, tan, man are made the 2d and 3d sing. mid. persons agathās and agata, atathās and atata, and amata (amathās not quotable), reckoned by the native grammarians as s-aorist forms, made, after loss of their final root-nasal, with loss also of the sibilant after a short vowel. They are doubtless better referred to the root-aorist. But JB. has a corresponding 1st sing. atasi from √tan.

882. As examples of the inflection of this variety of

sibilant aorist we may take the roots नी *nī lead*, and चिद् *chid cut off*. Thus:

active.				middle.		
	s.	d.	p.	s.	d.	p.
1	अनैषम् ánāiṣam	अनैष्व ánāiṣva	अनैष्म ánāiṣma	अनेषि áneṣi	अनेष्वहि áneṣvahi	अनेष्महि áneṣmahi
2	अनैषीस् ánāiṣis	अनैष्टम् ánāiṣṭam	अनैष्ट ánāiṣṭa	अनेष्टास् áneṣṭhās	अनेषाथाम् áneṣāthām	अनेध्वम् áneḍhvam
3	अनैषीत् ánāiṣīt	अनैष्टाम् ánāiṣṭām	अनैषुस् ánāiṣus	अनेष्ट áneṣṭa	अनेषाताम् áneṣātām	अनेषत áneṣata
active.						
	s.	d.	p.			
1	अचक्षेत्सम् ácchāitsam	अचक्षेत्स्व ácchāitsva	अचक्षेत्स्म ácchāitsma			
2	अचक्षेत्सीस् ácchāitsis	अचक्षेत्तम् ácchāittam	अचक्षेत्त ácchāitta			
3	अचक्षेत्सीत् ácchāitsīt	अचक्षेत्ताम् ácchāittām	अचक्षेत्सुस् ácchāitsus			
				middle.		
	s.	d.	p.			
1	अचक्षित्सि ácchitsi	अचक्षित्स्वहि ácchitsvahi	अचक्षित्समहि ácchitsmahi			
2	अचक्षित्यास् ácchitthās	अचक्षित्साथाम् ácchitsāthām	अचक्षिद्धम् ácchiddhvam			
3	अचक्षित्त ácchitta	अचक्षित्साताम् ácchitsātām	अचक्षित्सत ácchitsata			

a. From √rudh *obstruct*, the 2d and 3d du. and 2d pl. act. and the 2d and 3d sing. mid. would be árāuddham, árāuddhām, árāuddha, áruddhās, áruddha; from √srj *pour out*, ásrāṣṭam, ásrāṣṭām, asrāṣṭa, asrṣṭhās, asrṣṭa; from √dṛç *see*, ádrāṣṭam etc. (as from srj). But from √kṛ *do* the same persons in the active are ákārṣṭam, ákārṣṭām, ákārṣṭa; from √tan *stretch* they are átānṣṭam, átānṣṭām, átānṣṭa.

883. The omission of s in the active persons (ácchāittam, ácchāittām, ácchāitta) is a case of very rare occurrence; all the quotable examples were given above (233 e). As to the like omission in middle persons, see 881. The ChU. has twice ávāstam for avāts-tam (√vas *dwel*): this may be viewed as another case of total disappearance of the sibilant, and consequent restoration of the final radical to its original form.

884. Certain roots in ā weaken the ā in middle inflection to i (as also in the root-aorist: above, 834 a): these are said to be sthā, dā, and dhā; in the older language have been noted ádiṣi and adiṣata from √dā *give* (and adiṣi perhaps once from √dā *bind*), adhiṣi and adhiṣata (with the optative dhiṣīya) from √dhā *put*, and asthiṣata; also agīṣthās and agīṣata from √gā *go* (with adhi).

a. The middle inflection of the aorist of √dā would be, then, according to the grammarians: ádiṣi, ádithās, ádita; ádiṣvahi, ádiṣāthām, ádiṣātām; ádiṣmahi, ádiṣhvam, ádiṣata .

885. Roots ending in changeable ṛ (so-called roots in ṛ: 242) are said by the grammarians to convert this vowel to īr in middle forms: thus, astīrṣi, astīrṣthās etc. (from √strṛ); of such forms, however, has been found in the older language only akīrṣata, PB.

886. The s-aorist is made in the older language from about a hundred and forty roots (in RV., from about seventy; in AV., from about fifty, of which fifteen are additional to those in RV.); and the epic and classical literature adds but a very small number. It has in the Veda certain peculiarities of stem-formation and inflection, and also the full series of modes — of which the optative middle is retained also later as a part of the "precative" (but see 925 b).

887. Irregularities of stem-formation are as follows:

a. The strengthening of the root-syllable is now and then irregularly made or omitted: thus, ayokṣīt (AB.), chetsīs (B.S.; also occurs in MBh., which has further yotsīs), rotsīs (KU.); amatsus (RV.); ayāmsi and arāutsi (AB.), asākṣi etc. (V.B.: √sah), māṁsta (AY.) and māṁstām (TA.); lopsīya (U.); and MBh. has drogdhās. From √saj is made sāṅkṣīt (U. etc.), and from √majj, amāṅkṣīt (not quotable). The form ayuṅkṣmahi (BhP.) is doubtless a false reading.

b. A radical final nasal is lost in agasmahi (RV.) and gasāthām (TA.) from √gam, and in the optatives masīya and vasīmahi (RV.) from √man and van.

c. The roots hū, dhū, and nū have ū instead of o in the middle: thus, ahūṣata, adhūṣata, anūṣi and anūṣātām and anūṣata; √dhur (or dhūrv) makes adhūrṣata.

d. ÇB. has once atrāsatām for atrāstām (√trā).

888. The principal peculiarity of the older language in regard to inflection is the frequent absence of ī in the endings of 2d and 3d sing. act., and the consequent loss of the consonant-ending, and sometimes of root-finals (150). The forms without ī are the only ones found in RV. and K., and they outnumber the others in AV. and TS.; in the Brāhmaṇas they grow rarer (only one, adrāk, occurs in GB.; one, ayāt, in KB.; and two, adrāk and ayāt, in ÇB.; PB. has none).

889. If the root ends in a vowel, only the consonant of the ending is necessarily lost: thus, aprās (for both aprās-s and aprās-t) from √prā; and in like manner ahās from √hā; — ajāis (for ajāiṣ-t) from √ji; and in like manner acāis from √ci, and nāis (augmentless) from √nī; — and yāus (for ayāuṣ-t) from √yu.

a. But (as in other like cases: 555 a) the ending is sometimes preserved at the expense of the tense-sign; and we have in 3d sing. ajāit (beside ajāis and ajāiṣīt) from √ji; and in like manner acāit, aṣrāit, ahāit, nāit (no examples have been noted except from roots in i and ī): compare ayās and srās, 2d sing., 890 a.

890. a. If the root (in either its simple or strengthened form) ends in a consonant, the tense-sign is lost with the ending. Thus, abhār (for abhārṣ-t: beside abhārṣam, abhārṣtām) from √bhṛ; other like cases are ahār. and (from roots in ar) akṣār, atsār, asvār, hvār. Further, ārāik (583 a: for arāikṣ-t) from √ric; like cases are aṣvāit from √ṣvit and (from roots with medial u) adyāut from √dyut, arāut from √rudh, and māuk from √muc. Further, from roots ending in the palatals and h, aprāk from √pṛc, asrāk from √srj, abhāk from √bhaj, adrāk from √dṛç, adhāk from √dah; but, with a different change of the final, ayāt from √yaj, aprāt from √pṛch, avāt from √vah, and asrāt from √srj; and (above, 146 a) srās appears to stand twice in AV. for srāṣ-s from √srj; RV. has also twice ayās from √yaj. Further, from roots ending in a nasal, atān from √tan, khān from √khan, ayān and anān from √yam and nam (143 a).

b. If, again, the roots end in a double consonant, the latter of the two is lost along with tense-sign and ending: thus, acchān (for acchānts-t; beside acchāntta and acchāntsus) from √chand; and other like cases are akrān, askān, and asyān.

891. A relic of this peculiarity of the older inflection has been preserved to the later language in the 2d sing. bhāis, from √bhī.

Modes of the s-aorist.

892. The indicative forms without augment are used in a subjunctive sense, especially after má prohibitive, and are not uncommon. Examples with accent, however, are extremely rare; there has been noted only váṅsi, middle; judging from this, the tone would be found on the radical syllable. According to the Hindu grammarians, it may be laid on either root or ending.

893. Proper subjunctive forms are not rare in BV., but are markedly less common in the later Vedic texts, and very seldom met with in the Brāhmaṇas. They are regularly made with guṇa-strengthening of the radical vowel, in both active and middle, and with accent on the root.

a. The forms with primary endings are: in active, *stoṣāṇi*; *darṣasi*; *neṣati*, *parṣati*, *pāṣati*, *matsati*, *yoṣati*, *vakṣati*, *sakṣati*; *dāsathas*, *dhāsathas*, *pārṣathas*, *vakṣathas*, *varṣathas*; *pāṣatas*, *yaṁsatas*, *yakṣatas*, *vakṣatas*; *dhāsatha*, *neṣatha*, *pārṣatha*, *mātsatha*; — in middle, *naṁsāi*, *mānsāi*; *mānsase*; *kraṁsate*, *trāsate*, *darṣate*, *mānsate*, *yakṣate*, *rāsate*, *vaṁsate*, *sākṣate*, *hāsate*; *trāsāthe* (not *trāsāithe*, as we should rather expect); *nāṁsante*, *mānsante*: and, with the fuller ending in 3d sing., *māsātāi*.

b. The forms with secondary endings are (active only): *jéṣas*, *vákṣas*; *dárṣat*, *néṣat*, *pákṣat*, *párṣat*, *préṣat*, *yákṣat*, *yóṣat*, *váṁsat*, *vákṣat*, *véṣat*, *sátsat*, *chantsat*, etc. (some twenty others); *yakṣatām*; *váṁsāma*, *sákṣāma*, *stoṣāma*; *parṣan*, *yaṁsan*, *yoṣan*, *rāsan*, *vakṣan*, *céṣan*, *ṛóṣan*. Of these, *yakṣat* and *vakṣat* are found not rarely in the *Brāhmaṇas*; any others, hardly more than sporadically.

894. Of irregularities are to be noted the following:

a. The forms *dṛkṣase* and *prkṣase* (2d sing. mid.) lack the *guṇa*-strengthening.

b. *Jeṣam*, *stoṣam*, and *yoṣam* (AV. *yūṣam*, with *ū* for *o* as in *anūṣata* etc.) appear to be first persons formed under government of the analogy of the second and third — unless they are relics of a state of things anterior to the *vṛddhi*-strengthening: in which case *jeṣma* is to be compared with them (we should expect *jāiṣma* or *jeṣāma*).

c. From roots in *ā* are made a few forms of problematic character: namely, *yeṣam* (only case in RV.), *khyeṣam*, *jñeṣam*, *geṣam* and *geṣma*, *deṣma*, *seṣam* and *set*, *stheṣam* and *stheṣus*. Their value is optative. The analogy of *jeṣam* and *jeṣma* suggests the possibility of their derivation from *i*-forms of the *ā*-roots; or the sibilant might be of a precative character (thus, *yā-ī-s-am*). That they really belong to the *iṣ*-aorist appears highly improbable.

d. The RV. has a few difficult first persons middle in *se*, which are perhaps best noted here. They are: 1. from the simple root, *kṛṣe*, *hiṣe* (and *ohiṣe?*), *stuṣé*; 2. from present-stems, *arcase*, *ṛñjase*, *yajase*, *gāyiṣe*, *grñiṣé* and *puniṣé*. They have the value of indicative present. Compare below, 897 b.

895. Optative forms of this aorist are made in the middle only, and they have in 2d and 3d sing. always the precative *s* before the endings. Those found to occur in the older language are: *diṣīya*, *dhiṣīya*, *bhakṣīyá*, *maṣīya* (for *maṁsīya*), *mukṣīya*, *rāṣīya*, *lopsīya*, *sākṣīya*, *stṛṣīya*; *maṁsīṣṭhās*; *darṣīṣṭa*, *bhakṣīṣṭa*, *maṁsīṣṭha*, *mṛkṣīṣṭa*; *bhakṣīmahi*, *dhukṣīmáhi*, *maṁsīmáhi*, *vaṁsīmáhi*, *vasīmahi*, *sakṣīmáhi*; *maṁsīrata*. PB. has *bhukṣīṣīya*, which should belong to a *siṣ*-aorist. The RV. form *trāsīthām* (for *trāsīyāthām* or *trāsāthām*) is an isolated anomaly.

a. This optative makes a part of the accepted "precative" of the later language: see below, 923, 925 b.

896. Imperative persons from this aorist are extremely rare: we find the 2d sing. act. *neṣa* and *parṣa* and the 2d pl. *yaṃsata* (from a-stems, and showing rather, therefore, a treatment of the aorist-stem as a root), and the 3d sing. mid. *rāsatām* and pl. *rāsantām* (of which the same may be said).

Participles of the s-aorist.

897. a. Active participles are *dákṣat* or *dhákṣat*, and *sákṣat* (both RV.).

b. If *ṛñjase* (above, 894 d) is to be reckoned as an s-aorist form, *ṛñjasāná* is an s-aorist participle; and of a kindred character, apparently, are *aṛçasāná*, *óhasāna*, *jrayasāná*, *dhiyasāná*, *mandasāná*, *yamasāná*, *rabhasāná*, *vṛdhasāná*, *sahasāná*, *çavasāná*, all in RV.; with *namasāná*, *bhiyāsāna*, in AV. In RV. occurs also once *dhīṣamāṇa*, apparently an a-form of an s-aorist of *√dhī*.

5. The iṣ-aorist.

898. The tense-stem of this aorist adds the general tense-sign *स्* s by help of a prefixed auxiliary vowel *इ* i, making *इष्* iṣ, to the root, which is usually strengthened, and which has the augment.

899. The rules as to the strengthening of the root are as follows:

a. A final vowel has *vṛddhi* in the active, and *guṇa* in the middle: thus, *अपाविष्* *apāviṣ* and *अपविष्* *apaviṣ* from *√पू* *pū* *cleanse*; *अतारिष्* *atāriṣ*, act., from *√तृ* *tṛ* *pass*; *अशयिष्* *açayiṣ*, mid., from *√शी* *çī* *lie*.

b. A medial vowel has *guṇa*, if capable of it, in both voices: thus, *अलेशिष्* *aleçiṣ*, act. and mid., from *√लिष्* *liṣ* *tear*; *अरोचिष्* *arociṣ*, from *√रुच्* *ruc* *shine*; *अवर्षिष्* *avarṣiṣ* from *√वृष्* *vṛṣ* *rain*; but *अजीविष्* *ajīviṣ* from *√जीव्* *jīv* *live*.

c. Medial *अ* a is sometimes lengthened in the active; but it more usually remains unchanged in both voices.

d. The roots in the older language which show the lengthening are *kan*, *tan*, *ran*, *stan*, *svan*, *nan*, *vraj*, *sad*, *mad*, *car*, *tsar*, *svar*, *jval*, *das*, *tras*. From *ran*, *san*, *kram*, *vad*, *rakṣ*, and *sah* occur forms of both kinds. From *√math* or *manth* are made the two stems *mathiṣ* and *manthiṣ*.

900. a. Of exceptions may be noted: √mrj has (as elsewhere: 627) vṛddhi instead of guṇa: thus, amārjiṣam; √stṛ has astarīs, and √çṛ has açarīt (also açarāit in AV.), with guṇa in active.

b. The root grabh or grah has (as in future etc., below, 936 e, 956) long ī instead of i before the sibilant: thus, agrabhīṣma, agraḥīṣṭa, agrabhīṣata. The roots in changeable ṛ (so-called roots in ṛ: 242), and √vr̥ are said by the grammarians to do the same optionally; but no forms with long ī from such roots have been found quotable. A Sūtra (PGS.) has once anayīṣṭa from √nī (doubtless a false reading).

901. The endings are as in the preceding formation (उस् us and अत ata in 3d pl.). But in 2d and 3d sing., the combinations iṣ-s and iṣ-t are from the earliest period of the language contracted into ईस् īs and ईत् īt.

a. The 2d pl. mid. should end always in iḍhvam (or iḍḍhvam, from iṣ-dhvam: 226); and this is in fact the form in the only examples quotable, namely ajaniḍhvam, artiḍhvam, āindhiḍhvam, vepiḍhvam; as to the rules of the native grammarians respecting the matter, see 226 c.

902. As examples of the inflection of the iṣ-aorist may be taken the roots पू pū *cleanse*, and बुध् budh *wake*. Thus:

	active.			middle.		
	s.	d.	p.	s.	d.	p.
1	अपाविषम् ápāviṣam	अपाविष्व ápāviṣva	अपाविष्म ápāviṣma	अपविषि ápaviṣi	अपविष्वहि ápaviṣvahi	अपविष्महि ápaviṣmahi
2	अपावीस् ápāvis	अपाविष्टम् ápāviṣṭam	अपाविष्ट ápāviṣṭa	अपविष्टास् ápaviṣṭhās	अपविषाथाम् ápaviṣāthām	अपविह्वम् ápaviḍhvam
3	अपावीत् ápāvit	अपाविष्टाम् ápāviṣṭām	अपाविषुस् ápāviṣus	अपविष्ट ápaviṣṭa	अपविषाताम् ápaviṣātām	अपविषत ápaviṣata
1	अबोधिषम् ábodhiṣam	अबोधिष्व ábodhiṣva	अबोधिष्म ábodhiṣma	अबोधिषि ábodhiṣi	अबोधिष्वहि ábodhiṣvahi	अबोधिष्महि ábodhiṣmahi
	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.

903. The number of roots from which forms of this aorist have been noted in the older language is nearly a hundred and fifty (in RV., about eighty; in AV., more than thirty, of which a dozen are additional to those in RV.) ; the later texts add less than twenty. Among these are no roots in ā; but otherwise they are of every variety of form (rarest in final i and ī). Active and middle persons are freely made, but sparingly from the same root; only about fifteen

roots have both active and middle forms in the older language, and of these a part only exceptionally in the one voice or the other.

a. No rule appears to govern the choice of usage between the *iṣ-* and the *s-*aorist; and in no small number of cases the same root shows forms of both classes.

904. Irregularities are to be noticed as follows:

a. The contracted forms *akramīm*, *agrabhīm*, and *avadhīm* (with augmentless *vādhīm*) are found in 1st sing. act.

b. For *ācarīt* occurs in AV. *ācarāit*; also (in a part of the manuscripts) *ṣarāis* for *ṣarīs*; *agrahāiṣam* is found in AB. (also the monstrous form *ajagrabhāiṣam*: see 801 i). *Ajayit*, with short *i* in the ending, occurs in TS.

c. AV. has once *nudiṣṭhās*, without *guṇa*.

d. The forms *atārima* (RV.), *avādiran* (AV.), and *bādhithās* (TA.), though they lack the sibilant, are perhaps to be referred to this aorist: compare *avitá*, 908. A few similar cases occur in the epics, and are of like doubtful character: thus, *jānithās*, *mādithās*, *vartithās*, *ṣaṅkithās*, and (the causative: 1048) *aghātayithās*. *Agrhītām* and *grhīthās* and *grhīta*, if not false readings for *grhṇī-*, are probably irregular present-formations.

Modes of the *iṣ*-aorist.

905. As usual, augmentless indicative forms of this aorist are more common than proper subjunctives. Examples, of all the persons found to occur (and including all the accented words), are, in the active: *ṣāṅsiṣam*, *vādhīm*; *māthīs*, *vādhīs*, *yāvīs*, *sāvīs*; *āvīt*, *jūrvīt*, *māthīt*, *vādhīt*, *veçīt*; *mardhiṣtam*, *doṣiṣtam*, *hiṅsiṣtam*; *aviṣtām*, *jāniṣtām*, *bādhīṣtām*; *ṣramiṣma*, *vādiṣma*; *vadhiṣta* and *vadhiṣtana*, *mathiṣtana*, *hiṅsiṣta*; *hvāriṣus*, *grahiṣus*; — in the middle: *rādhīṣi*; *jāniṣṭhās*, *maṛṣiṣṭhās*, *vyathiṣṭhās*; *krāmiṣta*, *jāniṣta*, *paviṣta*, *prāthiṣta*, *māndiṣta*; *vyathiṣmahi*. The accent is on the root-syllable (*tāriṣús*, AV. once, is doubtless an error).

906. a. Of subjunctive forms with primary endings occur only the 1st sing. act. *daviṣāṇi*, and the 1st pl. mid. (with unstrengthened *e*) *yāciṣāmahe* and *saniṣāmahe*.

b. Forms with secondary endings are almost limited to 2d and 3d sing. act. There are found: *aviṣas*, *kāniṣas*, *tāriṣas*, *rakṣiṣas*, *vādhiṣas*; *vādiṣas*, *vēṣiṣas*, *ṣaṅsiṣas*; *kāriṣat*, *jambhiṣat*, *jōṣiṣat*, *takṣiṣat*, *tāriṣat*, *nīndiṣat*, *pāriṣat*, *bōdhiṣat*, *mārdhiṣat*, *yāciṣat*, *yodhiṣat*, *rakṣiṣat*, *vaniṣat*, *vyathiṣat*, *ṣaṅsiṣat*, *saniṣat*, *sāviṣat*. They are made, it will be noticed, with entire regularity, by adding *a* to the tense-stem in *iṣ* before the endings. The only other persons found to occur are the 3d pl. act. *saniṣan* and mid. *sāniṣanta* (and TS. has *vaniṣanta*,

for the problematic vanuṣanta of RV.), which are also regular. Bhaviṣāt (AB. once) is a solitary example of a form with double mode-sign; cániṣthat (RV.; SV. instead jāniṣthat) seems hopelessly corrupt. The radical syllable always has the accent, and its vowel usually accords with that of the indicative: but we have san- in the subjunctive against asāniṣam (as to cay- and ran-, see below, 908).

907. The middle optative of this aorist also forms a part of the accepted "precativ" of the later language (923, 925 b). It is very rare at all periods, being made in RV. from only five roots, and in AV. from two of the same and from three additional ones (six of the eight have other iṣ-forms); and the remaining texts add, so far as noticed, only four other roots. All the forms found to occur are as follows: janiṣīya, indhiṣīya, edhiṣīyá, ruciṣīya and rociṣīya, gmiṣīya; modiṣīsthās; janiṣīṣṭa; vaniṣīṣṭa; sahiṣīvahi; idhiṣīmahi, edhiṣīmáhi, janiṣīmahi, tāriṣīmahi, mandiṣīmahi, vandiṣīmáhi, vardhiṣīmáhi, sahiṣīmahi and sāhiṣīmáhi. The accent is on the ending, and this would lead us to expect a weak form of root throughout; but the usage in this respect appears to be various, and the cases are too few to allow of setting up any rule. The forms janiṣeyam and -ya, from a secondary a-stem, occur in K.

908. Of imperative forms, we have from √ av a series: namely, aviḍḍhí, aviṣtu, aviṣtám, avitá (if this, as seems probable, stands anomalously for aviṣtá) and aviṣtána; two of these are of unmistakably imperative form. Other forms occur only in 2d du. and 2d pl., and are accordingly such as might also be subjunctives used imperatively (which is further made probable for two of them by their accentuation on the root-syllable): they are kramiṣtam, gamiṣtam, caniṣtám, cayiṣtam (against acāyiṣam), tāriṣtam, yodhiṣtam, vadhiṣtam, ṇathiṣtam; rániṣtana (against arāniṣus), ṇathiṣtana.

909. No words having a participial ending after iṣ are found anywhere to occur.

910. This is the only aorist of which forms are made in the secondary and denominative conjugations: see below, 1035, 1048, 1068.

6. The siṣ-aorist.

911. According to the grammarians, this aorist is made from roots in आ ā (including मि mi *fix*, मि mi (or mī) *damage* and ली lī *cling*, which substitute forms in ā), and from नम् nam *bow*, यम् yam *reach*, and रम् ram *be content*, and is used only in the active ; the corresponding middle being of the s-form (878 ff.). Its inflection is precisely like that of the iṣ-aorist; it is unnecessary, then, to give more than

its first persons, which we may form from the roots या *yā go* and नम् *nam low*. Thus:

	s.	d.	p.	s.	d.	p.
1	आयासिषम् āyāsiṣam	आयासिष्व āyāsiṣva	आयासिष्म āyāsiṣma	आनंसिषम् ānaṁsiṣam	आनंसिष्व ānaṁsiṣva	आनंसिष्म ānaṁsiṣma
	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.

912. The siṣ-aorist is properly only a sub-form of the iṣ-aorist, having the tense-sign and endings of the latter added to a form of root increased by an added s. It is of extreme rarity in the older language, being made in RV. only from the roots *gā sing* and *yā go*, and in AV. only from *hā leave*, and doubtless also from *pyā fill up* and *van win* (see below, 914 b); the remaining older texts add *jñā know* (B.), *vyā overpower*, *dhyā think* (ÇB. once: the edition reads -dhā-), and *ram be content* (SV.: a bad variant for RY. *rāsiya*); other Brāhmaṇa forms which might be also of the s-aorist are *adrāsīt*, *avāsīt*, and *ahvāsīt*; and *bhukciṣīya* (PB. S.) must be regarded as an anomalous formation from √*bhuj*, unless we prefer to admit a secondary root *bhuks*, like *bhakṣ* from *bhaj*. In the later language have been found quotable from other roots only *glāsīs*, *adhmāsīt*, *anaṁsīt*, *apāsīt*, *mlāsīs*, and *amnāsiṣus*.

a. The participle *hāsamāna* and causative *hāsayanti* (RV.) show that *hās* had assumed, even at a very early period, the value of a secondary root beside *hā* for other forms than the aorist.

913. The whole series of older indicative forms (omitting, as doubtful, the 2d and 3d sing.) is as follows: *agāsiṣam*, *ajñāsiṣam*, *ayāsiṣam*, *adhyāsiṣam*; *ajyāsiṣtām*, *ayāsiṣtām*; *ajñāsiṣma*; *ajñāsiṣta*, *āyāsiṣta*; *agāsiṣus*, *ayāsiṣus* (*ākṣiṣus* is from √*akṣ attain*).

a. Forms without augment are these: *jñāsiṣam*, *raṁsiṣam*, *hāsiṣam*; *hāsiṣtam*; *hāsiṣtām*; *hāsiṣta*; *hāsiṣus*, *gāsiṣus*, *jñāsiṣus*. The accent would doubtless be upon the root-syllable.

914. a. Of proper subjunctives are found two, *gāsiṣat* and *yāsiṣat* (both RV.).

b. Optatives are not less rare: namely, *yāsisīṣthas* and *pyāsiṣīmahi* (for which the AV. manuscripts read *pyāciṣīmahi*, altered in the edition to *pyāyiṣ-*); and doubtless *vaṁciṣīya* (AV., twice) is to be corrected to *vaṁsiṣīya*, and belongs here. As to *bhukṣiṣīya*, see above, 912.

c. The accent of *yāsiṣtām* (like *aviṣtām*, 908) shows it to be a true imperative form; and *yāsiṣta* (RV., once) is doubtless the same, with anomalous *ī* for *i*.

915. Middle forms of this aorist, it will be noticed, occur from the optative only; but, considering the great rarity of the whole formation, we are hardly justified in concluding that in the ancient language the middle persons in *-siṣi*, *-siṣthās*, etc., were not allowable, like those in *-iṣi*, *-iṣthās*, and the others of the iṣ-aorist.

7. The sa-aorist.

916. In the later language, the roots allowed to form this aorist end in श् ष, ष ष, or ह् ह — all of them sounds which in combination with the tense-sign make क् क्; and they have इ i, उ u, or ऋ ॠ as radical vowel.

a. They are as follows: दिष्, रिष्, लिष्, विष्, क्लिष्, कृष्, रुष्, मृष्, स्पृष्; त्विष्, द्विष्, ण्विष्, विष्, कृष्; दिह, मिह, लिह, गृह, दुह, रुह, तृह, वृह, स्तृह; from about half of them sa-forms, earlier or later, are quotable. Some of them may, or with certain meanings must, take aorists of other forms. And a few are allowed to drop both tense-sign and union-vowel a in certain persons of the middle: that is, they may make instead forms of the root-aorist.

917. As the tense-stem ends in अ् a, the inflection is in the main like that of an imperfect of the second general conjugation. But (according to the grammarians: the forms unfortunately have not been found quotable) the 1st sing. mid. ends in इ i instead of ए e, and the 2d and 3d du. mid. in आथाम् āthām and आताम् ātām, as in imperfects of the other conjugation. Both active and middle inflection is admitted. The root is throughout unstrengthened.

918. As example of inflection we may take the root दिष् diṣ *point*. Thus:

	active.			middle.		
	s.	d.	p.	s.	d.	p.
1	अदिक्षम् ádikṣam	अदिक्षाव ádikṣāva	अदिक्षाम् ádikṣāma	अदिक्षि ádikṣi	अदिक्षावहि ádikṣāvahi	अदिक्षामहि ádikṣāmahi
2	अदिक्षस् ádikṣas	अदिक्षतम् ádikṣatam	अदिक्षत ádikṣata	अदिक्षाथाम् ádikṣāthās	अदिक्षाथाम् ádikṣāthām	अदिक्षध्वम् ádikṣādhvam
3	अदिक्षत् ádikṣat	अदिक्षताम् ádikṣatām	अदिक्षन् ádikṣan	अदिक्षत ádikṣata	अदिक्षाताम् ádikṣātām	अदिक्षन्त ádikṣanta

919. In the earlier language, the forms of the sa-aorist are hardly more than sporadic. They are made in RV. from seven roots; in AV., from two of these and from two others; and the remaining texts add ten more, making nineteen in all (the later language makes no additions to this number). As later, all have i or u or ॠ as root-vowel, and a final consonant which combines with s to क् क्; but there are in the list also two

ending in j, namely mṛj and vṛj. All the examples noted are given below.

a. So far as the middle forms are concerned, this aorist would be fully explained as a transfer of certain s-aorists to an a-inflection. The marked difference in the strength of radical vowel in the active, however, stands in the way of the successful application of such an explanation to the active forms.

920. a. In the indicative, we find, in the active: avṛkṣam; adrukṣas, adhukṣas, arukṣas, akrukṣas, aspṛkṣas (and MBh. adds amṛkṣas); adikṣat, amikṣat, alikṣat, avikṣat, ákrukṣat, aghukṣat, adukṣat and ádhukṣat, árukṣat, avṛkṣat, akṛkṣat, ámṛkṣat, áspṛkṣat; aghukṣatām; arukṣāma, amṛkṣāma, avṛkṣāma; ádhukṣan, apikṣan (√piṣ), arukṣan, aspṛkṣan; — in the middle, only akṛkṣathās (√kṛṣ), ádhukṣata, and amṛkṣanta (and MBh. adds amṛkṣata?).

b. Forms without augment (no true subjunctives occur) are, in the active: dṛkṣam, mṛkṣam; dukṣas, rukṣas, mṛkṣas; dvikṣat; mṛkṣata; dhukṣán and dukṣán; — in the middle, dvikṣata, dukṣata and dhúkṣata, dhukṣánta.

c. There are no optative forms.

d. Imperative are: in the active, mṛkṣatam; in the middle, dhukṣásva.

e. The few accented forms without augment which occur have the tone on the tense-sign sá, in analogy with the a-aorist (2) and the imperfect of the á-class: a single exception is dhúkṣata, which probably needs emendation to dhukṣáta.

f. The aspiration of initial d and g, after loss of the aspirated quality of the root-final (155), is seen in forms from the roots duh and guh, but not from druh (only a single case, AB.); RV., however, has also adukṣat and dukṣas, dukṣán, dukṣata.

Precative.

921. As the so-called precative is allowed by the grammarians to be made in the later language from every root, and in an independent way, without reference to the mode of formation of the aorist from the same root, it is desirable to put together here a brief statement of the rules given for it.

922. The precative active is made by adding the active precative endings (above, 568) directly to the root. But:

a. Of final root-vowels (as before the passive-sign yá: 770), i and u are lengthened; ṛ is usually changed to ri, but to īr and ūr in those roots which elsewhere show ir- and ur- forms (so-called ṛ-roots: 242), and to ar in ṛ and smṛ; ā is changed to e in the roots dā, dhā, sthā, pā *drink*, gā *sing*, and a few others, in part optionally.

b. The root in general assumes its weakest form: a penultimate nasal is lost, as in *badhyāsam* from √*bandh*; the roots which are abbreviated in the weak persons of the perfect (794) have the same abbreviation here, as in *ucyāsam*, *ijyāsam*, *vidhyāsam*, *supyāsam*, *grhyāsam*; √*çās* forms *çiṣyāsam* (compare 639, 854 c): and so on.

c. It has been pointed out above (837) that the active precative is an optative of the root-aorist, with a problematic insertion of a sibilant between mode-sign and ending.

923. a. The precative middle is made by adding the middle precative endings (above, 568) to the root increased by *स् s* or *इष् iṣ* — that is, to the tense-stem of an s-aorist or of an iṣ-aorist (but without augment).

b. The root is strengthened according to the rules that apply in forming the middle-stem of the s and of the iṣ-aorists respectively: in general, namely, a final vowel is gunated in both formations; but a medial vowel, only before *इष् iṣ*.

c. As was pointed out above (567) the middle precative is really the optative of certain aorists, with the insertion of a sibilant between mode-sign and ending only (so far as authenticated by use) in the 2d and 3d singular. In the older language, such forms are oftenest made from the s-aorist (895) and the iṣ-aorist (907); but also from the root-aorist (837 b), the a-aorist (850 a), the reduplicated aorist (870), and the siṣ-aorist (914 b); and even from the perfect (812 b).

924. As example of inflection, we may take the root *भू bhū be*, which is said (no middle aorist or precative from it is quotable) to form its middle on the iṣ-stem. Thus:

	active.		
	s.	d.	p.
1	भूयासम् bhūyāsam	भूयास्व bhūyāsva	भूयास्म bhūyāsma
2	भूयास् bhūyās	भूयास्तम् bhūyāstam	भूयास्त bhūyāsta
3	भूयात् bhūyāt	भूयास्ताम् bhūyāstām	भूयासुस् bhūyāsus

middle.			
	s.	d.	p.
1	भविषीय bhaviṣīyá	भविषीवहि bhaviṣīváhi	भविषीमहि bhaviṣīmáhi
2	भविषीष्टास् bhaviṣīṣṭhás	भविषीयास्थाम् bhaviṣīyāsthām	भविषीध्वम् bhaviṣīḍhvám
3	भविषीष्ट bhaviṣīṣṭá	भविषीयास्ताम् bhaviṣīyāstām	भविषीरन् bhaviṣīrān

a. The forms given by the grammarians as 2d and 3d dual are of very questionable value, as regards the place assigned to the sibilant. Those persons, and the 2d pl., have never been met with in use. For the question respecting the ending of the 2d pl., as dhvam or ḍhvam, see 226 c.

925. a. The precative active is a form of very rare occurrence in the classical language. In each of the texts already more than once referred to (Manu, Nala, Bhagavad-Gītā, Çakuntalā, Hitopadeça) it occurs once and no more, and not half-a-dozen forms have been found quotable from the epics. As to its value, see 573 c.

b. The precative middle is virtually unknown in the whole later literature, not a single occurrence of it having been brought to light. The BhP. has once rīriṣīṣṭa, which is also a RV. form, belonging probably to the reduplicated aorist: see 870.

Uses of the Aorist.

926. The uses of the aorist mode-forms (as has been already pointed out: 582) appear to accord with those of the mode-forms of the present-system. The predilection of the earlier language, continued sparingly in the later, for the augmentless forms in prohibitive expression after má was sufficiently stated and illustrated above (579).

a. The tense-value of the aorist indicative has also been more than once referred to, and calls only for somewhat more of detail and for illustration here.

927. The aorist of the later language is simply a preterit, equivalent to the imperfect and perfect, and frequently coördinated with them.

a. Thus, tataḥ sa gardabhaṁ laguḍena tāḍayāmāsa; tenā 'sāu pañcatvam agamat (H.) *thereupon he beat the donkey with a stick; and hereof the latter died*; tataḥ sā vidarbhān agamat punaḥ; tāṁ tu bandhujanaḥ samapūjayat (MBh.) *thereupon she went back to Vidarbha; and her kindred paid her reverence*; prītimān abhūt, uvāca

cāi 'nam (MBh.) *he was filled with affection, and said to him*; tam adahat kāṣṭhāḥ so 'bhūd divyavapus tadā (R.) *he burned him with wood, and he became then a heavenly form*.

928. The aorist of the older language has the value of a proper "perfect": that is, it signifies something past which is viewed as completed with reference to the present; and it requires accordingly to be rendered by our tense made with the auxiliary *have*. In general, it indicates what has just taken place; and oftenest something which the speaker has experienced.

a. Examples from the Veda are: pārī 'mé gām aneṣata páry agním ahṛṣata, devéṣv akrata ṇrávaḥ ká imán ā dadharṣati (RV.) *these here have led about a cow, they have carried around the fire, they have done honor to the gods — who shall venture anything against them? yám āichāma mánasā sò 'yám ā 'gāt (RV.) he whom we (formerly, impf.) sought with our mind has (now, aor.) come*; yéné 'ndro haviṣā kṛtvý ábhavad dyumny ùttamáḥ, idám tád akri devā asapatnáḥ kílā 'bhuvam (RV.) *that libation by which Indra, making it, became (impf.) of highest glory, I have now made, ye gods; I have become free from enemies*.

b. Examples from the Brāhmaṇa language are: sá hā 'smiñ jyóg uvāsa... táto ha gandharváḥ sám ūdire: jyóg vá iyám urvācī manuṣyèṣv avātsīt (ÇB.) *she lived with him a long time. Then the Gandharvas said to one another, "this Urvaçī, forsooth, hath dwelt a long time among mortals"*; tasya ha dantāḥ pedire: taṁ ho 'vāca: apatsata vā asya dantāḥ (AB.) *his teeth fell out. He said to him: "his teeth truly have fallen out"*; índrasya vṛtrám jaghnúṣa indriyám vīryám pṛthivím ánu vy àrchat tád óṣadhayo vīrúdhō 'bhavan sá prajāpātim úpā 'dhāvad vṛtrám me jaghnúṣa indriyám vīryám pṛthivím ánu vy àrat tád óṣadhayo vīrúdhō 'bhūvann íti (TS.) *of Indra, when he had slain Vritra, the force and might went away into the earth, and became the herbs and plants; he ran to Prajāpati, saying: "my force and might, after slaying Vritra, have gone away into the earth, and have become the herbs and plants"*; svayám enam abhyudétya brūyād vrātya kvā 'vātsiḥ (AV., in prose passage) *going up to him in person, let him say: "Vrātya, where hast thou abode?" yád idānīm dvāú vivádamānāv eyātām ahám adarṇam ahám açrāuṣam íti yá evá brūyād ahám adarṇam íti tásmā evá çráddadhyāma (ÇB.) if now two should come disputing with one another, [the one] saying "I have seen", [the other] "I have heard", we should believe the one who said "I have seen"*.

929. a. This distinction of the aorist from the imperfect and perfect as tenses of narration is very common in the Brāhmaṇa language (including the older Upanishads and the Sūtras), and is closely observed; violation of it is very rare, and is to be regarded as either due to corruption of text or indicative of a late origin.

b. In the Vedic hymns, the same distinction is prevalent, but is both less clear and less strictly maintained; many passages would admit an

interpretation implying either sense; and evident aorist-forms are sometimes used narratively, while imperfect-forms are also occasionally employed in the aorist sense.

930. The boundary between what has just been and what is is an evanescent one, and is sometimes overstepped, so that an aorist appears where a present might stand, or was even rather to be expected. Thus: svāsasthe bhavatam indave na iti somo vāi rāje 'nduḥ somāyāi 'vāi 'ne etad rājña āsade 'cikṣat (AB. i. 29. 7) *"be ye comfortable seats for our Indu", he says; Indu is king Soma; by this means he has made them (instead of makes them) suitable for king Soma to sit upon;* vāruṇīr āpo yád adbhír abhiṣiñcāti vāruṇam evāi 'nam akar (MS. iv. 3. 10) *the waters are Varuna's; in that he bepours him with waters, he has made him Varuna;* pañcābhir vyāghārayati pāñkto yajñó yāvān evā yajñás tám ālabdhá 'tho yāvān evā yajñás tásmād rákṣāṁsy ápahanti (MS. iii. 2. 6) *he smears with five; fivefold is the offering; as great as is the offering, of it he has [thereby] taken hold; then, as great as is the offering, from it he smites away the demons.* This idiom is met with in all the Brāhmaṇas; but it is especially frequent in the MS.

CHAPTER XII.

THE FUTURE-SYSTEMS.

931. The verb has two futures, of very different age and character. The one has for tense-sign a sibilant followed by य ya, and is an inheritance from the time of Indo-European unity. The other is a periphrastic formation, made by appending an auxiliary verb to a derivative noun of agency, and it is a recent addition to the verb-system; its beginnings only are met with in the earliest language. The former may be called the s-future (or the old future, or simply the future); the latter may be distinguished as the periphrastic future.

I. The s-future.

932. The tense-sign of this future is the syllable **स्य** *syá*, added to the root either directly or by an auxiliary vowel **इ** *i* (in the latter case becoming **इष्य** *iṣyá*). The root has the guṇa-strengthening. Thus, from **√दा** *dā* *give* is formed the future tense-stem **दास्य** *dāsyá*; from **√इ** *i* *go*, the stem **इष्य** *eṣyá*; from **√दुह** *duh* *milk*, the stem **धोक्ष्य** *dhokṣyá*; from **√भू** *bhū* *be*, the stem **भविष्य** *bhaviṣyá*; from **√क्षध्** *ṛdh* *thrive*, the stem **अर्धिष्य** *ardhiṣyá*; and so on.

a. But from **√जि** *jīv* *live* the stem is *jīviṣyá*, from **√उक्ष** *ukṣ* *sprinkle* it is *ukṣiṣyá*, and so on (240).

b. There are hardly any Vedic cases of resolution of the tense-sign *sya* into *sia*; RV. has *kṣeṣiántas* once.

933. This tense-stem is then inflected precisely like a present-stem ending in **अ** *a* (second general conjugation: 733 a). We may take as models of inflection the future of **√दा** *dā* *give*, and that of **√कृ** *kṛ* *make*. Thus:

	active.			middle.		
	s.	d.	p.	s.	d.	p.
1	दास्यामि <i>dāsyāmi</i>	दास्यावस् <i>dāsyāvas</i>	दास्यामस् <i>dāsyāmas</i>	दास्ये <i>dāsyé</i>	दास्यावहे <i>dāsyāvahe</i>	दास्यामहे <i>dāsyāmahe</i>
2	दास्यसि <i>dāsyāsi</i>	दास्यथस् <i>dāsyāthas</i>	दास्यथ <i>dāsyātha</i>	दास्यसे <i>dāsyāse</i>	दास्यथे <i>dāsyéthe</i>	दास्यध्वे <i>dāsyādhve</i>
3	दास्यति <i>dāsyāti</i>	दास्यतस् <i>dāsyātas</i>	दास्यन्ति <i>dāsyānti</i>	दास्यते <i>dāsyāte</i>	दास्येते <i>dāsyéte</i>	दास्यन्ते <i>dāsyānte</i>
1	करिष्यामि <i>kariṣyāmi</i>	करिष्यावस् <i>kariṣyāvas</i>	करिष्यामस् <i>kariṣyāmas</i>	करिष्ये <i>kariṣyé</i>	करिष्यावहे <i>kariṣyāvahe</i>	करिष्यामहे <i>kariṣyāmahe</i>
	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.

a. In the epics are found occasional cases of 1st du. and pl. in *va* and *ma*: e. g. *raṁsyāva* (R.), *bhakṣayiṣyāva* (causative: MBh.); *eṣyāma* (MBh.), *vatsyāma* (R.).

934. With regard to the use or non-use of the auxiliary vowel *i* before the sibilant, there is a degree of general accord between this tense and the other future and the desiderative; but it is by no means absolute, nor are any definite rules to be laid down with regard to it (and so much the less, because of the infrequency of the two latter formations in actual use): between this and the aorist (s-

aorist on the one side, or iṣ-aorist on the other), any correspondence is still less traceable. Practically, it is necessary to learn, as a matter of usage, how any given root makes these various parts of its conjugational system.

935. Below is added a statement of the usage, as regards the auxiliary vowel, of all the roots found quotable — for the most part, in the form of a specification of those which add the tense-sign directly to the root; in brackets are further mentioned the other roots which according to the grammarians also refuse the auxiliary vowel.

a. Of roots ending in vowels, the great majority (excepting those in ṛ) take no i. Thus, all in ā (numerous, and unnecessary to specify: but compare c below); those in i, as kṣi *possess*, ci *gather*, ci *note*, mi, si or sâ *bind* (siṣya), hi; from i, kṣi *destroy*, and ji occur forms of both classes; çri [and çvi] has i; — those in ī, as krī, bhī, mī, vlī; but çī *lie* and nī have both forms [and çī takes i]; — those in u, as cyu, dru, plu, çru, hu; but su *press out* and stu have both forms [and kṣu, kṣṇu, nu, yu, ru, snu take i]; — of those in ū, dhū and bhū take i; sū has both forms. But all in ṛ (numerous, and unnecessary to specify) take i [those in changeable ṛ, for so-called ṛ-roots (242), are said by the grammarians to take either i or ī; no ī-forms, however, are quotable].

b. Of roots ending in mutes, about half add the tense-sign directly. Thus, of roots ending in gutturals, çak; — in palatals: in c, pac, muc, ric, vac, vic, vraçc, sic (but yâc takes i); in ch, prach; in j, bhañj, mṛj (mārṣya and mrakṣya), yaj, bhuj, yuj, vṛj, sṛj [also bhrajj, rañj, sañj, svañj, nij, ruj], while tyaj, bhaj, and majj (mañṣya and majjiṣya) have both forms, and vij (vijiṣya and vejiṣya) and vraj take i; — in dentals: in t, kṛt *cut* and vṛt [also çṛt and nṛt] make both forms; in d, ad, pad, çad *fall*, skand, syand, chid, bhid, vid *find*, nud [also had, khid, svid, kṣud, tud]; while sad (satsya and sīdiṣya) and vid *know* make both forms [also chṛd and ṛṛd], and vad has i; in dh, vyadh (vetsya), rādh, sidh *succeed*, budh, yudh, rudh, vṛdh. [also sādḥ, krudh, kṣudh, çudh], and bandh and sidh *repel* have both forms; in n, tan, while man and han have both forms; — in labials: in p, āp, kṣip, gup, ṭṛp, sṛp (srapsya and sarpsya) [also çap, lip, lup], while tap, vap, svap, dṛp, and kṛp have both forms; in bh, yabh and rabh, labh having both forms; in m, ram, while kram, kṣam, nam, and yam make both forms.

c. Of the roots reckoned by the grammarians as ending in semivowels (761 d-g) all take i. And vā or vi *weave*, vyā or vī *envelop*, and hvā or hū *call* take a y-form, as in their present-system, to which then i is added: thus, vayiṣya, vyayiṣya, hvayiṣya (but also hvāṣya).

d. Of roots ending in spirants, the minority (about a third) are without the auxiliary vowel. They are: roots in ç, diç, viç, dṛç (drakṣya), sprç (sprakṣya) [also dañç, riç, liç, kruç, mṛç], while naç *be lost* has both forms (nañṣya and naçiṣya); in ṣ, piṣ, viṣ, çṣ [also

tviṣ, dviṣ, çliṣ, tuṣ, duṣ, puṣ, çuṣ], while kṛṣ has both forms (krakṣya and karṣiṣya); — in s, vas *shine*, vas *clothe* [also ghas], while vas *dwel* has both forms; — in h, mih, duh, druh [also nah, dih, lih], while dah, vah, sah, and ruh have both forms.

e. In the older language, a majority (about five ninths) of simple roots add the *syā* without auxiliary *i*; of the futures occurring in the later language only, nearly three quarters have the *i*, this being generally taken by any root of late origin and derivative character — as it is also uniformly taken in secondary conjugation (1019, 1036, 1050, 1068).

936. As the root is strengthened to form the stem of this future, so, of a root that has a stronger and a weaker form, the stronger form is used: thus, from √bandh or badh *bind*, bhantsya or bandhiṣya.

a. By an irregular strengthening, nañkṣya (beside naçiṣya) is made from √naç *be lost*, and mañkṣya (beside majjiṣya) from √majj *sink*.

b. But a few roots make future-stems in the later language without strengthening: thus, likhiṣya, miliṣya (also TS.), vijiṣya (also vejiṣya), siṣya (√sā or si), sūṣya (939 b), sphuṭiṣya; and √vyadh makes vetsya from the weaker form vidh.

c. The ÇB. has once the monstrous form açnuviṣyāmahe, made upon the present-stem açnu (697) of √aç *attain*. And the later language makes sīdiṣya and jahiṣya from the present-stems of √sad and √hā. Compare further hvayiṣya etc., 935 c. Also khyāiṣya from √khyā (beside khyāṣya) appears to be of similar character.

d. A number of roots with medial ṛ strengthen it to ra (241): thus, krakṣya, trapaya, drapaya, drakṣya, mrakṣya (beside mārṁkṣya), sprakṣya, srakṣya, srapsya (beside sarpsya), and mradiṣya (beside mardiṣya); and √kṛp forms klapsya (beside kalpiṣya).

e. The root grah (also its doublet glah) takes ī instead of i, as it does also in the aorist and elsewhere.

937. This future is comparatively rare in the oldest language — in part, apparently, because the uses of a future are to a large extent answered by subjunctive forms — but becomes more and more common later. Thus, the RV. has only seventeen occurrences of personal forms, from nine different roots (with participles from six additional roots); the AV. has fifty occurrences, from twenty-five roots (with participles from seven more); but the TS. has occurrences (personal forms and participles together) from over sixty roots; and forms from more than a hundred and fifty roots are quotable from the older texts.

Modes of the s-future.

938. Mode-forms of the future are of the utmost rarity. The only example in the older language is kariṣyās, 2d sing. subj. act., occurring once (or twice) in RV. (AB. has once notsyāvahāi, and GB. has eṣyāmahāi, taṁsyāmahāi, sthāsyāmahāi, but they are doubtless false read-

ings for -he. Two or three optative forms are found in the epics: thus, dhakṣyet and maṁsyeran (MBh.), and drakṣyeta (R.); also an imperative patsyantū (Har.). And several 2d pl. mid. in dhvam are quotable from the epics: thus, vetsyadhvam, saviṣyadhvam, and (the causative) kālayiṣyadhvam (PB.) and jīvayiṣyadhvam (MBh.: and one text has mokṣyadhvam at i. 133. 13, where the other reads mokṣayadhvam), and bhaviṣyadhvam (MBh. R.): it is a matter of question whether these are to be accounted a real imperative formation, or an epic substitution of secondary for primary endings (compare 542 a).

Participles of the s-future.

939. Participles are made from the future-stem precisely as from a present-stem in अ a: namely, by adding in the active the ending न् nt, in the middle the ending मान māna; the accent remains upon the stem. Thus, from the verbs instanced above, दास्यन् दास्यánt and दास्यमान दास्यámāna, करिष्यन् करिष्यánt and करिष्यमाण करिष्यámāṇa.

a. According to the grammarians, the feminine of the active participle is made either in ántī or in atī; but only the former has been noted as occurring in the older language, and the latter is everywhere extremely rare: see above, 449 e,f.

b. In RV. occurs once súṣyantī, from √sū, with anomalous accentuation.

Preterit of the s-future: Conditional.

940. From the future-stem is made an augment-preterit, by prefixing the augment and adding the secondary endings, in precisely the same manner as an imperfect from a present-stem in अ a. This preterit is called the conditional.

a. It stands related to the future, in form and meaning, as the French conditional *aurais* to the future *aurai*, or as the English *would have* to *will have* — nearly as the German *würde haben* to *werde haben*.

b. Thus, from the roots already instanced:

	active.			middle.		
	s.	d.	p.	s.	d.	p.
1	अदास्यम् ádāsyam	अदास्याव ádāsyāva	अदास्याम ádāsyāma	अदास्ये ádāsyē	अदास्यावहि ádāsyāvahi	अदास्यामहि ádāsyāmahi

2	अदास्यस् ádāsyas	अदास्यतम् ádāsyatam	अदास्यत ádāsyata	अदास्यथास् ádāsyathās	अदास्यथाम् ádāsyethām	अदास्यध्वम् ádāsyadhvam
3	अदास्यत् ádāsyat	अदास्यताम् ádāsyatām	अदास्यन् ádāsyān	अदास्यत ádāsyata	अदास्यताम् ádāsyetām	अदास्यन्त ádāsyanta
1	अकरिष्यम् ákariṣyam	अकरिष्याव ákariṣyāva	अकरिष्याम ákariṣyāma	अकरिष्ये ákariṣye	अकरिष्यावहि ákariṣyāvahi	अकरिष्यामहि ákariṣyāmahi
	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.

941. The conditional is the rarest of all the forms of the Sanskrit verb. The RV. has but a single example, ábhariṣyat *was going to carry off*, and none of the Vedic texts furnishes another. In the Brāhmaṇas it is hardly more common — except in ÇB., where it is met with more than fifty times. Nor does it, like the future, become more frequent later: not an example occurs in Nala, Bhagavad-Gītā, or Hitopadeça; only one in Manu; and two in Çakuntalā. In the whole MBh. (Holtzmann) it is found about twenty-five times, from thirteen roots. The middle forms are extremely few.

II. The Periphrastic Future.

942. a. This formation contains only a single indicative active tense (or also middle: see 947), without modes, or participle, or preterit.

b. It consists in a derivative *nomen agentis*, having the value of a future active participle, and used, either with or without an accompanying auxiliary, in the office of a verbal tense with future meaning.

943. The noun is formed by the suffix तृ tr (or तर् tar); and this (as in its other than verbal uses: see 1182) is added to the root either directly or with a preceding auxiliary vowel इ i, the root itself being strengthened by guṇa, but the accent resting on the suffix: thus, दातृ dātṛ from √दा dā *give*; कर्तृ kartṛ from √कृ kṛ *make*; भवितृ bhavitṛ from √भू bhū *be*.

a. As regards the presence or absence of the vowel i, the usage is said by the grammarians to be generally the same as in the s-future from the same root (above, 935). The most important exception is that the roots in ण् take no i: thus, kartṛ (against kariṣya); roots han and gam show the same difference; while वृत्, वृध्, and syand have i here, though

not in the s-future. The few forms which occur in the older language agree with these statements.

944. In the third persons, the nom. masc. of the noun, in the three numbers respectively (373), is used without auxiliary: thus, भवित्ता bhavitā *he or she or it will be*; भवितारौ bhavitārāu *both will be*; भवितारस् bhavitāras *they will be*. In the other persons, the first and second persons present of √अस् as *be* (636) are used as auxiliary; and they are combined, in all numbers, with the singular nom. masc. of the noun.

a. Thus, from √दा *dā give*:

	active.		
	s.	d.	p.
1	दातास्मि dātāsmi	दातास्वस् dātāsvas	दातास्वस् dātāsvas
2	दातासि dātāsi	दातास्थस् dātāsthas	दातास्थ dātāstha
3	दाता dātā	दातारौ dātārāu	दातारस् dātāras

b. Occasionally, in the epics and later (almost never in the older language), the norm of the tense as given above is in various respects departed from: thus, by use of the auxiliary in the 3d person also; by its omission in the 1st or 2d person; by inversion of the order of noun and auxiliary; by interposition of other words between them; by use of a dual or plural nom. with the auxiliary; and by use of a feminine form of the noun. Examples are: vaktā 'sti (MBh.) *he will speak*; nihantā (MBh.) *I shall or thou wilt strike down*, yoddhā 'ham (R.) *I shall fight*, ahaṁ draṣṭā (MBh.) *I shall see*, kartā 'haṁ te (BhP.) *I will do for thee*, tvam bhavitā (MBh. Megh.) *thou wilt be*; asmi gantā (MBh.) *I shall go*; pratigrahītā tām asmi (MBh.) *I will receive her*, hantā tvam asi (MBh.) *thou wilt slay*; kartārāu svaḥ (MBh.) *we two shall do*; draṣṭry asmi (MBh.) *I (f.) shall see*, udbhavitṛī (Nāiṣ.) *she will increase*, gantrī (Y.) *she will go*. AB. has once sotā as 2d sing., *thou wilt press*; JUB. makes the combination ष्माञ्जानानि भवितारस *the cemeteries will be*.

c. An optative of the auxiliary appears to be once used, in yoddhā syām *I would fight* (R. i. 22. 25 Peterson; but the Bombay edition reads yoddhuṁ yāsyāmi).

945. The accent in these combinations, as in all the ordinary cases of collocation of a verb with a preceding predicate noun or

adjective (592), is on the noun itself; and, unlike all the true verbal forms, the combination retains its accent everywhere even in an independent clause: thus, *tárhi vá atināṣṭró bhavitāsmi* (ÇB.) *then I shall be out of danger* (where *bhaviṣyāmi*, if used, would be accentless). Whether in a dependent clause the auxiliary verb would take an accent (595), and whether, if so, at the expense of the accent of the noun (as in the case of a preposition compounded with a verb-form: 1083b), we are without the means of determining.

940. In the Veda, the *nomina agentis* in *tr* or *tar*, like various other derivative nouns (271), but with especial frequency, are used in participial construction, governing the accusative if they come from roots whose verbal forms do so (1182). Often, also, they are used predicatively, with or without accompanying copula; yet without any implication of time; they are not the beginnings, but only the forerunners, of a new tense-formation. Generally, when they have a participial value, the root-syllable (or a prefix preceding it) has the accent. The tense-use begins, but rather sparingly, in the Brāhmaṇas (from which about thirty forms are quotable); and it grows more common later, though the periphrastic future is nowhere nearly so frequent as the s-future (it is quotable later from about thirty additional roots).

947. a. A few isolated attempts are made in the Brāhmaṇas to form by analogy middle persons to this future, with endings corresponding after the usual fashion to those of the active persons. Thus, TS. has once *prayoktāse I will apply* (standing related to *prayoktāsmi* as, for example, *çāse* to *çāsmi*); ÇB. has *çayitāse thou shalt lie* (similarly related to *çayitāsi*); and TB. has *yaṣṭāmahe we will make offering*. But in TA. is found (i. 11) *yaṣṭāhe* as 1st sing., showing a phonetic correspondence of a problematic character, not elsewhere met with in the language.

b. On the basis of such tentative formations as these, the native grammarians set up a complete middle inflection for the periphrastic future, as follows:

	s.	d.	p.
1	dātāhe	dātāsvahe	dātāmahe
2	dātāse	dātāsāthe	dātādhve
3	dātā	dātārau	dātāras

c. Only a single example of such a middle has been brought to light in the later language, namely (the causative) *darçayitāhe* (Nāiṣ.).

Uses of the Futures and Conditional.

948. As the s-future is the commoner, so also it is the one more indefinitely used. It expresses in general what is going to take place at some time to come — but often, as in other languages, adding on the one hand an implication of will or intention, or on the other hand that of promise or threatening.

a. A few examples are: varṣiṣyáty āiṣāmaḥ parjányo vṛṣṭimān bhaviṣyati (ÇB.) *it is going to rain; Parjanya is going to be rich in rain this year*; yás tán ná véda kíṃ ṛcā kariṣyati (RV.) *whoever does not know that, what will he do with verse?* á vāi vayám agní dhāsyāmahé 'tha yūyám kíṃ kariṣyatha (ÇB.) *we are going to build the two fires; then what will you do?* tám índro 'bhyádudrāva haniṣyán (ÇB.) *him Indra ran at, intending to slay*; yády evá kariṣyátha sākām devāir yajñíyāso bhaviṣyatha (RV.) *if ye will do thus, ye shall be worthy of the sacrifice along with the gods*; dántās te çatsyanti (AV.) *thy teeth will fall out*; ná mariṣyasi má bibheḥ (AV.) *thou shalt not die; be not afraid*; brūhi kva yāsyasi (MBh.) *tell us; where are you going to go?* yadi mām pratyākhyāsyasi viṣam āsthāsyē (MBh.) *if you shall reject me, I will resort to poison*. As in other languages, the tense is also sometimes used for the expression of a conjecture or presumption: thus: ko 'yaṃ devo gandharvo vā bhaviṣyati (MBh.) *who is this? he is doubtless a god, or a Gandharva*; adya svapsyanti (MBh.) *they must be sleeping now*.

b. The spheres of future and desiderative border upon one another, and the one is sometimes met with where the other might be expected. Examples of the future taken in a quasi-desiderative sense are as follows: yád dāçúṣe bhadráṃ kariṣyāsi távé 't tát satyám (RV.) *what favor thou wilt to bestow on thy worshiper, that of thee becometh actual (is surely brought about)*; yáthā 'nyád vadiṣyánt sò 'nyád vádet (ÇB.) *as if, intending to say one thing, one were to say another*.

949. The periphrastic future is defined by the grammarians as expressing something to be done at a definite time to come. And this, though but faintly traceable in later use, is a distinct characteristic of the formation in the language where it first makes its appearance. It is especially often used along with çvās *tomorrow*.

a. A few examples are: adyá varṣiṣyati...çvó vraṣṭā (MS.) *it is going to rain today; it will rain tomorrow*; yatarān vā ime çvaḥ kamitāras te jetāras (K.) *whichever of the two parties these shall choose tomorrow, they will conquer*; prātār yaṣṭāśmahe (TB.) *we shall sacrifice tomorrow morning*; ityahé vaḥ paktāsmi (ÇB.) *on such and such a day I will cook for you*; tán ma ékāṃ rátrim ánte çayitāse jātá u te 'yám tárhi putró bhavitā (ÇB.) *then you shall lie with me one night, and at that time this son of yours will be born*. In other cases, this definiteness of time is wanting, but an emphasis, as of special certainty, seems perhaps to belong to the form: thus, bibhṛhí mā pārayiṣyāmi tvé 'ti: kásmān mā pārayiṣyasí 'ty āughá imāḥ sárvaḥ prajā nirvoḍhá, tátas tvā pārayitāsmí 'ti (ÇB.) *support me and I will save you, said it. From what will you save me? said he. A flood is going to carry off all these creatures; from that I will save you, said it*; paridevayām cakrire mahac chokabhayam prāptāśmaḥ (GB.) *they set up a lamentation: "we are going to meet with great pain and dread"*; yaje 'yakṣi yaṣṭāhe ca (TA.) *I sacrifice, I have sacrificed, and I shall sacrifice*. In yet other cases,

in the older language even, and yet more in the later, this future appears to be equivalent to the other: thus, *prajāyām enaṁ vijñātāsmo yadi vidvān vā juhoty avidvān vā* (AB.) *in his children we shall know him, whether he is one that sacrifices with knowledge or without knowledge*; *vaktāsmo vā idaṁ devebhyaḥ* (AB.) *we shall tell this to the gods*; *yadi svārtho mamā 'pi bhavitā tata evaṁ svārthaṁ kariṣyāmi* (MBh.) *if later my own affair shall come up, then I will attend to my own affair*; *kathaṁ tu bhavitāsy eka iti tvāṁ nrpa ṇocimi* (MBh.) *but how will you get along alone? that, O king, is the cause of my grief about you*.

950. The conditional would seem to be most originally and properly used to signify that something *was going to* be done. And this value it has in its only Vedic occurrence, and occasionally elsewhere. But usually it has the sense ordinarily called "conditional"; and in the great majority of its occurrences it is found (like the subjunctive and the optative, when used with the same value) in both clauses of a conditional sentence.

a. Thus, *yó vṛtrāya sínām átrā 'bharīṣyat prá tám jánitrī vidúṣa uvāca* (RV.) *him, who was going here to carry off Vritra's wealth, his mother proclaimed to the knowing one*; *ṣatāyurṁ gām akariṣyam* (AB.) *I was going to make (should have made) the cow live a hundred years* (in other versions of the same story is added the other clause, in which the conditional has a value more removed from its original: thus, in GB., *if you, villain, had not stopped [prāgrahīṣyaḥ] my mouth*); *táta evā 'sya bhayāṁ vī 'yāya kásmād dhy ábheṣyad dvitíyād vāí bhayám bhavati* (ÇB.) *thereupon his fear departed; for of whom was he to be afraid? occasion of fear arises from a second person*; *útpapāta cirāṁ tán mene yád vāsaḥ paryádhāsyata* (ÇB.) *he leaped up; he thought it long that he should put on a garment*; *sá tát evá ná 'vindat prajāpatir yátrā 'hoṣyat* (MS.) *Prajāpati, verily, did not then find where he was to (should) sacrifice*; *evaṁ cen nā 'vakṣyo mūrdhā te vyapatiṣyat* (GB.) *if you should not speak thus, your head would fly off*; *sá yád dhāi 'tāvad evá 'bhaviṣyad yāvatyo hāi 'vá 'gre prajāḥ sṛṣṭās tāvatyo hāi 'vā 'bhaviṣyan ná prā 'janiṣyanta* (ÇB.) *if he had been only so much, there would have been only so many living creatures as were created at first; they would have had no progeny*; *kiṁ vā 'bhaviṣyad aruṇas tamasāṁ vibhettā taṁ cet sahasrakiraṇo dhuri nā 'kariṣyat* (Ç.) *would the Dawn, forsooth, be the scatterer of the darkness, if the thousand-rayed one did not set her on the front of his chariot?*

CHAPTER XIII.

VERBAL ADJECTIVES AND NOUNS: PARTICIPLES, INFINITIVES, GERUNDS.

951 a. Those verbal adjectives, or participles, which are made from tense-stems, and so constitute a part of the various tense-systems, have been already treated. It remains to describe certain others, which, being made directly from the root itself, belong to the verbal system as a whole, and not to any particular part of it.

b. The infinitive (with a few sporadic exceptions in the older language) also comes in all cases from the root directly, and not from any of the derived tense-stems.

c. The same is true of the so-called gerunds, or indeclinable participles.

Passive Participle in *tá* or *ná*.

952. By accented suffix त *tá* — or, in a comparatively small number of verbs, न *ná* — is formed a verbal adjective which, when coming from transitive verbs, qualifies anything as having endured the action expressed by the verb: thus, दत्त *dattá given*; उक्त *uktá spoken*. Hence it is usually called the passive participle; or, to distinguish it from the participle belonging to the passive present-system (771), the past passive participle.

a. When made from an intransitive or neuter verb, the same participle, as in other languages, has no passive but only an indefinite past sense: thus, गत *gatá gone*; भूत *bhūtá been*; पतित *patitá fallen*.

953. In general, this participle is made by adding त *tá* to the bare verbal root, with observation of the ordinary rules of euphonic combination.

a. Some roots, however, require the prefixion of the auxiliary vowel *i* to the suffix. For these, and for the verbs that add *ná* instead of *tá*, see below, 956, 957.

b. As to the accent when the root is preceded by a preposition, see 1085 a.

954. The root before ण tá has usually its weakest form, if there is anywhere in the verbal system a distinction of weak and strong forms. Thus:

a. A penultimate nasal is not seldom dropped: examples are aktá (√añj), baddhá (√bandh), çrabdha (√çrambh), daṣṭá (√dañç), srasta (√srañs), bāḍha (√bañh).

b. Roots which are abbreviated in the weak forms of the perfect (794) suffer the same abbreviation here: examples are uktá (√vac), uṣṭá (√vas *shine*), uptá (√vap: also vapta), ūḍhá (√vah), suptá (√svap), iṣṭá (√yaj), viddhá (√vyadh); — and, by a similar procedure, √prach (or praç) makes prṣṭá, √bhrañç makes bhrṣṭa (beside the regular bhraṣṭá), and √çra *boil* makes çṛṭá (beside çrātá).

c. Final ā is weakened to ī in gītá (√gā *sing*), dhītá (√dhā *suck*), pītá (√pā *drink*), sphīta; and jītá, vītá, çītá are made from the roots jyā, vyā, çyā, (or jī etc.); — and further to i in chitá (beside chātá), dita (√dā *divide* and dā *bind*), drita (? √drā *sleep*), hitá (√dhā *put*: with h for dh; but dhita also occurs in V.), mitá (√mā *measure*), çitá (also çāta), sitá, sthitá.

d. A final m is lost after a in gatá, natá, yatá, ratá (from √gam etc.); and a final n in kṣata, tatá, matá, hatá. As to the other roots in am and an taking ta, see 955 a, b.

e. More isolated cases are -ūta (RV.: √av), utá or ūta (√vā *weave*), çīṣṭá (also çāsta: √çās), mūrtá (referred to √mūrçh). As to -gdha and jagdhá, see 233 f.

f. On the other hand, √svad makes svāttá.

955. Of more irregular character are the following:

a. A number of roots ending in am retain the nasal, and lengthen the radical vowel (as also in some others of their verbal forms): thus, kām̐ta, krām̐tá, klām̐tá, kṣām̐ta, cām̐ta, tām̐tá, dām̐tá, bhrām̐ta, vām̐tá, çām̐tá (√çam *be quiet*), çrām̐tá (from √kam etc.); and one in an, dhvan *sound*, makes dhvāntá.

b. A few roots in an make their participle from another root-form in ā: thus, khātá, jātá, -vāta, sātá; dham has both dhamitá and dhmātá.

c. Certain roots in īv take their yū-form (765 a): thus, dyūtá (√dīv *play*), ṣṭhyūta, syūtá; but √mīv *makes* -mūta.

d. From roots in changeable ṛ (generally taking na: 957 b) are made also pūrtá (√pṛ *fill*: beside pṛta), çīrtá and çūrtá (√çṛ *crush*); and çīrtá is further made from √çrī *mix*.

e. Double forms are mugdhá and mūḍha, sāḍhá and soḍha, dhūrta and dhruta, hvṛta and hrutá.

f. The root *dā* *give* makes dattá (from the secondary root-form *dad*; but *dāta* also in V.). But the anomalously contracted form *-tta* (as if for *dāta*, with the radical vowel lost) is also frequent in composition, especially with prepositions: thus, átta, ánutta, páritta, prátta, prátitta; rarely with other elements, as devátta, punartta, marúttá (?). And the same abbreviated form comes from *√dā* *divide* in ávatta.

g. The roots making participles in both *ta* and *ita*, or *ta* and *na*, or in all three, will be noted in the next two paragraphs.

956. The suffix with *इ* *i*, or in the form *इत* *itá*, used especially with roots having finals that are only with difficulty, if at all, combinable with *त* *t* according to the usual analogies of the language, and often with roots of a secondary, derivative, or late character; but also not seldom with original roots.

a. Thus, of roots presenting difficulties of combination: — 1. all that end in two consonants (save those of which one consonant is lost by a weakening process: 964 a, b): e. g. *çañk*, *valg*, *vāñch*, *lajj*, *ubj*, *ceṣṭ*, *ghūrṇ*, *katth*, *nind*, *jalp*, *cumb*, *umbh*, *khall*, *pinv*, *çañs* (also *çastá*), *rakṣ*, *hiñs*, *garh* (in all, over fifty); but *takṣ* makes *taṣṭá*; — 2. all that end in linguals (including *ṣ* after *a* or *ā*): e. g. *aṭ*, *truṭ*, *paṭh*, *luṭh*, *īḍ*, *vruḍ*, *bhaṇ*, *kaṣ*, *bhāṣ*; — 3. all that end in surd spirants: e. g. *likh*, *grath*, *nāth*, *kuth*, *riph*, *guph*; — 4. all that end in *l*: e. g. *cal*, *gil*, *mīl*, *lul*, *khel*; — 6. all that end in other persistent semivowels: namely, *carv* (also *cūrṇa*), *jīv* (for the other roots in *īv*, see 955 c), *dhāv* *run*, *sev*, *day*, *vyay*, *pūy*; — 6. *ujh*. — This class includes more than half of the whole number that take only *ita*.

b. Of other roots ending in consonants: — 1. in gutturals, *cak*, *ḍhāuk* (*çak* has both *ta* and *ita*); *ḍlāgh*; — 2. in palatals, *ac* (also *akná*), *uc*, *kuc*, *khac*, *yāc*, *ruc*; *aj?*, *kūj*, *vraj*, also *tyaj* and *mṛj* in late texts (usually *tyaktá* and *mṛṣṭá*); — 3. in dentals, *at*, *pat*, *çcut*, also *yat* in epos (elsewhere only *yattá*); *krad*, *khād*, *gad*, *cud*, *nad*, *mud*, *mṛd*, *rad*, *rud*, *vad*, *vid* *know*, *hrād*; also *nud* in epos (elsewhere *nuttá* and *nunna*); *mad* has both *mattá* and *maditá* (the majority of roots in *d* take *na*: 957 d); *edh*, *kṣudh*, *gadh*, *dudh*, *nādh*, *bādh*, *spardh*; *an*, *in*, *kvan*, *dhvan*, *pan*, *ran* *ring*, *van*, *stan*, *svan*, and *dhvan* (also *dhvāntá*); — 4. in labials, *cup*, *yup*, *rup*, and usually *kup* (*kupta* late) and *lap* (*lapta* epic), occasionally *kṣip*, *gup*, *tap*, *dṛp*, *vap*, *çap*, while *jap* has both *ta* and *ita*; *grabh* (*gṛbhītá*), *çubh*, *skabh*, and occasionally *lubh*, while *kṣubh* and *stabh* have both forms; *tim*, *dham*, *çam* *labor*, *stim*, and *kṣam* in epos (also *kṣāṁta*); — 5. in spirants, *aç* *eat*, *īç*, *kāç*, *kṛç*, *vāç*, *çac*,

while piç has both forms, and mṛç takes ita only late; iṣ *send*, iṣ, kuṣ, tṛṣ, tviṣ, pruṣ, miṣ, rūṣ, heṣ, hreṣ, also muṣ except late, while dhrṣ, ruṣ, and hrṣ show both forms; ās, bhas, bhās, ras, las, vas *clothe*, has, also as *throw* occasionally, while kas, gras, yas, vas *shine*, vas *dwel*, çās (with çīṣṭá and çāsta), çvas, and hras make both forms; ṭh, grah (grhītá), jah (secondary form of hā), mah, rah, and occasionally ūh *remove*, while gāh has both forms.

c. Of roots ending in vowels, only çī *lie*, which makes çayita (with guṇa of root, as elsewhere: 629).

d. In general, a root maintains its full form before ita; but there are a few exceptions: thus, grbhītá and grhītá (the root being reckoned as grabh and grah: see 729), uditá (also vadita in the later language), uṣita (√vas *shine*; beside uṣṭá), uṣita (√vas *dwel*; also sporadically vasita and uṣṭa), ukṣitá (√vaká *increase*), çrthitá (√çrath). From √mrj are made both mrjita and mārjita (with strengthening as in present and elsewhere: 627), beside mṛṣṭá.

e. Instead of i, long ī is taken in grbhītá and grhītá.

957. The suffix ण ná (always without auxiliary ऋ i) is taken instead of त tá by a number of roots (about seventy). Thus:

a. Certain roots in ā: thus, kṣā, glā, drā *run*, drā *sleep*, (also drita?), mlā (also mlātá), vā *blow* (also vāta), çyā (also çíná), styā, hā *leave* (also híná and hāta), hā *go forth*; and dā *divide* makes diná (also dita and -tta). Further, certain roots in i- and u-vowels: thus, kṣi *destroy* (kṣīṇa; also kṣitá), ñī, pī, lī *cling*, vlī, çī or çyā *coagulate* (beside çyāna and çīta), hrī (beside hrīta); dū *burn* (also duta), lū, çū; and dīv *lament* makes dyūna (compare 765).

b. Roots in ṛ, which before the suffix becomes īr or ūr: the forms are, arṇa (late; beside rtá), kīrṇa (√kr *scatter*), gīrṇá (√gr *swallow*), jīrṇá and jūrṇá (√jr *waste away*), tīrṇá and tūrṇa (also tūrtá), dīrṇá (√dṛ *pierce*; also dṛta), pūrṇá (√pr *fill*; also pūrtá and pṛta), mūrṇá (√mr *crush*), çīrṇá (√çṛ *crush*; also çīrta and çūrtá?), stīrṇá (also stṛta). Of like character with these are īrṇá from √īr, cīrṇa (beside carita) from √car, gūrṇa (beside gūrtá) from √gur, a secondary form of gr, and cūrṇa (beside carvita) from √carv, which is also plainly a secondary root.

c. A few roots ending in j (which becomes g before the suffix, against the usual rule of internal combination: 216 f): thus, bhagna (√bhañj), bhugna (√bhuj *bend*), magná (√majj), rugṇá, vigna (beside vikta). Further, two or three ending in c (similarly treated): thus, akná (√ac or añc: also acita and añcita), vṛkná (√vraçc), and apparently -pṛgṇa (RV., once: with doubly irregular change of root-final, from √pṛc). And one root in g, lagna.

d. A considerable number, some of them very common ones, of roots in *d* (which, against ordinary rule, becomes *n* before the suffix: 157 b). The forms are: *unna* (also *utta*), *arṇṇa?*, *klinna*, *kṣuṇṇa*, *kṣviṇṇa*, *khinna*, *channa*, *chinná*, *chṛṇṇá*, *tunná*, *tṛṇṇá*, *nunna* (also *nuttá* and *nudita*), *panná*, *bhinná*, *vinna* (*√vid find*: also *vittá*), *ṇanna* (*√ṇad fall*), *sanná* (also *sattá*), *skanná* (*√skand*), *syanná* (*√syand*), *svinná*, *hanna*. And *ánna food*, in spite of its different accent, appears to be a like formation from *√ad eat*.

958. The native grammarians reckon as participles of this formation a few miscellaneous derivative adjectives, coming from roots which do not make a regular participle: such are *kṣāma burnt*, *kṛcá emaciated*, *pakvá ripe*, *phullá expanded*, *ṇúṣka dry*.

Past Active Participle in *tavant* (or *navant*).

959. From the past passive participle, of whatever formation, is made, by adding the possessive suffix *वन्* *vant*, a secondary derivative having the meaning and construction of a perfect active participle: for example, *तत् कृतवान्* *tát kṛtāvān* *having done that*; *तम् निगिरणवान्* *taṁ nigīṛṇavān* *having swallowed him down*. Its inflection is like that of other derivatives made with this suffix (452 ff.); its feminine ends in *वती* *vatī*; its accent remains on the participle.

960. Derivative words of this formation are found in RV., but without anything like a participial value. The AV. has a single example, with participial meaning: *aṇitāvaty átithāu* *one's guest having eaten* (loc. abs.). In the Brāhmaṇas also it is hardly met with. In the later language, however, it comes to be quite common. And there it is chiefly used predicatively, and oftenest without copula expressed, or with the value of a personal verb-form in a past tense: primarily, and not seldom, signifying immediate past, or having a true "perfect" value; but also (like the old perfect and the old aorist in later use) coming to be freely used for indefinite time, or with the value of the imperfect (779). For example: *māṁ na kaṇcid dṛṣṭavān* *no one has seen (or saw) me*; *sa nakulaṁ vyāpāditavān* *he destroyed the ichneumon*; or, with copula, *mahat kṛcchram prāptavaty asi* *thou hast fallen upon great misery*. Although originally and properly made only from transitive verbs (with an object, to which the participle in *ta* stands in the relation of an objective predicate), it is finally found also from intransitives: thus, *cūtena saṁcṛitavatī* (Ç.) *has become united with the mango-tree*; *gatavatī* (ib.) *she has gone*.

a. The same participle is also made in the secondary conjugations: e. g. *darṇitavant* *having shown*, *prabodhitavant* *having awakened*.

b. Possessives also in in made from passive participles are sometimes found used in an analogous manner, nearly as perfect active participles: e. g. iṣṭín *having sacrificed*, vijitino manyamānāḥ (AB.) *thinking themselves to have conquered*.

Future Passive Participles: Gerundives.

961. Certain derivative adjectives (for the most part more or less clearly secondary derivatives) have acquired in the language a value as qualifying something which is to, or which ought to, suffer the action expressed by the root from which they come; and they are allowed to be made from every verb. Hence they are, like more proper participles, sometimes treated as a part of the general verbal system, and called future passive participles, or gerundives (like the Latin forms in *ndus*, to which they correspond in meaning).

962. The suffixes by which such gerundives are regularly and ordinarily made are three: namely य *ya*, तव्य *tavya*, and अनीय *anīya*.

a. Derivatives in *ya* having this value are made in all periods of the language, from the earliest down; the other two are of more modern origin, being entirely wanting in the oldest Veda (RV.), and hardly known in the later. Other derivatives of a similar character, which afterward disappear from use, are found in the Veda (966).

963. The suffix *ya* in its gerundive use has nothing to distinguish it from the same suffix as employed to make adjectives and nouns of other character (see below, 1213). And it exhibits also the same variety in the treatment of the root.

a. The original value of the suffix is *ia*, and as such it has to be read in the very great majority of its Vedic occurrences. Hence the conversion of *e* and *o* to *ay* and *av* before it (see below).

b. Thus: 1. Final *ā* becomes *e* before the suffix: déya, dhyeya, khyéya, méya (perhaps dá-ia etc., with euphonic *y* interposed); but RV. has once -jñāya. — 2. The other vowels either remain unchanged, or have the guṇa or the vṛddhi strengthening; and *e* usually and *o* always are treated before the *ya* as they would be before a vowel: thus, -kṣayya, jáyya, bháyya, lāyya; návyā, bhávya, hávyā, bhāvyá; vārya: and, in the later language, nīya, jeya, dhūya (such cases are wanting earlier). In a few instances, a short vowel adds *t*

before the suffix: thus, itya, mitya, ṣrútya, stútya, kṛtya (the only Vedic examples). — 3. Medial a remains unchanged or is lengthened: thus, dābhya, vāndya, sādya; mādya, vācya. — 4. Medial i-, u-, and ṛ-vowels are unchanged or have the guṇa-strengthening: thus, íḍya, gúhya, dhṛṣya; dvéṣya, yódhya, márjya.

c. The RV. has about forty examples of this gerundive, and the AV. adds half as many more. Except in bhāviá (once), the accent in RV. is always on the root; AV. has several cases of accent on the i of the suffix (hence written ādyà, ācyà, -vyādhyà, -dharṣyà). According to the grammarians, the accent is on the root or else the ending is circumflexed: always the former, if the ya follow a vowel.

964. a. The suffix tavya is a secondary adjective derivative from the infinitival noun in tu (below, 968), made by adding the suffix ya (properly ía, whence the accent yà), before which the final u, as usual (1203 a), has guṇa-strengthening, and is resolved into av.

b. Hence, as regards both the form taken by the root and the use or omission of an auxiliary vowel i before the tavya, the rules are the same as for the formation of the infinitive (below, 968).

c. No example of this formation is found in RV., and in AV. occur only two, janitavyà and hiṁsitavyà. In the Brāhmaṇa language it begins to be not rare, and is made both from the simple root and from the derived conjugational stems (next chapter); in the classical language it is still more frequent. According to the grammarians, the accent of the word is either circumflex on the final or acute on the penult: thus, kartavyà or kartávya; in the accentuated texts, it is always the former (the accent távyā given to certain gerundives in the Petersburg lexicons is an error, growing out of the ambiguous accentuation of ÇB.: 88 c).

965. a. The suffix anīya is in like manner the product of secondary derivation, made by adding the adjective suffix īya (1215) to a *nomen actionis* formed by the common suffix ana.

b. It follows, then, as regards its mode of formation, the rules for the suffix ana (below, 1150).

c. This derivative also is unknown in RV., and in AV. is found only in upajīvanīya and āmantranīya (in both of which, moreover, its distinct gerundive value admits of question). In the Brāhmaṇas (where less than a dozen examples of it have been noted), and in the later language, it is less common than the gerundive in tavya. Its accent, as in all the derivatives with the suffix īya, is on the penult: thus, karaṇīya.

966. Other formations of kindred value are found in the Veda as follows:

a. Gerundives in tua or tva, apparently made from the infinitival noun in tu with the added suffix a (1209). They are kártua (in two occurrences kártva), -gaṁtva, jántua, jétua, námtua, váktua, sótua,

snátua, hántua, hétua, hótva; and, with auxiliary i (or ī), jānitva, sānitva, bhāvītva.

b. Gerundives in enia or enya (compare 1217): they are īkṣeṇia, īdēṇia, carēṇia, dṛcēṇia, -dviṣeṇia, bhūṣeṇya, yudhēṇia, vāreṇia (and bhajenya BhP.); with one example from an apparent aorist-stem, yaṁsēṇya, and three or four from secondary verb-stems (see below, 1019, 1038, 1068 a).

c. Gerundives in āyia (once āyya: compare 1218): they are dakṣāyia, panāyia, vidāyia, çravāyia, hnavāyia; with a few from secondary conjugation-stems (below, 1019, 1038, 1051, 1068a); and stuṣēyia is of close kindred with them.

d. A few adjectives in elima, as paelima, bhidelima (only these quotable), are reckoned as gerundives by the grammarians.

967. The division-line between participial and ordinary adjectives is less strictly drawn in Sanskrit than in the other Indo-European languages. Thus, adjectives in u, as will be seen later (1178), from secondary conjugational stems, have participial value; and in the Brāhmaṇas (with an example or two in AV.) is found widely and commonly used a participial adjective formed with the suffix uka (1180).

Infinitives.

968. The later language has only a single infinitive, which is the accusative case of a verbal noun formed by the suffix तु tu, added to the root usually directly, but often also with aid of the preceding auxiliary vowel इ i. The form of the infinitive ending, therefore, is तुम् tum or इतुम् itum. The root has the guṇa-strengthening, and is accented. Thus, for example, एतुम् étum from √इ i; कर्तुम् kártum from √कृ kṛ; चरितुम् cáritum from √चर् car; भवितुम् bhávitum from √भू bhū.

a. As regards the use or omission of i, the infinitive (as also the gerund in tvā: 991) follows in general the analogy of the passive participle (956). Examples are (with the gerund added) as follows: dagdhá, dagdhum, dagdhvā from √dah; bhinná, bhéttum, bhittvā from √bhid; matá, mántum, matvā from √man; ūḍhá, vóḍhum, ūḍhvā from √vah; patitá, pátitum, patitvā from √pat; yācitá, yācitum, yācitvā from √yāc; çayitá, çáyitum, çayitvā from √çī. But certain exceptions and special cases require notice. Thus:

b. Of roots having no quotable participle, infinitive stems in tu are made from ad, sagh; in itu from uñch, ūh *consider*, kṣap, luṇṭh, lok, svar; and in both from yabh.

c. Of roots making participles of both forms, an infinitive stem in *tu* only is quotable for *kṣip*, *kṣubh*, *tap*, *tyaj*, *mṛç*, *lubh*, *vas* *shine*, *çak*, *stabh*; only in *itu* for *gāh*, *carv*, *jap*, *mad*, *yat*, *van*, *çaṅs*, *çvas*; in both for as *throw*, *ūh* *remove*, *gup*, *car*, *mṛj* (*mārṣtu*, *mārjitu*), *lap*, *vas* *dwel*, *çap*, *çās*.

d. Also in a number of other cases (besides those already noticed) an infinitive stem is made both with and without *i*. Thus, in addition to the more regular form, a stem in *itu* is occasionally met with from roots *aç* *attain*, *iṣ* *seek*, *bandh*, *bhaj*, *yaj* (*ījitum*), *rudh* *obstruct*, *ruh*, *vṛṣ*, *sad* (*sīditum*), *sah*, *han*, *hṛ*; and one in *tu* from roots *ās*, *bhāṣ*, *vid* *know*. Both forms occur also from certain *am*-roots, namely *nam*, *yam*, *ram*, and, with *ā* before *tu* as in the *ppl*, *kram* and *bhram* (*kṣam* has only *kṣāmtu*, against the analogy of *kṣām̐ta*); further, from certain roots in variable *ṛ*, namely *tṛ* (*tartu*, *tarītu*), *vṛ* *cover* (*vārtu*, *varītu*), and *stṛ* (*stārtu*, *staritu*, *stārītu*) (but from *çṛ* *crush* occur only *çārītu*, *çaritu*, and from *vṛ* *choose* only *varītu*; while *gṛ* *swallow* and *pṛ* *fill* make their infinitive from other root-forms, namely *giritum*, *pūritum*); further, from a few vowel-roots, namely *nī*, *cyu*, *sū* (*sūtu*); and finally from *kṛṣ*, *nṛt*, *çuc*.

e. Against the analogy of the participle, infinitive-stems in *itu* after a final consonant are made from the roots *av*, *kṣan*, *khan* and *jan* (the *ppls* coming from *khā* and *jā*), *guh*, *jabh*, *tam*, *dīv* *play* and *dīv* *lament* (both *devitu*), *majj*, *vṛt*, *vṛdh*, *srp*; and after a final vowel, from roots in *ū*, namely *pū*, *bhū*, *sū* (also *sūtu*), and from *çri* and *çvi*; as to roots in variable *ṛ*, see just above, d.

f. As the infinitive is made from the (accented and) strengthened root, so it naturally has, as a rule, the stronger or fuller root-form where a weaker or contracted form is taken by the participle (and gerund in *tvā*): e. g. *vāktu* against *uktā* (and *uktvā*), *yāṣtu* against *iṣṭā* (and *iṣṭvā*), *banddhum* against *baddhā* (and *baddhvā*), and so on. Deserving special notice are *gātu* (*√gā* *sing*) against *gītā*, and *dhātu* (*√dhā* *suck*) against *dhītā*; and so from *dā* *give* and *hā* *leave* are made only *dātu* and *hātu*; but *dhā* *put*, *mā* *measure*, and *sthā* add to the regular *dhātu*, *mātu*, *sthātu* the late forms *-dhitu*, *-mitu*, *-sthitu*; and *sā* or *si* has *sātu*, *sētu*, and *-situ*; *vā* *weave* (*ppl* *utā*) has both *vātu* and *ótu*; *hū* or *hvā* has *havītu*, *hváyitu*, and *hvātu*. The root *vyadh* makes its only quotable infinitive, *veddhum*, from its *vidh*-form; from *sañj* or *saj* occur both *sañktu* and *saktu*. The anomalous epic forms *ījitum* (*√yaj*) and *sīditum* (*√sad*), were mentioned above. The root *grab* makes *grāhītum*.

g. In the later language, the infinitive-stem forms possessive compounds with *kāma* and *manas* (especially the former): e. g. *svaptukāma* *having the wish to sleep*, *yaṣṭukāma* *desirous of sacrificing*, *vaktumanas* *mindful to speak*.

h. In very rare instances, dative infinitives in *tave* or *tavāi* are

made from the infinitive stem in the later language (as abundantly in the earlier: 970 b): thus, pratihartave (BhP.). And jīvase (973 a) is once found in MBh. (i. 3. 67 = 732), in a quasi-Vedic hymn to the Aṣvins.

969. In the Veda and Brāhmaṇa, however, a number of verbal nouns, *nomina actionis*, in various of their cases, are used in constructions which assimilate them to the infinitive of other languages — although, were it not for these other later and more developed and pronounced infinitives, the constructions in question might pass as ordinary case-constructions of a somewhat peculiar kind.

970. The nouns thus used infinitively are the following:

a. The root-noun, without derivative suffix, is so used in its accusative in *am*, its dative in *e* or (from ā-roots) *āi*, its genitive and ablative in *as*, and its locative in *i*.

b. The verbal noun in *tu* is so used in its accusative in *tum*, its dative in *tave* or *tavāi*, and its ablative and genitive in *tos*.

Of other nouns only single cases, generally datives, are reckoned as used with infinitive value; thus:

c. From the verbal noun in *as*, the dative in *ase*; and also, in an extremely small number of instances, a dative in *se* (or *še*), from a noun formed with *s* simply.

d. From nouns in *man* and *van*, datives in *mane* and *vane*.

e. From nouns in *ti*, datives in *taye*, or (from one or two verbs) in *tyāi*.

f. From nouns in *i*, datives in *āye*.

g. From nouns in *dhi* and *ṣi*, datives in *dhyāi* and *ṣyāi*.

h. A few infinitives in *ṣaṇi* are perhaps locatives from nouns in *an* added to a root increased by *s*.

i. From a single root, *dhṛ*, are made infinitively used forms in *tāri*, of which the grammatical character is questionable.

j. Among all these, the forms which have best right to special treatment as infinitives, on account of being of peculiar formation, or from suffixes not found in other uses, or for both reasons, are those in *še*, *ṣaṇi*, *tari*, *dhyāi*, and *tavāi*.

k. Except the various cases of the derivative in *tu*, and of the root-noun, these infinitives are almost wholly unknown outside the Rīg-Veda.

l. Other suffixes and forms than those noticed above might be added; for it is impossible to draw any fixed line between the uses classed as infinitive and the ordinary case-uses: thus, *prajāpatim praçṇām āitām* (TS.) *they went to ask Prajāpati*; *vīçvaṁ jīvām prasuvāntī carāyāi* (RV.) *quickenning every living being to motion*; *apāḥ sarmāya codāyan* (RV.) *impelling the waters to flow*; *çaknuýád grāhaṇāya* (instead of the usual *grāhītum*: ÇB.) *may be able to apprehend*; *ā*

tamanāt (instead of the usual tamitoḥ: S.) *until exhaustion*. And the so-called infinitives

are found coördinated in the same sentence with common nouns, and even with compound nouns: e. g. *cáritave... ābhogáya iṣṭáye rāyé* (RV.) *to go abroad, to enjoy, to seek wealth*; *ārtatrāṇāya na prahartum anāgasi* (Ç.) *for the rescue of the distressed, not for hurling at the innocent*.

More special rules as to the various formations are as follows:

971. The root-noun used as infinitive has the same form (except that it does not take an added t: 383 f), and the same accent, both when simple and when combined with prepositions, as in its other uses. In the very great majority of instances, it is made from roots ending in a consonant; but also from a few in *ā* (*khyā, dā, dhā, pā?*, *mā, yā*), from two or three in *i-* and *u-* vowels (*hi, mī, bhū*), and from one or two in changeable *ṛ*, which takes the *ir*-form (*tir, stir*).

a. The roots in *ā* form the accus. in *ām*, the dat. in *āi*, the abl. in *ās* (understanding *avasā* before *ā* as for *avasās* and not *avasāi* in RV. iii. 53. 20), and the locative in *e* (only two examples, of which one is perhaps better understood as dative).

972. The infinitive noun in *tu* is made freely from roots of every form. The root takes the *guṇa*-strengthening, if capable of it, and often adds the auxiliary vowel *i* before the suffix (according to the rules already stated, 968). The root is accented, unless the noun be combined with a preposition, in which case the latter has the accent instead: thus, *kártum, étave, hántos*; but *níkartum, níretave, nírhantos*.

a. The dative in *tavāi* is in two respects anomalous: in having the heavy feminine ending *āi* along with a strengthened *u*; and in taking a double accent, one on the root or on the prefixed preposition, and the other on the ending *āi*: thus, *étavāi, hántavāi, átyetavāi, ápabhartavāi*.

973. a. The infinitive in *ase* is made in RV. from about twenty-five roots; in AV. and later there have been noted no other examples of it. In near three quarters of the cases, the accent is on the suffix: e. g. *ṛñjāse, jīvāse, bhiyāse, tujāse*; the exceptions are *cákṣase; dhāyase* (with *y* inserted before the suffix: 258); and *áyase, bhārāse, spārāse, hārāse* (with *guṇa*-strengthening of the root). Strengthening of the root is also shown by *javāse, dohāse, bhojāse, çobhāse*. In *puṣyāse* is seen, apparently, the present-stem instead of the root.

b. The ending *se* is extremely rare, being found only in *jiśé* and perhaps *stuśé*, and one or two still more doubtful cases.

974. Infinitives in *mane* are made from only five roots: thus, *trāmaṇe, dāmaṇe, dārmaṇe, bhārmaṇe*, and (with different accent) *vidmaṇe*. From $\sqrt{dā}$ comes *dāvāne*; *turvāṇe* may come directly from $\sqrt{tr}$, or through the secondary root *turv*; *dhúrvaṇe* is rather from $\sqrt{dhūrv}$ than from $\sqrt{dhvr}$.

975. a. The infinitives in *taye* are *iṣṭáye* ($\sqrt{iṣ}$), *pītáye* ($\sqrt{pā}$ *drink*), *vītáye, sātáye*, and perhaps *ūtáye* (*ūtáye nṛṇ to help his men*:

(RV.). In *tyāi*, the only examples noted are *ityāi* (RV.) and *sādhyāi* (MS. AB.).

b. With *aye* are formed *iśāye*, *tujāye*, *dṛçāye*, *mahāye*, *yudhāye*, *sanāye* ; and *citāye* (VS.), *grhaye* (K.).

976. The ending *dhyāi* is, more than any other, irregular and various in its treatment. It has always an *a* before it; and in the majority of cases it is accented upon this *a*, and added to a weak form of root: thus, *çucádhyāi*, *pṛṇádhyāi*, *dhiyádhyāi*, *huvádhyāi*. But the form of root is the strong one in a few cases: namely, *çayádhyāi*, *stavádhyāi*, *tarádhyāi*, *jarádhyāi*, *mandádhyāi*, *vandádhyāi*. In half-a-dozen forms, again, the root has the accent: namely, *kṣáradhyāi*, *gámadhyāi*, *yájadhyāi* (but once or twice also *yajádhyāi*), *váhadhyāi*, *sáhadhyāi*, *bháradhyāi*. In a single instance, *píbadhyāi*, the suffix is added distinctly to a present-stem; and in one, *vāṛdhádhyāi*, to a perfect stem. Finally, in a number of instances (ten), this infinitive is made from a causative stem in *ay*: thus, *mādayádhyāi*, *riṣayádhyāi*, etc.

a. This infinitive is by no means rare in RV., being made in thirty-five different forms (with seventy-two occurrences). But it is hardly known outside of the RV.; the AV. has it but once (in a passage found also in RV.); and elsewhere half-a-dozen examples have been noticed, in mantra-passages (one of them TS. falsely reads *gámadhye*); in the Brāhmaṇa language proper it appears to be entirely wanting.

977. An example or two are met with of an infinitive in *ṣyāi*: thus, *róhiṣyāi* (TS.), *avyathiṣyāi* (K. Kap.; MS. *avyáthiṣe*; VS. *vyathiṣat*), and perhaps *-dhāsyāi* (PGS.).

978. The infinitives in *ṣaṇi* are: *iṣáṇi* (?) from $\sqrt{iṣ}$ *send*, *-bhūṣáṇi* from $\sqrt{bhū}$; *çūṣáṇi* from $\sqrt{çū}$ or $\sqrt{çvā}$; *neṣáṇi* from $\sqrt{nī}$; *sakṣáṇi* from $\sqrt{sah}$; *parṣáṇi* from $\sqrt{pr}$, *tarīṣáṇi* from $\sqrt{tr}$; and *grṇīṣáṇi* and *-strṇīṣáṇi* from $\sqrt{gr}$ and *str* — the last containing evident present tense-signs (compare the 1st sing. *grṇīṣé*, 894 d).

979. The only infinitive in *tari* is *dhartári* (with its compound *vidhartári*), from $\sqrt{dhr}$.

Uses of the Infinitives.

980. The uses of the so-called infinitives are for the most part closely accordant with those of the corresponding cases from other abstract nouns. Thus:

981. The accusative, which is made only from the root-noun and the noun in *tu*, is used as object of a verb.

a. Especially, of forms from the root *çak* *be able*, and *arh* *be worthy*, *have the right or the power*. Thus, *çakéma tvā samídham* (RV.) *may we accomplish thy kindling*; *má çakan pratidhām iṣum* (AV.) *may they not be able to fit the arrow to the string*; *máno vá imām sadyāḥ páry-*

āptum arhati mánah páribhavitum (TS.) *the mind, forsooth, can at once attain and surpass her*; kó hy ètásyá 'rhati gúhyam nāma gráhītum (ÇB.) *for who is worthy to take his secret name?* In the Veda, the construction with these verbs is only one among others; in the Brāhmaṇa, it becomes the greatly prevalent one (three quarters or more of all the cases).

b. Further, of verbs of motion (next most frequent case): thus, dākṣiṇāni hótum eti (TS.) *he goes to sacrifice things pertaining to sacrificial gifts*; índram pratíram emy áyuh (RV.) *I go to Indra for (i. e. beseech of him) the lengthening out of life*; — of √dhṛ *persist in, undertake*: as, sá idám jātáḥ sárvam evá dagdhum dadhre (ÇB.) *he, as soon as born, began to burn this universe*; — of verbs meaning *desire, hope, notice, know*, and the like: as, páçān vicītaṁ vettha sárvān (AV.) *thou knowest how to loosen all bonds*; tásmād agním ná "driyeta párihantum (ÇB.) *therefore one should not be careful to smother the fire*; — and of others.

982. Of the infinitive datives, the fundamental and usual sense is that expressed by *for, in order to, for the purpose of*.

Examples are: víçam jīvām caráse bodháyantī (RV.) *awakening every living creature to motion*; tán úpa yāta píbadhyāi (RV.) *come to drink them*; nāi 'tām te devā adadur áttave (AV.) *the gods did not give her to thee for eating*; praí "d yudháye dásyum índrah (RV.) *Indra went forward to fight the demon*; cákṣur no dhehi vikhyāi (RV.) *give us sight for looking abroad*.

Some peculiar constructions, however, grow out of this use of the infinitive dative. Thus:

a. The noun which is logically the subject or the object of the action expressed by the infinitive is frequently put beside it in the dative (by a construction which is in part a perfectly simple one, but which is stretched beyond its natural boundaries by a kind of attraction): thus, cakāra sūryāya pānthām ānvetavā u (RV.) *he made a track for the sun to follow (made for the sun a track for his following)*; çīçīte çṛṅge rákṣobhyo viníkṣe (RV.) *he whets his horns to pierce the demons*; rudráya dhánur a tanomi brahmadvíṣe çárove hántavā u (RV.) *I stretch the bow for Rudra, that with his arrow he may slay the brahma-hater*; asmábhyam dṛçāye sūryāya púnar dātām ásum (RV.) *may they grant life again, that we may see the sun*.

b. An infinitive with √kṛ *make* is used nearly in the sense of a causative verb: thus, prá 'ndhām çroṇām cákṣasa étave kṛthaḥ (RV.) *ye make the blind and lame to see and go*; agním samídhe cakārtha (RV.) *thou hast made the fire to be kindled*. Of similar character is an occasional construction with another verb: as, yád īm uçmási kártave kárat tát (RV.) *what we wish to be done, may he do that*; kavíṇr icchāmi samdṛçe (RV.) *I desire to see the sages*.

c. A dative infinitive is not seldom used as a predicate, sometimes

with, but more usually without, a copula expressed: thus, agnír iva ná pratidhíṣe bhavati (TS.) *like fire, he is not to be resisted*; mahimā te anyéna ná saṁnáḇe (VS.) *thy greatness is not to be attained by another*; nákim índro níkartave ná çakráḥ páriçaktave (RV.) *Indra is not to be put down, the mighty one is not to be overpowered*.

d. Sometimes an infinitive so used without a copula has quite nearly the value of an imperative: thus, tyá me yaçásā... āuçijó huvádhyāi [asti] (RV.) *these glorious ones shall the son of Uçij invoke for me*; sūktébhir vaḥ... índrā nv àgní ávase huvádhyāi [staḥ] (RV.) *with your hymns shall ye call now on Indra and Agni for aid*; vandádhyā agníṁ námobhiḥ [asmi] (RV.) *let me greet Agni with homage*; asmákāsaç ca sūráyo víçvā áçās tariṣāṇi (RV.) *and let our sacrifices cross all regions*; tán nāi 'vám kártavāi (MS.) *that must not be done so*; brahmadvíṣaḥ çárove hántavā u (RV.) *let the arrow slay the brahma-haters*. The infinitives in dhyāi and ṣaṇi (which latter is in all its uses accordant with datives) are those in which the imperative value is most distinctly to be recognized.

e. In the Brāhmaṇas and Sūtras (especially in ÇB.) the dative in tavāi is not seldom used with a verb signifying *speaking* (brū, vac, ah), to express the ordering of anything to be done: thus, tásmād ósadhīnām evá mūlāny úcchettavāi brūyāt (ÇB.) *therefore let him direct the roots of the plants to be cut up* (*speaking in order to their cutting up*: cf. yé vaçáyā ádānāya vādanti *who dissuade from giving the cow*: AV.).

983. The ablative infinitive — which, like the accusative, is made only from the root-noun and that in tu — is found especially with the prepositions á *until* and purá *before*.

a. Thus, á támitoḥ (TS. etc.) *until exhaustion*; purá vācáḥ právaditoḥ (TS.) *before utterance of the voice*. In the Brāhmaṇa language, this is the well-nigh exclusive construction of the ablative (it occurs also with prāk, arvāk, etc.); in the Veda, the latter is used also after ṛté *without*, and after several verbs, as trā and pā *protect*, yu *separate*, bhī, etc.

b. In a few instances, by an attraction similar to that illustrated above for the dative (982 a), a noun dependent on this infinitive is put in the ablative beside it: thus, purā vāgbhyaḥ sampravaditoḥ (PB.) *before the utterance together of the voices*; trádhvam kartád avapádaḥ (RV.) *save us from falling down into the pit*; purā dakṣiṇābhyo netoḥ (Āpast.) *before the gifts are taken away*.

984. The genitive infinitive (having the same form as the ablative) is in common use in the Brāhmaṇa language as dependent on içvará *lord, master*, employed adjectively in the sense of *capable* or *likely* or *exposed to*.

a. Examples are: tá [devátāḥ] içvará enam pradáhaḥ (TS.) *they are likely to burn him up*; átha ha vá içvarò 'gním citvá kímcid dāuritám ápattor ví vā hváritoḥ (ÇB.) *so in truth he is liable*,

after piling the fire, to meet with some mishap or other, or to stagger; *īçvaraṃ vāi rathantaram udgātuḥ cakṣuḥ pramathitoḥ* (PB.) *the rathantara is liable to knock out the eye of the chanter*.

b. The dative is used in ÇB. instead of the genitive in a single phrase (*īçvarāú jānayatavāi*); and, in the later language, sometimes the accusative in turn. In a case or two the masc. sing. nom. *īçvaraḥ* is used, without regard to the gender or number of the word which it qualifies: thus, *tásye "çvaráḥ prajā pápīyasī bhávitoḥ* (ÇB.) *his progeny is liable to deteriorate*. And in a very few instances the word *īçvara* is omitted, and the genitive has the same value without it: thus, *dve madhyam̐dinam abhi pratyetoḥ* (AB.) *two may be added to the noon libation*; *táto dīkṣitáḥ pāmanó bhávitoḥ* (ÇB.) *then the consecrated is liable to get the itch*.

c. This construction with *īçvara*, which is the only one for the genitive infinitive in the Brāhmaṇa, is unknown in the Veda, where the genitive is found in a very small number of examples with *madhyá*, and with the root *īç*: thus, *madhyá kártoḥ* (RV.) *in the midst of action*; *íçe rāyó dátoḥ* (RV.) *he is master of the giving of wealth*; *íçe yótoḥ* (RV.) *is able to keep away*.

985. Unless the infinitives in *ṣaṇi* and *tari* are locative in form (their uses are those of datives), the locative infinitive is so rare, and has so little that is peculiar in its use, that it is hardly worth making any account of. An example is *uśáso budhí* (RV.) *at the awakening of the dawn*.

986. In the Veda, the dative infinitive forms are very much more numerous than the accusative (in RV., their occurrences are twelve times as many; in AV., more than three times); and the accusative in *tum* is rare (only four forms in RV., only eight in AV.). In the Brāhmaṇas, the accusative has risen to much greater comparative frequency (its forms are nearly twice as many as those of the dative); but the ablative-genitive, which is rare in the Veda, has also come to full equality with it. The disappearance in the classical language of all excepting the accusative in *tum* (but see 968 h) is a matter for no small surprise.

987. The later infinitive in *tum* is oftenest used in constructions corresponding to those of the earlier accusative: thus, *na vāṣpam açakat soḍhurn* *he could not restrain his tears*; *taṃ draṣṭum arhasi* *thou oughtest to see it*; *prāptum icchanti* *they desire to obtain*; *saṃkhyātum ārabdham* *having begun to count*. But also, not infrequently, in those of the other cases. So, especially, of the dative: thus, *avasthātum sthānāntaram̐ cintaya* *devise another place to stay in*; *tvām anveṣṭum ihā "gataḥ* *he has come hither to seek for thee*; — but likewise of the genitive: thus, *samartho gantum* *capable of going*; *saṃdhātum īçvaraḥ* *able to mend*. Even a construction as nominative is not unknown: thus, *yuktaṃ tasya mayā samāçvā-*

sayitum bhāryām (MBh.) *it is proper for me to comfort his wife*; na naptāraṁ svayaṁ nyāyāraṁ
 çaptum evam (R.) *it is not suitable thus to curse one's own grandson*; tad vaktuṁ na pāryate
 (Çatr.) *it is not possible to say that*.

988. In the later language, as in the earlier, the infinitive in certain connections has what we look upon as a passive value. Thus, kartum ārabdhaḥ *begun to be made*; çrotuṁ na yujyate *it is not fit to be heard (for hearing)*. This is especially frequent along with the passive forms of √çak: thus, tyaktuṁ na çakyate *it cannot be abandoned*; çakyāv ihā "netum *they two can be brought hither*; na ca vibhūṭayaḥ çakyam avāptum ūrjitāḥ *nor are mighty successes a thing capable of being attained*.

Gerunds.

989. The so-called gerund is a stereotyped case (doubtless instrumental) of a verbal noun, used generally as adjunct to the logical subject of a clause, denoting an accompanying or (more often) a preceding action to that signified by the verb of the clause. It has thus the virtual value of an indeclinable participle, present or past, qualifying the actor whose action it describes.

a. Thus, for example: çrutvāi 'va cā 'bruvan *and hearing (or having heard) they spoke*; tebhyaḥ pratijñāyā 'thāi 'tān paripapraccha *having given them his promise, he then questioned them*.

990. The gerund is made in the later language by one of the two suffixes त्वा tvā and य ya, the former being used with a simple root, the latter with one that is compounded with a prepositional prefix — or, rarely, with an element of another kind, as adverb or noun.

a. To this distribution of uses between the two suffixes there are occasional exceptions. Thus, gerunds in ya from simple roots are not very rare in the epic language (e. g. gr̥hya, uṣya [√vas *dwell*], arcya, īkṣya, cintya, tyajya, lakṣya; also from causatives and denominatives, as vācya, yojya, plāvya), and are not unknown elsewhere (e. g. arcya and īkṣya M., prothya AGS., sthāpya ÇvU.). And gerunds in tvā from compounded roots are met with in considerable numbers from AV. (only pratyarpayitvā) down: e. g. samīrayitvā MS., virocayitvā TA., utkṣiptvā U., pratyuktvā E., pratyasitvā S., prahasitvā MBh., saṁdarçayitvā MBh., vimuktvā R., nivedayitvā R., proktvā Pañc., anupīṭva VBS.: the great majority of them are made from the causative stem.

b. The prefixion of the negative particle, a or an, does not cause the gerund to take the form in ya: thus, akṛtvā, amīrayitvā (but R. has acintya). Of compounds with other than verbal prefixes, RV. has punardāya, karṇagṛhya, pādagṛhya, hastagṛhya, aramkṛtya, akkhalikṛtya, mithaspṛdha; AV. has further namaskṛtya.

991. The suffix **त्वा** tvā has the accent. It is usually added directly to the root, hut often also with interposition of the auxiliary vowel **इ** i — with regard to which, as well as to the form of the root before it, the formation nearly agrees with that of the participle in **त** ta (952 ff.).

a. Examples of the general accordance of passive participle, infinitive, and gerund in regard to the use of i were given above, 968 a; farther specifications are called for, as follows:

b. The quotable roots in variable **ृ** (242) change it to **īr**: thus, tīrtvā, stīrtvā (also stṛtvā); and car makes also cīrtvā (like cīrṇa); — roots in **ā** show in general the same weakening as in the participle; but from dhā *put* is quotable only dhitvā, from mā *measure* mitvā and mītvā, from dā *give* only dattvā, from chā chāyitvā; — of roots in am, kram and bhram and yam make forms both with and without i (as in the infinitive), but ram has ratvā and raṁtvā, and dam and vam make damitvā and vāmitvā.

c. The auxiliary vowel is taken by roots gras, muṣ, ṣap, and ṣās (ṣāsivā) (whose participles have both forms); also by cāy, nṛt (nartivā), lag, and svaj (against analogy of pple); and ṣuc makes ṣocitvā. On the other hand, from ruj (rugṇa) and vraṣc (vṛkṇa) come ruktivā and vṛṣṭivā. And both forms are made (as also in infinitive or participle) from car, vas *dwel* (uṣtvā, uṣitvā), nī (nītvā, nayitvā), and mṛj (mṛṣṭivā, mārjitvā).

d. While the formation is in general one requiring, like the passive participle (e. g. uptvā, like uptā; uditvā, like uditā), a weak or weakened root, there are some cases in which it is made from a strong or strengthened root-form. Thus (besides the instances already given: chāyitvā, raṁtvā, ṣāsivā, cāyitvā, ṣocitvā, nayitvā, mārjitvā), we find charditvā (Āpast.), daṇṣṭvā, and spharivā, and, from a number of roots, a second strong form beside the more regular weak one: namely, aṅktvā, bhaṅktvā, bhuṅktvā, syanttvā (beside aktvā etc.); cayitvā, smayitvā, smarivā (beside citvā etc.); roditvā (beside rudivā), and siṅcitvā (beside siktivā). The last shows the influence of the present-stem; as do also mārjitvā (above) and jighritvā (√ghrft). The form ṣṭhutvā (Āpast.) is doubtless a false reading, for ṣṭhyūtivā.

992. The suffix **य** ya is added directly to the root, which is accented, but has its weak form. A root ending

in a short vowel takes त्य *tya* instead of य *ya*: thus, जित्य *-jítya*, स्तुत्य *-stútya*, कृत्य *-kítya*.

a. Roots in variable ण (242) change that vowel to *īr* or *ūr*: thus, *kīrya*, *gīrya*, *tīrya* (and *tūrya*), *dīrya*, *pūrya*, *ṣīrya*, *stīrya* (also *stṛtya*); — roots in *ā* have for the most part *-āya*; but *dhā* *suck* makes *dhīya*, and double forms are found from *gā* *sing* (*gāya*, *gīya*), *pā* *drink* (*pāya*, *pīya*), *dā* *give* (*dāya*, *dāya*), *dā* *divide* (*dāya*, *ditya*), *mā* *measure, exchange* (*māya*, *mīya*), *sā* *bind* (*sāya*, *syā*); *lī* *cling* has *lāya* or *līya*, as if an *ā*-verb; and *khan* and *dham* make *khāya* and *dhmāya*, from their *ā*-forms; — the roots in *an* and *am* making their participle in *ata* (954 d) make the gerund in *atya*, but also later in *anya*, *amya* (e. g. *gātya*, *gamya*; *hātya*, *hanya*; but *tan* makes as second form *tāya*, and from *ram* only *ramya* is quotable); — the roots in *iv* add *ya* to their *iv*-form: thus, *ṣṭhīvyā*, *sīvyā*; — a few roots in *i* and *u* add *ya* to the lengthened vowel besides adding *tya*: thus, *i* *go* (*īya*, *ītya*; also *ayya*), *ci* *gather* (*cīya*, *cītya*), and *plu*, *yu* *unite*, *su*, *stu* (*plūya*, *plutya*, etc.); while *kṣi* *destroy* has only *kṣīya*.

b. This gerund, though accented on the root-syllable, is generally a weakening formation: thus are made, without a strengthening nasal found in some other forms, *ācyā*, *ājya*, *idhya*, *údya*, *ubhya*, *grathya*, *tācyā*, *daṣya*, *bādhyā*, *bhajya*, *līpyā*, *lūpyā*, *vlāgyā*, *ṣrabhya*, *sajya*, *skābhyā*, *stābhyā*, *syadyā*, *svajya*; with weakening of other kinds, *grīhya* and *grībhya*, *ṣṛcchya*, *ūcyā*, *udya*, *ūpyā*, *ūṣyā* (*vas dwell*), *ūhya*, *vidhya*, *vīyā*, *vṛccyā*, *spṛdhyā*, *hūyā*; — but from a number of roots are made both a stronger and a weaker form: thus, *manthya* and *māthya*, *mārjya* and *mṛjya*, *rundhya* and *rūdhyā*, *ṣaṁsya* and *ṣāsyā*, *ṣāsyā* and *ṣīsyā*, *skāndya* and *skādya*, *srāṁsya* and *srasyā*; — and only strong forms are found from roots *arc*, *av*, *cāy*, *ṣī* (*ṣayya*), as well as from certain roots with a constant nasal: e. g. *uñch*, *kamp*, *nand*, *lamb*, *ṣaṅk*; isolated cases are *oṣya* (*√uṣ burn*), *prothya* (also *prūthya*).

c. Other special cases are *ūhya* and *ūhya* (*√ūh remove*), *gurya* and *gūryā*, *gūhya* and *gūhya*, *rūhya* and *rūhya*, *bhramya* and *bhrāmya*, *āyā* (beside *ītyā*, *īyā*), *ghrāya* and *jighryā*; and *ūrṇutya* (beside *vṛtyā*).

993. The older language has the same two gerund formations, having the same distinction, and used in the same way.

a. In RV., however, the final of *ya* is in the great majority of instances (fully two thirds) long (as if the instrumental ending of a derivative noun in *i* or *ti*). In AV., long *ā* appears only once in a RV. passage.

b. Instead of *tvā* alone, the Veda has three forms of the suffix, namely *tvā*, *tvāya*, and *tvī*. Of these three, *tvī* is decidedly the commonest in RV. (thirty-five occurrences, against twenty-one of *tvā*); but it is un-

known in AV., and very rare elsewhere in the older language; *tvāya* is found nine times in RV. (only once outside the tenth Book), twice in AV., and but half-a-dozen times elsewhere (in ÇB., once from a causative stem: *spāçayitvāya*). The historical relation of the three forms is obscure.

c. Two other gerund suffixes, *tvānam* and *tvīnam*. are mentioned by the grammarians as of Vedic use, but they have nowhere been found to occur.

994. The use of this gerund, though not changing in its character, becomes much more frequent, and even excessive, in the later language.

a. Thus, in the Nala and Bhagavad-Gītā, which have only one tenth as many verb-forms as RV., there are more than three times as many examples of the gerund as in the latter.

b. In general, the gerund is an adjunct to the subject of a sentence, and expresses an act or condition belonging to the subject: thus, *vajreṇa hatvā nīr apāḥ sasarja* (RV.) *smiting with his thunderbolt, he poured forth the waters*; *pītvī sómasya vāṛdhe* (RV.) *having drunk of the soma, he waxed strong*; *tē yajñāsya rāsaṁ dhītvā vidúhya yajñāṁ yūpéna yopayitvā tirò 'bhavan* (ÇB.) *having sucked out the sap of the offering, having milked the offering dry, having blocked it with the sacrificial post, they disappeared*; *çrutvāi 'va cā 'bruvan* (MBh.) *and having heard, they said*; *taṁ ca dūre dr̥ṣtvā gardabhī 'yam iti matvā dhāvitaḥ* (H.) *and having seen him in the distance, thinking 'it is a she-ass', he ran*.

c. But if the logical subject, the real agent, is put by the construction of the sentence in a dependent case, it is still qualified by the gerund: thus, *strīyaṁ dr̥ṣtvāya kitavāṁ tatāpa* (RV.) *it distresses the gambler* (i. e. *the gambler is distressed*) *at seeing a woman*; *tāṁ hāi 'naṁ dr̥ṣtvā bhīr viveda* (ÇB.) *fear came upon him* (i. e. *he was afraid*) *when he saw him*; *vidhāya proṣite vṛttim* (M.) *when he stays away after providing for her support*; *kiṁ nu me syād idaṁ kṛtvā* (MBh.) *what, I wonder, would happen to me if I did this*; — and especially, when a passive form is given to the sentence, the gerund qualifies the agent in the instrumental case (282 a): thus, *tataḥ çabdād abhijñāya sa vyāghreṇa hataḥ* (H.) *thereupon he was slain by the tiger, who recognized him by his voice*; *tvayā sa rājā çakuntalām puraskṛtya vaktavyaḥ* (Ç.) *presenting Çakuntalā, thou must say to the king*; *haṁsānāṁ vacanaṁ çrutvā yathā me* (gen. for instr.) *nāiṣadho vṛtaḥ* (MBh.) *as the Nishadhan was chosen by me on hearing the words of the swans* : this construction is extremely common in much of the later Sanskrit.

d. Occasionally, the gerund qualifies an agent, especially an indefinite one, that is unexpressed: thus, *tadā 'trāi 'va paktvā khāditavyaḥ* (H.) *then he shall be eaten [by us] cooking him on the spot*; *yad anyasya pariññāya punar anyasya dīyate* (M.) *that, after being promised* (lit. *when one has promised her*) *to one, she is given again to another*; *sucintya co 'ktaṁ suvicārya yat kṛtaṁ* (H.) *what one says after mature thought*,

and does after full deliberation. Hence, still more elliptically, after *alam*: thus, *alam vicārya* (Ç.) *enough of hesitation*; *tad alam te vanam gatvā* (R.) *so have done with going to the forest*.

e. Other less regular constructions are met with, especially in the older language: thus, in the manner of a participle with *man* and the like (268 a), as *tām hiṁsitvè 'va mene* (ÇB.) *he thought he had hurt him*; *tā adbhira abhiṣicya nijāsyāi 'vā 'manyata* (AB.) *having sprinkled them with water, he believed himself to have exhausted them*; — in the manner of a participle forming a continuous tense with *√i* (1075 a), as *indram evāi 'tāir ārabhya yanti* (AB.) *by means of them they keep taking hold of Indra*; — as qualifying a subordinate member of the sentence, as *puroḍācam evā kūrmām bhūtvā sarpantam* (ÇB.) *to the sacrificial cake creeping about, having become a tortoise*; *ayodhyām . . . saphenām sasvanām bhūtvā jalormim iva* (R.) *into Ayodhyā, like a surge that had been foamy and roaring*; — even absolutely, as *ātithyéna vāi devā iṣṭvā tānt samād avindat* (ÇB.) *when the gods had sacrificed with the guest-offering, strife befel them*.

f. As in the two examples before the last, a predicate word with *bhūtvā* is put in the same case with the subject: thus, further, *tād iyām evāi 'tād bhūtvā yajati* (ÇB.) *so having thus become this earth he makes offering*; *yena vāmanenā 'pi bhūtvā* (Vet.) *by whom, even when he had become a dwarf*. The construction is a rare one.

g. A number of gerunds have their meaning attenuated sometimes to the semblance of a preposition or adverb: such are *adhikṛtya making a subject of*, i. e. *respecting, of*; *ādāya, upāgrhya taking*, i. e. *with*; *uddiṣya pointing toward*, i. e. *at*; *āsādyā, arriving at*, i. e. *along, by*; *ārabhya beginning*, i. e. *from*; *sambhūya being with*, i. e. *with*; *saṁhatya striking together*, i. e. *in unison*; *prasahya using force*, i. e. *violently*; *tyaktvā, parityajya, muktavā, vihāya, uddhṛtya, varjayitvā leaving out etc.*, i. e. *excepting, without*; and others. Examples are: *çakuntalām adhikṛtya bravāmi* (Ç.) *I am speaking of Çakuntalā*; *tam uddiṣya kṣiptalaguḍaḥ* (H.) *having thrown the cudgel at him*; *nimittam kimcid āsādyā* (H.) *for some reason or other*.

h. The gerund is in the later language sometimes found in composition, as if a noun-stem: e. g. *prasahyaharaṇa taking with violence*; *pretyabhāva existence after death*; *vibhajyapāṭha separate enunciation*; *sambhūyagamana going together*. It is also often repeated (1260), in a distributive sense: e. g. *sā vāi sammījya-sammījya pratāpya-pratāpya prā yacchati* (ÇB.) *in each case, after wiping and warming them, he hands them over*; *grhītvā-grhītvā* (KÇS.) *at each taking*; *unnamyo'nnamya* (Pañc.) *every time that they arise*.

Adverbial Gerund in *am*.

995. The accusative of a derivative *nomen actionis* in *a*, used adverbially, assumes sometimes a value and construction so accord-

ant with that of the usual gerund that it cannot well be called by a different name.

a. No example of a peculiar gerundial construction with such a form occurs either in RV. or AV., although a dozen adverbial accusatives are to be classed as representing the formation: thus, abhyākrāmam, pratāṅkam, praṇódam, nilāyam, abhiskādam, etc. This gerund is found especially in the Brāhmaṇas and Sūtras, where it is not rare; in the epics it is extremely infrequent; later, also, it occurs very sparingly.

b. A final vowel has vṛddhi-strengthening before the suffix: thus, nāyam, ṇāvam, kāram; final ā adds y: thus, khyāyam, yāyam; a medial vowel has guṇa (if capable of it: 240): thus, kṣepam, kroṣam, vartam (but īkṣam, pūram); a medial a before a single consonant is lengthened: thus, krāmam, cāram, grāham, svādam (but grantham, lambham). The accent is on the radical syllable. No uncompounded examples are found in the older language, and extremely few in the later.

c. Examples are: kāmam vā imāny āṅgāni vyatyāsam ṇete (ÇB.) *he lies changing the position of these limbs at pleasure*; úttarām-uttarām ṇākhām samālāmbham róhet (ÇB.) *he would climb, taking hold of a higher and ever a higher limb*; aparīṣu mahānāgām ivā 'bhisamsāram didṛkṣitārah (ÇB.) *hereafter, running together as it were about a great snake, they will wish to see him*; nāmāny āsām etāni nāmagrāham (ÇB.) *with separate naming of these their names*; yó viparyāsam avagúhati (ÇB.) *whoever buries it upside down*; bāhūtkṣepam kranditum pravṛttā (Ç.) *she proceeded to cry, throwing up her arms (with arm-tossing)*; navacūtapallavāni darṇam-darṇam madhukarāṇām kvanitāni ṇāvam-ṇāvam paribabhrāma (DKC.) *he wandered about, constantly seeing the young shoots of the mango, and hearing the humming of the bees*. Repeated forms, like those in the last example, are approved in the later language; they do not occur earlier (but instead of them the repeated ordinary gerund: 994 h).

CHAPTER XIV.

DERIVATIVE OR SECONDARY CONJUGATION.

996. Secondary conjugations are those in which a whole system of forms, like that already described as made from the simple root, is made, with greater or less completeness, from a derivative conjugation-stem; and is also

usually connected with a certain definite modification of the original radical sense.

a. We have seen, indeed, that the tense-systems are also for the most part made from derivative-stems; and even that, in some cases, such stems assume the appearance and value of roots, and are made the basis of a complete conjugational system. Nor is there any distinct division-line to be drawn between tense-systems and derivative conjugations; the latter are present-systems which have been expanded into conjugations by the addition of other tenses, and of participles, infinitives, and so on. In the earliest language, their forms outside of the present-system are still quite rare, hardly more than sporadic; and even later they are — with the exception of one or two formations which attain a comparative frequency — much less common than the corresponding forms of primary conjugation.

997. The secondary conjugations are: I. Passive; II. Intensive; III. Desiderative; IV. Causative; V. Denominative.

a. The passive is classed here as a secondary conjugation because of its analogy with the others in respect to specific value, and freedom of formation, although it does not, like them, make its forms outside the present system from its present-stem.

I. Passive.

998. The passive conjugation has been already in the main described. Thus, we have seen that —

a. It has a special present-system, the stem of which is present only, and not made the basis of any of the remaining forms: this stem is formed with the accented class-sign य yá, and it takes (with exceptions: 774) the middle endings. This present-system is treated with the others, above, 768 ff.

b. There is a special passive 3d sing. of the aorist, ending in ३ i: it is treated above, 842 ff.

c. In the remaining tenses, the middle forms are used also in a passive sense.

d. But the passive use of middle forms is not common; it is oftenest met with in the perfect. The participle to a great extent takes the place of a past passive tense, and the gerundive that of a future. On the other

hand, in the oldest language (RV.), middle forms of other present-systems are in a considerable number of cases employed with passive meaning.

e. According to the grammarians, there may be formed from some verbs, for passive use, a special stem for the aorist and the two future systems, coinciding in form with the peculiar 3d sing. aorist.

f. Thus, from √dā (aor. 3d sing. adāyi), beside ádāsi, dāsyé, dātāhe, also ádāyiṣi, dāyiṣyé, dāyitāhe. The permission to make this doable formation extends to all roots ending in vowels, and to grah, dṛç, and han. No such passive forms occur in the older language, and not half-a-dozen are quotable from the later (we find adhāyiṣi and asthāyiṣi in DKC., and anāyiṣata in Kuval.).

g. As to the alleged passive inflection of the periphrastic perfect, see below, 1072.

h. Besides the participle from the present tense-stem (771. 5), the passive has a past participle in त ta (952), or न na (957), and future participles, or gerundives, of various formation (961 ff.), made directly from the root.

999. As already pointed out (282 a), the language, especially later, has a decided predilection for the passive form of the sentence. This is given in part by the use of finite passive forms, but oftener by that of the passive participle and of the gerundive: the participle being taken in part in a present sense, but more usually in a past (whether indefinite or proximate past), and sometimes with a copula expressed, but much oftener without it; and the gerundive representing either a pure future or one with the sense of necessity or duty added. A further example is: tatrāi 'ko yuvā brāhmaṇo dṛṣṭaḥ: taṁ dṛṣṭvā kāmēna pīditā saṁjātā: sakhyā agre kathitam: sakhi puruṣo 'yaṁ grhītvā mama mātuḥ samīpam ānetavyaḥ (Vet.) *there she saw a young Brahman; at sight of him she felt the pangs of love; she said to her friend: 'friend, you must take and bring this man to my mother'*. In some styles of later Sanskrit, the prevailing expression of past time is by means of the passive participle (thus, in Vet., an extreme case, more than nine tenths).

a. As in other languages, a 3d sing. passive is freely made from intransitive as well as transitive verbs: thus, ihā "gamyatām *come hither*; tvayā tatrāi 'va sthīyatām *do you stand just there*; sarvāir jālam ādāyo 'dḍīyatām (H.) *let all fly up with the net*.

II. Intensive.

1000. The intensive (sometimes also called frequentative) is that one of the secondary conjugations which is least removed from the analogy of formations already de-

scribed. It is, like the present-system of the second conjugation-class (642 ff.), the inflection of a reduplicated stem, but of one that is peculiar in having a strengthened reduplication. It is decidedly less extended beyond the limits of a present-system than any other of the derivative conjugations.

a. The intensive conjugation signifies the repetition or the intensification of the action expressed by the primary conjugation of a root.

1001. According to the grammarians, the intensive conjugation may be formed from nearly all the roots in the language — the exceptions being roots of more than one syllable, those conjugated only causatively (below, 1056), and in general those beginning with a vowel.

a. In fact, however, intensives in the later language are very rare, so rare that it is hard to tell precisely what value is to be given to the rules of the native grammar respecting them. Nor are they at all common earlier, except (comparatively) in the RV., which contains about six sevenths of the whole number (rather over a hundred) quotable from Veda and Brāhmaṇa and Sūtra-texts; AV. has less than half as many as RV., and many of them in RV. passages; from the later language are quotable about twenty of these, and about forty more, but for the most part only in an occurrence or two.

b. Hence, in the description to be given below, the actual aspect of the formation, as exhibited in the older language, will be had primarily and especially in view; and the examples will be of forms found there in use.

1002. The strong intensive reduplication is made in three different ways:

I. a. The reduplicating syllable is, as elsewhere, composed of a single consonant with following vowel, and, so far as the consonant is concerned, follows the rules for present and perfect reduplication (590); but the vowel is a heavy one, radical *a* and *ṛ* (or *ar*) being reduplicated with *ā*, an *i*-vowel by *e*, and an *u*-vowel by *o*.

Examples are: *vāvad*, *bābadh*, *çāçvas*, *rārandh*; *dādṛ*, *dādhṛ*; *cekit*, *tetij*, *nenī*, *vevlī*; *çoçuc*, *popruth*, *çoçku*, *johū*.

II. b. The reduplicating syllable has a final consonant, taken from the end of the root. With an exception or two, this consonant is either *r* (or its substitute *l*) or a nasal.

Examples are: carcar, calcal, sarsr, marmrj, jarhṛs; caṅkram, jaṅghan, taṅstan, dandaç (√daṅç or daç), jaṅjabh (√jambh or jabh), tantas (√taṅs or tas), nannam (√nam), yaṁyam (√yam). The nasal is assimilated to the initial consonant.

c. Only roots having a or ṛ as vowel make this form of reduplication, but with such roots it is more common than either of the other forms.

d. Irregular formations of this class are: with a final other than r or n in the reduplication, badbadh; with a final nasal in the reduplication which is not found in the root, jaṅgah (RV.), jaṅjap (ÇB.; and jaṅgūyat PB. is perhaps from √gu; the later language has further dandah); with an anomalous initial consonant in reduplication, jarbhur from √bhur (compare the Vedic perfect jabhāra from √bhṛ, 789 b), galgal from √gal; with various treatment of an ṛ or ar-element, dardar and dardir, carkar and carkir, tartar and tartur, carcar and carcur, jargur and jalgul.

e. The roots i and ṛ are the only ones with vowel initial forming an intensive stem: i makes iyāy (? PU., once); ṛ makes the irregular alar or alṛ. As to the stem íya, see below, 1021 b.

III. f. The reduplication is dissyllabic, an i-vowel being added after a final consonant of the reduplicating syllable. This i-vowel is in the older language short before a double consonant, and long before a single.

Examples are: ganīgam (but gánigmatam), varīvṛt, vanīvāh, canīṣkad, sanīṣvan; navīnu, davidyut (and the participles dávidhvat but távītuat). A single exception as to the quantity of the i is davidhāva.

g. This method of reduplication is followed in the older language by about thirty roots. Thus, of roots having final or penultimate n (once m), and n in the reduplicating syllable, pan, phan, san, svan, han; gam; krand, çcand, skand, syand; of roots having final or medial ṛ, and r in the, reduplicating syllable, kṛ *make*, tṛ, bhṛ, vṛ, mṛj, mṛç, vṛj, vṛt, sṛp; also mluc (malimluc); — further, of roots assuming in the reduplication a n not found in the root, only vah (ÇB.: the grammarians allow also kas, pat, pad; and panīpad is quotable later; and AÇS. has canīkhudat, for which TB. reads kánīkhunat); finally, of roots having u or ū as radical vowel, with av before the i-vowel, tu, dhū, nu, dyut.

h. In this class, the general rules as to the form of the reduplicating consonant (590) are violated in the case of ghanīghan and bharībhṛ, and of ganīgam, karīkṛ (but the regular carīkṛ also occurs), kanikrand, and kaniṣkand (but also canīṣkand occurs); also in kanīkhun.

i. The reversion to more original guttural form after the reduplication in cekit, and jaṅghan and ghanīghan, is in accordance with what takes place elsewhere (2161).

1003. The same root is allowed to form its intensive stem in more than one way.

Thus, in the older language, *dādr* and *dardr*; *dādhṛ* and *dardhṛ*; *cācal* and *carcar* (and *carcur*); *tartar* (and *tartur*) and *tarīṭṛ*; *jaṅgam* and *ganīgam*; *jaṅghan* and *ghanīghan*; *pamphan* and *panīphan*; *marmṛj* and *marīmṛj*; *marmṛç* and *marīmṛç*; *varvṛt* and *varīvṛt*; *jarbhṛ* and *bharībhṛ*; *dodhū* and *davīdhū*; *nonu* and *navīnu*; *bābadh* and *badbadh*.

1004. The model of normal intensive inflection is the present-system of the reduplicating conjugation-class (642 ff.); and this is indeed to a considerable extent followed, in respect to endings, strengthening of stem, and accent. But deviations from the model are not rare; and the forms are in general of too infrequent occurrence to allow of satisfactory classification and explanation.

a. The most marked irregularity is the frequent insertion of an *ī* between the stem and ending. According to the grammarians, this is allowed in all the strong forms before an ending beginning with a consonant; and before the *ī* a final vowel has *guṇa*-strengthening, but a medial one remains unchanged.

Present-System.

1005. We will take up the parts of the present-system in their order, giving first what is recognized as regular in the later language, and then showing how the formation appears in the earlier texts. As most grammarians do not allow a middle inflection, and middle forms are few even in the Veda, no attempt will be made to set up a paradigm for the middle voice.

1006. As example of inflection may be taken the root *विद्* *vid* *know*, of which the intensive stem is *वेविद्* *vevid*, or, in strong forms, *वेवेद्* *véved*.

a. Neither from this nor from any other root are more than a few scattering forms actually quotable.

1. Present Indicative.			
	s.	d.	p.
1	वेवेद्मि, वेविदीमि vévedmi, vévidīmi	वेविद्वस् vevidvás	वेविस्मस् vevidmās

2	वेवेत्सि, वेविदीषि vévetsi, vévidīṣi	वेवित्थस् vevitthás	वेवित्थ vevitthá
3	वेवेत्ति, वेविदीति vévetti, vévidīti	वेवित्तस् vevittás	वेविदति vévidati

b. From $\sqrt{\text{ह}}$ hū, the singular forms with auxiliary vowel would be जोहवीमि jōhavīmi, जोहवीषि jōhavīṣi, जोहवीति jōhavīti.

1007. a. The forms found in the older language agree in general with the paradigm. Examples are: 1st sing., carkarmi, veveṣmi; 2d sing., alarṣi, dārdarṣi; 3d sing., álarti, dādharti, veveti, nenekti, jañghanti, kánikrantti, ganīgarnti; 3d du., jarbhṛtás; 1st pl., nonumas; 2d pl., jāgratha; 3d pl., dādhṛati, nānadati, bharibhṛati, vārvṛtati, dávidyutati, nénijati, and, irregularly, veviṣanti; and, with the auxiliary vowel, jōhavīmi, cākaçīmi; cákaçīti, nónavīti, dardarīti, jarbhurīti. No stem with dissyllabic reduplication takes the auxiliary ī in any of its forms.

b. A single dual form with ī and strong stem occurs: namely, tartarīthas.

c. The middle forms found to occur are: 1st sing., jóguve, nenije; 3d sing., nenikté, sarsṛte; and, with irregular accent, tétikte, dédiṣte; with irregular loss of final radical nasal, nánate; with ending e instead of te, cékite, jáñgahe, jóguve, yoyuve, bābadhe, and (with irregular accent) badbadhé; 3d du., sarsrāte; 3d pl., dédiçate.

2. Present Subjunctive.

1008. a. Subjunctive forms with primary endings are extremely rare: there have been noticed only jañghánāni, jāgarāsi (AV.); and, in the middle, tantasāite (3d du.).

b. Forms with secondary endings are more frequent: thus, 2d sing., jañghanas, jalgulas; 3d sing., jāgarat, cékitat, bobhavat, cárkrṣat, jáñghanat, bárbrhat, mármṛjat, mármṛçat, parpharat, dardirāt, canīṣkadat, davidyutat, saniṣvaṇat; 1st du., jañghanāva; 1st pl., carkirāma, vevidāma; 3d pl., pápatan, çoçucan, carkiran; and, with double mode-sign, cákaçān (AV.). Of the middle are found only 3d persons plural: thus, jáñghananta, jarhṛṣanta, marmṛjanta, nonuvanta, çoçucanta.

3. Present Optative.

1009. This mode would show the unstrengthened stem, with the usual endings (566), accented. Thus:

	s.	d.	p.
1	वेविद्याम् vevidyām	वेविद्याव vevidyāva	वेविद्याम vevidyāma
	etc.	etc.	etc.

a. The optative is represented by only an example or two in the older language: thus, active, *veviṣyāt* (AV.), *jāgryās* (KB.), *jāgriyāt* (AB.), *jāgryāma* (VS. MS.; but *jāgriyāma* TS.); RV. has only *cākanyāt* (pft.?); middle, *nenijīta* (K.).

4. Present Imperative.

1010. The regular forms of the imperative, including the usual subjunctive first persons, would be as follows:

	s.	d.	p.
1	वेविदानि vévidāni	वेविदाव vévidāva	वेविदाम vévidāma
2	वेविद्धि veviddhí	वेवित्तम् vevittām	वेवित्त vevittá
3	वेवित्तु, वेविदीतु vévettu, vévidītu	वेवित्तम् vevittām	वेविदतु vévidatu

1011. a. Older imperative forms are less rare than optative. The first persons have been given above (*jānghánāni*, the only accented example, does not correspond with the model, but is in conformity with the subjunctive of the reduplicating present); the proper imperatives are: 2d sing., *dādṛhí*, *dardṛhi*, *carkṛdhi*, *jāgṛhi*, *nenigdhi*, *rāranddhí*; the ending *tāt* is found in *carkṛtāt* and *jāgṛtāt*; and the latter (as was pointed out above, 571 b) is used in AV. as first person sing.; *barbṛhi* shows an elsewhere unparalleled loss of *h* before the ending *hi*; 3d sing., *dādhartu*, *veveṣtu*, *dardartu*, *marmarttu*; 2d du., *jāgṛtam*; 3d du., *jāgṛtām*; 2d pl., *jāgṛtá*; *caṅkramata* (RV., once) has an anomalous union-vowel. In the middle voice is found only *nenikṣva* (ÇB.).

b. Of imperative forms with auxiliary *ī*, RV. has none; AV. has *vāvadītu* and *johavītu*, and such are sometimes found in the Brāhmaṇas; AV. has also, against rule, *taṅstanīhi* and *jaṅghanīhi*; VS. has *cākaṇīhi*.

5. Present Participle.

1012. The intensive participles, both active and middle, are comparatively common in the older language. They are formed and inflected like those of the reduplicating present, and have the accent on the reduplicating syllable.

Examples are: active, cākaçat, nānadat, cékitat, mémyat, çóçucat, róruvat, dárdrat, mármṛjat, jáñghanat, nānnamat, pānīphanat, kánīkradat, dávidyutat; — middle, bábadhāna, mémyāna, cékitāna, yóyuvāna, rórucāna, járbhurāṇa, sársrāṇa, jañjabhāna, nānnamāna, dāndaçāna. No middle participle shows the dissyllabic reduplication.

1013. a. On account of their accent, rārahāṇá, rārakṣāṇá, and jāhrṣāṇá (beside jáhrṣāṇa) are probably to be regarded as perfect participles, although no other perfect forms with heavy reduplication from the same roots occur. The inference is, however, rendered uncertain by the unmistakably intensive badbadhāná and marmṛjāná (beside mármṛjāna). As to çúçucāna etc., see 806 a.

b. The RV. has once jáñghnatas, gen. sing., with root-vowel cast out; kánikrat appears to be used once for kánikradat; if cākát is to be referred to √kā (Grassmann), it is the only example of an intensive from a root in ā, and its accent is anomalous. Marmṛçantas (AB.) is perhaps a false reading; but forms with the nasal irregularly retained are found repeatedly in the epics and later: thus, lelihan, dedīpyantīm (MBh.), jājvalant (MBh. R.), sarīṣpantāu (BhP.), rāraṭantī (R.).

6. Imperfect.

1014. The imperfect is regularly inflected as follows:

	s.	d.	p.
1	अवेदिम् áveidam	अवेदिद् áveidva	अवेदिन् áveidma
2	अवेवेत्, अवेविदीम् ávevet, ávevidīs	अवेवित्तम् ávevittam	अवेवित्त ávevitta
3	अवेवेत्, अवेविदीत् ávevet, ávevidīt	अवेवित्ताम् ávevittām	अवेविदुस् ávevidus

1015. The imperfect forms found in the earlier texts are not numerous. They are, including those from which the augment is omitted, as follows: in active, 1st sing., acākaçam, dediçam; 2d sing., ajāgar, adardar, dārdar; 3d sing., adardar, adardhar, avarīvar, dardar, kániṣkan, dávidyot, nāvīnot; 2d du., adardram; 1st pl., marmṛjmá; 3d pl., anannamus, adardirus, acarkṣus, ájohavus, anonavus; and, with auxiliary ī, in 3d sing., avāvacīt, ávāvaçīt, ávāvarīt, áyoyavīt, ároravīt, ájohavīt; and, irregularly, in 3d du., avāvaçītām. The middle forms are extremely few: namely, 3d sing., ádediṣṭa, ánannata (with loss of the final radical in a weak form of root); 3d pl. marmṛjata, and avāvaçanta (which, if it belongs here, shows a transfer to an a-stem).

1016. Derivative Middle Inflection. From every intensive stem, as above described, may be formed in the present-system a further derivative conjugation which is formally identical with a passive, being made by the accented sign ञ या, along with middle endings only. It has not, however, a passive value, but is in meaning and use indistinguishable from the simpler conjugation.

a. A final vowel before this *ya* is treated as before the passive-sign *ya* (770).

b. The inflection is precisely like that of any other stem ending in *a* in the middle voice: thus, from $\sqrt{\text{mrj}}$, intensive stem *marmrj*, is made the present indicative *marmrjyé*, *marmrjyáse*, *marmrjyáte*, etc.; optative *marmrjyéya*, *marmrjyéthās*, *marmrjyéta*, etc.; imperative *marmrjyásva*, *marmrjyátām*, etc.; participle *marmrjyámāna*; imperfect *ámarmrjye*, *ámarmrjyathās*, *ámarmrjyata*, etc.; subjunctive forms do not occur.

c. In a very few sporadic cases, these *yá*-forms are given a passive value: thus, *jañghanyamāna* in *MṛU.*; *bambhramyate*, *dādhmāyamāna*, *pepīyamāna* in the later language. And active participles (529 a) are not unknown: thus, *dedīpyantīm* (*MBh.*), *dodhūyant* (*MBh. BhP.*).

1017. This kind of intensive inflection is more common than the other in the later language; in the earlier, it is comparatively rare.

a. In *RV.*, *yá*-forms are made from eight roots, five of which have also forms of the simpler conjugation; the *AV.* adds one more; the other earlier texts (so far as observed) about twenty more, and half of them have likewise forms of the simpler conjugation. Thus: from $\sqrt{\text{mrj}}$, *marmrjyáte* etc., and *marīmṛjyeta*; from $\sqrt{\text{tr}}$, *tartūryante*; from $\sqrt{\text{car}}$, *carcūryámāṇa*; from $\sqrt{\text{nī}}$, *nenīyēran*, etc.; from $\sqrt{\text{vī}}$, *vevīyate*; from $\sqrt{\text{rih}}$, *rerihyáte* etc.; from *vij*, *vevijyáte*; from $\sqrt{\text{sku}}$, *coṣkūyáse* etc.; from $\sqrt{\text{diṣ}}$, *dediṣyate*; from $\sqrt{\text{kāṣ}}$, *cākaṣyáte* etc.; from $\sqrt{\text{vad}}$, *vāvadyámāna*; from $\sqrt{\text{nam}}$, *nannamyadhvam*; from $\sqrt{\text{vah}}$, *vanīvāhyéta* etc. (with lengthened root-vowel, elsewhere unknown); from $\sqrt{\text{krand}}$, *kanikradyámāna*; from $\sqrt{\text{vṛt}}$, *varīvartyámāna* (*ÇB.*: should be *varīvṛty-*); from $\sqrt{\text{mṛṣ}}$, *amarīmṛṣyanta* (*ÇB.*? the text reads *amarīmṛtsyanta*); from $\sqrt{\text{yup}}$, *yoyupyánte* etc.; from $\sqrt{\text{nud}}$, *anonudyanta*; from $\sqrt{\text{vli}}$, *avevliyanta*; from $\sqrt{\text{jabh}}$, *jañjabhyáte* etc.; from $\sqrt{\text{jap}}$, *jañjapyámāna*; and so on.

Perfect.

1018. The grammarians are at variance as to whether a perfect may be formed directly from the intensive stem, or whether only a periphrastic perfect (below, 1070 ff.) is to be admitted.

a. No example of an intensive periphrastic perfect has anywhere come to light (except from jāgr: 1020 a). A few unmistakable perfect forms are made from the intensively reduplicated root in RV.: namely, davidhāva and nónāva, 3d sing., and nonuvus, 3d pl.; and there occur further dodrāva (TS.), yoyāva and lelāya (MS.), and lelāya (? ÇB.), all used in the sense of presents. To them may be added jāgara 1st sing. and jāgāra 3d sing.: but as to these, see below, 1020 a.

Aorist, Future, etc.

1019. As to the remaining parts of a full verbal conjugation, also, the grammarians are not agreed (occurrences of such forms, apparently, being too rare to afford even them any basis for rules); in general, it is allowed to treat the intensive stem further as a root in filling up the scheme of forms, using always the auxiliary vowel *ṛi* where it is ever used in the simple conjugation.

a. Thus, from *√vid*, intensive stem *vevid*, would be made the aorist *avevidiṣam* with precative *vevidyāsam*, the futures *vevidiṣyāmi* and *veviditāsmi*, the participles *vevidita*, *veviditavya*, etc., the infinitive *veviditum*, and the gerunds *veviditvā* and *-vevidya*. And, where the intensive conjugation is the derivative middle one, the aorist and futures would take the corresponding middle form.

b. Of all this, in the ancient language, there is hardly a trace. The RV. has *cárkrṣe*, 3d sing. mid., of a formation like *hiṣe* and *stuṣé* (894 d), and the gerundives *vitantasāyya*, and *marmrjénya* and *vāvr̥dhénya*; and ÇB. has the participle *vanīvāhitá*, and the infinitive *dédīyitavāi*. As to *jāgariṣyánt* and *jāgaritá*, see the next paragraph.

1020. There are systems of inflection of certain roots, the intensive character of which is questioned or questionable. Thus:

a. The root *gr* (or *gar*) *wake* has from the first no present-system save one with intensive reduplication; and its intensive stem, *jāgr*, begins early to assume the value of a root, and form a completer conjugation; while by the grammarians this stem is reckoned as if simple and belonging to the root-class, and is inflected throughout accordingly. Those of its forms which occur in the older language have been given along with

the other intensives above. They are, for the present-system, the same with those acknowledged as regular later. The older perfect is like the other intensive perfects found in RV.: namely, jāgara etc., with the participle jāgrváṅs; and a future jāgariṣyá-, a passive participle jāgaritá, and a gerundive jāgaritavyà, are met with in the Brāhmaṇas. The old aorist (RV.) is the usual reduplicated or so-called causative aorist: thus, ájīgar. The grammarians give it in the later language a perfect with additional reduplication, jajāgāra etc., an iṣ-aorist, ajāgariṣam, with precative jāgaryāsam, and everything else that is needed to make up a complete conjugation. The perf. jajāgāra is quotable from the epics and later, as also the periphrastic jāgarām āsa. And MBh. has the mutilated jāgrmi, and also a-forms, as jāgarati and jāgramāṇa.

1021. a. The stem irajya (active only) *regulate*, from which a number of forms are made in RV., has been viewed as an intensive from √raj or rj. It lacks, however, any analogy with the intensive formation. The same is true of iradh *propitiate* (only iradhanta and irádhyāi, apparently for iradhadhyāi).

b. The middle stem íya, not infrequent in the oldest language, is often called an intensive of √i *go*, but without any propriety, as it has no analogy of form whatever with an intensive. The isolated 1st pl. īmahe, common in RV., is of questionable character.

1022. The root lī *totter*, with constant intensive reduplication, lelī, is quite irregular in inflection and accent: thus, pres., lelāyati and lelāyate, pples lelāyántī and lelāyatas (gen. sing.) and lelāyamāna, impf. alelāyat and alelet and alelīyata, perf. lelāya and lelāya (?).

1023. The RV. anomalous form dart (or dard), 2d and 3d sing. from √dṛ or dar, is doubtfully referred to the intensive, as if abbreviated from dardar. RV. has once avarīvus (or -vur) where the sense requires a form from √vr̥t, as avarīvr̥tus. The form rarāṇātā (RV., once) seems corrupt.

1024. A marked intensive or frequentative meaning is not always easily to be traced in the forms classed as intensive; and in some of them it is quite effaced. Thus, the roots cit, nij, viṣ use their intensive present-system as if it were an ordinary conjugation-class; nor is it otherwise with gr̥ (jāgr̥). The grammarians reckon the inflection of nij and viṣ as belonging to the reduplicating present-system, with irregularly strengthened reduplication; and they treat in the same way vic and vij; jāgr̥, as we have seen, they account a simple root.

a. Also daridrā, intensive of √drā *run*, is made by the grammarians a simple root, and furnished with a complete set of conjugational forms: as dadaridrāu; adaridrāsīt, etc. etc. It does not occur in the older language (unless dāridrat TS., for which VS. MS. read dāridra). The so-called root vevī *flutter* is a pure intensive.

1025. It is allowed by the grammarians to make from the intensive stem also a passive, desiderative, causative, and so on: thus, from *vevid*, pass. *vevidyē*; desid. *vévidiṣāmi*; caus. *vevidáyāmi*; desid. of causative, *vévidayiṣāmi*. But such formations are excessively rare; quotable are *varīvarjáyantī* AV., *jāgaráyant* TB. etc.; *dādhārayati* JB., *dandaçayitvā* DKC.

III. Desiderative.

1026. By the desiderative conjugation is signified a desire for the action or condition denoted by the simple root: thus, *पिबामि* *píbāmi* *I drink*, desid. *पिपासामि* *pípāsāmi* *I wish to drink*; *जीवामि* *jīvāmi* *I live*, desid. *जिजीविषामि* *jījīviṣāmi* *I desire to live*. Such a conjugation is allowed to be formed from any simple root in the language, and also from any causative stem.

a. The desiderative conjugation, although its forms outside the present-system are extremely rare in the oldest language, is earlier and more fully expanded into a whole verbal system than the intensive. Its forms are also of increasing frequency: much fewer than the intensives in RV., more numerous in the Brāhmaṇas and later; not one third of the whole number of roots (about a hundred) noted as having a desiderative conjugation in Veda and Brāhmaṇa have such in RV.

1027. The desiderative stem is formed from the simple root by the addition of two characteristics. 1. a reduplication, which always has the accent; 2. an appended *स* *sa* — which, however (like the tense-signs of aorist and future), sometimes takes before it the auxiliary vowel *इ* *i*, becoming *इष* *iṣa*.

a. A few instances in the concluding part of ÇB. in which the accent is otherwise laid — thus, *tiṣṭhāset*, *viyāsántam*, *vividiṣánti*, *īpsántas* — must probably be regarded as errors.

1028. The root in general remains unchanged; but with the following exceptions:

a. A final *i* or *u* is lengthened before *sa*: thus, *cikṣīṣa*, *cikīṣa*, *jigīṣa*; *çuçrūṣa*, *juhūṣa*, *cukṣūṣa*.

b. A final *ṛ* becomes *īṛ* or *ūr* before *sa*: thus, *cikīṛṣa*, *titīṛṣa* (also irregularly *tūtūrṣa* RV.), *didhīṛṣa*, *sisīṛṣa*, *tistīṛṣa* (also *tustūrṣa*), *jihīṛṣa*; *bubhūrṣa*, *mumūrṣa* (the only examples quotable).

c. Before *īṣa*, a final *i-* or *u-* or *ṛ-*vowel necessarily, and a penultimate *i* or *u* or *ṛ* optionally, have the *guṇa*-strengthening; no examples are quotable from the older texts; later occur *çīçayiṣa*, *çīçariṣa*; *cikartiṣa*, *ninartiṣa*, *mimardiṣa*, *vivarṣiṣa*, *çuçobhiṣa*; but *rurudiṣa*.

More special exceptions are:

d. A few roots in *ā* weaken this vowel to *ī* or even *i*: thus, *jigīṣa* from $\sqrt{gā}$ *go*; *pipīṣa* (beside *pipāsa*) from $\sqrt{pā}$ *drink*, *jihīṣa* (AV.) from $\sqrt{hā}$ *remove* (*jihīte*: 664); *didhiṣa* (beside *dhitsa*) from $\sqrt{dhā}$.

e. A few roots in *an* or *am* lengthen the vowel: thus, *jigāṅsa* (beside *jigamiṣa*) from $\sqrt{gam}$; *jighāṅsa* from $\sqrt{han}$; *mīmāṅsa* from $\sqrt{man}$; and *titāṅsa* from $\sqrt{tan}$.

f. Reversion to guttural form of an initial after the reduplication is seen in *cikīṣa* from $\sqrt{ci}$, *cikitsa* from $\sqrt{cit}$, *jigīṣa* from $\sqrt{ji}$, *jighāṅsa* from $\sqrt{han}$; and $\sqrt{hi}$ is said to make *jighīṣa* (no occurrence).

g. The roots *van* and *san* make *vivāsa* and *siṣāsa*, from the root-forms *vā* and *sā*.

h. The root *jīv* forms *jujyūṣa* (ÇB.: *jijīviṣa*, VS.); and the other roots in *īv* (765) are required to make the same change before *sa*, and to have *guṇa* before *īṣa*: thus, *susyūṣa* or *siseviṣa* from $\sqrt{sīv}$. *Svap* forms *suṣupsa*. *Dhūrv* forms *dudhūrṣa*.

i. Initial *s* is usually left unchanged to *ṣ* after the reduplication when the desiderative sign has *ṣ* (184e): thus, *sisāṅkṣa* (ÇB.: $\sqrt{sañj}$), and *susyūṣa* and *sisaniṣa*, according to the grammarians; but *tuṣṭūṣa* is met with.

j. Further may be mentioned as prescribed by the grammarians: *ninaṅkṣa* (or *ninaçiṣa*) from $\sqrt{nāç}$ *be lost*; *mimaṅkṣa* from $\sqrt{majj}$ (occurs in *mimaṅkṣu*); *mimārjīṣa* (or *mimṛkṣa*) from $\sqrt{mrj}$.

1029. The consonant of the reduplication follows the general rules (590); the vowel is इ *i* if the root has an *a*-vowel, or ए *ṛ*, or an *i*-vowel; it is उ *u* if the root has an *u*-vowel. But:

a. A few roots have a long vowel in the reduplicating syllable: thus, *bībhatsa* from $\sqrt{badh}$ or *bādh*; *mīmaṅsa* from $\sqrt{man}$; and *tūtūrṣa* (RV.) from $\sqrt{tur}$; *dadhiṣu* (AV.) and *dadaṅkṣu* (C.) are probably false forms.

b. From $\sqrt{aç}$ *is made* (ÇB.) *açiçiṣa*, and from $\sqrt{edh}$ (VS.) *edidhiṣa* (with a mode of reduplication like that followed sometimes in the reduplicating aorist: 862). In the older language, these are the only roots with initial vowel which form a desiderative stem, except *āp* and *ṛdh*, which have abbreviated stems: see the next paragraph. In the later language occur further *eṣiṣiṣa* ($\sqrt{iṣ}$ *seek*) and *īcikiṣiṣa* ($\sqrt{īkṣ}$); and the grammarians add others, as *arjīhiṣa* ($\sqrt{arh}$), *undidiṣa* ($\sqrt{und}$), *ardidhiṣa* ($\sqrt{rdh}$).

c. RV. has the stems *ínakṣa* and *íyakṣa*, regarded as desideratives from $\sqrt{\text{naṣ}}$ *attain* and *yaj*, with mutilated reduplication.

1030. A number of roots, including some of very common use, form an abbreviated stem apparently by a contraction of reduplication and root together into one syllable: thus, *ईप्स* *īpsa* from $\sqrt{\text{आप्}}$ *āp*; *दित्स* *ditsa* from $\sqrt{\text{दा}}$ *dā*.

a. Such abbreviated stems are found in the older language as follows: *dhitsa* (beside *didhiṣa*) from $\sqrt{\text{dhā}}$; *ditsa* (beside *didāsa*) from $\sqrt{\text{dā}}$; *dipsa* (*dhīpsa* JB.) from $\sqrt{\text{dabh}}$; *çikṣa* from $\sqrt{\text{çak}}$; *sīkṣa* from $\sqrt{\text{sah}}$: these are found in RV.; in AV. are added *īpsa* from $\sqrt{\text{āp}}$ (RV. has *apsa* once), and *īrtsa* from $\sqrt{\text{rdh}}$; the other texts furnish *lipsa* (ÇB.) or *līpsa* (TB.) from $\sqrt{\text{labh}}$, *ripsa* (GB.) from $\sqrt{\text{rabh}}$, *pitsa* (ÇB.) from $\sqrt{\text{pad}}$, and *dhīkṣa* (ÇB.) from $\sqrt{\text{dah}}$ (not $\sqrt{\text{dih}}$, since no roots with *i* as medial vowel show the contracted form). In the later language are further found *pitsa* from $\sqrt{\text{pat}}$ also, *jñīpsa* from the causative quasi-root *jñap* (below, 1042 j), and the anomalous *mitsa* from $\sqrt{\text{mā}}$ *measure* (allowed also from roots *mi* and *mī*); and the grammarians give *ritsa* from $\sqrt{\text{rādh}}$. Also *mokṣa* is (very questionably) viewed as a desiderative stem from $\sqrt{\text{muc}}$.

1031. The use of the auxiliary vowel *इ* *i* is quite rare in the early language, but more common later; and it is allowed or prescribed by the grammarians in many stems which have not been found in actual use.

a. It is declared to follow in general, though not without exceptions, necessary or optional, the analogy of the futures (934, 943 a).

b. No example of the use of *i* is found in RV., and only one each in AV. (*pipatiṣa*), VS. (*jijīviṣa*), and TS. (*jigamiṣa*). The other examples noted in the early texts are *açiṣa*, *cikramiṣa*, *jigrahīṣa* (with *ī* for *i*, as elsewhere in this root), *cicariṣa*, *edidhiṣa*, *jijaniṣa*, *didīkṣiṣa*, *bibādhiṣa*, *ruruciṣa*, *vivadiṣa*, *vividiṣa*, *çiṣāsiṣa*, *tiṣṭighiṣa*, *jihīṣiṣa*: most of them are found only in ÇB. Stems also without the auxiliary vowel are made from roots *gam*, *grab*, *car*, *jīv*, *pat*, *bādh*, *vid*.

1032. Inflection: Present-System. The desiderative stem is conjugated in the present-system with perfect regularity, like other *a*-stems (733 a), in both voices, in all the modes (including, in the older language, the subjunctive), and with participles and imperfect. It will be sufficient to give here the first persons only. We may take

as active model ईप्स *īpsa seek to obtain*, from √आप् *āp obtain*; as middle, तितिक्ष *titikṣa endure*, from √तिज् *tij be sharp* (see below, 1040).

1. Present Indicative.						
	active.			middle.		
	s.	d.	p.	s.	d.	p.
1	ईप्सामि īpsāmi	ईप्सावस् īpsāvas	ईप्सामस् īpsāmas	तितिक्षे títikṣe	तितिक्षावहे títikṣāvahe	तितिक्षामहे títikṣāmahe
	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.
2. Present Subjunctive.						
1	ईप्सानि īpsāni	ईप्साव īpsāva	ईप्साम īpsāma	तितिक्षै títikṣāi	तितिक्षावहै títikṣāvahāi	तितिक्षामहै títikṣāmahāi
	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.
3. Present Optative.						
1	ईप्सेयम् īpseyam	ईप्सेव īpseva	ईप्सेम īpsema	तितिक्षेय títikṣeya	तितिक्षेवहि títikṣevahi	तितिक्षेमहि títikṣemahi
	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.
4. Present Imperative.						
2	ईप्स īpsa	ईप्सतम् īpsatam	ईप्सत īpsata	तितिक्षस्व títikasva	तितिक्षेथाम् títiksetham	तितिक्षध्वम् títiksadhvam
	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.
5. Present Participle.						
	ईप्सन्त् īpsant (f.ईप्सन्ती īpsantī)			तितिक्षध्वम् títikṣadhvam		
6. Imperfect.						
1	ऐप्सम् āīpsam	ऐप्साव āīpsāva	ऐप्साम āīpsāma	अतितिक्षे ātítikṣe	अतितिक्षावहि ātítikṣāvahi	अतितिक्षामहि ātítikṣāmahi
	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.

a. There are almost no irregularities of inflection to be reported from the older language. No 1st pl. in masi, or 2d pl. in thana or tana, is met with; of the impv. in tāt, only īpsatāt. The quotable subjunctive forms are those in sāni, sāt and sat, sān, and santa. KBU. has jijñāsīta (cf. 738 b). But the fem. pple síśāsati (instead of siśāsantī) occurs once or twice in the older texts; and RV. has dīdhiṣāṇa.

b. In the epics and later are found sporadic forms of the non-a--

conjugation: thus, *sisṛkṣmas* (BhP.), *titikṣmahe* and *bubhūṣate* 3d pl. (MBb.); and the fem. participles *lipsatī* and *cikīrṣatī* (MBh.: against 449 b). The anomalous *jighīṁsīyāt* occurs also in MBh. and Vas.

1033. a. Desiderative forms outside the present-system are extremely rare in the oldest language. The RV. has only perfect forms from a stem *mimikṣ* — thus, *mimikṣáthus*, *mimikṣátus*, *mimikṣús*; *mimikṣe*, *mimikṣire* — along with the present forms *mimikṣati*, *mimikṣa* etc., *mimikṣant* (pple): they show that *mimikṣ* or *mikṣ* has taken on the character of an independent root. In AV. are found two aorist forms, *īrtsīs* and *acikitsīs*, and a participle or two from *mīmāṁsa* (see below, 1037 a, 1030 a) — all of them from stems which have lost their distinct desiderative meaning, and come to bear an independent value. The forms noted from the other earlier texts will be given in full below.

b. In the later language, a complete system of verbal forms is allowed to be made in the desiderative conjugation, the desiderative stem, less its final vowel, being treated as a root. Thus:

1034. Perfect. The desiderative perfect is the periphrastic (1070 ff.).

a. Thus, *īpsām cakāra* etc.; *titikṣām cakre* etc. Such forms are made in ÇB. from √/ *kram*, *dhūrv*, *bādh*, *ruh*; and in ChU. from *man*.

b. Apparent perfect forms of the ordinary kind made from *mimikṣ* in RV. have been noticed in the preceding paragraph. And AB. (viii. 21. 10) has once *didāsitha* *thou hast desired to give*.

1035. Aorist. The aorist is of the *iṣ*-form: thus, ऐप्सिषम् *āipsiṣam*, अतितिक्षिषि *átitikṣiṣi*.

a. The AY. has *acikitsīs*, and *īrtsīs* (augmentless, with *má* prohibitive: 579). TB. has *āipsīt*; ÇB. *āirtsīt*, *ācikīrṣis* and *ajighāṁsīs*, and *amīmāṁsiṣṭhās*; KB. *jijñāsiṣi*; JUB. *āipsiṣma*; and AA. *adhitsiṣam*. No examples have been found in the later language.

b. A precative is also allowed — thus, *īpsyāsam*, *titikṣiṣīya*; but it never occurs.

1036. Futures. The futures are made with the auxiliary vowel इ *i*: thus, ईप्सिष्यामि *īpsiṣyāmi* and ईप्सितास्मि *īpsitāsmi*; तितिक्षिष्ये *titikṣiṣyē* and तितिक्षिताहे *titkṣitāhe*.

a. The ÇB. has *titikṣiṣyate* and *didṛkṣitāras*. Such forms as *jijñāsyāmas* (MBh.), *didhakṣyāmi* (R.), and *mīmāṁsyant* (GGS.) are doubtless presents, with *-sya-* blunderingly for *-sa-*.

1037. Verbal Nouns and Adjectives. These too are made with the auxiliary vowel इ i , in all cases where that vowel is ever taken.

a. In the older language have been noted: participle in ta , mīmāṃsitá (AV., GB.), jijyūṣita (AB.), çuçrūṣitá and dhīkṣitá (ÇB.); — gerundive in tavya , līpsitavya (AB.), didhyāsitavyá (ÇB.); in ya , jijñāsyà (ÇB.); — gerund in tvā , mīmāṃsitvā (K.).

1038. Of other declinable stems derived from the desiderative stem, by far the most common are the adjective in ú — e. g. titikṣu , dipsú , bībhatsú , siṣāsú (RV. once didṛkṣu) — and the abstract noun in á — e. g. īpsā , bībhatsá , mīmāṃsá , çuçrūṣá — both of which are made with increasing freedom from an early epoch of the language: especially the former, which has the value and construction (271 a) of a present participle. A few adjectives in enya (having a gerundive character: 966 b) occur in the earlier language: thus, didṛkṣēṇya (RV.), çuçrūṣēṇya (TS.), ninīṣēṇya (PB.), jijñāsenya (AB.), and, with irregular reduplication (apparently) papṛkṣēṇya (RV.), dadhiṣēṇya (JB.); and didṛkṣéya (RV.) is a similar formation. RV. has also siṣāsáni and rurukṣāṇi , and siṣāsātu (?). In the later language, besides some of the formations already instanced (those in u and ā , and in sya and sitavya), are found a few derivatives in aka , as cikitsaka , bubhūṣaka ; in ana , as jijñāsana , didhyāsana ; and, very rarely, in anīya (cikitsanīya) and tṛ (çuçrūṣitr); further, secondary derivatives (doubtless) in in from the noun in ā , as īpsin , jigīṣin (one or two of these occur in the older language). And of an adjective in a we have an example in bībhatsá (B.S., and later), and perhaps in avalipsa (AVP.); such words as ajugupsa , duçcikitsa , are rather to be understood as possessive compounds with the noun in ā . As to noun-stems in is , see 392 d.

1039. Derivative or Tertiary Conjugations. A passive is allowed to be made, by adding the passive-sign य yá to the desiderative root (or stem without final a): thus, इप्स्यते īpsyáte *it is desired to be obtained*; — and a causative, by adding in like manner the causative-sign अय áya (1041): thus, इप्सयामि īpsáyāmi *I cause to desire obtainment*.

a. Of these formations in the older language are found mīmāṃsyámāna (doubtless to be read for -sámāna , AV.), lipsyámāna (ÇB.), and rurutsyamāna (K.). Half-a-dozen such passives are quotable later, and one or two causatives: e. g. cikitsyate , vivakṣyate , jijñāsyate ; cikīṛṣayant , cikitsayiṣyati .

b. For the desiderative conjugation formed on causative stems, which is found as early as the Brāhmaṇas, see below, 1052b.

1040. Some stems which are desiderative in form have lost the peculiarity of desiderative meaning, and assumed the value of independent roots: examples are cikits, *cure*, jugups, *despise*, titikṣ, *endure*, bībhats, *abhor*, mīmāṃs *ponder*, çuçrūṣ *obey*. Doubtless some of the apparent roots in the language with sibilant final are akin with the desideratives in origin: e.g. çikṣ, desiderative of çak.

a. On account of the near relation of desiderative and future (cf. 948 b), the former is occasionally found where the latter was rather to be expected: thus, rājānam prayiyāsantam (ÇB.) *a king about to depart*; prāṇa uccikramiṣan (ChU.) *the breath on the point of expiring*; mumūrṣur ivā 'bhavat (H.) *he was fain to die*.

IV. Causative.

1041. a. In the later language is allowed to be made from most roots a complete causative conjugation. The basis of this is a causative stem, formed by appending the causative-sign आय áya to the, usually strengthened, root.

b. But by no means all conjugation-stems formed by the sign आय áya are of causative value; and the grammarians regard a part of them as constituting a conjugation-class, the tenth or cur-class, according to which roots may be inflected as according to the other classes, and either alone or along with others (775).

c. In RV., the proportion without causative value is fully one third. The formation is a more obviously denominative one than any of the other conjugation-classes, an intermediate between them and the proper denominatives. A causative meaning has established itself in connection with the formation, and become predominant, though not exclusive. A number of roots of late appearance and probably derivative character are included in the class, and some palpable denominatives, which lack only the usual denominative accent (below, 1056).

d. The causative formation is of much more frequent use, and more decidedly expanded into a full conjugation, than either the intensive or the desiderative. It is made from more than three hundred roots in the early language (in RV., from about one hundred and fifty); but in the oldest, its forms outside the present-system are (apart from the attached reduplicated aorist: 1046) exceedingly few.

1042. The treatment of the root before the causative-sign आय áya is as follows:

a. Medial or initial i, u, ṛ, ḷ have the guṇa-strengthening (if capable of it: 240; thus, vedaya from √vid, codaya from √cud, tarpaya from √trp; and kalpaya from √kḷp (only example): but cintaya, gulphaya, dṛṇhaya.

b. But a few roots lack the strengthening: these are, in the older language, cit (citaya and cetaya), iṣ, iḷ, riṣ (riṣaya and reṣaya), vip (vipaya and vepaya), tuj, tur, tuṣ (tuṣaya and toṣaya), dyut (dyutaya and dyotaya), ruc (rucaya and rocaya), çuc (çucaya and çocaya), çubh (cubhaya and çobhaya), kṛp, mṛḍ, sprh; and grabh makes in RV. gr̥bhaya. Duṣ and guh lengthen the vowel instead. Mṛj sometimes has vṛddhi, as in other forms: thus, mārjaya (beside marjaya). On the other hand, guṇa appears irregularly (240 b) in srevaya (beside çrīvaya), heḍaya, mekṣaya. Similar irregularities in the later language are giraya, tulaya (also tolaya), churaya (also choraya), muṣaya, sphuraya. No forms without strengthening have a causative value made in the older language.

c. A final vowel has the vṛddhi-strengthening: thus, cāyaya, çāyaya, cyāvaya, bhāvaya, dhāraya, sāraya.

d. But no root in i or ī has vṛddhi in the Veda (unless pāyaya [k, below] comes from pī rather than pā) — as, indeed, regular causatives from such roots are hardly quotable: only RV. has kṣayaya (beside kṣepaya) from √kṣi *possess*; for a few alternatively permitted forms, see below, 1. In B. and S., however, occur çāyaya and sāyaya (√si or sâ); and later -āyaya, cāyaya, smāyaya, ḍāyaya, nāyaya.

e. A few roots have a form also with guṇa-strengthening: thus, cyu, dru, plu, yu *separate*, çru, pū, stu, sru; jṛ *waste away*, dṛ *pierce*, sṛ, smṛ, hṛ; vṛ *choose* makes varaya later (it is not found in V.: epic also vāraya).

f. A medial or initial a in a light syllable is sometimes lengthened, and sometimes remains unchanged: thus, bhājaya, svāpaya, ādaya; janaya, çrathaya, anaya (but mandaya, valgaya, bhakṣaya).

g. The roots in the older language which keep their short a are jan, pan, svan, dhan, ran, stan, gam (gāmaya once in RV.), tam, dam, raj (usually rañjaya), prath, çrath, çnath, vyath, svad, chad *please* (also chandaya), nad, dhvas (also dhvañsaya), rah, mah (also mañhaya), nabh (also nambhaya), tvar, svar, hval. In the later language, further, kvaṇ, jvar, trap, day, paṇ, rac, ran *ring*, vadh, val, vaç, çlath, skhal, sthag. Both forms are made (either in the earlier or in the later language, or in both taken together) by ad, kal, kram, kṣam, khan, ghaṭ, cam, cal, jval, tvar, dal, dhvan, nad, nam, pat, bhram, math, mad, yam, ram, lag, lal, vam, vyadh, çam *be quiet*, çram, çvas, svap. The roots which lengthen the vowel are decidedly the more numerous.

h. If a nasal is taken in any of the strong forms of a root, it usually appears in the causative stem: e. g. dambhaya, dañçaya, indhaya,

limpaya, rundhaya, çundhaya, kṛntaya, dṛñhaya. From a number of roots, stems both with and without the nasal are made: thus (besides those mentioned above, g), kuñcaya and kocaya, granthaya and grathaya, bṛñhaya and barhaya, bhrañçaya and bhrāçaya, çundhaya and çodhaya, sañjaya and sajjaya, siñcaya and secaya. In a few of these is seen the influence of present-stems.

i. Most roots in final ā, and the root ṛ, add p before the conjugation-sign: thus, dāpaya, dhāpaya, sthāpaya; arpaya.

j. Such stems are made in the older language from the roots kṣā, khyā, gā *sing* (also gāyaya), glā, ghrā, jñā, dā *give*, dā *divide*, drā *run*, dhā *put* and dhā *suck*, mā *measure*, mlā, yā, vā *blow*, sthā, snā, hā *remove*; the later language adds kṣmā, dhmā, and hā *leave*. From jñā and snā are found in AV. and later the shortened forms jñapaya and snapaya, and from çrā only çrapaya (not in RV.). Also, in the later language, glā forms glapaya, and mlā forms mlapaya.

k. Stems from ā-roots showing no p are, earlier, gāyaya (also gāpaya) from √gā *sing*, chāyaya, pāyaya from √pā *drink* (or pī), pyāyaya from √pyā or pyāy; sāyaya from √sā (or si); also, later, hvāyaya from √hvā (or hū); — and further, from roots vā *weave*, vyā, and çā (or çī), according to the grammarians.

l. The same p is taken also by a few i- and ī-roots, with other accompanying irregularities: thus, in the older language, kṣepaya (RV., beside kṣayaya) from √kṣi *possess*; jāpaya (VS. and later) from √ji; lāpaya (TB. and later; later also lāyaya) from √lī *cling*; çrāpaya (VS., once) from √çri; adhyāpaya (S. and later) from adhi+√i; — in the later, kṣapaya (beside kṣayaya) from √kṣi *destroy*; māpaya from √mī; smāpaya (beside smāyaya) from √smi; hrepaya from √hrī; — and the grammarians make further krāpaya from √krī; cāpaya (beside cāyaya) from √ci *gather*; bhāpaya (beside bhāyaya and bhīṣaya) from √bhī; repaya from √rī, and vlepaya from √vlī. Moreover, √ruh makes ropaya (B. and later) beside rohaya (V. and later), and √knū makes knopāya (late).

m. More anomalous cases, in which the so-called causative is palpably the denominative of a derived noun, are: pālaya from √pā *protect*; prīṇaya from √prī; līnaya (according to grammarians) from √lī; dhūnaya (not causative in sense) from √dhū; bhīṣaya from √bhī; ghātaya from √han; sphāvaya from √sphā or sphāy.

n. In the Prakrit, the causative stem is made from all roots by the addition of (the equivalent of) āpaya; and a number (about a dozen) of like formations are quotable from Sanskrit texts, mostly of the latest period; but three, krīdāpaya, jīvāpaya, and dīkṣāpaya, occur in the epics; and two, açāpaya and kṣālāpaya, even in the Sūtras.

1043. Inflection: Present-System. The causative stem is inflected in the present-system precisely like other

stems in अ a (733 a): it will be sufficient to give here in general the first persons of the different formations, taking as model the stem धारय dhārāya, from √धृ dhṛ. Thus:

1. Present Indicative.

active.			
	s.	d.	p.
1	धारयामि dhārāyāmi	धारयावस् dhārāyāvas	धारयामस् dhārāyāmas
	etc.	etc.	etc.
middle.			
	s.	d.	p.
1	धारये dhārāye	धारयावहे dhārāyāvahe	धारयामहे dhārāyāmahe
	etc.	etc.	etc.

a. The 1st pl. act. in masi greatly outnumbered (as ten to one) that in mas in both RV. and AV. No example occurs of 2d pl. act. in thana, nor of 3d sing. mid. in e for ate.

2. Present Subjunctive.

For the subjunctive may be instanced all the forms noted as occurring in the older language:

active.			
1	dhārāyāñi	dhārāyāva	dhārāyāma
2	dhārāyāsi dhārāyās	dhārāyāthas	dhārāyātha
3	dhārāyāti dhārāyāt	dhārāyātas	dhārāyān
middle.			
1	dhārāyāi	dhārāyāvahāi	
2	dhārāyāse		dhārāyādhve dhārāyādhvāi
3	dhārāyāte dhārāyātāi	dhārāyāite	

b. Only one dual mid. form in āite occurs: mādāyāite (RV.). The only RV. mid. form in āi, except in 1st du., is mādāyādhvāi. The primary endings in 2d and 3d sing. act. are more common than the secondary.

3. Present Optative.

active.			
1	धारयेयम् dhārāyeyam	धारयेव dhārāyeva	धारयेम dhārāyema
	etc.	etc.	etc.

middle.			
1	धारयेय dhārāyeya	धारयेवहि dhārāyevahi	धारयेमहि dhārāyemahi
	etc.	etc.	etc.

c. Optative forms are very rare in the oldest language (four in RV., two in AV.); they become more common in the Brāhmaṇas. A 3d sing. mid. in īta instead of eta (cf. 738 b) occurs once in B. (kāmayīta AB.), is not very rare in S. (a score or two of examples are quotable), and is also found in MBh. and later. Of a corresponding 3d pl. in īran only one or two instances can be pointed out (kāmayīran AÇS., kalpayīran AGS.).

4. Present Imperative.

active.			
2	धारय dhārāya	धारयतम् dhārāyatam	धारयत dhārāyata
	etc.	etc.	etc.
middle.			
2	धारयस्व dhārāyasva	धारयेथाम् dhārāyethām	धारयध्वम् dhārāyadhvam
	etc.	etc.	etc.

d. Imperative persons with the ending tāt occur: dhārayatāt (AV.) and cyāvayatāt (ÇB.) are 2d sing.; pātayatāt (ÇB.) is 3d sing.; gamayatāt and cyāvayatāt (K. etc.), and vārayatāt (TB.) are used as 2d pl. Vārayadhvāt (K. etc.) is 2d pl., and the only known example of such an ending (see above, 549 b).

5. Present Participle.

धारयन् dhārāyant	धारयमाण dhārāyamāṇa
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e. The feminine of the active participle is regularly and usually made in antī (449 c). But a very few examples in atī are met with (one in the older language: namayatī Āpast.).

f. The middle participle in māna is made through the whole history of the language, from RV. (only yātāyamāna) down, and is the only one met with in the earlier language (for írayānas [sic !], MS. ii. 7. 12, is evidently a false reading, perhaps for írayā nas). But decidedly more common in the epics and later is one formed with āna: e. g. kāmayāna, cintayāna, pālayāna, vedayāna. It is quotable from a larger number of roots than is the more regular participle in māna. As it occurs in no accentuated text, its accent cannot be given.

6. Imperfect.

active.			
1.	अधारयम् ádihārayam	अधारयाव ádihārayāva	अधारयाम् ádihārayāma
	etc.	etc.	etc.
middle.			
1	अधारये ádihāraye	अधारयावहि ádihārayāvahi	अधारयामहि ádihārayāmahi
	etc.	etc.	etc.

1044. As was above pointed out, the formations from the causative stem in *aya* outside the present-system are in the oldest language very limited. In RV. are found two forms of the future in *syāmi*, one passive participle (*coditá*), and ten infinitives in *dhyāi*; also one or two derivative nouns in *tr̥* (*bodhayitr̥*, *codayitr̥*), five in *iṣṇu*, seven in *itnu*, and a few in *a* (*atipārayá*, *nidhārayá*, *vācamīnkhayá*, *viçvamejaya*), and in *u* (*dhārayú*, *bhāvayú*, *mandayú*). In AV., also two s-future forms and four gerunds in *tvā*; and a few derivative noun-stems, from one of which is made a periphrastic perfect (*gamayāṁ cakāra*). In the Brāhmaṇas, verbal derivative forms become more numerous and various, as will be noted in detail below.

1045. Perfect. The accepted causative perfect is the periphrastic (1071 a); a derivative noun in *ā* is made from the causative stem, and to its accusative, in *ām*, is added the auxiliary: thus,

धारयां चकार dhārayāṁ cakāra (or āsa: 1070 b)

धारयां चक्रे dhārayāṁ cakre

a. Of this perfect no example occurs in RV. or SV. or VS., only one — *gamayāṁ cakāra* — in AV., and but half-a-dozen in all the various texts of the Black Yajur-Veda, and these not in the mantra-parts of the text. They are also by no means frequent in the Brāhmaṇas, except in ÇB. (where they abound: chiefly, perhaps, for the reason that this work uses in considerable part the perfect instead of the imperfect as its narrative tense).

1046. Aorist. The aorist of the causative conjugation is the reduplicated, which in general has nothing to do with the causative stem, but is made directly from the root.

a. It has been already fully described (above, 856 ff.).

b. Its association with the causative is probably founded on an original intensive character belonging to it as a reduplicated form, and is a matter of gradual growth; in the Veda it is made from a

considerable number of roots (in RV., more than a third of its instances; in AV., about a fifth) which have no causative stem in aya.

c. The causative aorist of √धृ dhṛ, then, is as follows:

1	अदीधरम् ádīdharam	अदीधराव ádīdharāva	अदीधराम ádīdharāma
	etc.	etc.	etc.
1	अदीधरे ádīdhare	अदीधरावहि ádīdharāvahi	अदीधरामहि ádīdharāmahi
	etc.	etc.	etc.

An example was inflected in full at 864.

1047. In a few cases, where the root has assumed a peculiar form before the causative sign — as by the addition of a p or ṣ (above, 1042 i ff.) — the reduplicated aorist is made from this form instead of from the simple root: thus, atīṣṭhipam from sthāp (stem sthāpaya for √sthā. Aorist-stems of this character from quasi-roots in āp are arpipa (√r), jījapa or jījipa, jīñapa or jīñīpa, çīçrapa, tiṣṭhipa, jīhipa; the only other example from the older language is bībhiṣa from bhīṣ for √bhī.

1048. But a few sporadic forms of an iṣ-aorist from causative conjugation-stems are met with: thus, dhvanayīt (RV.; TS. has instead the wholly anomalous dhvanayit), vyathayīs and āilayīt (AV.), pyāyayiaṣṭhās and avādayiṣṭhās (KBU.), in the older language (RV. has also ūnayīs from a denominative stem); in the later, ahlādayiṣata (DKC.), and probably aghātayithās (MBh.; for -iṣṭhās: cf. 904 d). The passive 3d sing, aropi, from the causative ropaya, has a late occurrence (Çatr.).

1049. A precativum is of course allowed by the grammarians to be made for the causative conjugation: in the middle, from the causative stem with the auxiliary i substituted for its final a; in the active, from the form of the root as strengthened in the causative stem, but without the causative sign: thus,

धार्यासम् dhāryāsam etc.	धारयिषीय dhārayiṣīya etc.
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This formation is to be regarded as purely fictitious.

1050. Futures. Both futures, with the conditional, are made from the causative stem, with the auxiliary इ i, which takes the place of its final अ a. Thus:

S-Futures.

धारयिष्यामि dhārayiṣyāmi etc.	धारयिष्ये dhārayiṣyé etc.
धारयिष्यन् dhārayiṣyánt	धारयिष्यमाण dhārayiṣyāmaṇa

Conditional.

अधारायिष्यम् ádhārayiṣyam etc.	अधारायिष्ये ádhārayiṣye etc.
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Periphrastic Future.

धारयितास्मि dhārayitāsmi etc.

a. It has been mentioned above that RV. and AV. contain only two examples each of the s-future, and none of the periphrastic. The former begin to appear in the Brāhmaṇas more numerous, but still sparingly, with participles, and conditional (only adhārayiṣyat ÇB.; alāpayiṣyathās ChU.); of the latter, ÇB. affords two instances (pārayitāsmi and janayitāsi). Examples of both formations are quotable from the later language (including the middle form darçayitāhev: 947 c).

1051. Verbal Nouns and Adjectives. These are made in two different ways: either 1. from the full causative stem (in the same manner as the futures, just described); or 2. from the causatively strengthened root-form (with loss of the causative-sign).

a. To the latter class belong the passive participle, as dhārita; the gerundive and gerund in ya, as dhārya, -dhārya; and the gerund in am, as dhāram; also, in the older language, the root-infinitive, as -dhāram etc. (970 a). To the former class belong the infinitive and the gerund in tvā, as dhārayitum, dhārayitvā, and the gerundive in tavya, as dhārayitavya (also, in the older language, the infinitives in tavāi and dhyāi, as jānayatavāi, īrayādhyāi, etc.). The auxiliary i is taken in every formation which ever admits that vowel.

b. Examples of the passive participle are īritā, vāsita, çrāvitā. But from the quasi-root jñap (1042 j) is made jñapta, without union-vowel.

c. Examples of the infinitive and gerund in tvā are jóṣayitum, dhārayitum; kalpayitvá, arpayitvá. But in the epics, and even later, infinitives are occasionally made with loss of the causative-sign: e. g. çeṣitum, bhāvitum, dhāritum, mocitum.

d. Examples of the gerunds in ya and am are -bhājya, -ghārya, -pādyā, -vāsyā, nāyya, -sthāpya; -bhājam, -sthāpam. But stems showing in the root-syllable no difference from the root retain ay of the causative-sign in the gerund, to distinguish it from that belonging to the primary conjugation: e. g. -kramāyya, -gamāyya, -janāyya, -jvalāyya, -kalayya, -çamayya, -racayya, -āpayya.

e. Examples of the gerundive in tavya are tarpayitavyā, gamayitavya, hvāyayitavya; of that in ya, sthāpya, hārya, yājya; of that in anīya, sthāpanīya, bhāvanīya.

f. Examples of other formations occurring in the older language are as follows: root-infinitive, -sthāpam, -vāsas; — infinitive in tu, other cases than accusative, -janayitave; jánayitavāí, páyayitavāí, -çcotayitavāí; çamayitos; — infinitive in dhyāi, iṣayádhyāi, īrayádhyāi, taṁsayádhyāi, nāçayádhyāi, mandayádhyāi, mādayádhyāi, riṣayádhyāi, vartayádhyāi, vājayádhyāi, syandayádhyāi (all RV.); — gerundive in āyya, panayāyya, sprhayāyya, trayayāyya (? √trā).

g. Other noun-derivatives from the causative stem are not infrequent, being decidedly more numerous and various than from any other of the secondary conjugation-stems. Examples (of other kinds than those instanced in 1044) are: árpaṇa, dāpana, prīṇana, bhīṣaṇa; jñāpaka, ropaka; patayālú, sprhayālu; jánayati, jñapti.

h. All the classes of derivatives, it will be noticed, follow in regard to accent the analogy of similar formations from the simple root, and show no influence of the special accent of the causative-stem.

1052. Derivative or Tertiary Conjugations. From the causative stem are made a passive and a desiderative conjugation. Thus:

a. The passive-stem is formed by adding the usual passive-sign य yá to the causatively strengthened root, the causative-sign being dropped: thus, धार्यते dhāryáte.

b. Such passives are hardly found in the Veda (only bhājyá- AV.), but some thirty instances are met with in the Brāhmaṇas and Sūtras: examples are jñāpyá- (TS.), sādya- (K.), pādyā- (AB.), vādya- (TB.), sthāpya- (GB.); and they become quite common later.

c. The desiderative stem is made by reduplication and addition of the sign इष iṣa, of which the initial vowel replaces the final of the causative stem: thus, दिधारयिषति dīdhārayiṣati.

d. These, too, are found here and there in the Brāhmaṇas and later (about forty stems are quotable): examples are pipāyayiṣa (K.), bibhāvayiṣa and cikalpayiṣa and lulobhayiṣa (AB.), dídrāpayiṣa and rirādhayiṣa and āpipayiṣa (ÇB.), and so on.

e. As to causatives made from the intensive and desiderative stems, see above, 1025, 1039.

V. Denominative.

1058. A denominative conjugation is one that has for its basis a noun-stem.

a. It is a view now prevailing held that most of the present-systems of the Sanskrit verb, along with other formations analogous with a

present-system, are in their ultimate origin denominative; and that many apparent roots are of the same character. The denominatives which are so called differ from these only in that their origin is recent and undisguised.

1054. The grammarians teach that any noun-stem in the language may be converted, without other addition than that of an अ a (as union-vowel enabling it to be inflected according to the second general conjugation) into a present-stem, and conjugated as such.

a. But such formations are rare in actual use. The RV. has a few isolated and doubtful examples, the clearest of which is bhiṣákti *he heals*, from bhiṣáj *physician*; it is made like a form of the root-class; abhiṣṇak seems to be its imperfect according to the nasal class; and pátyate *he rules* appears to be a denominative of páti *master*; other possible cases are iṣaṇas etc., kṛpāṇanta, taruṣema etc., vanuṣanta, bhurajanta, vānanvati. From the other older texts are quotable kavyánt (TS.), áḥlonat (TB.), unmūlati (ŚB.), svadhāmahe (ÇÇS.). And a considerable number of instances, mostly isolated, are found in the later language: e. g. kalahant (MBh.), arghanti (Pañç.), abjati (Çatr.), gardabhati (SD.), utkaṇṭhate (SD.), jagannetrati (Pras.), keliçvetasahasrapattrati (Pras.).

1055. In general, the base of denominative conjugation is made from the noun-stem by means of the conjugation-sign य yá, which has the accent.

a. The identity of this ya with the ya of the so-called causative conjugation, as making with the final a of a noun-stem the causative-sign aya, is hardly to be questioned. What relation it sustains to the ya of the ya-class (759), of the passive (768), and of the derivative intensive stem (1016), is much more doubtful.

1056. Intermediate between the denominative and causative conjugations stands a class of verbs, plainly denominative in origin, but having the causative accent. Examples, beginning to appear at the earliest period of the language, are mantráyate *speaks, takes counsel*, (from mantra, √man + tra), kīrtáyati *commemorates* (from kīrti, √kṛ *praise*), artháyati or -te *makes an object of, seeks* (from ártha *goal, object*), varṇayati *depicts* (from varṇa *color*), kathayati or -te *gives the how of anything, relates* (from katham *how?*), and so on. These, along with like forms from roots which have no other present-system (though they may make scattering forms outside that system from the root directly), or which have this beside other present-systems without causative meaning, are reckoned by the grammarians as a separate conjugation-class, the cur-class (above, 607, 775).

1057. Denominatives are formed at every period in the history of the language, from the earliest down.

a. They are frequent in RV., which contains over a hundred, of all varieties; AV. has only half as many (and personal forms from hardly a third as many: from the rest, present participles, or derivative nouns); AB., less than twenty; ÇB., hardly more than a dozen; and so on. In the later language they are quotable by hundreds, but from the vast majority of stems occur only an example or two; the only ones that have won any currency are those that have assumed the character of "cur-class" verbs.

1058. The denominative meaning is, as in other languages, of the greatest variety; some of the most frequent forms of it are: *be like, act as, play the part of; regard or treat as; cause to be, make into; use, make application of; desire, wish for, crave* — that which is signified by the noun-stem.

a. The modes of treatment of the stem-final are also various; and the grammarians make a certain more or less definite assignment of the varieties of meaning to the varieties of form; but this allotment finds only a dubious support in the usages of the words as met with even in the later language, and still less in the earlier. Hence the formal classification, according to the final of the noun-stem and the way in which this is treated before the denominative sign *yá*, will be the best one to follow.

1059. From stems in a. a. The final a of a noun-stem oftenest remains unchanged: thus, *amitráyāti plays the enemy, is hostile; devayāti cultivates the gods, is pious.*

b. But final a is also often lengthened: thus, *aghāyāti plans mischief; priyāyáte holds dear; açvāyāti seeks for horses; açanāyāti desires food.*

c. While in the Veda the various modes of denominative formation are well distributed, no one showing a marked preponderance, in the later language the vast majority of denominatives (fully seven eighths) are of the two kinds just noticed: namely, made from a-stems, and of the form *aya* or *āya*, the former predominating. And there is seen a decided tendency to give the denominatives in *aya* an active form and transitive meaning, and those in *āya* a middle form and intransitive or reflexive meaning. In not a few cases, parallel formations from the same stem illustrate this distinction: e. g. *kaluṣayati makes turbid, kaluṣāyate is or becomes turbid; taruṇayati rejuvenates, taruṇāyate is rejuvenated; çithilayati loosens, çithilāyate grows loose.* No distinct traces of this distinction are

recognizable in the Veda, although there also corresponding forms with short a and with long ā sometimes stand side by side.

d. Final a is sometimes changed to ī (very rarely i): thus, adhvarīyāti *performs the sacrifice*; taviṣīyāti *is mighty*; putrīyāti or putriyāti *desires a son*; māṁsīyāti *craves flesh*; sajjīyate *is ready*; candrakāntīyati *is moonstonelike*. Not fifty stems of this form are quotable.

e. It is occasionally dropped (after n or r): thus, turaṇyāti *is rapid*; adhvaryāti *performs the sacrifice*.

f. Other modes of treatment are sporadic: thus, the addition of s, as in stanasyati *seeks the breast*; the change of a to e, as in vareyāti *plays the wooer*.

1060. From stems in ā. Final ā usually remains, as in gopāyāti *plays the herdsman, protects*; pṛtanāyati *fights*; but it is sometimes treated in the other methods of an a-stem: thus, pṛtanyati *fights*; tilottamīyati *acts Tilottama*.

1061. From stems in i, ī, and u, ū. Such stems are (especially those in u, ū) very rare. They show regularly ī and ū before ya: thus, arātīyāti (also -tiy-) *plots injury*; janīyāti (also -niy-) *seeks a wife*; sakhiyāti *desires friendship*; nārīyate *turns woman*; — çatrūyāti *acts the foe*; rjūyāti *is straight*; vasūyāti *desires wealth*; asūyāti *grumbles, is discontented*: with short u, gātuyāti *sets in motion*.

a. More rarely, i or u is treated as a (or else is gunated, with loss of a y or v): thus, dhunayāti *comes snorting*; laghayati *makes easier*. Sometimes, as to a (above, 1059f), a sibilant is added: thus, aviṣyāti *is vehement*; uruṣyāti *saves*. From dhī, RV. makes dhiyāyáte.

1062. From other vowel-stems, a. Final ṛ is changed to rī: thus, mātṛīyāti *treats as a mother* (only quotable example).

b. The diphthongs, in the few cases that occur, have their final element changed to a semivowel: thus, gavyāti *seeks cattle, goes a-raiding*.

1063. From consonant-stems. A final consonant usually remains before ya: thus, bhiṣajyāti *plays the physician, cures*; ukṣaṇyāti *acts like a bull*; apasyāti *is active*; namasyāti *pays reverence*; sumanasyáte *is favorably disposed*; taruṣyāti *fights*.

a. But a final n is sometimes dropped, and the preceding vowel treated as a final: thus, rājāyáte or rājīyāti *is kingly*, from rājan; -karmayati from -karman; svāmīyati *treats as master*, from svāmin: vṛṣāyáte from vṛṣan is the only example quotable from the older language. Sporadic cases occur of other final consonants similarly treated: thus, ojāyáte from ojas, -manāyate from -manas; — while, on the other hand, an a-vowel is occasionally added to such a consonant before ya: thus, iṣayāti from iṣ, satvanāyati from satvan.

1064. The largest class of consonantal stems are those showing a s before the ya; and, as has been seen above, a sibilant is sometimes, by analogy, added to a final vowel, making the denominative-sign virtually sya

— or even, with a also added after an i- or u- vowel, asya; and this comes to be recognized by the grammarians as an independent sign, forming denominatives that express desire: thus, sumakhasyāte *is merry*; jīvanasya- (in -syā́ *love of life*); vṛṣasyati *desires the male* (the only quotable examples); madhuṣyati or madhvasyati *longs for honey*; kṣīrasyati *craves milk*.

1065. The grammarians reckon as a special class of denominatives in kāmya what are really only ordinary ones made from a compound noun-stem having kāma as its final member: thus, rathakāmyati *longs for the chariot* (K.: only example found in the older language); arthakāmyati *desires wealth*; putrakāmyati *wishes a son* (the only quotable examples); coming from the possessive compounds rathakāma etc. And arthāpāyati *treats as property* is a (sole quotable) example of a stem having the Prakritic causative form (1042 n).

a. Stems of anomalous formation are drāghaya from dīrgha, draḍhaya from dṛḍha, and perhaps mradaya from mṛdu.

1066. a. A number of denominative stems occur in the Veda for which no corresponding noun-stems are found, although for all or nearly all of them related words appear: thus, aṅkūyá, stabhūyá, iṣudhya; dhiṣanyá, riṣanyá, ruvanya, huvanya, iṣanyá; ratharyá, ṛatharyá, saparyá; iyasya (ÇB.), irasyá, daṣasyá, makhasyá, panasyá, sacasyá. Those in anyā, especially, look like the beginnings of a new conjugation-class.

b. Having still more that aspect, however, are a Vedic group of stems in āya, which in general have allied themselves to present-systems of the nā-class (732), and are found alongside the forms of that class: thus, gr̥bhāyāti beside gr̥bhñāti. Of such, RV. has gr̥bhāyá, mathāyá, pruṣāyá, muṣāyá, ṛathāya, skabhāyá, stabhāyá. A few others have no nā-class companions: thus, damāyá, ṣamāyá, tudāyá (AV.); and panāya, naṣāya, vṛṣāya (√vṛṣ *rain*), vasāyá (√vas *clothe*), and perhaps aṣāya (√āṣ *attain*).

c. Here may be mentioned also quasi-denominatives made from onomatopoetic combinations of sounds, generally with repetition: e. g. kiṭakiṭāya, thatathatarāya, miṣamiṣāya, ṣaraṣarāya.

1067. The denominative stems in RV. and AV. with causative accentuation are: RV. aṅkhāya, arthāya, iṣāya (also iṣayá), ūrjāya, ṛtāya, kṛpāya, mantrāya, mrgāya, vavrāya, vājāya (also vājayá), vīlāya, suṣvāya (also suṣvayá); AV. adds kīrtāya, dhūpāya, pālāya, vīrāya, sabhāgāya.

a. The accent of ānniya and hástaya (RV.) is wholly anomalous.

1068. Inflection. The denominative stems are inflected with regularity like the other stems ending in ण a (733 a) throughout the present-system. Forms outside of

that system — except from the stems which are reckoned to the causative or cur-class, and which follow in all respects the rules for that class — are of the utmost rarity.

a. In RV. occurs no form not belonging to the present-system, except ūnayīs (with mǎ prohibitive), an iṣ-aorist 2d sing. (cf. 1048). Further examples of this aorist are āsūyīt (ÇB.), pāpayiṣṭa (TS.: pl., with mǎ prohibitive), and avṛṣāyiṣata (VS. etc.). The form ásaparyāit (AV. xiv. 2. 20), with āi for ī (555 c), might be aorist; but, as the metre shows, is probably a corrupt reading; amanasyāit, certainly imperfect, appears to occur in TB. (ii. 3. 8³). Other forms begin to appear in the Brāhmaṇas: e. g. the futures gopāyiṣyati (ÇB.), meghāyiṣyánt, kaṇḍūyiṣyánt, çikāyiṣyánt (TS.), the participles bhiṣajyitá (? JB. -jita) and iyasitá (ÇB.), kaṇḍūyitá, çikitá, and meghitá (TS.), the gerund saṁçlákṣṇya (ÇB.), and so on. In the later language, also, forms outside the present-system (except the participle in ta) are only sporadic; and of tertiary conjugation forms there are hardly any: examples are the causatives dhūmāyaya and asūyaya (MBh.), and the desiderative abhiṣiṣenayiṣa (Çiç.).

b. Noun-derivatives from denominative stems follow the analogy of those from causative stems (1051 g). In the older language, those in u and ā (especially the former) are much the most numerous; later, that in ana prevails over all others.

CHAPTER XV.

PERIPHRASTIC AND COMPOUND CONJUGATION.

1069. One periphrastic formation, the periphrastic future, has been already described (942 ff.), since it has become in the later language a recognized part of every verbal conjugation, and since, though still remaining essentially periphrastic, it has been so fused in its parts and altered in construction as to assume in considerable measure the semblance of an integral tense-formation.

By far the most important other formation of the class is —

The Periphrastic Perfect.

1070. This (though almost unknown in the Veda, and coming only gradually into use in the Brāhmaṇas) is a tense widely made and frequently used in the classical Sanskrit.

a. It is made by prefixing the accusative of a derivative noun-stem in आँ (accented) to the perfect tense of an auxiliary verb: namely, of √कृ *kr* *make*, more often of √अस् *as* *be*, and very rarely of √भू *bhū* *be*.

b. In the older language (see below, 1073d), *kr* is almost the only auxiliary used in making this tense, as occurring very few times, and *bhū* never. Later, also, *bhū* is quite rare (it is found nine times in MBh., six times in Rgh., and a few times elsewhere), but as gains very greatly in currency, having become the usual auxiliary, while *kr* is only exceptional.

c. Somewhat similar formations with yet other auxiliaries are not absolutely unknown in the later language: thus, *varayām* *pracakramus* (MBh.), *pūrayām* (etc.) *vyadhus* (Viracaritra), *mṛgayām* *avāsīt* (ib.).

1071. The periphrastic perfect occurs as follows:

a. It is the accepted perfect of the derivative conjugations: intensive, desiderative, causative, and denominative; the noun in आँ being made from the present-stem which is the general basis of each conjugation: thus, from √बुध् *budh*, intensive बोबुधाम् *bobudhām*, desiderative बुभुत्साम् *bubhutsām*, causative बोधयाम् *bodhayām*; denominative मन्त्रयाम् *mantrayām*.

b. The formation from causative stems (including those denominatives which have assumed the aspect of causatives: 1056) is by far the most frequent. Only a few desideratives are quotable (1034 a), and of intensives only *jāgarām āsa* (1020 a; beside *jajāgāra*).

c. Most roots beginning with a vowel in a heavy syllable (long by nature or long by position) make this perfect only, and not the simple one: thus, आसाम् *āsām* from √आस् *ās* *sit*, ईक्षाम् *īkṣām* from √ईक्ष् *īkṣ* *see*; उज्ज्याम् *ujjhām* from √उज्झ् *ujh* *forsake*; एधाम् *edhām* from √एध् *edh* *thrive* (the only examples quotable).

d. Excepted are the roots āp and āñch, and those beginning with a before two consonants (and taking ān as reduplication: 788).

e. The roots (that is, stems reckoned by the grammarians as roots) of more than one syllable have their perfect of this formation: thus, cakāsām. But ūrṇu (713) is said to form ūrṇonāva only; while jāgr (1020) makes a perfect of either formation, and daridrā (1024 a) is said to do the same.

f. A few other roots make the periphrastic in addition to the usual reduplicated perfect. Thus, in the older language only are found the stems cāyām, tāyām, nilsyām, vāsām (√vas *dwell*), vidām (√vid *know*), vyayām, and the reduplicated stems bibhayām and juhavām; the later language adds ayām, jayām, dayām, nayām, smayām, hvayām, and the reduplicated bibharām; and the grammarians teach like formations from uṣ, kās, and the reduplicating hrī. The stem is made in every case from the present-stem, with guṇa of a final vowel.

1072. The periphrastic perfect of the middle voice is made with the middle inflection of √कृ kr. For passive use, the auxiliaries अस् as and भू bhū are said to be allowed to take a middle inflection.

a. One or two late examples of bhū with middle inflection have been pointed out, but none of as.

b. It is unnecessary to give a paradigm of this formation, as the inflection of the auxiliaries is the same as in their independent use: for that of √कृ, see 800 k; of √भू, see 800 d; of √अस्, see 800m.

c. The connection of the noun and auxiliary is not so close that other words are not occasionally allowed to come between them: thus, mīmāṃsām evā cakré (ÇB.) *he merely speculated*; vidāṃ vā idam ayaṃ cakāra (JB.) *he verily knew this*; prabhraṇçayāṃ yo naghuşaṃ cakāra *who made Naghusha fall headlong* (Rgh.).

1073. The above is an account of the periphrastic formation with a derivative noun in ām as it appears especially in the later language; earlier, its aspect is rather that of a more general, but quite infrequent, combination of such a noun with various forms of the root कृ. Thus:

a. Of the periphrastic perfect occurs only a single example in the whole body of Vedic texts (metrical): namely, gamayāṃ cakāra (AV.). In the Brāhmaṇas examples from causative stems begin to appear more freely, but are everywhere few in number, except in ÇB. (which has them from twenty-four roots, and a few of these in several occurrences). From desiderative stems they are yet rarer (only seven occurrences, five of them in ÇB.: see 1034 a); and from intensives they are unknown. The periphrastic perfects of primary conjugation were noted above (1071 f: in ÇB.,

eight stems and about eighty occurrences, chiefly from *īkṣ*, *bhī*, and *vid*; that from *vid* is found in the greatest number of texts).

b. Forms with the aorist of the auxiliary are in the oldest Brāhmaṇas as numerous as those with the perfect. Thus, with *akar* occur *ramayām* (K.), *janayām* and *sādayām* and *svadayām* and *sthāpayām* (MS.); and with *akran*, *vidām* (TS. TB. MS.). With the aorist optative or precative has been found only *pāvayām* *kriyāt* (MS.).

c. Like combinations with other tenses are not entirely unknown: thus, *juhavām* *karoti* (ÇÇS.). So also in the later language, where have been found quotable half-a-dozen such cases as *vidām* *karoti* (Pañc.), *vidām* *karotu* and *kurvantu* (Pañc. etc.).

d. Only two or three cases of the use of *as* instead of *kṛ* as auxiliary are met with in the older language: they are *mantrayām āsa* (AB. GB.), *janayām āsa* (ÇvU.), and *īkṣām āsa* (ÇÇS.).

e. A single example of an accented auxiliary is met with in the accentuated texts: namely, *atirecayām cakrús* (ÇB.). As was to be expected, from the nature of the combination, the noun also retains its accent (compare 945).

Participial Periphrastic Phrases.

1074. The frequent use, especially in the later language, of a past or a future passive participle with the copula (or also without it) to make participial phrases having a value analogous to that of verb-tenses, has been already noticed (999). But other similar combinations are not unknown in any period of the language, as made with other auxiliaries, or with other participles.

a. They occur even in the Veda, but are far more common and conspicuous in the Brāhmaṇas, and become again of minor account in the later language.

1075. Examples of the various formations are as follows:

a. A (usually present) participle with the tenses of the verb *i go*. This is the combination, on the whole, of widest and most frequent occurrence. Thus: *áyajvano vibhájann éti védaḥ* (RV.) *he ever gives away the wealth of the non-offerer*; *yathā sūcyā vāsaḥ saṁdadhad iyād evam evāi 'tābhir yajñasya chidraṁ saṁdadhad eti* (AB.) *just as one would mend [habitually] a garment with a needle, so with these one mends any defect of the sacrifice*; *agnir vā idaṁ vāiçvānaro dahann āit* (PB.) *Agni Vaiçvānara kept burning this creation*; *té 'surāḥ párājitā yánto dyāvāpṛthiví úpāçrayan* (TB.) *those Asuras, getting beaten, took refuge with heaven and earth*; *tè 'sya grhāḥ paçáva upamūryāmāṇā iyuh* (ÇB.) *the animals, his family, would be continually destroyed*.

b. The same with the verb *car go* (continually or habitually), signifying still more distinctly than the preceding a continued or habitual action. Thus: *agnā́v agníç carati práviṣṭaḥ* (AV.) *Agni is constantly present in the fire*; *adaṇḍyaṁ daṇḍena ghnantaç caranti* (PB.) *they make a practice of beating with a rod what is undeserving of punishment*.

c. The same with the verbs *ās sit* and *sthā stand*, with a like meaning. Thus, *juhvata āsate* (K.) *they continue sacrificing*; *te 'pakramya prativāvadato 'tiṣṭhan* (AB.) *they, having gone off, kept vehemently refusing*. In the later language, *sthā* is the verb oftenest used, with predicates of various kind, to make a verbal phrase of continuance.

d. A present or future or perfect participle with *as* and *bhū be*. The participle is oftenest a future one; *as* only is used in the optative, *bhū* usually in other forms. Thus: *yaḥ pūrvam anījānaḥ syāt* (AB.) *whoever may not have made sacrifice before*; *samāvad eva yajñe kurvāṇā āsan* (GB.) *they did the same thing at the sacrifice*; *parikrīḍanta āsan* (MS.) *they were playing about*; *yātra suptvā púnar nā 'vadrāsyān bhāvati* (ÇB.) *when, after sleeping, he is not going to fall asleep again*; *havyaṁ hi vakṣyan bhavati* (AB.) *for he is intending to carry the sacrifice*; *dāsyant syāt* (K.) *may be going to give*; *yéna váhanena syantsyánt syāt* (ÇB.) *with what vehicle he may be about to drive*. True expressions for perfect and pluperfect and future perfect time are capable of being made by such means, and now and then are made, but in no regular and continued fashion.

Composition with Prepositional Prefixes.

1076. All the forms, personal and other, of verbal conjugation — of both primary and secondary conjugation, and even to some extent of denominative (so far as the denominative stems have become assimilated in value to simple roots) — occur very frequently in combination with certain words of direction, elements of an adverbial character (see the next chapter), the so-called prepositions (according to the original use of that term), or the verbal prefixes.

a. Practically, in the later language, it is as if a compounded root were formed, out of root and prefix, from which then the whole conjugation (with derivatives: below, chap. XVII.) is made, just as from the simple root. Yet, even there (and still more in the older language: 1081 a–c), the combination is so loose, and the members retain so much of their independent value, that in most dictionaries (that of Sir Monier Williams is an exception) the conjugation of each root with prefixes is treated under the simple root, and not in the alphabetic order of the prefix. Derivative words, however,

are by universal agreement given in their independent alphabetic place, like simple words.

1077. Those verbal prefixes which have value as such throughout the whole history of the language are given below, in alphabetic order, with their fundamental meanings:

अति áti *across, beyond, past, over, to excess;*

अधि ádhi *above, over, on, on to;*

अनु ánu *after, along, toward;*

अन्तर् antár *between, among, within;*

अप ápa *away, forth, off;*

अपि ápi *unto, close upon or on;*

अभि abhi *to, unto, against* (often with implied violence);

अव áva *down, of;*

आ á *to, unto, at;*

उद् úd *up, up forth or out;*

उप úpa *to, unto, toward;*

नि ní *down; in, into;*

निस् nís *out, forth;*

परा párā *to a distance, away, forth;*

परि pári *round about, around;*

प्र prá *forward, onward, forth, fore;*

प्रति práti *in reversed direction, back to or against, against, in return;*

वि ví *apart, asunder, away, out;*

सम् sám *along, with, together.*

a. Some of these, of course, are used much more widely and frequently than others. In order of frequency in the older language (as estimated by the number of roots with which they are found used in RV. and AV.), they stand as follows: pra, ā, vi, sam, abhi, ni, ud, pari, anu, upa, prati, ava, nis, ati, apa, parā, adhi, api, antar. Api is of very limited use as prefix in the later language, having become a conjunction, *too, also*.

b. The meanings given above are only the leading ones. In combinations of root and prefix they undergo much modification, both literal and figurative — yet seldom in such a way that the steps of transition from the fundamental sense are not easy to trace. Sometimes, indeed, the value of a

root is hardly perceptibly modified by the addition of the prefix. An intensive force is not infrequently given by *pari*, *vi*, and *sam*.

1078. Prefixes essentially akin with the above, but more distinctly adverbial, and of more restricted use, are these:

ácha (or *áchā*) *to, unto*: tolerably frequent in RV. (used with over twenty roots), but already unusual in AV. (only two roots), quite restricted in B., and entirely lost in the later language;

āvís forth to sight, in view: used only with the roots *bhū*, *as*, and *kṛ*;

tírás through, crossways; out of sight: hardly used except with *kṛ*, *dhā*, *bhū* (in RV., with three or four others);

purás in front, forward: used with only half-a-dozen roots, especially *kṛ*, *dhā*, *i*;

prādús forth to view: only with *bhū*, *as*, *kṛ*.

a. A few others, as *bahis outside*, *vinā without*, *alam* (with *bhū* and *kṛ*) *sufficiently, properly*, *sākṣāt in view*, are still less removed from ordinary adverbs.

1079. Of yet more limited use, and of noun-rather than adverb-value, are:

çrad (or *çrath?*), only with *dhā* (in RV., once also with *kṛ*): *çraddhā believe, credit*;

hiñ, only with *kṛ* (and obsolete in the classical language): *hiñkṛ make the sound*, *hing low, murmur*.

a. And beside these stand yet more fortuitous combinations: see below, 1091.

1080. More than one prefix may be set before the same root. Combinations of two are quite usual; of three, much less common; of more than three, rare. Their order is in general determined only by the requirements of the meaning, each added prefix bringing a further modification to the combination before which it is set. But *आँ* is almost never allowed, either earlier or later, to be put in front of any of the others.

a. The very rare cases of apparent prefixion of *ā* to another prefix (as *āvihanti* MBh., *āvitānvānāḥ* BhP.) are perhaps best explained as having the *ā* used independently, as an adverb.

1081. In classical Sanskrit, the prefix stands immediately before the verbal form.

a. In the earlier language, however (especially in the Veda; in the Brāhmaṇa less often and more restrictedly), its position is quite

free: it may be separated from the verb by another word or words, and may even come after the form to which it belongs; it may also stand alone, qualifying a verb that is understood, or conjointly with another prefix one that is expressed.

b. Thus, *sá devāñ é 'há vakṣyati* (RV.) *he shall bring the gods hither*; *prá ṇa āyūñṣi tāriṣat* (AV.) *may he lengthen out our lives*; *tāv á yātam úpa dravát* (RV.) *do ye two come hither quickly*; *gámad vājebhir á sá naḥ* (RV.) *may he come with gifts hither to us*; *pári mām pári me prajām pári ṇaḥ pāhi yád dhánam* (AV.) *protect me, my progeny, and what wealth we own*; *yátaḥ sadyá á ca párā ca yánti* (AV.) *from whence every day they advance and retire*; *vy àhám sárveṇa pāpmānā [avṛtam] ví yákṣmeṇa sám āyuṣā* (AV.) *I have separated from all evil, from disease, [I have joined myself] with life*; *vi hy enena paçyati* (AB.) *for by it he sees*; *ví vā eṣá prajāyā paçúbhir ṛdhyate* (TB.) *he is deprived of progeny and cattle*.

c. Three or four instances have been cited from the later language of a prefix separated from, or following, a verb; perhaps the prefix in every such case admits of being regarded as an adverb.

1082. As regards the accent of verb-forms compounded with prefixes, only the case needs to be considered in which the prefix stands (as always in the later language) immediately before the verb; otherwise, verb and prefix are treated as two independent words.

1083. a. A personal verbal form, as has been seen above (592), is ordinarily unaccented: before such a form, the prefix has its own accent; or, if two or more precede the same form, the one nearest the latter is so accented, and the others lose their accent.

b. If, however, the verb-form is accented, the prefix or prefixes lose their accent.

c. That is, in every case, the verb along with its normally situated prefix or prefixes so far constitutes a unity that the whole combination is allowed to take but a single accent.

d. Examples are: *páre 'hi nāri púnar é 'hi kṣiprám* (AV.) *go away, woman; come again quickly*; *áthá 'staṁ vipáretana* (RV.) *then scatter ye away to your home*; *samācinuṣvā 'nusampráyāhi* (AV.) *gather together, go forth together after*; *yád gṛhān upodāiti* (AV.) *when he goes up to the house*; *evá ca tvám sarama ājagántha* (RV.) *now that you, Saramā, have thus come hither*; *yéná "viṣṭitaḥ pravivéçithā 'páḥ* (RV.) *enveloped in which thou didst enter the waters*.

1084. A prefix, however, not seldom has a more independent value, as a general adverb of direction, or as a preposition (in the usual modern sense of that term), belonging to and governing a noun; in such case, it is not drawn in to form part of a verbal compound, but has its own accent. The two kinds of use shade into one another, and are not divisible by any distinct and fixed line.

a. There is in RV. a considerable number of cases (some thirty) in which the pada-text gives unnecessarily, and probably wrongly, an independent accent to a prefix before an accented verb (or other prefix): resolving, for example, árūhat into á áruhat, vyáacet into ví ácet, abhyávarṣīt into abhí ávarṣīt, vyásarat into ví á asarat (instead of ā-áruhat etc.).

1085. In combination with the non-personal parts of the verb-system — with participles, infinitives, and gerunds — the general rule is that the prefix loses its accent, in favor of the other member of the compound. But the prefix instead has sometimes the accent: namely, when combined —

a. with the passive participle in ta or na: thus, páreta *gone forth*; antárhita *concealed*; ávapanna *fallen*; sámpūrṇa *complete* (cf. 1284).

b. But some exceptions to this rule are met with: e. g., in RV., nicitá, niṣkṛtá, praçastá, niṣattá, etc.; in AV., apakrītá.

c. with the infinitive in tu (972), in all its cases: thus, sámhartum *to collect*; ápidhātave *to cover up*; ávagantos *of descending*. The doubly accented dative in tavāí retains its final accent, but throws the other back upon the prefix: thus, ánvetaṁ *for following*; ápabhartavāí *for carrying off*.

1086. The closeness of combination between the root and the prefix is indicated not only by their unity of accent, but also by the euphonic rules (e. g. 185, 192), which allow the mutual adaptations of the two to be made to some extent as if they were parts of a unitary word.

1087. A few special irregularities call for notice:

a. In the later language, api, adhi, and ava, in connection with certain roots and their derivatives, sometimes lose the initial vowel: namely, api with nah and dhā, adhi with sthā, ava with gāh etc.: e. g. pinaddha, pihita, dhiṣṭhita, vaḡāhya, vataṁsa, vadānya, vaṣṭabhya, vamajjana, vekṣaṇa, valepana. In the Veda, on the other hand, iṣ is in a few cases found instead (apparently) of nis with √kṛ.

b. The final vowel of a prefix, especially an i, is (oftenest in the older language) sometimes lengthened, especially in derivative words: e. g. pratīkāra, nīvṛt, parīhāra, vīrúdh, adhīvāsá, ápīvṛta, abhīvartá; anūrúdh; avāyatí, prāvṛṣ, úpāvasu. In the Veda, the initial of anu is sometimes lengthened after negative an: e. g. anānudá, anānukṛtyá.

c. In combination with √i *go*, the prefixes parā, pari, and pra sometimes change their r to l. In this way is formed a kind of derivative stem palāy *flee*, inflected according to the a-class, in middle voice, which is not uncommon from the Brāhmaṇas down, and has so lost the consciousness of its origin that it sometimes takes the augment prefixed: thus, apalāyīṣṭhās (ÇṢ.), apalāyata (R.), apalāyanta (MBh.); it makes

the periphrastic perfect *palāyām cakre*. The stem *palyay*, similarly inflected, occurs only in one or two texts (ÇB. JB. JUB.); and *plāy* has been found nowhere except in MS. Also the imperfect *nīlāyata* (TS. TB.: not separated in the pada-text) and perfect *nilayām cakre* (ÇB.) are doubtless a corresponding formation from $\sqrt{i}$ with *nis*, though nearly akin in form and meaning with forms from $\sqrt{li}+ni$. So also *pari* becomes *pali* in the combination *palyaṅg* (ÇB. ÇÇS.), whether viewed as a denominative formation or as $\sqrt{aṅg}+pari$. And MS. has once *plākṣārayan* (iii. 10. 2; in an etymology).

d. The root *kṛ* *make* sometimes assumes (or retains from a more original condition) an initial *s* after the prefixes *saṁ*, *pari*, *nis*, and *upa*: thus, *saṁskurute*, *saṁskurvan*, *saṁskṛta*, etc.; *pariṣkṛṇvanti*, *pariṣkṛta*, etc.; *nīr askṛta*; *upaskṛta*. And $\sqrt{kṛ}$ *scatter* is said by the grammarians to add *s* in the same manner, under certain circumstances, after *apa* and *prati* (only *apaskiramāṇa*, *praticaskare*, both late, are quotable).

e. The passive participle of the roots *dā* *give* and *dā* *cut* has often the abbreviated form *tta* after a prefix — of which the final vowel, if *i*, is lengthened (compare 955 f, and the derivative in *ti*, below, 1157 c).

f. In a few sporadic cases, the augment is taken before a prefix, instead of between it and the root: thus, *avaṣaṭkārṣīt* (GB.); *udaprapatat* (AB.); *anvasaṁcarat*, *pratyasaṁharat*, *pratyavyūhat*, *anvavīkṣetām*, *aprāiṣīt*, *asambhramat* (MBh.); *abhyanimantrayat* (Har.); *vyāvasthāpi* (SDS.); compare also the forms from *palāy*, above, c. And AB. has once *niniyoja* (for *niyuyoja*, as read in the corresponding passage of ÇÇS.). Some of the apparent roots of the language have been suspected of being results of a similar unification of root and prefix: e. g. *āp* from *ā+ap*, *vyac* from *vi+ac*, *tyaj* from *ati+aj*.

g. The loss of the initial *s* of *sthā* and *stambh* after the prefix *ud* has been noticed above (233 c). Also (137 a, c), certain peculiarities of combination of a prefix with the initial vowel of a root.

1088. As to the more general adverbial uses of the prefixes, and their prepositional uses, see the next chapter.

1089. As to the combination of the particles *a* or *an* privative, *dus* *ill*, and *su* *well*, with verb-forms, see 1121 b,g,i. As to the addition of the comparative and superlative suffixes *tarām* and *tamām* to verbs, see above, 473 c.

Other Verbal Compounds.

1090. It has been seen above that some of the prepositional prefixes are employed in combination with only very small classes of roots, namely those whose meaning makes them best fitted for auxiliary and periphrastic uses such as *kṛ* *make*, *bhū* and as *be*, *dhā* *put*, *i* *go* —

and that the first of these are widely used in com-

bination with a derivative in *ām* to make a periphrastic conjugation. Such roots have also been, from the earliest period of the language, but with increasing frequency, used in somewhat analogous combinations with other elements, substantive and adjective as well as adverbial; and this has become, in part, developed finally into a regular and indefinitely extensible method of increasing the resources of verbal expression.

1091. a. The older language has a number of (mostly) reduplicative onomatopoeic compounds with roots *kṛ* and *bhū*, the prefixed element ending in *ā* or *ī* (generally the former): thus, in RV., *akkhalīkṛtya* *croaking*, *jañjanābhāvant* *flimmering*, *alalābhāvant* *making merry*, *kikirā kṛṇu* *tear*; in AV., *maṣmaṣā* 'karam *I have crushed*; in VS., *masmaṣā* (also TS.; MS. *mṛsmṛśā*) *kuru*; in TS., *malmalābhāvant*; in K., *manmalābhāvant*, *kikkitākāra*; in MS., *bibibābhāvant*, *bharbharā* 'bhavat; in AB., *bababākurvant*. The accentuation, where shown, is like that of a verb-form with accompanying prefix.

b. Further, combinations with $\sqrt{kṛ}$ of utterances used at the sacrifice, and mostly ending in *ā*: thus, *svāhā*, *svadhā*, *svagā*; also *vāṣaṭ*. In these, too, the accentuation is generally that of a verb with prefix: e. g. *svagākarōti* (ÇB.; but *svadhā karōti* [?] TA.), *vāṣaṭkuryāt* (MS.); and, with another prefix, *anuvāṣaṭkaroti* (ÇB.).

c. An instance or two also occur of ordinary words in such combinations, put in corresponding form: thus, *çulā kuryāt* (ÇB.) *may roast on a spit* (*çūla*); *anṛṇākartos* (AB.) *of getting clear of debt*; *āikyābhāvayant* (AA.) *uniting*.

1092. a. The noun *namas* *obeisance, homage*, in a still more purely noun-value, becomes combined with $\sqrt{kṛ}$: in the Veda, only with the gerund, in *namaskṛtya* (beside *hastagṛhya* and *karṇagṛhya*: above, 990 b).

b. A solitary combination with $\sqrt{i}$ *go* is shown by the accusative *ástam* *home*; which, appearing only in ordinary phrases in RV., is in AV. compounded with the participles — in *astamýant*, *astameṣyant*, *ástamita* (with accent like that of ordinary compounds with a prefix) — and in the Brāhmaṇas and the later language is treated quite like a prefix: thus, *astaméti* (ÇB.).

c. Other ordinary accusative forms of adjectives in combination with verbal derivatives of *kṛ* and *bhū* are found here and there in the older language: thus, *çṛtaṁkṛtya* and *nagnaṁkṛtya* (TS.); *nagnambhāvuka*, *pāmanambhāvuka* etc. (TS. et al.); *ánaruṣkaroti* (ÇB.).

1093. In the early but not in the earliest language, a noun-stem thus compounded with *kṛ* or *bhū* (and very rarely with *as*), in verbal nouns and ordinary derivatives, and then also in verbal forms, begins to assume a constant ending *ī* (of doubtful origin).

a. There is no instance of this in RV., unless the *ī* of *akkhalīkṛtya* (above, 1091 a) is to be so explained. In AV., besides the obscure

vātīkṛta and vātīkārá, is found only phalīkāraṇa. In the Brāhmaṇa language, examples begin to occur more often: thus, in TS., çyetī, mithunī, muṣṭī; in TB., further, phalī, krūrī, udvāsī; in ÇB., besides some of these, also ekī, kālvalī, tivrī, daridrī, brāhmaṇī, mithunī, svī; and açvābhidānī, of which (as of muṣṭī) the ī might be that of an ordinary grammatical form; in K., dvī; in GB., pravaṇī; in ŞB., vajrī; in AB., matī (from matya). From Upanishad and Sūtra are to be added dvāitī (MU.), samī (KÇS.), navī and kuçalī (AGS.). The accent is in general like that of the similar combinations treated above (1091): e. g. krūrīkurvānti, svīkṛtya, brāhmaṇībhūya, mithunībhāvāntyaū, phalīkartavāī, krūrīkṛta; but sometimes a mere collocation takes place: thus, mithunī bhāvāntīs (TS.), phalī kriyāmāṇānām (TB.), vajrī bhūtvā (TA.). The ī is variously treated: now as an uncombinable final, as in çyetī akuruta and mithunī abhavan (TS.); now as liable to the ordinary conversions, as in mithuny ènaya syām, mithuny àbhiḥ syām, and svyàkurvata (ÇB.).

b. Out of such beginnings has grown in the later language the following rule:

1094. Any noun or adjective stem is liable to be compounded with verbal forms or derivatives of the roots √कृ कृ and भू bhū (and of अस् as also; but such cases are extremely rare), in the manner of a verbal prefix. If the final of the stem be an a- or i-vowel, it is changed to ई ī; if an u-vowel, it is changed to ऊ ū.

a. Examples are: stambhībhavati *becomes a post*; ekacittībhūya *becoming of one mind*; upahārīkaroṣi *thou makest an offering*; , nakhaprahārajarjarīkṛta *torn to pieces with blows of the claws*; çithilībhavanti *become loose*; kuṇḍalīkṛta *ring-shaped*; surabhīkṛta *made fragrant*; ādhīkaraṇa *pawning*; ṛjūkṛtya *straightening*; hetūkaraṇa *taking as cause*. As in the case of the denominatives (1059 c), the combinations with a-stems are the immense majority, and occur abundantly (hardly less than a thousand are quotable) in the later language, but for the most part only once or twice each; those made with i- and u-stems are a very small number. In a few instances, stems in an and as, with those finals changed to ī, are met with: e. g. ātmī-kṛ, yuvī-bhū; unmanī-kṛ, amanī-bhū; final ya after a consonant is contracted to ī: e. g. kāṅsī-kṛ; and anomalous cases like kāmḍiçī-bhū occur. Final ṛ is said to become rī, but no examples are quotable. The combinations with कृ are about twice as frequent as those with भू, and examples with as do not appear to have been brought to light.

b. Similar combinations are occasionally made with elements of questionable or altogether obscure character: e. g. urarī-kṛ, urī-kṛ.

c. Examples are not altogether wanting in the later language of ā as

final of the compounded noun-stem (cf. 1091): thus, duḥkhā-kṛ, niṣkulā-kṛ, çambā-kṛ, and one or two others.

1095. Of all the forms which constitute or are attached to the verbal system, the passive participle is the one most closely assimilated in its treatment as a combinable element to an ordinary adjective. Next to it come the gerund and the gerundives. Combinations of the kind above treated of are quite common with passive participles and gerunds.

CHAPTER XVI.

INDECLINABLES.

1096. The indeclinable words are less distinctly divided into separate parts of speech in Sanskrit than is usual elsewhere in Indo-European language — especially owing to the fact that the class of prepositions hardly has a real existence, but is represented by certain adverbial words which are to a greater or less extent used prepositionally. They will, however, be briefly described here under the usual heads.

Adverbs.

1097. Adverbs by Suffix. Classes of adverbs, sometimes of considerable extent, are formed by the addition of adverb-making suffixes especially to pronominal roots or stems, but also to noun and adjective stems.

a. There is no ultimate difference between such suffixes and the case-endings in declension; and the adverbs of this division sometimes are used in the manner of cases.

1098. With the suffix *tas* are made adverbs having an ablative sense, and not rarely also an ablative construction. Such are made:

a. From pronominal roots, in *átas*, *itás*, *tátas*, *yátas*, *kútas*, *amútas*, *svatas* (not found earlier); from the pronominal stems in *t* or

d (494) of the personal pronouns: thus, *mattás* (only example in V.), *tvattas*, *asmattas*, *yuṣmattas*; and from pronominal derivatives: thus, *itarátas*, *katarátas*.

b. From noun and adjective stems of every class, since the earliest period, but more freely later: e. g. *mukhatás*, *agratás*, *ṛbhutás*, *ṛktás*, *ḥṛttás*, *çīrṣatás*, *janmatas*, *nastás*, *yajuṣtas*, *pārátas*, *anyátas*, *anyatarátas*, *sarvátas*, *dakṣiṇatás*, *abhīpatás* (once, in RV., from a case-form: *patsutás*).

c. From a few prepositions: thus, *abhítas*, *parítas*, *ántitas*.

d. Examples of ablative construction are: *áto bhúyaḥ* (RV.) *more than that*; *tátaḥ ṣaṣṭhāt* (AV.) *from that sixth*; *áto 'nyéna* (ÇB.) *with any other than this*; *sarvato bhayāt* (AGS.) *from all fear*; *kutaç cid deçād āgatya* (H.) *arriving from some region or other*; *purād itaḥ* (R.) *from this city*; *tasmāt pretakāyataḥ* (KSS.) *from that dead body*.

e. But the distinctive ablative meaning is not infrequently effaced, and the adverb has a more general, especially a locative, value: thus, *agratás* *in front*; *asmatsamīpatas* *in our presence*; *dharmatas* *in accordance with duty*; *chāgatas* (H.) *with reference to the goat*; *guṇato 'dhikaḥ* (M.) *superior in virtue*.

1099. With the suffix *tra* (in the older language often *trā*) are made adverbs having a locative sense, and occasionally also a locative construction.

a. These adverbs are very few, compared with those in *tas*. They are formed chiefly from pronominal stems, and from other stems having a quasi-pronominal character: namely, in *tra*, *átra*, *tátra*, *yátra*, *kútra*, *amútra*, *anyátra*, *viçvátra*, *sarvátra*, *ubhayátra*, *aparatra*, *uttaratra*, *itarátra*, *anyataratra*, *pūrvatra*, *paratra*, *samānátra*, *ekatra*, *anekatra*, *ekāikatra*; in *trā*, *asmatrā*, *satrā*, *purutrā*, *bahutrā*, *dakṣiṇatrā*. But a few in *trā* come from ordinary nouns: thus, *devatrā*, *martyatrā*, *puruṣatrā*, *manuṣyatrā*, *pākatrā*, *çayutrā*, *kurupañcālatrā*. Those in *trā* are distinguished from the others by their accent.

b. Examples of locative construction are: *hásta á dakṣiṇatrā* (RV.) *in the right hand*; *yátrā 'dhi* (RV.) *in which*; *ekatra puruṣe* (MBh.) *in a single man*; *atra mārātmake* (H.) *in this murderous creature*; *prabhutvaṃ tatra yujyate* (H.) *sovereignty befits him*. And, as the locative case is used also to express the goal of motion (304), so the adverbs in *tra* have sometimes an accusative as well as a locative value: thus, *tatra gaccha* *go there* or *thither*; *pathó devatrā yānān* (RV.) *roads that go to the gods*.

1100. One or two other suffixes of locality are:

a. *ha*, in *ihá* *here*, *kúha* *where?* and the Vedic *viçváha* (also *viçvāhā*, *viçvāhā*) *always* (compare below, 1104b); and *ihá* (like *átra* etc.):

1099 b) is sometimes used with locative-case value: e. g. *iha samaye* (H.) *at this conjuncture*.

b. *tāt*, which is added to words having already a local or directive value: thus, to adverbial accusatives, *prāktāt*, *údaktāt*, *tāvattāt*; to adverbial ablatives, *ārāttāt*, *uttarāttāt*, *parākāttāt*; and to prepositional adverbs, *paçcātāt*, *adhāstāt*, *avāstāt*, *parāstāt*, *purāstāt*, *bahīṣtāt*. Apparently by analogy with these last, the suffix has the form *stāt* in *upāriṣtāt* (and BhP. has *udastāt*).

c. *hi*, in *uttarāhi* (ÇB.) and *dakṣiṇāhi* (not quotable).

1101. By the suffix *thā* are made adverbs of manner, especially from pronominal roots or stems.

a. Thus, *tāthā*, *yāthā*; *kathā* and *itthā* (by the side of which stand *kathām* and *itthām*; and ÇB. has *itthāt*); and the rare *imāthā* and *amūthā*. And *ātha* (V. often *āthā*) *so then* doubtless belongs with them. Further, from a few adjective and noun stems, mostly of quasi-pronominal character: thus, *viçvāthā*, *sarvāthā*, *anyāthā*, *ubhayāthā*, *aparathā*, *itarāthā*, *yatarāthā*, *yatamāthā*, *katarathā*, *katamathā*, *pūrvāthā*, *pratnāthā*, *ūrdhvāthā*, *tiraçcāthā*, *ekathā* (JB.), *ṛtuthā*, *nāmāthā* (once, AV.); and *evāthā*.

b. *Yāthā* becomes usually toneless in V., when used in the sense of *iva* after a noun forming the subject of comparison: thus, *tāyāvo yathā* (RV.) *like thieves*.

1102. One or two other suffixes of manner are:

a. *ti*, in *īti thus*, very commonly used, from the earliest period, especially as particle of quotation, following the words quoted.

b. Examples are: *brahmajāyē 'yām īti céd āvocan* (RV.) *if they have said "this is a Brahman's wife"*; *tām devā abruvan vrātya kīm nū tiṣṭasī 'ti* (AV.) *the gods said to him: Vrātya, why do you stand?"* Often, the *iti* is used more pregnantly: thus, *yāḥ çraddādadhāti sānti devā īti* (AV.) *whoever has faith that the gods exist*; *taṁ vyāghram munir mūṣiko 'yam iti paçyati* (H.) *the sage looks upon that tiger as being really a mouse*; *yūyaṁ kim iti sīdatha* (H.) *why (lit. alleging what reason) do you sit?*

c. But *iti* is sometimes used in a less specialized way, to mark an onomatopœia, or to indicate a gesture: e. g. *bahīṣ te astu bāl īti* (AV.) *let it come out of you with a splash*; *īty āgre kṛṣāty āthē 'ti* (ÇB.) *he ploughs first this way, then this way*; or it points forward to something to be said: e. g. *yan nv ity āhur anyāni chandāṁsi varṣīyāṁsi kasmād bṛhaty ucyata iti* (PB.) *when now they say thus: "the other metres are greater; why is the bṛhatī spoken?"* It also makes a number of derivatives and compounds: e. g. *ititha the so-many-eth*; *itivat in this fashion*; *ityartham for this purpose*; *itihāsa a story or legend* (lit. *thus forsooth it was*). As to the use of a nominative with *iti* as predicate to an accusative, see 268 b.

d. With the suffix of *íti* is to be compared that of *táti* etc. (519). The word is abbreviated to *ti* two or three times in ÇB.

e. *va* in *iva* (toneless) *like, as*, and *evá* (in V. often *evá*), earlier *thus*, later a particle emphasizing the preceding word; for *thus* is used later the related *evám*, which hardly occurs in RV., and in AV. only with *√vid*: *as, evám vidván knowing thus*.

f. In later Vedic (AV. etc., and the later parts of RV.) *iva* more often counts for only a single syllable, 'va.

1103. a. By the suffix *dā* are made adverbs of time, but almost only from pronominal roots.

b. Thus, *tadā, yadā, kadā* (in RV. also *kādā*), *idā* (only in V.); and *sādā*, beside which is found earlier *sādam*. Besides these, in the older language, only *sarvadā*; later a few others, *anyadā, ekadā, nityadā*. A quasi-locative case use is seen occasionally in such phrases as *kadācid divase* (R.) *on a certain day*.

c. By the perhaps related *dānīm* are made *idānīm, tadānīm, viçvadānīm, tvadānīm* (toneless). *Viçvadāni* occurs as adjective in TB.

d. With *rhi* are made, from pronominal roots, *tārhi, etārhi, yārhi, kārhi, amúrhi*.

e. The suffix *di*, found only in *yádi if*, is perhaps related with *dā*, in form as in meaning. *Sadadí* (MS.) is of doubtful character.

1104. By the suffix *dhā* are formed adverbs especially from numerals, signifying - *fold, times, ways*, etc.

a. Thus, *ekadhā, dvidhā* (also *dvidhā* and *dvedhā*), *trídhā* (in the older language usually *tredhā*), *ṣaḍḍhā* (also *ṣoḍhā* and *ṣaḍdhā*), *dvādaçadhā, ekānnaviñcatidhā, sahasradhā*, and so on. Also, naturally, from words having a quasi-numeral character: thus, *anekadhā, katidhā, tatidhā, bahudhā, purudhā, viçvādhā, çaçvadhā, aparimitadhā, yāvaddhā, etāvaddhā, māsadhā*. In a very few cases, also from general noun and adjective stems: thus, *mitradhā* (AV.), *priyadhā* (TS.; *predhā*, MS.), *ṛjudhā* (TB.), *urudhā* and *citradhā* (BhP.); and from one adverb, *bahirdhā*.

b. The particle *ádha* or *ádhā*, a Vedic equivalent of *átha*, probably belongs here (*purudhá* and *viçvādha*, with shortened final, occur a few times in RV.); also *addhā in truth*; and perhaps *sahá with*, which has an equivalent *sadha-* in several Vedic compounds. And the other adverbs in *ha* (1100 a) may be of like origin.

1105. From a few numerals are made multiplicative adverbs with *s*: namely, *dvís, trís, and catúr* (probably, for *catúrs*): 489 a.

a. The corresponding word for *once*, *sakít*, is a compound rather than a derivative; and the same character belongs still more evidently to *pañcakítvas, navakítvas, aparimitakítvas*, etc., though *kṛt* and *kṛtvas* are regarded by the native grammarians as suffixes; the earlier

texts (AV. ÇB. MS.) have *saptá kṛtvas*, *dāça kṛtvas*, *dvādaça kṛtvas*, *aṣṭāv evá kṛtvas*, etc. AB. has the redundant combination *triṣ kṛtvah*.

b. The quasi-suffix *dyus*, from a case-form of *div day*, is in a similar manner added to various determining-words, generally made to end in *e*: e. g. *anyedyús another day*, *ubhayedyus* (AV. *-yadyús*) *on either day*, *pūrvedyús the day before*.

1106. By the suffix *ças* are made, especially from numeral or quantitative stems, many adverbs of quantity or measure or manner, generally used distributively.

a. Examples are: *ekaças one by one*, *çataças by hundreds*, *ṛtuças season by season*, *pacchas foot by foot*, *akṣaraças syllable by syllable*, *gaṇaças in crowds*, *stambaças by bunches*, *paruçças limb by limb*, *tāvacchás in such and such number or quantity*: and, in a more general way, *sarvaças wholly*, *mukhyaças principally*, *kṛchraças stingily*, *manmaças as minded*.

1107. By the suffix *vát* are made with great freedom, in every period of the language, adverbs signifying *after the manner of*, *like*, etc.

a. Thus, *aṅgirasvát like Angiras*, *manuṣvát* (RV.) *as Manu did*, *jamadagnivát after the manner of Jamadagni*; *pūrvavát* or *pratnavát* or *purāṇavát*, *as of old*, *kākatāliyavat after the fashion of the crow and the palm-fruit*.

b. This is really the adverbially used accusative (with adverbial shift of accent: below, 1111 g) of the suffix *vant* (1233 f), which in the Veda makes certain adjective compounds of a similar meaning: thus, *tvāvant like thee*, *māvant of my sort*, etc.

1108. By the suffix *sāt* are made from nouns quasi-adverbs signifying *in* or *into the condition* or *the possession of* what is indicated by the noun; they are used only with verbs of being, of becoming, and of making: namely, oftenest *kṛ* and *bhū*, but also *as*, *gam*, *yā*, and *nī* (and, according to the grammarians, *saṃ-pad*). Some twenty-five examples are quotable from the later literature; but none from the earlier, which also appears to contain nothing that casts light upon the origin of the formation. The *s* of *sāt* is not liable to conversion into *ṣ*. The connection with the verb is not so close as to require the use of the gerund in *ya* instead of that in *tvā* (990); and other words are sometimes interposed between the adverb and verb.

a. Examples are: *sarvakarmāṇi bhasmasāt kurute* (MBh.) *reduces all deeds to ashes*; *loko 'yam dasyusād bhaved* (MBh.) *this world would become a prey to barbarians*; *yasya brāhmaṇasāt sarvaṃ vittam āsīt* (MBh.) *whose whole property was given to Brahmans*; *niyataṃ bhasmasād yāti* (Har.) *it is inevitably reduced to ashes*; *agnīn ātmasāt kṛtvā* (Y.) *having taken the fires to one's self*.

1109. a. Suffixes, not of noun-derivation or of inflection, may be traced with more or less plausibility in a few other adverbs. Thus, for

example, in *prātár early*, and *sanutár away*; in *dakṣiṇít with right hand*, and *cikivít with consideration*; in *nūnám now*, and *nānānám variously*. But the cases are in the main too rare and doubtful to be worth notice here.

b. In the epics begin to be found a small class (about a dozen are quotable) of adverbs having the form of a repeated noun-stem with its first occurrence ending in *ā* and its second in *i*: e. g. *hastāhasti hand to hand*, *rathārathi chariot against chariot*, *karṇākarṇi ear to ear*.

c. The adverbs thus far described are almost never used prepositionally. Those of the next division, however, are in many instances so used.

1110. Case-forms used as Adverbs. A large number of adverbs are more or less evidently cases in form, made from stems which are not otherwise in use. Also many cases of known stems, pronominal or noun or adjective, are used with an adverbial value, being distinguished from proper cases by some difference of application, which is sometimes accompanied by an irregularity of form.

1111. The accusative is the case most frequently and widely used adverbially. Thus:

a. Of pronominal stems: as, *yád if, when, that*, etc.; *tád then* etc.; *kím why, whether*, etc.; *idám now, here*; *adás yonder*; and so on. Of like value, apparently, are the (mostly Vedic) particles *kád, kám* and *kam* (?), *íd, cid* (common at every period), *smád* and *sumád*, *īm* and *sīm* (by some regarded as still possessing pronoun-value), *-kīm*. Compounds with *íd* are *céd if*, *néd lest*, *éd, svid, kuvíd*; with *cid*, *kúcid*; with *-kīm*, *nákīm* and *mākīm* and *ākīm*.

b. Of noun-stems: as, *nāma by name*; *súkham happily*; *kāmam at will, if you please*; *náktam by night*; *rāhas secretly*; *oṣám quickly* (V.); and so on.

c. Of adjective stems, in unlimited numbers: as, *satyám truly*; *cirám long*; *pūrvam formerly*; *nītyam constantly*; *bhūyas more, again*; *viçrabdham confidently*; *prakāçam openly*; and so on.

d. The neuter singular is the case commonly employed in this way; and it is so used especially as made from great numbers of compound adjective stems, often from such as hardly occur, or are not at all found, in adjective use. Certain of these adverbial compounds, having an indeclinable as prior member, are made by the Hindu grammarians a special class of compounds, called *avyayībhāva* (1313).

e. But the feminine singular also is sometimes used, especially in the so-called adverbial endings of comparison, *tarām* and *tamām*, which are attached to particles (cf. 1119), and even (473 c) to verb-forms:

e. g. natarām, kathamtarām, uccaistarām, çanāistarām, jyoktamām. In the oldest language (RV. and AV.), the neuter instead of the feminine form of these suffixes is almost alone in use: see 1119.

f. Many adverbs of obscure form or connection are to be explained with probability as accusatives of obsolete noun or adjective stems: examples are tūṣṇīm *in silence*; sâyām *at evening*; sākām *together, with* (prep.); áram or álam *sufficient* (in the later language used with √kṛ in the manner of a prefix: 1078 a); prāyas *usually*; īṣāt *somewhat*; amnás *unexpectedly*; bahís *outside*; mīthu and mīthás, múhu and múhus, jātu, and so on. Madrík etc., and niṇík (in RV.), are perhaps contracted forms of adjectives having √ac or añc as their final (407 ff.). The presence of other roots as final members is also probable for uçádhak, ānuṣák and āyuṣák, anuṣṭhú and suṣṭhú, yugapát, etc. Compare also the forms in am beside those in ā, above, 1101 a, 1102 e, 1103 b.

g. In (Vedic) dravát *quickly* is to be seen a change of accent for the adverbial use (pplē drávant *running*); and drahyát *stoutly* (RV., once) may be another example. The comparative and superlative suffixes (above, e) show a like change; and it is also to be recognized in the derivatives with vát (1107).

1112. The instrumental is also often used with adverbial value: generally in the singular, but sometimes also in the plural. Thus:

a. Of pronominal stems: as, ená and ayá, káyā, aná, amá, amuyá.

b. Of noun-stems: as, kṣaṇena *instantly*; aṇeṣeṇa *completely*; viṇeṣeṇa *especially*; dívā *by day*; diṣṭyā *fortunately*; sáhasā *suddenly*; aktubhis *by night*; and so on.

c. Of adjectives, both neuter (not distinguishable from masculine) and feminine: as, akhilena *wholly*; prāyeṇa *mostly*; dākṣiṇena *to the south*; úttareṇa *to the north*; ántareṇa *within*; ciréṇa *long*; — çánāis and çánakāis *slowly*; uccāis *on high*; nīcāis *below*; parācāis *afar*; táviṣṭbhis *mightily*; and so on.

d. More doubtful cases, mostly from the older language, may be instanced as follows: tiraçcátā, devátā, bāhúta, and sasvártā (all RV.), homonymous instrumentals from nouns in tā; dvitá, tādítā, īrmá, mṛṣá, vṛthā, sácā, asthá (?), mudhā (not V.), adhuná (B. and later).

e. Adverbially used instrumentals are (in the older language), oftener than any other case, distinguished from normal instrumentals by differences of form: thus, especially, by an irregular accent: as, amá and dívā (given above); perhaps gúhā; apāká, āsayá, kuhayá (?); naktayá, svapnayá, samaná; adatrayá, ṛtayá, ubhayá, sumnayá (?); daksiná, madhyá; nīcá, prācá, uccá, paçcá, tiraçcá; vasántā; — in a few u-stems, by a y inserted before the ending, which is accented: thus, amuyá (given above), āçuyá, sādhyá, raghyá, dhṛṣṇuyá, anuṣ-

ṭhuyá-, mithuyá; — and urviyá (for urvyá) and víçvyā (properly víçvayā) are more slightly irregular.

1113. The dative has only very seldom an adverbial use.

a. Examples are aparāya *for the future* (RV.; with changed accent); cirāya *long*; arthāya *for the sake of*; ahnāya *presently*.

1114. The ablative is not infrequently used adverbially. Thus:

a. Of pronominal stems: as, kásmāt *why?* akasmāt *casually, unexpectedly*; áť, tát, yát (V.: normal forms, instead of the pronominal asmāt etc.).

b. Of noun-stems: as, āsát *near*; ārát *afar*; balāt *forcibly*; kutūhalāt *emulously*; sakāçāt *on the part of*.

c. Oftenest, of adjective stems: as, dūrát *afar*; nīcát *below*; paçcát *behind*; sākṣát *plainly, actually*; samantāt *completely*; acirāt *not long*; pratyakṣatamāt (AB.) *most obviously*; pratyantāt (S.) *to the end*.

d. In a few instances, adverbially used ablatives likewise show a changed accent in the early language: thus, apākát *from afar*; amát *from near by*; sanát *from of old* (but instr. sánā); uttarát *from the north*; adharát *below*.

1115. The genitive is almost never used adverbially.

a. In the older language occur aktós *by night*, and vástos *by day*; later, cirasya *long*.

1116. The locative is sometimes used with adverbial value. Thus:

a. From noun and adjective stems: āké *near*; āré and dūré *afar*; abhisvaré *behind*; astamīké *at home*; řté *without* (prep.); ágre *in front*; sthāne *suitably*; sapadi *immediately*; -arthe and -krte (common in composition) *for the sake of*; aparíṣu *in after time*; ādāu *first*; rahasi *in secret*.

1117. Even a nominative form appears to be stereotyped into an adverbial value in (Vedic) kís, interrogative particle, and its compounds nákis and mākis, negative particles. And masc. nominatives from añc-stems (as parāñ AB., nyāñ Āpast.) are sometimes found used by substitution for neuters.

1118. Verbal Prefixes and kindred words. The verbal prefixes, described in the preceding chapter (1076 ff.), are properly adverbs, having a special office and mode of use in connection with verbal roots and their more immediate derivatives.

a. Their occasional looser connection with the verb has been noticed above (1084). In the value of general adverbs, however,

they only rarely occur (except as *ápi* has mainly changed its office from prefix to adverb or conjunction in the later language); but their prepositional uses are much more frequent and important: see below, 1125 b.

b. In composition with nouns, they (like other adverbial elements) not infrequently have an adjective value: see below, 1281 ff., 1305.

1119. Several of the prefixes (as noticed above, 473–4) form comparative and superlative adjectives, by the suffixes *tara* and *tama*, or *ra* and *ma*: thus, *úttara* and *uttamá*, *ádharma* and *adhamá*, *ápara* and *apamá*, *ávata* and *avamá*, *úpara* and *upamá*, and *prathamá* is doubtless of the same character; also, *ántara* and *ántama*. And accusatives of such derivative adjectives (for the most part not otherwise found in use) have the value of comparatives, and rarely superlatives, to the prefixes themselves: thus, *sámitam cit samtarám sám çiçādhī* (AV.) *whatever is quickened do thou still further quicken*; *vitaram ví kramasva* (RV.) *stride out yet more widely*; *prá tam naya pratarám vásyo ácha* (RV.) *lead him forward still further toward advantage*; *úd enam uttarám naya* (AV.) *lead him up still higher*.

a. Besides those instanced, are found also *nitarám*, *apatarám*, *abhitarám*, *avatarám*, *parātarám*, *parastarám*. In the *Brāhmaṇas* and later (above, 1111 e), the feminine accusative is used instead: thus, *atitarám* and *atitamām*, *abhitarám*, *anutamām*, *ātamām*, *pratitarám*, *nitarám*, *uttarám*, *pratarám* and *pratamām*, *vitaram*, *samtaram* (also RV., once).

1120. Kindred in origin and character with the verbal prefixes, and used like them except in composition with verbs, are a few other adverbs: thus, *avás* *down*; *adhás* *below* (and *adhastarám*); *parás* *far off* (and *parastarám*); *purá* *before*; *antará* (apparently, *antár+á*) *among, between*; *ánti* *near*; *upári* *above*; and *sahá* (already mentioned, 1104b) *along, with*, and *sácā* *together, with*, may be noticed with them. *Vinā* *without*, and *viṣu-* *apart*, appear to be related with *ví*.

1121. Inseparable Prefixes. A small number of adverbial prefixes are found only in combination with, other elements. Thus:

a. The negative prefix *a* or *an* — *an* before vowels, *a* before consonants.

b. It is combined especially with innumerable nouns and adjectives; much more rarely, with adverbs, as *akútra* and *ápunar* (RV.), *áneva* (AV.), *ánadhas* (TB.), *akasmāt*, *asakṛt*; in rare cases, also with pronouns (as *atad*, *akimcit*); and even, in the later language, now and then with verbs, as *aspr̥hayanti* (BhP. Çiç.) *they do not desire*, *alokayati* (SD.) *he does not view*. Now and then it is prefixed to itself: e. g. *anakāmamāra*, *anaviprayukta*, *anavadya* (?).

c. In a very few cases, the negative *a* appears to be made long: thus, *ásat non-existent*, *ádeva godless*, *árāti enemy*, *āçāuca impurity*, *átura ill* (?).

d. The independent negative adverbs, *ná* and *má*, are only in exceptional instances used in composition: see below, 1122e.

e. The comitative prefix *sa*, used instead of the preposition *sám*, and interchangeably with *sahá*, before nouns and adjectives.

f. The prefix of dispraise *dus ill, badly* (identical with *√duṣ*: 225 a).

g. It is combined in the same manner as *a* or *an*. Of combinations with a verbal form, at least a single example appears to be quotable: *duṣcaranti (R.) behave ill*.

h. The corresponding laudatory prefix *su well* is in general so closely accordant in its use with the preceding that it is best mentioned here, though it occurs not rarely as an independent particle in the oldest language (in RV., more than two hundred times; in the peculiar parts of AV., only fourteen times), and even occasionally later.

i. The particle *su* sometimes appears in B. and later before a verb-form, and considering its rapid loss of independent use in V., and the analogy of *a* and *dus* (above, b, g) it is probably at least in part to be regarded as in composition with the verb. The pada-text of AV. xix. 49. 10 reads *su-ápāyati*, but its testimony is of little or no value. K. has *na su vijñāyete* and *na vāi su viduḥ*, and KeU. has *su veda*; TB. has *susāmbodháyati* (?); MBh. and BhP. have *sūpatasthe*; R. has *suçakyante*.

j. The exclamatory and usually depreciative prefixed forms of the interrogative pronoun (506) are most analogous with the inseparable prefixes.

1122. Miscellaneous Adverbs. Other words of adverbial character and office, not clearly referable to any of the classes hitherto treated, may be mentioned as follows:

a. Asseverative particles (in part, only in the older language): thus, *aṅgá*, *hánta*, *kíla*, *khálu*, *tú* (rare in older language), *vāí*, *vává* (in Brāhmaṇa language only), *hi*, *hiná*, *u*, *áha*, *ha*, *gha*, *samaha*, *sma*, *bhala*.

b. Of these, *hánta* is a word of assent and incitement; *hí* has won also an illative meaning, and accents the verb with which it stands in connection (595 e); *sma* sometimes appears to give a past meaning to a present tense (778 b); *u* is often combined with the final *a* of other particles: thus, *átho*, *nó*, *mó*, *utó*, *úpo*, *pró*; but also with that of verb-forms, as *dattó*, *vidmó*. The final *o* thus produced is *pragṛhya* or uncombinable (138c). Particles of kindred value, already mentioned above,

are *íd*, *kám* or *kam*, *cid*, *jātu*, *evá*. Some of the asseverative particles are much used in the later artificial poetry with a purely expletive value, as devices to help make out the metre (*pādapūraṇa verse-fillers*); so especially *ha*, *hi*, *tu*, *sma*.

c. Negative particles are: *ná*, signifying simple negation; *mā́*, signifying prohibition.

d. As to the construction of the verb with *mā́*, see above, 579. In the Veda, *nú* (or *nú́*: 248 a) has also sometimes a negative meaning. For the Vedic *ná* of comparison, see below, g, h.

e. In *nahí*, *ná* is combined with *hí*, both elements retaining their full meaning; also with *íd* in *néd* *lest*. It is perhaps present in *nanú* and *caná*, but not in *hiná* (RV., once). In general, neither *ná* nor *mā́* is used in composition to make negative compounds, but, instead, the inseparable negative prefix *a* or *an* (1121 a): exceptions are the Vedic particles *nákis* and *mákis*, *nákīm* and *mákīm*; also *naciram* and *máciram*, *napuṣsaka*, and, in the later language, a number of others.

f. Interrogative particles are only those already given: *kád*, *kim*, *kuvíd*, *svid*, *nanú*, of which the last introduces an objection or expostulation.

g. Of particles of comparison have been mentioned the toneless *iva*, and *yathā* (also toneless when used in the same way). Of frequent occurrence in the oldest language is also *ná*, having (without loss of accent) the same position and value as the preceding.

h. Examples of the *ná* of comparison are: *ṛṣidvíṣa íṣuṁ ná sṛjata dvíṣam* (RV.) *let loose your enmity like an arrow at the enemy of the singer*; *váyo ná vṛkṣám* (AV.) *as birds to the tree*; *gāuró ná tṛṣitáh piba* (RV.) *drink like a thirsty buffalo*. This use is generally explained as being a modification or adaptation of the negative one: thus, *[although, to be sure] not [precisely] a thirsty buffalo*; and so on.

i. Of particles of place, besides those already mentioned, may be noticed *kvà* *where?* (in V., always to be read *kúa*).

j. Particles of time are: *nú* *now* (also *nú́*: *nūnám* was mentioned above, 1109 a), *adyá* and *sadyás* and *sadívas* (RV., once) *today, at once* (all held to contain the element *div* or *dyu*), *hyás* *yesterday*, *çvás* *tomorrow*, *jyók* (also related with *dyu*) *long*; *púnar* *again*.

k. Of particles of manner, besides those already mentioned, may be noticed *nānā* *variously* (for *nānānám*, its derivative, see 1109 a); *sasvár* (RV.) *secretly*.

l. In the above classifications are included all the Vedic adverbial words, and most of those of the later language: for the rest, see the dictionaries.

Prepositions.

1123. There is, as already stated, no proper class of prepositions (in the modern sense of that term), no body of words having for their prevailing office the "government" of nouns. But many of the adverbial words indicated above are used with nouns in a way which approximates them to the more fully developed prepositions of other languages.

a. If one and another of such words — as *vinā*, *ṛte* — occurs almost solely in prepositional use, this is merely fortuitous and unessential.

1124. Words are thus used prepositionally along with all the noun-cases excepting the dative. But in general their office is directive only, determining more definitely, or strengthening, the proper case-use of the noun. Sometimes, however, the case-use is not easy to trace, and the noun then seems to be more immediately "governed" by the preposition — that is, to have its case-form more arbitrarily determined by its association with the latter. This is oftenest true of the accusative; and also of the genitive, which has, here as elsewhere (294 b), suffered an extension of its normal sphere of use.

1125. a. The adverbs by derivative form (1097 ff.) have least of a prepositional value (exceptions are especially a few made with the suffix *tas*: 1098).

b. Most of the verbal prefixes (exceptions are *ud*, *ni*, *parā*, *pra*; and *ava* and *vi* are almost such) have their prepositional or quasi-prepositional uses with cases; but much more widely in the older time than in the later: in the classical language the usage is mainly restricted to *prati*, *anu*, and *ā*.

c. Most of the directive words akin with the more proper prefixes are used prepositionally: some of them — as *saha*, *vinā*, *upari*, *antarā*, *purā* — freely, earlier and later.

d. The case-forms used adverbially are in many instances used prepositionally also: oftenest, as was to be expected, with the genitive; but frequently, and from an early time, with the accusative; more rarely with other cases.

e. We will take up now the cases for a brief exposition, beginning with those that are least freely used.

1126. The Locative. This case is least of all used with words that can claim the name of preposition. Of directives, *antár* and its later derivative *antarā́*, meaning *within*, *in*, are oftenest added to it, and in the classical language as well as earlier. Of frequent Vedic use with it are *ā́* and *ádhi*: thus, *mártyeṣv ā́ among mortals*; *pṛthivyām ádhy óṣadhīḥ the plants upon the earth*; *téjo máyi dhārayā́ 'dhi (AV.) establish glory*

in me; — ápi and úpa are much rarer: thus, yá apám ápi vraté [sánti] (RV.) *who are in the domain of the waters*; amúr yá úpa sūrye [sánti] (RV.) *who are up yonder in the sun*; — sácā along with is not rare in RV., but almost entirely unknown later: thus, pitróḥ sácā satí *staying with her parents*.

1127. The Instrumental. The directives used with this case are almost only those which contain the associative pronominal root sa: as sahá (most frequent), sākám, sārdhám, samám, samáyā, sarátham; and, in the Veda, the prefix sám: as, te sumatíbhiḥ sám pátnībhir ná víṣaṇo nasīmahi (RV.) *may we be united with thy favors as men with their spouses*. By substitution of the instrumental for the ablative of separation (283 a), vinā *without* (not Vedic) takes sometimes the instrumental; and so, in the Veda, avás *down* and parás *beyond*, with which the ablative is also, and much more normally, construed. And ádhi, in RV., is used with the instrumental snúnā and snúbhis, where the locative would be expected.

1128. The Ablative. In the prepositional constructions of the ablative (as was pointed out and partly illustrated above, 293), the ablative value of the case, and the merely directive value of the added particle, are for the most part clearly to be traced. Many of the verbal prefixes are more or less frequently joined in the older language with this case: oftenest, ádhi and pári; more sporadically, ánu, ápa, áva, práti, and the separatives nís and ví. The change of meaning of the ablative with á *hither*, by which it comes to fill the office of its opposite, the accusative, was sufficiently explained above (293 c). Of directive words akin with the prefixes, many — as bahís, purás, avás, adhás, parás, purá, vinā, and tirás *out of knowledge of* — accompany this case by a perfectly regular construction. Also the case-forms arvák, prák, paçcát, ūrdhvám, pūrvam, páram, and ṛté *without*, of which the natural construction with an ablative is predominant earlier.

1129. The Accusative. Many of the verbal prefixes and related words take an accompanying accusative. Most naturally (since the accusative is essentially the *to*-case), those that express a motion or action toward anything: as abhí, práti, ánu, úpa, á, áti and ádhi in the sense of *over on to*, or *across, beyond*, tirás *through*, antár and antará when meaning *between*, pári *around*. Examples are: yáḥ pradīḥ abhí sūryo vicāṣṭe (AV.) *what quarters the sun looks abroad unto*; ábodhy agníḥ práty āyatīm uṣāsam (RV.) *Agni has been awakened to meet the advancing dawn*; gacchet kadācit svajanam prati (MBh.) *she might go somewhither to her own people*; imam prakṣyāmi nṛpatim prati (MBh.) *him I will ask with reference to the king*; máma cittám ánu cittébhir é 'ta (AV.) *follow after my mind with your minds*; é 'hy á naḥ (AV.) *come hither to us*; úpa na é 'hy arvān (RV.) *come hither unto us*; yó devó mártiān áti (AV.) *the god who is beyond mortals*; adhiṣṭhāya vārcasā 'dhy anyān (AV.) *excelling above others in glory*. Also abhítas and parítas, which have a like value with the simple abhí and pári;

and upári *above* (oftener with genitive). Less accordant with ordinary accusative constructions is the use of this case with adhas, paras, paras, vinā, beside other cases which seem more suited to the meaning of those particles. And the same may be said of most of the adverbial case-forms with which the accusative is used. Thus, a number of instrumental of situation or direction: as yé 'vareṇā "dityám yé páreṇā "dityám (TB.) *those who are below the sun, those who are beyond the sun*; ántareṇa yónim (ÇB.) *within the womb*; te hī 'dam antareṇa sarvam (AB.) *for all this universe is between them*; úttareṇa gárhapatyam (ÇB.) *to the north of the householder's fire*; dáksīṇena védim (ÇB.) *to the south of the sacrificial hearth*; dakṣīṇena vṛkṣavāṭikām (Ç.) *to the right of the orchard*; nikaṣā yamunām (Har.) *near the Yamunā*. Similarly, ūrdhvam and pūrvam have an accusative object as well as an ablative; and the same is true later of ṛte. Abhimukham *toward* has a more natural right to construction with this case.

1130. The Genitive. The words which are accompanied by the genitive are mostly case-forms of nouns, or of adjectives used substantively, retaining enough of the noun-character to take this case as their natural adjunct. Such are the locatives agre *in front of*, abhyāṇe *near*, arthe and kṛte *for the sake of*, nimitte and hetāu *by reason of*, madhye *in the midst of*; and other cases, as arthāya, kāraṇāt, sakāṇāt, hetos. And really, although less directly and obviously, of the same character are other adjective cases (some of them showing other constructions, already noticed): as adhareṇa, uttareṇa and uttarāt, dakṣīṇena and dakṣiṇāt, paçcāt, ūrdhvam, anantaram, samakṣam, sāksāt. More questionable, and illustrations rather of the general looseness of use of the genitive, are its constructions (almost wholly unknown in the oldest language) with more proper words of direction: thus, with the derivative paritas, paratas, and antitas, and parastāt and purastāt (these found in the Brāhmaṇa language: as, saṁvatsarasya parastāt *after a year*; sūktasya purastāt *before the hymn* [AB.]); with anti, adhas, avas, puras; with upari *above* (common later); and with antar.

Conjunctions.

1131. The conjunctions, also, as a distinct class of words, are almost wanting.

a. The combination of clauses is in Sanskrit in general of a very simple character; much of what in other Indo-European languages is effected by subordinating conjunctions is here managed by means of composition of words, by the use of the gerunds (994), of iti (1102), of abstract nouns in case-forms, and so on.

1132. The relative derivative adverbs, already given

(1098 ff.), may properly be regarded as conjunctions; and a few other particles of kindred value, as *céd* and *néd* (1111 a).

1133. Purely of conjunctive value are च *ca and*, and वा *vā or* (both toneless, and never having the first place in a sentence or clause).

a. Of copulative value, along with *ca*, is in the older language especially *utá* (later it becomes a particle of more indefinite use); and *ápi*, *tátas*, *táthā*, *kíṃ ca*, with other particles and combinations of particles, are used often as connective of clauses.

b. Adversative is *tú but* (rare in the older language); also, less strongly, *u* (toneless).

c. Of illative value is *hí for* (originally, and in great part at every period, asseverative only): compare above, 1122 b.

d. To *ca* (as well as to its compound *céd*) belongs occasionally the meaning *if*.

e. It is needless to enter into further detail with regard to those uses which may be not less properly, or more properly, called conjunctive than adverbial, of the particles already given, under the head of Adverbs.

Interjections.

1134. The utterances which may be classed as interjections are, as in other languages, in part voice-gestures, in part onomatopœias, and in part mutilations and corruptions of other parts of speech.

1135. a. Of the class of voice-gestures are, for example: *ā*, *hā*, *hāhā*, *ahaha*, *he*, *hāí* (AV.), *ayi*, *aye*, *hayé* (RV.), *aho*, *bát* (RV.), *bata* (RV.) or *vata*, and (probably) *híruk* and *hurúk* (RV.).

b. Onomatopoetic or imitative utterances are, for example (in the older language): *ciçcā whiz* (of an arrow: RV.); *kikirā* (palpitation: RV.); *bāl* and *phát* (*phás?*) or *phál splash* (AV.); *bhúk bow-wow* (AV.); *çál pat* (AV.); *āṣ*, *hīṣ*, *as*, and *has* (PB.); and see the words already quoted in composition with the roots *kṛ* and *bhū*, above, 1091.

c. Nouns and adjectives which have assumed an interjectional character are, for example: *bhos* (for the vocative *bhavas*, 456); *are* or *re* (voc. of *ari enemy*); *dhik alas!* (may be mere voice-gesture, but perhaps related with *√dih*); *kaṣṭam woe is me!* *diṣṭyā thank heaven!* *svasti hail!* *suṣṭhu*, *sādhū good, excellent!* None of these are Vedic in interjectional use.

CHAPTER XVII.

DERIVATION OF DECLINABLE STEMS.

1136. The formation from roots of conjugable stems — namely, tense-stems, mode-stems, and stems of secondary conjugation (not essentially different from one another, nor, it is believed, ultimately from the formation of declined stems) — was most conveniently treated above, in the chapters devoted to the verb. Likewise the formation of adverbs by derivation (not essentially different from case-formation), in the chapter devoted to particles. And the formation of those declinable stems — namely, of comparison, and of infinitives and participles — which attach themselves most closely to the systems of inflection, has also been more or less fully exhibited. But the extensive and intricate subject of the formation of the great body of declinable stems was reserved for a special chapter.

a. Of course, only a brief and compendious exhibition of the subject can be attempted within the here necessary limits: no exhaustive tracing out of the formative elements of every period; still less, a complete statement of the varied uses of each element; least of all, a discussion of origins; but enough to help the student in that analysis of words which must form a part of his labor from the outset, giving a general outline of the field, and preparing for more penetrating investigation.

b. The material from accented texts, and especially the Vedic material, will be had especially in view (nothing that is Vedic being intentionally left unconsidered); and the examples given will be, so far as is possible, words found in such texts with their accent marked. No word not thus vouched for will be accented unless the fact is specifically pointed out.

1137. The roots themselves, both verbal and pronominal, are used in their bare form, or without any added suffix, as declinable stems.

a. As to this use of verbal roots, see below, 1147.

b. The pronominal roots, so-called, are essentially declinable; and hence, in their further treatment in derivation, they are throughout in accordance with other declinable stems, and not with verbal roots.

1138. Apart from this, every such stem is made by a suffix. And these suffixes fall into two general classes:

A. Primary suffixes, or those which are added directly to roots;

B. Secondary suffixes, or those which are added to derivative stems (also to pronominal roots, as just pointed out, and sometimes to particles).

a. The division of primary suffixes nearly corresponds to the *kṛt* (more regular) and *uṇādi* (less regular) suffixes of the Hindu grammarians; the secondary, to their *taddhita*-suffixes.

1139. But this distinction, though one of high value, theoretically and practically, is not absolute. Thus:

a. Suffixes come to have the aspect and the use of primary which really contain a secondary element — that is to say, the earliest words exhibiting them were made by addition of secondary suffixes to words already derivative.

b. Sundry examples of this will be pointed out below: thus, the gerundival suffixes, *tavya*, *anīya*, etc., the suffixes *uka* and *aka*, *tra*, and others. This origin is probable for more cases than admit of demonstration; and it is assumable for others which show no distinct signs of composition.

c. Less often, a suffix of primary use passes over in part into secondary, through the medium of use with denominative "roots" or otherwise: examples are *yu*, *iman*, *īyas* and *iṣṭha*, *ta*.

1140. Moreover, primary suffixes are added not only to more original roots, but, generally with equal freedom, to elements which have come to wear in the language the aspect of such, by being made the basis of primary conjugation — and even, to a certain extent, to the bases of secondary conjugation, the conjugation-stems, and the bases of tense-inflection, the tense-stems.

a. The most conspicuous examples of this are the participles, present and future and perfect, which are made alike from tense and conjugation-stems of every form. The infinitives (968 ff.) attach themselves only in sporadic instances to tense-stems, and even from conjugation-stems are made but sparingly earlier; and the same is true of the gerundives.

b. General adjectives and nouns are somewhat widely made from conjugation-stems, especially from the base of causative conjugation: see below the suffixes *a* (1148 j, k), *ā* (1149 c, d), *ana* (1150 m), *as* (1151 f), *ani* (1159 b), *u* (1178 g-i), *ti* (1157 g), *ṭṛ* (1182 e), *tnu* (1196 b), *snu* (1194 b), *uka* (1180 d), *āku* (1181 d), *ālu* (1192 b), *tu* (1161 d).

c. From tense-stems the examples are far fewer, but not unknown: thus, from present-stems, occasional derivatives in a (1148 j), ā (1149 d, e), ana (1150 n), i (1155 d), u (1178 f), ta (1176 e), tu (1161 d), uka (1180 d), tra (1185 e), ti (1157 g), vin (or in: 1232 b, 1183 a); from stems in a s apparently of aoristic character (besides infinitives and gerundives), occasional derivatives in a (1148 j), ana (1150 j), ani (1159 b), an (1160 a), āna (1175), as (1151 c), ī (1156 b), iṣṭha (1184 a), u (1178 f), us (1154 a), tṛ (1182 e), in (1183 a).

1141. The primary suffixes are added also to roots as compounded with the verbal prefixes.

a. Whatever, namely, may have been originally and strictly the mode of production of the derivatives with prefixes, it is throughout the recorded life of the language as if the root and its prefix or prefixes constituted a unity, from which a derivative is formed in the same manner as from the simple root, with that modification of the radical meaning which appears also in the proper verbal forms as compounded with the same prefixes.

b. Not derivatives of every kind are thus made; but, in the main, those classes which have most of the verbal force, or which are most akin in value with infinitives and participles.

c. The occurrence of such derivatives with prefixes, and their accent, will be noted under each suffix below. They are chiefly (in nearly the order of their comparative frequency), besides root-stems, those in a, in ana, in ti, in tar and tra, and in in, ya, van and man, i and u, as, and a few others.

1142. The suffixes of both classes are sometimes joined to their primitives by a preceding union-vowel — that is to say, by one which wears that aspect, and, in our ignorance or uncertainty as to its real origin, may most conveniently and safely be called by that name. The line between these vowels and those deserving to be ranked as of organic suffixal character cannot be sharply drawn.

Each of the two great classes will now be taken up by itself, for more particular consideration.

A. Primary Derivatives.

1143. Form of root. The form of root to which a primary suffix is added is liable to more or less variation. Thus:

a. By far the most frequent is a strengthening change, by guṇa- or vṛddhi-increment. The former may occur under all circumstances (except, of course, where guṇa-change is in general forbidden: 235, 240): thus, véda from √vid, móda from √mud, vārdha from √vṛdh;

áyana from √i, sávana from √su, sáraṇa from √sr; and so on. But the latter is only allowed under such circumstances as leave long ā as the resulting vowel: that is to say, with non-final a, and with a final i- or u-vowel and ṛ before a vowel: thus, nādá from √nad, grābhá from √grbh or grabh, vāhá from √vah, nāyá from √nī, bhāvá from √bhū, kārā from √kr; such strengthening as would make vāida and māuda does not accompany primary derivation.

b. Strengthening in derivation does not stand in any such evident connection with accent as strengthening in conjugation; nor can any general rules be laid down as to its occurrence; it has to be pointed out in detail for each suffix. So also with other vowel-changes, which are in general accordance with those found in inflection and in the formation of tense- and mode-stems.

c. The reversion of a final palatal or h to a guttural has been already noticed (216). A final n or m is occasionally lost, as in formations already considered.

d. After a short final vowel is sometimes added a t: namely, where a root is used as stem without suffix (1147 d), and before a following y or v of van (1169), vara and varī (1171), yu once (1165 a), and ya (1213 a). The presence of t before these suffixes appears to indicate an original secondary derivation from derivatives in ti and tu.

e. The root is sometimes reduplicated: rarely in the use without suffix (1147 c,e); oftenest before a (1148 k), i (1155 e), u (1178 d); but also before other suffixes, as ā (1149 e), ana (1150 m), vana (1170 a), van and varī (1169 d, 1171 a,b), vani (1170 b), vi (1193), vit (1193 b), ani (1159 b), in (1183 a), tnu (1196 a), ta (1176 a), ti (1157 d), tha (1163 a), tṛ (1182 b), tra (1185 f), ūka (1180 f), aka (1181 a), īka (1186 c), ma (1166 b).

1144. Accent. No general laws governing the place of the accent are to be recognized; each suffix must in this respect be considered by itself.

a. In connection with a very few suffixes is to be recognized a certain degree of tendency to accent the root in case of a *nomen actionis* or infinitival derivative, and the ending in the case of a *nomen agentis* or participial derivative: see the suffixes a, ana, as, an, and man, below, where the examples are considered. Differences of accent in words made by the same suffix are also occasionally connected with differences of gender: see the suffixes as and man.

1145. Meaning. As regards their signification, the primary derivatives fall in general into two great classes, the one indicating the action expressed by the verbal root, the other the person or thing in which the action appears, the agent or actor — the latter, either substantively or adjectively. The one class is more abstract, infinitival; the other is more concrete, participial. Other meanings

may in the main be viewed as modifications or specializations of these two.

a. Even the words indicating recipience of action, the passive participles, are, as their use also as neuter or reflexive shows, only notably modified words of agency. The gerundives are, as was pointed out above (961 ff.), secondary derivatives, originally indicating only *concerned with the action*.

1146. But these two classes, in the processes of formation, are not held sharply apart. There is hardly a suffix by which action-nouns are formed which does not also make agent-nouns or adjectives; although there are not a few by which are made only the latter. In treating them in detail below, we will first take up the suffixes by which derivatives of both classes are made, and then those forming only agent-nouns.

a. To facilitate the finding of the different suffixes is given the following list of them, in their order as treated, with references to paragraphs:

—	1147	yu	1165	in	1183
a	1148	ma	1166	īyas, iṣṭha	1184
ā	1149	mi	1167	tra	1185
ana	1150	man	1168	ka	1186
as	1151	van	1169	ya	1187
tas, nas, sas	1152	vana, -ni, -nu	1170	ra	1188
is	1153	vara	1171	la	1189
us	1154	ant	1172	va	1190
i	1155	vāṅs	1173	ri	1191
ī	1156	māna	1174	ru	1192
ti	1157	āna	1175	vi	1193
ni	1158	ta	1176	snu	1194
ani	1159	na, ina, una	1177	sna	1195
an	1160	u	1178	tnu	1196
tu	1161	ū	1179	sa	1197
nu	1162	uka	1180	asi	1198
tha	1163	aka	1181	abha	1199
thu	1164	tṛ or tar	1182	sundries	1200–1

1147. Stems without suffix; Root-words. These words and their uses have been already pretty fully considered above (323, 348 ff., 383 ff., 400, 401).

a. They are used especially (in the later language, almost solely) as finals of compounds, and have both fundamental values, as action-nouns (frequently as infinitives: 971), and as agent-nouns and adjectives (often governing an accusative: 271 e). As action-nouns, they are chiefly feminines (384; in many instances, however, they do not occur in situations that determine the gender).

b. In a small number of words, mostly of rare occurrence, the reduplicated root is used without suffix.

c. The Vedic cases are: with simple reduplication, *sasyád*, *cikít*, *dadṛh*, *didyú* and *didyút*, *juhú*, and perhaps *gāṅgā* and *çíçu*; with intensive reduplication, *-není*, *malimluc*, *yavīyúdh*, and *jógū* and *vánīvan* (with the intensive instead of the usual radical accent). In *dáridra* is seen a transfer to the a-declension. *Asūsú* is probably to be understood as a compound, *asū-sú*.

d. If the root end in a short vowel, a *t* is regularly and usually added (383f-h).

e. Examples have been given at the place just quoted. In *jágat* the *t* is added to the mutilated form of $\sqrt{\text{gam}}$ reduplicated, and *ṛṇayát* (TS., once) appears to put it after a long vowel. In a single instance, *çrútkarṇa* (RV.) of *listening ears*, a stem of this class occurs as prior member of a compound.

f. Words of this form in combination with verbal prefixes are very numerous. The accent rests (as in combination of the same with other preceding elements) on the root-stem.

g. A few exceptions in point of accent occur: thus, *ávasā*, *úpastut*; and, with other irregularities of form, *párijri*, *upásttha*, *uparísttha*.

1148. अ a. With the suffix अ a is made an immensely large and heterogeneous body of derivatives, of various meaning and showing various treatment of the root: *guṇa*-strengthening, *vṛddhi*-strengthening, retention unchanged, and reduplication.

In good part, they are classifiable under the two usual general heads; but in part they have been individualized into more special senses.

1. a. With *guṇa*-strengthening of the root (where that is possible: 235, 240). These are the great majority, being more than twice as numerous as all others together.

b. Many *nomina actionis*: *as*, *çráma weariness*, *gráha seizure*, *áya movement*, *véda knowledge*, *háva call*, *kródha wrath*, *jósa enjoyment*, *tára crossing*, *sárga emission*.

c. Many *nomina agentis*: *as*, *kṣamá patient*, *svajā constrictor*, *jīvā living*, *meghá cloud*, *codá inciting*, *plavá boat*, *sará brook*, *sarpá serpent*, *bhojá generous*, *khādā devouring*.

d. Of the examples here given, those under b accent the radical syllable, and those under c the ending. And this is in perhaps a majority of cases the fact as regards the two classes of derivatives; so that, taken in connection with kindred facts as to other suffixes, it hints at such a difference of accent as a general tendency of the language. A few sporadic

instances are met with of the same form having the one or the other value according to its accent: thus, *éša haste*, *ešá hasting*; *çāsa order*, *çāsá orderer* (other examples are *coda*, *çāka*, *çoka*: compare a similar difference with other derivatives in *as*, *ana*, *an*, *man*). But exceptions are numerous — thus, for example, *jayá*, *javá*, *smará*, action-nouns; *çráva*, *mógha*, *stáva*, agent-nouns — and the subject calls for a much wider and deeper investigation than it has yet received, before the accentuation referred to can be set up as a law of the language in derivation.

2. e. With *vṛddhi*-strengthening of the root — but only where *ā* is the resulting radical vowel: that is, of medial *a*, and of final *ṛ* (most often), *u* or *ū*, *i* or *ī* (rare).

f. Examples of action-nouns are: *kāma love*, *bhāgá share*, *nādá noise*, *dāvá fire*, *tārá crossing*. Very few forms of clear derivation and meaning are quotable with accent on the root-syllable.

g. Examples of agent-nouns are: *grābhá seizing*, *vāhá carrying*, *nāyá leading*, *jārā lover*.

3. h. With unstrengthened root, the examples are few: e. g. *kṛçá lean*, *turá rapid*, *yugá yoke*, *sruvá spoon*, *priyá dear*, *vrá troop*, *çucá bright*.

i. A number of words of this class, especially as occurring in composition, are doubtless results of the transfer of root-stems to the *a*-declension: e. g. *-ghuṣa*, *-sphura*, *-tuda*, *-dṛça*, *-vida*, *-kira*.

j. A few *a*-stems are made, especially in the older language, from conjugation-stems, mostly causative: thus, *-āmaya*, *ilaya*, *-iñkhaya*, *-ejaya*, *-dhāraya*, *-pāraya*, *-mṛḍaya*, *-çamaya* (compare the *ā*-stems, 1149 c,d); also desiderative, as *bībhatsa* (compare 1038). Occasional examples also occur from tense-stems: thus, from *nu*-stems, or secondary stems made from such, *hinvá*, *-inva*, *-jinva*, *-pinva*, *-sinva*, *-sunva*, *-açnuva*; from others, *-pṛṇa*, *-mṛṇa*, *-stṛṇa*, *-puna*, *-jāna*, *-paçya*, *-manya*, *-dasya*, *-jurya*, *-kṣudhya*, *-sya*, *-tiṣṭha*, *-jighra*, *-piba*; from future-stems, *kariṣya* (JB.), *janiṣya*, *bhaviṣya*, *ruciṣya* (?); apparently from aorist-stems, *jeśá*, *néša-*, *parśá*, *pṛkṣá* (?), *-hoṣa*.

4. k. Derivatives in *a* from a reduplicated root-form are a considerable class, mostly occurring in the older language. They are sometimes made with a simple reduplication: thus, *cacará*, *cikita*, *dṛdhrá*, *dadhṛṣá*, *babhasa*, *-babhra*, *vavrá*, *çiçayá*, *çiçnátha* (an action-noun), *sasrá*; but oftener with an intensive reduplication: thus, merely strengthened, *cākṣmá*, *-cācala*, *jāgara*, *nānada*, *lālasa*, *vīvadhá* (?), *-memiṣa*, *rerihá* and *leliha*, *vevijá*, *nonuva*, *momughá*, *-roruda*, *lolupa*; with consonant added, *-cañkaça-*, *-cañkrama*, *jañgama*, *cañcala*, *-jañjapa*, *dandhvana*, *-nannama*, *-jarjalpa*, *jarjara*, *-tartura*, *-dardira*, *múrmura*, *gadgada*; dissyllabic, *-karikra*, *kanikradá*, *carācará* and *calācalá*, *marīmṛçá*, *malimlucá*, *varīvṛtá*, *sarīṣṛpá*, *paniṣpadá*, *saniṣyadá*, *sanisrasá*, *patāpata*, *madāmada*, *-vadāvada*, *ghanā-*

ghaná. Many of these are to be regarded as from an intensive conjugation-stem; but some of them show a form not met with in intensive conjugation.

5. l. Derivatives with this suffix from roots as compounded with the verbal prefixes are quite common, in all the modes of formation (in each, in proportion to the frequency of independent words): constituting, in fact, considerably the largest body of derivative stems with prefixes. They are of both classes as to meaning. The accent is, with few exceptions, on the ending — and that, without any reference to the value of the stem as action-noun or agent-noun.

m. Examples are: saṁgamá *assembly*, nimeśá *wink*, abhidrohá *enmity*, anukará *assistance*, udāná *inspiration*, pratyāṇṛāvá *response*; — paricará *wandering*, saṁjayá *victorious*, vibodhá *wakeful*, atiyājá *over-pious*, udārá *inciting, elevated*, uttudá *rousing*, saṁgirá *swallowing*, ādardirá *crushing*, adhicañkramá *climbing*.

n. The only definite class of exceptions in regard to accent appears to be that of the adverbial gerunds in am (above, 995), which are accented on the root-syllable. A very few other stems have the same tone: for example, utpáta *portent*, āṇṛéṣa *plague*. A few others, mostly agent-nouns, have the accent on the prefix: for example, vyòṣa (i. e. ví-oṣa) *burning*, prátiveṣa *neighbor*, ábhaga *sharing*; but also sárñkāṣa *appearance*.

o. For the remaining compounds of these derivatives, with the inseparable prefixes and with other elements, see the next chapter. It may be merely mentioned here that such compounds are numerous, and that the a-derivative has often an active participial value, and is frequently preceded by a case-form, oftenest the accusative.

p. Many words in the language appear to end with a suffix a, while yet they are referable to no root which can be otherwise demonstrated as such.

1149. आ ā. The vast majority of stems in आ ā are feminine adjectives, corresponding to masculines and neuters in अ a (332, 334). But also many suffixes ending in अ a have corresponding feminine forms in long आ ā, making a greater or less number of action-nouns. These will be given under the different suffixes below.

a. There is further, however, a considerable body of feminine action-nouns made by adding ā to a root, and having an independent aspect; though they are doubtless in part transfers from the root-noun (1147). Usually they show an unstrengthened form of root, and (such as occur in accented texts) an accented suffix.

b. Examples are *īṣā lordship*, *krīdā play*, *dayā pity*, *nindā reproach*, *ṣaṅkā doubt*, *hiṁsā injury*, *kṣamā patience*, *kṣudhā hunger*, *bhāṣā speech*, *sevā service*, *spṛhā eagerness*.

c. But especially, such nouns in *ā* are made in large numbers, and with perfect freedom, from secondary conjugation-stems.

d. Thus, especially from desiderative stems, as *jigīṣā*, *bhikṣā*, *vīrtsā*, *bībhatsā*, etc. (see 1038); in the formation of periphrastic perfects, especially from causative stems, but also from desiderative and intensive, and even from primary present-stems (1071 c–f); from denominative stems, in the older language, as *aṣvayā*, *sukratūyā*, *apasyā*, *uruṣyā*, *asūyā*, *aṣanayā*, *jīvanasyā*, etc., and quite rarely in the later, as *mṛgayā*.

e. The only example from a reduplicated stem is the late *paspaṇā*; for *sūṣā*, *jāṅghā*, and *jihvā*, which have a reduplicated aspect, are of doubtful origin. From present-stems come *icchā* and probably *ṛcchā*.

1150. **अन** *ana*. With this suffix (as with **अ** *a*) are formed innumerable derivatives, of both the principal classes of meaning, and with not infrequent specializations. The root has oftenest *guṇa*-strengthening, but not seldom *vṛddhi* instead; and in a few cases it remains unstrengthened. Derivatives of this formation are frequent from roots with prefixes, and also in composition with other elements.

a. The normal and greatly prevalent accent is upon the root-syllable, without regard to the difference of meaning; but cases occur of accented final, and a few of accented penult. The action-nouns are in general of the neuter gender. The feminine of adjectives is made either in *ā* or in *ī* (for details, see below). And a few feminine action-nouns in *anā* and *anī* occur, which may be ranked as belonging to this suffix.

1. b. With strengthened and accented root-syllable. Under this head fall, as above indicated, the great mass of forms.

c. With *guṇa*-strengthening: examples of action-nouns are *sādana seat*, *rākṣaṇa protection*, *danā giving*, *cāyana collection*, *védana property*, *hāvana call*, *bhójana enjoyment*, *kāraṇa deed*, *vārdhana increase*; — of agent-nouns, *tāpana burning*, *cétana visible*, *códana impelling*.

d. With *vṛddhi*-strengthening (only in such circumstances that *ā* remains as vowel of the radical syllable): examples are *-cātana*, *nāṇana*, *mādana*, *-vācana*, *-vāsana*, *-vāhana*, *sādana*, *-spāṇana*, *svādana*, *-āyana*, *-yāvana*, *-srāvaṇa*, *-pāraṇa*.

e. From roots with prefixes, the derivatives of this formation are very numerous, being exceeded in frequency only by those made with the

suffix a (above, 1148 l, m). A few examples are: ākrāmaṇa *striding on*, udyāna *upgoing*, nidhāna *receptacle*, prāṇana *expiration*, vimócana *release* and *releasing*, saṁgāmana *assembly* and *assembler*, adhivikārtana *cutting off*, avaprabhrāṇana *falling away down*. For other compounds of these derivatives, showing the same accent (and the same feminine stem), see the next chapter (below, 1271). A few exceptions occur: vicakṣaṇá, upariçayaná, and the feminines pramandaní and nirdahaní.

f. The adjectives of this formation, simple or compound, make their feminine usually in ī: thus, cōdanī, pécanī, spāraṇī, jámbhanī; prajñānī, prókṣaṇī, saṁgrāhaṇī, abhiśávaṇī, vidhāraṇī (cetaní is of doubtful meaning: below, i). An adjective compound, however, having a noun in ana as final member, makes its feminine in ā: thus, sūpasarpaṇá *of easy approach*, śáḍvidhānā *of sextuple order*, anapavācanā *not to be ordered away*.

2. The more irregular formations may be classed as follows:

g. With accent on the final: a number of agent-nouns and adjectives, as karaṇá *active* (against káraṇa *act*), kṛpaṇá *miserable* (against kṛpáṇa *misery*), tvaraṇá *hasting*, rocaná *shining*, kroçaná *yelling*, svapaná *sleepy*, kṣayaṇá *habitable*.

h. These, unlike the preceding class, make their feminine in ā: e. g. tvaraṇā, spandanā. A few feminine action-nouns in the older language have the same form: thus, aṇanā, asanā, mananā, dyotanā, rodhanā, çvetanā, hasanā (and compare kapanā, raçanā); those of the later language in anā (rather numerous) are doubtful as regards accent.

i. Beside these may be mentioned a few feminines in aní, of more or less doubtful character: arṣaṇí, cetaní (to cétana), tapaní (to tápana), pṛçaṇí, vṛjaní (with vṛjana), rajanī, tedaní.

j. With accent on the penult: a small number of adjectives: as turáṇa *hasting*, dohána *milking*, manána *considerate*, bhandánā and mandána *rejoicing*, sakṣáṇa *overcoming*, and perhaps vakṣáṇa *carrying* (the last two with aoristic s); and a still smaller number of neuter action-nouns: daṁsána *great deed*, vṛjana *enclosure, town*, veṣáṇa *service*, kṛpáṇa *misery* (against kṛpaṇá *miserable*), with the masculine kiráṇa *dust*.

k. The only noticed example of a feminine is in ā: turáṇā. And a few feminine nouns have the same form: arháṇā, jaráṇā, barháṇā, bhandánā, maṁhánā, mehánā, vadhánā, vanánā, vakṣáṇā. (And compare the anomalous masc. name uçánā: 355 a.)

l. Without strengthening of the root are made a small number of derivatives: thus (besides those already noted, kṛpáṇa and kṛpaṇá, vṛjana and vṛjaní, kiráṇa, turáṇa), further accented examples are úraṇa, dhúvana, pṛçana, bhúvana, vṛjana, vṛṣana, -súvana; and later are found sphuraṇa, sphuṭana, sprhaṇa, -hnuvana, likhana, rudana, etc. RV. makes denominatives from riṣaṇa-, ruvaṇa-, vipana-, huvana-.

m. Stems in *ana* are made also from secondary conjugation-stems: thus, from desideratives, as *cikitsana* (see 1038); from causatives, as *hāpana*, *bhīṣaṇa* (see 1051 g); from denominatives, with great freedom, in the later language, as *ākaraṇa*, *unmūlana*, *çlakṣṇana*, *cihnana*; from intensives and other reduplicated stems, only *caṅkramaṇa*, *jaṅgamana*, *jāgaranā*, *yoyupana*.

n. A few isolated cases may be further mentioned: from tense-stems, - *jighraṇa*, -*ūrṇavana*, -*paçyana*, *yacchana*, -*siñcana*; from prepositions, *antaraṇa* and *sāmana*; *astamana* from the quasi-prefix (1092 b) *astam*. Feminines in *anā* of doubtful connection are *yóṣaṇā* *woman* (beside *yóṣan*, *yoṣā*, etc.) and *pṛtanā*.

1151. अस् *as*. By this suffix are made (usually with *guṇa*-strengthening of the root- vowel) especially a large class of neuter nouns, mostly abstract (action-nouns), but sometimes assuming a concrete value; and also, in the older language, a few agent-nouns and adjectives, and a considerable number of infinitives.

a. The accent in words of the first class is on the root, and in the second on the ending; and in a few instances words of the two classes having the same form are distinguished by their accent; the infinitives have for the most part the accent on the suffix.

1. b. Examples of the first and principal class are: *ávas* *aid*, *favor*, *tápas* *warmth*, *práyasa* *pleasure*, *téjas* *splendor*, *çrávas* *fame*, *dóhas* *milking*, *káras* *deed*, *práthas* *breadth*, *cétas* and *mánas* *mind*, *cákṣas* *eye*, *sáras* *pond*, *vácas* *speech*.

c. A few words of this class are of irregular formation: thus, without strengthening of the root, *júvas* *quickness* (beside *jávas*), *úras* *breast*, *mṛdhas* *contempt*; and *iras*- (*irasy*-) and *vipas*-, and the adverbs *tírás*, *mithás*, *huras*-, also *çíras* *head*, are to be compared; — with *vṛddhi*-strengthening, -*vácas*, *vásas*, *váhas*, -*svādas*, and, of doubtful connections, *pájas*, *páthas*, and -*hāyas*; — perhaps with an aoristic *s*, *héṣas* *missile*; — *pívas* contains a *v* apparently not radical.

d. After final *ā* of a root is usually inserted *y* before the suffix (258): thus, *dháyas*, -*gáyas*. But there are in the oldest language apparent remains of a formation in which *as* was added directly to radical *ā*: thus, *bhás* and -*dās* (often to be pronounced as two syllables), *jñás*, *más*; and -*dhas* and -*das*, from the roots *dhā* and *dā*.

2. e. The instances in which an agent-noun is differentiated by its accent from an action-noun are: *ápas* *work*, and *apás* *active*; *yáças* *beauty*, and *yaças* *beauteous*; *táras* *quickness*, and *tarás* (VS., once) *quick*; *távas* *strength*, and *tavás* *strong*; *dúvas* *worship*, and *duvás* *lively* (?); *máhas* *greatness*, and *mahás* *great*; between *rákṣas* n. and

rakṣás m., both meaning *demon*, and between tyájas n. *abandonment (?)* and tyajás m. *descendant (?)*, the antithesis is much less clear.

f. Adjectives in ás without corresponding abstracts are: toçás *bestowing*, yajás *offering*, vedhás *pious*, probably āhanás *heady*; and a few other words of isolated occurrence, as veçás, dhvarás. From a denominative stem is made mṛgayás *wild animal* (RV., once).

g. But there are also a very few cases of abstract nouns, not neuter, accented on the ending: thus, jarás *old age*, bhiyás *fear*; and doubtless also havás *call*, and tveṣás *impulse*. The feminine uṣás *dawn*, and doṣás *night*, might belong either here or under the last preceding head.

h. Apparently containing a suffix as are the noun upás *lap*, and certain proper names: āṅgiras, nodhás, bhalānás, arcanānás, naciketas. The feminine apsarás *nymph* is of doubtful derivation.

i. The irregular formation of some of the words of this division will be noticed, without special remark.

3. j. The infinitives made by the suffix as have been explained above (973): they show various treatment of the root, and various accent (which last may perhaps mark a difference of gender, like that between sáhas and jarás).

4. k. The formation of derivatives in as from roots compounded with prefixes is very restricted — if, indeed, it is to be admitted at all. No infinitive in as occurs with a prefix; nor any action-noun; and the adjective combinations are in some instances evidently, and in most others apparently, possessive compounds of the noun with the prefix used adjectively: the most probable exceptions are -nyókas and víṣpardhas. As in these examples, the accent is always on the prefix.

l. Certain Vedic stems in ar may be noticed here, as more or less exchanging with stems in as, and apparently related with such. They were reported above, at 169 a.

In connection with this, the most common and important suffix ending in s, may be best treated the others, kindred in office and possibly also in origin, which end in the same sibilant.

1152. तस् tas, नस् nas, सस् sas. With these suffixes are made an extremely small number of action-nouns. Thus:

a. With tas are made rétas *seed*, and srótas *stream*.

b. With nas are made ápnas *acquisition*, árṇas *wave*, -bhárṇas *offering*, rékṇas *riches*; and in dráviṇas *wealth*, and páriṇas *fulness* is apparently to be seen the same suffix, with prefixed elements having the present value of union-vowels. Probably the same is true of dāmūnas *house-friend*, and řjūnas (RV.) n. pr., uçánas (or -nā) n. pr.

c. With sas is perhaps made vápsas *beauty*; and tárūṣas may be mentioned with it (rather tarus-a?).

1153. इस् is. With the suffix is is formed a small number (about a dozen) of nouns.

a. They are in part nouns of action, but most are used concretely. The radical syllable has the guṇa-strengthening, and the accent is on the suffix (except in *jyótiś light, vyáthiś, and ámiś, raw meat*). Examples are: *arcís, rocís, and çocís light, chadís or chardís cover, barhís straw, vartís track, sarpís butter, havís oblation, dyotiś light, and kravís raw flesh. Avis-, páthiś, bhrājis-, and máhiś- are isolated variants of stems in as; and túviś-, çucis-, and surabhiś- appear inorganically for tuvi etc. in a few compounds or derivatives.*

1154. उस् us. With this suffix are made a few words, of various meaning, root-form, and accent.

a. They are words signifying both action and agent. A few have both meanings, without difference of accent: thus, *tápus heat and hot; árus wound and sore; cákṣus brightness and seeing, eye; vápus wonderful and wonder. The nouns are mostly neuter, and accented on the root-syllable: thus, áyus, tárus, púrus, múhus (? only adverbial), míthus (do.), yájus, çásus; exceptions are: in regard to accent, janús birth; in regard to gender, mánus man, and náhus, proper name. Of adjectives, are accented on the ending jayús, vanús, and dakṣús burning (which appears to attach itself to the aorist-stem).*

1155. इ i. With this suffix are formed a large body of derivatives, of all genders: adjectives and masculine agent-nouns, feminine abstracts, and a few neuters. They show a various form of the root: strong, weak, and reduplicated. Their accent is also various. Many of them have meanings much specialized; and many (including most of the neuters) are hardly to be connected with any root elsewhere demonstrable.

1. a. The feminine action-nouns are of very various form: thus, with weak root-form, *rúci brightness, tvíṣi sheen; kṛṣí ploughing, nṛtí dance; — with guṇa-strengthening (where possible), rópi pain, çocí heat, vaní and saní gain; — with vṛddhi-strengthening, gráhi seizure, dhráji course, ājí race; from √duṣ comes dúṣi (compare dūṣayati, 1042 b). The variety of accent, which seems reducible to no rule, is illustrated by the examples given. The few infinitively used words of this formation (above, 975 b) have a weak root-form, with accent on the ending.*

2. b. The adjectives and masculine agent-nouns exhibit the same variety. Thus:

c. With unstrengthened root: *çúci bright, bhími lively (√bhram), gíbhī container.*

d. With unstrengthened root (or root incapable of guṇa-change): arí *enemy*, máhi *great*, arcí *beam*, granthí *knot*, krīḍí *playing*; with vṛddhi-increment, kārṣi, jāni, -dhāri, ṇāri, sācī, sādi, -sāhi, and a few words of obscure connections: thus, drāpí *mantle*, rācī *heap*, pāṇí *hand*, etc. The isolated -ānaṇi appears to come from the perfect-stem (788) of √ aṇ.

e. With reduplicated root. This is in the older language a considerable class, of quite various form. Thus: with weak or abbreviated root, cākri, jāghri (√ghar), pápri, sāsri, -amri, babhrí, vavri, jāgmi, -jājñi (√jan), -tatni, jāghni, sāsni, sūṣvi, -ṇiṇi; and, with displacement of final ā (or its weakening to the semblance of the suffix), dadí, papí, yayí (with a case or two from yayí), -jājñi, dādhi; — from the ur-form of roots in changeable ṛ, jāguri, táturi, pápuri (púpuri SV.); — with simple reduplication, cíkiti, yúyudhi, vívici; — with strengthened reduplication, -cācali, tátṛpi, dādhṛṣi, vāvahi, sāsahí, tūtuji and tūtují, yúyuví, yúyudhi; and jarbhāri and bāmbhāri. And karkarí *lute* and dundubhí *drum* have the aspect of belonging to the same class, but are probably onomatopoeic. The accent, it will be noticed, is most often on the reduplication, but not seldom elsewhere (only once on the root). It was noticed above (271 f) that these reduplicated derivatives in i not seldom take an object in the accusative, like a present participle.

f. Formations in i from the root compounded with prefixes are not at all numerous. They are accented usually on the suffix. Examples are: āyají, vyānaṇi, nijaghní, parādadi, viśāsahí; but also ājāni, āmúri, vívavri. As compounded with other preceding words, the adjectives or agent-nouns in i are not rare, and are regularly accented on the root: see the next chapter, 1276.

g. From √dhā comes a derivative -dhi, forming many masculine compounds, with the value both of an abstract and a concrete: thus, with prefixes, antardhí, uddhí, nidhí, paridhí, etc. From √dā is made in like manner ādi *beginning*, and from √sthā, pratiṣṭhí *resistance*. Opinions are at variance as to whether such forms are to be regarded as made with the suffix i, displacing the radical ā, or with weakening of ā to i.

3. h. Neuter nouns in i are few, and of obscure derivation: examples are ákṣi *eye*, ásthi *bone*, dādhi *curds*, etc.

1156. ई ī. Stems in ई ī (like those in आ ā, above, 1149) are for the most part feminine adjectives, corresponding to masculines and neuters of other terminations.

a. Thus, feminines in ī are made from a-stems (332, 334: and see also the different suffixes), from i-stems (344, 346), from u-stems (344 b), from ṛ-stems (376 a), and from various consonant-stems (378 a).

b. But there are also a few stems in ī wearing the aspect of independent derivatives. Examples are dakṣī, dehí, nadí, nāndí, péṣī,

vakṣ́ī (apparently with aoristic a), veṣ́ī, ṣákī, ṣácī, ṣámī, ṣímī, tarī, vāpī; they are either action-nouns or agent-nouns. In the later language (as noticed at 344 a) there is very frequent interchange of i- and ī-stems and the forms from them.

c. In the oldest language there are even a few masculines in ī. They were noticed, and their inflection illustrated, above, at 355 b, 356.

1157. ति ti. This suffix forms a large class of frequently used feminine nouns of action; and also a few agent-nouns (masculine) and adjectives. The root has in general the same form as before the suffix त ta of the passive participle (952 ff.) — that is to say, a weak, and often a weakened or abbreviated, form.

a. The accent ought, it would appear, in analogy with that of the participle, to rest always upon the suffix; but in the recorded condition of the language it does so only in a minority of cases: namely, about fifty, against sixty cases of accent on the radical syllable, and a hundred and forty of undetermined accent; a number of words — iti, ṛti, citti, ṛṛpti, pakti, puṣṭi, bhūti, bhr̥ti, vṛṣṭi, ṣakti, ṣruṣṭi, sṛṣṭi, sthiti — have both accentuations.

1. b. Examples of the normal formation are: rātí *gift*, ūtí *aid*, rītí *flow*, stutí *praise*, bhaktí *division*, viṣṭí *service*, stutí *praise*, kīrtí *fame*, pūrtí *bestowal*, matí *thought*, pītí *drink* (√pā; pple pīta), dhāutí *stream* (√dhāv; pple dhāuta); — and with accented root, gátí *motion*, ṣāmtí *repose*, dítí *division* (√dā; pple ditá), dṛṣṭí *sight*, íṣṭí *offering* (√yaj; pple iṣṭá), úkti *speech* (√vac; pple uktá), vṛddhi *increase*.

c. The roots which form their participle in ita (956) do not have the i also before ti: thus, only gúpti, -dṛpti. A few roots having their participle in na instead of ta (957) form the abstract noun also in ni (below, 1158). And from the roots tan and ran occur tantí and ránti, beside the more regular tati and ráti; also áhanti (once; VS.) beside áhati. From roots having the form dā, the derivative in composition is sometimes -tti (for dāti, with loss of radical vowel: compare the participle-form -tta, above, 955 f): thus, niravatti (K.), samprátti (ÇB.), páritti (TB.), vásutti, bhágatti, maghátti (all RV.).

d. A few derivatives are made from reduplicated roots; their accent is various: thus, carkṛtí, dīdhiti and -dīditi, jígarti, and perhaps the proper name yayáti; also jágdhi from √jakṣ (233 f).

e. Derivatives from roots with prefixes are numerous, and have (as in the case of the participles in ta, and the action-nouns in tu) the accent on the prefix: examples are ánumati, abh̥iti, áhuti, nírṛti, vyāṇti, sárṅgati. The only exceptions noticed are āsaktí and āsutí, and abhi-

ṣṭí (beside abhíṣṭi). In other combinations than with prefixes, the accentuation is in general the same: see the next chapter (1274).

2. f. The adjectives and agent-nouns — which, as masculines, are to be connected with these rather than with the feminine abstracts — are very few: thus, púti *putrid*, váṣṭi *eager*, dhúti *shaker*, jñāti *relative*, pattí *footman*, páti *master*; and a few others, of more or less dubious character. The accent is various, as in the other class.

3. g. A few words show the suffix ti preceded by various vowels, union- or stem-vowels. The ordinary intermediate i of the ta-participle etc. is seen in sániti, ujhiti, -grhīti (ī, as usual with this root: 900 b), paṭhiti, bhaṇiti; and with them may be mentioned the adjective ṛjīti, the proper names turvīti and dabhīti, and snīhitī and snéhitī, notwithstanding their long final. With ati are made a few derivatives, variously accented: thus, the action-nouns aṇhatí, dṛṣatí, pakṣatí, mithatí, vasatí, ramatí, vratatí, amatí and ámati, -dhrajaṭi; and the agent-words aratí, khalatí, vṛkátí, rámati, dahati. In some of these is to be seen with probability a stem-vowel, as also in jánayati and rasayati (and RV. has gopayátya). The grammarians' method of representing a root by its 3d sing. pres. indic., declining this as a ti-stem, begins in the older language: e. g. étivant (TB.), kṣetivant (AB.), yajati and juhoti and dadāti (S.), nandati (MBh.). The feminine yúvati *young, maiden* is of isolated character.

h. In some of the words instanced in the last paragraph, ti is perhaps applied as a secondary suffix. A kindred character belongs to it in the numeral derivatives from pronominal roots, kátí, tátí, yátí, and from numerals, as daṣatí, viṇṣatí, ṣaṣṭí, etc., with pañktí (from páñca); in padāti; and in addhātí, from the particle addhā.

1158. णि ni. This suffix agrees in general in its uses and in the form of its derivatives with the preceding; but it makes a very much smaller number of words, among which the feminine abstracts are a minority.

a. As was noticed above (1157 c), a few verbs (ending in vowels) making their passive participle in na instead of ta make their action-noun in ni instead of ti. From the older language are quotable jyānī *injury*, jūrnī *heat*, hāni *abandonment* (and the masculines ghṛṇi and jírṇi); later occur glāni, -mlāni, sannī-.

b. Words of the other class are: aṇni *eating*, -uṣṇi *burning*, váhni *carrying*, júrṇi *singing*, túrṇi *hasty*, bhúrṇi *excited*, dharṇi *sustaining*, preṇi *loving*, vṛṣṇi and vṛṣṇi *virile*; and with them may be mentioned pṛṣṇi *speckled*.

c. In preṇi, yóni, mení, ṣṛṇi, ṣróṇi is seen a strengthening of the radical syllable, such as does not appear among the derivatives in ti.

d. Derivatives in ni from roots with prefixes do not appear to occur.

e. In hrādúni and hlāduni we have a prefixed u. In the words ending in ani, the a has probably the same value with that of ati (above, 1157 g); but ani has gained a more independent status, and may be best treated as a separate suffix.

1159. अनि ani. The words made by this suffix have the same double value with those made by the preceding suffixes. Their accent is various. Thus:

a. Feminine action-nouns, sometimes with concreted meaning: as, iṣáṇi *impulse*, çaráṇi *injury*, dyotaní *brightness*, kṣipaṇí *blow*, açáni *missile*, vartaní *track*; and -arçani, udani-, jaraṇi-.

b. Adjectives and other agent-words are: aráṇi *fire-stick*, caráṇi *movable*, cakṣáṇi *enlightener*, taráṇi *quick*, dhamáni *pipe*, dhvasáni *scattering*, vakṣáṇi *strengtheners*, saraṇi *track*. Dharaṇi and one or two other late words are probably variants to stems in anī. From a reduplicated root-form comes -paptani. From desiderative stems are made ruruḥṣáṇi, siṣāsáni, and (with prefix) ā-çuḥukṣáṇi. And a small number of words appear to attach themselves to an s-aorist stem: thus, parṣáṇi, sakṣáṇi, carṣaṇí.

c. It is questionable whether the infinitives in ṣaṇí (978) are to be put here, as accusatives of a formation in ani, or under the next suffix, as locatives of a formation in an, from roots and stems increased by an aoristic s.

1160. अन् an. Not many words are made with a suffix of this form, and of these few are plainly to be connected with roots. Certain rare neuters (along with the doubtful infinitives) are nouns of action; the rest are masculine and neuter agent-nouns. The accent is various.

a. The infinitives which admit of being referred to this suffix, as locative cases, are those in ṣaṇi, of which the sibilant may be the final of a tense-stem. They are all given above (978).

b. The other action-nouns in an are mahán *greatness*, rāján *authority* (RV., once: compare rájan; the accent-relation is the reverse of the usual one), and gámbhan *depth* (VS., once); and PB. has kṣepṇā once.

c. Agent-nouns (in part of doubtful connection) are: ukṣán *ox*, cákṣan *eye*, tákṣan *carpenter*, dhvasán proper name, pūṣán name of a god, majján *marrow*, rājan *king*, víṣan *virile*, *bull*, sághan, snīhán (snūhan Āpast.); also -gman, jmán, -bhvan, -çvan, with çván, yúvan, yóṣan, and the stems áhan, údhan, etc. (430–4), filling up the inflection of other defective stems.

d. With prefixes occur pratidívan and átidívan, vibhván, níkāman.

1161. तु *tu*. The great mass of the words of this formation are the infinitives — accusatives in the later language, in the earlier likewise datives and ablative-genitives: see above, 970 b, 972, But a few are also used independently, as action-nouns or with concreted meaning; and an extremely small number, of somewhat questionable character, appear to have the value of agent-words. They are of all genders, but chiefly masculine. The root has the गुण-*strengthening*.

a. The infinitive words are accented on the radical syllable when simple, and most of the others have the same accent; but a few have the tone on the ending.

b. Examples are: of the regular formation, masc. दातु *share*, जातु- *birth*, धातु *element*, तान्तु *thread*, मान्तु *counsel*, ओतु *weft*, सातु *receptacle*, सेतु *tie*, सोतु *pressure*, also क्रातु *capacity*, and साक्तु *grits*; fem. वास्तु *morning*; neut, वास्तु *thing*, वास्तु *abode*; — with accent on the ending, अक्तु *ray*, जान्तु *being*, गान्तु *way* and *song*, यान्तु (?) *demon*, हेतु *cause*, केतु *banner* (all masc.); — with unstrengthened root, ऋतु *season*, पितु *drink*, सूतु *birth*, and apparently कृतु (in कृतव *times*): with वृद्धि-*strengthening*, वास्तु (above). Agent-nouns appear to be धातु *drinkable* and क्रातु *jackal*.

c. The infinitives in तु have (968) often the union-vowel *i* before the suffix, and this in a few cases is lengthened to *ī*. In other use occur also -स्तारितु and -धारितु (both with *dus*), -हावितु (with *su*); तुर्यहारितु seems of the same formation, but is obscure.

d. In a few instances, the suffix तु appears to be added to a tense- or conjugation-stem in *a*; thus, एदहतु and वाहतु; ताम्यातु and तप्यातु; and सिषासातु. The accent of the last is paralleled only by that of जीवातु *life*, which is further exceptional in showing a long *ā*; it is used sometimes in the manner of an infinitive.

1162. नु *nu*. This suffix forms a comparatively small body of words, generally masculine, and having both the abstract and the concrete value.

a. The accent is usually on the ending, and the root unstrengthened.

b. Thus: क्षेपनु *jerk*, भानु *light* (later *sun*), वागनु *sound*, सनु *son*, दानु (with irregular accent) m. f. *demon*, n. *drop*, *dew*; — धेनु f. *cow*; — गर्धनु *hasty*, तपनु *burning*, त्रसनु *fearful*, धृषनु *bold*; — and विशु *Vishnu*, and perhaps स्तानु *pillar*. Compare also suffix तनु, 1196 a.

c. This also (like tu) appears sometimes with a prefixed a: thus, kṣipañú *missile*, krandanú and nadanú *roaring*, nabhanú (and -nú, f.) *fountain*, vibhañjanú (only instance with prefix) *breaking to pieces*; and perhaps the proper names dāsanu and kṛṣṇanu belong here.

1163. थ tha. The words made with this suffix are almost without exception action-nouns (though some have assumed a concrete value). They are of all genders. The root is of a weak (or even weakened) form, and the accent usually on the suffix.

a. Thus: masc., -itha *going*, ártha *goal*, -kr̥tha *making*, gāthá *song*, pakthá n. pr., bhṛthá *offering*, -yātha *road*, -cītha *lying down*, çoṭha *swelling*, sīktha *sediment*; and, of less clear connections, yūthá *herd*, rátha *chariot*; — neut., ukthá *saying*, tīrthá *ford*, nīthá *song*, rikthá *heritage*, and apparently pr̥sthá *back*; — fem. (with ā), gāthā *song*, nīthā *way*. Radical ā is weakened to ī in gīthá *song* and -pītha *drink* and -pītha *protection*; a final nasal is lost in -gatha *going* and hathá *slaying*. In vijigīthá (ÇB.; but BAU. -īta) is apparently seen a formation from a reduplication of √jī, *victorious*.

b. A few examples of combination with prefixes occur, with accent on the final: thus, nirṛthá *destruction*, saṁgathá *union*, etc.

c. Still more common in the older language is a form of this suffix to which has become prefixed an á, which is probably of thematic origin, though become a union-vowel. Thus: -anátha *breathing*, ayátha *foot*, carátha *mobility*, tveṣátha *vehemence*, and so prothátha, yajātha, ravátha, vakṣátha, ucátha, vidátha, çaṁsatha, çapátha, çayátha, çvayátha, çvasátha, sacátha, stanátha, stavátha, sravátha, and, with weak root-form, ruvátha; the later language adds karatha, taratha, çamatha, savatha. With a prefix, the accent is thrown forward upon the final: thus, āvasathá *abode*, pravasathá *absence*; but prāṇátha *breath* is treated as if prān were an integral root.

d. Isolated combinations of tha with other preceding vowels occur: thus, várūtha *protection*, járūtha *wasting* (?); and matútha (√man?).

1164. थु thu. This suffix (like थ tha, above) has an अ á attached to it, and, in the very few derivatives which it makes, appears only as अथु áthu.

a. The only Vedic examples are ejáthu *quaking*, vepáthu *trembling*, stanáthu *roaring*. Later cases are nandáthu (TS.), nadathu (U.), kṣavathu (S.), davathu, bhraṇçathu, majjathu, vamathu, çvayathu, sphūrjathu.

1165. यु yu. With this suffix are made a very few nouns,

both of agent and of action, with unstrengthened root and various accent. Thus:

a. Abstracts (masc.) are manyú *wrath*, mṛtyú *death* (with t added to the short final of the root).

b. Adjectives etc. are druhyú n. pr., bhujoyú *pliable*, mucyu (GB. i. 1.7), çundhyú *pure*; yájyu *pious*, sáhyu *strong*, dásyu *enemy*; and, with vṛddhi-strengthening, jâyú *victorious*.

c. For other derivatives ending in yu, see the suffix u, below, 1178 h, i.

1166. म ma. The action-nouns made by this suffix are almost all masculine; and they are of various root-form and accent, as are also the agent-nouns and adjectives.

a. Examples of action-nouns are: ajmá *course*, gharmá *heat*; éma *progress*, bháma *brightness*, sárna *flow*, stóma *song of praise*.

b. Examples of agent-nouns etc. are: tigmá *sharp*, bhīmá *terrible*, çagmá *mighty*, idhmá *fuel*, yudhmá *warrior*. A single instance from a reduplicated root is tūtumá *powerful*. Sarámā f., with a before the suffix, is of doubtful connection.

c. A number of stems in ma have stems in man beside them, and appear, at least in part, to be transfers from the an- to the a-declension. Such are ajma, oma, ema, arma, tókma, darmá, dhárma, narmá, yáma, yugma, vema, çuṣma, sóma, sárma, hóma.

1167. मि mi. A very small number of nouns, masculine and feminine, formed with mi, may be conveniently noticed here.

Thus, from ṛ-roots, ūrmí *wave*, -kūrmí *action*, sūrmí f. *tube*; from others, jāmí *relation*, bhúmi or bhúmī f. *earth*, lakṣmí *sign*; also probably raçmí *line, ray*; and the adjective krúdhmi (? RV., once).

1168. मन् man. The numerous derivatives made with this suffix are almost only action-nouns. The great majority of them are neuter, and accented on the root-syllable; a much smaller number are masculine, and accented on the suffix. The few agent-words are, if nouns, masculine, and have the latter accent: in several instances, a neuter and a masculine, of the one and the other value and accent, stand side by side. The root has in general the guṇa-strengthening.

1. a. Examples of regularly formed neuters are: kárman *action*, jánman *birth*, nāman *name*, vártman *track*, véçman *dwelling*, hóman *sacrifice*, -dyótman *splendor*.

b. Examples of masculine abstracts are: *omán favor*, *ojmán strength*, *jemán conquest*, *svādmán sweetness*, *hemán impulse*.

c. Corresponding neuter action-nouns and masculine agent-nouns are: *bráhman worship* and *brahmán priest*; *dāman gift* and *dāmán giver*; *dhárman rule* and *dharmán orderer*; *sádmán seat* and *sadmán sitter*. But *óman friend* stands in the contrary relation to *omán m. favor*. Very few other agent-nouns occur; and all, except *brahmán*, are of rare occurrence.

d. On the other hand, *jeman* and *varṣman* and *svādman* (and *variman*) have the difference of gender and accent without a corresponding difference of meaning.

e. The noun *áčman stone*, though masculine, is accented on the radical syllable; and two or three other questionable cases of the same kind occur.

f. The derivatives in *man* used as infinitives (974) have for the most part the accent of neuters: the only exception is *vidmáne*.

g. A few words, of either class, have an irregular root-form: thus, *údman*, *ūśmán* or *uśman*, *bhúman earth*, *bhūmán abundance*, *syúman*, *sīmán*, *bhujmán*, *vidmán*, *çíkman*, *çuśman*, *sidhman*; and *kárṣman*, *bhárman*, *çákman*.

h. Derivatives in *man* from roots with prefixes are not numerous. They are usually accented on the prefix, whether action-nouns or adjectives: thus, *prábharman forthbringing*, *práyáman departure*; *ánuvartman following after*: the exceptions, *vijáman*, *prativartmán*, *visarmán*, are perhaps of possessive formation.

2. i. The same suffix, though only with its abstract-making value, has in a number of cases before it a union-vowel, *i* or *ī*; and *imán* comes to be used as a secondary suffix, forming abstract nouns (masculine) from a considerable number of adjectives.

j. The neuters in *iman* and *īman* are primary formations, belonging almost only to the older language: thus, *jániman*, *dhariman* (M.), *váriman* (beside *varimán*, as noticed above); and *dārīman*, *dhārīman*, *pārīman* (and *páreman* SV., once), *bhārīman*, *vārīman*, *sārīman*, *stārīman*, *sāvīman*, and *hāvīman*. Those in *īman* are hardly met with outside the Rīg-Veda.

k. The masculines in *imán* are in the oldest language less frequent than the neuters just described: they are *tániman* (?), *jarimán*, *prathimán*, *mahimán*, *varimán* (beside the equivalent *váriman* and *vārīman*), *varṣimán* (beside the equivalent *varṣman* and *varṣmán*), *harimán*, and *drāghimán* (VS.) beside *drāghmán* (V.B.). Some of these, as well as of the derivatives in simple *man*, attach themselves in meaning, or in form also, to adjectives, to which they seem the accompanying abstracts: compare the similar treatment of the primary comparatives and superlatives (above, 468): such are *pāpmán* (to *pāpá*, *pāpīyas* etc.); *drāghmán* etc. (to *dīrghá*, *drāghīyas*, etc.); *váriman* etc. (to *urú*,

vārīyas, etc.); prāthiman (to pṛthú, prāthiṣṭha); harimán (to hári or hárīta); várṣman etc. (to várṣīyas etc.); svādman etc. (to svādú, svādiyas, etc.). Then in the Brāhmaṇa language are found further examples: thus, dhūmrimán (TS. K.), draḍhimán (MS. K.: to dṛdhá, dráḍhīyas, etc.), aṇimán (ÇB.; and āṇiman n. *bit*), sthemán, stháviman (n. *big piece*), taruṇiman (K.), paruṣiman (AB.), abaliman (ChU.), lohīman (KB.); and still later such as laghiman, kṛṣṇiman, pūrṇiman, madhuriman, ṣoṇiman, etc., etc.

1169. वन् van. By this suffix are made almost only agent-words, adjectives and nouns, the latter chiefly masculines. The root is unstrengthened, and to a short final vowel is added a व् t before the suffix. The accent is almost always on the root, both in the simple words and in their compounds.

a. The insertion of t is an intimation that the words of this form are originally made by the addition of an to derivatives in u and tu; yet van has the present value of an integral suffix in the language, and must be treated as such.

b. Examples of the usual formation are: masc. yájvan *offering*, drúhvan *harming*, ṣákvan *capable*, -ríkvan *leaving*, -jítvan *conquering*, sútvan *pressing*, kítvan *active*, -gátvan (like -gat, -gatyā) *going*, sátvan (√san) *warrior*; neut. párvan *joint*, dhánvan *bow*. Irregular, with strengthened root, are árvan *courser*, -yāvan (? AV.) *driving off*; and, with accent on the suffix, dṛván (? VS.) and vidván (? AV.).

c. Examples from roots with prefixes (which are not rare) are: atītvan *excelling*, upahásvan *reviler*, sambhṛtvan *collecting*; and perhaps vivásvan *shining*: abhísatvan is a compound with governing preposition (1310). For the compounds with other elements, which, except in special cases, have the same accent, see below, 1277.

d. The stems muṣíván *robber* and sanítvan (each RV., once) are the only ones with a union-vowel, and are perhaps better regarded as secondary derivatives — of which a few are made with this suffix: see below, 1234. From a reduplicated root are made rárāvan and cikitván (and possibly vivásvan).

e. Action-nouns made with the suffix van are only the infinitival words mentioned at 974 — unless bhurváni (RV., once) is to be added, as locative of bhurván.

f. The feminines corresponding to adjectives in van are not made (apparently) directly from this suffix, but from vara, and end in varī; see below, 1171 b.

1170. वन vana, वनि vani, वनु vanu. The very few words

made with these suffixes may best be noticed here, in connection with वन् van (of which the others are probably secondary extensions).

a. With vana are made vagvaná *talkative*, satvaná warrior (beside sátvan, above); and, from a reduplicated root, çuçukvaná *shining*.

b. With vani are made from simple roots turváṇi *excelling*, and bhurváṇi *restless*, and, from reduplicated roots, çuçukváṇi *shining*, dadhṛṣváṇi *daring*, tuturváṇi *striving after*, and jugurváṇi *praising*; arhariṣváṇi is obscure.

c. With vanu is made only vagvanú *tone, noise*.

1171. वर varā. With this suffix are made a few derivatives, of all genders, having for the most part the value of agent-nouns and adjectives. Much more common are the feminine stems in वरी varī, which, from the earliest period, serve as corresponding feminines to the masculine stems in वन् van.

a. A few masculine adjectives in vará occur, formally accordant (except in accent) with the feminines: thus, itvará *going*, -advara *eating*; and so, further, in the older language, içvará, -jāvara, phārvara, bhārvará, bhāsvará, vyadhvará (?), -sadvara, sthāvará, and doubtless with them belongs vidvalá; later, -kasvara, gatvara, ghasvara (also ghasmara), -jítvara, naçvara, pīvara, madvara, -sṛtvara; from a reduplicated root, yāyāvará (B. and later). Many of these have feminines in ā.

b. The feminines in varī accord in treatment of the root and in accent with the masculines in van to which they correspond: thus, yājvarī, -jítvarī, sṛtvarī, -çívarī, -yāvarī, and so on (about twenty-five such formations in RV.); from a reduplicated root, -çiçvarī.

c. A very small number of neuters occur, with accent on the root: thus, kárvara *deed*, gáhvara (later also gabhvara) *thicket*; and a feminine or two, with accent on the penult: urvárā *field*, and urvárī *tow* (both of doubtful etymology).

We take up now the suffixes by which are made only stems having the value of agent-nouns and adjectives; beginning with a brief mention of the participial endings, which in general have been already sufficiently treated.

1172. अन् ant (or अत् at). The office of this suffix, in making present and future participles active, has been fully explained above, in connection with the various tense-stems and conjugation-stems (chaps. VIII.–XIV.), in combination

with which alone it is employed (not directly with the root, unless this is also used as tense-stem).

a. A few words of like origin, but used as independent adjectives, were given at 450. With the same or a formally identical suffix are made from pronominal roots íyant and kíyant (451, 517 a). And ádvayant *not double-tongued* (RV., once), appears to contain a similar formation from the numeral dvi — unless we are to assume a denominative verb-stem as intermediate.

1173. वांस् vāṁs (or वस् vas). For the (perfect active) participles made with this suffix, see above, 802–6, and 458 ff.

a. A few words of irregular and questionable formation were noticed at 462, above. Also, apparent transfers to a form us or uṣa. RV. vocalizes the v once, in jujuruān.

b. The oldest language (RV.) has a very few words in vas, of doubtful relations: řbhvas and říkvas *skilful* (beside words in va and van), and perhaps khidvas (√khād). The neuter abstract várivas *breadth, room* (belonging to urú *broad*, in the same manner with várīyas and varimán), is quite isolated. MBh. makes a nominative pīvān, as if from pīvāṁs instead of pīvan.

1174. मान māna. The participles having this ending are, as has been seen (584 b), present and future only, and have the middle, or the derived passive, value belonging in general to the stems to which the suffix is attached.

1175. आन āna. The participles ending in आन āna are of middle and passive value, like those just noticed, and either present, perfect, or (partly with the form सान sāna: above, 897 b) aorist.

a. A few other words ending in the same manner in the old language may be mentioned here. The RV. has the adjectives tákavāna, bhřgavāṇa, vásavāna, ūrdhvasāná, apparently made on the model of participial stems. Also the proper names ápnavāna, přthavāna, and cyávāna and cyávatāna. Párçāna *abyss* is doubtful; rujānā (RV., once) is probably a false reading; ápnāna is of doubtful character.

1176. त ta. The use of this suffix in forming participles directly from the root, or from a conjugational (not a tense) stem, was explained above, 952–6. The participles thus made are in part intransitive, but in great part passive

in value (like those made by the two preceding suffixes, but in much larger measure, and more decidedly).

a. A few general adjectives, or nouns with concrete meaning, are adaptations of this participle. Examples are: *trṣṭá rough*, *çitá cold*, *dṛḍhá* (for *dṛḍhá*: 224 a) *firm*; *dūtá messenger*, *sūtá charioteer*; *ṛtá right*, *ghṛtá ghee*, *jātá kind*, *dyūtá gambling*, *nṛttá dance*, *jīvitá life*, *caritá behavior*, *smita smile*. The adjective *tigitá* (RV.) *sharp* shows anomalous reversion of palatal to guttural before the i (216 d). *Vāvāta dear* is a single example from a reduplicated root.

b. Doubtless after the example and model of participles from denominative stems (of which, however, no instances are quotable from the Veda — unless *bhāmita* RV.), derivatives in *ita* are in the later language made directly from noun and adjective-stems, having the meaning of *endowed with*, *affected by*, *made to be*, and the like (compare the similar English formation in *ed*, as *horned*, *barefooted*, *bluecoated*). Examples are *rathita furnished with a chariot*, *duḥkhita pained*, *kusumita flowered*, *durbalita weakened*, *niḥsaṃçayita indubitable*, etc. etc.

c. A few words ending in *ta* are accented on the radical syllable, and their relation to the participial derivatives is very doubtful: such are *ásta home*, *márta mortal*, *vāta wind*; and with them may be mentioned *gárta high seat*, *nákta night*, *hásta hand*. *Vratá* is commonly viewed as containing a suffix *ta*, but it doubtless comes from *√vṛt* (*vrat-á*, like *tradá*, *vrajá*) and means originally *course*.

d. Several adjectives denoting color end in *ita*, but are hardly connectible with roots of kindred meaning: thus, *palitá gray*, *ásita black*, *róhita* and *lóhita red*, *hárita green*; akin with them are *éta variegated*, *çyetá white*. The feminines of these stems are in part irregular: thus, *énī* and *çyénī*; *róhiṇī* and *lóhiṇī*, and *háriṇī* (but the corresponding masc. *háriṇa* also occurs); and *ásiknī*, *páliknī*, and *háriknī*.

e. A small number of adjectives in the older language ending in *ata* are not to be separated from the participial words in *ta*, although their specific meaning is in part gerundive. They are: *pacatá cooked*, *darçatá* and *paçyata seen, to be seen, worth seeing*; and so *yajatá*, *haryatá*, *bharatá*. The *y* of *paçyata* and *haryatá* indicates pretty plainly that the *a* also is that of a present tense-stem. *Rajatá silvery* is of more obscure relation to *√raj color*; *párvata mountain* must be secondary.

1177. न *na* (and इन *ina*, उन *una*). The use of the suffix न *na* in forming from certain roots participles equivalent to those in त *ta*, either alongside the latter or instead of them, was explained above, at 957.

a. With the same suffix are made a number of general adjectives, and of nouns of various gender (fem. in *nā*). The accent is on the suffix

or on the root. A few examples are: *uṣṇá hot*, *ṣuná fortunate*, *áṣna ravenous*, *ṣvítna white*; masc., *praṇá question*, *yajñá offering*, *ghṛṇá heat*, *várṇa color*, *svápna sleep*; neut., *parṇá wing*, *rátna jewel (?)*; fem. *tṛṣṇa thirst*, *yācñá supplication*. But many of the stems ending in *na* are not readily connectible with roots. An antithesis of accent is seen in *kárṇa ear* and *karṇá eared*.

b. The few words ending in *ina* are of doubtful connection, but may be mentioned here: thus, *aminá violent*, *vṛjiná crooked*, *dákṣiṇa right*, *dráviṇa property*, *druhiṇa*, *ṣreṣiṇa*, *hariṇá*; and *kanína* may be added.

c. The words ending in *una* are of various meaning and accent, like those in *ana*: they are *árjuna*, *karúṇa*, *-cetúna*, *táruṇa*, *dāruṇá*, *dharúṇa*, *narúṇa*, *píṣuna*, *mithuná*, *yatúna*, *vayúna*, *varuṇa*, *ṣalúna*, and the feminine *yamúnā*; and *bhrūṇá* may be added.

d. These are all the proper participial endings of the language. The gerundives, later and earlier, are in the main evident secondary formations, and will be treated under the head of secondary derivation.

We take up now the other suffixes forming agent-nouns and adjectives, beginning with those which have more or less a participial value.

1178. **उ u.** With this suffix are made a considerable body of derivatives, of very various character — adjectives, and agent-nouns of all genders, with different treatment of the root, and with different accent. It is especially used with certain conjugational stems, desiderative (particularly later) and denominative (mainly earlier), making adjectives with the value of present participles; and in such use it wins in part the aspect of a secondary suffix.

a. The root has oftenest a weak (or weakened) form; but it is sometimes vriddhied; least often (when capable of *guṇa*), it has the *guṇa*-strengthening — all without any apparent connection with either accent or meaning or gender. After final radical *ā* is usually added *y* (258) before the suffix. A few derivatives are made from the reduplicated root. But many words ending in *u* are not readily, or not at all, connectible with roots; examples will be given especially of those that have an obvious etymology.

b. Examples of ordinary adjectives are: *urú wide*, *ṛjú straight*, *pṛthú broad*, *mṛdú soft*, *sādhú good*, *svādú sweet*, *tápu hot*, *vásu good*; *jāyú conquering*, *dārú bursting*; *ṣayú lying*, *réku empty*; *dhāyú thirsty*, *pāyú protecting*. Final *ā* appears to be lost before the suffix in *-sthū* (*suṣṭhú*, *anuṣṭhú*), and perhaps in *yú*, *-gu* (*agregú*), and *-khu* (*ākhú*).

c. Examples of nouns are: masc., *aṇṣú ray*, *ripú deceiver*, *vāyú*

wind-god, ásu *life*, mánu *man*, *Manu*; fem., íṣu (also masc.) *arrow*, síndhu (also masc.) *river*, tanú or tanú *body*; neut., kṣú *food*.

d. Derivatives from reduplicated roots are: cikitú, jágmu, jigyú, jijñu, siṣṇu, -tatnu (unless this is made with nu or tnu), didyu (?), dadru, yáyú or yayú and yíyu (with final ā lost), pípru (proper name), -dīdhayu; and títaü, babhrú, -raru (aráru), malimlú (?) have the aspect of being similar formations.

e. A few derivatives are made from roots with prefixes, with various accentuation: for example, upāyú *on-coming*, pramayú *going to destruction*, viklīndu a certain disease, abhīṣu *rein (director)*, sāmvasu *dwelling together*.

f. From tense-stems, apparently, are made tanyú *thundering*, bhindú *splitting*, -vindu *finding*, and (with aoristic s) dākṣu and dhākṣu (all RV.).

g. Participial adjectives in ú from desiderative "roots" (stems with loss of their final a) are sufficiently numerous in the ancient language (RV. has more than a dozen of them, AV. not quite so many) to show that the formation was already a regular one, extensible at will; and later such adjectives may be made from every desiderative. Examples (older) are: ditsú, dipsú, cikitsú, titikṣú, pipīṣu, mumukṣú, iyakṣú, çiklikṣú; with prefix, abhidipsú; with anomalous accent, didṛkṣu. These adjectives, both earlier and later, may take an object in the accusative (271 a).

h. A few similar adjectives are made in the older language from causatives: thus, dhārayú (persistent), bhājayú, bhāvayú, mañhayú, mandayú, çramayú; and mṛgayú from the caus.-denom. mṛgáya.

i. Much more numerous, however, are such formations from the more proper denominatives, especially in the oldest language (RV. has toward eighty of them; AV. only a quarter as many, including six or eight which are not found in RV.; and they are still rarer in the Brāhmaṇas, and hardly met with later). In a majority of cases, personal verbal forms from the same denominative stem are in use: thus, for example, to aghāyú, arātīyú, ṛjūyú, caraṇyú, manasyú, saniṣyú, uruṣyú, saparyú; in others, only the present participle in yánt, or the abstract noun in yá (1149 d), or nothing at all. A few are made upon denominative stems from pronouns: thus, tvāyú (beside tvāyánt and tvāyá), yuvayú or yuvāyú, asmayú, svayú, and the more anomalous ahaṁyú and kiṁyú. Especially where no other denominative forms accompany the adjective, this has often the aspect of being made directly from the noun with the suffix yu, either with a meaning of *seeking* or *desiring*, or with a more general adjective sense: thus, yavayú *seeking grain*, varāhayú *boar-hunting*, stanasyú *desiring the breast*; ūṛṇāyú *woolen*, yuvanyú *youthful*, bhīmayú *terrible*. And so the "secondary suffix yu" wins a degree of standing and application as one forming derivative adjectives (as in ahaṁyú and kiṁyú, above, and doubtless some others, even of the RV. words). In three RV. cases, the final as of a noun-stem is even changed to o before it: namely, aṇhoyú, duvoyú (and duvoyá; beside duvasyú), áskṛdhoyu.

j. The words in *yu* do not show in the Veda resolution into *iu* (except *dhāsiús* AV., once).

1179. ऊ ū. Stems in ऊ ū are very few, even as compared with those in ई ī (1156). They are for the most part feminines corresponding to masculines in *u* (344 b), with half-a-dozen more independent feminines (see 355 c).

a. To those already mentioned above are to be added *karṣú pit*, -*calū* (in *puṁçcalú*), -*janū* (in *prajanú*), *çumbhú*.

1180. उक uka. With this suffix are made derivatives having the meaning and construction (271 g) of a present participle. The root is strengthened, and has the accent.

a. The derivatives in *uka* are hardly known in the Veda; but they become frequent in the Brāhmaṇas, of whose language they are a marked characteristic (about sixty different stems occur there); and they are found occasionally in the older language. In all probability, they are originally and properly obtained by adding the secondary suffix *ka* (1222) to a derivative in *u*; but they have gained fully the character of primary formations, and in only an instance or two is there found in actual use an *u*-word from which they should be made.

b. The root is only so far strengthened that the radical syllable is a heavy (79) one; and it has the accent, whether the derivative is made from a simple root or from one with prefix.

c. Examples, from the Brāhmaṇa language, are: *vāduka*, *nāçuka*, *upakrāmuka*, *prapāduka*, *upasthāyuka* (258), *vyāyuka*, *vēduka*, *bhāvuka*, *kṣódhuka*, *hāruka*, *vārṣuka*, *samārdhuka*, *dānçuka*, *ālambuka*, *çikṣuka* (GB.: RV. has *çikṣú*), *pramāyuka* (SB. has *pramāyu*).

d. Exceptions as regards root-form are: *nirmārguka* (with *vṛddhi*-strengthening, as is usual with this root: 627), -*kasuka*, *ṛdhnuka* (from a tense-stem; beside *ārdhuka*). AV. accents *sām̐kasuka* (ÇB. has *saṁkāsuka*) and *vīkasuka*; RV. has *sānuká* (which is its only example of the formation, if it be one; AV. has also *ghātuka* from *√han*, and *āpramāyuka*); *vasuká* (TS. et al.) is probably of another character. *Açanāyuka* (PB. et al.) is the only example noticed from a conjugation-stem.

e. Of later occurrence are a few words whose relation to the others is more or less doubtful: *kārmuka* and *dhārmuka*, *tsāruka*, *tarkuka*, *nānduka*, *pādukā*, *pecuka*, *bhikṣuka*, *lāṣuka*, *seduka*, *hiṇḍuka*, *hreṣuka*. Of these, only *lāṣuka* appears like a true continuer of the formation; several are pretty clearly secondary derivatives.

f. A formation in *ūka* (a suffix of like origin, perhaps, with *uka*) may be mentioned here: namely, *indhūka*, *majjūka*, and, from reduplicated-

reduplicated roots, jāgarúka *wakeful*, jañjapūka (later) *muttering*, dandaçúka *biting*, yāyajúka *sacrificing much*, vāvadūka (later) *talkative*; salalúka is questionable.

1181. अक aka. Here, as in the preceding case, we doubtless have a suffix made by secondary addition of क ka to a derivative in अ a; but it has, for the same reason as the other, a right to be mentioned here. Its free use in the manner of a primary suffix is of still later date than that of uka; it has very few examples in the older language.

a. In RV. is found (besides pāvaká, which has a different accent, and which, as the metre shows, is really pavāka) only sáyaka *missile*; AV. adds páyaka and vādha-ka, and VS. abhikróçaka. But in the later language, such derivatives are common, more usually with raising of the root-syllable by strengthening to heavy quantity: thus, nāyaka, dāyaka (258), pācaka, grāhaka, bodhaka, jāgaraka; but also janaka, khanaka. They are declared by the grammarians to have the accent on the radical syllable. They often occur in copulative composition with gerundives of the same root: thus, bhakṣyabhakṣaka *eatable and eater*, vācyavācaka *designated and designation*, and so on.

b. That the derivatives in aka sometimes take an accusative object was pointed out above (271 c).

c. The corresponding feminine is made sometimes in akā or in akī, but more usually in ikā: thus, nāyikā (with nāyakā), pācikā, bodhikā; compare secondary aka, below, 1222.

d. Derivatives in āka are made from a few roots: thus, jalpāka, bhikṣāka; but very few occur in the older language: thus, pavāka (above, a), nabhāka, smayāka, jáhāka (?), -calāka, patākā. With āku is made in RV. mṛḍayāku, from the causative stem: pṛdāku and the proper name íkṣvāku are of obscure connection.

e. Derivatives in ika and īka will be treated below, in connection with those in ka (1186 c).

1182. तृ तृ (or तर् tar). The derivatives made by this suffix, as regards both their mode of formation and their uses, have been the subject of remark more than once above (see 369 ff., 942 ff.). Agent-nouns are freely formed with it at every period of the language; these in the oldest language are very frequently used participially, governing an object in the accusative (271 d); later they enter into combination with an auxiliary verb, and, assuming a future

meaning, make a periphrastic future tense (942). Their corresponding feminine is in *trī*.

a. The root has regularly the *guṇa*-strengthening. A union-vowel *i* (very rarely, one of another character) is often taken: as regards its presence or absence in the periphrastic future forms, see above (943 a).

b. Without *guṇa*-change is only *úṣṭṛ* *plough-ox* (no proper agent-noun: apparently *úḁṣ-ṭṛ*: compare the nouns of relationship further on). The root *grah* has, as usual, *ī* — thus, *grahītṛ*; and the same appears in *-tarītṛ*, *-pavītṛ*, *-marītṛ*, *-varītṛ*, *-savītṛ*. An *u*-vowel is taken instead by *táruṭṛ* and *taruṭṛ*, *dhánuṭṛ*, and *sánuṭṛ*; long in *varūtṛ*; strengthened to *o* in *manótṛ* and *manotṛ*. From a reduplicated root comes *vāvátṛ*.

c. The accent, in the older language, is sometimes on the suffix and sometimes on the root; or, from roots combined with prefixes, sometimes on the suffix and sometimes on the prefix.

d. In general, the accent on the root or prefix accompanies the participial use of the word; but there are exceptions to this: in a very few instances (four), a word with accented suffix has an accusative object; very much more often, accent on the root appears along with ordinary noun value. The accent, as well as the form, of *manótṛ* is an isolated irregularity. Examples are: *jétā dhánāni winning treasures*; *yūyám mártam ṛótāraḥ ye listen to a mortal*; but, on the other hand, *yaṁtá vásūni vidhaté bestowing good things on the pious*; and *jétā jánānām conqueror of peoples*.

e. The formation of these nouns in *ṭṛ* from conjugation-stems, regular and frequent in the later language, and not very rare in the *Brāhmaṇas*, is met with but once or twice in the *Veda* (*bodhayitṛ* and *codayitrī*, RV.). In *néṣṭṛ* a certain priest (RV. and later), is apparently seen the aoristic *s*.

f. The words of relationship which, in whatever way, have gained the aspect of derivatives in *ṭṛ*, are *pitṛ*, *mātṛ*, *bhrátṛ*, *yātṛ*, *duhitṛ*, *náptṛ*, *jāmātṛ*. Of these, only *mātṛ* and *yātṛ* are in accordance with the ordinary rules of the formation in *ṭṛ*.

g. Instead of *ṭṛ* is found *tur* in one or two RV. examples: *yaṁtúr*, *sthātúr*.

h. Apparently formed by a suffix *ṛ* (or *ar*) are *uśṛ*, *savyaṣṭhṛ*, *nánāndṛ*, *devṛ*, the last two being words of relationship. For other words ending in *ṛ*, see 369.

1183. *इन्* in. This is another suffix which has assumed a primary aspect and use, while yet evidently identical in real character with the frequent secondary suffix of the same form denoting possession (below, 1230).

a. How far it had gained a primary value in the early language is not easy to determine. Most of the words in in occurring in RV. and AV. are explainable as possessives; in many the other value is possible, and in a few it is distinctly suggested: thus, kevalādín, bhadravādín, nitodín, ācārāiṣín, ánāmin, vivyādhín; from a tense-stem, -aṇuvin, -paṇyin (late); with aoristic s, -saksín; and, with reduplication, niyayín, vadāvadin. As the examples indicate, composition, both with prefixes and with other elements, is frequent; and, in all cases alike, the accent is on the suffix.

b. Later, the primary employment is unquestionable, and examples of it, chiefly in composition, are frequent. The radical syllable is usually strengthened, a medial a being sometimes lengthened and sometimes remaining unchanged. Thus, satyavādin *truth-speaking*, abhibhāṣin *addressing*, manohārin *soul-winning*. In bhāvin has established itself a prevailingly future meaning, *about to be*.

c. The use of an accusative object with words in in was noticed above (271 b).

1184. ईयस् īyas and इष्ठ iṣṭha. These suffixes, which, from forming intensive adjectives corresponding to the adjective of root-form, have come to be used, within somewhat narrow limits, as suffixes of adjective comparison, have been already sufficiently treated above, under the head of comparison (466–470).

a. It may be further noticed that jyēṣṭha has in the older language (only two or three times in RV.) the accent also on the final, jyeṣṭhá, and that its correlative also is kaniṣṭhá in the oldest language; pārṣiṣṭha is made from a secondary form of root, with aoristic s added.

b. When the comparative suffix has the abbreviated form yas (470 a), its y is never to be read in the Veda as i.

c. No other suffixes make derivatives having participial value otherwise than in rare and sporadic cases; those that remain, therefore, will be taken up mainly in the order of their frequency and importance.

1185. त्र tra. With this suffix are formed a few adjectives, and a considerable number of nouns, mostly neuter, and often having a specialized meaning, as signifying the means or instrument of the action expressed by the root. The latter has usually the guṇa-strengthening, but sometimes remains unchanged. The accent is various, but more often on the radical syllable.

a. Here, as in certain other cases above, we have doubtless a suffix

originally secondary, made by adding a to the primary *ṭṛ* or *tar* (1182); but its use is in great part that of a primary suffix.

b. Examples of neuter nouns are: *gátra limb*, *pátra wing*, *pátra cup*, *yóktra bond*, *vátra garment*, *ṛótra ear*; *astrá missile*, *stotrá song of praise*, *potrá vesel*; of more general meaning, *dátra gift*, *kṣétra field*, *mútra urine*, *hotrá sacrifice*. The words accented on the final have often an abstract meaning: thus, *kṣatrá authority*, *rāṣṭrá kingdom*, *ṇāstrá doctrine*, *sattrá sacrificial session* (also *jñātra knowledge*).

c. Masculines are: *dāṣṭra tusk*, *mántra prayer*, *attrá* (or *atrá*: 232) *devourer*, *úṣṭra buffalo*, *camel*, and a few of questionable etymology, as *mitrá friend*, *putrá son*, *vṛtrá foe*. *Mitrá* and *vṛtrá* are sometimes neuters even in the Veda, and *mitra* comes later to be regularly of that gender.

d. Feminines (in *trā*) are: *áṣṭrā goad*, *mātrā measure*, *hótrā sacrifice* (beside *hotrá*), *daṣṭrā* (later, for *dāṣṭra*); *nāṣṭrā destroyer*.

e. Not seldom, a "union-vowel" appears before the suffix; but this is not usually the equivalent of the union-vowel used with *ṭṛ* (above, 1182 a). For the words in *itra* have the accent on *i*: thus, *aritra* (*áritra* AV., once) *impelling*, *oar*, *khanitra shovel*, *pavitra sieve*, *janitra birth-place*, *sanitra gift*; and so *-avitra*, *açitra*, *caritra*, *-taritra*, *dhamitra*, *dhavitra*, *bhavitra*, *bharitra*, *vāditra* (with causative root-strengthening), *vahitra*: the combination *itra* has almost won the character of an independent suffix. The preceding vowel is also in a few cases a (sometimes apparently of the present-stem): thus, *yājatra venerable*, *kṛntātra shred*, *gāyatrā* (f. *-trī*) *song*, *-damatra*, *pátatra wing*; but also *ámatra violent*, *vádhatra deadly weapon*; and *varatrā* f. *strap*. *Táruṭra overcoming* corresponds to *taruṭṛ*. *Nákṣatra asterism* is of very doubtful etymology. *Saṁskṛtatrá* (RV., once) seems of secondary formation.

f. The words still used as adjectives in *tra* are mostly such as have union-vowels before the suffix. A single example from a reduplicated root is *johútra crying out*.

g. A word or two in *tri* and *tru* may be added here, as perhaps of kindred formation with those in *tra*: thus, *átri devouring*, *arcátri beaming*, *rātri* or *rātrī night*; *çátru* (*çátru*: 232) *enemy*.

1186. क *ka*. The suffix क *ka* is of very common use in secondary derivation (below, 1222); whether it is directly added to roots is almost questionable: at any rate, extremely few primary derivatives are made with it.

a. The words which have most distinctly the aspect of being made from roots are *puṣka-*, *-meka* (*√mi fix*), *yaska* n. pr., *ṣuṣka dry*, *ḥlōka* (*√ḥru hear*) *noise, report*, etc., and *-sphāka teeming*; and *stúkā flake* and *stoká drop* seem to belong together to a root *stu*; *rākā* f., n. pr., may be added.

b. But *ka* enters, in its value as secondary, into the composition of certain suffixes reckoned as primary: see *aka* and *uka* (above, 1180, 1181).

c. A few words in which *ika* and *īka* seem added to a root, though they are really of a kindred formation with the preceding, may be most conveniently noticed here: thus, *vṛçcika* (√*vraçc*) *scorpion*; *ánika* (?) *face*, *dṛçika* *aspect*, *dṛbhika* n. pr., *mṛḍikā* *grace*, *vṛdhikā* *increaser*, *áçarika* and *vīçarika* *gripes*, *-rjika* *beaming*, *ṛṣika*; *ṛkṣíkā*; and, from reduplicated root, *parpharika* *scattering* (?). Compare secondary suffix *ka* (below, 1222).

1187. य *ya*. It is altogether probable that a part of the derivatives made with this suffix are not less entitled to be ranked as primary than some of those which are above so reckoned. Such, however, are with so much doubt and difficulty to be separated from the great mass of secondary derivatives made with the same suffix that it is preferred to treat them all together under the head of secondary formation (below, 1210–13).

1188. र *ra*. With this suffix are made a large number of adjectives, almost always with weak root-form, and usually with accent on the suffix. Also, a few words used as nouns, of various gender. In some cases, the suffix is found with a preceding vowel, having the aspect of a union-vowel.

a. Examples of adjectives in *ra* are: *kṣiprá* *quick*, *chidrá* *split*, *turá* *strong*, *bhadrá* *pleasing*, *çakrá* *mighty*, *çukrá* *bright*, *hiṁsrá* *injurious*; with accent on the root, only *gṛdhra* *greedy*, *túmra* *stout*, *dhíra* *wise* (secondary?), *vípra* *inspired*, *túgra* n. pr.

b. From roots with prefixes come only an example or two: thus, *nicirá* *attentive*, *nímṛgra* *joining on*.

c. Nouns in *ra* are: masc., *ájra* *field*, *vírá* *man*, *vájra* *thunderbolt*, *çúra* *hero*; neut., *ágra* *point*, *kṣírā* *milk*, *rándhra* *hollow*, *riprā* *defilement*; fem., *dhārā* *stream*, *çíprā* *jaw*, *súrā* *intoxicating drink*.

The forms of this suffix with preceding vowel may best be considered here, although some of them have nearly or quite gained the value of independent endings. Thus:

d. With *ara* are made a few rare words: the adjectives *dravará* *running*, *patará* *flying*, (with prefix) *nyocará* *suiting*; and the nouns *gambhára* *depth*, *tásara* and *trasara* *shuttle*, *sánara* *gain*, *-ṛkṣara* *thorn*; *bhārvará* and *vāsará* are doubtless of secondary formation; and the same thing may be plausibly conjectured of others. As made with *āra* may be mentioned *mandāra* a tree, *mārjāra* *cat*.

e. With *ira* are made a few words, some of which are in common use: thus, *ajirá* *quick*, *khadirá* a tree, *timira* *dark*, *dhvasirá* *stirring up*, *madirá* *pleasing*, *mudira* *cloud*, *badhirá* *deaf*, *rucira* *bright*, *iṣirá*

lively, ásira *missile*, sthávira *firm*; and sthira *hard*, and sphirá *fat*, with displacement of final radical ā; also sarirá *wave* (usually salilá). With ĩra are made gabhĭrá or gambhĭrá *profound* and çávĭra *mighty*, and perhaps çārĭra *body*.

f. With ura are made a few words, of some of which the secondary character is probable: thus, aṅhurá (aṅhu-ra?) *narrow*, ásurá (ásu-ra?) *living*, chidura *tearing*, bhaṅgurá *breaking*, bhāsura *shining*, bhidura *splitting*, medura *fat*, yādura *uniting*, vithura *tottering*, vidura *knowing*, vidhura *lacking*. With ūra, apparently, are made sthūrā *stout* (compare sthávira), kharjūra a tree, mayūra *peacock* (or imitative?).

1189. ल la. This suffix is only another form of the preceding, exchanging with it in certain words, in others prevalently or solely used from their first appearance.

a. Conspicuous examples of the interchange are çuklá, sthūlá, -miçla, çithilá, salilá.

b. Examples of the more independent use are: pālā *protecting*, ánĭla (or anĭla) *wind*, tṛpāla *joyous*; later capala and tarala (said to be accented on the final), and harṣula (the same). Many words ending in la are of obscure etymology.

1190. व va. Very few words of clear derivation are made with this suffix — too few to be worth classifying. They are of various meaning and accent, and generally show a weak root-form.

a. Thus: ṛkvá *praising*, ṛṣvá *lofty*, takvá *quick*, dhruvá *fixed*, pakvá *ripe*, padva *going*, yahvá *quick* (?), çarvá n. pr., hrasvá *short*, çikvá *artful*, raṇvá *joyful*, ūrdhvá *lofty*, vákva *twisting*, ūrvá *stall*; éva *quick*, *course*, áçva *horse*, srákvā or sṛkvā *corner*; and perhaps úlba *caul*; a feminine is prúṣvā (TS. pṛṣvā, AV. pruṣvā); with union-vowel are made saciva *companion*, ámĭva *disease*, and vidhāvā *widow*.

b. The words in va exhibit only in sporadic cases resolution of the ending into ua.

1191. रि ri. With this suffix are formed, directly or with preceding u, a small number of derivatives.

a. Thus: áṅghri or aṅhri *foot*, áçri *edge*, úsri *dawn*, tandri or -drĭ *weariness*, bhúri *abundant*, váṅkri *rib*, sūrí *patron*, -takri *quick*, vádhri *eunuch*, çubhrĭ *beautiful*, sthúri *single (team)*; and, with uri, jásurĭ *exhausted*, dāçuri *pious*, bhāguri n. pr., sáhuri *mighty*; aṅgúri (or aṅgúli) *finger*.

1192. रु ru. This suffix makes a few adjectives and neuter nouns, either directly or with a preceding vowel.

a. Thus: áçru '*tear*, cāru *dear*, dhāru *sucking*, bhīru *timid*; — with preceding a-vowel: arāru *inimical*, patāru *flying*, vandāru *praising*, pīyāru *scoffing*, çarāru *harming*; — with preceding e, tameru *relaxed*, maderu *rejoicing*, sanēru *obtaining*, himerū *chilly*, the evidently secondary mitrēru *ally*, and pēru (of doubtful meaning).

b. The secondary suffix lu (see 1227 b) is apparently added to certain nouns in ā from conjugation-stems, making derivatives that have a primary aspect: thus, patayālū *flying*, sprhayālu *desiring*.

1193. वि vi. By this suffix are made:

a. Two or three derivatives from reduplicated roots: jāgrvi *awake*, dādhrvi *sustaining*, dīdivi *shining*; and a very few other words; ghṛṣvi *lively*, dhruvī *firm*, jīrvī *worn out* (AV.; elsewhere jīvri); -pharvī is doubtful.

b. Here may be mentioned cikitvī (RV., once), apparently made with a suffix vit from a reduplicated root-form.

1194. स्नु snu. With this suffix, with or without a union-vowel, are made a few adjective derivatives from roots, but also from causative stems.

a. From simple roots: direct, kṣeṣṇú *perishable*, -glāsnu *sick*, jiṣṇú *victorious*, dañkṣṇú *biting*, bhūṣṇu *thriving*, ni-ṣatsnú *sitting down*, sthāsnu *fixed*; with union-vowel i, kariṣṇu, kāçiṣṇu, kṣayiṣṇu, gamiṣṇú, grasiṣṇu, grahiṣṇu, cariṣṇú, -janiṣṇu, jayiṣṇu, tapiṣṇu, -trapiṣṇu, -patiṣṇu, -bhaviṣṇu, bhrājiṣṇu, madīṣṇu, -maviṣṇu, yajiṣṇu, yāciṣṇu, -vadiṣṇu, vardhiṣṇu, -sahiṣṇu.

b. From secondary conjugation-stems: kopayiṣṇu, kṣapayiṣṇu, cyāvayiṣṇú, janayiṣṇu, tāpayiṣṇu, namayiṣṇu, patayiṣṇu, poṣayiṣṇú, pārayiṣṇú, bodhayiṣṇu, mādayiṣṇú, yamayiṣṇú, ropayiṣṇu, -vārayiṣṇu, -çocayiṣṇú; and jāgariṣṇu. An anomalous formation is ulbaniṣṇu.

c. These derivatives are freely compounded with prefixes: e. g. niṣatsnú, prajaniṣṇú, abhiçocayiṣṇú, samvārayiṣṇu.

d. It is not unlikely that the s of this suffix is originally that of a stem, to which nu was added. Such a character is still apparent in kraviṣṇú *craving raw flesh* (kravis); and also in vadhasnú, vṛdhasnú (?), and prathasnu (?).

1195. स्ना sna. Extremely few words have this ending.

a. It is seen in tīkṣṇá *sharp*, and perhaps in çlakṣṇá, -rūkṣṇá, mārtsna; and in geṣṇa and deṣṇá (usually trisyllabic: daīṣṇa) *gift*. Unless in the last, it is not found preceded by i; but it has (like snu, above) a before it in vadhasná *deadly weapon*, karásna *fore-arm*; nadīṣṇa *skilled* seems to be secondary. Feminines are mṛtsnā *loam*, jyotsnā *moonlight*.

1196. त्नु tnu. This suffix is used in nearly the same way with स्नु snu (above, 1194).

a. As used with simple roots, the t is generally capable of being considered the adscititious t after a short root-final, to which nu is then added: thus, kṛtnú *active*, gatnú (? RV.), hatnú *deadly*, -tatnu (?) *stretching*; and, from reduplicated roots, jigatnú *hasting*, and jighatnú *harming*; but also dartnú *bursting*. Also, with union-vowel, dravitnú *running*, dayitnu (? LÇS.).

b. With causative stems: for example, drāvayitnú *hasting*, poṣayitnú *nourishing*, mādayitnú *intoxicating*, tanayitnú and stanayitnú *thunder*, sūdayitnú *flowing*, -āmayitnú *sickening*.

c. With preceding a, in pīyatnú *scoffing*, mehatnú a river, ā-rujatnú *breaking into*; and kavatnú *miserly* (obscure derivation).

1197. स sa. The words ending in suffixal स sa, with or without preceding union-vowel, are a heterogeneous group, and in considerable part of obscure derivation. Thus:

a. With sa simply: gr̥tsa *clever*, jeśá *winning* (rather, aoristic s? 1148j), -dṛkṣa *looking*, rukṣá *shining*, rūkṣá *rough*; útsa n. *fountain*; bhīṣá f. *fear* (or from the secondary root bhīṣ).

b. With preceding i-vowel: taviṣá (f. táviṣī) *strong*, mahiṣá (f. máhiṣī) *mighty*, bhariṣá (?) *seeking booty*; ṛjīṣá *rushing*, pūrīṣa *rubbish*, manīṣá f. *devotion*; and compare rayīṣín (? SV.).

c. With preceding u-vowel: aruṣá (f. áruṣī) *red*, aṣúṣa *ravenous*, táruṣa *overcomer*, pūruṣa and mánuṣa (-us-a?) *man*; pīyúṣa *biestings*.

1198. असि asi. A few words in the oldest language are made with a suffix having this form (perhaps produced by the addition of i to as).

a. Thus, atasí *vagabond*, dharnasí *firm*, sānasí *winning*; and dhāsí m. *drink*, f. *station*, sarasí (?) *pool*.

1199. अभ abha. A few names of animals, for the most part of obscure derivation, show this ending.

a. Thus, vṛṣabhá and ṛṣabhá *bull*, ṣarabhá a certain fabulous animal, ṣerabha a certain snake, gardabhá and rásabha *ass*; further, kanabha, karabha and kalabha, laṭabha, ṣalabha; and, with other union-vowels, tuṇḍibha, nuṇḍibha, and kukkubha. The feminine, if occurring, is in ī; and kaṭabhī is found without corresponding masculine. AV. has the adjective sthūlabhá, equivalent to sthūlá.

1200. A few words ending in the consonants t, d, j, etc., and for the most part of doubtful root-connections, were given above, at 383k (3–5, 7); it is unnecessary to repeat them here. Certain of those in at are perhaps related to the participles in ant (1172).

1201. A number of other primary suffixes are either set up by

the grammarians and supported with examples of questionable value, or are doubtfully deducible from isolated words traceable to known roots, or from words of obscure connection.

a. A few such may be mentioned here: *aṇḍa* in *karaṇḍa* and *vāraṇḍa* and certain unquotable words (prakritized a-forms from the present participle); *era* and *ora* in unquotable words, and *elima* (above, 966 d: perhaps a further derivative with secondary *ima* from *era*); *mara* (ma or man with secondary *ra* added) in *ghasmara*, *sṃmará*, etc.; — *sara* in *matsará*, *kara* in *púškara* and other obscure words, *pa* in *púšpa*, *stupá*, *stúpa*, and a number of other obscure words; and so on.

B. Secondary Derivatives.

1202. Words of secondary derivation are made by the addition of further suffixes to stems already ending in evident suffixes.

a. But also, as pointed out above (1137 b), to pronominal roots.

b. Further, in exceptional cases, to indeclinables, to case-forms, and to phrases: e. g. *antarvant*, *apitvá*, *paratastva*, *sahatva*, *sārvatrika*, *āikadhya*, *mámaka*, *āmuṣmika*, *āmuṣyāyaṇá*, *apsumánt*, *apsavyà*, *kiṃcanya*, *kiṃkartavyatā*, *kvācitka*, *nāstika*, *akiṃcinmaya*.

1203. Changes of the stem. The stem to which the suffix is added is liable to certain changes of form.

a. Before a suffix beginning with a vowel or with *y* (which in this respect is treated as if it were *i*), final *a-* and *i-*vowels are regularly lost altogether, while a final *u-*vowel has the *guṇa*-strengthening and becomes *av*; *ṛ* and *o* and *āu* (all of rare occurrence) are treated in accordance with usual euphonic rule.

b. An *u-*vowel also sometimes remains unstrengthened: see 1208 e.

c. A final *n* is variously treated, being sometimes retained, and sometimes lost, even along with a preceding *a*; and sometimes an *a* is lost, while the *n* remains: thus, *vṛṣaṇvant*, *vṛṣaṇa*, *vṛṣa*, *vṛṣatva*, *vṛṣṇya*, from *vṛṣan*. Of a stem ending in *ant*, the weak form, in *at*, is regularly taken: thus, *vāivasvata* (*vivasvant*).

d. In general, the masculine form of a primitive stem is that from which a further secondary derivative is made. But there are not very rare cases in which the feminine is taken instead; examples are *satīva*, *bhāryātva*, *pranītātvá*, *bhāratīvant*, *rakṣāvant*, *priyāvant*. On the other hand, a final long vowel — *ī*, much more rarely *ā* — generally of a feminine stem, is sometimes shortened in derivation: thus, *yājyàvant*, *praçākhavant*, *goṣátama*, *vaçátamā*, *sadhanitvá*, *jaratikā*, *annā-*

dítamā (cf. 471 b), rohinitvá (TB.; -nītvá ÇB.), pṛhivítvá, pratipatnivat, sárasvativant.

e. As was pointed out above (111 c, d), the combination of a secondary suffix with a stem is sometimes made according to the rules of external combination. Such cases are pointed out under the suffixes īya (1215 e), ka (1222 m), maya (1225 a), min (1231 b), vin (1232 c), vant (1233 i), van (1234 c), mant (1235 f), tva (1239 c), taya (1245 a), tya (1245 c), tana (1245 i).

1204. The most frequent change in secondary derivation is the vṛddhi-strengthening of an initial syllable of the stem to which a suffix is added.

a. The strengthened syllable may be of any character: radical, of a prefix, or of the first member of a compound: thus, āçviná (açvín), sāumyá (sóma), pāṛthiva (pṛthivī), āmitrá (amitra), sāmṛājya (samrāj), sākṛtya (sukṛtá), maitrāvaruṇá (mitrávaruṇā), āuccāiḥçravasá (uccāiḥçravas). As to the accompanying accent, see the next paragraph.

b. If a stem begins with a consonant followed by y or v, the semivowel is sometimes vṛddhied, as if it were i or u, and the resulting āi or āu has y or v further added before the succeeding vowel.

c. This is most frequent where the y or v belongs to a prefix — as ni, vi, su — altered before a following initial vowel: thus, nāiyāyika from nyāya (as if niyāya), vāiyaçvá from vyāçva (as if viyaçva), sākṛtya from svāçva (as if suvaçva); but it occurs also in other cases, as sāvurá from svára, çāuva from çvan, against svāyambhuva (svayambhū), and so on. AV. has irregularly kāveraká from kúvera (as if from kvéra, without the euphonic y inserted).

d. This strengthening takes place especially, and very often, before the suffixes a and ya; also regularly before i, āyana, eya (with ineya), and later īya; before the compound aka and ika, and later aki; and, in single sporadic examples before, na, ena, ra, and tva (?): see these various suffixes below.

e. Sometimes an unstrengthened word is prefixed to one thus strengthened, as if the composition were made after instead of before the strengthening: e. g. indradāivatya *having Indra as divinity* (instead of āindradevatya), caramaçaīrṣika *with head to the west*, jīvalāukika *belonging to the world of the living*, antarbhāuma *within the earth*, somārāudra, gurulāghava (cf. tāmasaṁ guṇalakṣaṇam M. xii. 35). But especially when the first word is of numeral value: a s çatāçārada *of a hundred years*, pañçaçārādīya, trisāṁvatsara, bahuvārṣika, aṣṭavārṣika, anekavarṣasāhasra, daçaasāhasra, trisāhasrī, tripāuruṣa, caturādhyāyī or -yikā *of four chapters*, etc. etc.

f. More often, both members of a compound word have the initial strengthening: e. g. *sāumapāuṣṇā*, *kāūrupāñcāla*, *cāturvāidya*, *āihalāukika*, *āikabhāutika*, *trāiṣṭubjāgata*, *yājurvāidika*. Such cases are not rare.

g. The guṇa-strengthening (except of a final u-vowel: 1203 a) is only in the rarest cases an accompaniment of secondary derivation. Exceptions are *dvayá* and *trayá* and *náva* (1200 i), *bheṣajā* and *devá* (1209 j), *dróna* (1223 g), *ṣekhara* (1226 a).

1205. Accent. a. The derivatives with initial *vṛddhi*-strengthening always have their accent on either the first or the last syllable. And usually it is laid, as between these two situations, in such a way as to be furthest removed from the accent of the primitive; yet, not rarely, it is merely drawn down upon the suffix from the final of the latter; much less often, it remains upon an initial syllable without change. Only in the case of one or two suffixes is the distinction between initial and final accent connected with any difference in the meaning and use of the derivatives (see below, suffix *eya*: 1216).

b. No other general rules as to accent can be given. Usually the suffix takes the tone, or else this remains where it was in the primitive; quite rarely, it is thrown back to the initial syllable (as in derivation with initial *vṛddhi*); and in a single case (*tā*: 1237) it is drawn down to the syllable preceding the suffix.

1206. Meaning. a. The great mass of secondary suffixes are adjective-making: they form from nouns adjectives indicating appurtenance or relation, of the most indefinite and varied character. But, as a matter of course, this indefiniteness often undergoes specialization: so, particularly, into designation of procedure or descent, so that distinctive patronymic and metronymic and gentile words are the result; or, again, into the designation of possession. Moreover, while the masculines and feminines of such adjectives are employed as appellatives, the neuter is also widely used as an abstract, denoting the quality expressed attributively by the adjective; and neuter abstracts are with the same suffixes made from adjectives. There are also special suffixes (very few) by which abstracts are made directly, from adjective or noun.

b. A few suffixes make no change in the part of speech of the primitive, but either change its degree (diminution and comparison), or make other modifications, or leave its meaning not sensibly altered.

1207. The suffixes will be taken up below in the following order. First, the general adjective-making suffixes, beginning with those of most frequent use (*a*, *ya* and its connections, *i*, *ka*); then, those of specific possessive value (*in*, *vant* and *mant*, and their connections); then, the abstract-making ones (*tā* and *tva*, and their connections); then, the suffixes of comparison etc.; and finally, those by which derivatives are made only or almost only from particles.

a. For convenience of reference, a list of them in their order as treated is here added:

a	1206–9
ya	1210–13
iya	1214
īya	1215
eya, eyya	1216
enya	1217
āyya	1218
āyana	1219
āyī	1220
i, aki	1221
ka, aka, ika	1222
na, āna, īna, ina, ena	1223
ma, ima, mna	1224
maya	1225
ra, ira, etc.	1226
la, lu	1227
va, vala, vaya, vya	1226
ṣa	1229
in	1230
min	1231
vin	1232
vant	1233
van	1234
mant	1235
tā	1237
tāti, tāt	1238
tva, tvatā	1239
tvana	1240
tara, tama	1242
ra, ma	"
tha	"
titha	"
taya	1245
tya	"
ta	"
na	"
tana, tna	"
vat	"
kaṭa	"
vana, ā	"

1208. अ a. With this suffix are made an immensely large class of derivatives, from nouns or

from adjectives having a noun-value. Such derivatives are primarily and especially adjectives, denoting *having a relation or connection* (of the most various kind) *with* that denoted by the more primitive word. But they are also freely used substantively: the masculine and feminine as appellatives, the neuter, especially and frequently, as abstract. Often they have a patronymic or gentile value.

a. The regular and greatly prevailing formation is that which is accompanied with *vṛddhi*-strengthening of the first syllable of the primitive word, simple or compound. Examples of this formation are:

b. From primitives ending in consonants: with the usual shift of accent, *āyasá of metal* (*áyas*) , *mānasá relating to the mind* (*mánas*) , *sāumanasá friendliness* (*sumánas*) , *brāhmaṇá priest* (*bráhman*) , *hāimavatá from the Himalaya* (*himávant*) , *āṅgirasá of the Angiras family* (*āṅgiras*); *hāstina elephantine* (*hastín*), *māruta pertaining to the Maruts* (*marút*); — with accent thrown forward from the final upon the suffix, *çāradá autumnal*, *vāirājá relating to the viráj*, *pāuṣṇá belonging to Pūshán*; *gāirikṣitá son of Girikshít*; — with accent unchanged, *mānuṣa descendant of Mánus*.

c. The suffix is added (as above instanced) to the middle stem-form of stems in *vant*; it is added to the weakest in *māghona* and *vātraghna*; the ending in remains unchanged; an usually does the same, but some-

times loses its a, as in pāuṣṇá, trāivṛṣṇá, dāṣarājñá; and sometimes its n, as in brāhmá, āukṣá, bārhasāma.

d. From primitives in ṛ: jāitra *victorious* (jetṛ or jétṛ *conqueror*), tvāṣṭrá *relating to Tváshtar*, sāvitrá *descendant of the sun* (savitṛ), āúdbhetra, pāitra.

e. From primitives in u: usually with guṇa-strengthening of the u, as vāsavá *relating to the Vāsus*, ārtavá *concerning the seasons* (ṛtú), dānavá *child of Dānu* (dānu), sāindhavá *from the Indus* (síndhu); — but sometimes without, as mādḥva *full of sweets* (mádhu), pārçva *side* (párçu *rib*), pāidvá *belonging to Pedú*, tánva *of the body* (tanú), yádva *of Yádu*.

f. From primitives in i and ī, which vowels are supplanted by the added suffix: pāṛthiva *earthly* (pṛthiví), sārasvatá *of the Sārasvatī*, āindrāgná *belonging to Indra and Agni* (indrāgní); pāñkta *five-fold* (pañktí), nāirṛtá *belonging to Nirṛti*, pāṛthuraçmá *of Pṛthuraçmi*, pāçupatá *of Paçupatī*.

g. From primitives in ā, which in like manner disappears: yāmuná *of the Yamúnā*, sāraghá *honey* etc. (sarāghā *bee*), kāníná *natural child* (kanínā *girl*).

h. A large number (more than all the rest together) from primitives in a, of which the final is replaced by the suffix: for example, with the usual shift of accent, āmitrá *inimical* (amítṛa *enemy*), vāruṇá *of Vāruṇa*, vāiçvadevá *belonging to all the gods* (viçvádeva), nāirhastá *handlessness* (nírhasta), vāiçvadevá *descendant of Vyàçva*; gārdabha *asinine* (gardabhá), dāíva *divine* (devá), mādhyāmdina *meridional* (madhyámdina), pāútra *grandchild* (putrá *son*), sāúbhaga *good fortune* (subhága), vādhryaçva *of Vadhryaçvá's race*; with unchanged accent (comparatively few), vāsantá *vernal* (vasantá *spring*), māitrá *Mitrá's*, ātithigvá *of Atithigvá's race*, dāívodāsa *Dívodāsa's*. In a few instances, ya is replaced by the suffix: thus, sāura, pāuṣá, yājñavalka.

i. The derivatives of this last form are sometimes regarded as made by internal change, without added suffix. Considering, however, that other final vowels are supplanted by this suffix, that a disappears as stem-final also before various other suffixes of secondary derivation, and that no examples of derivation without suffix are quotable from primitives of any other final than a, it seems far too violent to assume here a deviation from the whole course of Indo-European word-making.

j. Adjectives of this formation make their feminines in ī (see 332 a).

1209. The derivatives made by adding ञ् a without vṛddhi-change of the initial syllable are not numerous, and are in considerable part, doubtless, of inorganic make, results of the transfer to an a-declension of words of other finals.

a. A number of examples of stems in a made by transfer were noticed above (399). The cases of such transition occur most frequently in composition (1315): thus, further, apa- (for ap or āp *water*), -ṛca, -nara, etc.; from stems in an, -aha, -vṛṣa, etc., but also -ahna and -vṛṣṇa and vṛṣaṇa; from stems in i, -aṅgula, -rātra, etc.; from the weakest forms of añc-stems (407) uccá, nīcá, parācá, etc.

b. Also occurring especially in composition, yet likewise as simple words often enough to have an independent aspect, are derivatives in a from nouns in as (rarely is, us): thus, for example, tamasá, rajasá, payasá, brahmavarcasá, sarvavedasá, devāinasá, paruśá, tryāyuśá, and probably mānuśa.

c. Similar derivatives from adjectives in in are reckoned by the grammarians as made with the suffix ina: thus, malina *polluted*, parameṣṭhína etc. (see 441 b).

d. A number of words formed with the so-called suffix anta are evident transfers from stems in ant. A few of them are found even from the earliest period: thus, pánta *draught*, ṣvāntá (?), vasantá *spring*, hemantá *winter*, veçantá etc. *tank*, jīvantī a certain healing plant; and others occur later, as jayanta, taranta, madhumanta, etc. They are said to be accented on the final.

e. From añc-stems (407) are made a few nouns ending in k-a: thus, ánūka, ápāka, upāka, prátīka, parāká, etc.

f. From stems in ṛ, hotrá, netrá, neṣṭrá, potrá, praçāstrá, etc., from titles of priests; also dhātrá, bhrātrá, etc.

g. Other scattering cases are: savidyutá, āvyuśá, vírudha, kákuda, kakubhá, açúṣa, bhūmyá, sakhyá, ádhipatya, jāspatyá, araṭvā, pāṇḍvā.

h. The Vedic gerundives in tva (tua), made by addition of a to abstract noun-stems in tu, have been already (966 a) fully given.

i. Trayá and dvayá come with guna-strengthening from numeral stems; náva *new* in like manner from nú *now*; and ántara apparently from antár.

j. Bheṣajá *medicine* is from bhiṣáj *healer*, with guṇa-change; and probably devá *heavenly, divine, god*, in like manner from div *sky, heaven* (there is no "root div *shine*" in the language).

1210. य ya. With this suffix are made a very large class of words, both in the old language and later.

a. The derivatives in ya exhibit a great and perplexing variety of form, connection, and application; and the relations of the suffix to others containing a ya-element — iya, īya, eya, āyya, eyya, enya — are also in part obscure and difficult. In the great majority of instances in the oldest language, the ya when it follows a consonant is dissyllabic in

metrical value, or is to be read as *ia*. Thus, in RV., 266 words (excluding compounds) have *ia*, and only 75 have *ya* always; 46 are to be read now with *ia* and now with *ya*, but many of these have *ya* only in isolated cases. As might be expected, the value *ia* is more frequent after a heavy syllable: thus, in RV., there are 188 examples of *ia* and 27 of *ya* after such a syllable, and 78 of *ia* and 96 of *ya* after a light syllable (the circumflexed *yà* — that is to say, *ía* — being, as is pointed out below, 1212 l, more liable to the resolution than *ya* or *yá*). It must be left for further researches to decide whether in the *ya* are not included more than one suffix, with different accent, and different quantity of the *i*-element; or with an *a* added to a final *i* of the primitive. It is also matter for question whether there is a primary as well as a secondary suffix *ya*; the suffix at least comes to be used as if primary, in the formation of gerundives and in that of action-nouns: but it is quite impossible to separate the derivatives into two such classes, and it has seemed preferable therefore to treat them all together here.

b. The derivatives made with *ya* may be first divided into those which do and those which do not show an accompanying *vṛddhi*-increment of the initial syllable.

c. Adjectives in *ya*, of both these divisions, make their feminines regularly in *yā*. But in a number of cases, a feminine in *ī* is made, either alone or beside one in *yā*: e. g. *cāturmāsī*, *āgniveçī*, *çāṇḍilī*, *ārī* (and *āryā*), *dāivī* (and *dāivyā*), *sāumī* (and *sāumyā*); *dhīrī*, *çirṣaṇī*, *svarī*, etc.

1211. Derivatives in *य* *ya* with initial *vṛddhi*-strengthening follow quite closely, in form and meaning, the analogy of those in *अ* *a* (above, 1208). They are, however, decidedly less common than the latter (in Veda, about three fifths as many).

a. Examples are : with the usual shift of accent, *dāivya* *divine* (*devá*), *pálitya* *grayness* (*palitá*), *grāivya* *cervical* (*grīvā*), *ártvijya* *priestly office* (*rtvíj*), *gárhapatya* *householder's* (*grhápati*), *jānarājya* *kingship* (*janarāj*), *sām̐grāmajitya* *victory in battle* (*saṁgrāmajít*), *sāuvaçvya* *wealth in houses* (*sváçva*), *āúpadraṣṭrya* *witness* (*upadraṣṭṛ*); *ādityá* *Aditya* (*áditi*), *sāumyá* *relating to sóma*, *ātithyá* *hospitality* (*átithi*), *prājāpatyá* *belonging to Prajāpati*, *vāimanasyá* *mindlessness* (*vímanas*), *sāhadevya* *descendant of Sahádeva*; — with accent thrown forward from the final upon the ending, *lāukyá* *of the world* (*loká*), *kāvyá* *of the Kaví-race*, *ārtvyá* *descendant of Ritú*, *vāyavyá* *belonging to the wind* (*vāyú*), *rāivatyá* *wealth* (*revánt*); with unchanged accent (very few), *ádhipatya* *lordship* (*ádhipati*), *çrāiṣṭhya* *excellence* (*çréṣṭha*), *vāiçya* *belonging to the third class* (*víç people*), *pāúrmsya* *manliness* (*púrms*).

b. The AV. has once *nāirbādhyà*, with circumflexed final; if not an error, it is doubtless made through *nāirbādha*; *vāiṣṇavyāú* (VS. i. 12) appears to be dual fem. of *vāiṣṇavī*.

1212. Derivatives in *य* *ya* without initial *vr̥ddhi*-strengthening are usually adjectives, much less often (neuter, or, in *या* *yā*, feminine) abstract nouns. They are made from every variety of primitive, and are very numerous (in Veda, three or four times as many as the preceding class).

a. The general mass of these words may be best divided according to their accent, into: 1. Words retaining the accent of the primitive; 2. Words with retracted accent; 3. Words with acute *yá* (*íá*); 4. Words with circumflexed *yà* (*íá*). Finally may be considered the words, gerundives and action-nouns, which have the aspect of primary derivatives.

1. b. Examples of derivatives in *ya* retaining the accent of their primitives are: *ác̐vya equine* (*ác̐va*), *āṅgya of the limbs* (*āṅga*), *múk̐hya foremost* (*múk̐ha mouth*), *ávya ovine* (*ávi*), *gávya bovine* (*gó*), *víc̐ya of the people* (*víc̐*), *dúrya of the door* (*dúr*), *nárya manly* (*nṛ*), *vṛ̐ṣ̐nya virile* (*vṛ̐ṣ̐an*), *svarāj̐ya autocracy* (*svarāj̐*), *suvṛ̐rya wealth in retainers* (*suvṛ̐ra*), *viçváj̐anya of all men*, *viçvādevya of all the gods* (*viçvādeva*), *mayúṛaṇepya peacock-tailed*.

c. In the last words, and in a few others, the *ya* appears to be used (like *ka*, 1222 h: cf. 1212 m) as a suffix simply helping to make a possessive compound: and so further *suhástya* (beside the equivalent *suhásta*), *mád̐huhastya*, *dācamā̐sya*, *miçrādhā̐nya*, *anyód̐arya*, *samānodarya*.

2. d. Examples with retraction of the accent to the first syllable (as in derivation with *vr̥ddhi*-increment) are: *kāṇṭ̐hya guttural* (*kāṇṭ̐há*), *skānd̐hya humeral* (*skand̐há*), *vrát̐ya of a ceremony* (*vrat̐á*), *még̐hya in the clouds* (*megh̐á*), *pít̐rya of the Fathers* (*pit̐ṛ*), *prát̐ijanya adverse* (*prat̐ijaná*). *Hiraṇyá̐ya of gold* (*híraṇya*), is anomalous both in drawing the accent forward and in retaining the final *a* of the primitive; and *gavyá̐ya* and *avyá̐ya* (also *ávyaya*) are to be compared with it as to formation.

3. e. Examples with acute accent on the suffix are: *divyá heavenly* (*dív*), *satyá true* (*sánt*), *vyāghryá tigrine* (*vyāghrá*), *kavyá wise* (*kaví*), *grāmyá of the village* (*grāma*), *somyá relating to the sóma*, *anenasýá sinlessness* (*anenas*), *adakṣiṇyá not fit for dáks̐iṇā*.

4. f. Of derivatives ending in circumflexed *yà* (which in the Veda are considerably more numerous than all the three preceding classes together), examples are as follows:

g. From consonant-stems: *viçyà of the clan* (RV.: *víc*), *hṛdyà of the heart* (*hṛd*), *vidyutyà of the lightning* (*vidyút*), *rājanyà of the royal class* (*rājan*), *doṣanyà of the arm* (*doṣán*), *çīrṣanyà of the head* (*çīrṣán*), *karmanyà active* (*kárman*), *dhanvanyà of the plain* (*dhánvan*), *namasyà reverend* (*námas*), *tvacasyà cuticular* (*tvácas*), *barhiṣyà of barhís*, *āyusyà giving life* (*āyus*), *bhasadyà of the buttocks* (*bhasád*), *prācyà eastern* (*prāñc*), etc. Of exceptional formation is *aryamyà intimate* (*aryamán*), with which doubtless belong *sātmya* (*sātman*) and *sākṣya* (*sākṣin*).

h. From u-stems: *hanavyà of the jaws* (*hānu*), *vāyavya belonging to Vāyú*, *paçavyà relating to rattle* (*paçú*), *iṣavyà relating to arrows* (*íṣu*), *madhavyà of the sweet* (*mádhu*), *apsavyà of the waters* (*apsú lo.*), *rajjavýà of rope* (*rájju*); *çaravyà f. arrow* (*çáru, do.*); and there may be added *nāvyà navigable* (especially in fem., *nāvyà navigable stream: nāú boat*). The RV. has *prāçavyà to be partaken of* (*pra+√aç*), without any corresponding noun *prāçu*; and also *ūrjavýà rich in nourishment* (*ūrj*), without any intermediate *ūrju*.

i. Under this head belong, as was pointed out above (964), the so-called gerundives in *tavyà*, as made by the addition of *yà* to the infinitive noun in *tu*. They are wholly wanting in the oldest language, and hardly found in later Vedic, although still later *tavya* wins the value of a primary suffix, and makes numerous verbal derivatives.

j. From i- and ī-stems hardly any examples are to be quoted. VS. has *dundubhyà* from *dundubhí*.

k. From a-stems: *svargyà heavenly* (*svargá*), *devatyà relating to a deity* (*devátā*), *prapathyà guiding* (*prapathá*), *budhnyà fundamental* (*budhná*), *jaghanyà hindmost* (*jaghána*), *varuṇyà Váruna's*, *vīryà might* (*vīrá*), *udaryà abdominal* (*udára*), *utsyà of the fountain* (*útsa*); and from ā-stems, *urvaryà of cultivated land* (*urvārā*), *svāhyà relating to the exclamation svāhā*.

l. The circumflexed *yà* is more generally resolved (into *ía*) than the other forms of the suffix: thus, in RV. it is never to be read as *ya* after a heavy syllable ending with a consonant; and even after a light one it becomes *ía* in more than three quarters of the examples.

m. There are a few cases in which *yà* appears to be used to help make a compound with governing preposition (next chapter, 1310: of. 1212 c): thus, *apikakṣyà about the arm-pit*, *upapakṣyà upon the sides*, *udāpyà up-stream*; and perhaps *upatṛṇyà lying in the grass* (occurs only in voc.). But, with other accent, *ánvāntrya through the entrails*, *úpamāsyā in each month*, *abhinabhyá up to the clouds*, *antaḥparçavyá between the ribs*, *ádhighartya on the chariot sent*; of unknown accent, *adhihastya*, *anupṛṣṭhya*, *anunāsikya*, *anuvaṅçya*.

1213. The derivatives in य ya as to which it may be

questioned whether they are not, at least in part, primary derivatives from the beginning, are especially the gerundives, together with action-nouns coincident with these in form; in the later language, the gerundive-formation (above, 963) comes to be practically a primary one.

a. In RV. occur about forty instances of gerundives in *ya*, of tolerably accordant form: the root usually unstrengthened (but *cétya*, *bhávya*, *-hávya*, *márjya*, *yódhya*; also *-mádyā*, *-vácya*, *bhāvyā*); the accent on the radical syllable when the word is simple, or compounded with prepositions: thus, *praçásya*, *upasádyā*, *vihávyā* (but usually on the final after the negative prefix: thus, *anāpyā*, *anapavṛjyā*) — exceptions are only *bhāvyā* and the doubtful *ākāyyā*; the *ya* resolved into *ia* in the very great majority of occurrences; a final short vowel followed by *t* (in *-ítya*, *-krtya*, *-çrútya*, *-stútya*, and the reduplicated *carkṛtya*, beside *carkṛti*: not in *návya* and *-hávya*), and *ā* changed to *e* (in *-deya* only). If regarded as secondary, they might be made with *ya*, in accordance with other formations by this suffix, in part from the root-noun, as *anukṛt-ya*, in part from derivatives in *a*, as *bhāvyā* (from *bhāva*).

b. The AV. has a somewhat smaller number (about twenty-five) of words of a like formation; but also a considerable group (fifteen) of derivatives in *yā* with the same value: thus, for example, *ādyā* *eatable*, *kāryā* *to be done*, *samāpyā* *to be obtained*, *atitāryā* *to be overpassed*, *nīvibhāryā* *to be carried in the apron*, *prathamavāsyā* *to be first worn*. These seem more markedly of secondary origin: and especially such forms as *parivargyā* *to be avoided*, *avimokyā* *not to be gotten rid of*, where the guttural reversion clearly indicates primitives in *ga* and *ka* (216 h).

c. Throughout the older language are of common occurrence neuter abstract nouns of the same make with the former of these classes. They are rarely found except in composition (in AV., only *cítya* and *stéya* as simple), and are often used in the dative, after the manner of a dative infinitive. Examples are: *brahmajyéya*, *vasudéya*, *bhāgadhéya*, *pūrvapéya*, *çataséya*, *abhibhúya*, *devahúya*, *mantraçrútya*, *karmakṛtya*, *vṛtratúrya*, *hotṛvúrya*, *ahihátya*, *sattrasádyā*, *çirṣabhídya*, *brahmacárya*, *nṛṣáhya*. Of exceptional form are *ṛtódya* (*√vad*) and *sahaçéyya* (*√çī*); of exceptional accent, *sadhástutya*. And AV. has one example, *raṇyā*, with circumflexed final.

d. Closely akin with these, in meaning and use, is a smaller class of feminines in *yā*: thus, *krtyā*, *vidyā*, *ityā*, *agnicityā*, *vājajityā*, *muṣṭihatyā*, *devayajyā*, etc.

e. There remain, of course, a considerable number of less classifiable words, both nouns and adjectives, of which a few from the older language may be mentioned, without discussion of their relations: thus, *súrya* (with

fem. sūryá), ájya, púśya, nábhya; yújya, gṛdhya, írya, aryá and árya, márya, mádhyā.

The suffixes apparently most nearly akin with *ya* may best be next taken up.

1214. इय *īya*. This suffix is virtually identical with the preceding, being but another written form of the same thing. It is used only after two consonants, where the direct addition of य *ya* would create a combination of difficult utterance. It has the same variety of accent with *ya*. Thus:

a. With accent íya (= ía or yà): for example, abhríya (also abhriyá) *from the clouds* (abhrá), kṣatríya *having authority* (kṣatrá), yajñíya *reverend* (yajñá), hotríya *libational* (hótrā), amitríya *inimical* (amítṛa).

b. With accent iyá (= ía or yà): for example, agriyá (also agríya) *foremost* (ágra), indriyá *Indra's* (later, *sense*: índra), kṣettriya *of the field* (kṣétra).

c. With accent on the primitive: ṛótriya *learned* (ṛótra), ṛtviya (also ṛtvíya) *in season* (ṛtú).

1215. ईय *īya*. This suffix also is apparently by origin a *ya* (īa) of which the first element has maintained its long quantity by the interposition of a euphonic *y*. It is accented always on the í.

a. In RV. occur, of general adjectives, only ārjikiya and grhamedhíya, and examples in the later Vedic are very few: e. g. parvatíya *mountainous* (AV., beside RV. parvatyà). In the Brāhmaṇas are found a number of adjectives, some of them from phrases (first words of verses and the like): thus, anyarāṣṭríya, pañcavāṭíya, mārjālíya, kayāṣubhíya, svāduṣkíliya, apohiṣṭhíya, etc.

b. It was pointed out above (965) that derivative adjectives in *īya* from action-nouns in *ana* begin in later Veda and in Brāhmaṇa to be used gerundivally, and are a recognized formation as gerundives in the classical language. But adjectives in *anīya* without gerundive character are also common.

c. Derivatives in *īya* with initial *vṛddhi* are sometimes made in the later language: e. g. pārvatíya, pāitāputrīya, āparapaksiya, vāirakíya.

d. The pronominal possessives madíya etc. (516 a) do not occur either in Veda or in Brāhmaṇa; but the ordinals dvitíya etc. (487 b, c: with fractional tṛtíya and túrīya: 488 a) are found from the earliest period.

e. The possessives bhagavadíya and bhavadíya, with the final of the primitive made sonant, have probably had their form determined by the pronominal possessives in -díya.

1216. एय eya. With this suffix, accompanied by vṛddhi-increment of an initial syllable, are made adjectives, often having a patronymic or metronymic value. Their neuter is sometimes used as abstract noun. The accent rests usually on the final in adjectives of descent, and on the first syllable in others.

a. Examples are: ārṣeyá *descendant of a sage* (ṛṣi), jānaçruteyá *son of Jānacruṭi*, sārameyá *of Sarámā's race*, çātavaneyá *Çatavani's descendant*, rāthajiteyá *son of Rathajít*; áśneya *of the blood* (asán), vásteya *of the bladder* (vastí), pāúruṣeya *coming from man* (púruṣa), pāitṛsvaseya *of a paternal aunt* (pitṛsvasṛ), etc.

b. A more than usual proportion of derivatives in eya come from primitives in i or ī; and probably the suffix first gained its form by addition of ya to a gunated i, though afterward used independently.

c. The gerundive etc. derivatives in ya (above, 1213) from ā-roots end in éya; and, besides such, RV. etc. have sabhéya from sabhā, and didṛkṣéya *worth seeing*, apparently from the desiderative noun didṛkṣā, after their analogy. M. has once adhyeya as gerund of √i.

d. Derivatives in the so-called suffix ineyá — as bhāgineyá, jyāiṣṭhineya, kāniṣṭhineya — are doubtless made upon proximate derivatives in -inī (fem.).

e. In eyya (i. e. eyia) end, besides the neuter abstract sahaçéyya (above, 1213 c), the adjective of gerundival meaning stuṣéyya (with aoristic s added to the root), and çapatheyya *curse-bringing* (or *accursed*), from çapátha.

1217. एन्य enya. This suffix is doubtless secondary in origin, made by the addition of य ya to derivatives in a na-suffix; but, like others of similar origin, it is applied in some measure independently, chiefly in the older language, where it has nearly the value of the later anīya (above, 1215 b), as making gerundival adjectives.

a. The y of this suffix is almost always to be read as vowel, and the accent is (except in váreṇya) on the e: thus -énia.

b. The gerundives have been all given above, under the different conjugations to which they attach themselves (966 b, 1019 b, 1038). The RV. has also two non-gerundival adjectives, vīréṇya *manly* (vīrá), and kīrténya *famous* (kīrtí), and TS. has anabhiçastenyá (abhiçasti); vijenyà (RV.) is a word of doubtful connections; çikṣeṇya *instructive* is found in a Sūtra; prāvṛṣeṇya *of the rainy season* occurs later.

1218. आय्य āyya. With this suffix are made gerundival adjectives, almost only in RV. They have been noticed above (966 c). The ending is everywhere to be read as āyia.

a. A few adjectives without gerundival value, and neuter abstracts, also occur: thus, bahupāyya *protecting many*, nṛpāyya *men-guarding*; kuṇḍapāyya, and purumāyya, proper names; pūrvapāyya *first drink*, mahayāyya *enjoyment*; — and rasāyya *nervous*, and uttamāyya *summit*, contain no verbal root. Alāyya is doubtful; also ākāyya, which its accent refers to a different formation, along with prahāyya (AV.: √hi) *messenger*, and pravāyya (AV.), of doubtful value.

1219. आयन āyana. In the Brāhmaṇas and later, patronymics made by this suffix are not rare. They come from stems in, अ a, and have vṛddhi-strengthening of the first syllable, and accent on the final.

a. In RV., the only example of this formation is kāṇvāyana (voc.: káṇva); AV. has in metrical parts dākṣāyaṇá and the fem. rāmāyaṇī; and āmuṣyāyaṇá *son of so-and-so* (516) in its prose; ÇB. has rājastambāyana beside -bāyaná. The RV. name ukṣaṇyāyana is of a different make, elsewhere unknown.

1220. आयी āyī. Only a very few words are made with this suffix, namely agnāyī (agní) *Agni's wife*, vṛṣākapāyī *wife of Vrishákapi*; and later pūtakrātayī, and manāyī *Manu's wife* (but manāví ÇB.).

a. They seem to be feminines of a derivative in a made with vṛddhi-increment of the final i of the primitive.

1221. इ i. Derivatives made with this suffix are patronymics from nouns in a. The accent rests on the initial syllable, which has the vṛddhi-strengthening.

a. In RV. are found half-a-dozen patronymics in i: for example, ágniveçi, pāúrukutsi, prátardani, sāmvaraṇi; AV. has but one, práhrādi; in the Brāhmaṇas they are more common: thus, in AB., sāuyavasi, jānaṃtapi, āruṇi, jānaki, etc. A single word of other value — sārathi *charioteer* (sarátham) — is found from RV. down.

b. The words made with the so-called suffix aki — as vāiyāsaki *descendant of Vyāsa* — are doubtless properly derivatives in i from others in ka or aka. That the secondary suffix ika is probably made by addition of ka to a derivative in i is pointed out below (1222 j).

c. RV. has tápuṣi, apparently from tápus with a secondary i added, and the n. pr. çucantí; bhuvantí is found in B., and jīvanti later.

1222. क ka. This is doubtless originally one of the class of suffixes forming adjectives of appurtenance. And

that value it still has in actual use; yet only in a small minority of occurrences. It has been, on the one hand, specialized into an element forming diminutives; and, on the other hand, and much more widely, attenuated into an element without definable value, added to a great many nouns and adjectives to make others of the same meaning — this last is, even in the Veda, and still more in the later language, its chief office.

a. Hence, *ka* easily associates itself with the finals of derivatives to which it is attached, and comes to seem along with them an integral suffix, and is further used as such. Of this origin are doubtless, as was seen above (1180, 1181), the so-called primary suffixes *uka* and *aka*; and likewise the secondary suffix *ika* (below; *j*).

b. The accent of derivatives in *ka* varies — apparently without rule, save that the words most plainly of diminutive character have the tone usually on the suffix.

c. Examples (from the older language) of words in which the suffix has an adjective-making value are: *ántaka* (*ánta*) *end-making*, *bálhika* (*bálhi*) *of Balkh*, *āṇḍíka* (*āṇḍá*) *egg-bearing*, *sūcíka* (*sūcí*) *stinging*, *urvāruká* *fruit of the gourd* (*urvāru*), *paryāyiká* (*paryāyá*) *strophic*; from numerals, *ekaká*, *dvaká*, *triká*, *áṣṭaka*; *tṛtīyaka* *of the third day*; from pronoun-stems, *asmáka* *ours*, *yušmáka* *yours*, *mámaka* *mine* (516 d); from prepositions, *ántika* *near*, *ánuka* *following*, *ávakā* a plant (later *adhika*, *utka*); and, with accent retracted to the initial syllable (besides *áṣṭaka* and *tṛtīyaka*, already given), *rúpaka* (*rúpá*) *with form*, *bábhruka* (*babhrú*) *brown* a certain lizard. *Bhāvatka* *your worship's* has an anomalous initial *vṛddhi*.

d. Of words in which a diminutive meaning is more or less probable: *açvaká* *nag*, *kanínaka* and *kumāraká* *boy*, *kanīnaká* or *kanínikā* *girl*, *pādaká* *little foot*, *putraká* *little son*, *rājaká* *princeling*, *çakuntaká* *birdling*. Sometimes a contemptuous meaning is conveyed by such a diminutive: for formations with this value from pronominal stems, see above, 521; other examples are *anyaká* (RV.), *álakam* (RV.: from *álam*), and even the verb-form *yāmaki* (for *yāmi*: KB.).

e. The derivatives in *ka* with unchanged meaning are made from primitives of every variety of form, simple and compound, and have the same variety of accent as the adjective derivatives (with which they are at bottom identical). Thus:

f. From simple nouns and adjectives: *ástaka* *home*, *násikā* *nostril*, *mákṣikā* *fly*, *aviká* *ewe*, *iṣuká* *arrow*, *dūraká* *distant*, *sarvaká* *all*, *dhénukā* (*dhenú*) *cow*, *nágnaka* (*nagná*) *naked*, *báddhaka* (*baddhá*) *captive*, *abhinnataraka* *by no means different*, *anastamitaké* before sun-

set, vamraká *ant*, arbhaká *small*, çocuká *young*, añiyaska *finer*, ejatká *trembling*, abhimādyatká *intoxicated*, patayiṣṇuká *flying*. Such derivatives in the later language are innumerable; from almost any given noun or adjective may be made an equivalent, ending in ka or kā (according to the gender).

g. From compound primitives: svalpaká *very small*, vímanyuka *removing wrath*, vikṣiṇatká *destroying*, pravartamānaká *moving forward*, viksīṇaká *destroyed*.

h. In the Brāhmaṇas and later, ka is often added to a possessive adjective compound (1307), sometimes redundantly, but usually in order to obtain a more manageable stem for inflection: thus, anakṣíka *eyeless*, atvakká *skinless*, aretáska *without seed*, vyasthaka *boneless*, saçiraska *along with the head*, ekagāyatrīka *containing a single gāyatrī-verse*, gṛhītāvasatīvarīka *one who has taken yesterday's water*, sapatnīka *with his spouse*, bahuhastīka *having many elephants*, sadīkṣopasátka *with dīkṣā and upasad*, āhitasamitka *with his fuel laid on*, abhinavavayaska *of youthful age*, añguṣṭhamātraka *of thumb size*.

i. The vowel by which the ka is preceded has often an irregular character; and especially, a feminine in ikā is so common beside a masculine in aka as to be its regular correspondent (as is the case with the so-called primary aka: above, 1181). In RV. are found beside one another only iyattaká and iyattiká; but AV. has several examples.

j. Two suffixes made up of ka and a preceding vowel — namely, aka and ika — are given by the grammarians as independent secondary suffixes, requiring initial vṛddhi-strengthening of the primitive. Both of them are doubtless originally made by addition of ka to a final i or a, though coming to be used independently.

k. Of vṛddhi-derivatives in aka no examples have been noted from the older language (unless māmaká *mine* is to be so regarded); and they are not common in the later: thus, āvaçyaka *necessary*, vārdhaka *old age*, rāmañiyaka *delightfulness*.

l. Of vṛddhi-derivatives in ika, the Veda furnishes a very few cases: vāsantika *vernal*, vārṣika *of the rainy season*, hāimantika *wintry* (none of them in RV.); AV. has kairātiká *of the Kirātas*, apparent fem. to a masc. kairātaka, which is not found till later. Examples from a more recent period (when they become abundant) are: vāidika *relating to the Vedas*, dhārmika *religious*, āhnika *daily*, vāinayika *well-behaved*, dāuvārika *doorkeeper*, nāiyāyika *versed in the Nyāya*.

m. Before the suffix ka, some finals show a form which is characteristic of external rather than internal combination. A final sonant mute, of course, becomes surd, and an aspirate loses its aspiration (117 a, 114): cf. -upasatka, -samitka, above, h. So also a palatal becomes guttural (as before t etc.: 217): e. g. -srukka, -rukka, -tvakka, anṛkka. A s remains after ā̃, and becomes ṣ after an alterant vowel (180): e. g. sadyaska, jyotiṣka, dirghāyuṣka. But the other sibilants take the form

they would have in composition: thus, adíkka (diç), şatka, -viṭka, -tviṭka (şaş etc.). Anāçirka (TS.: āçis) is anomalous; and so is parutka (Āpast.), if it comes from parus.

1223. Several suffixes, partly of rare occurrence and questionable character, contain a ऋ n as consonantal element, and may be grouped together here.

a. A few derivatives in āna in RV. were given above (1175 a).

b. With ānī (which is perhaps the corresponding feminine) are made a small number of words, chiefly wife-names: thus, indrāñī, varuṇāñī (these, with uçínārāñī, purukútsānī, mudgálanī, ūrjāñī, are found in RV.), rudrāñī, mātulāñī *maternal uncle's wife*, çarvāñī, bhavāñī, içānāñī, çakrāñī, upādhyāyāñī, mṛḍāñī, brahmāñī; and yavāñī.

c. The feminines in nī and knī from masculine stems in ta have been already noticed above (1176 d). From páti *master, husband* the feminine is pátnī, both as independent word, *spouse*, and as final of an adjective compound: thus, devápatnī *having a god for husband*, síndhupatnī *having the Indus as master*. And the feminine of paruśá *rough* is in the older language sometimes páruṣñī.

d. With īna are made a full series of adjective derivatives from the words with final āñc (407 ff.); they are accented usually upon the penult, but sometimes on the final; and the same word has sometimes both accents: for example, apācína, nīcína, prācína, arvācína and arvācíná, pratícína and pratícíná, samícíná. Besides these, a number of other adjectives, earlier and later: examples are saṁvatsarína *yearly*, prāvṛṣṭína *of the rainy season*, viçvajañína *of all people*, jñātakulína *of known family*, adhvanína *traveller (ádhvan way)*, āçvína *day's journey on horseback (áçva horse)*. RV. has once mākína *mine*.

e. With ena is made sāmīdhená (f. -ní), from samídh, with initial strengthening.

f. As to a few words in ina, compare 1209 c.

g. The adjectives made with simple na fall partly under another head (below, 1245 f); here may be noted çúraṇa *heroic* (?), phálguna, çmaçruṇá, dadruṇa, and, with vṛddhi-strengthening, strāíṇa *woman's* (its correlative, pāuṁsna, occurs late) and cyāutná *inciting*. If dróṇa comes from dru *wood*, it has the anomaly of a guṇa-strengthening.

1224. Certain suffixes containing a ऋ m may be similarly grouped.

a. With ima are made a small number of adjectives from nouns in tra: thus, khanítrima *made by digging*, kṛtríma *artificial*, dattrima, paktrima, pūtríma; in other finals, kuṭṭima, gaṇima, talima, tulima, pākima, udgārima, vyāyogima, saṁvyūhima, nirvedhima, āsaṅgima, all late. In agrima (RV.) *foremost* the ma has perhaps the ordinal value.

b. The uses of simple ma in forming superlatives (474) and ordinals (487 d, e) have been already noticed, and the words thus made specified.

c. A few neuter abstracts end in mna: thus, dyumná *brightness*, nṛmṇá *manliness*; and, from particles, nimná *depth* and sumná *welfare*. The suffix comes perhaps from man with an added a.

d. For the words showing a final min, see below, 1231.

1225. मय maya. With this suffix are formed adjectives signifying *made* or *composed* or *consisting of*, also *abounding in*, that which is denoted by the primitive.

a. The accent is always on the má, and the feminine is regularly and usually in máyī. In the oldest language (V.), final as remains unchanged before the suffix: thus, manasmáya, nabhasmáya, ayasmáya; but d is treated as in external combination: thus, mṛnsmáya; and in the Brāhmaṇas and later, finals in general have the latter treatment: e. g. tejomáya, adomáya, āpomáya, jyotirmaya, yajurmáya, etanmáya, asṛṇmáya, vāṇmáya, ammaya, prāvṛṇmaya. RV. has açmanmáya (later açmamaya). In hiraṇmáya (B. and later) the primitive (hiraṇya) is peculiarly mutilated. RV. has sūmáya *of good make*, and kimmáya *made of what?*

b. A very few examples of a feminine in yā occur in the later language.

1226. र ra. A few derivative adjectives are made with this suffix. Accent and treatment of the primitive are various.

a. With simple addition of ra are made, for example: pāṇsurá *dusty*, -çrīra (also -çlīla) in açrīrá *ugly*, dhūmrá *dusky* (dhūmá *smoke*), madhura (late) *sweet*. In an example or two, there appears to be accompanying initial strengthening: thus, āgnīdhra *of the fire-kindler* (agnīdh), çāṇkura *stake-like* (çaṇkú); and in çekhara (also çikhara), a guṇa-strengthening.

b. With an inorganic vowel before the ending are made, for example, médhira *wise*, rathirá *in a chariot*; karmāra *smith*; dantura (late) *tusked*; acchéra (? MS.), çrāmaṇera, saṁgamanera.

c. The use of ra in forming a few words of comparative meaning was noticed above (474), and the words so made were given.

1227. ल la. This and the preceding suffix are really but two forms of the same. In some words they exchange with one another, and ल la is usually, but not always, the later form in use.

a. Examples are: bahulá *abundant*, madhulá (later madhura) and madhūla *sweet*, bhīmala *fearful*, jīvalá *lively*, açlīlá (and açrīrá) *wretched*; with ā, vācāla *talkative* (late); with i, phenila *foamy* (late):

phéna); with u, vātula and vātūla *windy* (late: vāta); and mātula *maternal uncle* is a somewhat irregular formation from mātṛ *mother*.

b. In the later language are found a few adjectives in lu, always preceded by ā; examples are: kṛpālu and dayālu *compassionate*, īrṣyālu *jealous*, uṣṇālu *heated*, ṣayālu and svapnālu *sleepy*, lajjālu *modest*, lālālu *drooling*, ṣraddhālu *trusting*, krodhālu *passionate*. One or two such derivatives having a primary aspect were noticed at 1192 b.

1228. ऋ va. A small number of adjectives have this ending (accented, added to an unaltered primitive).

a. Examples are: arṇavā *billowy*, keṣavā *hairy*; rāsnāvā *girded*; añjivā *slippery*, ṣantivā *tranquillizing*, ṣraddhivā *credible*, amaṇiva *jewelless*, rājīva *striped*.

b. There are a very few adjectives in vala and vaya which may be noticed here: thus, kṛṣīvalā *peasant* (kṛṣi *ploughing*), ūrṇāvalā *wooly*, rajasvala, ūrjasvala, payasvala, ṣādvāla, naḍvala, ṣikhāvala, dantāvala; druvāya *wooden dish*, caturvaya *fourfold*.

c. With vya are made two or three words from names of relationship: thus, pītrvya *paternal uncle*, bhrātṛvya *nephew, enemy*.

1229. ऋ ṣa. A very few adjectives appear to be made by an added ending of this form.

a. Thus, romaṣā or lomaṣā *hairy*, étaṣa (also etaṣā) *variegated*, arvaṣā or ārvaṣa *hasting*, babhluṣā or babhruṣā and kapiṣa *brownish*, kṛṣṇaṣa *blackish*, yuvaṣā *youthful*, bāliṣa *childish*, karkaṣa *harsh*, karmaṣa (?) n. pr.; and giriṣa, vāriṣa (?), vṛkṣaṣa are doubtless of the same character (not containing the root ṣi). The character of harīmaṣā, kácmaṣa, kalāṣa is doubtful.

b. Many of the adjective derivatives already treated have sometimes a possessive value, the general meaning of *being concerned with, having relation to* being specialized into that of *being in possession of*. But there are also a few distinctively possessive suffixes; and some of these, on account of the unlimited freedom of using them and the frequency of their occurrence, are very conspicuous parts of the general system of derivation. These will be next considered.

1230. इन् in. Possessive adjectives of this ending may be formed almost unlimitedly from stems in अ a or आ ā, and are sometimes (but very rarely) made from stems with other finals.

a. A final vowel disappears before the suffix. The accent is on the suffix. As to the inflection of these adjectives, see above, 438 ff. They are to be counted by hundreds in the older language, and are equally or more numerous in the later.

b. Examples from a-stems are: *açvín possessing horses*, *dhanín wealthy*, *pakṣín winged*, *balín strong*, *bhagín fortunate*, *vajrín wielding the thunderbolt*, *çikhaṇḍín crested*, *hastín possessing hands*, *ṣoḍaçín of sixteen*, *gardabhanādín having an ass's voice*, *brahmavarcasín of eminent sanctity*, *sādhudevín having luck at play*, *kūcidarthín having errands everywhere*; — from ā-stems, *mañṣín wise*, *çikhín crested*, *ṛtāyín pious*.

c. Derivatives from other stems are very few in comparison: thus, from i-stems, *atithin* (?), *abhimātín*, *arcín*, *açanin*, *ūrmin*, *kālanemin*, *khādín*, *-pāṇin*, *marīcin*, *mauñjin*, *māulin*, *-yonin*, *venin*, *saṁdhin*, *saṁddhin*, *surabhin* (of those found only at the end of a possessive compound the character is doubtful, since case-forms of i- and in-stems are not seldom exchanged); from u-stems, *gurvin*, *çatagvín* (?), *veṇavin* (with guna of the u); — from stems in an, *varmín*, *karmin*, *carmin*, *-chadmin*, *janmin*, *dhanvin*, *-dharmin*, *nāmin*, *brahmin*, *yakṣmin*, *çarmin*, and *çvanin*; — in as, *retín rich in seed*, and probably *varcin* n. pr.; also (perhaps through stems in -sa) *çavasín* and *sahasin*, *manasín*, *-vayasín*; — isolated are *parisrajín garlanded*, and *hiranín* (*hiránya*).

d. It was pointed out above (1183) that derivatives in in have assumed on a large scale the aspect and value of primary derivatives, with the significance of present participles, especially at the end of compounds. The properly secondary character of the whole formation is shown, on the one hand, by the frequent use in the same manner of words bearing an unmistakably secondary form, as *praçnín*, *garbhín*, *jūrṇín*, *dhūmín*, *snānin*, *homin*, *matsarín*, *paripanthín*, *pravepanín*, *saṅgatin*; and, on the other hand, by the occurrence of reverted palatals (216) before the in, which could only be as in replaced a: thus, *arkín*, *-bhaṅgín*, *-saṅgín*, *-rokín*.

e. In a few cases, there appears before the in a y preceded by an ā of inorganic character: thus, *dhanvāyín*, *tantrāyín*, *çvetāyín*, *ṣṛkāyín*, *ātatāyín*, *pratihatāyín*, *marāyín*, *ṛtāyín*, *svadhāyín* (VS.: TB. -vín). The y in all such words is evidently the inserted y after ā (258 a), and to assume for them a suffix yin is quite needless.

f. The accentuation *pravrájin*, *prasyándin*, in the concluding part of ÇB., is doubtless false; and the same is to be suspected for *çákī*, *sārī*, *írī* (RV., each once).

g. A very few words in in have not suffered the possessive specialization. Such are *vanín tree*, *hermit*, *kapotín dovelike*, *aṇḍín scrotum-like* (cf. 1233 f).

1231. **मिन्** min. With this suffix are made an extremely small number of possessive adjectives.

a. In the old language, the words in min have the aspect of derivatives in in from nouns in ma, although in two or three cases — *iṣmín*

and ṛgmín in RV., vāgmín in ÇB. — no such nouns are found in actual use beside them. In the later language, min is used as independent element in a very few words: thus, gomin *possessing cattle*, svāmin (Sūtras and later) *master, lord* (sva *own*), kakudmin *humped*.

b. The two words ṛgmín and vāgmín show not only reversion but also sonantizing of an original palatal.

1232. विन् vin. The adjectives made with this suffix are also not numerous. They have the same meanings with those in इन् in. The accent is on the suffix.

a. The RV. has ten adjectives in vin; they become rather more common later. Though for them may be suspected a similar origin to those in yin and min (above), signs of it are much less clearly traceable.

b. The great majority have vin added after as: e. g. namasvín *reverential*, tapasvín *heated*, tejasvín *brilliant*, yaçasvín *beautiful*, and so retasvín, enasvín, harasvín, etc.; and çatasvín, çrotrasvín, rūpasvin have an inserted s, by analogy with them. Most others have ā (sometimes, by lengthening): thus, glāvín, medhāvín, māyāvín, sabhāvín, aṣṭrāvín *obedient to the goad*, dvayāvín *double-minded*, ubhayāvín *possessing of both kinds*, dhanvāvin, tandrāvin, āmayāvín, ātatāvín. More rarely, vin is added after another consonant than s: thus, vāgvín, dhṛṣadvín, ātmanvín, kumudvin, sragvin, yajvin, ajvin. The doubtful word vyaçnuvín (VS., once: TB. vyāçniya) appears to add the ending (or in, with euphonic v) to a present tense-stem.

c. An external form of combination is seen only in vāgvín and dhṛṣadvín (both Vedic), with the common reversion of a palatal in sragvin.

1233. वन् vant. Very numerous possessive adjectives are made by this suffix, from noun-stems of every form, both in the earlier language and in the later.

a. The accent generally remains upon the primitive, without change; but an accent resting on a stem-final, if this be anything but á or á̃, is in the majority of cases thrown forward upon the suffix. As to inflection, formation of feminine, etc., see 452 ff.

b. A final vowel — oftenest a, very rarely u — is in many words lengthened in the older language (247) before this ending, as in composition. Nouns in an more often retain the n.

c. Examples of the normal formation are: with unchanged accent, kéçavant *hairy*, putrávant *having a son*, prajānavant *procreative*, puṇḍárikavant *rich in lotuses*, híraṇyavant *rich in gold*, apūpávant *having cakes*, rājanyàvant *allied with a kshatriya*; prajāvant *having progeny*, ūrṇāvant *wooly*, dákṣiṇāvant *rich in sacrificial gifts*; sákhivant *having friends*, saptarṣívant *accompanied by the seven sages*; çácīvant *powerful*, táviṣīvant *vehement*, pátnīvant *with spouse*, dhīvant *devoted*,

dyāvāpṛthivívant (94 b) *with heaven and earth*; víṣṇuvant *accompanied by Vishnu*; háritvant *golden*, āvítvant *hither turned*, āçírvant *mixed with milk*, svàrvant *splendid*, çarádvant *full of years*, púmśvant *having a male*, páyasvant *rich*, támasvant *dark*, bráhmaṇvant *accompanied with worship*, rómaṇvant *hairy* (but also romaavant, lómavant, vṛtrahavant, etc.), kakúbhvant *containing a kakúbh*; — with accent on the suffix, agnivánt *having fire*, rayivánt *wealthy*, nṛvánt *manly*, padvánt *having feet*, nasvánt *with nose*, āsanvánt *having a mouth*, çīrṣaṇvánt *headed* (also çīrṣavant).

d. With final stem-vowel lengthened: for example, áçvāvant (beside áçvavant) *possessing horses*, sutāvant *having soma expressed*, víṣṇyāvant *of virile force* (about thirty such cases occur in V.); çáktīvant *mighty*, svádhitīvant *having axes*, ghṛīṇīvant *hot*; viṣūvánt *dividing* (viṣu apart).

e. Certain special irregularities are as follows: an inserted s in índrasvant, máhiṣvant; inserted n in vānanvant, búdhanvant, vádhanvant, gartanvánt, māṇsanvánt; shortening of a final of the primitive in māyāvant, yājyāvant, puronuvākyāvant, āmíkṣavant, sarasvativant; abbreviation in hiraṇvant; inserted ā in çavasāvant, sahasāvant, and the odd mahimāvant; anomalous accent in kṛçanāvant (if from kṛçana *pearl*); derivation from particles in antārvant *pregnant*, viṣūvánt (above, d).

f. Instead of the specialized meaning of *possessing*, the more general one of *like to, resembling* is seen in a number of words, especially in the derivatives from pronominal stems, mávant *like me* etc. (517: add ívant, kívant). Other examples are índrasvant *like Indra*, nīḍāvant *nestlike*, nīlavant *blackish*, nṛvánt *manly*, pṛṣadvant *speckled*, kṣāitavant *princely*; compare the later paravant *dependent*. It was pointed out above (1107) that the adverb of comparison in vāt is the accusative neuter of a derivative of this class.

g. In a few words, vant has the aspect of forming primary derivatives: thus, vivásvant (or vívasvant) *shining*, also n. pr., ánupadasvant, árvant, pípiṣvant (?), yahvánt.

h. For the derivatives in vat from prepositions, which appear to have nothing to do with this suffix, see 1245 j.

i. While this suffix is generally added to a primitive according to the rules of internal combination (see examples above, c), treatment also as in external combination begins already in RV., in pṛṣadvant (pṛṣat), and becomes more common later: thus, tapovant, tejovant, aṅgirovant (beside tápasvant etc.); vidyúdvant (beside vidyutvant), bṛhadvant, jagadvant, sadvant, etc.; triṣṭubvant (against kakúbhvant), samidvant, vimṛdvant; vāgvant (against ṛkvant); svarāḍvant; havyavāḍvant; āçīrvant.

j. None of the suffixes beginning with v show in the Veda resolution of v to u.

1234. वन् van. The secondary derivatives in this suffix belong to the older language, and are a small number, of which extremely few have more than an occurrence or two.

a. They have the aspect of being produced under the joint influence of primary van and secondary vant. A final short vowel is usually lengthened before the suffix. The accent is various, but oftenest on the penult of the stem. The feminine (like that of the derivatives in primary van: 1169 f) is in varī.

b. The Vedic examples are: from a-stems, ṛṇāvān or ṛṇavān, ṛtāvan (and f. -varī), ṛghāvan, dhītāvan, satyāvan, sumnāvarī, and maghāvan; from ā-stems, sūnṛtāvarī, svadhāvan (and f. -varī); from i-stems, amatīvān, arātīvān, ṛuṣṭīvān, muṣīvān, and kṛṣīvan (only in the further derivative kārṣīvaṇa); dhīvan; from consonant-stems, átharvan, samādvan, sáhovan (bad AV. variant to RV. sahāvan); hārdvan (TA. also hārdivan). Somewhat anomalous are sahāvan, índhanvan (for índhanavan?), and sanítvan (for sánitivan?). The only words of more than sporadic occurrence are ṛtāvan, maghāvan, átharvan.

c. Sáhovan (see b) is the only example of external combination with this suffix.

1235. मन् mant. This is a twin-suffix to वन् vant (above, 1233); their derivatives have the same value, and are to some extent exchangeable with one another. But possessives in मन् mant are much less frequent (in the older language, about a third as many), and are only very rarely made from a-stems.

a. If the accent of the primitive word is on the final, it is in the great majority of instances (three quarters) thrown forward upon the added suffix; otherwise, it maintains its place unchanged. A final vowel before the suffix is in only a few cases made long. Examples are:

b. With the accent of the primitive unchanged: káṇvamant, yávamant *rich in barley*, and vibhavamant n. pr. (these alone from a-stems, and the first only occurring once); ávimant *possessing sheep*, açānimant *bearing the thunderbolt*, óṣadhīmant *rich in herbs*, vāṇimant *carrying an axe*, vásumant *possessing good things*, mádhumant *rich in sweets*, tvāṣṭṛmant *accompanied by Tvashtar*, hótṛmant *provided with priests*, áyusmant *long-lived*, jyótiṣmant *full of brightness*; — ulkuṣīmant *accompanied with meteors*, pīlūmant (?), prasūmant *having young shoots*, gómant *rich in kine*, garútmant *winged*, vihútmant *with libation*, kakúdmant *humped*, vidyūnmant (with irregular assimilation of t: VS. has also kakúnmant) *gleaming*, virúkmant *shining*, havīṣmant *with libations*, vipruṣmant *with drops*.

c. With the accent thrown forward upon the ending: *asimánt with knives*, *agnimánt having fire*, *iṣudhimánt with a quiver*, *paçumánt possessing cattle*, *vāyumánt with wind*, *pitṛmánt (AV. pitṛmant) accompanied by the Fathers*, *māṭṛmánt having a mother*; no long final vowels are found before the suffix in this division, and only once a consonant, in *dasmát (RV., once)*.

d. Protraction of a final vowel is seen in *tvīṣimant*, *dhrājimant*, *hīrimant*; in *jyōtiṣimant* is irregularly inserted an *ī* (after the analogy of *tāviṣimant*); in *çuciṣmant*, *mahiṣmant*, an *s*; *suṣumánt (RV., once)* appears to be primary.

e. The adverb *āçumát* appears to be related to adverbs in *vát* as the suffix *mant* to *vant*.

f. By the side of derivatives made with internal combination appears *vidyūnmant* even in RV.; and other like cases occur later: thus, *parisrūnmant*, *kakunmant*, *kṣunmant*, *puronūnmant*, *vānmant*, *kakummant*, *gudaliṇmant*, *yaçomant*.

1236. It has been seen above (especially in connection with the suffixes *a* and *ya*) that the neuter of a derivative adjective is frequently used as an abstract noun. There are, however, two suffixes which have in the later language the specific office of making abstract nouns from adjectives and nouns; and these are found also, more sparingly used, in the oldest language, each having there one or two other evidently related suffixes beside it.

a. For derivatives of the same value made with the suffix *iman*, see above, 1168 i-k.

1237. त्वा *tā*. With this suffix are made feminine abstract nouns, denoting *the quality of being so and so*, from both adjectives and nouns.

a. The form of the primitive is unchanged, and the accent is uniformly on the syllable preceding the suffix.

b. Examples (from the older language) are: *devātā divinity*, *vīrātā manliness*, *puruṣātā human nature*, *agnītā firehood*, *apaçūtā cattle-lessness*, *bandhūtā relationship*, *vasūtā wealth*; *nagnātā nakedness*, *suvīrātā wealth in retainers*, *anapatyātā lack of descendants*, *agótā poverty in cattle*, *abrahmātā lack of devotion*, *aprajāstā absence of progeny*; also doubtless *sūnṛtā* (from *sūnāra*), although the word is a few times used as an adjective (like *çamṛtāti* and *satyatāti*: see next paragraph).

c. Of special formation are *mamātā selfishness*, *trétā triplicity*, *astitā actuality*. RV. has *avīrātā*, with exceptional accent. In *ekapatnitā* is seen a shortened final vowel of the primitive. *Janātā* has acquired a concrete meaning, *people, folk*; also *grāmatā* (once) *villages* collectively.

1238. त्वाति *tāti*, त्वात् *tāt*. These suffixes are Vedic only, and the latter is limited to RV. Their relationship to the preceding is

evident, but opinions are at variance as to its nature. The accent is as in the derivatives with *tā*.

a. The quotable examples in *tāti* are: *ariṣṭātāti uninjuredness*, *ayakṣmātāti freedom from disease*, *gr̥bhītātāti the being seized*, *jyeṣṭhātāti supremacy*, *devātāti divinity*, *vasūtāti wealth*, *çámtāti good-fortune*, *sarvātāti completeness*; and, with exceptional accent, *ástatāti home*, and *dákṣatāti cleverness*; *çivatāti* and *çubhatāti* occur (once each) in the later language. Two words in *tāti* are used adjectively (inorganically, by apposition?): *çámtāti* (RV., twice; and AV. xix. 44. 1, in manuscripts), and *satyatāti* (RV., once: voc.).

b. The words in *tāt* (apparently made by abbreviation from *tāti*) occur in only one or two cases-forms; they were all mentioned above (383 k. 2).

1239. त्वा tva. With this suffix are made neuter nouns, of the same value as the feminines in ता *tā* (above, 1237).

a. The neuter abstracts in *tva* are in the older language considerably more common than the feminines in *tā*, although themselves also not very numerous. The accent is without exception on the suffix.

b. Examples (from the older language) are: *amṛtatvá immortality*, *devatvá divinity*, *subhagatvá good-fortune*, *ahamuttaratvá struggle for precedence*, *çucitvá purity*, *patitvá husbandship*, *taraṇitvá energy*, *dīrghāyutvá long life*, *çatrutvá enmity*, *bhrātrtvá brotherhood*, *vṛṣatvá virility*, *sātmatvá soulfulness*, *maghavatvá liberality*, *rakṣastvá sorcery*. In *anāgāstvá* and *-prajāstvá* there is a lengthening of the final syllable of the primitive; and in *sāuprajāstvá* (AV., once) this appears to be accompanied by initial *vṛddhi* (*sāubhagatvá* is doubtless from *sāúbhaga*, not *subhága*); and in these and *pratyanastvá* there is an apparent insertion of *s*. In *sadhanitvá* (RV.), *vasatīvaritvá* (TS.), *rohiṇitvá* (TB.), there is shortening of final feminine *ī* before the suffix. Of peculiar formation are *astitva actuality* and *sahatva union*. The apparent feminine datives *yūthatvāyāi* and *gaṇatvāyāi* (KS.) are doubtless false forms.

c. Besides the usual guttural reversions in *samyaktva*, *sayuktva*, we have external combination in *samittva* (-idh-) and *pūrvavāṭtva* (-vah-).

d. In *iṣitatvātā* (RV., once) *incitedness*, and *puruṣatvātā* (RV., twice) *human quality*, appears to be a combination of the two equivalent suffixes *tva* and *tā*.

e. The *v* of *tva* is to be read in Veda as *u* only once (*rakṣastuá*).

1240. त्वन् tvana. The derivatives made with this suffix are, like those in *tva*, neuter abstracts. They occur almost only in RV., and, except in a single instance (*martyatvaná*), have beside them equivalent derivatives in *tva*. The accent is on the final, and the *tva* is never resolved into *tua*.

a. The words are: kavítvaná, janítvaná, patítvaná (also JB.), martyatvaná, mahítvaná, vasutvaná, vṛṣatvaná, sakhitvaná.

1241. A few suffixes make no change in the character as part of speech of the primitive to which they are added, but either are merely formal appendages, leaving the value of the word what it was before, or make a change of degree, or introduce some other modification of meaning.

1242. The suffixes of comparison and ordinal suffixes have for the most part been treated already, and need only a reference here.

a. तर tara and तम tama are the usual secondary suffixes of adjective comparison: respecting their use as such, see above, 471–473; respecting the use of tama as ordinal etc. suffix, see 487–8; respecting that of their accusatives as adverbial suffixes to prepositions etc., see 1111 e.

b. In वृत्रतारा and पुरुतामा (RV.) the, accent is anomalous; in मृदयत्तमा, it is drawn forward to the final of the participle, as often in composition (1309); षाचवत्तमा (RV.) has the ordinal accent; सम्वत्सरतामा (ÇB.) is an ordinal; दिवतारा (RV., once: an error?) is an ordinary adjective, *of the day*; सुराभिशतामा and तुविशतामा insert a s; कारोतारा and कौलितारा are probably वृद्धि-derivatives in a. In वत्सतारा (f. -री) *weanling*, अचवतारा *mule*, and धेनुशतरी *cow losing her milk*, the application of the suffix is peculiar and obscure; so also in राथाम्तरा, name of a certain *sāman*.

c. र ra and म ma, like tara and tama, have a comparative and superlative value; and the latter of them forms ordinals: see above, 474, 487.

d. थ tha, like tama and ma, forms ordinals from a few numerals: see 487 c; also (with fem. in -थी) from tati, kati, yati, iti: thus, tatithá *so-many-eth* etc.

e. Apparently by false analogy with tatithá etc. (above, d), the quasi-ordinals tāvatitha, yāvatitha, bahutitha are made, as if with a suffix titha (also katititha, late, for katithá); and, it is said, from other words meaning *a number or collection*, as gaṇa, pūga, saṁgha; but none such are quotable.

1243. Of diminutive suffixes there are none in Sanskrit with clearly developed meaning and use. The occasional employment of ka, in a somewhat indistinct way, to make diminutives, has been noticed above (1222).

1244. Of the ordinary adjective-making suffixes, given above, some occasionally make adjectives from adjectives, with slight or imperceptible modification of value. The only one used to any considerable extent in this way is ka: as to which, see 1222.

1245. A few suffixes are used to make derivatives from certain limited and special classes of words, as numerals and particles. Thus:

a. तय taya makes a few adjectives, meaning *of so many divisions* or *kinds* (used in the neuter as collectives), from numerals: thus, ékataya (MS.), dvitaya, tritaya, cátuṣṭaya (AV.), ṣaṭṭaya (KB.: with external combination), saptátaya (ÇB.), aṣṭátaya (AB.), dáçataya (RV.), bahútaya (TS.). Their fem. is in -yī.

b. त्य tyā makes a class of adjectives from particles: e. g. nítya *own*, níṣṭya *foreign*, amátya *companion*, etc. As the examples show, the accent of the primitive is retained. The fem. is in -tyā.

c. The other quotable examples are ápatya, āvíṣṭya, sánutya, antastya, anyatastya-, tatastya, kutastya, atratya, tattratya, yattratya, kutratya, ihatya, upatya, adhitya, prāstastya, dakṣiṇātya (instead of which, the regular form, is generally found dākṣiṇātya, apparently a further vṛddhi-derivative from it: as if *belonging to the southerners*), and pāçcāttya and pāurastya (of a similar character: these three last are said by the grammarians to be accented on the final, as is proper for vṛddhi-derivatives); aptyá and āptyá perhaps contain the same suffix. In antastya and prāstastya is seen external combination.

d. The y of tya is in RV. always to be read as i after a heavy syllable.

e. त ta forms ekatá, dvitá, and tritá, also muhūrtá *moment*, and apparently avatá *well* (for water).

f. With न na are made purāṇá *ancient*, víṣuṇa *various*, and perhaps samāná *like*.

g. With तन tana or (in a few cases) त्ना tna are made adjectives from adverbs, nearly always of time: e. g. prātná *ancient*, nūtana or nūtna *present*, sanātána or sanátna *lasting*, divātana *of the day*, çvástana *of tomorrow*, hyastana *of yesterday*. The accent is various. The feminine is in ní.

h. The other quotable examples are: agretana, adyatana, adhunātána, idam̐tana, idānīm̐tana, etarhitana, ciram̐tana, tadānīm̐tana, doṣātana, purātana, prāktana, prāstastána, sadātana, sāyam̐tána; from adverbs of place, adhastana, arvāktana, uparitana, kutastana; — with tna, parastāttna, purastāttna. A further vṛddhi-derivative, with equivalent meaning, nāutana (cf. above, c), occurs late. In PB. is once found tvattana *belonging to thee*.

i. Besides the obvious cases of an assimilated final m before this suffix, we have external combination in prāstastána.

j. वत् vat makes from particles of direction the feminine nouns mentioned above (383 k. 1).

k. कट kaṭa, properly a noun in composition, is reckoned by the

grammarians as a suffix, in *utkaṭa*, *nikaṭa*, *prakaṭa*, *vikāṭa* (RV., once, voc.), and *saṁkaṭa* (all said to be accented on the final).

l. A suffix *vana* is perhaps to be seen in *nivaná*, *pravaṇa*; — and *āla* in *antarāla*.

m. Occasional derivatives made with the ordinary suffixes of primary and secondary derivation from numerals and particles have been noted above: thus, see *ana* (1150 n), *ti* (1157 h), *ant* (1172 a), *u* (1178 i), *a* (1209 i), *ka* (1222 c), *mna* (1224 c), *maya* (1225 a), *vant* (1233 e).

CHAPTER XVIII.

FORMATION OF COMPOUND STEMS.

1246. The frequent combination of declinable stems with one another to form compounds which then are treated as if simple, in respect to accent, inflection, and construction, is a conspicuous feature of the language, from its earliest period.

a. There is, however, a marked difference between the earlier and the later language as regards the length and intricacy of the combinations allowed. In Veda and Brāhmaṇa, it is quite rare that more than two stems are compounded together — except that to some much used and familiar compound, as to an integral word, a further element is sometimes added. But the later the period, and, especially, the more elaborate the style, the more a cumbrous and difficult aggregate of elements, abnegating the advantages of an inflective language, takes the place of the due syntactical union of formed words into sentences.

1247. Sanskrit compounds fall into three principal classes:

I. a. Copulative or aggregative compounds, of which the members are syntactically coördinate: a joining together into one of words which in an uncompounded condition would be connected by the conjunction *and* (rarely *or*).

b. Examples are: *indrāvāruṇāu Indra and Varuna*, *satyāṇṛté truth and falsehood*, *kṛtākṛtām done and undone*, *devagandharvamānuṣoragarakṣasās gods and Gandharvas and men and serpents and demons*.

c. The members of such a compound may obviously be of any number, two or more than two. No compound of any other class can contain more than two members — of which, however, either or both may be compound, or decompound (below, 1248).

II. d. Determinative compounds, of which the former member is syntactically dependent on the latter, as its determining or qualifying adjunct: being either, 1. a noun (or pronoun) limiting it in a case-relation, or, 2. an adjective or adverb describing it. And, according as it is the one or the other, are to be distinguished the two sub-classes: A. Dependent compounds; and B. Descriptive compounds. Their difference is not an absolute one.

e. Examples are: of dependent compounds, *amitrasenā army of enemies*, *pādodaka water for the feet*, *āyurdā life-giving*, *hastakṛta made with the hands*; of descriptive compounds, *maharṣi great sage*, *priyasakhi dear friend*, *amitra enemy*, *sūkṛta well done*.

f. These two classes are of primary value; they have undergone no unifying modification in the process of composition; their character as parts of speech is determined by their final member, and they are capable of being resolved into equivalent phrases by giving the proper independent form and formal means of connection to each member. That is not the case with the remaining class, which accordingly is more fundamentally distinct from them than they are from one another.

III. g. Secondary adjective compounds, the value of which is not given by a simple resolution into their component parts, but which, though having as final member a noun, are themselves adjectives. These, again, are of two sub-classes: A. Possessive compounds, which are noun-compounds of the preceding class, with the idea of *possessing* added, turning them from nouns into adjectives; B. Compounds in which the second member is a noun syntactically dependent on the first: namely, 1. Prepositional compounds, of a governing preposition and following noun;

2. Participial compounds (only Vedic), of a present participle and its following object.

h. The sub-class B. is comparatively small, and its second division (participial compounds) is hardly met with even in the later Vedic.

i. Examples are: *vīrasena possessing a hero-army*, *prajākāma having desire of progeny*, *tigmāçrīga sharphorned*, *hárítasraj wearing green garlands*; *atimātrá excessive*; *yāvayáddveṣas driving away enemies*.

j. The adjective compounds are, like simple adjectives, liable to be used, especially in the neuter, as abstract and collective nouns, and in the accusative as adverbs; and out of these uses have grown apparent special classes of compounds, reckoned and named as such by the Hindu grammarians. The relation of the classification given above to that presented in the native grammar, and widely adopted from the latter by the European grammars, will be made clear as we go on to treat the classes in detail.

1248. A compound may, like a simple word, become a member in another compound, and this in yet another — and so on, without definite limit. The analysis of any compound, of whatever length (unless it be a copulative), must be made by a succession of bisections.

a. Thus, the dependent compound *pūrvajanmakṛta done in a previous existence* is first divisible into *kṛta* and the descriptive *pūrvajanman*, then this into its elements; the dependent *sakalanītiçāstratattvajña knowing the essence of all books of behavior* has first the root-stem *jña* (for $\sqrt{jñā}$) *knowing* separated from the rest, which is again dependent; then this is divided into *tattva essence* and the remainder, which is descriptive; this, again, divides into *sakala all* and *nītiçāstra books of behavior*, of which the latter is a dependent compound and the former a possessive (*sa* and *kalā having its parts together*).

1249. a. The final of a stem is combined with the initial of another stem in composition according to the general rules for external combination: they have been given, with their exceptions, in chap. III., above.

b. If a stem has a distinction of strong and weak forms, it regularly enters into composition as prior member in its weak form; or, if it has a triple distinction (311), in its middle form.

c. That is, especially, stems in ṛ or ar, at or ant, ac or añc, etc., show in composition the forms in ṛ, at, ac, etc.; while those in an and in usually (exceptions sometimes occur, as vṛṣaṇaṇvā, vṛṣaṇvasú) lose their final n, and are combined as if a and i were their proper finals.

d. As in secondary derivation (1203 d), so also as prior member of a compound, a stem sometimes shortens its final long vowel (usually ī, rarely ā): thus, in V., rodasiprā, pṛthiviṣṭhā, pṛthiviśád, dhārapūta, dhāravākā; in B., pṛthivi-dā, -bhāga, -lokā, sarasvatikṛta, senānigrāmaṇyāu; in S., garbhiniprāyaścitta, sāmīdheniprāiṣṭya, vasatīvaripariharaṇa, ekādaṇiniliṅga, prapharvidā, devatalakṣaṇa, devatapradhānatva; later, devakinandana, lakṣmivardhana, kumāridatta, muhūrtaja, iṣṭakacita, etc.

e. Occasionally, a stem is used as prior member of a compound which does not appear, or not in that form, as an independent word: examples are mahā *great* (apparently used independently in V. in accusative), tuvi *mighty* (V.), dvi *two*.

f. Not infrequently, the final member of a compound assumes a special form: see below, 1315.

1250. But a case-form in the prior member of a compound is by no means rare, from the earliest period of the language. Thus:

a. Quite often, an accusative, especially before a root-stem, or a derivative in a of equivalent meaning: for example, pataṁgā *going by flight*, dhanamjayā *winning wealth*, abhayaṁkarā *causing absence of danger*, puṣṭimbharā *bringing prosperity*, vācamīṅkhayā *inciting the voice*; but also sometimes before words of other form, as ācvaṁiṣṭi *horse-desiring*, ṣubhaṁyāvan *going in splendor*, subhāgaṁkāraṇa *making happy*, bhayaṁkartṛ *causer of fear*. In a few cases, by analogy with these, a word receives an accusative form to which it has no right: thus, hṛdaṁsāni, makṣūṁgama, vasuṁdhara, ātmambhari.

b. Much more rarely, an instrumental: for example, girāvīdh *increasing by praise*, vācāstena *stealing by incantation*, krātvāmagha *gladly bestowing*, bhāsāketu *bright with light*, vidmanāpas *active with wisdom*.

c. In a very few instances, a dative: thus, nareṣṭhā *serving a man*, asméhiti *errand to us*, and perhaps kiyedhā and mahevīdh.

d. Not seldom, a locative; and this also especially with a root-stem or a-derivative: for example, agregā *going at the head*, diviṁśit *dwelling in the sky*, vaneśāh *prevailing in the wood*, aṅgeṣṭhā *existing in the limbs*, proṣṭheṇayā *lying on a couch*, sutékara *active with the soma*, divícara *moving in the sky*; āreṇatru *having enemies far removed*, sumnāāpi *near in favor*, máderaghu *hasting in excitement*, yudhiṣṭhira *firm in battle*, antevāsin *dwelling near*; apsujā *born in the waters*, hṛtsvās *hurling at hearts*.

e. Least often, a genitive: thus, rāyāskāma *desirous of wealth*,

akasyavíd *knowing no one*. But the older language has a few examples of the putting together of a genitive with its governing noun, each member of the combination keeping its own accent: see below, 1267 d.

f. Ablative forms are to be seen in *balātkāra violence* and *balātkṛta*, and perhaps in *parātpriya*. And a stem in *ṛ* sometimes appears in a copulative compound in its nominative form: thus, *pitāputrāu father and son*, *hotāpotārāu the invoker and purifier*. *Anyonya one another* is a fused phrase, of nominative and oblique case.

g. In a very few words, plural meaning is signified by plural form: thus, *apsujā* etc. (in derivation, also, *apsu* is used as a stem), *hṛtsvās, nṛñḥpraṇetra conducting men*, *rujaskara causing pains*, (and dual) *hanūkampa trembling of the two jaws*.

h. Much more often, of words having gender-forms, the feminine is used in composition, when the distinctive feminine sense is to be conveyed: e. g. *gopīnātha master of the shepherdesses*, *dāsīputra son of a female slave*, *mṛgīdṛṣ gaselle-eyed*, *praṇītāpraṇāyana vessel for consecrated water*.

1251. The accent of compounds is very various, and liable to considerable irregularity even within the limits of the same formation; and it must be left to be pointed out in detail below. All possible varieties are found to occur. Thus:

a. Each member of the compound retains its own separate accent. This is the most anomalous and infrequent method. It appears in certain Vedic copulative compounds chiefly composed of the names of divinities (so-called *devatā-dvandvas*: 1255 ff.), and in a small number of aggregations partly containing a genitive case-form as prior member (1267 d).

b. The accent of the compound is that of its prior member. This is especially the case in the great class of possessive compounds; but also in determinatives having the participle in *ta* or *na* as final member, in those beginning with the negative *a* or *an*, and in other less numerous and important classes.

c. The accent of the compound is that of the final member. This is not on so large a scale the case as the preceding; but it is nevertheless quite common, being found in many compounds having a verbal noun or adjective as final member, in compounds beginning with the numerals *dvi* and *tri* or the prefixes *su* and *dus*, and elsewhere in not infrequent exceptions.

d. The compound takes an accent of its own, independent of that of either of its constituents, on its final syllable (not always, of course, to be distinguished from the preceding case). This method is largely followed: especially, by the regular copulatives, and by the great mass of dependent and descriptive noun-compounds, by most possessives beginning with the negative prefix; and by others.

e. The compound has an accent which is altered from that of one of its members. This is everywhere an exceptional and sporadically occurring

case, and the instances of it, noted below under each formation, do not require to be assembled here. Examples are: medhāsāti (médha) , tilāmiçra (tíla) , khādhasta (khādí) , yāvayāddveṣas (yāváyant); çakadhūma (dhūmá), amṛta (mṛtá), suvīra (vīrá), tuvigríva (grīvā). A few words — as víçva, púrva, and sometimes sárva — take usually a changed accent as prior members of compounds.

I. Copulative Compounds.

1252. Two or more nouns — much less often adjectives, and, in an instance or two, adverbs — having a coördinate construction, as if connected by a conjunction, usually *and*, are sometimes combined into compounds.

a. This is the class to which the Hindu grammarians give the name of *dvandva pair, couple*; a *dvandva* of adjectives, however, is not recognized by them.

b. Compounds in which the relation of the two members is alternative instead of copulative, though only exceptional, are not very rare: examples are *nyūnādhika defective or redundant*, *jayaparājaya victory or defeat*, *krītotpanna purchased or on hand*, *kāṣṭhaloṣṭasama like a log or clod*, *pakṣimṛgatā the condition of being bird or beast*, *triṇṇadvīṇṇa numbering twenty or thirty*, *catuṣpañcakṛtvas four or five times*, *dvyekāntara different by one or two*. A less marked modification of the copulative idea is seen in such instances as *priyasatya agreeable though true*, *prārthitadurlabha sought after but hard to obtain*; or in *çrāntāgata arrived weary*.

1253. The noun-copulatives fall, as regards their inflective form, into two classes:

1. a. The compound has the gender and declension of its final member, and is in number a dual or a plural, according to its logical value, as denoting two or more than two individual things.

b. Examples are: *prāṇāpānāu inspiration and expiration*, *vṛhiyavāu rice and barley*, *ṛksāmé verse and chant*, *kapotolukāu dove and owl*, *candrādityāu moon and sun*, *hastyaçvāu the elephant and horse*, *ajāvāyas goats and sheep*, *devāsurās the gods and demons*, *atharvāṅgirāsas the Atharvans and Angirases*, *sambādhātandryās anxieties and fatigues*, *vidyākarmāṇī knowledge and action*, *hastyaçvās elephants and horses*; of more than two members (no examples quotable from the older language), *çayyāsanabhogās lying, sitting, and eating*, *brāhmaṇakṣatriyaviṭṭūdrās a Brahman, Kshatriya, Vaiçya, and Çūdra*,

rogaçokaparītāpabandhanavyasanāni *disease, pain, grief, captivity, and misfortune*.

2. c. The compound, without regard to the number denoted, or to the gender of its constituents, becomes a neuter singular collective.

d. Examples are: iṣṭāpūrtām *what is offered and bestowed*, ahorātrām *a day and night*, kṛtākṛtām *the done and undone*, bhūtabhavyām *past and future*, keçaçmaçrú *hair and beard*, oṣadhivanaspatí *plants and trees*, candratāarakām *moon and stars*, ahinakulam *snake and ichneumon*, çirogrīvam *head and neck*, yūkāmakṣīkamatkuṇam *lice, flies, and bugs*.

1254. a. That a stem in ṛ as prior member sometimes takes its nominative form, in ā, was noticed above, 1250 f.

b. A stem as final member is sometimes changed to an a-form to make a neuter collective: thus, chattropānaham *an umbrella and a shoe*.

c. The grammarians give rules as to the order of the elements composing a copulative compound: thus, that a more important, a briefer, a vowel-initial member should stand first; and that one ending in a should be placed last. Violations of them all, however, are not infrequent.

1255. In the oldest language (RV.), copulative compounds such as appear later are quite rare, the class being chiefly represented by dual combinations of the names of divinities and other personages, and of personified natural objects.

a. In these combinations, each name has regularly and usually the dual form, and its own accent; but, in the very rare instances (only three occurrences out of more than three hundred) in which other cases than the nom.-acc.-voc. are formed, the final member only is inflected.

b. Examples are: índrāsómā, índrāvīṣṇū, índrābṛhaspátī, agníśómāu, turvāçāyádū, dyāvāpṛthiví, uṣāsānaktā (and, with intervening words, náktā...uṣāsā), sūryāmāsā. The only plural is indrāmarutas (voc.). The cases of other than nominative form are mitráváruṇābhyām and mitráváruṇayos (also mitráyor váruṇayoḥ), and índrāváruṇayos (each once only).

c. From dyāvāpṛthiví is made the very peculiar genitive diváspṛthivyós (4 times: AV. has dyāvāpṛthivíbhyām and dyāvāpṛthivyós).

d. In one compound, parjányavātā, the first member (RV., once) does not have the dual ending along with the double accent (indranāsatyā, voc., is doubtful as to accent). In several, the double accent is wanting, while yet the double designation of number is present: thus, indrāpūṣṇós (beside indrāpūṣāṇā), somāpūṣābhyām (somāpūṣāṇā occurs only as voc.), vātāparjanya, sūryācandramāsā, and indrāgní (with indrāgníbhyām and indrāgnýós): somārudrāú is accented only

in ÇB. And in one, *indravāyú*, form and accent are both accordant with the usages of the later language.

e. Of other copulatives, like those made later, the RV. has the plural *ajāváyas*, the duals *ṛksāmé*, *satyānṛté*, *sācanānaçané*; also the neuter collective *iṣṭāpūrtám*, and the substantively used neuter of a copulative adjective, *nīlālohitám*. Further, the neuter plurals *ahorātrāṇi nycthemera*, and *ukthārkā praises and songs*, of which the final members as independent words are not neuter. No one of these words has more than a single occurrence.

1256. In the later Vedic (AV.), the usage is much more nearly accordant with that of the classical language, save that the class of neuter singular collectives is almost wanting.

a. The words with double dual form are only a small minority (a quarter, instead of three quarters, as in RV.); and half of them have only a single accent, on the final: thus, besides those in RV., *bhavārudrāú*, *bhavāçarvāú*; *agnāviṣṇū*, voc., is of anomalous form. The whole number of copulatives is more than double that in RV.

b. The only proper neuter collectives, composed of two nouns, are *keçaçmaçrú hair and heard*, *āñjanābhyañjanám salve and ointment*, and *kaçipūpabarhaṇám mat and pillow*, unified because of the virtual unity of the two objects specified. Neuter singulars, used in a similar collective way, of adjective compounds, are (besides those in RV.): *kṛtākṛtám what is done and undone* (instead of *what is done and what is undone*), *cittākūtám thought and desire*, *bhadrapāpám good and evil*, *bhūtabhavyám past and future*.

1257. Copulative compounds composed of adjectives which retain their adjective character are made in the same manner, but are in comparison rare.

a. Examples are *çuklakṛṣṇa light and dark*, *sthalajāudaka terrestrial and aquatic*, *dāntarājatasāuvarṇa of ivory and silver and gold*, used distributively; and *vṛttapīna round and plump*, *çāntānukūla tranquil and propitious*, *hr̥ṣitasragrajoḥina wearing fresh garlands and free from dust*, *niṣekādiçmaçānānta beginning with conception and ending with burial*, used cumulatively; *nā 'tiçitoṣṇa not over cold or hot*, used alternatively; *kṣaṇadṛṣṭanaṣṭa seen for a moment and then lost*, *cintitopasthita at hand as soon as thought of*, in more pregnant sense.

b. In the Veda, the only examples noted are the cumulative *nīlālohitá* and *iṣṭāpūrtá* etc., used in the neut. sing. as collectives (as pointed out above), with *tāmradhūmrá dark tawny*; and the distributive *dakṣiṇasavyá right and left*, *saptamāṣṭamá seventh and eighth*, and *bhadrapāpá good and bad* (beside the corresponding neut. collective). Such combinations as *satyānṛté truth and falsehood*, *priyāpriyāṇi things*

agreeable and disagreeable, where each component is used substantively, are, of course, not to be separated from the ordinary noun-compounds.

c. A special case is that of the compound adjectives of direction: as *uttarapūrva north-east*, *prāgdakṣiṇa south-east*, *dakṣiṇapaçcima south-west*, etc.: compare 1291 b.

1258. In accentuated texts, the copulative compounds have uniformly the accent (acute) on the final of the stem.

a. Exceptions are a case or two in AV., where doubtless the reading is false: thus, *vātāparjanya* (once: beside -nyáyos), *devamanuṣyā* s (once: ÇB. -syá), *brahmarājanya* bhyām (also VS.); further, *vākopavākyā* (ÇB.), *açanāyāpipāse* (ÇB.).

1259. An example or two are met with of adverbial copulatives: thus, *āhardivi day by day*, *sāyāmprātar at evening and in the morning*. They have the accent of their prior member. Later occur also *bāhyantar*, *pratyagdakṣiṇā*, *pratyagudak*.

1260. Repeated words. In all ages of the language, nouns and pronouns and adjectives and particles are not infrequently repeated, to give an intensive, or a distributive, or a repetitional meaning.

a. Though these are not properly copulative compounds, there is no better connection in which to notice them than here. They are, as the older language shows, a sort of compound, of which the prior member has its own independent accent, and the other is without accent: hence they are most suitably and properly written (as in the Vedic pada-texts) as compounds. Thus: *jahy eṣaṁ vāraṁ-varam slay of them each beat man*; *divé-dive* or *dyāvi-dyavi from day to day*; *āṅgād-aṅgāl lómno-lomnaḥ párvani-parvani from every limb, from every hair, in each joint*; *prá-pra yajñápatiṁ tira make the master of the sacrifice live on and on*; *bhúyo-bhūyaḥ çváḥ-çvaḥ further and further, tomorrow and again tomorrow*; *ékayāi-'kayā with in each case one*; *vayāṁ-vayam our very selves*.

b. Exceptional and rare cases are those of a personal verb-form repeated: thus, *píbā-piba* (RV.), *yájasva-yajasva* (ÇB.), *véda-veda* (? ÇB.); — and of two words repeated: thus, *yāvad vā-yāvad vā* (ÇB.), *yatamé vā-yatame vā* (ÇB.).

c. In a few instances, a word is found used twice in succession without that loss of accent the second time which makes the repetition a virtual composite: thus, *nú nú* (RV.), *sám sám* (AV.), *ihé 'há* (AV.), *anáyā- 'náyā* (ÇB.), *stuhí stuhí* (RV., acc. to pada-text).

d. The class of combinations here described is called by the native grammarians *āmreḍita added unto* (?).

1261. Finally may be noticed in passing the compound numerals, *ékādaça 11*, *dvāviṇçati 22*, *trīçata 103*, *cātuḥsahasra 1004*, and so on (476 ff.), as a special and primitive class of copulatives. They are accented on the prior member.

II. Determinative Compounds.

1262. A noun or adjective is often combined into a compound with a preceding determining or qualifying word — a noun, or adjective, or adverb. Such a compound is conveniently called determinative.

1263. This is the class of compounds which is of most general and frequent occurrence in all branches of Indo-European language. Its two principal divisions have been already pointed out: thus, A. Dependent compounds, in which the prior member is a substantive word (noun or pronoun or substantively used adjective), standing to the other member in the relation of a case dependent on it; and B. Descriptive compounds, in which the prior member is an adjective, or other word having the value of an adjective, qualifying a noun; or else an adverb or its equivalent, qualifying an adjective. Each of these divisions then falls into two sub-divisions, according as the final member, and therefore the whole compound, is a noun or an adjective.

a. The whole class of determinatives is called by the Hindu grammarians *tatpuruṣa* (the term is a specimen of the class, meaning *his man*); and the second division, the descriptives, has the special name of *karmadhāraya* (of obscure application: the literal sense is something like *office-bearing*). After their example, the two divisions are in European usage widely known by these two names respectively.

A. Dependent Compounds.

1264. Dependent Noun-compounds. In this division, the case-relation of the prior member to the other may be of any kind; but, in accordance with the usual relations of one noun to another, it is oftenest genitive, and least often accusative.

a. Examples are: of genitive relation, *devasenā* *army of gods*, *yamadūtā* *Yama's messenger*, *jīvalokā* *the world of the living*, *indra-*

dhanús Indra's bow, brahmagaví the Brahman's cow, viṣagirí poison-mount, mitralābha acquisition of friends, mūrkhāṣatāni hundreds of fools, vīrasenasuta Vīrasena's son, rājendra chief of kings, asmatputrās our sons, tadvacas his words; — of dative, pādodaka water for the feet, māsanīcaya accumulation for a month; — of instrumental, ātmasādr̥cya likeness with self, dhānyārtha wealth acquired by grain, dharmapatnī lawful spouse, pitṛbandhú paternal relation; — of ablative, apsaraḥsambhava descent from a nymph, madviyoga separation from me, cāurabhaya fear of a thief; — of locative, jalakrīḍā sport in the water, grāmaavāsa abode in the village, puruṣānṛta untruth about a man; — of accusative, nagaragamana going to the city.

1265. Dependent Adjective-compounds. In this division, only a very small proportion of the compounds have an ordinary adjective as final member; but usually a participle, or a derivative of agency with the value of a participle. The prior member stands in any case-relation which is possible in the independent construction of such words.

a. Examples are: of locative relation, *sthālīpakva cooked in a pot, aṣvakovidā knowing in horses, vayaḥsama alike in age, yudhiṣṭhira steadfast in battle, tanūcubhra beautiful in body; — of instrumental, mātṛsadr̥cā like his mother; — of dative, gohita good for cattle; — of ablative, bhavadanya other than you, garbhāṣṭama eighth from birth, dr̥c̐yetara other than visible (i. e. invisible); — of genitive, bharatacreṣṭha best of the Bharatas, dvijottama foremost of Brahmans; — with participial words, in accusative relation, vedavid Veda-knowing, annādā food-eating, tanūpāna body-protecting, satyavādīn truth-speaking, patragata committed to paper (lit. gone to a leaf); — in instrumental, madhupū cleaning with honey, svayāmkṛta self-made, indragupta protected by Indra, vidyāhīna deserted by (i. e. destitute of) knowledge; — in locative, hṛdayāvīdh pierced in the heart, ṛtvīj sacrificing in due season, divīcara moving in the sky; — in ablative, rājyabhraṣṭa fallen from the kingdom, vṛkabhīta afraid of a wolf; — in dative, ṣaraṇāgata come for refuge.*

1266. We take up now some of the principal groups of compounds falling under these two heads, in order to notice their specialities of formation and use, their relative frequency, their accentuation, and so on.

1267. Compounds having as final member ordinary nouns (such, namely, as do not distinctly exhibit the character of verbal nouns, of action or agency) are quite common. They are regularly and usually accented on the final syllable, without reference to the accent of either constituent. Examples were given above (1264 a).

a. A principal exception with regard to accent is páti *master, lord* (and its feminine pátnī), compounds with which usually retain the accent of the prior member: thus, prajāpati, vásupati, átithipati, gópati, grhāpatnī, etc. etc. (compare the verbal nouns in ti, below, 1274). But in a few words páti retains its own accent: thus, viçpāti, rayipāti, paçupāti, vasupátnī, etc.; and the more general rule is followed in apsarāpatí and vrājapatí (AV.), and nadīpatí (VS.), citpatí (MS.; elsewhere citpāti).

b. Other exceptions are sporadic only: for example, janarájan, devavárman, hiraṇyatéjas, pṛtanāháva, godhúma and çakadhúma (but dhūmá); vācāstena.

c. The appearance of a case-form in such compounds is rare: examples are dívodasa, vācāstena, uccāiḥçravas, uccāirghoṣa, dūrēbhās (the three last in possessive application).

d. A number of compounds are accented on both members: thus, çácīpāti, sádaspati, bṛhaspati, vānaspāti, ráthaspāti, jáspāti (also jáspati), nárāçaṇsa, tánūnápṭṛ, tánūnápāt (tanú as independent word), çúnaḥçépa. And ÇB. has a long list of metonymics having the anomalous accentuation káuṣṭīpútra, gārgīpútra, etc.

1268. The compounds having an ordinary adjective as final member are (as already noticed) comparatively few.

a. So far as can be gathered from the scanty examples occurring in the older language, they retain the accent of the prior member: thus, gáviṣṭhira (AV. gaviṣṭhira), tanúçubhra, máderaghu, yajñádhira, sāmavipra, tilāmiçra (but tīla); but kṛṣṭapacyá *ripening in cultivated soil*.

1269. The adjective dependent compounds having as final member the bare root — or, if it end in a short vowel, generally with an added t — are very numerous in all periods of the language, as has been already repeatedly noticed (thus, 383 f-h, 1147). They are accented on the root.

a. In a very few instances, the accent of words having apparently or conjecturally this origin is otherwise laid: thus, áṇsatra, ánarviç, svávṛj, pratyákṣadṛç, púramdhi, óṣadhi, áramiṣ, uçádagh, vatsápa, ábda.

b. Before a final root-stem appears not very seldom a case-form: for example, pataṁgá, girāvṛdh, dhiyājúr, akṣṇayādrúh, hṛdispṛç, divispṛç, vanesáh, diviṣád, aṅgeṣṭhá, hṛsvás, pṛtsutúr, apsujá.

C. The root-stem has sometimes a middle or passive value: for example, manoyúj *yoked (yoking themselves) by the will*, hṛdayāvidh *pierced to the heart*, manuja *born of Manu*.

1270. Compounds made with verbal derivatives in a, both of action and of agency, are numerous, and take the accent usually on their final syllable (as in the case of compounds with verbal prefixes: 1148 m).

a. Examples are: *hastagrābhá hand-grasping*, *devavandá god-praising*, *haviradá devouring the offering*, *bhuvanacyavá shaking the world*, *vrātyabruvá calling one's self a vrātya*; *akṣaparājayá failure at play*, *vaṣaṭkārá utterance of vashaṭ*, *gopoṣá prosperity in cattle*, *aṅgajvará pain in the limbs*.

b. In a few instances, the accent is (as in compounds with ordinary adjectives: above, 1268) that of the prior member: thus, *marúdvṛdha*, *sutékara*, *divícara* (and other more questionable words). And *dúgha milking, yielding* is so accented as final: thus, *madhudúgha*, *kāmadúgha*.

c. Case-forms are especially frequent in the prior members of compounds with adjective derivatives in *ana* showing *guṇa*-strengthening of the root: thus, fox example, *abhayam̐kará*, *yudhim̐gamá*, *dhanam̐jayá*, *puraṁdará*, *viçvambhará*, *divākara*, *talpeçayá*, *diviṣṭambhá*.

1271. Compounds with verbal nouns and adjectives in *ana* are very numerous, and have the accent always on the radical syllable (as in the case of compounds with verbal prefixes: 1150 e).

a. Examples are: *keçavárdhana hair-increasing*, *āyuspratáraṇa life-lengthening*, *tanūpāna body-protecting*; *devahéçana hatred of the gods*, *puṁsúvana giving birth to males*.

b. A very few apparent exceptions as regards accent are really cases where the derivative has lost its verbal character: thus, *yamasādaná Yama's realm*, *āchádvidhāna means of protection*.

c. An accusative-form is sometimes found before a derivative in *ana*: thus, *sarūpaṁkáraṇa*, *ayaçmaṁkáraṇa*, *subhāgaṁkáraṇa*, *vanam̐káraṇa*.

1272. a. The action-nouns in *ya* (1213) are not infrequent in composition as final member, and retain their own proper accent (as in combination with prefixes). Sufficient examples were given above (1213).

b. The same is true of the equivalent feminines in *ya*: see above, 1213 d.

c. The gerundives in *ya* (1213) hardly occur in the older language in combination with other elements than prefixes. The two *nīvibhāryà* and *prathamavāsyà* (the latter a descriptive) have the accent of the independent words of the same form; *balavijñayá* and *āçvabudhya* (?) are inconsistent with these and with one another.

1273. Compounds made with the passive participle in *ta* or *na* have the accent of their prior member (as do the combinations of the same words with prefixes: 1085 a).

a. Examples are: *hástakṛta made with the hand*, *vīrājāta born of a hero*, *ghóṣabuddha awakened by noise*, *prajāpatisṛṣṭa created by Prajāpati*, *devátta given by the gods*; and, of participles combined with prefixes, *índraprasūta incited by Indra*, *bṛhaspátipraṇutta driven away by Brihaspati*, *ulkábhīhata struck by a thunderbolt*, *vájravīhata*, *sarīvat-*

sarásammita *commensurate with the year*. AV. has the anomalous apsúsarṃcita *quickened by the waters*.

b. A number of exceptions occur, in which the final syllable of the compound has the accent: for example, agnitaptá, indrotá, pitṛvittá, rathakrītá, agnidagdhá (beside agnídagdha), kaviçastá (beside kavíçasta), kavipraçastá.

c. One or two special usages may be noticed. The participle gata, *gone to*, as final of a compound, is used in a loose way in the later language to express relation of various kinds: thus, jagatīgata *existing in the world*, tvadgata *belonging to thee*, sakhīgata *relating to a friend*, citragata *in a picture*, putragataṁ sneham *affection toward a son*, etc. The participle bhūta *been, become* is used in composition with a noun as hardly more than a grammatical device to give it an adjective form: thus, idaṁ tamobhūtam *this creation, being darkness (existing in the condition of darkness)*; tām ratnabhūtaṁ lokasya *her, being the pearl of the world*; kṣetrabhūtā smṛtā nārī bījabhūtaḥ smṛtaḥ pumān *a woman is regarded as a field; a man, as seed; and so on*.

d. The other participles only seldom occur as finals of compounds: thus, prāsakārmukabibhrat *bearing javelin and bow*, açāstravidvāṁs *not knowing the text-books*, arjunadarçivāṁs *having seen Arjuna*, apriyaçaṁsivāṁs *announcing what is disagreeable*, gāutamabruvāṇá *calling himself Gautama*.

1274. Compounds with derivatives in ti have (like combinations with the prefixes: 1157 e) the accent of the prior member.

a. Examples are: dhānasāti *winning of wealth*, sómapīti *soma-drinking*, deváhūti *invocation of the gods*, námaūkti *utterance of homage*, havyádāti *presentation of offerings*; and so tokásāti, deváhīti, rudráhūti, sūktókti, svagákṛti, dívīṣti.

b. In nemádhitī, medhásāti, vanádhitī (all RV.), the accent of the prior member is changed from penult to final.

c. Where the verbal character of the derivative is lost, the general rule of final accent (1267) is followed: thus, devahetī *weapon of the gods*, devasumatī *favor of the gods*, brahmacitī *Brahman-pile*. Also in sarvajyānī *entire ruin*, the accent is that of compounds with ordinary nouns.

1275. Compounds with a derivative in in as final member have (as in all other cases) the accent on the ín.

a. Thus, ukthaçaṁsín *psalm-singing*, vratacārín *vow-performing*, ṛṣabhadāyín *bullock-giving*, satyavādín *truth-speaking*, çroṇipratodín *thigh-pounding*.

1276. There is a group of compounds with derivatives in i, having the accent on the penult or radical syllable.

a. Thus, pathirákṣi *road-protecting*, havirmáthi *sacrifice-disturbing*, ātmađúṣi *soul-harming*, pathiṣádi *sitting in the path*, saho bhári *strength-*

bearing, *vasuváni winning good-things*, *dhanasáni gaining wealth*, *manomúṣi mind-stealing*, *phalagrāhi setting fruit*; and, from reduplicated root, *urucákri making room*. Compounds with -sáni and -váni are especially frequent in Veda and Brāhmaṇa; as independent words, nouns, these are accented *saní* and *vaní*. In many cases, the words are not found in independent use. Combinations with prefixes do not occur in sufficient numbers to establish a distinct rule, but they appear to be oftenest accented on the suffix (1155 f).

b. From *√han* are made in composition -ghni and -ghnī, with accent on the ending: thus, *sahasraghní*, *ahighnī*, *ṣvaghnī*; -dhi from *√dhā*, (1155 g) has the accent in its numerous compounds: thus, *iṣudhí*, *garbhadhí*, *pucchadhí*.

1277. Compounds with derivatives in *van* have (like combinations with prefixes: 1169 c) the accent of the final member: namely, on the radical syllable.

a. Thus, *somapāvan soma-drinking*, *baladāvan strength-giving*, *pāpakṛtvan evil-doing*, *bahusūvan much-yielding*, *talpaṣīvan lying on a couch*, *rathayāvan going in a chariot*, *drūṣādvān sitting on a tree*, *aṣrétvarī f. going at the head*. The accent of the obscure words *mātarīṣvan* and *mātarībhan* is anomalous.

b. The few compounds with final *man* appear to follow the same rule as those with *van*: thus, *svāduḥśādman sharing out sweets*, *āṣuhēman steed-impelling*.

1278. Compounds with other derivatives, of rare or sporadic occurrence, may be briefly noticed: thus, in *u*, *rāṣṭradipsú*, *devapīyú*, *govindú*, *vanargú* (?): compare 1178 e; — in *nu* or *tnu*, *lokakṛtnú*, *surūpakṛtnú*: compare 1196; — in *ṛ*, *nṛpātṛ*, *mandhātṛ*, *haskartṛ* (*vasudhātaras*, AV., is doubtless a false reading). The derivatives in *as* are of infrequent occurrence in composition (as in combination with prefixes: above, 1151 k), and appear to be treated as ordinary nouns: thus, *yajñavacás* (but *hiraṇyatéjas*, AV.).

B. Descriptive Compounds.

1279. In this division of the class of determinatives, the prior member stands to the other in no distinct case-relation, but qualifies it adjectively or adverbially, according as it (the final member) is noun or adjective.

a. Examples are: *nīlotpala blue lotus*, *sarvaguṇa all good quality*, *priyasakha dear friend*, *maharṣi great-sage*, *rajatapātrā silver cup*; *ājñata unknown*, *súkṛta well done*, *duṣkṛt ill-doing*, *puruṣtutā much praised*, *púnarṇava renewed*.

b. The prior member is not always an adjective before a noun, or

an adverb before an adjective; other parts of speech are sometimes used adjectively and adverbially in that position.

c. The boundary between descriptive and dependent compounds is not an absolute one; in certain cases it is open to question, for instance, whether a prior noun, or adjective with noun-value, is used more in a case-relation, or adverbially.

d. Moreover, where the final member is a derivative having both noun and adjective value, it is not seldom doubtful whether an adjective compound is to be regarded as descriptive, made with final adjective, or possessive, made with final noun. Sometimes the accent of the word determines its character in this respect, but not always.

e. A satisfactorily simple and perspicuous classification of the descriptive compounds is not practicable; we cannot hold apart throughout the compounds of noun and of adjective value, but may better group both together, as they appear with prefixed elements of various kinds.

1280. The simplest case is that in which a noun as final member is preceded by a qualifying adjective as prior member.

a. In this combination, both noun and adjective may be of any kind, verbal or otherwise. The accent is (as in the corresponding class of dependent noun-compounds: 1267) on the final syllable.

b. Thus, *ajñāṭayakṣmá unknown disease*, *mahādhaná great wealth*, *kṣipraçyená swift hawk*, *kṛṣṇaçakuní black bird*, *dakṣiṇāgní southern fire*, *urukṣití wide abode*, *adharahanú lower jaw*, *itarajaná other folks*, *sarvātmán whole soul*, *ekavīrá sole hero*, *saptarṣí seven sages*, *ṛtīyasavaná third libation*, *ekonaviṇçatí a score diminished by one*, *jāgratsvapná waking sleep*, *yāvayatsakhá defending friend*, *apakṣīyamāṇapakṣá waning half*.

c. There are not a few exceptions as regards accent. Especially, compounds with *viçva* (in composition, accented *viçvá*), which itself retains the accent: thus, *viçvádevās all the gods*, *viçvāmānuṣa every man*. For words in *ti*, see below, 1287 d. Sporadic cases are *madhyārṇdina*, *vṛṣkāpi*, both of which show an irregular shift of tone in the prior member; and a few others.

d. Instead of an adjective, the prior member is in a few cases a noun used appositionally, or with a quasi-adjective value. Thus, *rājayakṣmá king-disease*, *brahmarṣi priest-sage*, *rājarṣi king-sage*, *rājadanta king-tooth*, *devajana god-folk*, *duhitṛjana daughter-person*, *çamīlatā creeper named çamī*, *muṣikākhyā the name "mouse"*, *jayaçabda the word "conquer"*, *ujhitaçabda the word "deserted"*; or, more figuratively, *gṛhanaraka house-hell (house which is a hell)*, *çāpāgni curse-fire (consuming curse)*.

e. This group is of consequence, inasmuch as in possessive application

it is greatly extended, and forms a numerous class of appositional compounds: see below, 1302.

f. This whole subdivision, of nouns with preceding qualifying adjectives, is not uncommon; but it is greatly (in AV., for example, more than five times) exceeded in frequency by the subclass of possessives of the same form: see below, 1298.

1281. The adverbial words which are most freely and commonly used as prior members of compounds, qualifying the final member, are the verbal prefixes and the words of direction related with them, and the inseparable prefixes, *a* or *an*, *su*, *dus*, etc. (1121). These are combined not only with adjectives, but also, in quasi-adjectival value, with nouns; and the two classes of combinations will best be treated together.

1282. Verbal adjectives and nouns with preceding adverbs. As the largest and most important class under this head might properly enough be regarded the derivatives with preceding verbal prefixes. These, however, have been here reckoned rather as derivatives from roots combined with prefixes (1141), and have been treated under the head of derivation, in the preceding chapter. In taking up the others, we will begin with the participles.

1283. The participles belonging to the tense-systems — those in *ant* (or *at*), *māna*, *āna*, *vāṅs* — are only rarely compounded with any other adverbial element than the negative *a* or *an*, which then takes the accent.

a. Examples are: *ánadant*, *ádadat*, *ánaçnant*, *ásravant*, *álubhyant*, *ádāsyant*, *áditsant*, *ádevayant*; *ámanyamāna*, *áhiṅsāna*, *áchidyamāna*; *ádadivāṅs*, *ábibhīvāṅs*, *atasthāna*; and, with verbal prefixes, *ánapasphurant*, *ánāgamiṣyant*, *ánabhyāgamiṣyant*, *ávirādhayant*, *ávicācalat*, *ápratimanyūyamāna*.

b. Exceptions in regard to accent are very few: *arundhatí*, *ajárantī*, *acodánt* (RV., once: doubtless a false reading; the simple participle is *códant*); AV. has *anipádyamāna* for RV. *ánipadyamāna* (and the published text has *asaṁyánt*, with a part of the manuscripts); ÇB. has *akāmáyamāna*.

c. Of other compounds than with the negative prefix have been noted in the Veda - *punardīyamāna* (in *ápunard-*) and *súvidvāṅs*. In *alalābhávant* and *jañjanābhávant* (RV.), as in *astarṁyánt* and *astameṣyánt* (AV.), we have participles of a compound conjugation (1091), in which, as has been pointed out, the accent is as in combinations with the verbal prefixes.

1284. The passive (or past) participle in *ta* or *na* is much more variously compounded; and in general (as in the case of the verbal prefixes: 1085 a) the preceding adverbial element has the accent.

a. Thus, with the negative *a* or *an* (by far the most common case): *ákṛta*, *ádabdhā*, *áriṣṭa*, *ánādhṛṣṭa*, *áparājita*, *ásamkhyāta*, *ánabhyārūḍha*, *áparimitasamṛddha*; — with *su*, *sújāta*, *súhuta*, *súsamñita*, *svāsamkṛta*; — with *dus*, *dúṣcarita*, *dúrdhita* and *dúrhita*, *dúḥṣṛta*; — with other adverbial words, *dāṁsujūta*, *nāvajata*, *sánaṣruta*, *svayāmkṛta*, *trípratiṣṭhita*: *āramkṛta* and *kakajākṛta* are rather participles of a compound conjugation.

b. Exceptions in regard to accent are: with *a* or *an*, *anācastá*, *apraçastá*, and, with the accent of the participle retracted to the root, *amṛta*, *adṛṣṭa*, *acítta*, *ayúta* *myriad*, *atúrta* (beside *átúrta*), *asúrta* (? beside *súrta*); — with *su* (nearly half as numerous as the regular cases), *subhūtá*, *sūktá*, *supraçastá*, *svákta*, *sukṛtá* and *sujātá* (beside *súkṛta* and *sújāta*), and a few others; with *dus* (quite as numerous as the regular cases), *duritá* (also *dúrita*), *duruktá*, *duṣkṛtá* (also *dúṣkṛta*), *durbhūtá*; with *sa*, *sajātá*; with other adverbs, *amotá*, *ariṣṭutá*, *tuvijātá*, *prācīnopavītá*, *tadānīmdugdhá*, *prātardugdhá*, etc., and the compounds with *puru*, *purujātá*, *puruprajātá*, *purupraçastá*, *puruṣtutá*, etc., and with *svayam*, *svayāmkṛtá* etc. The proper name *aṣāḍhá* stands beside *áṣāḍha*; and AV. has *abhinná* for RV. *ábhinna*.

1285. The gerundives occur almost only in combination with the negative prefix, and have usually the accent on the final syllable.

a. Examples are: *anāpyá*, *anindyá*, *abudhyá*, *asahyá*, *ayodhyá*, *amokyá*; *adviṣeṇyá*; *ahnavāyyá*; and, along with verbal prefixes, the cases are *asamkhyeyá*, *apramṛṣyá*, *anapavṛjyá*, *anatyudyá*, *anādhṛṣyá*, *avimokyá*, *anānukṛtyá* (the accent of the simple word being *samkhyéya* etc.).

b. Exceptions in regard to accent are: *ánedya*, *ádābhya*, *ágohya*, *ájoṣya*, *áyabhya*. The two *anavadharṣyà* and *anativyādhya* (both AV.) belong to the *yà*-division (1213 b) of gerundives, and have retained the accent of the simple word. And *ághnya* and *aghnyá* occur together.

c. The only compounds of these words with other adverbial elements in V. are *súyabhya* (accented like its twin *áyabhya*) and *prathamavāsyà* (which retains the final circumflex), and perhaps *ekavādyá*.

d. The neuter nouns of the same form (1213 c: except *sadhástutya*) retain their own accent after an adverbial prior member: thus, *purvapáyya*, *pūrvapéya*, *amutrabhúya*; and *sahaçéyya*. And the negatived gerundives instanced above are capable of being viewed as possessive compounds with such nouns.

e. Some of the other verbal derivatives which have rules of their own as to accent etc. may be next noticed.

1286. The root-stem (pure root, or with *t* added after a short final vowel: 1147 d) is very often combined with a preceding adverbial word, of various kinds; and in the combination it retains the accent.

a. Examples are: with inseparable prefixes, *adrúh not harming*, *asú not giving birth*, *arúc not shining*; *sukṛt well-doing*, *suṣrút hearing well*; *duṣkṛt ill-doing*, *dūḍāḥ (199 d) impious*; *sayúj joining together*, *samád conflict*; *sahajā born together*, *sahaváh carrying together*; — with other adverbs, *amājúr growing old at home*, *uparispṛṇ touching upward*, *punarbhú appearing again*, *prātaryúj harnessed early*, *sadyahkrí bought the same day*, *sākaṁvṛdh growing up together*, *sadaṁdí ever-binding*, *viṣūvṛt turning to both sides*, *vṛthāsáh easily overcoming*; — with adjectives used adverbially, *uruvyác wide-spreading*, *prathamajā first-born*, *raghuṣyád swift-moving*, *navasú newly giving birth*, *ekajā only born*, *ṇukrapīḥ brightly adorned*, *dvijá twice born*, *trivṛt triple*, *svarāj self-ruling*; — with nouns used adverbially, *ṇambhú beneficent*, *sūryaṇvít shining like the sun*, *īṇānakṛt acting as lord*, *svayambhú self-existent*; and, with accusative case-form, *pataṁgá going by flight*.

b. When, however, a root-stem is already in composition, whether with a verbal prefix or an element of other character, the further added negative itself takes the accent (as in case of an ordinary adjective: below, 1288 a): thus, for example, *ánāksit not abiding*, *ánāvṛt not turning back*, *ávidviṣ not showing hostility*, *áduṣkṛt not ill-doing*, *ánaṇvadā not giving a horse*, *ápaṇuhan not slaying cattle* (*anāgās* would be an exception, if it contained *√gā*: which is very unlikely). Similar combinations with *su* seem to retain the radical accent: thus, *supratúr*, *svābhú*, *svāyúj*: *svāvṛj* is an unsupported exception.

c. A few other exceptions occur, mostly of doubtful character, as *prátiprāḇ*, *sadhástha*, *ádhriḡu*, and the words having *añc* as final member (407 ff.: if this element is not, after all, a suffix) compare 1269 a.

1287. Other verbal derivatives, requiring to be treated apart from the general body of adjectives, are few and of minor importance. Thus:

a. The derivatives in *a* are in great part of doubtful character, because of the possibility of their being used with substantive value to make a possessive compound. The least ambiguous, probably, are the derivatives from present-stems (1148 j), which have the accent on the suffix: thus, *asunvá*, *apaṇyá*, *akṣudhyá*, *avidasyá*, *anāmṛṇá*, *sadāpṛṇá*, *punarmanyá*; and with them belong such cases as *stṛpá*, *avṛdhá*, *araṁgamá*, *urukramá*, *evāvadá*, *satṛāsahá*, *punaḥsará*, *puraḥsará*; and the nouns *sāyambhavá*, *sahacārá*, *prātaḥsāvá*, *mithoyodhá*. Differently accented, on the other hand, although apparently of the same formation, are such as *ánapasphura*, *ánavahvara* (compare the compounds noticed at 1286 b), *sadāvṛdha*, *súbharva*, *nyagródha*, *puroḍāḇa*, *sadhamáda*, *sudúgha*, *supáca*, *suháva*, and others. Words like *adábha*, *durháṇa*, *sukára*, *suyáma*, are probably possessives.

b. The derivatives in van keep in general the accent of the final member, on the root (compare 1169 c, 1277): thus, ācupátvan and raghupátvan *swift-flying*, puroyávan *going in front*, sukṛtvan *well-doing*; and sutárman and suváhman and raghuyáman are probably to be classed with them. But the negative prefix has the accent even before these: thus, áyajvan, árāvan, áprayutvan; and satyámadvan (if it be not possessive) has the accent of its prior member.

c. A few words in i seem to have (as in dependent compounds: 1276) the accent on the radical syllable: thus, durgṛbhi, rjuváni, tuviṣváni.

d. The derivatives in ti are variously treated: the negative prefix has always the accent before them: as, ácitti, ábhūti, ánāhūti; with su and dus, the compound is accented now on the prefix and now on the final, and in some words on either (súnīti and sunítí, dúṣṭuti and duṣṭutí); with other elements, the accent of the prefix prevails: thus, sáhuti, sadhástuti, puróhiti, pūrvápīti, pūrvyástuti.

e. The derivatives in in have, as in general, the accent on the suffix: thus, pūrvāsín, bahucārín, sādhudevín, savāsín, kevalādín. But, with the negative prefix, ánāmin, ávitārin.

f. Other combinations are too various in treatment, or are represented by too few examples in accentuated texts, to justify the setting up of rules respecting them.

1288. Of the remaining combinations, those made with the inseparable prefixes form in some measure a class by themselves.

1. a. The negative prefix a or an, when it directly negatives the word to which it is added, has a very decided tendency to take the accent.

b. We have seen above (1283) that it does so even in the case of present and perfect and future participles, although these in combination with a verbal prefix retain their own accent (1085: but there are exceptions, as avadánt, apaçyánt, etc. ÇB.); and also in the case of a root-stem, if this be already compounded with another element (1286 b). And the same is true of its other combinations.

c. Thus, with various adjective words: átandra, ádabhra, ádāçuri, ánṛju, ádevayu, átṛṣṇaj, átavyāñs, ánāmin, ádvayāvin, ápracetas, ánapatyavant, ánupadasvant, ápramāyuka, ámamri, áprajajñi, ávidīdhayu, ánagnidagdha, ákāmakaṛṇa, ápaçcāddaghvan. Further, with nouns, ápati, ákumāra, ábrāhmaṇa, ávidyā, āçraddhā, ávrātya.

d. But there are a number of exceptions, in which the accent is on the final syllable, without regard to the original accentuation of the final member: thus, for example, acitrá, açṛírā, aviprá, ayajñiyá, anāsmāká, asthūrí, anāçú, ajarayú, anāmayitnú; and in amítira *enemy*, and avírā *unmanly*, there is a retraction of the accent from the final syllable of the final member to its penult.

2. e. The prefixes *su* and *dus* have this tendency in a much less degree, and their compounds are very variously accented, now on the prefix, now on the final syllable, now on the accented syllable of the final member; and occasionally on either of two syllables.

f. Thus, for example, *súbhadra*, *súvipra*, *súpakva*, *súbrāhmaṇa*, *súbhiṣaj*; *sutīrthá*, *suvasaná*, *suṣārathí*, *supāçá*, *sucitrá*; *suçéva*, *suhóṭṛ*: *suvíra* is like *avíra*; — *durmitrá*, *duṣvápnya*; and *ducchúnā* (168 b), with irregular retraction of accent (*çuná*).

3. g. The compounds with *sa* are too few to furnish occasion for separate mention; and those with the interrogative prefix in its various forms are also extremely rare in the Veda: examples are *kucará*, *katpayá*, *kábandha*, *kunannamá*, *kumārā*, *kúyava*, *kuṣáva*.

1289. The verbal prefixes are sometimes used in a general adverbial way, qualifying a following adjective or noun.

a. Examples of such combinations are not numerous in the Veda. Their accentuation is various, though the tone rests oftenest on the preposition. Thus, *ádhipati* *over-lord*, *áparūpa* *mis-form*, *prátiçatru* *opposing foe*, *prápada* *fore part of foot*, *prāṇapāt* *great-grandchild*, *vípakva* *quite done*, *sámpriya* *mutually dear*; *upajíhvikā* *side tongue* (with retraction of the accent of *jihvá*); *antardeçá* *intermediate direction*, *pradív* *forward heaven*, *prapitāmahá* (also *prápitāmaha*) *great-grandfather*, *pratijaná* *opponent*, *vyadhvā* *midway*. These compounds are more frequent with possessive value (below, 1305).

b. This use of the verbal prefixes is more common later, and some of them have a regular value in such compounds. Thus, *ati* denotes excess, as in *atidūra* *very far*, *atibhaya* *exceeding fear*, *átipūruṣa* (ÇB.) *chief man*; *adhi*, superiority, as in *adhidanta* *upper-tooth*, *adhistrī* *chief woman*; *abhi* is intensive, as in *abhinamra* *much incliving*, *abhinava* *span-new*, *abhirucira* *delightful*; *ā* signifies *somewhat*, as in *ākuṭila* *somewhat crooked*, *āñīla* *bluish*; *upa* denotes something accessory or secondary, as in *upapurāṇa* *additional Purāṇa*; *pari*, excess, as in *paridurbala* *very weak*; *prati*, opposition, as in *pratipakṣa* *opposing side*, *pratipustaka* *copy*; *vi*, variation or excess, as in *vidūra* *very far*, *vipāṇḍu* *greyish*, *vikṣudra* *respectively small*; *sam*, completeness, as in *sampakva* *quite ripe*.

1290. Other compounds with adverbial prior members are quite irregularly accented.

Thus, the compounds with *puru*, on the final (compare the participles with *puru*, 1284 b): as, *purudasmá*, *purupriyá*, *puruçcandrá*; those with *púnar*, on the prior member, as *púnarṇava*, *púnarmagha*, *púnaryuvan*, *púnarvasu* (but *punaḥsará* etc.); those with *satás*, *satíná*, *satyá*, the same, as *satómahant*, *satínámanyu*, *satyámugra*; a few combinations of nouns in *tṛ* and *ana* with adverbs akin with the prefixes, on the final syllable, as *puraëtr̥*, *puraḥsthātṛ*, *upariçayaná*, *prātaḥsavaná*; and miscellaneous cases are *mithóavadyapa*, *háriçcandra*, *álpaçayu*, *sādhvaryá*, *yācchreṣṭhá* and *yāvacchreṣṭhá*, *jyógāmayāvin*.

1291. One or two exceptional cases may be noted, as follows:

a. An adjective is sometimes preceded by a noun standing toward it in a quasi-adverbial relation expressive of comparison or likeness: e. g. *çúkababhru* (VS.) *parrot-brown*, *úrñāmṛdu* (TB.) *soft as wool*, *prāṇapriya* *dear as life*, *kuṣeçayarajomṛdu* *soft as lotus-pollen*, *bakālīna* *hidden like a heron*, *mattamātaṅgagāmin* *moving like a maddened elephant*.

b. An adjective is now and then qualified by another adjective: e. g. *kṛṣṇāita* *dark-gray*, *dhūmrāroḥita* *grayish red*: and compare the adjectives of intermediate direction, 1257 c.

c. The adjective *pūrva* is in the later language frequently used as final member of a compound in which its logical value is that of an adverb qualifying the other member (which is said to retain its own accent). Thus, *dṛṣṭapūrva* *previously seen*, *pariṇītapūrva* *already married*, *aparijñātapūrva* *not before known*, *somapītapūrva* *having formerly drunk soma*, *strīpūrva* *formerly a woman*.

III. Secondary Adjective Compounds.

1292. a. A compound having a noun as its final member very often wins secondarily the value of an adjective, being inflected in the three genders to agree with the noun which it qualifies, and used in all the constructions of an adjective.

b. This class of compounds, as was pointed out above (1247. III.), falls into the two divisions of A. Possessives, having their adjective character given them by addition of the idea of *possessing*; and B. those in which the final member is syntactically dependent on or governed by the prior member.

A. Possessive Compounds.

1293. The possessives are noun-compounds of the preceding class, determinatives, of all its various subdivisions, to which is given an adjective inflection, and which take on an adjective meaning of a kind which is most conveniently and accurately defined by adding having or possessing to the meaning of the determinative.

a. Thus: the dependent *sūryatejās* *sun's brightness* becomes the

possessive sūryatejas *possessing the brightness of the sun*; yajñakāmā *desire of sacrifice* becomes yajñākāma *having desire of sacrifice*; the descriptive bṛhadratha *great chariot* becomes the possessive bṛhadratha *having great chariots*; āhasta *not hand* becomes ahastā *handless*; durgandhi *ill savor* becomes durgāndhi *of ill savor*; and so on.

b. A copulative compound is not convertible into an adjective directly, any more than is a simple noun, but requires, like the latter, a possessive suffix or other means: e. g. vāgghastavant, doṣaguṇin, rajastamaska, aṣirogrīva, anṛgyajus. A very small number of exceptions, however, are found: thus, somendrá (TS.), stómapṛṣṭha (VS. TS.), hastyṛṣabha (ÇB.), dāsīniṣka (ChU.), and, later, cakramusala, sadānanda, saccidānanda, sāṅkhyayoga (as n. pr.), balābala, bhūtabhāutika.

c. The name given by the native grammarians to the possessive compounds is bahuvrīhi: the word is an example of the class, meaning *possessing much rice*.

d. The name "relative", instead of possessive, sometimes applied to this class, is an utter misnomer; since, though the meaning of such a compound (as of any attributive word) is easily cast into a relative form, its essential character lies in the possessive verb which has nevertheless to be added, or in the possessive case of the relative which must be used: thus, mahākavi and āyurdā, descriptive and dependent, are "relative" also, *who is a great poet*, and *that is life-giving*, but bṛhadratha, possessive, means *who has a great chariot*, or *whose is a great chariot*.

1294. a. That a noun, simple or compound, should be added to another noun, in an appositive way, with a value virtually attributive, and that such nouns should occasionally gain by frequent association and application an adjective form also, is natural enough, and occurs in many languages; the peculiarity of the Sanskrit formation lies in two things. First, that such use should have become a perfectly regular and indefinitely extensible one in the case of compounded words, so that any compound with noun-final may be turned without alteration into an adjective, while to a simple noun must be added an adjective-making suffix in order to adapt it to adjective use: for example, that while hasta must become hastin and bāhu must become bāhumant, hiraṇyahasta and mahābāhu change from noun to adjective value with no added ending. And second, that the relation of the qualified noun to the compound should have come to be so generally that of possession, not of likeness, nor of appurtenance, nor of any other relation which is as naturally involved in such a construction: that we may only say, for example, mahābāhuḥ puruṣaḥ *man with great arms*, and not also mahābāhur maṇiḥ *jewel for a great arm*, or mahābāhavaḥ cākhāḥ *branches like great arms*.

b. There are, however, in the older language a few derivative adjective compounds which imply the relation of appurtenance rather than that of possession, and which are with probability to be viewed as survivals of a state of things antecedent to the specialization of the general class as

possessive (compare the similar exceptions under possessive suffixes, 1230 g, 1233 f). Examples are: *viçvânara of or for all men, belonging to all* (and so *viçvâkṛṣṭi, -carṣaṇi, -kṣiti, -gotra, -manus, -āyu, and sarvāpaçu, saptāmānuṣa*), *viçvāçārada of every autumn*, *vipathá for bad roads*, *dvirājá [battle] of two kings*, *ácvaṇṛṣṭha carried on horseback*, *vīrápastya abiding with heroes*, *pūrṇámāsa at full moon*, *adévaka for no divinity*, *bahudevata or -tyà for many divinities*, *aparisaṁvatsara not lasting a fall year*, *ekādaçakapāla for eleven dishes*, *somendrá for Soma and Indra*. And the compounds with final member in *ana* mentioned at 1296 b are probably of the same character. But also in the later language, some of the so-called dvigu-compounds (1312) belong with these: so dvigu itself, as meaning *worth two cows*, *dvināu bought for two ships*; also occasional cases like *devāsura [saṁgrāma] of the gods and demons*, *narahaya of man and horse*, *cakramusala with discus and club*, *gurutalpa violating the teacher's bed*.

1295. The possessive compound is distinguished from its substrate, the determinative, generally by a difference of accent. This difference is not of the same nature in all the divisions of the class; but oftenest, the possessive has as a compound the natural accent of its prior member (as in most of the examples given above).

1296. Possessively used dependent compounds, or possessive dependents, are very much less common than those corresponding to the other division of determinatives.

a. Further examples are: *mayúraroman having the plumes of peacocks*, *agnítejas having the brightness of fire*, *jñatímukha wearing the aspect of relatives*, *pátikāma desiring a husband*, *hastipāda having an elephant's feet*, *rājanyàbandhu having kshatriyas for relatives*.

b. The accent is, as in the examples given, regularly that of the prior member, and exceptions are rare and of doubtful character. A few compounds with derivatives in *ana* have the accent of the final member: e. g. *indrapāna serving as drink for Indra*, *devasádana serving as seat for the gods*, *rayisthána being source of wealth*; but they contain no implication of possession, and are possibly in character, as in accent, dependent (but compare 1294 b). Also a few in *as*, as *nṛcákṣas men-beholding*, *nṛvāhas men-bearing*, *kṣetrasádhas field-prospering*, are probably to be judged in the same way.

1297. Possessively used descriptive compounds, or possessive descriptives, are extremely numerous and of every variety of character; and some kinds of combination which are rare in proper descriptive use are very common as possessives.

a. They will be taken up below in order, according to the character-

acter of the prior member — whether the noun-final be preceded by a qualifying adjective, or noun, or adverb.

1298. Possessive compounds in which a noun is preceded by a qualifying ordinary adjective are (as pointed out above, 1280 f) very much more common than descriptives of the same form.

a. They regularly and usually have the accent of their prior member: thus, *anyárūpa* of other form, *ugrābāhu* having powerful arms, *jīvāputra* having living sons, *dīrghācmaṣru* longbearded, *bṛhācchravas* of great renown, *bhūrimūla* many-rooted, *mahāvadhā* bearing a great weapon, *viṣvārūpa* having all forms, *ṣukrāvarṇa* of bright color, *ṣivābhimarṣana* of propitious touch, *satyāsaṁdha* of true promises, *sārvāṅga* whole-limbed, *svāyaças* having own glory, *hāritasraj* wearing yellow garlands.

b. Exceptions, however, in regard to accent are not rare (a seventh or eighth of the whole number, perhaps). Thus, the accent is sometimes that of the final member; especially with derivatives in *as*, as *tuvirādhas*, *purupéças*, *pr̥thupákṣas*, and others in which (as above, 1296 b) a determinative character may be suspected: thus, *urujrāyas* beside *urujrī*, *uruvyācas* beside *uruvyác*, and so on; but also with those of other final, as *ṛjuhāsta*, *ṣitikákṣa* etc., *kṛṣṇakārṇa*, *citrādṛṣika*, *tuviṣṣma*, *ṛjukrátu*, *pr̥thupárṣu*, *puruvártman*, *raghuyāman*, *vīḍupátman*. In a very few cases, the accent is retracted from the final to the first syllable of the second member: thus, *aṅhubhéda*, *tuvigríva*, *puruvíra*, *pururúpa*, *ṣitibāhu* (also *ṣitibāhú*). The largest class is that of compounds which take the accent upon their final syllable (in part, of course, not distinguishable from those which retain the accent of the final member): for example, *bahvanná*, *nīlanakhá*, *puruputrá*, *viṣvāṅgá*, *svapatí*, *tuvipratí*, *pr̥ṣiparní* f., *darṣataṣrí*, *pūtirajjú*, *asitajñú*, *pr̥thugmán*, *bahuprajás*.

c. The adjective *viṣva* *all*, as prior member of a compound (and also in derivation), changes its accent regularly to *viṣvá*; *sārva* *whole, all* does the same in a few cases.

1299. Possessive compounds with a participle preceding and qualifying the final noun-member are numerous, although such a compound with simple descriptive value is almost unknown. The accent is, with few exceptions, that of the prior member.

a. The participle is oftenest the passive one, in *ta* or *na*. Thus, *chinnápakṣa* with severed wing, *dhṛtārāṣṭra* of firmly held royalty, *hatámātr̥* whose mother is slain, *iddhāgni* whose fire is kindled, *uttānāhasta* with outstretched hand, *prāyatadakṣiṇa* having presented sacrificial gifts; and, with prefixed negative, *áriṣṭavīra* whose men are unharmed, *átaptatanu* of unburned substance, *ánabhimlātavarṇa* of untarnished color. Exceptions in regard to accent are very few: there have been noticed only *paryastākṣá*, *vyastakeṣí* f., *achinnaparṇá*.

b. Examples occur of a present participle in the same situation. In about half the (accentuated) instances, it gives its own accent to the compound: thus, dyutádyāman, dhṛṣádvarṇa etc., çucádratha, rúçadvatsa etc., bhrájajjanman etc., saṁyádvīra, stanáyadama, sádhadiṣṭi; in the others, the accent is drawn forward to the final syllable of the participle (as in the compounds with governing participle: below, 1309): thus, dravátpāṇi etc. (dravát also occurs as adverb), rapçádūdhan, svanádratha, arcáddhūma, bhandádiṣṭi, krandádiṣṭi. With these last agrees in form jarádaṣṭi *attaining old age, long-lived*; but its make-up, in view of its meaning, is anomalous.

c. The RV. has two compounds with the perfect middle participle as prior member: thus, yuyujānásapti *with harnessed coursers* (perhaps rather *having harnessed their coursers*), and dadṛçānápavi (with regular accent, instead of dádrçāna, as elsewhere irregularly in this participle) *with conspicuous wheel-rims*.

d. Of a nearly participial character is the prior element in çrútkarṇa (RV.) *of listening ear*; and with this are perhaps accordant dídyagni and stháraçman (RV., each once).

1300. Possessive compounds having a numeral as prior member are very common, and for the most part follow the same rule of accent which is followed by compounds with other adjectives: excepted are those beginning with dvi and tri, which accent in general the final member.

a. Examples with other numerals than dvi and tri are: ékacakra, ékaçīrṣan, ékapad, cáturaṅga, cátuṣpakṣa, páñcāṅguri, páñcāudana, śáḍaçva, śátpad, saptájihva, saptámātr, aṣṭápad, aṣṭáputra, návapad, návadvāra, dáçaçākha, dáçaçīrṣan, dvádaçāra, triṇçádara, çatáparvan, çatádant, sahástraṇāman, sahástramūla.

b. Exceptions in regard to accent are but few, and have the tone on the final syllable, whatever may be that belonging originally to the final member; they are mostly stems in final a, used by substitution for others in an, i, or a consonant: thus, caturakṣá etc. (akṣán or ákṣi: 431), śaḍahá etc. (áhan or áhar: 430 a), daçavṛṣá etc. (vṛṣan), ekarātrá etc. (rátri or rátrī), ekarcá etc. (rc); but also a few others, as śaḍyogá, aṣṭāyogá, çatārghá, sahasrārghá, ekapará (?).

c. The compounds with dvi and tri for the most part have the accent of their final member: thus, for example, dvijánman, dvidhāra, dvibándhu, dvivartaní, dvipád; tritántu, trinābhi, triçóka, trivárūtha, tricakrá, triçīrṣán, tripád. A number of words, however, follow the general analogy, and accent the numeral: thus, for example, dvípakṣa, dvíçavas, dvyāsyā, trísandhi, tryāra, tryāçir, and sometimes dvípad and trípad in AV. As in the other numeral compounds, a substituted stem in a is apt to take the accent on the final: thus, dvivṛṣá and trivṛṣá, dvirājá, dvirātrá, tryāyuṣá, tridivá; and a few of other

character with tri follow the same rule: thus, trikaçá, trināká, tribandhú, tryudhán, tribarhís, etc.

d. The neuter, or also the feminine, of numeral compounds is often used substantively, with a collective or abstract value, and the accent is then regularly on the final syllable: see below, 1312.

1301. Possessive compounds having as prior member a noun which has a quasi-adjective value in qualifying the final member are very frequent, and show certain specialities of usage.

a. Least peculiar is a noun of material as prior member (hardly to be reckoned as possessive dependents, because the relation of material is not regularly expressed by a case: 295): thus, híraṇyahasta *gold-handed*, híraṇyasraj *with golden garlands*, áyaḥsthūṇa *having brazen supports*, rajatánābhi *of silver navel*.

1302. Especially common is the use of a noun as prior member to qualify the other appositionally, or by way of equivalence (the occasional occurrence of determinatives of this character has been noticed above, 1280 d). These may conveniently be called appositional possessives. Their accent is that of the prior member, like the ordinary possessive descriptives.

a. Examples are: áçvaparṇa *horse-winged*, or *having horses as wings* (said of a chariot), bhúmigr̥ha *having the earth as house*, índrasakhi *having Indra for friend*, agníhotṛ *having Agni as priest*, gandharvápatnī *having a Gandharva for spouse*, çūrāputra *having hero-sons*, jarámṛtyu *having old age as mode of death*, living till old age, agnívāsas *fire-clad*, tadanta *ending with that*, cāracakṣus *using spies for eyes*, viṣṇuçarmanāman *named Vishnuçarman*; and, with pronoun instead of noun, tvádūta *having thee as messenger*, tādapas *having this for work*. Exceptions in regard to accent occur here, as in the more regular descriptive formation: thus, agnijihvá, vṛṣaṇaçvá, dhūmaçikhá, pavīnasá, asáunāma, tatkúla, etc.

b. Not infrequently, a substantively used adjective is the final member in such a compound: thus, índrajyeṣṭha *having Indra as chief*, mánaḥṣaṣṭha *having the mind as sixth*, sómaçreṣṭha *of which soma is best*, ekapará *of which the ace is highest* (?), ásthibhūyas *having bone as the larger part*, chiefly of bone, abhirūpabhūyiṣṭha *chiefly composed of worthy persons*, daçāvara *having ten as the lowest number*, cintāpara *having meditation as highest object or occupation*, devoted to meditation, niḥçvāsaparama *much addicted to sighing*.

c. Certain words are of especial frequency in the compounds here described, and have in part won a peculiar application. Thus:

d. With ādi *beginning* or ādika or ādya *first* are made compounds signifying the person or thing specified along with others, such a person or thing *et cetera*. For example, devā indrādayaḥ *the gods having Indra as first*, i. e. *the gods Indra etc.*, marīcyādīn munīn *Marīci and the other*

sages, svāyambhuvādyāḥ saptāi 'te manavaḥ *those seven Manus, Svāyambhuva etc.*, agniṣṭomādikān *the sacrifices Agnishtoma and so on*. Or the qualified noun is omitted, as in annapānendhanādīni *food, drink, fuel, etc.*, dānadharmādikaṁ caratu bhavān *let your honor practise liberality, religious rites, and the like*. The particles evam and iti are also sometimes used by substitution as prior members: thus, evamādi vacanam *words to this and the like effect*; ato 'ham bravāmi kartavyaḥ saṁcayo nityam ityādi *hence I say "accumulation is ever to be made" etc.*

e. Used in much the same way, but less often, is prabhṛti *beginning*: thus, viçvāvasuprabhṛtibhir gandharvāiḥ *with the Gandharvas Viçvāvasu etc.*; especially adverbially, in measurements of space and time, as tatprabhṛti or tataḥprabhṛti *thenceforward*.

f. Words meaning *foregoer, predecessor*, and the like — namely, pūrva, pūrvaka, puraḥsara, puraskṛta, purogama — are often employed in a similar manner, and especially adverbially, but for the most part to denote accompaniment, rather than antecedence, of that which is designated by the prior member of the compound: e. g. smitapūrvam *with a smile*, anāmayapraçnapūrvakam *with inquiries after health*, pitāmahapurogama *accompanied by the Great Father*.

g. The noun mātṛā *measure* stands as final of a compound which is used adjectively or in the substantive neuter to signify a limit that is not exceeded, and obtains thus the virtual value of *mere, only*: thus, jalamātreṇa vartayan *living by water only* (lit. *by that which has water for its measure or limit*), garbhacyutimātreṇa *by merely issuing from the womb*, prāṇyātrikamātraḥ syāt *let him be one possessing what does not exceed the preservation of life*; uktamātre tu vacane *but the words being merely uttered*.

h. The noun artha *object, purpose* is used at the end of a compound, in the adverbial accusative neuter, to signify *for the take of* or the like: thus, yajñasiddhyartham *in order to the accomplishment of the sacrifice* (lit. *in a manner having the accomplishment of the sacrifice as its object*), damayantyartham *for Damayantī's sake (with Damayantī as object)*.

i. Other examples are ābhā, kalpa, in the sense of *like, approaching*: thus, hemābha *gold-like*, mṛtakalpa *nearly dead*, pratipannakalpa *almost accomplished*; — vidhā, in the sense of *kind, sort*: thus, tvadvidha *of thy sort*, pūruṣavidha *of human kind*; — prāya, in the sense of *mostly, often*, and the like: thus, duḥkhaḥprāya *full of pain*, tṛṇaprāya *abounding in grass*, nirgamanaprāya *often going out*; — antara (in substantive neuter), in the sense of *other*: thus, deçāntara *another region* (lit. *that which has a difference of region*), janmāntarāṇi *other existences*, çākhāntare *in another text*.

1303. In appositional possessive compounds, the second member, if it designates a part of the body, sometimes logically signifies that part to which what is designated by the prior member belongs, that on or in which it is.

a. Thus, ghr̥tápr̥ṣṭha *butter-backed*, mādhujiḥva *honey-tongued*, niṣkāgrīva and maṇigrīva *necklace-necked*, pátrahasta *vessel-handed*, vájrabahu *lightning-armed*, ásṛṇmukha *blood-faced*, kīlālodhan *mead-uddered*, vājajāṭhara *sacrifice-bellied*, vāṣpakaṇvha *with tears in the throat*, ṣraddhāmanas *with faith in the heart*; with irregular accent, dhūmākṣ́ī f. *smoke-eyed*, aṣrumukhī f. *tear-faced*; and khādīhasta *ring-handed* (khādī). In the later language, such compounds are not infrequent with words meaning *hand*: thus, ṣastrapāṇi *having a sword in the hand*, laguḍahasta *carrying a staff*.

1304. Of possessive compounds having an adverbial element as prior member, the most numerous by far are those made with the inseparable prefixes. Their accent is various. Thus:

a. In compounds with the negative prefix *a* or *an* (in which the latter logically negatives the imported idea of possession), the accent is prevailing on the final syllable, without regard to the original accent of the final member. For example: anantá *having no end*, abalá *not possessing strength*, arathá *without chariot*, aṣraddhá *faithless*, amaṇí *without ornament*, aṣatrú *without a foe*, avarmán *not cuirassed*, adánt *toothless*, apád *footless*, atejás *without brightness*, anārambhaṇá *not to be gotten hold of*, apratimāná *incomparable*, aducchuná *bringing no harm*, apakṣapucchá *without sides or tail*.

b. But a number of examples (few in proportion to those already instanced) have the prefix accented (like the simple descriptives: 1288 a): thus, ákṣiti *indestructible*, águ *kineless*, ágopā *without shepherd*, ájīvana *lifeless*, ánāpi *without friends*, áciṣvī f. *without young*, ámṛtyu *deathless*, ábrahman *without priest*, ávyacas *without extension*, áhavis *without oblation*, and a few others; AV. has áprajas, but ÇB. aprajás. A very few have the accent on the penult: namely, açéśas, ajáni, and avíra (with retraction, from vīrá), apútra (do., from putrá); and AV. has abhrātṛ, but RV. abhrātṛ.

c. In compounds with the prefixes of praise and dispraise, *su* and *dus*, the accent is in the great majority of cases that of the final member: thus, sukálpa *of easy make*, subhága *well portioned*, sunákṣatra *of propitious star*, suputrá *having excellent sons*, sugopá *well-shepherded*, sukīrtí *of good fame*, sugándhi *fragrant*, subāhú *well-armed*, suyámtu *of easy control*, sukrātu *of good capacity*, suhārd *good-hearted*, susráj *well-garlanded*, suvárman *well-cuirassed*, suvāsas *well-clad*, supráṇīti *well guiding*; durbhága *ill-portioned*, durd́ṣṭika *of evil aspect*, durdhára *hard to restrain*, durgándhi *ill-savored*, durādhí *of evil designs*, durdhártu *hard to restrain*, duṣṭárītu *hard to excel*, duratyétu *hard to cross*, durdhúr *ill-yoked*, durṇáman *ill-named*, durvāsas *ill-clad*.

d. There are, however, a not inconsiderable number of instances in which the accent of these compounds is upon the final syllable: thus, suṣiprá *well-lipped*, svapatyá *of good progeny*, susamkāçá *of good aspect*, svaṅgurí *well-fingered*, sviṣú *having good arrows*, supívás *well fattened*;

and compounds with derivatives in *ana*, as *suvijñanā of easy discernment*, *sūpasarpaṇā of easy approach*, *duçcyavanā hard to shake*; and AV. has *suphalā* and *subandhú* against RV. *suphála* and *subándhu*. Like *avíra*, *suvíra* shows retraction of accent. Only *dúrāçir* has the tone on the prefix.

e. On the whole, the distinction by accent of possessive from determinative is less clearly shown in the words made with *su* and *dus* than in any other body of compounds.

f. The associative prefix *sa* or (less often) *sahá* is treated like an adjective element, and itself takes the accent in a possessive compound: thus, *sákratu of joint will*, *sánāman of like name*, *sárūpa of similar form*, *sáyoni having a common origin*, *sávācas of assenting words*, *sátoka having progeny along, with one's progeny*, *sábrāhmaṇa together with the Brahmans*, *sámūla with the root*, *sántardeça with the intermediate directions*; *sahágopa with the shepherd*, *sahávatsa accompanied by one's young*, *sahápatnī having her husband with her*, *sahápūruṣa along with our men*.

g. In RV. (save in a doubtful case or two), only *saha* in such compounds gives the meaning of *having with one, accompanied by*; and, since *saha* governs the instrumental, the words beginning with it might be of the prepositional class (below, 1310). But in AV. both *sa* and *saha* have this value (as illustrated by examples given above); and in the later language, the combinations with *sa* are much the more numerous.

h. There are a few exceptions, in which the accent is that of the final member: thus, *sajóṣa*, *sajóṣas*, *sadṛça*, *sapráthas*, *sabādhas*, *samanyú* and AV. shows the accent on the final syllable in *sāṅgá* (ÇB. *sāṅga*) and the substantivized (1312) *savidyutá*.

i. Possessive compounds with the exclamatory prefixes *ka* etc. are too few in the older language to furnish ground for any rule as to accent: *kábandha* is perhaps an example of such.

1305. Possessive compounds in which a verbal prefix is used as prior member with adjective value, qualifying a noun as final member, are found even in the oldest language, and are rather more common later (compare the descriptive compounds, above, 1289; and the prepositional, below, 1310). They usually have the accent of the prefix.

a. Most common are those made with *pra*, *vi*, and *sam*; thus, for example, *prámahas having exceeding might*, *práçravas widely famed*; *vígrāva of wry neck*, *vyàṅga having limbs away or gone, limbless*, *vījāni wifeless*, *víparva* and *víparus jointless*, *vyàdhvan of wide ways*, *vímanas both of wide mind and mindless*, *vívācas of discordant speech*; *sámpatnī having one's husband along*, *sámmanas of accordant mind*, *sáṁsahasra accompanied by a thousand*, *sámokas of joint abode*. Examples of others are: *átyūrmī surging over*, *ádhipastra having a garment on*, *ádhyardha with a half over*, *ádhyakṣa overseer*, *ápodaka without water*, *abhírūpa*

of adapted character, ávatoka that has aborted, ámanas of favorable mind, údojas of exalted power, nímanyu of assuaged fury, nírmāya free from guile, nírhasta handless.

b. In a comparatively small number of cases, the accent is otherwise, and generally on the final: thus, *avakeçá, upamanyú, viçaphá, viçikhá* (AV. *víçikha*), *vikarṇá, saṁmātṛ*, etc.; in an instance or two, that of the final member: thus, *saṁçiçvarī having a common young*.

1306. Possessive compounds with an ordinary adverb as prior member are also found in every period of the language. They usually have the accent which belongs to the adverb as independent word.

a. Examples are: *ántyūti bringing near help, avódeva calling down the gods, itáūti helping on this side, ihácitta with mind directed hither, dakṣiṇatáskaparda wearing the braid on the right side, nánādharmān of various character, purudhápratīka of manifold aspect, viçvátomukha with faces on all sides, sadyáūti of immediate aid, víṣurūpa of various form, smádūdhan with udder, adhástāllakṣman with mark below, ekatomukha with face on one side, táthāvidha of such sort.*

b. An instance or two of irregular accent are met with: thus, *purorathá whose chariot is foremost, evaṁkratú so-minded.*

1307. a. It was pointed out in the preceding chapter (1222 h) that the indifferent suffix *ka* is often added to a pure possessive compound, to help the conversion of the compounded stem into an adjective; especially, where the final of the stem is less usual or manageable in adjective inflection.

b. Also, the compound possessive stem occasionally takes further a possessive-making suffix: thus, *yaçobhagín, suçiprin, varavarṇin, dīrghasūtrin, puṇyavāgbuddhikarmin, sutásomavant, tādṛgrūpavant, trayodaçadvīpavant, nārapālakuṇḍalavant, amṛtabuddhimant.*

c. The frequent changes which are undergone by the final of a stem occurring at the end of a compound are noticed further on (1315).

1308. The possessive compounds are not always used in the later language with the simple value of qualifying adjective; often they have a pregnant sense, and become the equivalents of dependent clauses; or the *having* which is implied in them obtains virtually the value of our *having* as sign of past time.

a. Thus, for example, *prāptayāuvana possessing attained adolescence, i.e. having arrived at adolescence; anadhigataçāstra with unstudied books, i. e. who has neglected study; kṛtaprayatna possessing performed effort, i. e. on whom effort is expended; aṅgulīyakadarçanāvasāna having the sight of the ring as termination, i. e. destined to end on sight of the ring; uddhṛtaviṣādaçalyaḥ having an extracted despair-arrow, i. e. when I shall have extracted the barb of despair; çrutavistāraḥ kriyatām let him be made with heard details, i. e. let him be informed of the details; dṛṣṭavīryo me rāmaḥ Rāma has seen my prowess, bhagnabhāṇḍo dvijo yathā like*

the Brahman that broke the pots, ukhāṇṛtam ṛṣim yathā like a sage that has spoken falsely.

B. Compounds with Governed Final Member.

1309. Participial Compounds. This group of compounds, in which the prior member is a present participle and the final member its object, is a small one (toward thirty examples), and exclusively Vedic — indeed, almost limited to the oldest Vedic (of the Rig-Veda). The accent is on the final syllable of the participle, whatever may have been the latter's accent as an independent word.

a. Examples are: vidádvasu *winning good things*, kṣayádvīra *governing* (kṣáyant) *heroes*, taráddvevas *overcoming* (tárant) *foes*, ābharádvasu *bringing good things*, codayánmati *inciting* (codáyant) *devotion*, mandayátsakha *rejoicing friends*, dhārayátkavi *sustaining sages*, mañhayádrayi *bestowing wealth*.

b. In sādadyoni *sitting in the lap* (sādat quite anomalously for sīdat or sadat), and sprhayávarṇa *emulous of color*, the case-relation of the final member is other than accusative. In patayán mandayátsakham (RV. i. 4. 7), patayát, with accent changed accordingly, represents patayátsakham, the final member being understood from the following word. Vidádaçva is to be inferred from its derivative vāídadaçvi. Of this formation appear to be jamádagni, pratádvasu (prathád?), and trasádasyu (for trasáddasyu?). It was noticed above (1299 c) that yuyujánásapti is capable of being understood as a unique compound of like character, with a perfect instead of present participle; sādhadīṣṭi, on account of its accent, is probably possessive.

1310. Prepositional Compounds. By this name may be conveniently called those combinations in which the prior member is a particle having true prepositional value, and the final member is a noun governed by it. Such combinations, though few in number as compared with other classes of compounds, are not rare, either in the earlier language or in the later. Their accent is so various that no rule can be set up respecting it.

a. Examples are: átyavi *passing through the wool*, atirātrá *overnight*, atimātrá *exceeding measure*; ádhiratha *lying on the chariot*, adhigavá *belonging to the cow*; adhaspadá *under the feet*, adhoakṣa *below the axle*; ánupatha *following the road*, anupūrvá *following the one preceding, one after another*, anuṣatyá *in accordance with truth*, anukúla *down stream*, etc.; ántaspatha (with anomalously changed accent of antár), *within the way*, antardāvá *within the flame (?)*, antarhastá *in the hand*; ántigrha *near the house*; apiprāṇa *accompanying the breath* (prāṇá), ápivrata *concerned with the ceremony*, apiçarvará *bordering on night*, apikarṇá *next the ear*; abhijñú *reaching to the knee*, abhívīra and abhísatvan *overcoming heroes*; ápathi *on the road*, ádeva *going to the gods*, ājarasá

reaching old age, ādvādaśá up to twelve; upakakṣá reaching to the armpits, upottamá next to last, penultimate; upáribudhna above the bottom, upárimartya rising above mortals; tirojaná beyond people; niṣsālá cut of the house; paripád (about the feet) snare, parihastá about the hand, bracelet; parókṣa out of sight, parómātra beyond measure, parogavyū́tí beyond the fields, paraḥsahasrá (páraḥsahasra, ÇB.) above a thousand; purokṣá in front of the eyes; pratidosá toward evening, pratilomá against the grain, pratikúla up stream, pratyákṣa before the eyes; bahiḥparidhí outside the enclosure; vípathi outside the road; samakṣá close to the eyes, in sight.

b. Compounds of this character are in the later language especially common with *adhi*: thus, *adhyātma relating to the soul or self, adhiyajña relating to the sacrifice*, etc.

c. A suffixal *a* is sometimes added to a final consonant, as in *upānasá on the wagon, āvyuṣá until daybreak*. In a few instances, the suffix *ya* is taken (see above, 1212 m); and in one word the suffix *in*: thus, *paripantín besetting the path*.

d. The prepositional compounds are especially liable to adverbial use: see below, 1313 b.

Adjective Compounds as Nouns and as Adverbs.

1311. Compound adjectives, like simple ones, are freely used substantively as abstracts and collectives, especially in the neuter, less often in the feminine; and they are also much used adverbially, especially in the accusative neuter.

a. The matter is entitled to special notice only because certain forms of combination have become of special frequency in these uses, and because the Hindu grammarians have made out of them distinct classes of compounds, with separate names. There is nothing in the older language which by its own merits would call for particular remark under this head.

1312. The substantively used compounds having a numeral as prior member, along with, in part, the adjective compounds themselves, are treated by the Hindus as a separate class, called *dvigu*.

a. The name is a sample of the class, and means *of two cows*, said to be used in the sense of *worth two cows*; as also *pañcagu bought for five cows, dvināu worth two ships, páñcakapāla made in five cups*, and so on.

b. Vedic examples of numeral abstracts and collectives are: *dvirājá [combat] of two kings, triyugá three ages, triyojaná space of three leagues, tridivá the triple heaven, pañcayojaná space of five leagues, ṣaḍahá six days' time, daṣāṅgulá ten fingers' breadth*; and, with suffix *ya*, *sahasrāhṇyá thousand days' journey*. Others, not numeral, but essentially of the same character, are, for example: *anamitrá freedom from enemies, nikilbiṣá freedom from guilt, savidyutá thunderstorm, víhrdaya heartlessness*, and

sáhr̥daya *heartiness*, sudivá *prosperity by day*, sumṛgá and suçakuná *prosperity with beasts and birds*. Feminines of like use are not quotable from RV. or AV.; later occur such as triçatī *three hundred* (481), trilokī *the three worlds*, pañcamūlī *aggregate of five roots*.

c. As the examples show, the accent of words thus used is various; but it is more prevailing on the final syllable than in the adjective compounds in their ordinary use.

1313. Those adverbially used accusatives of secondary adjective compounds which have an indeclinable or particle as prior member are reckoned by the Hindu grammarians as a separate class of compounds, and called by the name avyayībhāva.

a. This term is a derivative from the compound verb (1094) made up of avyaya *uninflected* and √bhū, and means *conversion to an indeclinable*.

b. The prepositional compounds (1310) are especially frequent in this use: thus, for example, anuṣvadhám *by one's own will*, abhipūrvám and parovarám *in succession*, ādvādaçám *up to twelve*, pratidoşám *at evening*, samakşám *in sight*. Instances given by the grammarians are: adihari *upon Hari*, uparājam *with the king*, upanadam or upanadi *near the river*, pratyagni *toward the fire*, pratiniçam *every night*, nirmakşikam *with freedom from flies*.

c. A large and important class is made up of words having a relative adverb, especially yathā, as prior member. Thus, for example, yathāvaçám *as one chooses* (váça *will*), yathākṛtám *as done [before]*, according to usage, yathānāmá *by name*, yathābhāgám *according to several portion*, yathāṅgám and yathāparú *limb by limb*, yatrakāmam *whither one will*, yāvanmātrám *in some measure*, yāvajjivám *as long as one lives*, yāvatsābandhu *according to the number of relations*.

d. These compounds are not common in the old language; RV. has with yathā only four of them, AV. only ten; and no such compound is used adjectively except yācchreṣṭha RV., yāvacchreṣṭhá AV. *as good as possible*. ÇB. has yathākārín, yathācārín, yáthākāma, yáthākratu as adjectives (followed in each case by a correlative táthā). The adjective use in the later language also is quite rare as compared with the adverbial.

e. Other cases than the accusative occasionally occur: thus, instrumental, as yathāsarṁkhyena, yathāçaktyā, yathepsayā, yathāpratiguṇāis; and ablative, as yathāucityāt.

f. A class of adverbs of frequent occurrence is made with sa: e. g. sakopam *angrily*, sādaram *respectfully*, sasmitam *with a smile*, saviçeşam *especially*.

g. Other adverbial compounds of equivalent character occur earlier, and are common later: for example, ṛtekarmám *without work*, nānārathám *on different chariots*, ubhayadyús *two days in succession*, citrapadakramam *with wonderful progress*, pradānapūrvam *with accompaniment of a gift*; etc.

Anomalous Compounds.

1314. As in every language, compounds are now and then met with which are of anomalous character, as exhibiting combinations of elements not usually put together, or not after such a method, or for such a purpose. Some of these, especially of those occurring in the old language, may well be noticed here.

a. Compounds having a particle as final member: as, apratí *having no equal*, tuvipratí *mightily opposing*, átathā *refusing*, vitatha *false*, yathātathā *as it really is*, sūsaha *prosperity in companionship*, aniha and anamutra *having no here and no yonder*, etc.

b. Agglomerations of two or more elements out of phrases: thus, ahampūrvā *eager to be first*, ahamuttarā *contest for preeminence*, mamasatyā *contest for possession*, itihāsā *legend* (iti hā "sa thus, indeed, it was), naghāmārā and naghāriṣā *not, surely, dying or coming to harm*, kuvītsa *some unknown person*, tadīdartha *having just that as aim*, kūcidarthín *having errands in every direction*, kācitkarā *doing all sorts of things*, kuhacidvīd *wherever found*, akutaṣṭidbhaya *out of all danger*, yadbhaviṣya *What-is-to-be*, etc.

c. Agglomerations in which the prior member retains a syntactic form: as, anyonya and paraspara *one another*, avaraspara *inverted*.

d. Aggregations with the natural order inverted: e. g. pitāmahā and tatāmahā *grandfather*, putrahata *with his sons slain*, jānvāknā and -jānvakta *with bended knee*, dantajāta *provided with teeth*, somāpahṛtā *deprived of soma*, pañktīrādhās *having groups of gifts*, gojara *old bull*, agrajihvā, agranāsikā, etc. *tip of the tongue, of the nose*, etc. Compare also 1291 c.

e. Aggregations of particles were pointed out above (1111 a); also (1122 e) cases in which ná and mǎ are used in composition.

f. In late Sanskrit (perhaps after the false analogy of combinations like tad anu, viewed as tadanu, with tad as stem instead of neuter accusative), a preposition is sometimes compounded as final member with the noun governed by it: e. g. vṛkṣādhās or vṛkṣādhastāt *under the tree*, dantāntaḥ *between the teeth*, bhavanopari *on top of the house*, satyavinā *without truth*.

Stem-finals altered in Composition.

1315. Transfers to an a-form of declension from other less common finals, which are not rare in independent use, are especially common in the final members of compounds. Thus:

a. A stem in an often drops its final consonant (compare 429 a, 437): examples are akṣa, adhva, arva, astha, aha, takṣa, brahma, mūrdha, rāja, loma, vṛṣa, çva, saktha, sāma.

b. An *i* or *ī* is changed to *a*: examples are *aṅgula*, *aṅjala*, *açra*, *kukṣa*, *khāra*, *nada*, *nābha*, *bhūma*, *rātra*, *sakha*.

c. An *a* is added after a final consonant, and sometimes after an *u*-vowel or a diphthong (compare 399): examples are *ṛca*, *tvaca*; *uda*, *pada*, *çarada*; *apa*; *dhura*, *pura*; *ahna*, *açmana*, *ūdhna*, *rājña*; *anasa*, *ayasa*, *āyuṣa*, *urasa*, *enasa*, *tamasa*, *manasa*, *yajuṣa*, *rajasa*, *rahasa*, *varcasa*, *vedasa*, *çreyasa*, *sarasa*; *bhruva*, *diva*, *gava*, *gāva*, *nāva*.

d. More sporadic and anomalous cases are such as: *apanna-da* (-dant), *pañca-ṣa* (-ṣaṣ), *ajāika-pa* (-pad), *çata-bhiṣā* (-bhiṣāj), *vipaç-ci* (-cit), *yathā-pura* (-puras).

Loose Construction with Compounds.

1316. In the looseness of unlimited and fortuitous combination, especially in the later language, it is by no means rare that a word in composition has an independent word in the sentence depending upon or qualifying it alone, rather than the compound of which it forms a part.

a. Examples are: *rāyāskāmo viçvāpsnyasya* (RV.) *desirous of all-enjoyable wealth*; *aṅhór urucákriḥ* (RV.) *causing relief from distress*; *mahāadhané árbhe* (RV.) *in great contest and in small*; *svāhām çrāiṣṭhyakāmaḥ* (AÇS.) *desiring superiority over his fellows*; *brāhmaṇāñ chrutaçīlavṛttasampannān ekena vā* (AGS.) *Brahmans endowed with learning, character, and behavior, or with one [of the three]*; *cittapramāthinī bālā devānām api* (MBh.) *a girl disturbing the minds even of the gods*; *vasiṣṭhavacanād ṛṣyaçṛṅgasya co 'bhayoḥ* (R.) *at the words of both Vasishtha and Rishyaçringa*, *sītādravyāpaharaṇe çastrāṇām āuṣadhasya ca* (M.) *in case of stealing ploughing implements or weapons or medicament*; *jyotiṣām madhyacārī* (H.) *moving in the midst of the stars*; *dārupātraṁ ca mṛnmayam* (M.) *a wooden and an earthen vessel*; *syandane dattadṛṣṭiḥ* (Ç.) *with eye fixed on the chariot*; *tasminn ullambitamṛtaḥ* (KSS.) *dead and hanging upon it*.

APPENDIX.

A. The following text is given (as proposed above, 3) in order to illustrate by an example the variety of Sanskrit type in use. It is given twice over, and a transliteration into European letters follows. The text is a fable extracted from the first book of the Hitopadeṣa.

The Hunter, Deer, Boar, and Jackal.

आसीत्कल्याणकटकवास्तव्यो भैरवो नाम व्याधः । स चै-
कदा मांसलुब्धः सन्धनुरादाय विन्ध्याटवीमध्यं गतः । तत्र तेन
मृग एको व्यापादितः । मृगमादाय गच्छता तेन घोराकृतिः
सूकरो दृष्टः । ततस्तेन मृगं भूमौ निधाय सूकरः शरेण हतः ।
सूकरेणाप्यागत्य प्रलयघनघोरगर्जनं कृत्वा स व्याधो मुष्कदेशे
हतश्छिन्नद्रुम इव पपात । यतः ।

जलमग्निं विषं शस्त्रं सुव्याधी पतनं गिरेः ।

निमित्तं किञ्चिदासाद्य देही प्राणैर्विमुच्यते ॥

अचान्तरे दीर्घरावो नाम जम्बुकः परिभ्रमन्नाहारार्थी तान्मृ-
तान्मृगव्याधसूकरानपश्यत् । आलोक्याचिन्तयदसौ । अहो
भाग्यम् । महद्भोज्यं समुपस्थितम् । अथवा ।

अचिन्तितानि दुःखानि यथैवायान्ति देहिनाम् ।

सुखान्यपि तथा मन्ये दैवमचातिरिच्यते ॥

भवतु । एषां मांसेर्मांसत्रयं समधिकं भोजनं मे भविष्यति । ततः प्रथममुभु-
चायां तावदिमानि स्वादूनि मांसानि विहाय कोदण्डाटनीलपं स्नायुबन्धं खा-
दामीत्युक्त्वा तथाकरोत् । ततश्छिन्ने स्नायुबन्धे द्रुतमुत्पतितेन धनुषा हृदि
भित्तः स दीर्घरावः पञ्चत्वं गतः । अतो ऽहं ब्रवीमि ।

कर्तव्यः संचयो नित्यं कर्तव्यो नातिसंचयः ।

अतिसंचयदोषेण धनुषा जम्बुको हतः ॥

आसीत्कल्याणकटकवास्तव्यो भैरवो नाम व्याधः। स चैकदा
मांसलुब्धः सन्धनुरादाय विन्ध्याटवीमध्ये गतः। तत्र तेन मृग एको
व्यापादितः। मृगमादाय गङ्गा तेन घोराकृतिः सूकरो दृष्टः।
ततस्तेन मृगं भूमौ निधाय सूकरः श्रेण हतः। सूकरेणाप्यागत्य
प्रलयधनघोरगर्जनं कृत्वा स व्याधो मुष्कदेशे हतश्चिन्नद्रुम इव
पपात। यतः।

जलमग्निं विषं शस्त्रं क्षुद्याधी पतनं गिरेः।

निमित्तं किञ्चिदासाद्य देही प्राणैर्विमुच्यते ॥

अत्रान्तरे दीर्घरावो नाम जम्बुकः परिश्रमनाहारार्थी तान्मृता
न्मृगव्याधसूकरानपश्यत्। आलोक्याचिन्तयत्सौ। अहो भाग्यम्।
मरुद्भोज्यं समुपस्थितम्। अवथा।

अचिन्तितानि दुःखानि यथैवायान्ति देहिनाम्।

सुखान्यपि तथा मन्ये दैवमत्रातिरिच्यते ॥

भवतु। एषां मांसैर्मांसत्रयं समधिकं भोजनं मे भविष्यति। ततः प्रथममुभयां
तावदिमानि स्वादूनि मांसानि विहाय कोदण्डाटनीलानं सायुखन्धं खादामीत्युक्त्वा
तथाकरोत्। ततश्छिन्ने सायुखन्धे हतमुत्पतितेन धनुषा हृदि भिद्यः स दीर्घरावः पञ्चत्वं
गतः। अतो ऽहं ब्रवीमि।

कर्तव्यः संचयो नित्यं कर्तव्यो नातिसंचयः।

अतिसंचयदीपेण धनुषा जम्बुको हतः ॥

āsīt kalyāṇakaṭakavāstavyo bhāiravo nāma vyādhaḥ. sa cāi 'kadā māṃsalubdhaḥ san dhanur
ādāya vindhyāṭavīmadhyaṃ gataḥ. tatra tena mṛga eko vyāpāditaḥ. mṛgam ādāya gachatā tena
ghorākṛtiḥ sūkaro dṛṣṭaḥ. tatas tena mṛgam bhūmāu nidhāya sūkaraḥ çareṇa hataḥ. sūkareṇā 'py
āgatya pralayaghanaghoragarjanam kṛtvā sa vyādho muṣkadeçe hataç chinnadruma iva papāta.
yataḥ:

jalam agniṃ viṣaṃ çastram kṣudvyādhī patanam gireḥ,

nimittam kimcid āsādy dehī prāṇair vimucyate.

atrāntare dīrgharāvo nāma jambukaḥ paribhramann āhārārthī tān mṛtān mṛgavyādhasūkarān
apaṇyat. ālokyā 'cintayad asāu: aho bhāgyam. mahad bhojyaṁ samupasthitam. athavā:

acintitāni duḥkhāni yathāi 'va "yānti dehinām,

sukhāny api tathā manye dāivam atrā 'tiricyate.

bhavatu; eṣām māṁsāir māsatrayaṁ samadhikam bhojanam me bhavisyati. tataḥ
prathamabubhuksāyām tāvad imāni svādūni māṁsāni vihāya kodaṇḍāṭanīlagnāṁ snāyubandhaṁ
khādāmī 'ty uktvā tathā 'karot. tataḥ chinne snāyubandhe drutam utpatitena dhanuṣā hṛdi
bhinnāḥ sa dīrgharāvaḥ pañcatvaṁ gataḥ. ato 'ham bravīmi:

kartavyaḥ saṁcayo nityaṁ kartavyo nā 'tisaṁcayaḥ;

atisaṁcayadoṣeṇa dhanuṣā jambuko hataḥ.

B. The following text is given in order to illustrate by a sufficient example the usual method
of marking accent, as described above (87). In the manuscripts, the accent-signs are almost
invariably added in red ink. The text is a hymn extracted from the tenth or last book of the
Rig-Veda; it is regarded by the tradition as uttered by Vāc *voice* (i. e. *the Word* or *Logos*).

Hymn (X. 125) from the Rig-Veda.

अ॒हं रु॒द्रेभि॒र्वसु॑भिश्च॒राम्य॒हमा॑दि॒त्यैरु॒त वि॒श्वदे॑वैः ।

अ॒हं मि॒त्रावरु॑णो॒भा वि॒भर्म्य॑ह॒मिन्द्रा॑ग्नी अ॒हम॑श्चि॒नोभा ॥१॥

अ॒हं सोम॑मा॒ह्नसं॑ वि॒भर्म्य॑हं त्वष्टा॑रमु॒त पू॒षणं॑ भग॑म् ।

अ॒हं द॑धामि॒ द्रवि॑णं ह॒विष्म॑ते सु॒प्राव्ये॑३०० यज॑मानाय सु॒न्वते ॥२॥

अ॒हं रा॒ष्ट्रीं स॑गम॑नी वसू॑नां चि॒कि॒तुषी॑ प्रथ॒मा य॒ज्ञिया॑नाम् ।

तां मा॑ दे॒वा ब्य॑दधुः पु॒रु॒त्रा भूरि॑स्थात्रां भूर्या॑वि॒श्यन्ती॑म् ॥३॥

मया॑ सो अ॒न्नम॑त्ति॒ यो वि॒पश्य॑ति॒ यः प्रा॑णिति॒ य ईं॑ शृ॒णोत्यु॑क्तम् ।

अ॒मन्त॑वो मां त उ॒प क्षि॑यन्ति श्रु॒धि श्रु॑त अ॒द्भिवं॑ ते॒ वदामि॑ ॥४॥

अ॒हमे॒व स्व॒यमि॒दं व॑दामि॒ जुष्टं॑ दे॒वेभि॑रु॒त मानु॑षेभिः ।

यं का॒मये॑ तंतमु॒ग्रं कृ॑णोमि तं ब्र॒ह्माणं॑ तमृ॒षि तं सु॑मे॒धाम् ॥५॥

अ॒हं रु॒द्राय॑ धनु॒रा त॑नोमि ब्रह्म॒द्विषे॑ शर॒वे ह॑न्त्वा उ ।

अ॒हं ज॒नाय॑ स॒मदं॑ कृ॒णोम्य॒हं द्या॒वापृ॒थि॒वी आ वि॒वेश ॥६॥

अ॒हं सु॒वे पि॒तरं॑स॒स्य मूर्ध॑न्म॒म योनि॑र॒प्स्व१००॑न्तः संमु॒द्रे ।

ततो॑ वि तिष्ठे भुव॒नानु॑ वि॒श्वोता॑मूं द्यां व॒र्ष्म॑णोप॒ स्पृश॑मि ॥७॥

अ॒हमे॒व वातं॑ इ॒व प्र वा॑म्यार॒भमा॑णा भुव॒नानि॑ वि॒श्वा ।

प॒रो दि॒वा प॒र ए॒ना पृ॒थि॒व्यैता॑व॒ती म॒हि॒ना सं ब॑भूव ॥८॥

ahám rudrébhir vásubhiḥ carāmy ahám ādityāir utá viṣvādevāiḥ, ahám mitráváruṇo 'bhā bibharmy ahám indrāgní ahám aṣvino 'bhā. 1.

ahám sómam āhanásam bibharmy ahám tváṣṭāram utá pūṣānam bhágam, ahám dadhāmi dráviṇam havíṣmate suprávyē yájamānāya sunvaté. 2.

ahám ráṣṭrī saṁgámanī vásūnān cikitúṣī prathamā yajñíyānām, tám mā devávy àdadhuḥ purutrā bhúristhātrām bhúry āveçáyantīm. 3.

máyā só ánnam atti yó vipáçyati yáḥ práṇiti yá īm çṛṇóty uktám, amantávo mām tá úpa kṛiyanti çrudhí çruta çraddhivām te vadāmi. 4.

ahám evá svayám idám vadāmi juṣṭam devébhir utá mānuṣebhiḥ, yám kāmáye tám-tam ugrám kṛṇomi tám brahmāṇam tám íṣim tám sumedhām. 5.

ahám rudráya dhánur á tanomi brahmadvíṣe çárove hántavá u, ahám jánāya samádam kṛṇomy ahám dyāvāpṛthiví á viveça. 6.

ahám suve pitáram asya mūrdhán máma yónir apsv àntáḥ samudré, táto ví tiṣṭhe bhúvanā 'nu víçvo 'tá 'múm dyám varṣmáṇó 'pa sprçāmi. 7.

ahám evá vāta iva prá vāmy ārābhamāṇā bhúvanāni víçvā, paró divá pará enā pṛthivyāi 'tāvatī mahinā sám babhūva. 8.

C. On the next page is given, in systematic arrangement, a synopsis of all the modes and tenses recognized as normally to be made from every root in its primary conjugation, for the two common roots bhū *be* and kṛ *make* (only the precative middle and periphrastic future middle are bracketed, as never really occurring). Added, in each case, are the most important of the verbal nouns and adjectives, the only ones which it is needful to give as part of every verb-system.

√bhū <i>be.</i>	Present-system.	Perfect-system.	Aorist-system.	Future-systems.	
Active:					
Indic.	bhāvāmi	babhūva		bhaviṣyāmi	bhavitāsmi
Opt.	bhāveyam		bhūyāsam		
Impv.	bhāvāni				
Pple.	bhāvānt	babhūvāṅs		bhaviṣyānt	
Augm.-Pret.	ābhavam		ābhūvam	ābhaviṣyam	
Middle:					
Indic.	bhāve	babhūvé		bhaviṣyé	[bhavitāhe]
Opt.	bhāveya		[bhaviṣiyá]		
Impv.	bhāvāi				
Pple.	bhāvāmāna	babhūvāná		bhaviṣyāmāṇa	
Augm.-Pret.	ābhave		ābhaviṣi		
Pass. pple bhūtá; — Infin. bhávitum; — Gerunds bhūtvá, -bhūya.					
√kṛ <i>make.</i>					
Active:					
Indic.	karómi	cakāra		kariṣyāmi	kartāsmi
Opt.	kuryām		kriyāsam		
Impv.	karāvāṇi				
Pple.	kurvānt	cakṛvāṅs		kariṣyānt	
Augm.-Pret.	ākaravam		ākārṣam	ākariṣyam	
Middle:					
Indic.	kurvé	cakré		kariṣyé	[kartāhe]
Opt.	kurvīyá		[kṛṣiyá]		
Impv.	karāvāi				
Pple.	kurvāṇá	cakrāṇá		kariṣyāmāṇa	
Augm.-Pret.	ākurvi		ākṛṣi		
Pass.pple kṛtá; — Infin. kártum; — Gerunds kṛtvá, -kṛtya.					

SANSKRIT INDEX.

The references in both Indexes are to paragraphs. In this one, many abbreviations are used; but it is believed that they will be found self-explaining. For example, "pron." is pronunciation; "euph." points out anything relating to phonetic form or euphonic combination; "pres.", to present-system; "int." is intensive; "des." is desiderative; and so on. A prefixed hyphen denotes a suffix; one appended, a prefix.

a, pron. etc., 19–22, combination with following vowel, 126, 127; loss of initial after e and o, 135, 175 a; resulting accent, 135 a; not liable to guṇa, 235 a; lightened to i or u, 249; lost in weakened syllable, 253.

a, as union-vowel in tense-inflection, 621 c, 631.

-a, primy, 1148; scdry, 1208, 1209; -a in -aka, 1181; — a-stems, dcln, 326–34; from rdcl ā-st., 333, 354; in compsn, 1270, 1287 a.

a- or an-, negative, 1121 a–c; in compsn, 1283 ff., 1288 a, 1304 a, b.

-aka, prmy, 1181; aka-stems sometimes govern accus., 271 c; scdry, 1222 j, k.

-aki, see 1221 b.

√akṣ, pf., 788.

akṣara, 8.

akṣán, ákṣi, 343 f, 431.

aghoṣa, 34 b.

√ac or añc, pf., 788 b; pple, 956 b, 967 c; stems ending with, 407–10.

-aj, 219 a, 383 k. 5.

√añc, see ac.

√añj, euph., 219 a; pres., 694, 687; pf., 788; tvā-ger'd, 991 d.

-aṇḍa, 1201 a.

-at, 383 k. 3 — and see -ant.

-ata, see 1176 e.

-ati, see 1157 g.

-atu, see 1161 d.

-atnu, see 1196 c.

-atra, see 1185 e.

-atha, see 1163 c.

-athu, see 1164.

√ad, impf., 621 c; caus., 1042 g.

-ad, 383 k. 4.

adhi, loss of initial, 1087 a.

adhika, in odd numbers, 477 a, 478 b.

√an, euph., 192 b; pres., 631.

-an, 1160.

an-, see a-.

-ana, 1150; stems in compan, 1271, 1296 b.

anaḍvāh, euph., 224 b; dcln, 404.

-anā, 1150.

-ani, 1159.

-anī, 1150.

-anīya, 962, 965, 1215 b.

anu, changed to ānu after an-, 1087 b.

-anu, see 1162 c.

anudātta, 81.

anudāttatara, 90 c.

anunāsika, 36 a, 73 a.

anuvrata, with accus., 272.

anuṣṭúbh, euph., 151 d.

anusvāra, pron. etc., 70–3; transliteration, 73 c.

anehās, dcln, 419.

-ant or -at, of pples, 534, 1172; their dcln, 443 ff.

-anta, 1209 d.

antaḥsthā, 31, 51 a.

antara, in compsn, 1302 i.

-anti, see 1221 c.

anyá, dcln, 523.

ap or āp, dcln, 151 e, 393.

api, loss of initial, 1087 a.

-abha, 1199.

abhinihita-circumflex, 84 e.

√am, pres., 634; aor., 862.

-am, infln. in, 970 a; gerund, 995.

-amā, see 1166 b.

-aye, infln. in, 970 f, 975 b.

-ara, see 1188 d.

arí, dcln, 343 g.

-aru, see 1192 a.

√arth, so-called, 104 b, 1056, 1067.

artha, in compsn, 1302 h.

aryamán, dcln, 426 a.

árvan, árvant, 455.

√arh, pres., 613; pf., 788; aor., 862; desid., 1029 b.

-ala, see 1189 b.

alpaprāṇa, 37 d.

√av, aor., 838, 908; pple, 954 e; inf., 968 e; ya-ger'd, 992 c.

ava, loss of initial, 1087 a.

-ava, see 1190 a.

avagraha, 16.

√avadhīr, so-called, 104 b.

avayáj, avayá, 406.

avyayībhāva, 1111 d, 1313.

√aṣ *attain*, pf., 788; aor., 834 b, 837–9, 847; fut., 936 c; inf., 968 d.

√aṣ *eat*, pf., 803 a des., 1029 b, 1031; caus., 1042 n.

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ERRATA.

A few entirely obvious misprints are passed without notice.

p. 5,	10 c,	last l.	—	for क	read	की
42,	125 b,	l. 3	—	for (for prayuga)	"	(for prayuga?).
67,	199 c,	l. 3	—	for IB.	"	JB.
92,	276 a,	l. 2	—	for <i>ledgues</i>	"	<i>leagues</i> .
94,	281 b,	l. 4	—	read 'kṣaḥṛdayaṁ dātā rājā 'ṣvahr-.		
99,	296 b,	l. 10	—	for <i>deceivlng</i>	read	<i>deceiving</i> .
	297 b,	l. 5	—	" <i>mpart</i>	"	<i>impart</i> .
100,		l. 2	—	" <i>preceive</i>	"	<i>perceive</i> .
112,	324,	l. 4	—	" prajākāmā	"	prajākāma.
128,	margin		—	" 356-]	"	354-].
131,	361 e,	l. 6	—	" 314	"	314 b.
	f,	l. 4	—	" bor hugú (f. -gú, JB.)	"	bahugú (f. gú, TB.).
144,	383 k. 1,	l. 3	—	" n	"	in
147,	391 f,	l. 1	—	" <i>milki</i>	"	<i>-milking</i> .
148,	391 g,	l. 2	—	" çāmam	"	-çāmam.
169,	458,	l. 5	—	" i	"	is.
195,	509,	l. 8		(accus. sing. masc.) for yām	"	yām.
209,	555 a,	last l.	—	for urther	"	further.
213,	568,	l. 7	—	" iḍhvam	"	iḍhvám.
261,	718,	l. 7		(3d. pl. mid.) for क्रीणते	"	क्रीणते
263,	731,	l. 3	—	for √mi	"	√mī.
264,	733 a,	l. 4	—	for -systems	"	-stems.
281,	785 a,	l. 2	—	" dyu	"	dyut.
355,	990 a,	l. 9	—	" E.	"	S.
357,	992 c,	l. 2	—	" gúhya	"	guhya.
379,	1042 b,	l. 11	—	read No forms made without strengthening have a causative value in the older language.		
383,	1045,	l. 6	—	for चक्र	read	चक्रे.
396,	1077,	l. 10	—	" abhi	"	abhí.
397,	1079,	l. 6	—	read <i>the sound</i> hiṅg, <i>low</i> , <i>murmur</i> .		
399,	1084 a,	l. 4	—	for áruhat	read	áruhat.
431,	1155 e,	l. 3	—	" -amri	"	-mamri.
467,	1222 c,	l. 7	—	" 516 d	"	516 b.
472,	1230 g,	l. 3	—	" <i>ike</i>	"	<i>like</i> .
477,	1238 b,	l. 2	—	" cases-forms	"	case-forms.
500,	1288 g,	l. 1	—	" sa	"	sa.

511,	1308 a,	l. 1	—	" ukhānṛtam	"	uktānṛtam.
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